TRANSITIVITY IN SHIPIBO-KONIBO GRAMMAR

by

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A DISSERTATION

Presented to the Department of Linguistics
and the Graduate School of the University of Oregon
in partial fulfillment of the requirements
for the degree of
Doctor of Philosophy

June 2003

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An Abstract of the Dissertation of

Pilar M. Valenzuela for the degree of Doctor of Philosophy

in the Department of Linguistics to be taken June 2003

Title: TRANSITIVITY IN SHIPIBO-KONIBO GRAMMAR

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The present dissertation is devoted to the documentation of Shipibo-Konibo (SK), a Panoan language from the Peruvian Amazon, and is divided into two parts. Part I offers the first account of the phonology, morphology, syntax, and discourse-pragmatic aspects of SK. This substantial grammatical description begins with an introduction to the Shipibo people and their language, as well as to the Panoan family.

Part II provides an in-depth, typologically-informed treatment of selected morpho-syntactic topics, all of which cluster around transitivity, a central notion in SK grammar. The formal and functional properties of causative, applicative, reflexive, and reciprocal constructions are investigated, and a distinction between "transitivity agreement" versus "participant agreement" phenomena is established for the first time in Panoan linguistics.

Participant agreement (PA), defined as the use of a distinct inflectional morphology on adjuncts in correlation with the syntactic function of the participant they are predicated

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of, is probably the typologically most salient feature of Panoan grammar. Three basic PA patterns are identified in SK, all exhibiting an overall tripartite distribution (i.e., different forms for agreement with S, A, and O arguments); also different adjunct types are proposed based on the agreement patterns their members allow. Furthermore, a tentative correlation between adjunct types and varying degrees of participant-orientedness versus event-orientedness is offered. The overall tripartite distribution of the PA system (which diachronically involves case agreement) contrasts with the dominant ergative-absolutive case-marking on NPs, yielding a previously undescribed type of split-ergativity.

In addition, a comparative and diachronic analysis of PA is offered, thus contributing to the reconstruction of Proto-Panoan morpho-syntax; the presence in the ancestor language of PA and a tripartite case-marking system in which both A and S arguments receive overt marking are posited. A handful of grammatical morphemes are reconstructed.

The properties associated with transitivity in SK, such as symmetricality of objects, intransitive and transitive semantically generic verbs, a minimal transitivity requirement for taking the malefactive applicative, a transitivity agreement requirement in verb serialization, and especially PA, constitute features of significant typological interest, contributing to an understanding of transitivity and the various and complex ways it is encoded in language.

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ACKNOWLEDGMENTS

First and foremost I wish to express my gratitude to all the Shipibo people who generously shared their knowledge, customs, language and a little bit of their lives with me. Although it is impossible to mention all of them, I would like to record my special gratitude to the following persons (Shipibo names are followed by Spanish names and villages of origin within parentheses): Metsá Sani (Javier Ramírez Bardales, Pao Ian), Ronin Siná (Caco Macaya), Mokan Rona (Nuevo Nazareth del Pozo), Kai Weni (Nuevo Edén), Inin Niwe (César Pérez, Vencedor), Ranin'Ama (Agustina Valera Rojas, San Francisco), Ronon Meni (Evaristo López Magín, Yarina), Inkan Soi (Kruger Pacaya Cruz, Bawanisho), Yoi Sani (Luis Márquez Pinedo, "Dos Unidos" de Pachitea), Kesin Beso (Oseas Barbarán Sánchez, Callería), Korin Piko (Juan Chávez, Colonia de Caco), Isá Bea (Orlando Mori Barbarán, Contamana), Barin Meni (Carlos Panduro, Nuevo Edén), Ranin Nita (Hagner Valera Rodríguez, San Francisco), and Sanken Bari (Rafael Urquía Odicio, Yarina). I also thank all former Shipibo students and *especialistas* from the Programa de Formación de Maestros Bilingües de la Amazonía Peruana with whom I had the opportunity to work.

In addition, I wish to express sincere appreciation to the following indigenous organizations for having granted me the privilege of working with them and / or for helping me in different ways during my stays in the Shipibo territory: Asociación Interétnica de Desarrollo de la Selva Peruana (AIDESEP), Oficina Regional de AIDESEP-Ucayali,

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Proyecto de Titulación de Tierras-Ucayali, Federación de Comunidades Nativas del Ucayali y Afluentes (FECONAU), Federación de Comunidades Nativas del Bajo Ucayali (FECONBU), Asociación de Medicina Tradicional (AMETRA-Ucayali). I also wish to thank the conductors of the Shipibo radio programs "Shinanya Joni" and "Non Joi." It is my hope that some of the scientific findings of this work be later used in Shipibo education, the development of Shipibo-Konibo, and the strengthening of Shipibo identity and pride.

Turning now to the non-Shipibo world, special thanks are due to Prof. Doris Payne, who was involved in this project since its inception and served as Chair of my Dissertation Committee. *Mil gracias* to Prof. Bernard Comrie, who guided different steps of this work by reviewing each chapter as I wrote it, and who reminded me that "there is life after the dissertation." My thanks also to the other members of my Committee for all their useful comments, to Prof. Susan Guion for comments on the phonology section, and in general to the professors of the Linguistics Department at the University of Oregon for "taking languages seriously." I am also grateful to Eva Schultze-Berndt for comments and suggestions on the discussion of participant agreement.

Most special thanks go to my son Pedro Pablo Zea Valenzuela, Wexá Bari, who accompanied me through Iquitos, the United States, and Germany during all the years of my work at the Programa de Formación de Maestros Bilingües de la Amazonía Peruana, my graduate studies at the University of Oregon, and my doctoral fellowship at the Max Planck Institute for Evolutionary Anthropology. Infinite thanks are due to my parents,

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Pedro Valenzuela and Clorinda Bismarck de Valenzuela, for their love, care, and unconditional support to all my initiatives and projects.

The completion of my Ph.D. program could not have been possible without the generous financial support from the Max Planck Institute for Evolutionary Anthropology in Leipzig, the Inter-American Foundation, the Target of Opportunity "Laurel" Award granted by the University of Oregon, and the Department of Linguistics at the same university. Their confidence in my work served also as emotional support during the times when non-linguistic factors made the completion of this task seem overwhelming. I am also very grateful to Prof. Sally Thomason and the Linguistics Department at the University of Michigan for hosting me during the fall of 2001, providing me with such a friendly and motivating environment.

Ichabires iráke to my panologist friends, especially Jacques Tournon (Ino Pabiki), for sharing their work, knowledge and insights with me; foremost we all share the same fascination for the "Core People." I also wish to thank my Latin American colleagues and friends who gave me a lot of encouragement during the time of my graduate studies, particularly Zarina Estrada from the Universidad de Sonora and Verónica Grondona from Eastern Michigan University. Last but not least, I would like to thank Oliver Iggesen for his help, company, interminable political and linguistic discussions, and caring love.

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AGRADECIMIENTOS

Nato tee pikota riki ea Piróainoax, Istáros Onírosainoax itan Arimániainoax icha baritia teeta. Jakonshamankin maton joi onani itanribi jakonakin shinanbanon, jaskáaxon joi onanti kirika chibaanan (*lingüística*) tanabokin. Jaskáribi Shipibo joi en tanai itai wetsa joibo betan.

Jakoinrama riki nato tee, ikaxbi nato tee en aká riki jatíbi Shipibo jonibo shinantaana, maton joi jaskáribi maton axé keyómayamai kopí:

- Yoxanshokobo itan yosishokobo, moatian axébopari chibankanai kopí.
- Jatíbi titabo, papabo, netetibi maton joi maton bakebo axeai kopí.
- Jatíbi axeamisbo, netetibi jaton onan shinan chopeaketaanan, jakonakin bakebo jaton joinbo yoyo ati itan wishati axeai kopí.
- Bakebo, jabo kopíkaya maton joi, axé japari kai.
- Nato koshibo, jemabaon mai koiranai, jaskáribi maton *derecho* kopí yoyo ikaibo.
- Jainoaxribi jaton joi itan jaton main paranan reteanani koshibo. Nato Ronkáto, jaabo kopí rama kamanbi mato jakonbires jake.

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Chonka rabé baritia riki nato tee en akin peoni, jatí baritiaribi iki ea Shipibo betan raenani peokoni. Nato tee en akaitianra icha Shipibo jonibaon itan *institucionesbaon* ea akinai. Nato riki jawetikan jane: FORMABIAP primera, segunda, tercera promoción de maestros shipibos, FECONAU, FECONBU, Oficina Regional de AIDESEP-Ucayali, Proyecto de Titulación de Tierras, AIDESEP-Ucayali, AMETRA-Ucayali, "Shinanya Joni", "Non Joi", Comunidad Nativa de Vencedor (Panchá Tawa Jema, Piski), Metsá Sani (Javier Ramírez Bardales, Pao Ian), Ronin Siná (Caco Macaya), Mokan Rona (Nuevo Nazareth del Pozo), Kai Weni (Nuevo Edén), Inin Niwe (César Pérez, Vencedor), Ranin'Ama (Agustina Valera Rojas, San Francisco), Ronon Meni (Evaristo López Magín, Yarina), Inkan Soi (Kruger Pacaya Cruz, Bawanisho), Yoi Sani (Luis Márquez Pinedo, "Dos Unidos" de Pachitea), Kesin Beso (Oseas Barbarán Sánchez, Callería), Korin Piko (Juan Chávez, Colonia de Caco), Isá Bea (Orlando Mori Barbarán, Contamana), Barin Meni (Carlos Panduro, Nuevo Edén), Ranin Nita (Hagner Valera Rodríguez, San Francisco), and Sanken Bari (Rafael Urquía Odicio, Yarina).

Jatíbishamanra en matoki shinanyamai. Ea ichabires *disculpa*nkanwe, jawe keská ikax ea jatíribibaon shinanbenoke mato janetinin. Ichabires iráke!

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A Pedro, Clorinda, Pedro Pablo y Arabela Urpi.

Jatíbi Shipibo Jonibaona.

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CHAPTER 1

INTRODUCTION

1.1. Purpose of the Study

The purpose of the present study is two-fold. First, this work provides a substantial and fairly accessible description of Shipibo-Konibo, a Panoan language spoken by circa 30,000 people settled along the Ucayali River and its main tributaries in the Peruvian Amazon; Shipibo-Konibo phonology, morphology, syntax, and discourse aspects are described in Part I employing fairly standard linguistic concepts and terminology. This grammatical treatment of Shipibo-Konibo (henceforth, also SK) is long overdue especially taking into account its large number of speakers by Amazonian standards, the early contacts between the Ucayali Panoans and the Spanish-speaking world, the importance of SK for Panoan studies, and the relevance of the latter for our understanding of indigenous South American linguistics and cultural history. At the same time, Part I provides the reader with the necessary background for the detailed discussion of specific topics developed in the second half of the dissertation.

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Part II investigates a selection of topics in Shipibo-Konibo morpho-syntax; these topics cluster around the notion of transitivity and related phenomena. To the extent that this has been possible, the studies combine functional and structural definitions, include a typologically-informed characterization of the topic in question, and in some cases follow a comparative perspective and propose a diachronic explanation.

Transitivity is a central notion in Panoan grammar. In SK, most verb roots are inherently intransitive or transitive and require explicit derivational morphology to alter their basic valence. This transitivity distinction has important consequences for the syntax of the clause as manifested in the argument structure and case-marking frame; transitivity also determines the selection of pro-verbs, affective applicatives, alternate forms of certain verb stems and affixes, and phasal verbs. In addition, the transitivity status of the (matrix) verb plays a major role in the selection of distinct inflectional morphology obligatorily present in the switch-reference system and certain non-clausal adjuncts.

The features mentioned above have been attested in other languages across the world. For example, ergative-absolutive case-marking systems and transitivity-associated inflectional morphology (case-markers) on adjuncts are found in some Australian Aboriginal languages (e.g., Austin 1988, Austin 1995, Austin and Bresnan 1996, among others); Dulong / Rawang (Tibeto-Burman) exhibits auxiliaries that agree in transitivity with their semantically main verbs (LaPolla 2000); the Tzotzil (Mayan) applicative imposes a minimal transitivity requirement on its base verb (Aissen 1983); and Tukanoan languages have distinct intransitive, transitive, and ditransitive pro-verbs

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(Johnson and Levinsohn 1990). Nevertheless, the details of these constructions and the specific ways in which they relate to other parts of the linguistic system, the diachronic paths along which they might have arisen, the presence of all these complex phenomena in a single language, and the pervasiveness with which they are attested in discourse may be unique to SK and Panoan grammar. As illustration, compare the following pair of sentences. While example (1) is headed by the derived intransitive verb stem *rete-anan-*, in (2) *rete-* remains transitive; the different types of agreement triggered by this distinction are given in italics:

(1) Ja-ska-r[a]-ai-n *peo-kot-ax*-kaya-ki *i*-káti-kan-ai
that-SIML-*ra*-S-DS begin-MID-PSSS-CONTRST-HSY2 do.I-PST4-PL-INC

Shipibo-bo betan Kashibo-*bo*-ki rete-anan-*i*.
Shipibo-PL and Kashibo-PL:ABS-HSY2 kill-REC-SSSS
'It is said that because of this, the Shipibo and the Kashibo began to fight against each other.'

(2) Ja-ska-r[a]-ai-n *peo-xon*-kaya-ki *a*-káti-kan-ai
that-SIML-*ra*-S-DS begin-PSSA-CONTRST-HSY2 do.T-PST4-PL-INC

Shipibo-*baon* Kashibo-bo-ki rete-*kin*.
Shipibo-PL :ERG Kashibo-PL:ABS-HSY2 kill-SSSA
'It is said that because of this the Shipibo began to kill the Kashibo.'

It is expected that the detailed treatment of the topics included in this work will contribute not only to the documentation of Shipibo-Konibo and Panoan languages, but also to linguistic theory, typological studies, and studies of language change. The discussion provided in the different chapters will support current linguistic hypotheses in some cases but disconfirm them or call for modifications in others. For example, without

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the present study it would be possible to claim that if a language exhibits agreement on adjuncts, it also exhibits agreement across NP elements (Schultze-Berndt and Himmelmann, to appear). To my knowledge, this work provides the only documented counterexample to this proposed implicational universal.

1.2. Organization of the Study

The present study is organized as follows. In the remainder of this introductory chapter, I present an overview of the Shipibo people and their language, and an introduction to the Panoan family of languages. Next, I refer to the theoretical framework within which I operate, the methodology employed in the study, and the data on which it is based.

Chapters 2-14 offer an account of SK grammar, with topics treated in separate chapters being dealt with in a more succinct fashion. Chapter 2 characterizes SK in terms of well-known typologies and provides a pre-view of its most salient features. Chapter 3 is devoted to the phonology and morpho-phonology, and introduces the practical transcription to be employed in Chapters 4-19. Chapter 4 treats the morphological and related processes available to SK, whereas Chapter 5 offers an overview of its word classes. Chapters 6 and 7 are devoted to the description of nouns, verbs and the phrases of which they are the head. Chapter 8 describes the morphology and syntax of simple clauses.

Chapters 9 and 10 treat combinations of clauses of different syntactic status; Chapter 9 deals with clause-chaining and the SK switch-reference system, while Chapter

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10 deals with different types of nominalized clauses such as relative, complement, and adverbial clauses. Chapter 11 treats combinations of clauses with the same syntactic status and is divided into conjunction, disjunction, and adversative functions. Chapter 12 pulls together constructions treated in various previous chapters in order to discuss grammatical relations. This grammatical account of SK closes with a discussion on evidentiality and epistemic modality, and some notes on discourse organization.

Chapters 15-20 constitute the second part of the present study in which selected topics are investigated in depth. Chapter 15 is a general treatment of transitivity in SK. Chapters 16 and 17 offer an account of valence-increasing mechanisms and deal with causative and applicative constructions, respectively. Chapter 18 focuses on detransitivization and is divided into middle and reciprocal constructions. Chapter 19 describes participant orientation agreement in SK; while Chapter 20 presents a survey of this feature in the Panoan family, a diachronic reconstruction of the agreement morphemes, and an outline of the possible grammaticalization path along which this interesting feature might have developed. Finally, Chapter 21 subsumes the major findings of the study.

1.3. The Shipibo People

Most speakers of Shipibo-Konibo (the origin of the hyphenated name is discussed below) identify themselves as ethnic Shipibo. This section deals with different aspects of Shipibo territory, way of life, and history.

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1.3.1. Location

The Shipibo, or *Jonikon* 'Core People', are a Panoan ethnic group. They live in the Peruvian Montaña, between approximately six and ten degrees south latitude, and seventy-four to seventy-five degrees west longitude. In terms of Peruvian political demarcation, the circa 130 Shipibo villages are located in the Departments of Ucayali (Coronel Portillo Province), Loreto (Ucayali Province), and marginally in the Department of Huánuco (Puerto Inca Province). There is also a small group of Shipibo who were forced to move to the Department of Madre de Dios during the times of the "rubber boom" and remained there.

Other neighboring Panoan peoples are the Kapanawa and Amawaka, located to the east of the Shipibo, and the Kashibo-Kakataibo located to the west. Neighboring non-Panoan peoples are the Tupian Kokama to the north, and several Arawak groups to the west and south (Amuesha, Asheninka, Ashaninka, Machiguenga, and Piro) (Eakin, Lauriault, and Boonstra 1986:2). Map 1 shows the general location of the Shipibo territory.

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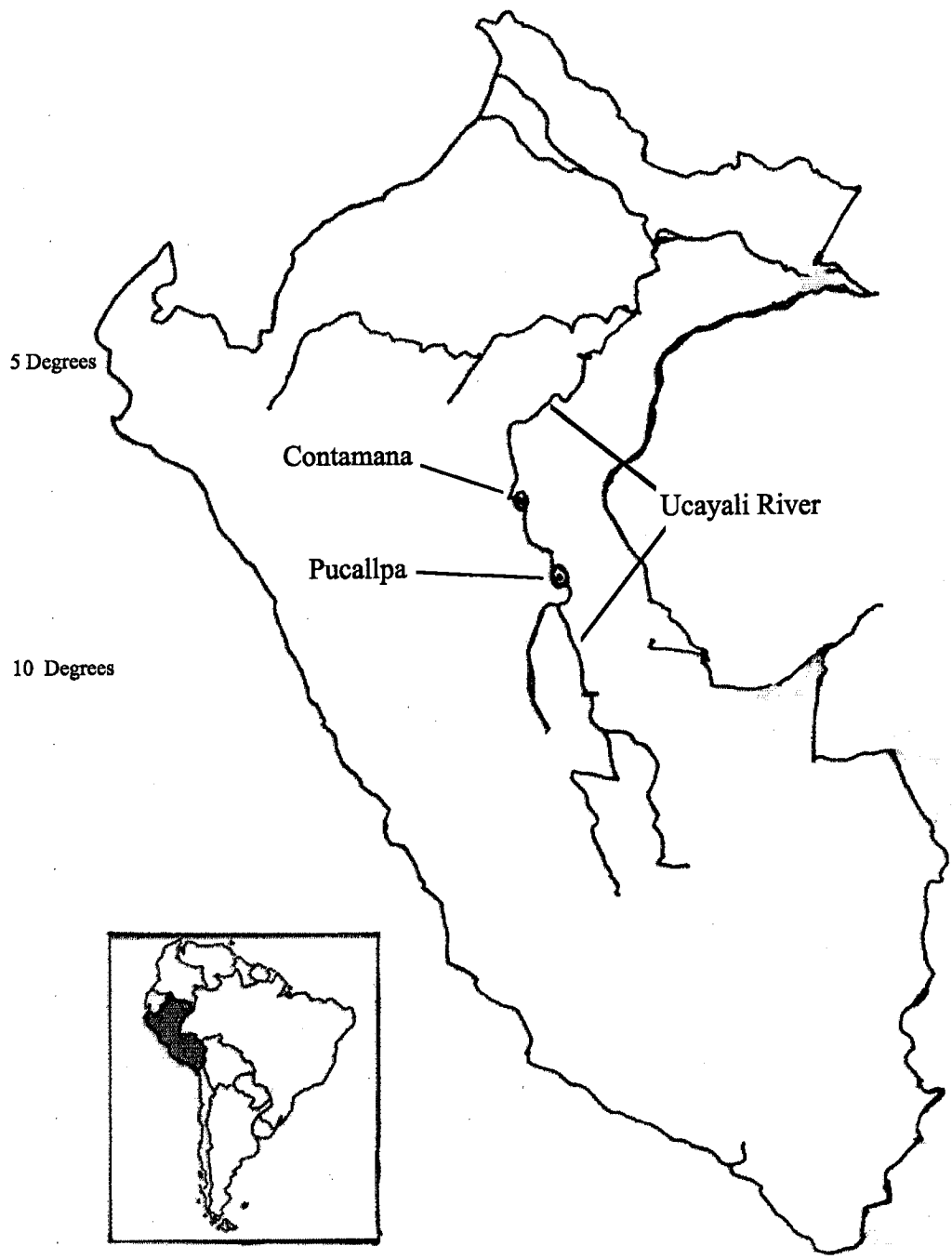
Map 1.1. Approximate Location of the Shipibo Territory



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1.3.2. Demography

There is no general agreement with regard to the size of the Shipibo population; thus, recent estimates vary from 16,085 (Instituto Nacional de Estadística e Informática 1993) to as high as 40,000 (Tournon and Cauper 1994:30). According to indigenous organizations, as well as social researchers, the results from the last Peruvian national census (Instituto Nacional de Estadística e Informática 1993) greatly underestimated the Shipibo population, and their actual number might be close to 30,000.

Despite this lack of agreement, the Shipibo are by far the most numerous people among the Panoan and the third most numerous of the Peruvian Amazon, after the Ashaninka (Arawak family) and the Aguaruna (Jivaroan family) (Instituto Nacional de Estadística e Informática 1993).

1.3.3. Habitat

Unlike other Panoans, the Shipibo are dominantly riverine people. Most of them are settled along the meandering Ucayali River and its main tributaries and ox-bow lakes. In fact, the Shipibo consider themselves *kikin Paro ibo* 'the very owners of the Ucayali'. The Ucayali is a 1,900 kilometers (1,200 miles) long white-water river formed by the confluence of the Tambo and Urubamba rivers, which flow down from the southern Peruvian Andes. Near Iquitos, the Ucayali joins the Marañón River, thus giving birth to

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the upper Amazon. It has been claimed that, in comparison to the interfluvial cultures, riverine cultures depended heavily on agriculture of the floodplain area. Therefore, riverine cultures tended to be sedentary, lived in larger groups, and achieved more complex levels of social organization (Meggers 1971).

The Ucayali area is a floodplain of around 170 meters above sea level on the central Ucayali. "To the east lies the Contamana Range; to the west are the highlands stemming from the peaks of the Azul and Ventanilla mountains and further south are the foothills of the Andes" (Eakin, Lauriault, and Boonstra 1986:1).

Two marked seasons can be distinguished: the relatively dry season or *baritia* 'sun season', which occurs, roughly, from April to September, and the rainy season or *jenetia* 'flowing water season', from October to March. Only approximately ten percent of the terrain in the Shipibo area is covered by water in late August or early September; during this time, canoe travelling is difficult, but fishing is easiest. On the other hand, at the height of the rainy season, it is estimated that as much as ninety-nine percent of Shipibo territory can be covered by water (Bergman 1974:210, Roe 1982:33-34).

1.3.4. Shipibo, Konibo, and Xetebo

As mentioned above, the Shipibo refer to themselves as *Jonikon*, a term deriving from *joni* 'people' and *ikon* 'core, true, real'. Variations from this term are used by other Panoan peoples such as the Kashinawa, and some Yaminawa and Amawaka subgroups (Erikson et alia 1994:6). In the past, the *Jonikon* considered themselves as three different

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ethnic units: *Konibo*, Eel Ones; *Shipibo*, Tamarin Monkey Ones; and *Xetebo*, *Rinahuis* or Buzzard Ones. It can be said that before their fusion, the Xetebo were located farthest north on the lower Ucayali, the Konibo farthest south on the upper Ucayali, and the Shipibo in between these two groups.[1]

According to Trudell (1993:93), the Shipibo have always been the largest and most dominant of the three ethnic units. This observation, however, does not coincide with Brinton's (1891:289) statement in the sense that, towards the end of the XIX century, the Konibos were the largest of the Panoan tribes, constituting "the greater part of the natives the traveller encounters on the Ucayali." Similarly, Shell (1975:26) claims that Konibo speakers are more numerous than those speaking Shipibo. The Konibo have always exhibited great cultural and linguistic similarity with the Shipibo, and at present the separation between the two groups has been practically erased due to extensive intermarriage (Eakin, Lauriault, and Boonstra 1986:1). As for the Xetebo, its population has been greatly reduced during the last two centuries due to diseases and warfare; a remnant has been integrated into the Shipibo society through conquest and intermarriage. It has been reported that the Xetebo felt ashamed of being identified as such and preferred to be called Shipibo instead (Shell 1975:26). Currently, these three formerly distinct ethnic groups constitute a single people who call themselves "Shipibo." The fusion of the Shipibo and Konibo has taken place in the last decades. As late as the 1960s, it has been reported that the Konibo considered it an offence to be called Shipibo,

[1] But cf. Shell (1975:26) who states that the Konibo live both to the south and to the north of the Shipibo.

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and vice versa (Shell, op. cit.:26); Heath (ms.) makes reference to the "marked hostilities" existing between these two groups.[2]

As a consequence of the process described here, written sources published until the first half of the XX century refer to the language spoken by these groups separately, while the hyphenated name Shipibo-Conibo (or Shipibo-Konibo) was coined later. At present, there are Native speakers, particularly from the Lower and Middle Ucayali, who prefer to refer to their language simply as Shipibo.

1.3.5. On the Origin of the Name Shipibo

The following is an English version of a text in which the origin of the ethnic name Shipibo is explained.[3]

> In remote times, the people who are presently called Shipibo lived in small settlements composed of three to four houses inhabited by close relatives. Although various diseases affected the Native population then, the people had developed the necessary knowledge to control them. One day, however, a family group heard someone approaching, playing the drums. At first, they thought it was a delegation sent by a neighboring family group to invite them to an *Ani Xeati* (girl's puberty rite). But when reaching the shore to welcome the

[2] During one stay in a village on the upper Ucayali (Nuevo Nazareth del Pozo, a.k.a. *Paro Toro Jema*) in December of 1990, a middle-aged man whom I treated as "Shipibo" clarified to me that he was rather a "*kikin Konibo*," i.e. a 'true or legitimate Konibo.'

[3] I am indebted to Pesin Rate (Rosa Pinedo) and Yoi Sani (Luis Márquez Pinedo) for sharing this story.

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delegation, they could not see anybody. The members of the family group soon realized that the newcomers were a group of malefic winged spirits, with horrible faces and huge ears; they had brought with them a new and very dangerous disease, later known as the *chami* disease. Sitting on the roofs of the houses, the malefic spirits observed how the people who contracted the disease suffered from vomit and diarrhea. The people did not know how to fight against the *chami* disease, and many of them succumbed to it. Then, the malefic spirits left the settlements with the intention to return the next year. Fearing the *chami* disease, the people decided to live in larger settlements.

One day, a great shaman saw in his *ayahuasca* vision that the *chami* spirits were coming back and hurried to warn the rest of the people. Gathering them in a large house, the great shaman pronounced the following words: "The Tamarin people spread themselves over the earth!" Pronouncing these words the great shaman turned the people into tamarin monkeys (i.e., *shipi* in SK) which immediately started to climb up the trees. Next, the great shaman covered himself with a big jar. When the *chami* spirits arrived, they could not find anybody. Thinking that there were no more people left alive in the settlements, the malefic spirits left for good. At this very moment, the great shaman came out and turned the tamarin monkeys back into people. This is how the Shipibo survived the dangerous *chami* disease and acquired their ethnic name.

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1.3.6. Subsistence Activities

The Shipibo's primary subsistence activities are slash-and-burn agriculture, fishing, hunting, gathering, and the manufacture of pottery and handicrafts. Fish are probably the most abundant and varied vertebrates in the region, and the Shipibo possess a vast knowledge of fishing and water-hunting techniques (Tournon 1995:27, 37). Hunting and gathering acquire more significance in those villages located higher along the tributaries.

The main plants cultivated by the Shipibo are plantain, maize, yuca, beans, squash, peanut, sugarcane, rice (usually for the market), as well as fruit plants / trees or palms such as pineapple, watermelon, papaya, and lemon. Among the nonedible plants that can be found in a Shipibo chacra are achiote (*Bixa orellana*) and huito or jagua (*Genipa americana*), from which red and black dyes can be obtained; *ishanka* (fam. *Urticaceae*), used as a palliative; and tobacco, smoked in pipes by men and women and also sold in the market (Eakin, Lauriault, and Boonstra 1980:13-14).

The manufacture of pottery and handicrafts are mainly women's activities. These are produced both for self-use and for the market. Occasionally, the Shipibo engage in the extraction of timber, sometimes working for local *patrones*. More on Shipibo subsistence and culture can be found, among others, in Bergman (1974), Eakin, Lauriault, and Boonstra (1980 / 1986), and Tournon (2002).

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1.3.7. Social Organization and Other Cultural Features

The Shipibo are the only people of the Peruvian Amazon who have been described by anthropologists as a traditionally matrilocal, matrilineal, and matriarchal society (Chirif, Mora, and Moscoso 1977); an evaluation of these claims can be found in Tournon (2002:198-206). While the extended matrilocal family seems to have been a Shipibo tendency, the claims regarding matrilineality are in need of revision (Tournon op. cit.; Eakin, Lauriault, and Boonstra 1986:27). On the contrary, there is some evidence of five former patrilineal clans: Lightning, Jaguar, Macaw, Bird, and Snake (Eakin, Lauriault, and Boonstra op. cit.:35; see also Valenzuela's ms. study of Shipibo proper names). The statement regarding matriarchy seems unfounded (Tournon op. cit., Illius p.c. 2001). Nevertheless, a few traces suggest women's powerful role in traditional society. For example, the term *chichi* bears two meanings, 'maternal grandmother' and 'supreme authority' (Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:163); and a couple of traditional narratives portray situations where the maximum authority in a settlement is exercized by the oldest woman (Roe 1982).

In the past the basic social unit was the extended family, and approximately forty-to-sixty people could inhabit a large house having no walls or internal divisions. Nowadays, houses still lack walls but are relatively much smaller and inhabited by one or two nuclear families. Another change is that houses now stand on poles since half of the

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villages are located in areas that become flooded during the rainy season (Tournon 2002:118). Villages are largely formed by related nuclear families.

According to Tournon (2002:192), there is evidence suggesting a former preference to marry a cross-cousin. However, it has also been reported that marriage used to be forbidden if it was found out that the prospective couple was consanguineously related up to the fifth ascending generation. A marriage between two individuals genealogically linked in the sixth generation was not well viewed and the couple probably had to move to another village (Eakin, Lauriault, and Boonstra 1980:54). Another characteristic of Shipibo society is sororal polygyny, which can still be observed; i.e., when a man turns out to be a good provider, his parents-in-law might consider offering him his wife's younger sister.

The Riverine Panoans practiced craneal deformation, particularly on male newborns; this served as a sign of ethnic identity. Castelnau (1850, cited in Tournon 2002:81), a member of a French-Peruvian expedition to the Amazon, reported the following with respect to the Konibo: "*Nos decían que teníamos cabezas de monos, mientras las suyas tenían la forma de la luna.* [They (i.e. the Konibo) told us that we had monkey heads, while theirs had the shape of the moon.]." Craneal deformation, observed until the early 1980s (Tournon, p.c. 2002), does not seem to be practiced anymore. After the birth of a child the father must follow a set of established prescriptions regarding sexual abstinence, avoidance of certain types of food, and avoidance of certain animals and trees. In addition, couvade practices during childbirth have been described.

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While there were no male puberty rites, the female counterpart known as *Ani Xeati* (from *ani* 'big' and *xeati* 'drink') was the most important event in traditional Shipibo society. Families prepared for several months for this ceremony working in the chacras, raising animals captured in the wild, storing food and drinks, manufacturing clothes and pottery, etc. An *Ani Xeati* lasted several days (or possibly even weeks) and included strength competitions, songs and dances specific to each major event of the ceremony, high consumption of yuca beer and *guarapo* (alcoholic beverage made from sugarcane juice), male fights with the *wexati* knife, animal sacrifices, cutting of the girl's fringe, and clitoridectomy. The social and political functions of *Ani Xeati* remain to be studied. Traditional *Ani Xeati* ceremonies have been reported as late as 1976 (Heath ms.).

There are three different degrees of Shipibo shamanism: *meráya*, *onanya*, and *raomis*. The shaman of the highest rank is the *meráya*, who through the controlled use of ayahuasca and the help of allied spirits has the power to heal or harm people and travel to other layers of reality. An *onanya* also drinks ayahuasca and communicates with spirits to heal or harm people, but cannot depart from this world. A *raomis* is simply someone who knows how to use plants in order to treat people.

1.3.8. The Avoidance Relationship of *Rayos*

The term *rayos* means 'parent-in-law' and 'son-in-law' but not 'daughter-in-law.' In Shipibo society, relatives holding the relationship of *rayos* do not speak directly to each

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other, but communicate through their daughter or wife. This practice is largely followed even by young Shipibo men, regardless of their degree of contact with the Spanish-speaking society. Even in a situation when a father-in-law and his son-in-law travel far away and remain without contact with any other person for some time, they are not supposed to talk to each other directly and may behave as if the daughter or wife were present pretending they communicate through her. The following testimony from a young Shipibo student was recorded by Tournon (2002:201:202):

> Some months ago I went fishing for a few days with my father-in-law. We had to stay together away from the village, prepare our meals and sleep in a small and uncomfortable hut. My wife, my fishing partner's daughter, was not with us. However, my partner and I had to communicate with each other during the day in order to fish and then light the fire, cook and eat. How could we do this without speaking directly to each other? The way to do it was 'as if.' We behaved as if my wife were with us, present. I addressed my absent wife: "Ask your father whether I have to start the fire." "Tell your husband yes, because we have to cook the meal." "Ask your father where are the matches." "Tell your husband they are in the backpack."

Tournon (op. cit.) adds that the avoidance relationship of *rayos* extends to one's wife's grandfather (Tournon does not specify whether he refers to both maternal and paternal grandfathers). According to my own fieldnotes, this behavior also holds between a man

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and his wife's maternal aunt. One text in Appendix B is concerned with the relationship of *rayos*.

1.3.9. Historical Framework

In this section I summarize the available information on the history of the Panoan peoples, particularly those settled on the Ucayali and neighboring regions. Unfortunately, written records represent the outsiders' viewpoint only; often, these accounts contain highly Eurocentric and even outright racist conceptions. However, there are also insightful observations, and a few efforts have been made to interpret historical records from an indigenous perspective (e.g., Hvalkof 1998, Tournon 2002). Most of the contemporary views are my own. For a contemporary indigenous view, see Valera Rojas and Valenzuela, ms.

1.3.9.1. Panoan Migrations

The most plausible hypothesis regarding the origin of the Panoan peoples involves a migration from the south into their present territories. This hypothesis seems to be supported by archaeological as well as linguistic evidence: the alleged similarity between early Panoan and Pre-Guarani pottery, and the commonly accepted genetic relationship

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between Panoan and Takanan, and perhaps other more southern languages.[4] According to this proposal the Panoan migration took place by foot, around 400-500 A.D. Being originally an interfluvial culture, some groups managed to control the precious *varzea* or floodplain area, dominating the Ucayali banks. They practiced slash-and-burn agriculture and their culture was heavily based on the use of yuca (Lathrap 1970, Lathrap, Gebhart-Sayer and Mester 1985, Tournon 1995 and 2002:34; see also Loos 1973).

The hypothesis described above does not coincide with earlier claims that the Panoan migrated into their present location from the north, from an area close to the Ecuadorian border (Marcoy 1869:642-3, see also de la Grasserie 1890:439, Farabee 1922:79, and Brinton 1891:289). These claims seem to have originated from the following statement by Marcoy with respect to the Wariapano (an ethnic group closely related to the Shipibo; the Wariapano are referred here as "Panoans"):

> [Cette nation] était descendue primitivement des contrées de l'Equateur par la rivière Morona, elle s'était fixée d'abord à l'entrée du rio Huallaga, où paraît s'être opérée sa division en tribus. Plus tard, à la suite de démêlés avec les Indiens Xbéros elle avait abandonné ce territoire, erré longtemps à travers les plaines du Sacrement, puis s'était établie dans le voisinage de la rivière Ucayali... (Marcoy 1864:159 in de la Grasserie 1890:439, see also Marcoy 1869:642).

[4] Wistrand (1991:275) mentions an unpublished work by Loos (1964) entitled "Maps of Panoan languages." This work contains dialect maps showing movement of Panoan languages northward from Bolivia into Peru. I have not had access to this work.

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Finally, following Chirif, Mora, and Moscoso (1977), Trudell refers to a Panoan migration coming from the northeast, and states that "as early as 2000 to 3000 B.C., Arawak and Panoan-speaking peoples were migrating upriver from the lower Amazon basin in present-day Brazil..." (1993:11). No evidence for this last claim with regard to the Panoans is given.[5]

Archaeological evidence also suggests that around 1200 A.D. Tupi-Guarani peoples reached the lower and middle Ucayali causing the Panoans from those areas to abandon the main river and resettle on the western tributaries. The ancestors of the Konibo, however, might have remained on the upper Ucayali (Lathrap, Gebhart-Sayer and Mester 1985, Tournon 2002:37).

1.3.9.2. Colonial History

The first written (i.e., European) testimony about a Panoan group may have been recorded as early as 1557, by the Spanish explorer Juan Salinas de Loyola. Travelling up the Ucayali River, Salinas encountered the Kokama (Tupi-Guarani) and the Pariache; the latter have been identified by Myers (1974) as the Konibo, who as mentioned above might have remained on the upper Ucayali. The description given by Salinas seems to indicate that the Pariache were politically organized into a chiefdom (Tournon 1995, 2002:41-42).

[5] But cf. Lathrap 1970 about the possible arrival to the Ucayali of an Arawak population from the Central Amazon around 200 A.C., see also Tournon 2002:33.

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Probably due to the diseases introduced by the Europeans the Kokama population decreased tremendously; this might have motivated Panoan groups to re-establish themselves on the middle and lower Ucayali.

The first colonizing attempt of the Ucayali dates from 1641, when three Franciscan friars navigated down the Perené and Tambo rivers, thus reaching the Ucayali. According to missionary sources, these Franciscans were killed by the Konibo close to the mouth of the Aguaytía River. The reasons for this confrontation remain unknown (Hvalkof 1998:138). In 1657, Spanish conquerors and missionaries encountered the Shipibo but were also killed by them. In 1670, a group of Xetebo and Calliseca (probably Shipibo) attacked the mission of Panatahua (Eakin, Lauriault, and Boonstra 1986:3).

Another missionary attempt was conducted from north to south in 1685-1686. This time, Jesuit priests navigated up the Ucayali River arriving at a relatively large Konibo village on the middle Ucayali. This place was named San Miguel de los Cunivos. The Franciscans arrived at the same village a couple of months later, and both religious parties competed to obtain control of the indigenous population and the region. Each order had its own army of Spanish soldiers and group of indigenous supporters. The control of the Ucayali was finally obtained by the Franciscans. In those times there was significant trading of salt and tools along the Ucayali. The introduction of European goods, especially weapons and iron tools, created or intensified conflicts and piracy among the different local indigenous groups. On several occasions, the missionaries themselves instigated interethnic conflicts, taking advantage of traditional antipathies

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among various groups and weakening indigenous forces (Hvalkof 1998:138-139). Missionaries also kidnapped Native children, indoctrinated them, taught them Spanish, and later used them to convert the members of their ethnic group to Christianity.

A significant indigenous uprising took place in 1695, when the Konibo revolted against the repression and epidemics provoked by the European invaders. Partially, the Konibo reacted to their enforced conscription for a Spanish expedition against the Jivaroans. Among the missionaries killed during this uprising was the Jesuit priest Richter, who had played an important role in the missionization efforts of the region. In 1698, the Shipibo, Konibo, and Xetebo joined forces and successfully repelled a Spanish punitive force (Eakin, Lauriault, and Boonstra 1986:3). In this way, the indigenous population managed to stop Spanish domination for some time.

Circa fifty years later, the Franciscan friars established a new mission on the lower Ucayali. Their expansion to the upper Ucayali and Selva Central was stopped by the most renowned indigenous rebellion of the Peruvian Amazon. This uprising, led by Juan Santos Atahualpa, took place in 1742 and involved different ethnic groups particularly the Ashaninka (Arawak).

But also the Franciscan missions on the lower Ucayali were destroyed by the Panoans. In fact, the Xetebo, Shipibo and Konibo were able to establish alliances not only among themselves but also with the Tupian Kokama, thus keeping Spaniards out of their territories until 1790. One of the most important uprisings involved Shipibo, Konibo, and Xetebo, and took place in 1766. It was led by a Xetebo named Ronkato (Eakin, Lauriault, and Boonstra 1980:5-6). This historical event is recalled by the

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Franciscan friar Manuel Navarro in the introduction to his "*Vocabulario castellano-quechua-Panoan con sus respectivas gramáticas quechua y pana*:"

> When the missions of the Ucayali offered a hopeful perspective and an agreeable future... a certain Runcato, a man of fierce instincts, who beneath a false exterior of meekness covered up a vengeful and hypocritical nature, assaulted his countrymen in an unexpected and treacherous manner, victimizing several of them, including the missionary priest and the religious layman who was accompanying him. But that tiger heart was not satisfied with those innocent victims; with his bad example and false reasoning, he induced the Shipibos and the Konibos to perpetrate the atrocious crime of assassinating all of the missionaries among those tribes, and he did not stop until he had satisfied his bloodthirsty and cruel instincts. [Navarro1927:243].[6]

This general rebellion took place in a region of very difficult access and hence could not be repressed by the Spaniards. Tournon points out that this movement might have constituted the first unifying experience among the three previously rival ethnic groups. Today, Ronkato is considered as hero by the Shipibo (Tournon 2002:60).

The effectiveness with which the riverine Panoans, especially those presently known as Shipibo, managed to defend their territories until the end of the XVIII century

[6] The translation of this excerpt was prepared with the aid of Phil Young. The Spanish original version can also be found in Valenzuela (2000:2-3).

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has inspired the well-deserved appellative of "regional leaders of resistance to foreign domination" (Trudell 1993:94).

But the Franciscans reappeared years later, this time establishing more permanent missions. In 1790-1791 the Franciscans Narciso Girbal and Mariano Márquez founded a new mission in Sarayacu among the Panos (i.e., Wariapanos). Shipibos, Xetebos, and Konibos would join them later (Navarro 1903:171, Tessmann 1999:58). By 1817 the Franciscans had founded nine new missions on the upper Ucayali. Besides religious indoctrination and domination of the indigenous population, the colonizers wanted to establish a logistic link between the coast and the Amazon. However, after the Peruvian independence war in the early 1820s, Spanish missionaries were expulsed from the country.

1.3.9.3. Republican History

With the Peruvian independence and the departure of the Franciscan friars, the population of the missions became dispersed, and the Amazon opened to capitalist mercantilism, suffering a new invasion by prospective landowners and traders. These outsiders profited from the indigenous population through a system of overpriced goods and undervalued forced labor. The new *patrones* took advantage of the natives' inexperience and illiteracy. Trying to obtain guns, bullets, cloth, tools, and other goods, the Indians fell into debts impossible to pay off that were passed on to the next generations. The Natives

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found themselves virtually enslaved; those who attempted to escape the system were drastically punished or even slaughtered.

With the introduction of the steamboats in the 1850s, different extractive enterprises depending on North American and European markets were developed in the Amazon; crucially, these activities required indigenous knowledge of the region and indigenous labor. Important export products were *sarsaparilla* bark (*Smilax sp.*), exotic woods, furs, salted fish, and turtle egg oil. Most of the exchange was carried out through Brasil. Given the new geopolitical and economic importance of the region, the young Peruvian state became increasingly interested in the Amazon, and its navy became present on the Amazon and Ucayali rivers. At the beginning of 1866, two officials disembarked on the shores of a Kashibo (Panoan) village and took bananas from a chacra without contacting the locals. These officials were killed by the chacra's owners. In retaliation, the Peruvian navy carried out a punitive expedition on December the tenth, 1866, against the Kashibo, attacking them at Chonas Isla, at the mouth of the Pachitea River. Women and children were captured to be sold as slaves in the city of Iquitos. Some 500 Kashibo men were massacred by war ship artillery when attempting to liberate the prisoners (Hvalkof 1998:140-141).

It was during the "rubber boom" times, especially between 1890-1915, when outsiders managed to enter the depths of the Amazon rainforest and the exploitation of the indigenous population reached its climax. The demand for latex was triggered by Goodyear's discovery of vulcanization in 1838 and Dunlop's invention of the pneumatic rubber tire in 1888. Hundreds of thousands of Indians, entire families, were kidnapped,

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enslaved and traded to extract latex, the sap of the rubber tree. Whole Native populations were forced into territories unknown to them, died as victims of European diseases or were exploited to death. The rubber *patrones* imposed their terror in the Amazon; their atrocities have not been sufficiently documented. Among the most famous and cruel *patrones* of the Ucayali were Carlos Fermín Fitzcarraldo and Carlos Scharff. The latter was killed by the Panoan Amawaka in 1908. Around 1915 the boom was over. The rubber economy collapsed due to falling market prices and the new plantations in Malaysia. Overall, the effects of the "rubber boom" were not as devastating for the Shipibo population and their culture as they were for other Amazonian peoples, including a few other Panoan groups. Moreover, particularly the Konibo captured members of interfluvial ethnic groups and turned them in to the rubber *patrones*; this collaboration might have helped them protect their own people. The "rubber boom" also brought about migration by foreigners and nationals from other regions, such as the population from the Department of San Martin who established themselves in Contamana, a place with a SK name (*kontá* k. palm, *manan* 'mountain') (Hvalkof 1998:135-138, 142-144).

Several other extractive enterprises followed, such as lumber, exotic woods, and furs. The most important of all was probably the production of exotic woods. In many regions lumber is still the most lucrative activity today, and the local *patrones* fight against the indigenous organizations' efforts to obtain legal recognition to their ancestral territories and defend their basic democratic rights (Hvalkof ibid.).

Towards 1930, protestant missions established themselves on the Ucayali. In 1943 the Lima-Pucallpa road, the first one linking the Pacific coast and the Amazon, was

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opened. Pucallpa, *Maioshian*[7] for the Shipibo, lies in the heart of the Shipibo territory and has experienced tremendous growth since the construction of the road due to heavy colonization, increasing its population from 4,000 inhabitants to 250,000 in only sixty years (Tournon 2002:123). Once more, indigenous peoples' rights were ignored and their territories invaded.

In 1952 the Peruvian government authorized the bilingual education program carried out by the Summer Institute of Linguistics (SIL). This group of protestant missionaries, mainly from the United States, established their national center next to Pucallpa. The Shipibo were among the first groups where SIL established schools, trained bilingual teachers, developed its religious proselitist activities, and carried out linguistic work.

Religious and other institutions also provided medical assistance. The birth-rate among the Shipibo is high and since the second half of the XX century their mortality rate diminished considerably thanks to the availability of vaccines against infectious diseases, and basic medical treatment. According to Tournon, since that time the Shipibo have experienced a true demographic explosion and the population has risen from some 3,000 at the beginning of the XX century to some 35,000 today (2002:140-144). New villages were formed and nowadays a village may have from 50 up to 1,000 inhabitants.

In 1974 the *Ley de Comunidades Nativas de la Selva y Ceja de Selva* made it possible for Amazonian indigenous peoples to obtain legal titles to their lands (Trudell

[7] Maioshian, 'the place with red soil,' is composed of the following SK morphemes: *mai* 'land, soil' + *joshin* 'red,' + the proprietive *-ya*. The name Pucallpa is a calque and involves the Quechua roots *puka* 'red' and *allpa* 'land, soil.'

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1993:17-18). Speaking a Native language was considered a defining factor for the identification and recognition of an indigenous people. In the late seventies indigenous regional federations, such as the Shipibo-led FECONAU (Federación de Comunidades Nativas del Ucayali y Afluentes), were founded; the Amazonian confederation AIDESEP (Asociación Interétnica de Desarrollo de la Selva Peruana) was created in 1980 and the Shipibo were among the founding groups. In turn, AIDESEP played a major role in the creation of COICA (Coordinadora Indígena de la Cuenca Amazónica), an organization grouping several indigenous confederations of Lowland South America.

In the late 1980s and early 1990s the guerrilla groups Shining Path and Movimiento Revolucionario Túpac Amaru operated on the Ucayali and its tributaries. Members of the former entered Shipibo villages trying to recruit young men but were generally rejected by the population. Differently from their attitude towards other Amazonian peoples, particularly the Ashaninka, or towards the *mestizo* population on the Ucayali, these armed groups did not attack the Shipibo, who managed to maintain political neutrality. However, the region experienced significant migration from the Andes by people escaping the war situation. As a consequence of some twelve years of political violence, tourism practically disappeared from Peru and this had an impact on the Ucayali region and particularly on the Shipibo. Shipibo women now travel to Lima and other far away cities in order to sell their handicraft, a situation that might have an impact on family structures and the status of women (Tournon 2002:133).

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1.3.9.4. The *Jonikon* Today

The *Jonikon* have managed to keep their distinct identity, language, and basic way of life, despite the long and conflict-ridden contact with the Spanish and *mestizo* (Spanish-speaking) societies. Obviously, such unfavorable conditions have produced drastic changes in the lives of the Shipibo and continue to do so. Despite this fact, most Shipibo still live in separate villages along the Ucayali River or *Paro* and are able to subsist on agriculture, hunting, gathering, and most especially fishing. Even when depending on the market for certain goods, the Shipibo tend to be self-sufficient and reject the domination of *patrones*. Many women and men even engage in market activities themselves.

A key factor for the survival of Shipibo and Konibo identities is their particularly high self-esteem and strong tendency towards self-determination. Marcoy (1869:645-646) makes an interesting observation regarding the Konibo who "*...préférèrent le culte de la liberté et de la barbarie, sous le couvert des bois, aux avantages de la civilisation dans un hameau chrétien...on doit croire que la persistance des Conibos à rester idolâtres en dépit de tout fut cause qu'ils vivent encore...*" A similar comment is found in Brinton (1891:290), who wrote that "...none of the Panoans have shown any earnest desire to adopt a civilized life."

Today Shipibo show great capacity to adapt to new, often adverse circumstances, and to transform and integrate outside elements into their culture. For instance, together with their official *nawan join jane* 'names in the outsider's language,' each Shipibo has a

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'true / core name' or *janekon* used in the community and in interactions in the Native language. In spite of acquiring culinary ware from the *mestizo* market, Shipibo women manufacture "...what is probably one of the most elaborate and flourishing polychrome pottery traditions in the Amerindian world today..." (Roe 1982:42). Overcoming the long and aggressive Spanish penetration, Shipibo-Konibo remains the dominant language of the Shipibo people, or even the only one for many of them. Children in the villages tend to be monolingual in the indigenous tongue until attending the bilingual elementary schools, usually run by Native teachers. Modern ethno-political organizations struggle at the regional, national, and international levels to defend the rights of the Shipibo, most especially to obtain official recognition of their ancestral territories and make possible their survival as a people. Thanks to these efforts most Shipibo villages have obtained legal titles to their lands, and some are even getting land extensions. Nevertheless, Spanish-speaking *mestizos* continually invade Shipibo lands which they consider "empty", generating strong conflicts with the Shipibo villages. A major problem is that the territories where the Shipibo fish, hunt, and practice agriculture might not be included in the legally recognized areas. For example, Tournon reports that in 1980 inhabitants of Kaimito, a village on the Imiria Lake, had sown watermelons on a sandy shore two-to-three hours away from their village by canoe, and corn on an alluvial terrace one day away by boat. Tournon points out that while the inhabitants of Kaimito, living on the large Imiria Lake, have great availability of fish, agricultural resources are rather scarce due to acid poor soil (2002:165). Another remarkable point is the relatively recent participation of Shipibo leaders in local and national elections. In 1990-1991 I had the

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opportunity to participate in internal assemblies on the upper Ucayali during which the Shipibo planned their first participation in the elections for the city hall of the District of Iparía. They participated in a unified way, deciding upon a single candidate and his accompanying team. The Shipibo won the elections and the first Shipibo mayor in Peruvian history took his place in a *mestizo* town, although the district as a whole always had a majority of Shipibo population.

1.4. Shipibo-Konibo

1.4.1. Names of the Language

The Shipibo refer to their language as *Non Joi* 'Our Language, Our Word' or *Joikon* 'Core / True Language or Word'. In the linguistic literature, the language is usually referred to as Shipibo-Conibo, Shipibo-Konibo, or simply Shipibo. Dialectal differences between Shipibo and Konibo are hard to establish. Around the 1960s, Loriot reports that this distinction was geographical rather than linguistic or cultural (Shell, op.cit.:26).[8] Those living on the Piski River are called Piskibo and their speech variety exhibits some peculiarities such as certain lexical and stress differences, and the retention of the form *en* as first person singular possessive modifier (see 2.2.6.5 and 3.3.1.1).

[8] There is a further comment attributed to Loriot to the effect that Shipibo might be considered as a language composed of different mutually intelligible dialects, while Konibo and Xetebo are two mutually intelligible languages. Xetebo might be closer to Konibo than to Shipibo, but speakers of all three can understand each other (Shell op.cit.:26). I have not found any evidence in support of these claims.

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1.4.2. State of Endangerment of the Language

The Shipibo population is rather numerous by Amazonian standards. As mentioned above, SK is being passed on to the new generations and children in the villages tend to be monolingual until attending elementary school. Although most Shipibo learn Spanish, this bilingualism has not led to a shift towards the dominant language. Even individuals growing up in the city learn SK and speak it fluently.

To outsiders working with the Shipibo it soon becomes evident that the Shipibo possess a strong sense of identity and high self-esteem. This is especially true in the villages and among more traditional individuals. Generally, marriages with non-Shipibo partners are disfavored, since the latter do not exhibit culturally appropriate behavior and do not speak SK. This attitude can be observed even in villages close to the city of Pucallpa or in the city itself. Shipibo women tend to wear traditional clothes even when travelling to towns and cities. When the Shipibo meet in the city, they speak their own language, switching into Spanish only if joined by someone from outside their group. Even those individuals with higher formal education view bilingualism as an advantage, pointing out that while they are able to understand what the *mestizos* say, the reverse situation does not hold.

The role played by the Native language in the definition of Shipibo identity is crucial. For example, explaining her reasons for supporting a Shipibo candidate in some local elections, a woman told me that unlike the *mestizo* candidates, "*jakayara non kaibo*

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iki, non jimi, non joi"; i.e., 'he is our countryman, our blood, our language' (Ranin Ama, p.c. 1998).

When asked to judge which language is "more beautiful," SK or Spanish, the answer seems unanimous: SK. But when asked which of the two languages is "more important," the answer tends to be: "both are equally important." Spanish clearly represents an advantage, the possibility for socio-economic advancement, access to the market, access to formal education and means of communication, etc.; however, SK is crucial to the Shipibo way of life. Therefore, most Shipibo parents would like their children to achieve coordinate bilingualism and support the use of both languages in the school. Especially in the elementary school years, many parents prefer Shipibo over *mestizo* teachers and value the use of written materials in their own language.

These observations coincide with Trudell's (1993:96-97) claims that "The Shipibo appear to maintain strong sentimental and instrumental attachment to their mother tongue, along with an equally strong instrumental attachment to Spanish." Trudell observes that despite their relatively high degree of contact with the non-indigenous world, the Shipibo generally exhibit a positive attitude towards their language and culture, and seem to experience little shame concerning the use of SK in front of others. Valuing Spanish does not lessen the importance of SK. According to Trudell (1993:96), the Shipibo represent an instance of stable diglossia, in which different functional domains have been established for each of the two languages. "Reasons for the establishment of such stable diglossia, in place of wholesale language shift in favor of Spanish, must lie in the high regard the Shipibo have for their own culture, ethnic

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identity, and language." (1993:97). Although literacy in Spanish is higher than literacy in Shipibo, the latter is considered good and something to be proud of. Not only the Native language, but also many traditional customs are practiced by older and younger community members.

Nevertheless, the present situation may change in the near future. It is known that at least in one village, Amaquiría, SK has been displaced by Spanish. Although the situation of Amaquiría might be considered as an isolated instance due to particular historical circumstances (related to the work of a missionary group, Tournon p.c. 2002), in large villages like Pao Ian, San Francisco, and Colonia de Caco, the Spanish-speaking population and their language exert great pressure over the Native population and SK. Secondary schools bring with them the permanent presence of *mestizo* teachers and their families. In addition, there is a constant flux of Spanish-speaking population into the large villages on the fluvial route Pucallpa-Contamana-Iquitos. In San Francisco and probably in other villages close to Pucallpa, some children appear to speak more Spanish than SK; moreover, some children have started to refuse using SK (Ranin Ama, p.c. 2000).

There is presently a significant number of Shipibo families who have immigrated into the city of Pucallpa and the adjacent District of Yarinacocha (the number of individuals has been estimated at 5,000 by Tournon 2002:166). The children of these immigrants many times discriminate against their equivalents from the villages for not being able to speak Spanish correctly. Moreover, immigrant children may favor the use of Spanish even in intra-family communication (Yoi Sani, p.c. 2000). Urban Shipibo

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have more access to formal education, development projects, and the *mestizo* world in general; they lead the ethno-political organizations and have their own radio programs heard in very many villages. Urban SK exhibits a great deal of Spanish interference at different levels, and code-switching and code-mixing are generalized practices. At least potentially, there is the possibility that the Shipibo from the villages may take this relatively powerful urban group as role model, view urban SK as a higher register, and maybe even try to imitate this speech. Although children in the city tend to grow up bilingually, their degree of competence in SK is an open question. Another point that remains to be addressed is the magnitude of Spanish features in the SK spoken by adults and children.

It must also be mentioned that, in general, the *mestizo* population shows great contempt towards the Shipibo and their language. Tournon reports that when during a visit to a *mestizo* settlement on the Ucayali River in 1985, he asked whether the inhabitants spoke SK, the answer he obtained was: "No, here they are civilized."

The survival and vitality of many Amazonian languages of Peru are directly associated to the isolation of their speakers from the rest of the national society. Shipibo villages lack electricity and most of them can only be accessed by river;[9] given the limited availability of speedboats and the high costs of rapid transportation, villages may be several days away from a town, a shop or a hospital. Significant changes in these

[9] In the late 1990s, a road departing from the District of Yarinacocha and crossing the Shipibo village of San Francisco was opened; this road operates during the dry season only. Also in the late 1990s, certain villages were given solar panels and a small black-and-white television set; two villages got sporadic access to community cellular telephones. In this section I simply wish to point out the possible sociolinguistic repercussions that these kinds of changes may bring about; by no means do I intend to imply that the Shipibo or any other people should remain isolated in order to preserve their languages.

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respects may have drastic repercussions in the sociolinguistic situations and the future of the languages. It is known, for instance, that language shift may take place in as little as one generation (Thomason and Kaufman 1991:41).

1.4.3. Levels of Spanish Bilingualism

Among the Shipibo that tend to have a better command of Spanish are: non-traditional leaders, individuals with more formal education, men, young people, individuals engaged in market activities, inhabitants of large villages especially those located on the fluvial Pucallpa-Contamana-Iquitos route, and men who have served in the military.

The levels of bilingualism detailed below correspond to those established by the United States Foreign Service Institute. The information regarding Spanish bilingualism among the Shipibo has been taken from Grimes (1996); unfortunately, neither the sources nor the year when this information was gathered are given. The percentages seem to refer to the population above ten years of age.

Level 0. Unable to function in the spoken Spanish language. Oral production in Spanish is limited to occasional isolated words. No communicative ability: 10%

Level 1. Able to use the Spanish language to satisfy minimum courtesy requirements and maintain very simple face-to-face conversations on familiar topics: 20%

Level 2. Able to use the Spanish language to satisfy routine social demands and limited requirements in other domains: 23%

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Level 3. Able to speak the Spanish language with sufficient structural accuracy and vocabulary to participate effectively in most formal and informal conversations on practical, social, and occupational topics: 30%

Level 4. Able to use the Spanish language fluently and accurately on all levels normally pertinent to needs. The individual's language usage and ability to function are fully successful: 15%

Level 5. Speaking proficiency in Spanish is functionally equivalent to that of a highly articulate formally-educated native speaker and reflects the cultural standards of the country where the language is natively spoken: 2%

1.4.4. Previous Literature on Shipibo-Konibo

Besides aiming at christianizing the indigenous population, exploring unknown territories, and exploiting local natural resources, a number of missionaries, travellers, functionaries, and scientists felt attracted by the rich biological and ethnic diversity of the Ucayali region. Some missionaries and non-religious scholars described aspects of the SK language, paying special attention to the compilation of wordlists and vocabularies. These first publications on SK include the following vocabularies: Richter 1685, Anonymous 1795?, Marqués 1800 / 1931, Armentia 1898, Carrasco 1901 / 1902, von den Steinen 1904, and Alemany 1906. Reference to some grammatical features, especially morphological, can be found in Castelnau (1851:301-2), Marqués 1800 / 1931:117-130, von den Steinen 1904:31-40, Alemany 1906 / 1927:319-327, Farabee 1922:88-90, and

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Tessmann 1929:248-271 (see also Illius 1999:57). A systematic study of these earlier written sources remains to be undertaken.

The work of James Loriot, the missionary-linguist who worked several decades among the Shipibo and probably achieved near-native proficiency in the language, remains mostly unpublished.[10] However, two of his articles are accessible through well-known journals: "Alternate-Mora Timing in Shipibo" (IJAL 1948) and "Shipibo Paragraph Structure" co-authored by Hollenbach (Foundations of Language 1970). An important part of Loriot's legacy is found in the Shipibo-Spanish Dictionary (see below).

In 1973, Norma Faust published "Lecciones para el Aprendizaje del Idioma Shipibo-Conibo," a succint, generally accurate pedagogical account addressed to a non-linguistic Spanish-speaking audience wishing to acquire basic conversational skills. The lessons are organized in dialogues followed by grammatical description and exercises. Based on Faust's work, Weisshar and Illius (1990) published a brief grammar sketch in German with a focus on the morphology; a glossed text was included.

The Shipibo-Spanish Dictionary by Loriot, Lauriault, and Day (1993) is an important contribution to the documentation of the language. The lexical compilation that led to the dictionary was initiated by Lauriault and Loriot (father and son) in 1959. Loriot continued this work until 1979, gathering some 5,000 entries and sub-entries. The edition of the dictionary was finally completed by a third member of the Summer Institute of Linguistics (i.e., Day). Among the many Shipibo collaborators, we must

[10] This work is accessible in microfiches, in the Archives of the Summer Institute of Linguistics in Dallas, Texas. I wish to thank the personnel in charge of these archives for giving me access to their materials in March 2000 and to the Max Planck Institute for Evolutionary Anthropology for financing this visit.

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mention Mr. Guillermo Ramírez Guimaraes (Soi Rawa), originally from the village of Pao Ian; Ramírez worked with Loriot for several years, and thirty years later assisted Day in the completion of the dictionary (Loriot, Lauriault, and Day, op.cit., Prologue). Plenty of grammatical information can be found in the introductory grammar sketch accompanying this dictionary (mostly based on Faust's work), and in the different entries.

Later studies have addressed aspects of the phonetics and phonology (García 1994; Valenzuela, Márquez, and Maddieson 2001), morphology (Valenzuela 1998a), morpho-syntax (Valenzuela 1997, 1999, 2000), semantics (Valenzuela 1998b), and ethnography of communication (Illius 1999). There are also some unanalyzed published texts, most of them for use in the bilingual elementary schools.

1.4.5. Genetic Affiliation

1.4.5.1. Panoan Peoples

According to Wise (1985), at the beginning of the XX century, some twenty Panoan tribes lived in Peruvian territory. Twelve of these groups remained isolated from the national society (Amawaka, Kashinawa, Kujareño, Iskobakebo,[11] Mayo, Mayoruna, Moronawa, Nokaman, Yora, Pisabo, Sharanawa-Marinawa, and Yaminawa), two groups

[11] Also known as Iskonawa or Isconahua.

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held sporadic contacts (Kashibo and Sensi), and six held permanent contacts (Atsawaka, Kapanawa, Panobo, Remo, Xetebo, and Shipibo-Konibo).

Presently, a few Panoan groups remain without contact with the national societies (e.g. Iskobakebo, Moronawa, and maybe a Kashibo-Kakataibo group in Peru (César Bolívar, p.c. 2000); as well as other groups in Brazil), or have been contacted fairly recently (e.g. Yora in Peru and Matis in Brazil, both contacted in the 1980s). Groups such as the Atsawaka, Yamiaka, and possibly Remo have been simply wiped out of existence (although Tournon suggests that the Iskobakebo may be the descendants of the Remo, p.c. 2002), particularly due to the atrocities during the "rubber boom," or have merged with other previously distinct groups (e.g. the Pakawara living among the Chakobo in Bolivia and a group of Iskobakebo living among the Shipibo of Callería).

The Panoan population has been estimated at circa 40,000 people, with around 30,000 living in Peru, 7,700 in Brazil, and 700 in Bolivia (Erikson et alia 1994:4-5).[12]

An interesting characteristic of Panoan peoples is the contrast between a remarkable cultural, territorial, and linguistic homogeneity, and the maintenance of an impressive number of autonomous sociological units (Erkison et alia 1994:4). Panoan peoples are generally unaware of the existence of other non-neighboring Panoans. A notable exception is the exchange that takes place during bilingual teachers' training programs and events, and to a lesser extent at multiethnic political meetings.

Most Panoan peoples (and languages) bear names ending in the collective / plural marker *-bo*, or in the root *nawa* meaning 'people', 'outsider', and possibly also 'enemy.'

[12] These calculations estimate the Shipibo population at 23,000.

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Many of these names were probably given to an ethnic unit by members of a neighboring group.

1.4.5.2. On the Name "Pano"

It is said that when the Franciscan friars from Lima first explored the region comprised by the Huallaga, Marañon, Ucayali and Pachitea Rivers during the second half of the XVII century, they encountered various ethnically related groups, the Pano being the most prominent. The Pano territory included the shores of the Sarayacu River (Marcoy 1869:642-3). Their language was characterized as the "idioma general de las tribus que habitan en el [río] Ucayali y en el [río] "Madre de Dios"" (Armentia 1898:43, see also Castelnau 1851:292).

In 1888, Raoul de la Grasserie demonstrated that the language spoken by the Pano and six other ethnically related units formed a single independent genetic grouping, and adopted the name "Pano" to refer to the newly established family. Most probably, *Pano* means 'giant armadillo' (*Priodontes maximus*) (Tessmann 1999:58).

1.5. The Panoan Language Family

Panoan is a well-established linguistic grouping of the South American Lowlands, alongside Arawak, Tupian, Ge or Jê, Cariban, Tucanoan, and others. Currently, circa 28

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Panoan languages are spoken in Western Amazonia, in the neighboring regions of the present republics of Peru (Departments of Loreto, Ucayali, Madre de Dios, and Huánuco), Brazil (States of Acre, Amazonia, and Rondônia), and Bolivia (Departments of Beni and Pando).[13] Together with the highest number of Panoan speakers, the highest degree of linguistic diversity within the family is found in Peru.

As mentioned above, the Panoan Family was first formally proposed as such by Raoul de la Grasserie, in a paper presented at the VII International Congress of Americanists in Berlin in 1888, published in 1890. De la Grasserie analyzed vocabulary lists of what he called seven Panoan "languages" (names and spellings are kept as in the original): Pano, Conibo, Pacavara, Caripuna, Culino, Maxuruna, Mayoruna Domestica and Mayoruna Fera. De la Grasserie attempted to establish regular phonetic correspondences by comparing some 90 terms referring to body-parts, kinship, animals, plants, nature, numerals, and a few adjectives and verbs. The author includes grammatical comments on one of the languages, Pano (i.e., Wariapano), most probably extracted from Castelnau (1851:292-293).

Previous to the work of de la Grasserie, not only the unity of the Panoan languages was unknown, but some of these had been wrongly grouped together with other genetically unrelated languages. For example, von Martius (1969 [1867]: 298) stated that Wariapano was closely related to Tupi and Movima: "*Mit Tupi und Mobima zunächst verwandt.*" In a much earlier classification, Hervas y Panduro (1806:263) lists

[13] Wistrand-Robinson (1991:245) states that Panoan languages are spoken by tribes "located in Peru, Brazil, Bolivia, and possibly also previously in Colombia."

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some Panoan languages and probable dialects under three different "matrix languages" (names and spellings are kept as in the original): Cuniba (including Manamabobo and Mananamabua), Pana (Iltipo and Pelado) and Urarina (Barbudo, Itucalde, Mayoruño and Musimo). Currently, Movima (Beni, Bolivia) and Urarina (Loreto, Peru) are considered as "language isolates" since they lack a known affiliation. A summary of later classifications of Panoan peoples and languages, including Brinton (1891:289-292) and McQuown (1955), can be found in Shell (1975:16-24). However, these lists are obviously incomplete and at the same time over-differentiating, taking probable clan and place names for people and language names.

1.5.1. Sub-classification within the Panoan Family

Shell's (1965 / 1975) "Las Lenguas Panoan y su Reconstrucción" is the only general sub-classification of Panoan languages based on the systematic application of the comparative method. D'Ans (1973) employs the strongly criticized method of lexico-statistics, and does not provide the data on which his calculations are based. It will be shown, however, that his proposed groupings are compatible with those in other proposals. Loos (1999) offers a tentative sub-classification based, he claims, on shared phonological and morphological characteristics, as well as on limited shared vocabulary; unfortunately, in this case the database was not made available either. As for Erikson et alia's (1994) sub-classification, this relies mainly on ethnological rather than linguistic evidence.

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This section offers a succinct description of the linguistic sub-classification proposals, followed by a general evaluation. Reference to Erikson et alia's (1994) work will be made when judged appropriate.

1.5.1.1. Sub-classification Based on the Comparative Method

As mentioned above, the only sub-classification of the Panoan languages based on the comparative method and for which the data have been made available is that of Shell (1975). Seven Panoan languages were compared: Amawaka, Kapanawa, Kashibo, Kashinawa, Chakobo, Marinawa, and Shipibo-Konibo. Furthermore, Shell includes data from several other languages such as Atsawaka, Kulino, Iskonawa, Karipuna, Mayoruna, Marobo, Nokaman, Pakawara, Poyanawa, Tutxiunawa, Wariapano, Yamiaka, and Yaminawa. According to this author, there is a great deal of overlap of common phonological innovations, and clear evidence for a sub-classification is lacking. Therefore, an issoglosic model rather than a genealogical tree may best represent the development of the current languages. Nevertheless, it is possible to posit closer relationships among some of the languages and this provides some justification for adopting the tree model (p.105).

It seems that the oldest phonological innovations separate Kashibo from the other six languages in the study; i.e., Amawaka, Kapanawa, Kashinawa, Chakobo, Marinawa, and Shipibo-Konibo. In Kashibo the reflex of *K^w and consonant clusters involving sibilants have been preserved, while in the other six languages the reflexes of *K^w fused

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with those of *K, and the given consonant clusters underwent simplification. This first distinction is supported by other innovations attested only in Kashibo; namely, the development of /e/ and /ɔ/ from the vowel sequences /ai/ and /au/ respectively, and the reduction of verbal roots. Furthermore, certain grammatical features support the hypothesis of a fairly old separation between the ancestor of Kashibo and those of the other six languages. In fact, Kashibo is the only language where the case-marker corresponding to pronouns in S function has the form *-ʂ* (see 10.4.3) and where the first and second person singular pronouns in O function lack the marker *-a*. Finally, certain vocabulary items in Kashibo have a clearly different origin than their equivalent terms in the other six languages (pp.106-108).

Another innovation involving the reflexes of *ß and *w separates Kashinawa, Amawaka, and Marinawa from the remaining languages.[14] There is also some evidence from the meaning of words to group these three languages together; additional phonological and lexical data suggest an even closer relationship between Kashinawa and Marinawa. Finally, there is enough evidence to propose a closer relationship between Shipibo-Konibo and Kapanawa as opposed to Chakobo. Shell suggests that migration might have taken place at this point in time. Also, it is only at this point that the loss of the third syllable in monomorphemic trisyllabic nouns might have taken place (see also section 3.2.4). Mayoruna (Matses) has several vocabulary items that are not cognate with

[14] Although Kashibo exhibits similar characteristics regarding the development of *ß and *w to those found in these three languages, Shell suggests that in Kashibo the phenomenon in question might have developed independently (p. 108).

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their corresponding terms in the other Panoan languages, thus indicating that this language borrowed significantly from non-sister languages. A few common terms are found exclusively in Mayoruna and Kashibo, and this fact is interpreted by Shell as retentions of older forms (p.110).

With respect to other Panoan languages only marginally treated in the study, Shell observes that the phonology of Wariapano runs parallel to that of Shipibo-Konibo in form, distribution, and development. Furthermore, several vocabulary items seem to place Wariapano together with Shipibo-Konibo and Kapanawa (p. 110). Nokaman runs almost parallel to Kashibo, both in phonology and vocabulary. It is also plausible to group Pakawara and Karipuna together with Chakobo, and all these three as different from Atsawaka, Yamiaka, and Arazaire (p.111).

In figure 1.1, I reproduce Shell's "speculative genealogical tree". The abbreviations employed are the following: RP = Reconstructed Pano, KK = Kashibo-Kakataibo, KP = Kapanawa, SK = Shipibo-Konibo, CH = Chakobo, AM = Amawaka, KN = Kashinawa, MN = Marinawa.

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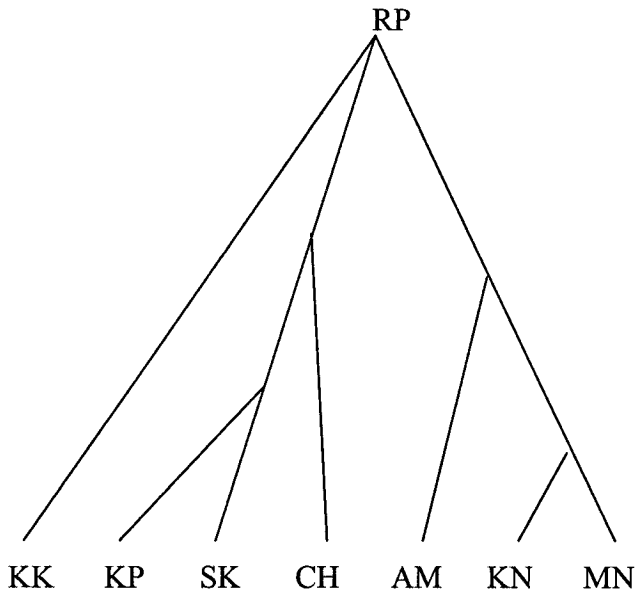
Figure 1.1. Shell's "Speculative Genealogical Tree" of the Panoan Family



1.5.1.2. Sub-classification Based on Lexico-Statistics

D'Ans (1973) presents a lexico-statistical study involving ten Panoan tongues: Kashibo, Panavarro (i.e. Wariapano), Shipibo, Kapanawa, Amawaka, Iskonawa, Kashinawa, Yaminawa, Sharanawa, and Chakobo. D'Ans' calculations are based on the comparison of terms corresponding to Swadesh's short list of 100 vocabulary items; however, the author does not provide the database. D'Ans offers probable dates of separation of the languages, pointing out that his results must be considered as the lowest possible time-depth, given that the determination of cognates has been carried out "*con la mayor tolerancia*".

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According to D'Ans, it is most plausible that 2,000 years ago there was not a single Proto-Panoan language but rather a Proto-Panoan linguistic group consisting of several tongues of limited mutual comprehension, with some of them exhibiting more similarities among each other than with the rest (p.363). It would be "utopic" then to try to represent the results via a single genealogical tree.

A first conclusion is that Yaminawa and Sharanawa are two dialects of the same language, given the relatively very short time of separation between them. He calls this language "Pano-Purús" (although the Yaminawa live on the Upper Yurua, Sepahua, Inomapuya, and Mishagua, and not on the Purús River, Tournon p.c. 2002). This language would also include Marinawa, Chaninawa, Mastanawa, and probably Yawanawa, as well as other dialects spoken in Brazil (p.355).

D'Ans proposes the following groupings named after their approximate geographical location: Ucayali, Preandine, Beni, and Headwaters.[15] Ucayali comprises Shipibo, Kapanawa, and Wariapano; these languages might have separated from each other less than one thousand years ago. The Headwaters grouping includes Amawaka, Iskonawa, Kashinawa, and Yaminawa-Sharanawa. Preandine comprises Kashibo, and Beni consists of Chakobo.

Preandine and Beni appear to be closer to the Ucayali than to the Headwaters group. The Headwaters languages may have separated from the Ucayali group around ten to thirteen centuries ago. However, Headwaters does not constitute a real linguistic grouping because the separation time among them is of ten to fifteen centuries. Thus,

[15] The names in Spanish are *Ucayalino, Preandino, Beniano,* and *Cabeceras*; respectively.

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these languages did not separate from the Ucayali cluster as a coherent group; i.e., they separated from Ucayali but also isolated themselves from each other (p.362). D'Ans' proposed grouping of Panoan is given in Table 1.1.

Table 1.1. D'Ans' Grouping of Panoan Languages

I. PANO UCAYALINO
- A. UCAYALINO A
  1. Shipibo-Conibo
     - a. Shipibo
     - b. Conibo
  2. Capanahua
     - a. Capanahua
- B. UCAYALINO B
  - a. Panavarro
  - b. Shetebo (??)
  - c. Wariapano (??)

II. PANO PREANDINO
- a. Cashibo
- b. Cacataibo (?)

III. PANO DE LAS CABECERAS
- A. ISCONAHUANO
  - a. Isconahua
- B. AMAHUACANO
  - a. Amahuaca
- C. CASHINAHUANO
  - a. Cashinahua
- D. PANO-PURUS
  - a. Yaminahua
  - b. Sharanahua
  - c. Marinahua (?)
  - d. Chaninahua (?)
  - e. Mastanahua (?)
  - f. Yahuanahua (?)

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IV. PANO BENIANO
   a. Chacobo
   b. Pacaguara (??)

V. PANO DEL NORTE (??)
   a. Mayoruna (??)

1.5.1.3. Loos' Tentative Sub-classification

According to Loos (1999:227), the close similarities found among the different Panoan languages indicate "a fairly shallow time-depth and recent expansion and split".

Loos recognizes three tentative sub-groups and a number of ungrouped languages. As mentioned above, in this particular piece of work Loos does not provide the data upon which his claims are based. Nevertheless, he indicates that his conclusions rely on shared phonological and morphological characteristics, as well as shared vocabulary to a limited extent. Loos' tentative sub-classification is presented in Table 1.2.

Table 1.2. Loos' Sub-classification of Panoan Languages

The Yaminawa subgroup

1 Yaminawa
2 Amawaca
3 Kashinawa/Honikoin
4 Sharanawa/Shanindawa/Chandinawa/Inonawa/Marinawa
5 Yawanawa
6 Chitonawa
7 Yoranawa/Nawa/Parquenawa
8 Moronawa
9 Mastanawa

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The Chakobo subgroup

10 Chakobo
11 +Arazaire
12 +Atsawaka
13 +Yamiaka
14 Katukina/Kamannawa/Waninnawa
15 Pakawara

The Kapanawa subgroup

16 Kapanawa/Pahenbakebo
17 Shipibo/Konibo/Xetebo
18 +Remo
19 Marubo
20 +Wariapano/Panobo/Pano
21 Iskonawa
22 +Kanamari/Taverí/Matoinahã

Ungrouped languages

23 Kashibo/Kacataibo/Komabo
24 +Kulino
25 Karipuná
26 Kaxariri
27 Matses/Mayoruna
28 +Nokamán
29 +Poyanáwa
30 +Tuxinawa

1.5.1.4. Balance of the Different Sub-classification Proposals

From the evaluation of the different proposals, as well as my own observations from the literature review, I conclude that probably six different groupings need to be posited for the Panoan family. The following provisional names are based on the relative location of one or more of the languages within a given grouping: Ucayali, Purus, Southern,

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Southwestern, Northern, and Western or Preandine. Table 1.3 below shows the equivalencies of the sub-grouping nomenclature employed by D'Ans, Loos and the one provided here. A few languages remain without reliable classification, and the question of whether some languages belong to one of the previously established groupings or constitute separate groupings in their own right remains to be addressed.

The Ucayali Grouping

All proposals coincide in grouping Shipibo-Konibo(-Xetebo) together with Kapanawa and especially Wariapano. It seems to be the case that Wariapano is closer to Shipibo-Konibo than to Kapanawa. Besides Shell (op.cit.), Navarro (1903:173), Parker (1994:95), and Valenzuela (2000b:note 10) noted the significant degree of structural similarity and / or mutual intelligibility between Wariapano and SK.

The inclusion in this group of other languages such as Marobo, Remo, Iskonawa, and Kanamari remains to be demonstrated. (Note that while Loos includes all these languages in his "Kapanawa," that is my "Ucayali" grouping, D'Ans includes Iskonawa in his "Headwaters," that is Loos' and my "Yaminawa" grouping.)

The Purus Grouping

D'Ans and Loos coincide in proposing that Yaminawa, Sharanawa, Marinawa, Chaninawa, Mastanawa, and Yawanawa constitute a single linguistic unit. Furthermore,

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D'Ans concludes that Yaminawa and Sharanawa are variants of the same language. To this grouping, Loos further adds Chitonawa, Yoranawa, and Moronawa. Interestingly, Erikson et alia point out that the groups pertaining to the Yaminawa cluster were long considered as a single ethnic unit but are in fact politically heteroclite, though culturally homogeneous (1994:6).

Shell's findings suggest that Kashinawa and Amawaka should also be included in this grouping. These two languages, together with Marinawa, took part in the innovations involving the reflexes of *β and *w. In addition to this, Shell claims that there is some lexical evidence to group these three languages together (1975:108). Loos' proposal also includes Kashinawa and Amawaka together with Yaminawa.

The Southern Grouping

All classifications group together Chakobo and Pakawara. Shell also includes here Karipuna, and Erikson et alia include in this cluster both Karipuna and Kaxarari. From my review of the very limited Kaxarari data, I can add that this language keeps a third syllable in a couple of apparently monomorphemic trisyllabic nouns, a feature that distinguishes Chakobo from most of the other languages. That is, Kaxarari and Chakobo exhibit a common retention; however, evidence of common innovations (the type of evidence required to assign languages to the same subgrouping) is not available. Loos adds Katukina to the Southern grouping, but this last claim calls for demonstration.

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The Southwestern Grouping

The currently extinct languages Yamiaka, Atsawaka, and maybe Arazaire may have constituted a separate Southwestern grouping, different from the Southern Panoan languages.

The Western or Preandine Grouping

Kashibo and Nokaman are considered unclassified by Loos. Shell provides evidence in the sense that Kashibo might have been the first language to have separated from the other members of the family, and that Kashibo and Nokaman run parellel in phonological innovations. Therefore, it seems plausible to consider Kashibo and Nokaman as constituting a subgroup of their own. A distinct Western or Preandine grouping consisting of Kashibo(-Kakataibo) and Nokaman coincides with the proposals by d'Ans and Erikson et alia.

The Northern Grouping

Probably the major weakness in Shell's and D'Ans' work is the fact that they did not include any language of the Matses / Mayoruna group. However, the peculiar grammatical features observable in the description provided by Kneeland (1979), a few observations in Shell (1975), and the fact that Loos does not include Matses / Mayoruna

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in any of the groupings above suggest the existence of a separate Northern grouping. According to Erikson et alia, this northern cluster would also comprise Matis, Korubo, Maya, Kulina-Panoan, and other uncontacted groups.

In sum, a fairly representative comparative study of Panoan languages should include at least one language from each of the following groupings: Ucayali, Purus, Southern, Southwestern (if data are available), Western / Preandine, and Northern. It might be advisable to treat Amawaka separately from other Purus languages. Obviously, extensive study of each individual language needs to be undertaken before arriving at any definitive sub-classification, and languages such as Marobo, Katukina, and Iskonawa still await assignment to one of the aforementioned groupings.

Table 1.3. Nomenclature in the Different Sub-Classification Proposals

D'Ans	Loos	Valenzuela
De las Cabeceras	Yaminawa	Purus
Beniano	Chakobo	Southern
Ucayalino	kapanahua	Ucayali
Del Norte	Ungrouped	Northern
Preandino	Ungrouped	Western / Preandine
Not listed	Chakobo	Southwestern

1.5.2. Features of Proto-Pano Grammar

In her comparative work already introduced above, Shell (1975) chooses the term "Reconstructed Pano" (RP) over "Proto-Pano" (PP) given that her study does not include

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all of the languages, and that the data on which it is based have been drawn from Peruvian Panoan primarily. Nevertheless, Proto-Pano and Reconstructed Pano are not expected to differ significantly (p.11).

Shell proposes reconstructed forms for more than 500 cognate sets; most of them are roots. Besides shortened body-part forms, the following grammatical proto-morphemes are given: **-aʂï* intransitivity agreement, **ßï ~ *ßïtã* comitative,**-ßo* collective / plural, **-kas* desiderative, **-ki* locative, **-m[a]* causative, **-ri?ßi* repetitive, **-ʂõ* benefactive, **-ʂõ* transitivity agreement, **-ti* nominalizer, **-wa* factitive, **-wï* imperative, **-ya* proprietive / comitative, and **[-ya]ma* negative. The factitive may be alternatively analyzed as a root meaning 'make;' the causative and the negative appear to be present in several genetically unrelated South American languages (David Payne 1990). Shell observes that although Panoan languages share a large number of cognate roots, suffixes differ greatly in form and use (op. cit.:11).

The phonological system of RP has been reconstructed as consisting of 16 consonants and 8 vowels. The consonants are: *p, *t, *k, *k^w, *ʔ, *m, *n, *ts, *tʃ, *r, *ß, *s, *ʃ, *ʂ, *w, *y. Vowels are the following: *i, *ï, *a, *o; all four have a nasalized counterpart. Two tone levels accompanied by stress have also been posited; although these are phonemically distinct, there seems to have been regular tone / stress changes based on common patterns. Pairs of syllables might have formed rhythmic groups. The most common reconstructed syllable patterns are V and CV. Additionally, the voiceless

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sibilants and the glottal stop might have occurred in coda position; however, only vowels and maybe the glottal stop seem to have occurred word-finally. Some phonotactic constraints are that *i and *ĩ cannot occur after *y, and *o and *õ cannot occur after *k^w and *w; in addition to this, *ï and its nasalized counterpart rarely followed *ʃ, and *i and *ĩ rarely followed *ʂ (Shell, op. cit.:53-98 and 192).[16] Clusters of two vowels may occur within morphemes. Nasalized vowels seem to be less frequent in the Proto-language than in the present-day languages (see also Key ms., Inter. Dict:270).

One very important finding for understanding allomorphic variation in Panoan languages is the postulation of a rule or set of rules by which RP monomorphemic trisyllabic nouns (and possibly other words) lost their final unstressed vowel or syllable in most of the languages, thus becoming disyllabic (pp.55 and 63; see also Loos 1973 and 1978, and Valenzuela 1998a).

Although there is no systematic attempt to reconstruct nominal and verbal affixes in Shell's work, certain grammatical features are mentioned, such as the relevance of verb valence and the different markings of core arguments (pp. 99-104), transitivity-associated agreement in subordinate clauses, short forms of generally body-part terms used in combination with roots, and possible traces of an inalienable / alienable distinction (pp.193-194).

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[16] Loos' (1999:230) proposal of Proto-Panoan consonants differs from Shell's RP in two points. Only Shell posits *K^w while only Loos posits *h. The four vowels are the same in both proposals. Loos points out that these have been retained with a high degree of consistency in the daughter languages. Matses also has a mid unrounded /e/ and, as pointed out by Shell (see 1.3.4.1), in Kashibo the sequences /ai/ and /au/ have resulted in /e/ and /ɔ/, respectively.

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Two other pieces of work deal with central aspects of PP grammar, the marking of A arguments (Loos 1985) and the reflexive (Loos 1978).

Chapter 20 in the present study is also a contribution to the reconstruction of Proto-Pano morpho-syntax; it posits the presence of participant agreement and a tripartite case-marking system in the ancestor language. In so doing, a handful of grammatical morphemes are reconstructed, some of which modify or further analyze those proposed by Shell.

1.6. More Inclusive Classifications

It is generally agreed that the Panoan and Takanan families are genetically related. Written observations regarding this relationship can be found as early as the end of the XIX century. Specifically, Navarro (1903:172) attributes to Armentia (1887) the claim of a genetic relationship between Shipibo, Konibo, Xetebo, and Kashibo on the one hand, and Pakawara and Araona spoken in the Madre de Dios region on the other; while Pakawara is a Panoan language, Araona belongs to the Takanan family. The claim of a possible genetic relationship between Panoan and Takanan is also present in Schuller (1930, see Aikenvald and Dixon 1999:365).

Key (1968) reconstructs Proto-Takanan phonology presenting around 600 cognate sets. This author includes in her work Panoan "cognates or presumed cognates" (1968:52). Girard (1971) proposes 116 lexical reconstructed items for Proto-Pano-Takanan, with regular phonetic correspondences (Aikhenvald and Dixon 1999:365). Key

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(ms., Inter. Dict.:270) puts forward the following phoneme correspondences between Proto-Takanan and Panoan languages:

Table 1.4. Phoneme Correspondences between Proto-Takanan and Panoan (Key, ms.)

Proto-Takanan	Panoan Languages
*m	/m/
*n	/n/
*p	/p/
*t	/t, tʃ, ts/
*k	/k, k^w/
*b	/b, ß/ perhaps /w/
*d	/r, n, 0/ but more cognates are needed
*ts	/ʂ/
*x	/k, ʔ, h/

The glottochronological time-depth of the Pano-Takanan "stock" has been estimated at 47 minimum centuries of divergence (Swadesh 1959, in Kauffman 1990:51).

Nevertheless, some scholars remain cautious about the nature of the Panoan-Takanan relationship. For example, Fabre (1998:820) does not rule out the possibility of an old areal contact, which would be responsible for both the numerous lexical correspondences and some morphological correspondences between the two families (see also Loos 1999:227).

Beyond the Pano-Takanan level, the classification of Panoan languages remains obscure. Some scholars have proposed a genetic relationship between Panoan and the following languages spoken further to the south: Moseten (Suárez 1969); Chon, Yurakare, Moseten, Ona and Tehuelche (Suárez 1973); Qawasqar, Chon, Yurakare,

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Moseten, and Mapudungun (Key and Clairis 1978, Key 1978). However, it must be pointed out that none of these studies compares Proto-Panoan with other Proto-languages, but rather selected lexical items from one or more current languages belonging to each group. Examining these proposals, Fabre (1998:820) concludes that a detailed comparative work based on lexical, phonological, and morphological correspondences remains to be undertaken in order to test the hypotheses regarding a genetic relationship between Macro Pano-Takanan and other more southern languages.

Other hypotheses that have been put forward are those of Migliazza and Wistrand-Robinson. Miggliazza proposed that Pano-Takanan may be related to Yanomamo, spoken on the Brazilian-Venezuelan border (see Erikson et alia 1994 and references therein). Wistrand-Robinson (1991) raised the possibility of a genetic relationship between Panoan and Uto-Aztecan languages. Among other problems, Fabre (1998:820) observes that Wistrand-Robinson proposes an unacceptable separation date of 1,650 years between Panoan and Uto-Aztecan.

McQuown (1965) and Greenberg (1987) grouped Panoan together with Ge and Karib.[17] Contrastively, Rodrigues (1985, 2000) has argued for a closer genetic relationship between Ge, Karib, and Tupi, to the exclusion of Panoan. Clearly, more language-specific and historical-comparative work is needed in order to provide an inclusive and acceptable classification of Panoan languages and contribute to the reconstruction of the linguistic and cultural history of South America.

[17] Kaufman (1990:65) observes that Greenberg's evidence from Ge-Panoan-Karib is limited to 12 lexical and 5 grammatical comparisons.

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1.7. Notes on Language Contact

SK and its closely related sister language Wariapano contain several lexical and a few grammatical features borrowed from Quechua. Missionaries and travellers have provided us with some written records regarding the use of Quechua in the catholic missions on the Ucayali. The promotion of Quechua as a language of christianization was accompanied by the introduction of other cultural Andean features (Marcoy 1869, Navarro 1903, Tessmann 1930). Moreover, it has been claimed that speakers of Wariapano were switching into Quechua and Spanish to the detriment of their own language towards the beginning of the XX century (Tessmann 1999[1930]:65). Wariapano is now considered extinct.

Quechua loans in SK include terms such as *atapa* for 'hen, chicken' (from *atawalʸpa* or *walʸpa*), a common situation in several Amazonian languages (Campbell 1997:12); in the Panoan languages from the Purus branch the version *takara* is found instead (see also section on phonology for *koríki* 'money' and *kirika* 'book'). SK has also borrowed Quechua numerals for numbers higher than two, while the Purus languages have not (Tournon and Valenzuela, fieldnotes).

An example of a borrowed function morpheme is the limitative postposition *kaman* 'until, up to' in SK, which derives from the Quechua limitative *-kama*; the Quechua verb *ati-* 'can' is present in the SK verb *atipan-* bearing the same meaning. Quechua elements are also found in the chants of Shipibo shamans who are not Quechua

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speakers. In addition to this, traditional narratives depict the Incas as mythical characters who brought technology to the Shipibo but abandoned them due to their disobedience.

To my knowledge, there is no conclusive evidence of direct contacts between Quechuan or Ayamaran speakers on the one hand and Panoan speakers on the other prior to the European invasion (but see Tournon 2002:33, 36, 39, 43, 54, 119-120, and references therein, with regard to possible exchanges between the Amazon and the Andes in those times).

The word /o'tʃiti/ 'dog' is most probably a loan from an Arawak language, namely Ashaninka, into SK.

At present, most Panoan languages are in intense contact with Spanish in Peru and Bolivia, and Portuguese in Brazil. In several cases, this situation has been going on for a relatively long period of time. With the exception of older monolingual speakers, the insertion of Spanish phonemes and syllable structures foreign to SK, particularly in place names, is generalized; on the other end of the bilingualism scale, the interference of Spanish in the speech of fluent bilinguals includes instances of code-switching. As expected, contexts related to the outside world such as school, ethno-political meetings, and radio programs transmitted from the city of Pucallpa are characterized by a significantly higher degree of Spanish influence.

Speakers of languages classified under the Purus grouping and inhabiting the Purus area may be multilingual. For example, a Sharanawa speaker reported that he speaks Sharanawa with all members of his family. However, he added that when encountering non-Sharanawa Panoans they communicate in "the language"; additionally,

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the same individual reported speaking Spanish with the *mestizos* and Portuguese with Brazilians.[18] An interesting observation by Kensinger (recorded in Shell 1975:25) is that when speakers of Kashinawa, Amawaka, and Marinawa occasionally meet on the rivers they resort to a kind of pidgin in order to understand each other, given that their languages are not mutually intelligible (maybe "the language" referred to by the Sharanawa speaker). Describing a similar situation between Kashinawa and Sharanawa speakers, Loos (1999:228) adds that these communicate in a kind of "pidgin-Panoan" characterized by the suppression of most suffixes, especially those that are not shared by the two languages. Also within this grouping, Sharanawa, Mastanawa and Chaninawa employ the Arawak term *shima* for 'fish' (Tournon and Valenzuela, fieldnotes).

A few Panoan loanwords have entered Peruvian Amazonian Spanish, such as the name of the city of Contamana derived from *kontá* (k. palm, *Attalea tessmanii, Palmae*) and *manan* (hill, mountain); i.e., 'hill or mountain where *kontá* palm trees' abound. There seem to be recent loans from Shipibo into Kashibo. Campbell points out that Amuesha has borrowed extensively not only from Quechua, but also from Panoan languages (1997:12). Finally, a comparison between Pano-Takanan and the Uru-Chipayan languages from the Titicaca and Poopo lakes seems to suggest an old areal contiguity between these two groupings. Interestingly, the exclusive lexical similarities between Uru-Chipayan and Panoan are more numerous than those between the former and Takanan (Fabre 1991, 1994, to appear). Moreover, certain morpho-syntatic features

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[18] I am grateful to Jacques Tournon for having made available to me the materials from which this observation is taken.

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recently described for Chipaya (Cerrón-Palomino, ms.) closely resemble those found in Panoan languages.

1.8. Theoretical Framework

In this section I first outline the major tenets of what has come to be known as the "Functional-Typological Approach" to language study, since it constitutes the broader paradigm within which I will operate. In addition, I delineate the principles of Prototype Theory, which has been explicitly or implicitly adopted by a number of linguists within the Functional Typological Approach, and discuss transitivity and related notions. Finally, I refer to the database and the methodologies employed.

1.8.1. The Functional-Typological Approach

It is generally agreed that two broad theoretical paradigms dominate the field of linguistics today; namely, the "formal" approach and the "functionalist" approach to language study (Van Valin and LaPolla 1997:8-15, Croft 1991:chapter 1, Dik 1981:1-5, 1989:81-2, 1997:2-3, Dirven and Fried 1987:x-xi, among others). According to some scholars, both functionalism and formalism have been present in the work of linguists during most part of the twentieth century.[19] These theoretical perspectives differ in their

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[19] According to Halliday (Parret 1974:83), Dirven and Fried (1987:xi) and Dik (1997:2-3), the formal paradigm includes American descriptivism / behaviorism (Bloomfield 1933; and Harris 1951), and

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conceptualization of human language and, therefore, in such major issues as the kinds of questions linguistics should be concerned with, what counts as explanation, and the methodologies to be employed.[20] It is not always possible to establish a clear-cut boundary between the two paradigms. A theory characterized as formalist by one author may be considered functionalist by another, and vice versa. In addition to this, theoretical perspectives are, of course, dynamic, and scholars may move towards the opposite pole.[21] Hence, the terms functionalist and formalist "poles" used by Dirven and Fried (1987) seem most suitable.

Although functional approaches were already present in the work of several linguists, especially in Europe, it is in the Prague School where functionalism appeared most explicitly and systematically from the very beginning (Daneš, 1987:3). It can be said that the Prague School "...has provided the linguistic world with a functionalist awareness (or at least served as its catalyzer)" (Dirven and Fried 1987:x). An important aspect of functionalism is its wide scope, which includes not only pragmatics and psycho-linguistics (as seems most obvious for functionalists today), but also socio-linguistics, ethno-linguistics, language contact studies, historical linguistics, and stylistics.

Currently, functionalism is not unified under a single theory but includes a wide range of theoretical perspectives. There are named theories such as Role and Reference

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generativism since Chomsky (1957). In both approaches language is conceptualized as a formal abstract object completely separated from its context of use.

[20] A useful chart summarizing the major principles of these two paradigms can be found in Dik (1981:4-5).

[21] For example, Lexical Functional Grammar is listed as functionalist in Van Valin and LaPolla (1997:11) but may be considered as formalist by other linguists. Dirven and Fried 1987:xi-ii refer to former generativists who have moved towards the functional pole.

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Grammar, Cognitive Grammar, or Construction Grammar, as well as influential individuals not associated with any named theory (see Tomlin 1994:144-145, and references therein). In addition to this, there are linguists who are best known for their contribution through modern typological studies or for their substantial descriptions of entire languages.

1.8.2. Main Tenets of Functionalism

The main tenets of functionalism can be summarized in the principles described below.

1.8.2.1. Language is an Instrument for Communication

Language is primarily an instrument for communication, a means for an end. Being an instrument entails that language "does not exist in and by itself as an arbitrary structure of some kind," but "by virtue of being used for certain purposes. These purposes concern the social interaction between human beings" (Dik 1997:5). Speakers conceptualize events and states of affairs in a certain way, and choose particular points of view to talk about them; they intentionally communicate with hearers having a certain goal in mind, and making decisions based on their assumptions of the hearers' representations, knowledge, and beliefs. Therefore, speakers' strategies to achieve their communicative goals as well as the role played by language in cognitive processes are a crucial

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component of linguistic knowledge (Grimes 1975, Hopper and Thompson 1980, Givón 1983, Schiffrin 1987, DeLancey 1991, among others).

1.8.2.2. Isomorphism of Form and Function, and Arbitrariness

The nature of an instrument (i.e., grammar) is necessarily shaped by the functions it serves (i.e., communication). Therefore, from a functionalist perspective, the interaction between form and function cannot be essentially arbitrary. On the contrary, there is a parallelism between syntactic structure and semantic structure. Grammar is functionally constrained, and predictable principles can be attested across languages. Moreover, form and function interactions are explainable in terms of more general social and cognitive factors (Tomlin 1994:152, Croft 2001).

Nevertheless, the relations linking form and function are complex and indirect, and there is no one-to-one correspondence between function and form. The grammars of particular languages necessarily involve some degree of arbitrariness. This may be so because principled motivations compete with each other, and the way languages solve this competition is always partially arbitrary (Croft 1995:504-509, 2001).

1.8.2.3. Language is not an Autonomous System

Most functionalists subscribe to the fundamental assumption that the inborn cognitive endowment that allows humans to acquire and use language is not specific to language,

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but shared with other nonlinguistic cognitive systems. Therefore, language and grammar cannot be described or explained adequately as an autonomous system (Givón 1994:xv). From an extreme view, children come to the language learning enterprise with a powerful set of general learning mechanisms and use it to bootstrap a grammar from the rich data of human discourse interactions. All aspects of grammar are considered to develop anew from the communicative environment. A weaker view is that some aspects of language knowledge may be available from the outset, but language-specific manifestations must arise from a principled interaction of the learner and the discourse environment (Tomlin 1994:148-9). The fact that grammar is not arbitrary and the existence of functional constraints on grammatical form make languages learnable.

1.8.3. Typological and Descriptive Studies

Typological studies are typically based on function. While structures are language-specific, functions are general; hence a preferred means to compare grammatical structures in genetically unrelated languages is by departing from function and see how these are encoded in languages.

Besides establishing the possible logical types with respect to a given parameter and placing languages into each type, typological studies aim at discovering the recurring associations or correlations of logically independent parameters that were previously thought to be unrelated. Also diachronic relations among structures are established. In

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this way, typological studies arrive at absolute or implicational universals, which in turn have to be explainable in functional or cognitive terms.

Typological studies, language change studies, and descriptions of entire languages generally follow what has been referred to as "Basic Linguistic Theory" (BLT). BLT designates an eclectic framework which slowly developed over the past century with the goal of describing languages in their own terms, in a user-friendly manner, and without unnecessary formalisms derived from theories that might not stand the test of time. BLT is based on the cumulative experience obtained from the description of particular languages and has greatly benefited from cross-linguistic findings (Dixon 1997:128, Dryer http://linguistics.buffalo.edu/people/faculty/dryer/blt December 2002; see also criticisms in Everett 2002).

BLT has incorporated structuralist analytic techniques, particularly in phonology and morphology. It has also been influenced, to a certain extent, by early generative grammar in syntax, and more recently by generative and autosegmental phonology. However, differently from structuralism and generativism, BLT includes semantic, pragmatic, and diachronic considerations. Hence BLT can be viewed as part of a broader explanatory framework; namely, the Functional-Typological Approach.

1.8.4. Prototype Theory

Many functionalists in the linguistic field view prototype theory as a categorization model that responds to the nature of human languages, and therefore to the kind of

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grammatical rules necessary to talk about them. Before looking at particular instances of prototype-based approaches to language, let us outline what is understood by prototype theory.

The traditional categorization model previous to prototype theory is based on criterial properties; that is, for any given entity, a feature is either present or absent, and things belong to the same category if and only if they share certain features which are necessary and sufficient conditions for defining it. Following this approach, linguistic categories belong to a single class with clear-cut boundaries, all members are equally good examples, and grammatical rules are expected to be exceptionless.

It was Eleanor Rosch who first proposed that thought in general is organized in terms of prototypes and basic-level categories. However, the philosophical basis of prototype theory can be traced back to Wittgenstein's fuzzy-edged categories and "family resemblance" (Lakoff 1987). According to the prototype model most members of a category will be clearly distinguishable from most members of a contrasting category; however, at least some categories will have degrees of membership instead of clear-cut boundaries. Another principle of prototype theory is that categories are formed of multiple criterial properties (instead of just one), some of which may be displayed by more members. Attributes do not occur independently but they are strongly associated; this means that in the majority of cases, having one attribute implies having many of the others. Psychological categories possess a core meaning and instances of categories differ in the degree to which they fit this core meaning; as a result of this "internal structure," some members may be better examples than others. Furthermore, the

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properties of certain categories are a consequence of the nature of human biological capacities and of the experience of functioning in a physical and social environment. Finally, it is due to the fuzzy-edged nature of prototype categories that metaphoric extension is possible (Rosch 1973, 1977, 1978; Givón 1984, 1997; Lakoff 1987). Given the characteristics described above, grammatical rules in prototype-based linguistic studies are not expected to be exceptionless necessarily.

As mentioned above, a prototype view has been embraced by several scholars in the linguistic field. For example, Keenan (1976) describes grammatical relations in terms of a cluster of semantic, pragmatic and grammatical properties. According to these properties, languages will exhibit degrees of grammaticalization of their syntactic relations. Givón (1995, 1997) has interpreted Keenan's work as a prototype-based approach. Another example of a prototype-based frame is Hopper and Thompson's (1980) influential article on transitivity. These authors question the traditional definition of transitivity based on a single criterial property and identify ten parameters according to which clauses can be rated along the transitivity continuum. Shibatani (1985) explicitly adopts the framework of prototype theory to account for the fact that passives form a continuum with active sentences, and that there is a passive prototype as well as partial resemblances of passives with other constructions such as the reflexive, reciprocal, spontaneous, potential, honorific and plural formation. Levin's (1993) view of verb classification constitutes another instance against the traditional notion of criterial properties. Levin claims that the behavior of a verb is to a large extent determined by its meaning. However, it is unlikely that a single meaning property in itself can be sufficient

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to characterize a particular class of verbs; rather, it is the conjunction of properties that together reflect the meaning components shared by the class members. Furthermore, since many of these meaning components are common to other verb classes, the properties attributable to a single meaning component will be present in various verb classes (1993:16-7). As will be discussed below, the prototype categorization framework has also been applied to the study of SK (Valenzuela 1997).

1.8.5. Alignment Typology

Following Harris and Campbell (1995:240), I employ the term "alignment" to refer to the organization of the core arguments of a clause in a given language. The advantage of this term is that it is neutral with regard to the formal means through which this organization is manifested; i.e. case-markers, adpositions or particles, verbal affixes, constituent order, intonation, or a combination of these (Givón 1984:136, 146-7). As it has become customary in alignment studies, I adopt as labels of convenience the symbols S_a, S_o, A and O to refer to the core arguments of a clause. S_a and S_o refer, respectively, to the single argument of an active and inactive intransitive clause. With verbs involving two or more obligatory arguments, the assignment of A and O relations depends on the prototypical meaning of the verb at hand. A refers to the most agent-like participant, while O refers to the most patient-like one (Dixon 1979, 1994; cf. Harris 1997, Mithun and Chafe 1999).

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Cross-linguistically it is widely accepted that languages organize their arguments in at least three basic configurations. According to Lazard (1998:41), these distributions would result from the interaction of two fundamental principles: intelligibility and economy. A nominative-accusative system expresses the opposition between subject and object highlighting in this way the "starting points" of the discourse (Mithun and Chafe 1999), since S_a, S_o and A show the same distribution (nominative), while O exhibits a different behavior (accusative). In an ergative-absolutive alignment, S_a, S_o and O receive the same treatment (absolutive) which differs from that of A (ergative); this alignment has been said to more clearly reflect the semantic relations of prototypical actions (Lazard 1998:249). A third type of alignment, the active-inactive one, establishes a distinction between the single argument of an active predicate (S_a) and the single argument of an inactive predicate (S_o); furthermore, S_a and S_o are treated like A and O, respectively. This system expresses the semantic distinction between agents and non-agents, although the categorization of a predicate as active or inactive may vary from language to language.[22] In what follows, I will refer to these three basic alignment types as "accusative," "ergative" and "active," respectively. In addition, some languages employ "tripartite" configurations so that S (i.e. S_a and S_o), A and O are all treated differently (Dixon 1994:39-41); or "neutral" configurations in which S, A and O behave in the same way.

[22] The active-inactive system has also received other names in the literature such as split-S, active-stative and dual structure; see Mithun 1991, and Lazard 1986.

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Most languages with an ergative alignment (and possibly also those with an active alignment) make use of a distinct configuration in certain areas of its grammar. The distribution of the distinct systems may be associated to the type of noun phrase, the opposition between noun phrases and pronominal verb morphology, tense-aspect-mood distinctions, the syntactic status of the clause, or discourse-pragmatic factors (Dixon 1994, Harris and Campbell 1995, Blake 1977, Blake and Dixon 1979: 6-9, among others). This characteristic is known as "split-ergativity."

1.8.6. Database and Methodology

I first started working with the Shipibo towards the beginning of 1990, when I was hired as a linguist for the bilingual teachers' certification program co-directed by the Indigenous Confederation of the Peruvian Amazon (AIDESEP). For circa four years I worked closely with Shipibo students in the city of Iquitos, as well as with them and other members of the ethnic group in several villages on the Ucayali River and tributaries. Rather than focusing on linguistic documentation, my work during this time was mainly of a pedagogical nature. Nevertheless, this immersion in the Shipibo world and the resulting personal relationships provided me with invaluable experience and created very favorable conditions to carry out subsequent ethno-linguistic research. Although I did not focus on language description while living in the Amazon, I did acquire some competence in SK and developed a certain degree of intuition for the language. However, all the data and the points made in this work are exclusively based

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on the speech of native speakers for whom SK is the primary or even the only language, and / or on their judgements. During the course of my graduate studies outside Peru my understanding of SK grammar increased significantly, while my speaker competence diminished dramatically.

The core of the data upon which the present study is based originates from my own work among the Shipibo and consists mainly of recorded texts. These data were mostly gathered during several stays in the Shipibo territory as well as in neighboring towns and cities, at different moments especially between 1996 and 2002. Recorded texts were transcribed and translated into Spanish with the help of Shipibo collaborators. Other text data include reading materials addressed to a Shipibo audience; these texts were checked by native speakers and on several occasions also translated into Spanish. Materials originally written in a different language and later translated into SK (such as the New Testament or the United Nations Declaration of Human Rights) have not been considered. Unless otherwise indicated, the illustrative sentences in this study come from my own database. Except for the publications authored by Valenzuela, the analysis, glosses, and English translation of the examples taken from other sources have been provided by me.

The text data have been complemented with plenty of elicited materials and other kinds of fieldnotes such as data overheard from native speakers, and native speaker's intuitions and grammaticality judgements. In carrying out elicitation, I have favored constructed scenarios portraying events of Shipibo community life or sometimes imaginary events, relying as little as possible on translation of isolated sentences.

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Despite their potential problems, I have also resorted to grammaticality judgements, though trying to embed the constructions in question within adequate non-linguistic contexts. I would like to stress that the Shipibo who collaborated with me not only hold their identity and language in very high esteem, but also are well aware that they are the sole authority in deciding what constitutes good SK and what does not. I often had the opportunity of working with speakers who participated in basic linguistics classes I had taught in the past and / or who simply had a natural inclination towards linguistic analysis. These collaborators knew very well that linguistics is essentially about what native speakers say and do with language, rather than prescriptive rules or syntactic calques from the dominant language. As can be gathered from the introduction, SK is a minority language, but also a very vital one. Besides trying to account for common constructions, some collaborators and I were often interested in exploring less common possibilities offered by the system, and sometimes in testing and understanding its limits. In several such discussions, collaborators shared important insights with me that constituted the key in arriving at the present analyses.

As a principle, preference is given to textual data over elicited data, particularly for the description of syntactic structures. Elicited materials have been used in describing the phonology, completing paradigms and further analyzing phenomena first identified in spontaneous speech, or to deal with specific points for which answers are not commonly found in spontaneous text. Unless explicitly mentioned, every illustrative example has been checked by at least a second speaker.

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Although the analysis provided here is essentially qualitative, some figures regarding the frequency with which a given construction or combination occurs in the data are given in a couple of chapters. However, no statistical significance is claimed in these cases.

In discussing a given grammatical phenomenon or construction I have tried to provide both a functional and a form definition. In addition to this, a somewhat typologically informed overview of the topic is provided in order to see how the constructions found in SK fit into what is known from other languages around the world. Then, I have described SK in its own terms employing what can be referred to as the Basic Linguistic Theory framework; a subsequent step involved comparison of the findings with specific questions raised in the literature. Nevertheless, the organization of the chapters does not necessarily follow this order, and chapters also differ in the emphasis given to different kinds of analysis. For certain topics, I have provided comparative data and proposed a diachronic account.

I am well aware of the many gaps and shortcomings of the present study, but hope that my work captures some of the genius of the SK language and encourages further work, especially in Peru.

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PART I

A GRAMMAR OF SHIPIBO-KONIBO

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CHAPTER 2

TYPOLOGICAL CHARACTERIZATION AND OTHER SALIENT FEATURES

Before dealing with the different levels of linguistic analysis such as phonology, morphology, and syntax, I will briefly categorize SK with respect to a few major, well-known typologies and highlight some characteristic features; in this way, the reader can get a sense of the kind of language we are dealing with from the beginning. I have also included some diachronic observations, a short list of negative characteristics (i.e., what SK does not have), and a summary of semantic and cultural points that may be of special interest to some readers.

2.1. Morphological Typology

SK can be characterized as a predominantly agglutinating language: words tend to be plurimorphemic, there is usually a biunique relationship between form and function, and in most cases morpheme boundaries are easily identifiable. However, it is common to have unmarked nominal and adjectival roots (since the absolutive case is generally zero and there is no agreement across NP constituents), as well as sequences of morphemes

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lacking clear-cut boundaries (e.g., certain nominal plus ergative, or root plus detransitivizer sequences). In addition to this, there are a few instances of stem changes and suppletion. Finally, the verb may carry one or more deictic-directive / adverb-type suffixes, in what can be described as a polysynthetic tendency.

In terms of affixation, SK is suffixal, except for a closed set of noun roots that occur in a reduced form and may be prefixed to verbal, adjectival, and other nominal roots; this set of noun roots generally refers to parts of the body. In addition, nouns ending in an open unstressed syllable form their vocative by shifting the stress to the last syllable; i.e., an instance of suprafix or suprasegmental marking.

SK also has postpositions and different types of enclitics, some of which are more precisely "endoclitics" given that they may precede suffixes and thus occur word-internally. The border between postpositions and enclitics is sometimes fuzzy; the same is true of serialized or compound verbs and verb plus suffix sequences.

2.2. Basic Constituent Order

As to main clausal constituent order, SK is of the basic head-final type. The following strict word order correlations can be attested: the possessor precedes the possessum and as mentioned above there are postpositions rather than prepositions. Nevertheless, SK exhibits a great deal of word order flexibility not only with respect to major clausal constituents (except for nominalized and reference-marked clauses which are strictly verb final), but also within the noun phrase. For instance, adjectives, some quantifiers, the

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numerals 'one' and especially 'two,' and relative clauses may either precede or follow their head nominal with no obvious semantic consequence. Additionally, most auxiliaries can either precede or follow the semantically main verb. The free intensifier *kikin* 'extremely, truly' always precedes the adjective and its modified head, but there are additional intensifier enclitics (namely *-yora* and *-shaman*); manner adjuncts and postpositional phrases precede or follow the verb; copulas precede or follow their predicate; and *keen-* 'want' precedes or follows its subordinate clause when functioning as a manipulation or modality verb.

2.3. Expression of Arguments

Verb arguments are expressed through free lexical case-marked nominals, with no coreferential pronominal marking on the verb or auxiliary (subject plural marking is obligatory when plurality is not expressed in the nominal). Hence, it can be said that SK is a lexical argument language (as defined in Jelinek 1984) for both subject and object functions. Omission of required subject and object is normally understood as a zero third person singular form. There is no systematic morpho-syntactic means of distinguishing direct from indirect objects, or primary versus secondary objects.

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2.4. Head-Marking versus Dependent-Marking Features

The use of free case-marked lexical nominals and the absence of pronominal marking on the verb or auxiliary are characteristic of a dependent-marking type language. Other dependent-marking features are the marking of nominal and pronominal possession on the possessor rather than on the possessum, the presence of absolutive or oblique case-marking on the objects of postpositions, and the use of inflectional morphology on certain adjuncts in agreement with the syntactic function of their controlling nominals. As for relative clauses, these are non-finite, obligatorily verb-final, and may be incomplete in terms of arguments; all these are clear dependent-marking features which are also shared by other types of subordinate clauses.

Head-marking features are also found in SK; for example, a relative clause may be internally-headed. In addition, certain types of negation are marked on the head and not on the dependent element of a constituent: negation of indefinite pronouns and universal nominal negation (such as 'no child came') are marked on the verb rather than on the nominal; negation of attributes indicating what a nominal referent is made of (such as 'not a wooden house') is marked on the nominal rather than on the attribute. Finally, the verb may carry adverbial information such as whether an action is performed all night or all day long, completely, again, by two participants, in a distributive fashion, up or down the river, from or towards a specific point set in the discourse, etc. These last features may be interpreted as head-marking. In attributive phrases both the noun and the modifying adjective occur unmarked.

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2.5. Case-Marking

SK exhibits a fairly rigid ergative-absolutive case-marking system. The ergative case is marked by the enclitic *-n* that attaches to the last element of the corresponding NP; the absolutive is *-a* for some pronouns, and zero in all other cases. Unlike the situation most commonly found in languages of this type, including most of those in the Panoan family, there are no instances of case-marking splits of the familiar sorts. A possible exception is found with regard to emphatic pronouns, whose case-marking is governed in a nominative fashion. In addition, desiderative clauses and clauses with overt progressive marking may mark A arguments as either absolutive or ergative depending on the pragmatic status of the O argument.

The phrasal enclitic *-n* exhibits a rich allomorphy and represents an interesting instance of both case syncretism and polyfunctionality. Besides the ergative, it also codes genitive, instrumental-means, locative-allative, temporal, and other oblique functions. Pronominal paradigms can be said to be asymmetrical, since certain pronouns exhibit more case distinctions than other pronouns and nouns.

2.6. Participant Agreement

Certain adverbial-like words, phrases, and clauses (referred here as "adjuncts" since they are not arguments of the verb) are semantically oriented towards one core participant or

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controller and receive a marking in accordance with the syntactic function this participant plays. Given that the agreement markers in question display an overall tripartite distribution, this feature can be analyzed as a type of split-ergativity which might be exclusive to Panoan.

2.7. Clause-Chaining and Switch-Reference System

Having a preference for the combination of two or more clauses of different rank only one of which exhibits fully finite verb inflection, SK can be characterized as a clause-chaining language; in turn, the non-finite clauses in the chain carry same- or switch-reference marking (i.e., "reference-marking"). Nevertheless, it is uncommon to find the lengthy chains typical of some Papuan languages (e.g., Wambon, de Vries ms.; Haruai, Comrie 1998). In SK reference-marked clauses are strictly verb-final; usually lack an overt subject argument; carry no obvious nominalizing morphology; and may precede, follow, or be embedded in their matrix clause. Furthermore, reference-marked clauses need not be adjacent to their matrix clause and two or more marked clauses may share the same matrix clause.

Besides coding coreferentiality or non-coreferentiality of arguments and the relative temporal or logical order of the two events, same-reference markers may reveal the transitivity status of the matrix verb. This is so, given that most same-subject markers are identical to the participant agreement morphemes mentioned above and hence correlate with the S or A function played by their controller in the matrix clause. Same-

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or switch-reference marking may also be used to encode different types of discourse (dis)continuity.

2.8. Transitivity Agreement

There are other types of transitivity-associated phenomena in SK. Phasal verbs like 'start,' 'finish,' and 'stop (doing something),' for example, must agree in transitivity with their semantically main verb; a comparable situation is found with pro-verbs or auxiliaries, serialized verbs, certain verbal suffixes, and suppletive verb stems.

2.9. Split-Ergativity

As mentioned above, SK has a fairly consistent ergative-absolutive case-marking system. Syntactically, imperative clauses and internally-headed relative constructions also exhibit this type of alignment; i.e., only NPs in S/O function may be overtly expressed in the former, or be interpreted as coreferential with a matrix clause argument in the latter. On the other hand, case-marking on emphatic pronouns, the plural verb suffix *-kan*, and most interclausal control properties operate in a nominative-accusative fashion. As mentioned above, a tripartite distribution is attested with respect to the participant agreement morphology; in addition, the overall shape of emphatic pronouns also shows distinct forms when in S, A, or O functions.

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2.10. Evidentiality

The coding of evidentiality takes place at two different levels. First, a major distinction between first-hand information and second-hand information is established. Upon this basic distinction, two other markers may be added to indicate inference or speculation. Evidentiality is not a verbal category in SK but is expressed through clitics generally appended to the first major sentence constituent; however, if the first major constituent is a finite verb, evidentials precede the plural and finite aspectual morphology. In narratives, the direct and reportative evidentials do not occur on every clause or sentence, but are used to mark certain discourse units. Reported imperative expressions are possible in SK to transmit someone else's orders or requests. Evidentials have epistemic and mirative functions.

2.11. Other Salient Features

The phoneme /ɨ/ is one of the four vowels SK has; this segment has been posited as one characteristic feature of Amazonian languages (Aikhenvald and Dixon 1999:8). Probably the most interesting phoneme is the retroflex approximant /ɻ/, which is a highly variable segment. Some morphemes exhibit alternate allomorphs depending on whether they attach to an element with an even or an odd number of moras. This phenomenon has been called "alternate mora-timing" (Lauriault 1948). However, the answer as to whether

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codas or only nuclei should count as moraic in SK is not straightforward as can be drawn from the examination of stress patterns and morpho-phonological distributions.

SK exhibits several instances of case-stacking, so that a nominal may receive up to four (reconstructible) case-markers. Ablatives are always formed upon locatives.

A few verbal suffixes indicate specific tense distinctions such as different degrees of past and a 'tomorrow' future. Other interesting verb categories are those coding deictic-directive / adverb-type meanings. With regard to valency-changing mechanisms, SK has a few causativizers encoding different degrees of force-dynamics, three applicatives one of which is restricted to transitive stems, a middle marker (with reflexive, anticausative and sometimes passive senses), and a dedicated reciprocal. Verb stems can contain body-part prefixes, as well as onomatopoeic roots which combine with transitive and intransitive semantically generic verbs. Short answers to polar questions are interesting since they involve the semantically generic verbs functioning as pro-verbs, as well as same-subject marking. First person plural inclusive exhortatives and negative imperatives are biclausal. Relative clauses can be prenominal, postnominal, circumnominal, or adjoined.

2.12. Diachronic Observations

Certain verbs have become or are in the process of becoming bound verbal modifiers while simultaneously retaining their former function; e.g., the negative existential verb *yama-* is also the negative verbal suffix, the transitive verb *pake-* 'cause to fall' may be

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appended to another transitive verb to code distributive action, the verbs 'come' and 'go' seem to have combined with a second marker to become venitive and andative suffixes, and the verb *toshi-* 'pop up, burst' may be added to another verb stem to encode a sudden event. As mentioned above, when added to a finite verb, second position clitics obligatorily precede the plural *-kan* and aspectual morphology, thus suggesting a relatively recent grammaticalization of the plural and aspect markers. There is identity in form and semantic compatibility between applicatives and same-subject markers; this may be due to a diachronic connection (Valenzuela 1999). A common origin is also posited for certain pairs of formally identical clauses, which nevertheless exhibit distinct finite versus nominalized syntactic status. There are a few periphrastic finite verb forms such as the "narrative past," whose structures reveal an obvious nominalized origin.

Some postpositions have developed from nouns denoting body parts to which an oblique marker has been added; e.g. *pekáo* 'behind' < *peká* 'back' + the approximative locative *-o*. The comitative postposition *betan* has developed into a noun phrase conjunction while retaining its former function. A shortened version of the comitative is also found in combination with the prefix *ra-* 'body, person' to form the numeral *rabé* 'two.' The intensifier *-yora* probably developed from *yora* 'person, body' (see also Semantic and Cultural Observations below).

Participant agreement on adjuncts exhibits traces of an older tripartite case-marking system; Chapter 20 provides a synchronic and comparative analysis of this typologically salient feature. Reference-marked demonstratives have developed into interclausal and intersentential conjunctions. The medial demonstrative *ja* has become

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the third person singular pronoun, and may also function as definite article, whereas the numeral 'one' may be used as indefinite article.

2.13. Negative Characteristics

SK has no gender or noun class categories, no classifiers, no obvious alienable versus inalienable possession distinction, no first person plural inclusive versus exclusive distinction (but see hortatives), no dual number (although the verb suffix *-bekon* indicates action carried out by two participants), and no honorific pronouns. As for verbs, these do not exhibit cross-referential pronominal morphemes.

Another negative characteristic is the absence of voice mechanisms of the canonical sort, such as agentive passive and antipassive.

2.14. Semantic and Cultural Observations

Most perception, cognition and utterance events are morpho-syntactically encoded through prototypical transitive clauses. Emotions are generally expressed via extended intransitive clauses, with the experiencer coded as S and the stimulus argument coded as oblique. Forces, illnesses and other inanimates depicted as affecting other entities behave morpho-syntactically as highly transitive subjects. For example, the only way to express the equivalent to the English 'drown (intr.)' is through a transitive construction involving the verb 'kill,' with the flowing water coded as A and the affected participant coded as O.

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In turn, to express the equivalent of the English 'drown (tr.)' a causative construction with the literal translation 'X caused the flowing water to kill Y' would be required (see exx. (8)-(9) in Chapter 16). The same holds for 'to die suffocated' or 'to die from vomiting' which involve the nouns *join* 'air' and *kinan* 'vomit,' respectively. Also, body parts are encoded as transitive subjects in order to express the meaning 'ache.'

Compounding is a very productive process. Animal and plant names at the generic biological level tend to be monomorphemic, while most categories at levels below the genus are compounded. It is common to employ the name of a highly salient animal or plant as a modifier that refers metaphorically to a distinctive characteristic of the species. For example, *ino-rono* 'jaguar-snake' is a kind of snake whose head is said to resemble that of a jaguar (Valenzuela 1998b). Traditional Shipibo proper names are also compounded. As a general rule, the first element is common to women and men, and at least some may be related to former clan names; the second element is usually specific to each sex. Ethnonyms are generally based on animal names; e.g., Kashibo [*kaʃi* 'bat' + *-βo* collective / plural] 'Bat People.'

Onomatopoeia, often in combination with the intransitive and transitive semantically generic verbs or auxiliaries, is a common lexicalization strategy. This may be used in the coining of new vocabulary; e.g., *to'-a-ti* [ONOM-do.T-INF] 'shotgun' (lit. 'sth. to make "*to*" to so./sth. else'), *to' ak-* [ONOM-do.T] 'kill with a shotgun,' *to' ik-* [ONOM-do.I] 'kill oneself with a shotgun.'

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The adverb *bakish* is best translated as 'one day from today' since it corresponds to both 'yesterday' and 'tomorrow.' There are two different words for English 'water;' while *jene* refers to flowing water, *onpax* refers to contained water. Therefore, when bathing in the river one must take care that little children do not swallow *jene*, but one can only drink a glass of *onpax*. *Jene* also means 'sap' or 'juice;' when preceded by *xoma* 'breast,' it means 'milk.'

The derived noun *piti* is composed of the root *pi-* 'eat' and the irrealis nominalizer or infinitive suffix *-ti*; therefore, *piti* literally means 'food.' However, *piti* is primarily interpreted as 'fish,' which is the Shipibo food *par excellence*. Consider the following excerpt from Valenzuela (2000a:4) (see also 1.3.6): "The impressive resources of the major rivers and adjacent ox-bow lakes constitute the principal source of protein for the Shipibo, for whom "a day without fresh fish is a day of starvation" (Lathrap *op.cit.*, p.19)". There is an additional term, *yapa*, which means 'fish.'

Color terms are *joxo* 'white,' *wiso* 'black,' *chexe* 'sharp (color), black,' *yankon* 'blue / green,' *panshin* 'yellow,' *joshin* 'red' (also 'ripe'). Note that the last two terms share the ending *-shin*. An additional term, *emo*, is best translated as 'faded white, colorless' (like an old piece of cloth that has lost its original color). SK is relatively rich in categories describing olfactory perception; some ten different terms describing kinds of smells have been identified (Tournon, p.c.).

Native numerals are only *westíora* 'one' and *rabé* 'two;' further on Quechua numerals have been borrowed. *Westíora* might derive from *westí* 'few, sparse' + *yora* 'body, person' > intensifier suffix; and as mentioned above, *rabé* derives from *ra-*

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shortened form of 'body, person' + *-bé* shortened form of the comitative *beta(n)* also attested on pronouns.

The terms *wetsa* and *poi* refer to 'same-sex sibling' and 'opposite-sex sibling,' respectively; i.e., *wetsa* designates a man's brother or a woman's sister, and *poi* a man's sister or a woman's brother. The term *rayos* means either a man's parent-in-law, or a man's or woman's son-in-law but not daughter-in-law. According to Shipibo culture, relatives holding the relationship of *rayos* must not speak directly to each other, but communicate through their daughter or wife. This socio-cultural behavior triggers the relatively frequent use of jussive constructions (e.g., 'May your husband bring firewood' instead of 'Bring firewood!'). The term *chichi* means both 'maternal grandmother' and 'highest authority' (see 1.3.7).

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CHAPTER 3

PHONOLOGY AND MORPHO-PHONOLOGY

3.1. Phonology

3.1.1. Phonemic Inventory

SK has 4 vowels and 15 consonants.[1] The four contrasting vowels are given in Table 3.1:

Table 3.1. Vowel System of Shipibo-Konibo

	Front	Central	Back
High	i	ɨ	o
Mid			
Low		a	

[1] This section is mainly based on the analysis provided in Valenzuela, Márquez, and Maddieson (2001).

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None of the four vowels is fully peripheral; allophonic variation towards more centralized realizations is frequent in closed syllables. The SK vowel system coincides with the one proposed for Reconstructed-Pano (Shell 1975:79-80). Consider the following minimal pairs:

(1)	/ˈkini/	'hole'
	/ˈkani-/	'went (remote past)'
	/ˈkoni/	'eel'
	/ˈkɨni/	'whisker, beard'

The back rounded vowel /o/ fluctuates phonetically between [o], [U], and [u], of which [o] may be the most common allophone. The high variants are pronounced before /i/ as in [ˈui] 'rain,' [ˈhui] 'word,' [ˈnui] 'love,' [ˈjui] person's proper name, etc. The lower variants are often found before or after /a/: [ˈʂao] 'bone,' [ˈtsoa] 'who (absolutive).' The high front vowel /i/ is realized as [i] when stressed and also has the allophones [I] and [e] in free distribution, as in the last unstressed vowel of /oˈtʃiti/ 'dog' -> [oˈtʃite] ~ [oˈtʃitI].

The high central unrounded vowel /ɨ/ is realized as such after coronals, especially /t, n, s/, and as a back unrounded vowel [ɯ] after labial and velar consonants; the latter is also the preferred allophone when pronouncing the segment in isolation.[2]

[2] I was not always able to distinguish between the sequences /βɨ/ and /wɨ/; however, Shipibo collaborators distinguished them consistently.

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Nasalized vowels are attested, but they are analyzed here as /Vn/ sequences.[3] Although phonetic long vowels occur in roots like [na:] 'nest,' [βo:] 'hair,' [tɨ:] 'work,' [mi:n-] 'bury,' and [kɨ:n-] 'want,' there is no phonological vowel length distinction (see 3.1.5).

There are fifteen consonantal phonemes in SK, as shown in Table 3.2.

Table 3.2. Consonant System of Shipibo-Konibo

	Bilabial	Dental	Alveolar	Palato-alveolar	Retroflex	Palatal	Velar	Glottal
Plosive	p	t					k	
Affricate			ts	tʃ				
Nasal	m		n					
Fricative	β		s	ʃ	ʂ			h
Approximant	w				ɻ	J		

There are three plosives, all of them voiceless and unaspirated, contrasting at the bilabial, dental, and velar points of articulation. There is also a voiceless glottal stop that appears to have a predictable distribution: before utterance-initial vowels, after utterance-final stressed vowels, at certain morphemic boundaries such as between open monosyllabic

[3] This analysis is consistent with other phonological and morpho-phonological aspects of the language (see 3.1.3.1 and 3.1.6.2).

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onomatopoeic roots and their corresponding auxiliaries.[4] The absence of /ʔ/ and /k^{w}/, and the presence of /h/ differentiates the consonantal system of SK from that of Reconstructed-Pano (Shell 1975:53-78).

The voiceless affricates /ts/ and /tʃ/ are interpreted as single units since no consonant clusters occur in word initial position. Consider the following minimal pairs involving the affricates:

(2)	/mɨˈtʃa/	'wet'	/mɨˈtsa/	'beautiful'
	/tʃaˈma/	'enemy (vocative)'	/tsaˈma-/	'get together'

There are five fricatives: three voiceless coronal sibilants /s, ʃ, ʂ/, the glottal /h/, and the voiced bilabial /ß/. Observe the phonemic contrast between the sibilants in the words below (from Dávila, Lauriault, and Loriot 1976):

(3)	/ˈhanʃo/	'scurvy'.
	/ˈhanso/	'liar'
	/ˈhanʂo/	'(something) stinky (e.g., blood; noun and modifier)'

While both /ʃ/ and /ʂ/ are postalveolar, the former has a flatter profile of the tongue and the latter has a grooved channel; these consonants can be considered as laminal and

---

[4] The full distribution of [ʔ] requires more research. Interestingly, there are traces of a glottal stop separating the two vowels of words like /ßai/ 'road' at an earlier stage of the language. This observation is based on evidence found in Armentia (1898), who writes an <h> in this context, more or less consistently.

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apical, respectively. /ʃ/ fluctuates phonetically between a stop, an affricate, a fricative, and an approximant articulation [b, bʃ, ʃ, ʃ̞]. Most commonly, /ʃ/ is realized as a bilabial fricative, pronounced with spread lips and making contact at the right and left margins. The stop allophone tends to occur as onset to a word-initial stressed syllable and after nasalization, while the approximant allophone is found as onset to a non-initial unstressed syllable.

The following pairs illustrate the phonemic value of the voiceless glottal fricative /h/ in word initial position as opposed to zero and the other fricatives:

(4)

/ˈhono/ 'collared-peccary'	/ˈono/ 'over there'
/ˈhoni/ 'person, man'	/ˈoni/ '*ayahuasca*'[5]
/ˈhono/ 'collared-peccary'	/ˈʂono/ k. tree ('*lupuna*[6]')
/hiˈnan/ 'with the tail'	/ʃiˈnan/ 'thought, thinking, mind'
/ˈhoi/ 'word, language'	/ˈsoi/ 'nice, pretty'
/ˈhana/ 'tongue'	/ˈʃana-/ 'sow'

Also /ɻ/ is a highly variable segment. Here it is analyzed as a retroflex approximant consonant, but it additionally has postalveolar flap, fricative, and affricate variants. When functioning as onset of a stressed syllable, /ɻ/ may be realized as an affricate or approximant (for more phonetic details about this segment, see Valenzuela,

---

[5] *Banisteriopsis, Malpighiaceae* (Tournon 1995, Appendix 1).

[6] *Ceiba pentandra, Bombacaceae* (Tournon 1995, Appendix 1).

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Márquez, and Maddieson 2001). The minimal pair below illustrates the contrast between the two retroflex consonants of the language:

(5)	/ˈʂono/	k. tree (*'lupuna'*)	/ˈɻono/	'snake'
	/ˈʂao/	'bone'	/ˈɻao/	'(vegetal) medicine'

The approximant /w/ is realized as a lightly rounded labio-palatal before /i/, a rounded labio-velar before /a/, and an unrounded velar before /ɨ/ (see footnote 2).

There are no instances of secondary articulations.

3.1.2. Phonotactics

Distributional gaps involve the sequences */ʂi/, */wo/, and */ji/. In addition to this, the voiceless glottal fricative /h/ has a defective distribution, since it is limited to word initial position.[7]

Except for the voiceless glottal fricative, all consonants occur phonologically as onsets at the beginning and inside the word. /n, s, ʃ, ʂ/ occur both as syllable onsets and codas. When in coda position, these heavy syllables attract the stress (see 3.1.6.2). As mentioned already, the sequence /Vn/ is realized as a nasalized vowel. Sometimes a short consonantal nasal [n] or [m] may be heard between a nasalized vowel and an obstruent consonant; this fact may be taken as support for positing /Vn/.

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Table 3.3 shows the contrasts between consonants. The fifteen consonants are shown occurring word-initially before each of the four vowels and inter-vocalically. Where possible, the consonants are shown as onsets of a second syllable between two instances of the same vowel.

Table 3.3. Phoneme Distribution

/p/	#_i	/ˈpino/	'hummingbird'
	#_ɨ	/pɨˈnɨ/	'shiny'
	#_o	/ˈpono/	'vein, artery'
	#_a	/ˈpano/	'giant armadillo'
	V_V	/ˈpopo/	'owl'
/t/	#_i	/ˈtina-/	'pack, fill'
	#_ɨ	/ˈtɨna-/	'lighten'
	#_o	/toˈto-/	'become ripe'
	#_a	/ˈtana-/	'try'
	V_V	/ˈpoto/	'powder, dust'
/k/	#_i	/ˈkini/	'hole'
	#_ɨ	/ˈkɨni/	'whisker, beard'
	#_o	/ˈkoni/	'eel'
	#_a	/ˈkani-/	'went (remote past tense)'
	V_V	/ˈkoko-/	'eat fruit'
/m/	#_i	/ˈmina/	'yours'
	#_ɨ	/ˈmɨnɨ-/	'give'
	#_o	/ˈmona-/	'dent'
	#_a	/ˈmana-/	'wait'
	V_V	/ˈtʃomo/	'jar'

[7] An exception to one of the generalizations above is the onomatopoeic verb /ʂonˈʂin iti/ 'to whistle'.

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/n/	#_i	/ˈnia-/	'introduce, keep'
	#_ɨ	/ˈnɨa-/	'tie'
	#_o	/ˈnoa/	'we, us'
	#_a	/ˈnaa/	'nest'
	V_V	/ˈono/	'way over there'
/ß/	#_i	/ˈßikɨ/	'got'
	#_ɨ	/ˈßɨkɨ/	'brought'
	#_o	/ˈßokɨ/	'carried'
	#_a	/ˈßakɨ/	'child'
	V_V	/ˈʂoßo/	'house'
/s/	#_i	/ˈsi iti/	'drain (intr.), spill producing a sound'
	#_ɨ	/ˈsɨ iti/	'bubble, come out'
	#_o	/ˈso iti/	'swell (intr.) producing a sound'
	#_a	/ˈsai iti/	'cry out loud for help'
	V_V	/maˈsa ati/	'ruin (something)'
/ʃ/	#_i	/ˈʃino/	'k. monkey'
	#_ɨ	/ˈʃɨ iti/	'fry (intr.)'
	#_o	/ˈʃoko/	'little'
	#_a	/ʃaˈno/	k. snake (*'jergón'*)
	V_V	/ˈpiʃi/	'ribs'
/ʂ/	#_i	unattested (except for 'whistle,' see footnote 7)	
	#_ɨ	/ˈʂɨna/	'worm'
	#_o	/ʂoˈna/	k. tree (*'renaco'*)
	#_a	/ˈʂana/	'hot'
	V_V	/ˈhoʂo/	'white'
/h/	#_i	/ˈhina/	'tail'
	#_ɨ	/ˈhɨnɨ/	'flowing water'
	#_o	/ˈhonɨ-/	'hide'

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	#_a	/ˈhaniɨ/	‘name’
	V_V	unattested?[8]	
/ts/	#_i	/ˈtsisa/	‘freckles’
	#_ɨ	/ˈtsɨka-/	‘take out’
	#_o	/ˈtsosa/	k. bird
	#_a	/ˈtsasi-/	‘stop (intr.)’
	V_V	/ˈatsa/	‘yuca’
/tʃ/	#_i	/ˈtʃimapo/	‘ashes’
	#_ɨ	/ˈtʃɨpa/	k. large mosquito (*‘tábano’*)
	#_o	/ˈtʃomo/	‘jar’
	#_a	/ˈtʃama/	‘enemy’
	V_V	/ˈnotʃo/	k. snail
/ɻ/	#_i	/ˈɻiɻo/	k. night monkey (*‘musmuque’*)
	#_ɨ	/ˈɻɨɻa-/	‘fell (a tree)’
	#_o	/ˈɻoɻo-/	‘break into little pieces’
	#_a	/ˈɻaɻo-/	‘become happy’
	V_V	/ˈoɻo-/	‘clear (a garden)’
/w/	#_i	/ˈwino/	k. weapon (‘*macana*’)
	#_ɨ	/wɨˈnɨn/	‘cleared space in the forest, camp’
	#_o	unattested	
	#_a	/ˈwano-/	‘get married (man)’
	V_V	/aˈwa/	‘tapir’
/j/	#_i	unattested	
	#_ɨ	/jɨnˈkɨn/	‘smooth, soft’
	#_o	/ˈjonpa/	k. chameleon
	#_a	/janˈkon/	‘blue, green’
	V_V	/ˈojo-/	‘suck’

[8] The body-part marked verb form /mɨ-haˈma-kɨ/ [HAND-kick-CMPL] ‘kicked after pulling’ was provided by one consultant, but rejected by a second speaker.

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3.1.3. Other Phonological Processes

3.1.3.1. Nasalization Spread

A nasal consonant functioning as coda spreads its nasalization backwards unless a consonant other than /w, j/ intervenes. Consider the following pairs:

(6)	/ßaˈwan/	'parrot (ergative)	→	[ßãˈwã], but
	/ßaˈßan/	'child (ergative)	→	[ßaˈßã]

Additionally, a nasal coda spreads its nasalization onto subsequent vowels, and across /w, j/:

(7)	/iˈkon akɨ/	[true-do.T-CMPL]	→	[iˈkõãɣɯ]
	/kiˈkin aˈkin	[extremely do.T-SSSA]	→	[kiˈkĩãɣĩ]
	/ßɨˈkanwɨ/	'come (plural)'	→	[ßɨˈkãw̃ɨ]

When nasalized, /j/ may be realized as a palatal nasal:

(8)	/ˈwan.jo/	'diseased'	→	[ˈwãɲo]
	/paˈjon/	'kerchief'	→	[pãˈɲõ]

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3.1.3.2. Voicing and Weakening

Especially with high frequency morphemes, /k/ tends to be realized as a voiced fricative or even as an approximant segment in intervocalic position. The morphemes involved are the completive aspect marker /-kɨ/m the short 'hearsay' clitic /-ki/ and the intransitive auxiliary /iki/; the latter is exemplified below in combination with the verb 'say:'

(9) /ˈjoija iki/ 'said' → [ˈjuija iɣi]

3.1.3.3. Deletion of Word Initial /h/

The voiceless glottal fricative /h/ may be deleted in word initial position when preceding the vowel /a/:

(10) /ˈhakɨ/ → [ˈaɣɨ]
/haˈkonʃaman/ → [aˈkõʃamã]
/haˈwɨn/ → [awɨ̃]

3.1.3.4. Vowel Devoicing and Deletion

Unstressed vowels may be devoiced or completely elided between two voiceless obstruents:

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(11) /kiˈkin/ 'extremely' → [kiˈ̥kin] ~ [kˈkin]

3.1.3.5. Loss of Syllabicity

Another phonological change attested in connected speech involves the merging of two adjacent vowels into a single syllable, with one of the vowels losing its syllabicity:

(12) /ˈnokoanani/ 'met each other' → [ˈnokoa̯nani]
/piˈa/ 'nephew' → [pja]

3.1.4. Syllable Structure

SK exhibits the syllable canon (C)V(C). All syllable patterns V, CV, VC, and CVC can be stressed or unstressed. Examples of each possible syllable type are (stress is indicated for illustrative purposes):

(13) V: /ˈa.no/ 'k. agouti,' /ˈi.no/ 'jaguar,' /ˈo.kɨ/ 'on the other side,' /ˈpi.a/ 'arrow'

CV: /ˈko.ka/ 'maternal uncle,' /ˈma.nɨ/ male proper name, /ˈβi.na/ 'wasp'

CVC: /kan.ˈkan/ 'pineapple,' /sin.ˈto.ɻa/ 'belt',/ˈnon.ti/ 'canoe,' /piʃ.ˈto.kɨ/ k. bird, /ja.ˈwiʃ/ 'armadillo,' /mɨn.ˈtsis/ 'nail,' /nɨʂ.ˈnɨʂ/ k. bird, /βa.ˈkoʂ/ 'foam'.

VC: /on.ˈpaʂ/ 'contained water,' /ˈiʃ.to/ 'fast,' /ˈis.ko/ k. bird, /ˈaʂ.pa/ 'crossed legs,' /ɨn/ 'I (A form)'

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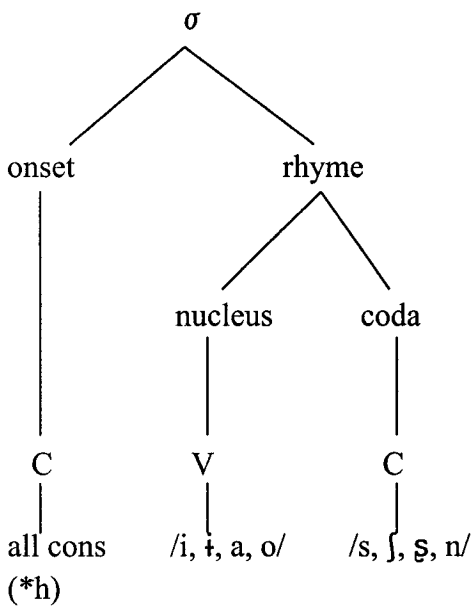
Only vowels can be the nucleus of syllables. As mentioned above, all consonants occur as onsets word-initially and all except /h/ occur as onsets word-medially, only sibilants and /n/ are codas phonologically. Whenever a sequence of two consonants occurs word-medially, each consonant is assigned to a different syllable.[9]

Figure 3.1. Syllable Structure of Shipibo-Konibo



Two adjacent vowels within the same morpheme are interpreted as two syllabic nuclei when pronounced slowly by native speakers (see footnote 4):

(14) /ˈpi.a/ 'arrow'
/pi.ˈa/ man's nephew, niece
/ˈpɨ.o-/ 'start'

[9] Unfortunately I have not been able to identify any phonological operation targeting the syllable.

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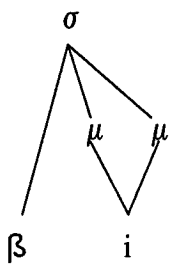
/ˈta.ɨ/	'foot'
/ˈsi.o/	k. tuber (*dale-dale*)
/ˈmo.a/	'already'
/ˈwa.i/	'garden'
/ˈβa.i/	'way, road'
/ˈho.i/	'word'

3.1.5. Minimal Word Condition

SK words have a minimum of two moras. Hence, monosyllabic words such as /βi/ 'night mosquito,' /ɻo/ 'howler monkey,' and /ni/ 'forest' undergo vowel lengthening. From an autosegmental phonology perspective, vowels of these nouns would be interpreted as single segments of the melody tier linked to two segments of the CV tier (but see also Group 4 in 3.2.2):

(15)



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3.1.6. Stress

3.1.6.1. Contrasting Pairs

Stress is not completely predictable in SK. Consider the following contrasting pairs (the glottal stops below are predictable, see 3.1.1):

(16)	[ˈʔi.sa]	'porcupine'	[i. ˈsaʔ]	'bird'
	[ˈma.po]	'head'	[ma.ˈpoʔ]	'mud'
	[ˈpi.a]	'arrow'	[pi.ˈaʔ]	'crossed nephew, niece'
	[ˈmɯtʃa]	'good fisher/hunter'	[mɯ.ˈtʃaʔ]	'wet'
	[ˈpo.po]	'owl'	[po.ˈpoʔ]	k. fruit (*'cocona'*)
	[ˈti.ta]	'mother'	[ti.ˈtaʔ]	'mother (vocative)'
	[ˈpa.ɻo]	'river'	[pa.ˈɻoʔ]	'square'
	[ˈpo.to]	'dust, powder'	[po.ˈtoʔ]	'full, satisfied'
	[ˈpa.no]	'giant armadillo'	[pa.ˈnoʔ]	k. aquatic frog
	[ˈpaʂ.na]	'weak, exhausted'	[paʂ.ˈnaʔ]	'light (color)'
	[ˈhĩ^{n}.to]	'without tail'	[hĩ^{n}.ˈtoʔ]	'designs on the tail of fish'
	[ˈʂa.na]	'hot'	[ʂa.ˈnaʔ]	k. tree (*'tamamuri'*)
	[ˈsɨ.ɻɨ]	k. *súngaro* fish	[sɨ.ˈɻɨʔ]	'striped'

3.1.6.2. Stress Rule

Nevertheless, a large number of words follow a predictable pattern. Primary stress falls on the first foot of the word. Stress placement is trochaic but sensitive to syllable weight; that is, words generally bear the stress on the first syllable unless the second one is heavy.

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In the latter case, the stress falls on the second syllable, even if the first syllable is heavy too (exx. in 18):

(17)	/'a.tsa/	'yuca'
	/'ʃa.wa/	'parrot'
	/'ɻo.no/	'snake'
	/'non.ti/	'canoe'
	/'ʃɨ.nɨ/	'husband'
	/'maʂ.ko/	'small'
	/'jo.pa/	'bad fisher/hunter'
	/'o.ʃi/	'skinny'
	/'ʂa.na/	'hot'
	/'pi.kɨ/	'ate'

(18)	/ʃa.'wan/	'parrot (ergative)'
	/ho.'poʂ/	'chigger'
	/wa.'ɻan/	'squash'
	/ho.'ʃin/	'red'
	/ha.'kon/	'good'
	/kɨ.'ɻas/	'dirty'
	/pi.'kas/	'one who likes to eat'

(19)	/kan.'kan/	'pineapple'
	/man.'ʂan/	'heron'
	/mɨn.'tsis/	'nail'
	/pon.'sɨn/	'sloth'
	/nɨʂ.'nɨʂ/	k. bird ('*shansho*')
	/bin.'piʃ/	'*guayaba*'[10]
	/ɻas.'ton/	'thick'
	/pan.'ʃin/	'yellow'

[10] *Psidium guayava, Myrtaceae* (Tournon 1995, Appendix 1).

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Within the metrical theory framework developed in Hayes (1995), the SK stress pattern could be described up to this point in terms of moraic trochees with end-rule right. That is, the foot consists of two moras, the first one being stronger, and the word is parsed following the right to left direction.

3.1.6.3. Codas as Moraic

Nevertheless, there is a group of words whose stress falls on the nucleus of a second light syllable, thus contradicting the rule given above (some of the following examples were already given in (17); the final glottal stop is predictable):

(20)	[i.ˈsaʔ]	'bird'
	[ɻa.ˈwiʔ]	'enemy'
	[pɯ.ˈkaʔ]	'back'
	[ka.ˈpɯʔ]	'alligator'
	[ma.ˈʂoʔ]	'opossum'
	[tɨ.ˈtɨʔ]	'hawk'
	[pan.ˈtʃaʔ]	'flat'
	[nɨn.ˈkɨʔ]	'long'
	[kɨ.ˈjaʔ]	'high, steep'
	[mɯ.ˈtʃaʔ]	'good fisher/hunter'
	[kɨs.ˈkaʔ]	'like, such as'

A way to account for these apparent counterexamples is to posit an underlying final consonant that gets deleted after the application of the stress rule. In terms of

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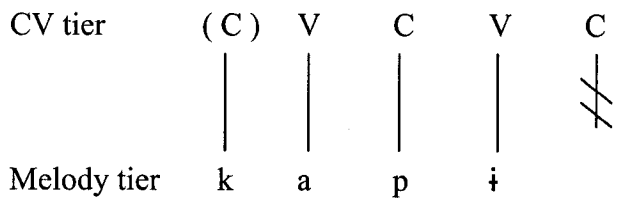
autosegmental phonology, the final consonant would be part of the CV tier but would not be associated to any segment of the melody tier.

(21)



Although this proposal may seem ad hoc, there is evidence to support it. This evidence comes from the ergative forms, where words pertaining to this class exhibit an additional syllable with a [- continuant] consonant as onset before the addition of the ergative *-n* (there is also a change in stress placement as predicted by the stress rule); thus, [iˈsaʔ] 'bird' becomes [ˈʔisakã], [maˈʂoʔ] 'opossum' becomes [ˈmaʂokã], etc. Evidence can also be found in some vocative forms where the same additional syllable arises; e.g., [pjaʔ] 'crossed nephew or niece' becomes [pjaˈkaʔ]. The final coda would be deleted or remain non-associated in order to avoid a disallowed syllable structure (see also 3.2.4).

Accepting the analysis outlined above, the stress pattern exhibited by this group of words would still be accounted for in terms of moraic trochees with end-rule right. Nevertheless, it will be shown that tetrasyllabic words require end-rule left instead; as discussed below, trisyllabic words require additional considerations.

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3.1.6.4. Trisyllabic Words

Some trisyllabic words however do represent counterexamples to the stress assignment rule (i.e., "stress the first syllable unless the second one is heavy"); while the words in (22) conform to it, those in (23) do not:

(22)	/ˈa.ta.pa/	'hen, chicken'
	/ˈki.ɻi.ka/	'paper, book'
	/ˈʂon.ta.ko/	'young unmarried girl'
	/pa.ˈɻan.ta/	'banana'
(23)	/o.ˈtʃi.ti/	'dog'
	/piʃ.ˈto.kɨ/	k. bird
	/ma.ˈtʃi.to/	'machete'
	/ko.ˈɻi.ki/	'silver, money'
	/sin.ˈto.ɻa/	'belt'
	/pa.ˈja.ɻi/	kind of fish ('*arahuana*')

The fact that trisyllabic words do not conform to the stress assignment rule in a systematic way has to do with the existence of a stratification of the vocabulary, according to which loanwords are treated differently from indigenous words. In fact, when comparing some of the nouns in (22) and (23) with their equivalent in genetically unrelated Amazonian languages from Peru, we find the following (from Valenzuela 1998a):

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(24)	SK	Ashaninka	Cocamilla	Aguaruna
'hen'	/ˈa.ta.pa/	tyapa	atawari	atash
'silver, money'	/ko.ˈɻi.ki/	kire	kuriki	kuichik
'dog'	/o.ˈtʃi.ti/	otsiti		
'banana'	/pa.ˈɻan.ta/	parenti	panara	pantam

/ˈatapa/ and /koˈɻiki/, for example, have a Quechua origin. As pointed out in Campbell (1997:12-3), derivations from the Quechua *atawalʸpa* meaning 'hen' and 'chicken' are found in several languages from the South American Lowlands (such as Paez, Zaparo, Kayapa, Esmeralda, Mapudungun, Moseten, Yurakare, as well as in the Witoto, Jivaro, Takana, and Kampa languages); see treatment of /koˈɻiki/ below. /paˈɻanta/, /maˈtʃito/, and /sinˈtoɻa/ are Spanish loans, most probably deriving from *planta* (or *plátano*), *machete*, and *cintura*, respectively. Some words may have been borrowed from other indigenous languages (for example, /o.ˈtʃi.ti/ 'dog' may be an Arawak loan). Hence, it is plausible that loanwords tend to keep their original stress, rather than modifying it in accordance with the indigenous pattern (see also 3.1.7).

There are also native trisyllabic words, but most of these are clearly bimorphemic. For example, the following words are combinations of verbs and the nominalizer /-ti/, stress is predictable: /ˈmiʃkiti/ 'hook,' /βoˈnanti/ 'piece of luggage,' /ˈtɨoti/ 'necklace,' /jaˈkati/ 'seat,' etc. The word /jaˈkati/ bears the stress on the second syllable because the verb stem actually ends in a closed syllable: /jakat-/ 'to sit;' this is a general stress rule

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(see 4.3 and 18.1). There is at least one originally Panoan trisyllabic noun that cannot be accounted for by the rule provided here: /paˈʃiki/ 'ear.' Interestingly, this word has been reconstructed as *paʃiki (Shell 1975:162); i.e., as a word with a heavy second syllable.

3.1.6.5. Tetrasyllabic Words

Probably all tetrasyllabic words result from the combination of two or more morphemes. Stress on these words is in accordance with the rule given above:

(25)	/ˈtitaʃoko/	(mother-DIM)	'grandmother'
	/maˈnanʂawɨ/	(mountain-turtle)	'tortoise'
	/ʂaˈwanwaɻan/	(k. parrot-squash)	k. large fish ('*pejetorre*')
	/ˈapaʃiɻo/	?	'chameleon'

3.1.6.6. Remaining Questions

There are verb forms with no predictable stress pattern. Some of these instances involve the combination of monosyllabic verb roots with certain clitics like the direct evidential *-ra* which attracts the stress (see also ex. (55) in Chapter 6),:

(26)	/pi-ˈɻa-kɨ/	eat-EV-CMPL	'(s/he, it) ate (direct evidence)'

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Also the imperative attracts the stress in an unpredictable fashion when added to monosyllabic stems. This cannot be attributed to an existing imperative stress pattern according to which stress falls on the last syllable, given that imperative forms involving a disyllabic stem do follow the stress rule:

(27)	/pi-ˈwɨ/	eat-IMP	'eat!'
	/ˈmɨni-wɨ/	give-IMP	'give!'
	/yaˈtan-wɨ/	catch-IMP	'catch!'

3.1.6.7. Dialectal Variation

Finally, it must be pointed out that dialectal variation may have stress consequences. Speakers from the Piski River may stress the completive aspect marker rather than the root in verb forms like the ones below (see ex. (124) in Chapter 10):

(28)	Ucayali		Piski	
	/ˈpikɨ/	~	[piˈkɨʔ]	'ate'
	/ˈkakɨ/	~	[kaˈkɨʔ]	'went'
	/ˈβikɨ/	~	[βiˈkɨʔ]	'got'

3.1.7. Adaptation of Loanwords

When loanwords contain sounds and syllable patterns that are disallowed in SK, they tend to undergo commonly attested phonological adaptations (e.g., replacement of non-

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existent segments by a close enough native phoneme, cluster simplification, epenthesis, resyllabification, etc.), so that the loanword conforms to the syllable structure of the recipient language. Stress is kept as in the original, as long as it falls on the first foot (see *rokotoro* 'doctor'). Some examples are:

(29)

Spanish		SK	
/ˈplato/	>	/ˈɻato/	'dish'
/guaˈrapo/	>	/waˈɻapo/	sugarcane alcoholic drink
/ˈgringo/	>	/kiˈɻinko/	'*gringo*'
/solˈdado/	>	/sonˈtaɻo/	'soldier'
/aˈsukar/	>	/aˈsokaɻo/	'sugar'
/dokˈtor/	>	/ˈɻokotoɻo/	'doctor'

The Spanish word for 'soldier' contains two instances of the voiced alveolar stop /d/; while the first /d/ was replaced by its voiceless counterpart in SK, the second instance was replaced by /ɻ/. This difference can be accounted for by the fact that the Spanish /d/ is realized as a stop after another consonant but becomes fricative in intervocalic position. Therefore, the stop allophone was replaced by another stop in SK, while the fricative allophone was replaced by a non-stop.

When a stressed complex syllable with a disallowed pattern yields two simpler syllables in SK, any of the two resulting syllables could end up bearing the stress. In the two Quechua loanwords below, the first stressed syllable ends in a palatal lateral consonant. This consonant is not part of the SK system and hence is replaced by /ɻ/. But

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given that only sibilants and /n/ can be codas, /ɻ/ is resyllabified as the onset of a new syllable, and an /i/ is epenthesized. While in the case of /ˈkiɻika/ stress ended up on the first syllable, it is the second syllable of /koˈɻiki/ that bears the stress:

(30) Quechua SK

/ˈkiʎ.ka/	>	/ˈki.ɻi.ka/	'book, letter'
/ˈkuʎ.ki/	>	/ko. ˈɻi.ki/	'money'

In conclusion, the stress placement rule applies to native roots but not to words borrowed from another language; the latter tend to keep their original stress.

3.2. Morpho-Phonology

3.2.1. Simplification Processes: Deletion and Merging

There is a large number of verb stems composed of a disyllabic root plus the middle marker /-t/. When these middle-marked stems are followed by a morpheme which starts with a consonant, /-t/ functions as coda of the second syllable thus attracting the stress. Since a SK utterance cannot have a coda other than /n, s, ʃ, ʂ/, a subsequent rule deletes the disallowed coda segment, but the stress remains. Below, the intransitive verb stems /jaka-t-/ 'sit' and /noko-t-/ 'arrive' are used for illustration (the transitive counterparts are /jasa-n-/ 'seat' and /noko-/ 'meet,' respectively); these are followed by the incompletive

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/-ai/ (for contrast), the completive /-kɨ/, the plural /-kan/, and the negative /-jama/. Stress is marked:

(31)

	Stem	INC	CMPL	PL	NEG
'sit'	/jaˈkat-/	/ˈjakat-ai/	/jaˈka-kɨ/	/jaˈka-kan-/	/jaˈka-jama-/
'arrive'	/noˈkot-/	/ˈnokotai/	/noˈko-kɨ/	/noˈko-kan-/	/noˈko-jama-/

There are additional changes involved in the suffixation of the middle (see 18.1).

Other deletion processes involve sequences of two identical or very similar segments at morpheme boundaries; namely, /a/ + /a/, and /i/ + /j/. In these cases, the second segment is elided:

(32) /ka-/ 'go' + -ai INC → /ˈkai/
/ˈmɨɻa-/'meet' + -ai INC → /ˈmɨɻai/

(33) /ɕi-/ 'get' + /-jama/ NEG → /ˈɕiama/
/pi-/ 'eat' + /-jama/ NEG → /ˈpiama/
/ˈmɨni-/'give' + /-jama/ NEG → /ˈmɨniama/

When a stem ending in a sibilant combines with the negative /-jama/, the two segments merge into the first onset of the negative morpheme which is pronounced as a voiceless palatal sibilant; the stem retains its original stress:

(34) /piˈkas-jama-/ (eat-DES-NEG) → /piˈkaʃama/
/naˈtɨʂ-jama-/ (bite-NEG) → /naˈtɨʃama/

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When the direct evidential /-ɻa/ is appended to a host ending in a sibilant, it commonly loses its first segment:

(35) /hainoaʂ-ɻa/ (then:S-EV) → /hainoaʂa/
/moa-ɻɨs-ɻa/ (already-just-EV) → /moaɻɨsa/

When preceding the copula /iki/, the direct evidential /-ɻa/ is realized as /ɻ-/ and procliticizes to the copula thus forming the word /ɻiki/.

3.2.2. The {-n} Morpheme

With the exception of the first and third person singular possessive modifiers, nominals exhibit the same form when coding genitive, instrumental, and other oblique functions. I will refer to these forms as "*-n* forms." Rather than a suffix, {-n} must be considered as an enclitic or phrasal suffix, since it attaches to the last word of noun phrases.

The {-n} morpheme has the following allomorphs:[11] /-n; -an, -ɨn, -in; -kan, -tɨn, -tan; -man; -nin; -ton, -tonin/. In addition to this, the *-n* form of nominals marked by the plural / collective {-βo} may end in /-βaon/, /-βoan/, or even /-βoon/ depending on the speaker. It is possible to account for most of the allomorphy in terms of the number of

[11] In these forms I am including the realization of the final nasal consonant of nouns in Group 3 as well as the posited final [-continuant] consonant of nouns in Group 4.

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moras the nominal has (Faust 1973:32-36, Valenzuela 1998a). In the examples below, stress is always indicated for the sake of clarity.

3.2.2.1. Group 1

Disyllabic nominals ending in an open syllable form their *-n* form by the addition of /-n/. In accordance with the stress rule, stress is displaced to the second syllable which has become heavy. Probably most SK nouns belong to this group. Illustration follows:

(36)

Absolutive	*-n* form	
/ˈʃakɨ/	/ʃaˈkɨn/	'child'
/ˈino/	/iˈnon/	'jaguar'
/ˈtʃai/	/tʃaˈin/	'man's brother-in-law'
/ˈwastɨ/	/wasˈtɨn/	'*piripiri*'[12]

3.2.2.2. Group 2

Disyllabic nominals ending in a sibilant require an epenthesized vowel before the addition of /-n/, thus becoming trisyllabic; stress migrates to the first syllable, as expected. There is a great deal of variation with regard to the quality of the epenthesized vowel. The same speaker may accept /-ɨ/ and /-a/ for most nominals; /i/ is only possible

[12] *Cyperus spp., Cyperaceae, Eleutherine sp., Iridaceae* (Tournon 1995, Appendix 1).

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when the basic form of the nominal ends in the sequence /iS/ (S = sibilant); i.e., this is a kind of vowel harmony.

(37)	Absolutive	*-n* form	*-n* form	*-n* form	
	/kaˈmoʂ/	/ˈkamoʂɨn/ ~	/ˈkamoʂan/		k. snake (*'shushupe'*)
	/tʃaˈɻaʂ/	/ˈtʂaɻaʂɨn/ ~	/ˈtʃaɻaʂan/		k. bird
	/maˈwis/	/ˈmawisɨn/ ~	/ˈmawisan/ ~	/ˈmawisin/	k. ant
	/jaˈwiʃ/	/ˈjawiʃɨn/ ~	/ˈjawiʂan/ ~	/ˈjawiʃin/	'armadillo'

3.2.2.3. Group 3

Here are grouped disyllabic nouns ending in /n/. To form the *-n* form, the last nasal changes to /m/, /a/ is epenthesized, *-n* is added, and the stress rule applies:

(38)	Absolutive	*-n* form	
	/aˈmɨn/	/ˈamɨman/	'capybara'
	/noˈnon/	/ˈnonoman/	'duck'
	/haˈsin/	/ˈhasiman/	k. bird (*'paujil'*)

Valenzuela (1998a:footnote 7) observes that nouns in this group are reflexes of reconstructed trisyllabic nouns whose last syllable starts with */m/ or */n/. When the last vowel of these nouns was lost, the nasals resyllabified as codas of the second syllable (realized as nasalization on their preceding vowel), and the distinction between the two nasals was neutralized.

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3.2.2.4. Group 4

Recall from the discussion on Codas as Moraic in 3.1.6.3 that nominals ending in a stressed vowel are analyzed as having an underlying consonant that remains unrealized due to restrictions of the syllable pattern (i.e., these consonants are other than sibilants or /n/); when pronounced in isolation, these words end in a phonetic glottal stop. To obtain the *-n* form, the underlying consonant surfaces as /k/, /a/ is epenthesized, /-n/ is added, and the stress rule applies.

(39)

Absolutive	*-n* form	
/iˈsa/	/ˈisakan/	'bird'
/ɻaˈwi/	/ˈɻawikan/	'enemy'
/piˈa/	/ˈpiakan/	'man's crossed nephew, niece'

When the nominal already contains the consonant /k/ elsewhere in the word, the underlying coda may surface as /t/ and the epenthesized vowel is either /a/ or /ɨ/; this is a kind of consonant dissimilation. There is a great deal of variation among native speakers, and even a single person may treat each word differently.

(40)

/kaˈpɨ/	/ˈkapɨkan/	~	/ˈkapɨtan/	~	/ˈkapɨtɨn/	'alligator'
/pɨˈka/	/ˈpɨkakan/	~	/ˈpɨkatan/	~	/ˈpɨkatɨn/	'back'
/ʂaˈka/	/ˈʂakakan/	~	/ˈʂakatan/	~	/ˈʂakatɨn/	'bark'

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As mentioned earlier, a word has a minimum of two moras. Therefore, monosyllabic words ending in an open syllable are necessarily interpreted as bimoraic and belong to Group 4:

(41)	/ɻoo/	/ˈɻookan/	'howler monkey'
	/ßii/	/ˈßiikan/	'(night) mosquito'

Even nominals composed of a single vowel are considered bimoraic and are assigned to this group. The following example belongs to a literacy class context:

(42) /ˈipo ˈiikan ˈpɨotai/
{ipo i-n pɨo-t-ai}
ipo:ABS *i*:INST start-MID-INC
'The (word) "ipo" starts with "i".' (*ipo 'carachama'* fish)

The noun /ˈnai/ 'sky' constitutes an exception. According to its phonemic structure this word should be assigned to Group 1, just like /ˈtʃai/ 'man's brother-in-law,' /ˈwai/ 'garden,' etc., and become */ˈnai-n/. Instead, /ˈnai/ takes the *-n* form /ˈnaikan/ like nominals in Group 4.

3.2.2.5. Group 5

Trisyllabic nominals form their *-n* form by the addition of /-nin/, which can be analyzed as /-ni/ + /-n/; the original stress is kept. As discussed in 3.2.4, probably most nouns in

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this group are either loanwords or else they are plurimorphemic; this absence of monomorphemic indigenous nouns in Group 5 is related to the rule that deleted the final syllable or vowel of trisyllabic words at some point of the development of the present-day languages. It is plausible that the addition of the sequence /-ni/ is related to this rule and the consequent need to avoid a disallowed trisyllabic structure.[13]

(43)

Absolutive	*-n* form	
/oˈtʃiti/	/oˈtʃitinin/	'dog'
/paˈβiki/	/paˈβikinin/	'ear'
/ˈtsontsoɻo/	/ˈtsontsoɻonin/	k. fish
/piʃˈtokɨ/	/piʃˈtokɨnin/	k. bird
/maˈɻia/	/maˈɻianin/	female proper name (Spanish loan)

The noun /awin/ 'wife, female' generally takes the allomorph /-ni-n/, although according to its structure it should pattern with nominals in Group 3 and exhibit the *-n* form /ˈawiman/. This latter form may sometimes occur, but normally /ˈawinin/ is heard instead.

[13] Interestingly, Quechua has an empty morph *-ni* that is inserted between two morphemes to avoid consonantal sequences; e.g., *yawar* 'blood' + *-nchis* 'our (inclusive)' -> *yawar-ni-nchis* 'our blood' (**yawar-nchis*). The very closely related Wariapano seems to be the only other Panoan language exhibiting the allomorph *-nin*. This fact supports the Quechua origin hypothesis, since it was the Panaon peoples on the Ucayali, like the current Shipibo and especially the Wariapano, who were more exposed to missionization and hence contact with Quechua.

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3.2.2.6. Group 6

Tetrasyllabic nominals are bimorphemic and follow one of two strategies. Either they follow the rule stated for groups 1-4 and these rules are applied to the last morpheme of the word, or they simply take /-ni-n/ like the nominals in Group 5.

(44)

Absolutive	*-n* form			
/ˈtitaʃoko/	/ˈtitaʃokon/	~	/ˈtitaʃokonin/	'grandmother'
/maˈnanʂawɨ/	/maˈnanʂawɨn/	~	/maˈnanʂawɨnin/	'tortoise'
/ʂaˈwanwaɻan/	/ʂaˈwanwaɻaman/	~	/ʂaˈwanwaɻanin/	k. fish

3.2.2.7. Group 7

In this group are found nominals carrying the plural or generic marker {-ßo}. In their *-n* form, this morpheme occurs as /-ßaon/, /-ßoan/, and for some speakers also /-ßoon/:

(45)

/ˈkoʃißo/	/ˈkoʃißaon/	~ /ˈkoʃißoan/	~ /ˈkoʃißoon/	'chiefs'
/oˈtʃitißo/	/oˈtʃitißaon/	~ /oˈtʃitißoan/	~ /oˈtʃitißoon/	'dogs'

The noun /ainßo/ 'woman' derives from /awin/ 'wife, female' + the plural or generic /-ßo/. /ainßo/ has two alternate *-n* forms; it either patterns with the trisyllabic

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nominals of Group 5 thus yielding /ainβonin/, or with the nominals ending in /-βo/ thus yielding /ainβaon/, etc.

3.2.2.8. Group 8: Derived Nominals

Interestingly, derived nominals exhibit the specific *-n* forms /-ton/ ~ /-tonin/. More research is needed to account for the distribution of these alternate forms. Consider the following examples:

(46)

Nominal	Analysis	English	*-n* Form
/ˈmawat-a/	(die-PP2)	'diseased'	/ˈmawat-a-ton/
/ˈɻɨtɨ-mis/	(kill-HAB:NMLZ)	'murderer'	/ˈɻɨtɨ-mis-ton/
/ˈβakɨn-a/	(give.birth-PP2)	'the one who gave birth'	/ˈβakɨn-a-ton/
/ˈkɨnɨt-a/	(design-PP2)	'the designed one'	/ˈkɨnɨt-a-ton/
/wɨsˈti-oɻa/	(one-body/person)	'one'	/wɨsˈtioɻa-ton/
/ˈɻon ˈik-ai/	(ONOM do.I-PP1)	'that making *ron*'	/ˈɻon ˈik-ai-ton/
/ˈnokon-a/	(POS1-NMLZ)	'mine'	/ˈnokona-ton/

(47)

/aˈk-a/	(do.T-PP2)	'the one who did (it)'	/aˈk-a-tonin/
/ˈak-ai/	(do.T-PP1)	'the one who does (it)'	/ˈak-ai-tonin/
/ˈa-kan-ai/	(do.T-PL-PP1)	'those who do (it)'	/ˈa-kan-ai-tonin/
/ˈwiso-ʃaman/	(black-very)	'very black'	/ˈwiso-ʃaman-tonin/
/makɨt/		'speak w/an accent'	/maˈkɨ-tonin/
/ˈi-ɻes-a/	(do.I-just-PP2)	'just any (person)'	/ˈi-ɻes-a-tonin/
/ˈmi-n-a/	(2-GEN-NMLZ)	'yours'	/ˈmina-tonin/

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Before closing the section on *-n* forms, a few words regarding the quality of the epenthesized vowel are in order. There is some evidence of an older vowel harmony rule by which /a/ occurred after the [-coronal] segments /k/ and /m/, /-ɨ/ after the [+coronal] segment /t/ and after sibilants preceded by vowels other than /i/, and /i/ after sibilants preceded by /i/. This latter process can be posited as a non-obligatory [front] spreading across continuant consonants; i.e., as a kind of vowel harmony rule. At present, analogical processes might be at work favoring the generalization of /a/ in all cases, and the generalization of /ɨ/ after [+coronal] segments (see Loriot's observation in Shell 1975:103, also Valenzuela 1998a).

3.2.3. Alternate Mora Timing

"Alternate mora timing" refers to the selection of alternate allomorphs depending on whether the given morpheme attaches to stems with even- versus odd-numbered moras. This phenomenon was first described by James Lauriault (1948) with respect to the distribution of the repetitive allomorphs /-ɻiβa/ ~ /-ɻiβi/. The notion of alternate mora timing has also proved useful in accounting for other morphemes. First, I will deal with the distribution of the locative-allative forms, and then I will treat allomorphic variation in verbs.

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3.2.3.1. Locative-Allative

There are alternate locative-allative markers depending on the structure of the host. In accounting for their distribution, I will make use of the groupings introduced when discussing the {-n} morpheme, except for Groups 6 and 7 which are different.

The locative-allative form /-nko/ combines with nominals of Groups 1 and 6 above, while /-ain/ follows nominals of Groups 2-5. That is, nominals with even-numbered moras take /-nko/ while those with odd-numbered moras take /-ain/. Recall that since the discussion of stress and up to this point, codas are to be counted as moraic and nominals ending with a stressed open syllable are analyzed as bearing an underlying coda. Now, let's look at a few examples (see also 6.5.5). Note that loanwords like /ˈɻima/ behave in accordance with the pattern.

(48) Group 1

Stem	locative-allative	
/ˈʂoβo/	/ʂoˈβonko/	'house'
/ˈkako/	/kaˈkonko/	name of village (Colonia de Caco)
/ˈwai/	/waˈinko/	'garden'
/ˈɻima/	/ɻiˈmanko/	name of city (Lima, Spanish loanword)

Alternatively, nominals in Group 1 may take the *-n* form to encode a locative-allative meaning: /ʂoˈβon/, /kaˈkon/, /waˈin/, and /ɻiˈman/.

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(49) Group 6

/iˈpaɻia/	/iˈpaɻianko/	name of village (Iparía)
/ɻoˈaβoja/	/ɻoˈaβojanko/	name of village (Roaboya < /rooβoja/)
/ˈoɻopanpa/	/ˈoɻopanpanko/	name of place (Urubamba, loanword)

The presence of the placename Oropampa in this group seems to constitute an exception, since it has five rather than four moras. Oropampa is a loanword (see also Pokalpa in (53)).

Groups 2-5

Nominals in these groups can be divided into two subcategories. Those in the first subcategory correspond to nominals from Groups 2-4 and have the syllable structure (C)V.(C)VC, while those in the second subcategory are trisyllabic. The important point is that all these nominals are trimoraic and consequently take the locative-allative /-ain/.

I was not able to find actual instances of nominals belonging to Groups 2 and 4; therefore, in order to test the "alternate mora timing" hypothesis, I opted for offering native speakers imaginary placenames and elicited sentences in which these appeared in their locative-allative forms.[14]

[14] Typical SK placenames are compounded nouns (e.g., /tʃaˈɻaʂ-maˈnan/ 'Charash (Bird) Mountain' and /ˈpao-iˈan/ 'Shell Lake') or simple nouns to which the proprietive /-ja/ has been added (e.g., /ˈɻono-ja/ 'With Snakes' and /ˈtama-ja 'With Peanut'). Due to their structure, these kinds of indigenous nominals could not

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Group 2

(50)	/hiˈsis/	/ˈhisisain/	made up example (k. ant)
	/jaˈwiʃ/	/ˈjawiʃain/	made up example ('armadillo')

Group 3

The placenames in this group correspond to actual Shipibo villages. Most of these terms however are loanwords (taken from the Bible). Note that in the case of /eˈden/ the Spanish segments /e/ and /d/ have not been rephonologized. The only native term is /ian/ 'lake.'

(51)	/eˈden/	/edenain/	[ɛˈdɛ̃ãĩ]	name of village (Nuevo Edén)
	/kaˈnan/	/kananain/	[kaˈnããĩ]	name of village (Canán)
	/iˈan/	/iˈain/	[ĩˈãĩ]	lake

Group 4

(52)	/tɨˈtɨ/	/tɨˈtɨain/	made up example	('hawk')
	/kaˈpɨ/	/kaˈpɨain/	made up example	('alligator')
	/ɻoo/	/ɻooain/	made up example	('howler monkey')

belong to Groups 2-4. Common nouns belonging to Groups 2-4 and that can function as locative-allatives

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Group 5

The names below correspond to actual places. The names /maˈkaja/, /ɻoˈnoja/, and /ˈɻooja/ have a SK origin; the remaining nouns are loanwords, probably all entering into SK from Spanish. The Spanish segment /l/ in /poˈkalpa/ has entered into the SK of most speakers.

(53)	/iˈkito/	/iˈkitoain/	name of city (Iquitos, loanword)
	/maˈkaja/	/maˈkajain/	name of village (Caco Macaya)
	/jaˈɻina/	/jaˈɻinain/	name of district (Yarina, loanword)
	/poˈkalpa/	/poˈkalpain/	name of city (Pucallpa, loanword)
	/ɻonoja/	/ɻonojain/	name of village (*ɻono* 'snake' *-ja* proprietive)
	/ɻooja/	/ɻoojain/	name of village (*ɻoo* 'howlermonkey, *-ja* proprietive)

Similarly to Oropampa in Group 6, the loanword Pokalpa appears to constitute an exception. Note however that the second syllable of this word has a pattern which is not part of the SK system. This might also be the case with regard to the third syllable of Oropampa.

Group 7

Group 7 is composed of nominals with more than four moras which take the locative-allative /-ain/:

---

such as /wɨan/ 'small river' or /ian/ 'lake,' tend to take {-n}, yielding /ˈwɨaman/ and /ˈiaman/.

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(54)	/ˈmaioʃian/	/ˈmaioʃiain/	name of city (original name of Pucallpa)
	/ˈhɨpɨian/	/ˈhɨpɨiain/	name of place (original name of Yarina)
	/konˈtamanan/	/konˈtamanain/	name of town (original name of Contamana, where /kontaˈmana/ is a borrowing from SK into Spanish)

3.2.3.2. Ablative

A few words about the distribution of ablatives are in order. These are based on the locative-allative forms. Locative-allatives ending in /-nko/ add the sequence /-ni-a/ in order to form the ablative; those ending in /n/ lose this segment and add /-mɨa/ (the sequence /-mɨa/ is also added to certain interessive-marked pronominal forms which end in a nasal; see 19.2.2.3); and /-kɨa/ is suffixed to forms ending in vowel or /ʂ/. Locative-allatives ending in /-ain/ add the sequence /-oa/ to form the ablative. Exceptions are /mɨran/ 'inside' that may take alternatively /-oa/, and /manaon/ that takes /-kɨa/ in spite of ending in /n/ (Faust 1973:59-61). /katʃio/ is an adverb (see also 6.5.6):

(55)	/kaˈko-nko/	'in/to Caco'	/kaˈkonko-ni-a/	'from Caco'
	/ɻiˈma-n/	'in/to Lima'	/ˈɻimamɨa/	'from Lima'
	/ˈkatʃio/	'in/to the forest'	/ˈkatʃiokɨa/	'from the forest'
	/jaˈɻinain/	'in Yarina'	/jaˈɻinainoa/	'from Yarina
	/ˈnii mɨˈɻan/	'inside the forest'	/ˈnii mɨɻanoa/	'from inside the forest'
	/ˈʂoβo maˈnaon/	'on top of house'	/ˈʂoβo maˈnaonkɨa/	'from on top of house.'

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The sequence /-ni-a/ is probably composed of the ligature morpheme /-ni/ plus the ablative proper /-a/; while /-kɨ-a/ and its nasalized counterpart /-mɨ-a/ are plausibly formed by the locative /-kɨ/ (as in /o-kɨ/ [DIST-on the side] 'on the other side' and /nɨ-kɨ/ [PROX-on the side] 'on this side') and the ablative. The ablative ending /-ainoa/ might have resulted from the addition to /-ain/ of the second locative /-no/ and the ablative /-a/.

3.2.3.3. The Repetitive /-ɻiβa/ ~ /-ɻiβi/

As mentioned already, "alternate mora timing" was first proposed with respect to the repetitive alternations. Lauriault (1948) observed that the allomorph /-ɻiβa/ occurs on verbs with odd-numbered moras, while the allomorph /-ɻiβi/ is attested on verbs with even-numbered moras. This rule may be related to rhythm and stress patterns (see also the distribution of /-riβi/ ~ /-riʔβi/ in the sister language Kapanawa, Loos and Loos 1998:21). But differently from the notion of mora that has been in operation so far, according to which codas count as moraic, Lauriault stated that only vowels mattered, the number of consonants being irrelevant. In fact, in accounting for the distribution of the repetitive (and other verbal morphemes that will be presented below), only vowels are to be counted as moraic; otherwise, verb stems such as 'dance,' 'want,' 'finish,' 'see,' 'ask,' and 'go (tomorrow)' could not be included in the bimoraic group.

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Monomoraic Stems

Note that the repetitive /-ɻiβa/ attracts the stress; this cannot be predicted by the Stress Rule provided in 3.1.6.2.

(56)	/a-/	'do (transitive)'	/aˈɻiβa-/	'do (transitive) again'
	/βɨ-/	'bring'	/βɨˈɻiβa-/	'bring again'
	/βo-/	'carry'	/βoˈɻiβa-/	'carry again'
	/ka-/	'go (singular)'	/kaˈɻiβa-/	'go (singular) again'
	/ho-/	'come (singular)'	/hoˈɻiβa-/	'come (singular) again'
	/ha-/	'exist'	/haˈɻiβa-/	'exist too'

Bimoraic Verbs

(57)	/ˈjoi-/	'say'	/ˈjoiɻiβi-/	'say again, too'
	/kai-/	'reproduce'	/ˈkaiɻiβi-/	'reproduce again'
	/ˈnoja-/	'fly'	/ˈnojaɻiβi-/	'fly again'
	/ˈmɨɻa-/	'find'	/ˈmɨɻaɻiβi-/	'find again'
	/ˈtʃɨʂa-/	'ache'	/ˈtʃɨʂaɻiβi-/	'ache again'
	/ˈkɨna-/	'call'	/ˈkɨnaɻiβi-/	'call again'
	/ˈaʂɨ-/	'learn'	/ˈaʂɨɻiβi-/	'learn again'
	/tɨɨ-/	'work'	/ˈtɨɨɻiβi-/	'work again'
	/nɨɨ-/	'climb'	/ˈnɨɨɻiβi-/	'climb again'
	/ˈɻansa-/	'dance'	/ˈɻansaɻiβi-/	'dance again'
	/kɨɨn-/	'want'	/ˈkɨɨnɻiβi-/	'want again'
	/sɨˈnɨn-/	'finish'	/sɨˈnɨnɻiβi-/	'finish again'
	/oˈin-/	'see'	/oˈinɻiβi-/	'see again'

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/joˈkat-/	'ask'	/joˈkaɻiβi-/[15]	'ask again'
/ka-ˈjat-/	'go (sg.) tomorrow'	/kaˈjaɻiβi-/	'go (sing.) tomorrow again'
/ko-ˈpi/	'return a spell'	/koˈpi-ɻiβi-/	'return spell again'

Trimoraic Verbs

(58)

/ˈaʂɨ-a-/	'teach'	/ˈaʂɨaɻiβa-/	'teach again'
/sɨˈnɨn-a-/	'finish (tr.)'	/sɨˈnɨn-aɻiβa-/	'finish (tr.) again'
/koˈpi-a-/	'pay'	/koˈpi-a-ɻiβa-/	'pay again'
/oˈin-ma-/	'show'	/oˈin-ma-ɻiβa-/	'show again'
/ˈkɨna-ma-/	'have someone call'	/ˈkɨna-ma-ɻiβa-/	'have so. call again'
/ˈjomɨtso-/	'become thief'	/ˈjomɨtsoɻiβa-/	'become thief again'
/ˈtɨɨ-ma-/	'make work'	/ˈtɨɨ-ma-ɻiβa-/	'make work again'
/ˈɻansa-ʃin-/	'dance all night long'	/ˈɻansa-ʃin-ɻiβa-/	'dance all night long again'
/ˈho-toʃi-/	'come surprisingly'	/ˈho-toʃi-ɻiβa-/	'come surprisingly again'

Tetramoraic Verbs

(59)

/ˈjomɨtso-ma-/	'make become thief'	/ˈjomɨtso-ma-ɻiβi-/	'make become thief again'
/ˈaʂɨ-a-ma-/	'have someone teach'	/ˈaʂɨ-a-ma-ɻiβi-/	'have someone teach again'
/oˈin-toʃi-/	'see surprisingly'	/oˈin-toʃi-ɻiβi-/	'see with surprise too/again'
/ˈmɨra-toʃi-/	'find surprisingly'	/ˈmɨra-toʃi-ɻiβi-/	'find surprisingly too/again'

[15] Although also /joˈkaɻiβa-/ has been attested in text.

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Pentamoraic Verbs

(60) /ˈjomɨtso-toʃi-/ 'become thief (i.e., 'steal') surprisingly'
/ˈjomɨtso-toʃi-ɻiβa-/ 'become thief surprisingly again/too'

I have encountered speakers who do not comply with the rule described here beyond bimoraic stems and are generalizing the use of /-ɻiβi/.

3.2.3.4. Other Verbal Morphemes

Other allomorphic alternations sensitive to "alternate mora timing" are those concerning the reciprocal, associative, malefactive, and distant past morphemes:

Malefactive

{-anan} → /-anan/ after verbs with even-numbered moras
→ /-ananan/ after verbs with odd-numbered moras

Associative

{-kin} → /-kin/ after verbs with even-numbered moras
→ /-kiin/ after verbs with odd-numbered moras

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Distant Past

{-katit-ai} → /-katit-ai/ after verbs with even-numbered moras

→ /-katiai/ after verbs with odd-numbered moras

The following examples are taken from Faust (1973:44-45):

(61) /i-ˡkati-ai/ 'was many years ago'
/pi-ˡkati-ai/ 'ate many years ago (incompletive)'
/ˡɻɨtɨ-katit-ai/ 'killed many years ago (incompletive)'
/noˡkot-katit-ai/ 'arrived many years ago (incompletive)'

For illustration of the reciprocal, associative, and malefactive, see Chapters 17 and 18.

3.2.4. Towards a Single Notion of Mora

Whether codas or just vowels should count as moraic is a language-specific feature (Hayes 1989:255). Nevertheless, I have shown that both notions of mora are required in SK in order to account for important phonological and morpho-phonological processes. Stress assignment, *-n* form allomorphy, and locative-allative allomorphy require that codas be counted as moraic. On the other hand, to account for the alternations of the repetitive, reciprocal, associative, malefactive, and the distant past morphemes only vowels are to be considered as moras. As a generalization, it seems that non-verbal

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morphology supports the "coda as moraic" notion, while verbal morphology supports the "vowel only" alternative.[16]

This apparently contradictory situation has a diachronic explanation. Most of the Panoan languages underwent a change that affected trisyllabic words, and which involved the loss of the last unstressed vowel or syllable (Shell 1975, Valenzuela 1998a, see also Features of Proto-Pano Grammar in section 1.5.2). There is comparative-historical evidence to claim that the nouns belonging to Groups 2-4, that is, disyllabic nouns ending in a realized or unrealized coda, had originally an additional vowel and were therefore trisyllabic. Consider the following examples from Reconstructed-Pano, taken from Shell (1975):

(62)

SK	Reconstructed-Pano	
/aˈwa/	*ʔawara	'tapir'
/iˈsa/	*ʔiʔsaka	'bird'
/mɨˈkɨn/	*mɨkɨnɨ	'hand'
/noˈnon/	*nonoma	'duck'
/jaˈwiʃ/	*yawisʃi	'armadillo'

In sum, there is evidence to posit that diachronically only vowels were moraic. Plausibly, stress, at least on nominals, fell predictably on the penultimate syllable (Valenzuela 1998a).

[16] A parallel problem is found in some dialects of Arabic, where the foot is iambic for the analysis of

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3.3. Practical Transcription

The practical transcription used in the illustrative examples of Chapters 4-19 corresponds, with few modifications, to the orthography used in SK school materials (particularly those published by the Programa de Formación de Maestros Bilingües de la Amazonía Peruana). The symbols employed are those of the phonological inventory except for the following changes:

Phoneme	Symbol
/ɨ/	<e>
/tʃ/	<ch>
/ʃ/	<sh>
/ʂ/	<x>
/h/	<j>
/ɻ/	<r>
[ʔ]	<'>

'broken' plurals, but trochaic for stress placement (Derry Malsch, p.c.)

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In words deviating from the stress rule stated in this chapter, and also in those words with a non-realized coda, primary stress is indicated with an acute accent; otherwise, primary stress is not written.

In Chapter 20 the phonemic transcription has been kept, given the comparative nature of this part of the study and the fact that the phonological inventories of the sister languages may differ in significant ways.

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CHAPTER 4

MORPHOLOGICAL AND RELATED PROCESSES

As mentioned in 2.1., SK is dominantly agglutinative; i.e., words tend to be composed of more than one morpheme, morphemes can generally be identified with one particular meaning, and morpheme boundaries are easily identifiable in most cases. However, bare or zero-marked nominals and nominal modifiers are common, certain morpheme combinations may not show clear-cut boundaries, and there are a few instances of stem changes and suppletion. In addition, verbs have at their disposal a number of motion-deictic / adverbial-type affixes; this feature might be seen as a polysynthetic tendency.

The purpose of this chapter is to provide an overview of the morphological processes available in SK such as affixation and stem modification, as well as other related processes like full reduplication, suppletion, cliticization, and alternate auxiliarization which are employed for similar purposes.

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4.1. Affixation

SK employs various suffixes, a closed set of body-part prefixes, one suprafix (i.e., suprasegmental marker), and no infixes.

4.1.1. Suffixation

The verb form below is composed of the root *oro-* 'clear (a chacra),' followed by a handful of suffixes which occur in a fixed order:

(1) Oro-kin-yama-wan-kan-ke.
clear.chacra-ASSOC-NEG-PST1-PL-CMPL
'(They) did not help (her / him) clear the chacra earlier today.'

The suffixes illustrated above are restricted to verbs (or elements functioning as such). In discussing clitics below, it will be shown that several morphemes that at first glance appear to be suffixes are best analyzed as clitics.

4.1.2. Prefixation

A closed set of body-part "prefixes" can be attested on verbs, nouns, and adjectives. The addition of these morphemes to a root does not trigger a change in word class. When added to verbs, body-part prefixes do not encode an argument but generally express a locative modification. In (2) below, the prefixes *wi-* 'on the leg' from *witax* 'leg' and *be-*

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'on the face / forehead' from *bemanan* 'face' precede the noun root *kené* 'design' (only nominals take the proprietive *-ya*; a copular construction with a *-ya*-marked nominal is equivalent to the English verb 'have'):

(2) Ja-tian ja bake xontako iki moa *wi*-kené-ya,
that-TEMP that child unmarried.girl:ABS COP already LEG-design-PROP

kori-ya, *be*-kené-ya, jonxe-ya, jatíbi-ya;
lip.ornament-PROP FACE-design-PROP wrist.ornament-PROP all-PROP

moa kikin-i raot-a.
already extremely-S adorn-PP2
'Then the young girl already has designs on her legs, a lip ornament, designs on her face, wrist ornaments, everything; she (is) very well adorned.'

In (3), the prefix *no-* from *noi* 'abdomen' precedes the verb *xate-* 'cut.' Note that also *xate-* appears in a shortened form:

(3) Ja-tian jawéki ak-ai ainbaon *no-xte*-xon
that-TEMP thing do.T-PP1 woman:ERG ABDOMEN-cut-PSSA

pano-a-i ka-[a]i.
god.child/mother-do.T-SSSS go-INC
'Then, the woman in charge, after cutting (the baby girl) on the abdomen (i.e., the umbilical cord) is going to make her her granddaughter.'

Examples with a prefixed adjective are: *be-wis* [FACE-'black'] 'black on the face / forehead,' *be-keras* (FACE-dirty) 'dirty on the face / forehead,' *be-pancha* [FACE-flat] 'flat on the forehead,' *ke-bá* [MOUTH-sweet] 'with sweet taste.' The adjectives *wiso* 'black' and *bata* 'sweet' occur in a shortened form.

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4.1.3. Suprafixation

A large number of nouns, especially those ending in an unstressed open syllable, form their vocative by simply shifting the stress to the last syllable of the word:

(4)	Citation	Vocative
'mother'	tita	titá
'child'	bake	baké
'man's brother-in-law'	chaikoni	chaikoní

4.2. Cliticization

Clitics can be divided into three different types: phrasal suffixes, second position clitics, and "less-fixed" clitics.

4.2.1. Phrasal Suffixes

Case-markers are appended to the last word of the corresponding noun phrase (preceding mood and evidentiality marking); therefore, they have a fixed position and only attach to nominal constituents. In (5) below, the major constituent containing the relative is the A argument of the main clause and thus carries ergative case. Note that the ergative is not attached to the head:

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(5) [Ainbo [Kako-nko-ni-a-x nokó-ibat-a]]-*tonin*-ra
woman Caco-LOC-LIG-ABL-S meet:MID-PST2-PP2-ERG-EV

rao kobin ak-ai.
medicine:ABS ONOM:boil do.T-INC
'The woman who arrived from Caco yesterday is boiling the medicine.'

Example (6) contains two instances of a noun modified by an adjective; again, case is marked at the end of the noun phrase:

(6) Ka-xon oin-a-ki ik-á iki [[maxko-shoko [joni]], [[montária]
go-PSSA see-PP2-HSY2 be-PP2 AUX small-DIM person:ABS k.canoe

anita-ma-shoko]-*tonin*-ki....
small-NEG-DIM-LOC-HSY2
'Once getting there, he saw a little person in a small canoe....'

The plural / collective *-bo* generally behaves as a phrasal suffix attaching to the last word of a nominal (see 6.6).

4.2.2. Second Position Clitics

Second position clitics occur after the first major constituent of the sentence; i.e., they have a fixed position but differently from case-markers exhibit very few restrictions with respect to their phonological hosts. Second position clitics may attach to a noun phrase in A, S, O, or oblique functions, an intersentential conjunction, a finite verb, an adjunct, a dependent clause, or any other constituent occurring in sentence initial position. Second position clitics are the direct evidential *-ra*, the reportative *-ronki*, the interrogative *-ki*,

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the speculative *-mein* (although the latter may be followed by *-ra, -ronki*, or the interrogative *-ki*). Among many others, examples (7)-(9) below show the only position in the sentence these clitics can occupy, all other possibilities yielding ungrammatical utterances:

(7) [Warápo xea-ma-iba-kan-a joni]-*ra* neno oxa-ke.
guarapo:ABS drink-CAUS-PST2-PL-PP2 man:ABS-EV here:ABS sleep CMPL
'The man whom they invited to drink *guarapo*[1] yesterday slept here'

(8) [Warápo xea-ma-iba-kan-a joni]-*ronki* neno oxa-ke.
guarapo:ABS drink-CAUS-PST2-PL-PP2 man:ABS-HSY here sleep-CMPL
'I heard that the man whom they invited to drink *guarapo* yesterday slept here.'

(9) [Warápo xea-ma-iba-kan-a joni]-*ki* neno oxa-a?
guarapo:ABS drink-CAUS-PST2-PL-PP2 man:ABS-INT here sleep-PP2
'Did the man whom they invite to drink *guarapo* yesterday sleep here?

Nevertheless, when marking a finite verb-form, second position clitics occur word-internally, preceding plural and aspect morphology (see the distribution of evidentials in Chapter 13 as well as of the interrogative in 8.4).

4.2.3. "Less-fixed" Clitics

"Less-fixed" clitics mark the specific element they modify and hence combine with a wide range of hosts, and lack a fixed position in the sentence. The marked element may be a noun phrase, a predicate, or an adjunct. This group of clitics, which seem to share

[1] Alcoholic drink made of cane-juice.

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"adverbial" semantics, includes the following morphemes: *-bira* with inferential, approximative, and probabilitive meanings; the diminutive *-shoko*; *-pari* 'yet, first;' the emphatic *-bi*; *-bicho* 'only;' *-bires* 'purely;' the intensifier *-shaman* 'very, nicely;' *-pacho* 'always,' *-ribi ~ -riba* 'again, also;' the attenuative *-tani* 'a bit.' The examples below show that *-shoko* attaches to different kinds of noun phrases and adjuncts:

(10)	ja-shoko	[that-DIM]	'that little one'
	ochíti bake-shoko	[dog child-DIM]	'little dog, puppy'
	ishto-n-shoko	[fast-ADV-DIM]	'very fast, quickly'
	yamé-shoko	[at.night / dark-DIM]	'a bit dark, early in the evening'
	xobo patax-shoko	[house next.to-DIM]	'(just) next to the house'

The element *-shoko* also attaches to verbs. In example (11), which refers to a situation where a central participant gives up during a competition, *-shoko* adds an emotional sense. Note that, unlike the examples in (10), *-shoko* occurs word-internally when attached to a verb:

(11) Jain-xon Biri yoi-*shoko*-a iki: "E-n-ra moa
there-PDCA Biri:ABS tell-*shoko*-PP2 AUX 1-ERG-EV already

atipan-yama-ke, rama mi-n tana-*shoko*-t-a" a-kin.
can-NEG-CMPL now 2-ERG try-*shoko*-EP-PP2 do.T-SSSA
'Then he told Biri: 'I can't anymore, now you try!'

Additionally, *shoko* can occur as a root meaning 'a little bit:'

(12) *Shoko*-res oxa-[a]i / pi-ai.
a.little.bit-just sleep-INC eat-INC
'I'm gonna sleep / eat just a little bit.'

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Unlike *shoko*, *-ribi* 'again, also' cannot occur as a root. In example (13) *-ribi* modifies a noun phrase and a same-reference marked adjunct clause; in (14), *-ribi* modifies a finite verb preceding plural and aspect marking:

(13) E-a ka-[a]i-tian resto no-n kaibo-baon-*ribi* e-a
1-ABS go-S-DS rest 1p-GEN fellow.Shipibo-PL:ERG-also 1-ABS

chiban-a iki, onan-kas-kin-*ribi*.
follow-PP2 AUX know-DES-SSSA-also
'When I was going (to the Salt Mountain), the rest of my fellow Shipibo followed me, wanting to know (the way) too.'

(14) Moa icha baritia pekáo, Shipibo joni-bo moa
already many time after Shipibo person-PL:ABS already

kai-*ribi*-kan-a iki ja kimisha joni-nko-ni-a-x.
reproduce-REP-PL-PP1 AUX that three person-LOC-LIG-ABL-S
'After many years, the Shipibo reproduced again from these three people.'

Sentences (15)-(20) show that *-bicho*, *-tani*, and *-(bi)res* also attach to syntactically distinct elements:

(15) E-a-*tani* wetsa meni-kan-we!
1-ABS-a.bit other:ABS give-PL-IMP
'Give another one to me (please).'

(16) E-a-*bicho*-ra ka-[a]i.
1-ABS-only-EV go-INC
'Only I am going.' (Faust 1973:24)

When attached to finite verbs, *-tani*, *-(bi)res*, and *-bicho* occur word-internally:

(17) E-a-ra keen-*tani*-ke.
1-ABS-EV want-a.bit-CMPL
'I liked it a bit.' (Faust 1973:24)

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(18) Bake-ra ka-*res*-ai.
child:ABS-EV go-just-INC
'The child keeps on going / The child just goes.' (Faust 1973:24)

(19) Nato bake-ra axe-*bicho*-ai.
this child:ABS-EV learn-only-INC
'This child just learns / studies (i.e., he doesn't do anything else)' (Faust 1973:24)

-Bires (from *-bi* emphatic plus *-res* 'just') and *-tani* 'a bit' may exchange positions in a sentence without any apparent shift in meaning (Faust 1973:24):

(20) a. Jakon-*tani-bires*siki e-a.
jakon-tani-bires-r-iki
good-a.bit-purely-EV-COP 1-ABS
'I am just a bit fine.' (Faust 1973:24)

b. Jakon-*bires-tani* r-iki e-a.
good-purely-a.bit EV-COP 1-ABS
'I am just a bit fine.' (Faust 1973:24)

The main characteristic features of SK clitics are summarized in Table 4.1.

Table 4.1. Main Characteristic Features of Shipibo-Konibo Clitics

Type of Clitic	Position	Host	Function
Phrasal Suffixes	fixed	fixed	case-marking (plurality)
Second Position	fixed	non-fixed	direct and reported evidentiality, speculation, question
"Less-fixed"	less-fixed	non-fixed	adverbial and inference

Further examples involving "less-fixed" clitics can be found in 7.9.

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4.3. Alternate Derivation

There is a set of verb roots denoting body posture or movement (to enter into a posture) that are neutral in terms of transitivity and require the suffixes *-t* or *-n* to function as intransitive or transitive verbs, respectively:

(21)	'climb'	nee-*t*-
	'raise, put someone/thing up'	nee-*n*-
	'lie'	raka-*t*-
	'lay'	raka-*n*-
	'stand (intr.)'	weni-*t*-
	'stand (tr.)'	weni-*n*-

The term "alternate derivation" refers to the fact that the verbs above are equipollent in terms of formal markedness.

4.4. Stem Modification

Besides undergoing alternate derivation like the verbs in (21), verbs of sitting exhibit an additional change in the second consonant of the stem:

(22)	'sit'	ya*k*a-t-
	'seat someone'	ya*s*a-n-

Further instances of stem modification involve the andatives and venitives verb suffixes, etymologically-related to 'come' and 'go' (see also 4.5 and 4.9):

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(23)	-*k*ain	andative singular intransitive
	-*b*ain	andative plural, transitive
	-*k*iran	venitive singular intransitive
	-*be*iran	venitive plural, transitive

4.5. Suppletion

Suppletion is attested with regard to the first person singular since the possessive *nokon* is based on a different root than the absolutive *e-a*, ergative *e-n*, interessive *e-on*, oblique *e-ki* and other pronominal forms (see section 6.1 on Pronouns). Suppletion is also found with the highly frequent movement verbs 'come' and 'go:'

(24)	'come' singular	jo-	'come' non-singular, 'bring'	be-
	'go' singular	ka-	'go' non-singular, 'take, carry'	bo-

4.6. Reduplication

Reduplication takes place with verbal, adjectival, adjunct, and nominal stems. As a rule, reduplication is complete, but as will be shown below with compounded and onomatopoeic verbs only one constituent is reduplicated; reduplicated elements may be separated by a clitic (see ex. (27)). The meanings associated with reduplication in SK are iterative or continuous action, intensification, emphasis, plurality, and distribution. Consider the following examples:

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Emphasis

(25) Kikin *wiso wiso*-bires r-iki nokon bachi.
extremely black black-purely EV-COP POS1 mosquito.net:ABS
'My mosquito net is very very dirty.'

(26) Nato no-n kené-bo-ra kirikain-bo *wisha wisha*-kan-a
this 1p-GEN design-PL:ABS-EV book:LOC-PL write write-PL-PP2

yama-ke, no-n mapo-nko-bicho.
exist.not-CMPL 1p-GEN head-LOC-only
'These designs of ours are not written in any book, (they exist) only in our mind.'

Intensification

(27) E-a-ra moa jawe keskat-a-x-bi ka-yama-[a]i,
1-ABS-EV already what SIML-ABL-S-EM go-NEG-INC

e-a-ra kikin-i *notsi*-bi *notsi*-a iki.
1-ABS-EV extremely-S feel.disturbed-EM feel.disturbed-PP2 AUX
'There is no way that I will go (back); I feel extremely, totally hurt.'

In (27), the emphatic *-bi* occurs between the two identical roots.

Continuity, intensification

(28) Jaino-a-x-ki *bewa bewa*-kain-i ka-a iki,
there:LOC-ABL-S-HSY2 sing sing-AND1-SSSS go-PP2 AUX

onis onis-kain-i ja joni-n bi-[y]ama.
be.sad be.sad-AND1-SSSS that man-ERG get-NEG:PP2
'Then she left singing and singing, feeling sad, very sad, the one the man didn't take as wife.'

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Continuity

(29) ...jawen poi-n, bachi *benxo benxo a*-kin-bi-ronki...
POS3 sister-ERG mosquito.net:ABS tidy.up tidy.up do.T-SSSA-EM-HSY
'..while his sister was tidying up his mosquito net...'

Note in (29) that only the first element of the compound verb *benxo ak-* 'tidy up' is reduplicated. A similar situation if found in (30) involving the onomatopoeic verb *biski ik-* 'shake oneself:'

(30) Ochíti jene-nko pota-kan-a mapet-ax-a
dog water-LOC throw-PL-PO>S/A climb-PSSS:EV

biski biski ik-ai.
ONOM:shake ONOM:shake do.I-INC
'The dog that was thrown into the water climbed up (to the shore) and is shaking.'
(Valenzuela 1997)

Iterativity

In (31) the reduplicated verb stem contains a body-part prefix, the whole stem is reduplicated in this case:

(31) Ka-kin no-n *na-tsá'* *na-tsá*-bain-a iki,
go-SSSA 1p-ERG INTERIOR-spear INTERIOR-spear-AND2-PP2 AUX

na-tsá' *na-tsá*-bain-a iki.
INTERIOR-spear INTERIOR-spear-AND2-PP2 AUX
'While going (up the river) we kept on spearing (arrows) into the water.'

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Plurality

(32) Joni-n-ronki oin-a iki *xobo xobo* mestá-shoko.
man-ERG-HSY see-PP2 AUX house house nice-DIM
'(It is said that) the man saw very nice houses.'

Distribution

The last instance of reduplication in the example below expresses a distributive meaning:

(33) Ja chosko bake piko-t-a-ki i-káti-ai,
that four child:ABS take.out-MID-PO>S/A-HSY2 do.I-PST4-INC

xoxo bake a-kan-ai, kikin *yoitima* *yoitima*-bo;
illegitim./orphan child:ABS do.T-PL-INC extremely disobedient disobedient-PL

ja-ska-ra ik-ax-ki *westíora* *westíora* i-káti-ai.
that-SIML-*ra* be-PSSS-HSY2 one one do.I-PST4-INC
'Those four children were born and people called them illegitimate / orphan children, they were extremely disobedient; since they were illegitimate / orphan children they lived (going) from house to house.'

(34) *Westíora* *westíora*-bo, maan-i keyó-kan-a iki.
one one-PL:ABS come.down-SSSS finish:MID-PL-PP2 AUX
'One by one, they finished coming down.'

SK also has at its disposal a verbal distributive marker, *pake-*, which attaches to transitive verbs only (see 4.9 and 7.5).

A reduplicated adjunct demonstrative is given in the next example:

(35) Ne-ská-bi ne-ská-bi-ra mato ja-nonx iki.
PROX-SIML-EM PROX-SIML-EM-EV 2p:ABS exist-FUT
'Just like this you will live (from now on).'

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Finally, the next example shows that only the second constituent of the compounded verb *masá-shinan-* is repeated in reduplication:

(36) Ja-tian chaxo masá-shinan shinan-*bain*-i ka-a iki,
that-TEMP deer:ABS sad-think think-VEN2-SSSS go-PP2 AUX

piti bena-i.
meat:ABS search-SSSS
'So the deer went to look for meat, feeling very, very sad and scared.'

4.7. Alternate Auxiliarization

There is also a set of roots that can be used either transitively or intransitively depending on the auxiliary verb they take. Thus, a root such as *kobin* combined with the transitive auxiliary *ak-* means 'boil (tr.),' while the same root plus the intransitive auxiliary *ik-* results in 'boil (intr.).' A further instance, partially introduced in (30) above, is *biski ak-* 'to shake something' versus *biski ik-* 'to shake oneself.' The same is true of more obvious onomatopoeic roots such as *she, jojó*, and *to:*'

(37)

she ak-	'fry (tr.)'	shee ik-	'fry (intr.)'
jojó ak-	'bark at'	jojó ik-	'bark'
to' ak-	'shoot at'	to' ik-	'shoot (self), commit suicide'

Like most verbs of body posture or movement to enter into a posture, transitive and intransitive onomatopoeic verbs are equipollent in terms of formal markedness.

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4.8. Compounding

Nouns and verbs may be compounded. The resulting structures have to be considered single words for prosodic and morphotactic reasons; nevertheless, roots in a compound are spelt separately following a convention which is justified by the morpho-syntactic behavior of verbal compounds in specific constructions (see 4.6. and 16.2.5).

4.8.1. Compound Nouns

Compound nouns follow the modifier-head order:

(38)	ino rono	['jaguar' 'snake']	k. snake
	rono atsa	['snake' 'yuca']	k. yuca
	oxe bina	['moon' 'wasp']	k. wasp

Descriptive modifiers precede their head too; e.g., *joxo shino* ['white' 'monkey'] kind of monkey (*Cebus albifrons*). An exception however is *iso koro* 'Humboldt's woolly monkey' (*Lagothrix cana*) formed by *iso* 'spidermonkey' and *koro* 'gray.'

In some compound nouns the first element bears the *-n* marker, most probably the genitive. The next example is particularly interesting, since the *-n* form of *awá* 'tapir' is *awaran* instead of the expected form *awakan* (3.2.2):

(39)	awaran piti	[tapir-*n* food]	k. plant

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As observed by Shell (1975:116), *awaran* is most probably the former *-n* form of *?*awara* 'tapir,' before the rule that deleted the final vowel of trisyllabic nouns applied (see 1.5.2 and 3.1.6).

A large number of compound nouns refer to animal and plant names. This is especially true at biological levels below the *genus* (Valenzuela 2000a, 1998b).

4.8.2. Compound Verbs

The transitive auxiliary *ak-* 'do (tr.), make' is commonly combined with a nominal or adjectival root forming a loosely knit compound; *ak-* plays a factitive / causative function. Consider the following examples:

(40)	xobo	'house'	xobo ak-	'build a house'
	nonti	'canoe'	nonti ak-	'build a canoe'
	pia	'arrow'	pia ak-	'make an arrow'
	wai	'chacra'	wai ak-	'cultivate a chacra'
	bake	'child'	bake ak-	'have/engender a child'
	kené	'design'	kené ak-	'design sth.'
	rami	'bad'	rami ak-	'ruin sth.'
	mechá	'wet'	mechá ak-	'wet sth.'
	ani	'big'	ani ak-	'raise (e.g. a child)'
	nenké	'long'	nenké ak-	'lengthen sth.'

Even when the two roots of these compounds are phonologically bound, there are processes like reduplication and conjunction that treat them as separate syntactic units (see sections 4.6 above and 16.2.5).

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In addition, there are instances of compounds formed by a nominalized verb form plus a verb such as *shinan-benot-* 'slip the mind, forget' (from *shinan* 'mind, thinking,' nominalized form of *shinan-* 'think, plan, remember' + *benot-* 'get lost') in ex. (42) and *masá-tene-* 'suffer from sth.' (from *masá*, nominalized form of *masá-* 'be responsible, break (intr.), have bad luck' + *tene-* 'stand sth.'); see also *masá-shinan-* in ex. (36).

4.9. From Verb Serialization to Derivation

In instances of verb-verb combinations, the latter constituents exhibit different degrees of grammaticalization towards (derivational) suffixes. As treated in Valenzuela (1997), *yama-* may occur as a negative existential root like in (41), or it may combine with other verbs in order to form their negative as in (42):

(41) Ja-tian motóro *yama*-katit-ai.
that-TEMP motor:ABS exist.not-PST4-INC
'In those times there were no motorboats.'

(42) E-n oin-a iki ja-ska-ra; icha baritia iki ja,
1-ERG see-PP2 AUX that-SIML-*ra* much time COP that:ABS

ikaxbi e-a shinan-beno[t]-*yama*-[a]i.
but 1-ABS mind/thinking-fail-NEG-INC
'That is what I saw; this happened a long time ago, but I don't forget it.'

The last word in the example above is a finite verb form containing a sequence of three roots: [*shinan-* 'mind, thinking' plus *benot-* 'get lost'] and *yama-* 'not / no.'

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Similarly, *inat-* 'go up the river,' *pake-* 'cause to fall' and its detransitivized form *pake-t* 'fall, go down' may occur by themselves or phonologically bound to other verbs in order to express the meanings 'upward movement,' distributive, and 'downward movement,' respectively. Consider the following examples involving *pake-*:

pake- 'cause to fall'

(43) E-n-ra bake *pake*-ke weyóti-aino-a.
1-ERG-EV child:ABS throw-CMPL hammock-LOC:LOC-ABL:O
'I caused the child to fall from the hammock.'

-pake distributive 'one by one'

(44) ...Bai Shita-n-ki jato yatan-xon jene
Bai Shita-ERG-HSY2 3p:ABS grab-PSSA flowing.water:ABS

rete-ma-*pake*-a iki.
kill-CAUS-one.by.one-PP2 AUX
'...the Bai Shita held them and drowned them one by one (lit. held them and caused the flowing water to kill (them) one by one).' (Soi Rawa 1995:17)

(45) Ja-skat-ai-tian-ronki ak-á iki, ja joni-n-ki
that-SIML-S-DD-HSY do.T-PP2 AUX that man-ERG-HSY2

jiwi bi-xon ma-rishki-*pake*-kin keyo-kin.
pole:ABS get-PSSA HEAD-hit-DISTR-SSSA finish-SSSA
'Then the man got a pole and killed the monkeys hitting them on the head one by one.'

A somewhat different situation is attested with regard to the andative and venitive morphemes, etymologically related to the contemporary independent verbs 'go' and

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'come.' Formally, andatives and venitives show less degree of independence than *-yama* and *-pake* since they differ in shape from their related source verbs:[2]

(46)	ka-	'go' singular	-kain	andative singular intransitive
	bo-	'go' non-sing., 'carry'	-bain	andative non-sing., transitive
	jo-	'come' singular	-kiran	venitive singular intransitive
	be-	'come' non-sing., 'bring'	-beiran	venitive non-sing., transitive

Nevertheless, semantically, andatives and venitives appear to be less grammaticalized than *-yama* and *-pake*, given that they may encode separate, subsequent events rather than simply modify the events expressed by the verbs to which they attach. The next examples involve the andatives:

(47) E-a-ra bewa-*kain*-ke.
1-ABS-EV sing-AND1-CMPL
'I sang while going.'/ 'I sang and left.'

(48) E-n-ra bake-bo kena-*bain*-ke.
1-ERG-EV child-PL:ABS call-AND2-CMPL
'I called the children while going.'/ 'I called the children and left.'

An andative may cooccur with the verb 'go' in the same predicate:

(49) Ja-ska-rain-ronki i-ni-ke, ja chaikoni ainbo
that-SIML-*ra*:LOC-HSY do.I-REM-CMPL that *chaikoni* woman:ABS

notsi-*kain*-i *ka*-[a]i.
get.angry-AND1-SSSS go-INC
'And so it happened, the *chaikoni*[3] woman got angry and left / left angrily.'

---

[2] The andative morphemes *-kain* and *-bain* have been interpreted as combinations of *ka- / bo-* 'go' plus the locative *-ain* (Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:132).

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In sum, the verb-verb combinations in this section are part of the same clause and no other word may occur in-between the two verbs. The second element of the verbal complex may have the same shape as a contemporary independent verb (e.g., *pake-* and *yama-*) or not (e.g., andatives and venitives), and its meaning may be predictable or bleached (e.g., *inat-* 'going up (the river)' vs. *pake-* 'one by one'); in addition, the verb may retain the possibility of encoding a separate event.

[3] The *chaikoni* or 'hidden people' are people who live in a different layer of reality or in the higher world, and to whom the Shipibo now have access through the great shamans only. In remote times, however, the Shipibo had direct contacts with the *chaikoni*.

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CHAPTER 5

OVERVIEW OF WORD CLASSES

The present chapter is a first attempt to provide criteria, especially of a morpho-syntactic nature, for distinguishing different word classes in SK. It must be pointed out that certain word classes appear plausible and are convenient analytically, but still require further work before suitable criteria can be clearly identified. While pronouns, nouns, verbs, and time-location-manner words are treated in more detail in subsequent chapters, other categories such as conjunctions and interjections are dealt with only here.

Provisionally, the following word classes can be distinguished in SK: noun, verb, adjective, quantifier, time-location-manner word, postposition, pronoun, conjunction, interjection, and onomatopoeic word (see also Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:38-9). In principle, nouns refer to objects, adjectives modify objects by describing a property, quantifiers modify objects by specifying quantity, and verbs predicate actions or events.[1]

---

[1] In SK some lexical items can be used in more than one function, without bearing any overt derivation. However, in these cases there is a significant and often systematic semantic shift, towards the semantic class prototypically associated with the function. For example, a noun like *oxe* 'moon' can be used as predicate by simply taking verbal morphology directly. But in this case the meaning of *oxe-* will change to that of an inchoative process, 'become moon.' Similar instances are common cross-linguistically (Croft 2000).

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A distinction is established between possessive pronouns like English 'mine' and 'yours' which are nominals, and possessive modifiers like 'my' and 'your;' demonstratives function both as pronouns and as noun modifiers specifying deixis. The category verb includes different kinds of auxiliaries. As for time-location-manner words, it will be shown that this is not an homogeneous category in that not all members of this class can take participant agreement morphology.

5.1. Nouns vs. Adjectives

The purpose of this section is to introduce a set of criteria according to which nouns and adjectives can be distinguished from each other; nouns and adjectives are also treated in Ch. 6, where the goal is to further characterize their general morpho-syntactic behavior.

Nouns function as the nucleus of a noun phrase; a noun may be replaced by a pronoun or be omitted altogether when its reference is recoverable from the contexts. Sentence (1a) is a possible beginning of a narrative. As can be observed by comparing the expressions in (1a)-(1c), an explicit noun is required in this situation:

(1) a. Moa-tian-ronki ik-á iki westíora ainbo (siná).
already-TEMP-HSY be-PP2 AUX one woman brave:ABS
'A long time ago, there was a (brave) woman.'

b. *Moa-tian-ronki ik-á iki westíora siná.
already-TEMP-HSY be-PP2 AUX one brave:ABS
'A long time ago, there was a fierce (one).'

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c. *Moa-tian-ronki ik-á iki westíora.
already-TEMP-HSY be-PP2 AUX one
'A long time ago, there was a / one.'

Similarly to languages like Spanish, there are instances where adjectives may function as noun phrase nuclei without taking any overt derivation. However, the meaning of the lexical item changes from that of a property to that of an object or entity possessing the property; e.g., from 'brave' to 'brave one.' A couple of roots belong to both classes, nouns and adjectives; e.g., *ani* 'big / forefather / parent,' *yosi* 'old / old one / ancestor,' *koshi* 'strong / chief.'

Noun-headed phrases but not adjective-headed ones may take the proprietive *-ya* or the privative *-oma* to derive adjectivals (see also ex. 2 in Chapter 4):

(2)			
	bene-ya	[husband-PROP]	'married (woman)'
	bene-oma	[husband-PRIV]	'unmarried (woman)'
	[chopa kextó]-ya	[[clothes thick]-PROP]	'w/ thick clothes'
	[chopa kextó]-oma	[[clothes thick]-PRIV]	'w/o thick clothes'
	chopa-ya	[clothes-PROP]	'w/ clothes'
	chopa-oma	[clothes-PRIV]	'nude'
	*kextó-ya	[thick-PROP]	'w/ thick'
	*kextó-oma	[thick-PRIV]	'w/o thick'
	koshi-ya	[chief-PROP]	'w/ chief'
	koshi-oma	[chief-PRIV]	'w/o chief'
	yosi-ya	[(grand)father-PROP]	'w/ father'
	yosi-oma	[(grand)father-PRIV]	'w/o father'
	ani-ya	[ancestor-PROP]	'w/ ancestor'
	ani-oma	[ancestor-PRIV]	'w/o ancestor'

The possibility of *koshi*, *yosi*, and *ani* taking the proprietive and privative markers by themselves confirms that these roots are also nouns and not simply adjectives used as headless noun phrases.

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Nouns and adjectives also differ in terms of coordination. *Betan* is used as a conjunction between two nouns, but not between two adjectives:

(3) a. papa *betan* tita
father CONJ mother
'father and mother'

b. *wiso *betan* siná
black CONJ fierce
'black and fierce'

c. wiso *itan* siná
black CONJ2 fierce
'black and fierce'

A noun can be modified by another noun or an adjective. However, while adjectives either precede or follow their head, modifying nouns must precede their head; this applies to both genitival and noun-noun compounds:

(4)	rono siná	[snake fierce]	'fierce snake'
	siná rono	[fierce snake]	'fierce snake'
(5)	chaxo ino	[deer jaguar]	k. jaguar
	ino rono	[jaguar snake]	k. snake
	bari-n poi	[sun-GEN excrement]	'moss'

Adjectives and quantifiers but not nouns may carry the suffix *-cha* 'a bit more' and the intensifier *-yora*.[2] For example, *ani-cha* 'a bit big(ger),' *jakon-yora* 'very good.' These markers however do not combine with adjectives exclusively: *-cha* also attaches

[2] Possibly, the intensifier *-yora* originated from the noun *yora* 'body,' and also 'person' in other Panoan languages.

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to time-location-manner words as in *ori-cha* 'a bit more over there' or *ochó-cha* 'a bit further;' *-yora* also modifies verbs as in *keen-yora-* [want-INTENS] 'to want sth. very much.' There is a free intensifier *kikin*[3] that combines with adjectives: *kikin jakon* 'extremely good,' *kikin siná* 'extremely brave,' etc. However, *kikin* is also found as nominal modifier meaning 'elegant, legitimate' as in *kikin xobo* 'luxurious house,' and as 'extremely.'

5.2. Adjectives and Quantifiers

As mentioned earlier, adjectives (or qualifiers) modify nominals by designating a property, whereas quantifiers specify quantity. Both adjectives and quantifiers contain members that can either precede or follow their head nominal.

5.2.1. Adjectives

Property modifiers or adjectives include: *toró* 'round;' *panchá* 'flat;' *ani* 'large;' *maxko* 'small;' *nenké* 'long;' *kextó* 'thick;' *wacho* 'soft, fluffy;' *raston* 'broad, wide;' *nemí* 'deep;' *keyá* 'steep;' *xoa* 'fat;' *oshi* 'skinny;' *yosi* 'old (person);' *payo* 'old;' *benά* 'new;' *koshi* 'strong;' *ishto* 'rapid;' *menin* 'skillful;' *siná* 'brave, fierce, angry;' *mecha* 'good fisher / hunter;' *yoashi* 'stingy;' *jakon* 'good;' *metsá* 'beautiful;' *joshin* 'red;' *panshin*

[3] *Kikin* is a Quechua loan formed by the Quechua morphemes *kiki* 'same' + *-n* third person singular marker, since Quechua *kiki* takes possessive markers. In addition, *-cha* 'a little (more)' has most probably been borrowed from the Quechua diminutive exhibiting the same form; in SK it is even possible to add the indigenous diminutive *-shoko* to a *-cha*-marked element as in *ani-cha-shoko* 'the little oldest one.'

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'yellow;' *yankon* 'green / blue;' *wiso* 'black;' *joxo* 'white;' *chexe* 'sharp (color);' *inin* 'perfumed;' *pisi* 'stinky;' *moka* 'sour;' etc.

The opposite meaning of an adjective can be expressed by adding the non-verbal negative *-ma*, or by using a suppletive form:

(6)	jakon	'good'	jakon-ma	'bad'
	nenké	'long'	nenké-ma	'short'
	ani	'big'	ani-ma	'small'
	kextó	'thick (clothes)'	kextó-ma	'light'
(7)	mecha	'good (fisher / hunter)'	yopa	'bad (fisher / hunter)'
	ani	'big'	maxko	'small'
	xoa	'fat'	oshi	'skinny'
	payo	'old'	benά	'new'

5.2.2. Derived Adjectives

Adjectives can be formed by adding the proprietive *-ya* or the privative *-oma* to a nominal, this was shown in (2) above. Additionally, transitive verbs and certain intransitives like *jo-* 'come,' *ka-* 'go,' *wini-* 'cry,' and *siná-* 'get angry' may derive into adjectives or nouns by taking the habitual agentive suffix *-mis* 'one who always Vs,' its negative *-(y)osma ~ -isma* 'one who never Vs,' or the suffix *-kas* 'one who likes to V:'

(8)	rete-mis	[kill-*mis*]	'killer, murderer'
	washí-mis	[be.jealous-*mis*]	'jealous'
	axe-a-mis	[learn-do.T-*mis*]	'teacher'
	mee-mis	[touch-*mis*]	'one who always beats someone else'

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The form *-yosma* occurs after a stem ending in an unstressed vowel except /i/ (recall from 3.2.1 that two identical or very similar segments meeting at morpheme boundaries result in the deletion of the second segment), while *-isma* is found after stems ending in a stressed vowel (no instance where *-yosma* occurs after a consonant is found in the data):

(9)	yosma		'weak'
	ransa-yosma	[dance-*yosma*]	'one who never dances'
	janso-yosma	[lie-*yosma*]	'one who never lies'
	pi-osma	[eat-*yosma*]	'one who never eats (sth.)'
	siná-isma	[get.angry-*yosma*]	'one who never gets angry'

(10) Jatíribi-baon kapé pi-kan-ai, ikaxbi e-n kapé
some-PL:ERG alligator:ABS eat-PL-INC but 1-ERG alligator:ABS

pi-*osma* iki.
eat-NEG.HAB.AGTZ COP
'Some (people) eat alligator, but I never eat it.'

(11)	wini-kas	[cry-*kas*]	'one who cries easily'
	pi-kas	[eat-*kas*]	'greedy, one who likes to eat sth.'
	bewa-kas	[sing-*kas*]	'one who likes to sing'
	xoin i-kas	[whistle-*kas*]	'one who likes to whistle'

Most probably the suffix *-kas* illustrated above is the same as the desiderative found in finite verbs (see Desiderative Clauses in section 8.2.8).

A second privative marker *-nto* is found on shortened roots related to body-parts in order to form adjectives; e.g., *cha-nto* [BOTH.LEGS-PRIV] 'without the normal use of both legs' (Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:159), *ji-nto* [TAIL-PRIV] 'without tail.' The corresponding full body-part forms are *chapata* 'bifurcation, confluence, two legs' and *jina* 'tail, penis.'

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Finally, adjectives may be formed by adding a participial suffix to a verb, as in *paxkin-* 'get tired' > *paxkin-a* [get.tired-PP2] 'tired.'

5.2.3. Quantifiers

Quantifiers can be divided into numerals and quantifiers proper. There are two original SK or Panoan numerals *westíora* [from *westí* 'sparse, few' + *-yora* 'body, person' > intensifier] 'one' and *rabé* [from *ra-* 'body, person' + *-bé* comitative] 'two;' cardinal numbers higher than 'two' have been borrowed from Quechua. Quantifiers are: *jatíbi(ri)* 'all,' *jatíribi* 'some,' *icha* 'many.' *Reken* 'first' and *chiní* 'last, youngest' function as ordinal numbers designating positions in a sequence; they contain the body-part prefixes *re-* 'nose' and *chi-* 'buttocks.'

An additional nominal modifier is *meskó keská* 'different kinds of' formed by *meskó* 'different, distinct' and the similative *keská.*

5.2.4. Pronominal and Demonstrative Modifiers

Pronominal possessives and demonstratives may also function as nominal modifiers. Pronominal modifiers are the possessives *nokon* 'my,' *min* 'your (sing.),' *jawen* 'his, her, its,' *non* 'our,' *maton* 'your (pl.),' and *jaton ~ jabon ~ jabaon ~ jaboon* 'their.' With the exception of the first and third person singular forms, pronominal modifiers are identical

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to the corresponding *-n* form. Demonstrative modifiers are the proximate *nato* 'this,' the medial *ja* 'that' and the distal *oa* 'yonder.' See also 6.1.

5.3. Time-Location-Manner Words and Postpositions

5.3.1. Time-Location-Manner Words

Differently from members of other word classes, time-location-manner words have an adjunct relationship with respect to the verb (i.e. they do not occur as arguments of the verb) and are attested in frames such as the one given in (12) without taking any derivational morphology. The term "time-location-manner word" rather than "adverb" is chosen in this work given that in SK these categories may be semantically oriented towards one core participant of the clause, rather than modifying the predicate or a larger syntactic unit which includes the predicate.

Time-location-manner words in SK express distance, time, duration, place, degree, and include the following members: *ochó* 'far,' *bakish* 'one day from today (i.e., 'yesterday' or 'tomorrow),' *rama* 'now,' *yantan* 'in the afternoon,' *yamé* 'at night,' *yamékiri* 'in the morning,' *kachio* 'in / to the forest or center (i.e., far from the river),' *moa* 'already,' *kikin* 'extremely,' *yanka* 'in vain,' *shokores* 'a little,' *neno* 'here,' *jain* 'there,' *ono* 'further over there,' *basi* 'some time / long ago.'

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(12) a. E-a-ra ka-[a]i *bakish* */ochó* */ moa* */kachio*
1-ABS-EV go-INC one.day.away far already to.the forest
'I am going tomorrow / far away / already / to the forest.'

b. E-a-ra ka-[a]i *siná* / **ainbo* / **ja*
1-ABS-EV go-INC brave woman that/3
'I am going *angry / *woman / *that.'

As mentioned in 5.1, both time-location-manner words and nominal modifiers such as adjectives and quantifiers may carry the marker *-cha* 'a little more,' as in *ochó-cha* 'a little further,' *basi-cha* 'some little time long / ago.'

A few lexical items referring to parts of the day function as both time-location-manner words and nouns without taking any overt derivation: *yantan* 'in the afternoon / afternoon,' *yamé* 'at night / night, darkness,' *yamékiri* 'in the morning / morning.' Other lexical items like *ochó* 'far (away),' *jakon* 'good, well' and *moatian* 'long ago, old' function as time-location-manner words and adjectives.

(13) Westíora *yamé* 'one night'

(14) Kako r-iki *ochó* jema.
Kako EV-COP far.away village
'Kako is a far away village.' (cf. (12) above)

(15) Isá Bea-ra *jakon* joni iki.
Isá Bea:ABS-EV good person COP
'Isá Bea is an extremely good person.'

(16) *Jakon* r-iki e-a.
well EV-COP 1-ABS
'I am very well.'

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5.3.2. Derived Time-Location-Manner Words

A couple of manner words result from the addition of the suffix *-n* to an adjectival root, for example: *koshi* 'strong' > *koshi-n* 'strongly,' *ishto* 'rapid' > *ishto-n* 'rapidly.' Some nouns become time words by taking the temporal *-tian*: *bari* 'sun' > *bari-tian* 'during the dry season,' *jene* 'flowing water' > *jene-tian* 'during the rainy season,' *bake* 'child' > *bake-tian* 'when being a child,'[4] *wetsa* 'same-sex sibling, other' > *wetsa-tian* 'sometimes;' also the quantifier *jatíbi* 'all' may take the temporal *-tian* to form *jatíbi-tian* 'always.' A couple of time words take *-tian* to form new members: *moa* 'already' > *moa-tian* 'long time ago,' *rama* 'now' > *rama-tian* 'in those times.' Yet certain location words derive from the combination of a noun with *-ki* 'at:' *chipon* 'broadest extreme of sth.' > *chipon-ki* 'down the river,' *rebo* 'extreme, endpoint' > *rebo-ki* 'up the river.'

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[4] As will be shown in 9.2, the temporal *-tian* has developed into a different-subject marker. When added to the medial demonstrative to form the conjunction *ja-tian*, *-tian* indicates discourse discontinuity in a broad sense. However, when added to a noun such as *bake*, the resulting adverb *bake-tian* may refer either to the subject of the clause or not:

i. E-n-ra onan-ke Sanken Bari bake-*tian*-bi.
1-ERG-EV know-CMPL Sanken Bari:ABS child-TEMP-EM
'I know Sanken Bari since I was a child / since he was a child.'

In contrast, the role played by *-tian* in the complex sentence below is that of different-subject:

ii. Bake i-ke-*tian*-bi-ra Sanken Bari e-n onan-a iki.
child be-P-DS-EM-EV Sanken Bari 1-ERG know-PP2 AUX
'I know Sanken Bari, since he was a child.'

iii. Bake i-xon-bi-ra e-n Sanken Bari onan-a iki.
child be-PSSA-EM-EV 1-ERG Sanken Bari know-PP2 AUX
'I know Sanken Bari since I was a child.'

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5.3.3. Participant Agreement

While time words like *bakish* 'one day from today,' as well as manner words formed by the addition of *-n* to an adjectival root, always exhibit the same form, certain place, manner, quantity and other words are semantically oriented towards one participant of the clause and take a special inflection that indexes the syntactic role of that participant. Compare the examples below:

(17) *Bakisha* paké-ke / pi-ke.
one.day.from.today:EV fall-CMPL eat-CMPL
'(S)he fell / ate yesterday.'

(18) a. *Neno*-ra paké-ke. / *neno-xon
here:S/O-EV fall-CMPL
'(S)he fell here.'

b. *Neno-xon* pi-ke. / *neno
here-A eat-CMPL
'(S)he ate here.'

The element *kikin* may function as manner word, intensifier, or adjective. However, *kikin* takes participant agreement inflection when functioning as manner word only:

(19) kikin jakon 'extremely good'
kikin xobo 'luxurious house' (*mestizo* style)
kikin joni 'very elegant man' (wearing *mestizo* clothes)

(20) a. *Kikin-i* paké-ke.
extremely-S fall-CMPL
'(S)he fell and hurt herself hard.'

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b. *Kikin-xon* pi-ke.
extremely-A eat-CMPL
'(S)he ate in an elegant *mestizo* style (i.e., at a table, on a chair, with tablecloth, silverware, etc.)'

c. kikin-*ax* yakat-a
extremely-S sit-PP2
'sitting like posing (e.g., crossing the legs)'

Participant agreement will be elaborated upon in Chapter 19.

5.3.4. Postpositions

There are some twenty postpositions in SK, which generally combine with unmarked or absolutive-marked nominals. Some of these morphemes derive from or are etymologically related to body-part nouns: *napo* 'in the middle of' < *napo* 'interior' + *-n* locative, *kexá* 'at the edge of' < *kexá* 'mouth,' *pekáo* 'after, behind' < *peká* 'back' + *-o* locative. The postpositions *chichó* 'inside' and *bochiki* 'above' most probably contain the body-part prefix *chi-* 'buttocks, behind;' while the first syllable of *bebon* 'in front of' must correspond to *be-* 'face, forehead.' The following text excerpt contains four postpositions in combination with different types of nominals (*moa miina pekáo* is properly an adverbial clause; see 10.5):

(21) Moa miin-a *pekáo* yamékiri-tiibi, chii keté-a-kan-ai
already bury-PP2 after morning-every fire:ABS light-do.T-PL-INC

ja mawá *manaon*, xobo *chichó* xana a-kin. Ja-tian
that dead above house inside hot do.T-SSSA that-TEMP

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pantion-'ain-bi bo-yama-kan-ai, jato *patax*-bi ja mawá.
cemetery-LOC-EM carry-NEG-PL-INC 3p close.to-EM that dead:ABS
'Every morning after burying the corpse they lit a fire above the grave in order to heat the house.[5] The dead person remained close to them, (s)he was never taken to a cemetery.'

5.3.5. Time-Location-Manner Words and Postpositions

Some lexical elements distribute as both time-location-manner words and postpositions; these are: *bebí* 'on the surface (of),' *bochiki* 'above,' *bebon* 'in (the) front (of),' *chichó* 'inside,' *manaon* 'on top (of) / above,' *naman* 'under,' *napon* 'in the middle (of),' *kexá* 'at the edge (of),' *meran* 'inside.' Consider example (22) with *kexá*, from *kexá* 'mouth:'

(22) Ja-ská-a-kin yoi-kan-a jo-ax-ki
that-SIML-do.T-SSSA tell-PL-P>S/A come-PSSS-HSY2

yaka-t-ai *bachi* *kexá*.
sitting.position.I-MID-INC mosquito.net edge.of
'Once being called, he would come and sit at the edge of the mosquito net.'

(23) Ja-ská-a-kin yoi-kan-a jo-ax-ki
that-SIML-do.T-SSSA tell-PL-P>S/A come-PSSS-HSY2

yaka-t-ai *kexá*.
sitting.position.I-MID-INC at.the.edge
'Once being called, he would come and sit at the edge.'

It is also possible for the same element to work as time-location-manner word or as postposition after undergoing some little modification. For example, *senen* 'exactly' and

[5] Traditionally, a relative's remains were placed in a big jar and buried under the house.

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senen-ainko [*senen* + LOC:LOC] 'at the end of' take a nominal complement, while *senen-bires* [*senen* + 'purely'] 'the same' does not.

Some elements attested exclusively as postpositions and requiring a nominal complement are: *patax* 'beside / next to,' *pekáo* 'behind / after,' *betan* 'with,' *kopí* 'because of,' *kaman* 'until / up to,' *keská* 'like,' *xaran* 'between / among,' *paranan* (negative) reason. The following example illustrates the use of *pekáo*, from *peká* 'back' + *-o* kind of locative marker (the sentence below was given in Chapter 4 as (14)):

(24) Moa icha baritia *pekáo*, Shipibo joni-bo moa
already many time after Shipibo person-PL:ABS already

kai-ribi-kan-a iki ja kimisha joni-nko-ni-a-x.
reproduce-REP-PL-PP1 AUX that three person-LOC-LIG-ABL-S
'After many years, the Shipibo reproduced again from these three people.'

The reason / cause marker *kopí* can occur without any nominal complement as in the (b) example below, but in this case a change in meaning is attested:

(25) a. Ja r-iki Rama *kopí*.
that/3:ABS EV-COP Rama cause
'That / it is because of Rama.'

b. Ja r-iki *kopí*.
that/3:ABS EV-COP cause
'That / it has to be paid for (i.e., is not for free).'

Some speakers accept the expression below, where *xaran* lacks a nominal complement:

(26) *Ja r-iki xaran.*
that/3:ABS EV-COP between
'It / that is between (two other things).'

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The examples below show *xaran* taking nominal complements:

(27) Tsoma betan Wesna *xaran*-ra e-a yaká-ke.
Tsoma CONJ Wesna between-EV 1-ABS sitting.position.I:MID-CMPL
'I am seated between Tsoma and Wesna.'

(28) Koshi-bo *xaran*-ra e-a yaká-ke.
chief-PL among-EV 1-ABS sitting.position.I:MID-CMPL
'I am seated among the authorities.'

Generally, postpositional complements occur in the absolutive or unmarked form (5.3.4). An exception is the (negative) reason marker *paranan* which requires its head to occur in the interessive form (see 6.1). Compare the complements of *kopí* and *paranan* below:

kopí reason

(29) Ja i-káti-ai yanka-ma, *e-a kopí.*
that:ABS be-PST4-INC in.vain-NEG 1-ABS reason/cause
'That was not unmotivated, (that was) because of me.'

paranan (negative) reason

(30) Ainbo-ra *e-on paranan* bachin-anan-ke.
woman:ABS-EV 1-INTRSS negative.reason pull.by.the.hair-REC-CMPL
'The women pulled each other by the hair because of me.'

Additionally, some postpositions attach to pronominal roots rather than to pronouns in the absolutive case. In the next example *naman* is appended to the root *e-* rather than to the absolutive-marked free first personal pronoun *e-a*:

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(31) E-*namamea*-x-ra ashá keo keo-wan-ke yamé.
1-under:LOC:ABL-S-EV *ashá*:ABS cry cry-PST1-CMPL at.night
'The *ashá* toads sang and sang under me (i.e., under my house) last night.'

As shown through the underlined marker *-x* in the example above, postpositional locational phrases may also carry participant agreement.

5.4. Verbs

Verbs express actions, processes, and states. There are a number of suffixes that are restricted to verbs (or elements functioning as such); these include valence-changing, certain adverbial-like, and tense-aspect suffixes (see sections 7.4-7.8). Other suffixes restricted to verbs are the plural *-kan* and the negative *-yama* (as opposed to the non-verbal plural *-bo* and the non-verbal negative *-ma*). The following examples involve plural and negative meanings, non-verbal and verbal:

(32)	'women'	[woman-PL]	ainbo-*bo*
	'brave women'	[woman brave-PL]	ainbo siná-*bo*
	'ate (pl.)'	[eat-PL-CMPL]	pi-*kan*-ke
	'the ones eating'	[eat(-PL)-PP1-PL]	pi(-*kan*)-ai-*bo*
(33)	'not a / the woman'	[woman-NEG]	ainbo-*ma*
	'not large'	[large-NEG]	ani-*ma*
	'not here'	[here-NEG]	neno-*ma*
	'did not eat'	[eat-NEG-CMPL]	pi-*yama*-ke
	'not the ones eating'	[eat(-PL)-PP1-PL-NEG]	pi(-*kan*)-ai-*bo-ma*

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Verbs generally require explicit derivation before taking nominal morphology; e.g., *xea-* 'drink (verb)' > *xea-ti* 'drink (noun),' *xea-[a]i* 'the one drinking,' etc. However, a few verb roots may function as nouns / adjectives directly (i.e., are instances of zero derivation): *keen* 'to want / desire,' *onan* 'to know / knowledgeable,' *shinan* 'think / mind' (the nominal *mawá* in (21) might be a combination of *mawa(t)-* 'die' plus the participial *-a*).

Most verbs can be replaced by the semantically generic verbs functioning as pro-verbs *ak-* 'do (tr.), make, tell' and *ik-* 'do (intr.), be, say;' this can be observed, for instance, in short answers to polar questions (section 8.5).

5.4.1. Predicative Function

There is an asymmetry in the potential functions of the different syntactic classes. While most verbs generally require special derivation in order to change word class, nouns, adjectives and even certain time-location-manner words and postpositions can take verbal morphology directly without requiring any formal derivation and thus function as predicates (Valenzuela 1997:84-9). In these instances, noun and adjective roots shift their meaning to that of an inchoative process 'become an object,' 'become a property;' in turn, place postpositions functioning as predicates generally acquire the meaning of 'getting to a place.' The resulting predicates almost always take a single argument. Consider the following examples where the root *kapé-* 'alligator' takes nominal or verbal inflection directly:

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(34) Ja-ská-ke-tian-ronki, *kapetan* kishi tseka-nan-a iki.
that-SIML-P-DD-HSY alligator:ERG leg:ABS take.out-MAL-PP2 AUX
'Then, it is said that the alligator bit off his leg (to his detriment).'

(35) Yoashi-kon[6] Inka-n shinan-ke-tian-ronki rabé joni
Stingy-true Inka-ERG think-P-DS-HSY two man:ABS

kapé-ni-ke.
alligator-REM-CMPL
'It is said that when the Stingy Inka concentrated on it, the two men turned into alligators.' (Valenzuela 1997:85)

The next examples illustrate the same phenomenon with the adjective *ani* 'big' and the postposition *napon* 'in the middle of.' Notice that, as with *kapé* in (35), when verbalizing *ani* (37), the resulting predicate denotes a change of state undergone by an inactive participant; contrastively, the verbalized *napon* (39) requires a controller agent:

(36) ...*ani* nonti-n westíora atsa xeati chomo
big canoe-LOC one yuca drink jar:ABS

na-yása-n-kan-a iki.
INTERIOR-sitting.position.T-TRNZ-PL-PP2 AUX
'...they placed a jar of yuca beer inside the big canoe.'

(37) Ja-n yapa beshé-shoko tsak[a]-a-ronki kikin-i
3-ERG fish small-DIM drive.w/arrow-PP2:ABS-HSY extremely-S

ani-a iki.
big-PP2 AUX
'It is said that the tiny fish he had driven with his arrow grew tremendously.'

(38) Aniwapóro-ra paro *napon* reo-koo-ke....
ship:ABS-EV river in.the.middle.of overturn-MID-CMPL
'A ship sank in the middle of the river.' (Valenzuela 1997)

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[6] An alternative form of this Inka's name is *Yoashiko Inka* 'Stingy Inka;' the ending *-ko* is identical in form to the diminutive used with proper nouns in the local Spanish. For example, *Ishaco* /i'ʃako/ < Isaías.

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(39) E-a-ra *napon*-ke.
1-ABS-EV in.the.middle.of-CMPL
'I reached the center (of the river or lake).' (Valenzuela 1997)

Further examples of postpositions that also receive verbal morphology directly follow:

(40) a. xobo meran
house inside
'inside the house'

b. E-a-ra *meran*-kain-ke.
1-ABS-EV inside-AND1-CMPL
'I fell asleep.'

(41) a. xobo naman
house under
'under the house'

b. Moa-ra *naman*-ke.
already-EV under-CMPL
'It came down (e.g., a hammock, the price)

(42) a. xobo bebon
house in.front.of
'in front of the house'

b. Moa-ra *bebon*-ke
already-EV in.front.of-CMPL
'(S)he cut in the line.'

Unexpectedly, the postpositions *patax* 'next to' and *betan* 'with' yield the transitive predicates 'approach sb.' and 'pass next to sb.' Consider the next example involving *patax*-:

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(43) a. xobo patax
house next.to
'next to the house'

b. Ja-n-ra moa *patax*-ke.
3-ERG-EV already next.to-CMPL
'(S)he already approached (her / him).'

5.5. Conjunctions

There are a handful of conjunctions in SK, many of which are formed on the basis of the medial demonstrative *ja* or its locative form *jain*. Conjunctions often take switch-reference forms and hence may exhibit participant agreement inflection: *ja-tian* [that-TEMP/DD] 'then,' *ja-skat-ai* [that-SIML-INC] 'so / in this way,' *ja-ská-ke-tian* [that-SIML-P-DD] 'so / in this way,' *jain-xon* [there-A] 'and / then' (A agreement), *jainoa-x* [there:LOC:ABL-S] 'and / then' (S agreement), *jainoa* [there:LOC:ABL] 'and / then,' etc. Other conjunctions are *betan* 'and,' *itan* 'and / or,' *iamax* 'or' (S agreement), *iamaxon* 'or' (A agreement). Conjunctions may be fairly complex:

(44) ja-ska-r[a]-aino-a-x-kaya-ki
that-SIML-*ra*-LOC:LOC-ABL-S-CONTRST-HSY2]
'but instead it is said that (+ intransitive clause).'

The suffix *-ra* above is a frozen element and does not correspond to the synchronic direct evidential exhibiting the same form; in fact, the evidential value in this example is reportative as indicated by the hearsay marker *-ki*. Hence, this frozen element is simply glossed as *-ra*. More on conjunctions can be found in 19.2.2.11.

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5.6. Interjections

Interjections include *jeje* 'yes (man speaking),' *jojo* 'yes (woman speaking),' *eeri* surprise, *arí* pain, *ayáoo* pain, *shii ~ jii* disgust, *jass* admiration, *choon* 'really?,' *ojojói* 'how huge!,' *atashái* self-encouragement. *Shii* and *jass* are illustrated in the following examples referring to the traditional customs of designing one's forehead and performing cranial deformation particularly on male newborns:

(45) *Jass!* Ja joni r-iki metsá-shoko,
jass that man:ABS EV-COP beautiful-DIM

oa be-kenet-a metsá...
DIST FOREHEAD-design-PP2 beautiful
'*Jass!* That man is very handsome, his forehead is beautifully designed.'

(46) *Shii!* Ja mapo tonko tonko-isi metsá-tani-ma-isi.
Shii that head round round-DEPREC beautiful-a.bit-NEG-DEPREC
'*Shii!* That one with the head all rounded (i.e., not deformed) looks very ugly.'

Also a few Spanish interjections have entered SK; a couple of examples are *chuu* from colloquial Peruvian Spanish *chucha* 'vagina,' and *pucha* from Spanish *pucha*, a variation of *pues* (see ex. (96) in Chapter 7).

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5.7. Onomatopoeic Words

Onomatopoeic words in SK may occur by themselves or combine with the intransitive and transitive semantically generic verbs *ik-* and *ak-* in order to form verbs. Sentences illustrating onomatopoeic words as predicate constituents are provided in 4.7 and 8.2.7.

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CHAPTER 6

THE NOUN AND THE NOUN PHRASE

Noun phrases consist of a nominal head optionally accompanied by one or more generally adjacent modifiers. A nominal head may be a simple noun, a nominalized verb, another noun phrase, or a pronoun. Modifiers include adjectives, quantifiers, demonstrative modifiers, possessive modifiers, another simple or compound noun, a relative clause, etc. As mentioned in 5.1, modifiers may occur without an overt head, provided the speaker assumes the hearer can infer it from the context.

In this chapter pronouns are examined first, followed by nouns and noun phrases. In SK functions such as plurality or case-marking, which are commonly encoded through inflectional morphemes in other languages, actually operate at the noun phrase level.

6.1. Pronouns

Pronouns in SK can be subdivided into the following major classes: personal, interrogatives, and demonstratives. Pronominal possessive modifiers are best treated as genitive case forms of personal pronouns, instead of as a separate class of their own.

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True possessive pronouns are formed by addition of the nominalizer *-a* to possessive modifiers. Interrogative pronouns occur in interrogative and indefinite constructions. Demonstratives function as both pronouns and modifiers.

6.1.1. Personal Pronouns

There are six basic pronouns corresponding to three person (1, 2, 3) and two number (singular and plural) distinctions. SK pronouns do not differentiate gender, nor is there a difference between inclusive and exclusive first person plural; there are no honorific pronouns either.

Table 6.1. Shipibo-Konibo Personal Pronouns

	Absolutive	Ergative	Possessive Modifier	Possessive	Interessive
1	e-a	e-n	nokon	nokon-a	e-on
2	mi-a	mi-n	mi-n	mi-n-a	mi-on
3	Ja	ja-n	jawen	jawen-a	ja-on
1p	no-a	no-n	no-n	non-a	no-on
2p	mato	mato-n	mato-n	maton-a	mato-n
3p	jato ~ jabo	jato-n~jabaon~ jaboan~jaboon	jato-n~jabaon~ jaboan~jaboon	jaton-a ~ jabaon-a ~ jaboan-a ~ jaboon-a	jato-n ~ jabaon~ jaboan~ jaboon

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Third person pronouns originate from demonstratives in Panoan languages; in SK only the intermediate demonstrative functions as such. Synchronically, the third person plural forms *jato* and *jabo* exhibit a free distribution in the majority of contexts.[1]

First singular, second singular, and first plural personal pronouns exhibit the overt absolutive marker *-a*; the absolutive form of the remaining pronouns and nouns is simply unmarked. The third person singular absolutive pronominal form may be sometimes pronounced with a long vowel; i.e., *jaa*. This vowel lengthening is phonological and may also take place with the demonstrative *ja*; hence, *jaa* should not be interpreted as the combination of the third person singular pronoun *ja* with the absolutive case-marker *-a*.

Ergative pronouns and possessive modifiers have the same form, except for the first and third person singular. In some traditional types of discourse, however, the form *en* appears as first person singular possessive instead of *nokon*. The next excerpt belongs to a song a group of women sing to a dead white-lipped peccary during the *Yoina Reteti* 'Animal Sacrifice' ceremony, which was part of the female puberty rites or *Ani Xeati*:

(1) Mi-n ibo-n kaya, kaya bo-yama-tan-we,
2-GEN owner-GEN soul:ABS soul:ABS carry-NEG-go.and.return-IMP

kokoxtobi-kain-i, Bari naman ka-tan-we,
turn.into.*kokoxtobi*-AND1-SSSS Sun under go-go.and.return-IMP

[1] In the related language Kashinawa, *habu* refers to a heterogenous plural while *hatu* expresses a homogeneous plural (Camargo 1996:4). Also in Kashinawa, Cromack (p.c., 1998) analyzes *-bu* and *-tu* as expressing collective and individual number, respectively. I have not been able to establish this distinction consistently in SK (/haβo/ in SK is clearly attested as a homogeneous plural). Nevertheless, there are contexts where speakers may prefer one form over the other in a way which is consistent with the rule given for Kashinawa. Moreover, when listing distinct entities /haβo/ is used at the end of the enumeration as a resumptive pronoun (as in ex. (15) in Ch. 19). In this context, the alternate form /hato/ is not acceptable.

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ka-tan-we, ka-tan-we, *e-n*-ria bake....
go-go.and.return-IMP go-go.and.return-IMP 1-GEN-*ria* child:ABS
'Your owner's soul, don't take your owner's soul. Turning into *kokoshtobi* hawk fly away, go where the Sun sets. Go, go, my son....' (Soi Rawa 1995:28)

Furthermore, in the Piski dialect speakers may use the possessive modifier *en* instead of *nokon*: 'my child' *en bake* (Piski) vs. *nokon bake* (Ucayali).[2]

The following examples illustrate the use of possessive modifiers and pronouns:

(2) a. Nato r-iki *nokon* nonti.
this EV-COP POS1 canoe:ABS
'This is my canoe.'

b. Nato nonti r-iki *nokon-a*.
this canoe:ABS EV-COP POS1-NMLZ
'This canoe is mine.'

(3) No-n atapa-baon-ra rete-anan-ai. *Nokon-a*-ton-ra
1p-GEN chicken-PL:ERG-EV kill-REC-INC POS1-NMLZ-ERG-EV

mi-n-a jamat-ai; *mi-n-a*-tonin-kaya-ra
2-GEN-NMLZ:ABS kick-INC 2-GEN-NMLZ-ERG-CONTRST-EV

nokon-a kresta-n pi-ai.
POS1-NMLZ:ABS crest-LOC eat-INC
'Our chickens are fighting. Mine is kicking yours, and yours is biting mine on the crest.'

---

[2] In several other Panoan languages such as Kashibo-Kakataibo (Western), Kapanawa (Ucayali), as well as Kashinawa, Yaminawa, Marinawa and Sharanawa (Purus) the first person singular possessive modifier is based on the root *e(e)-*. On the other hand, Wariapano (Ucayali), Chakobo (Southern), and probably Matses (through the form *kon*) employ forms which are cognate with *nokon*. This latter form is most probably related to the first person plural root *no-*.

As for the third person singular possessive modifier *jawen*, it can be noted that the cognate of the ending *-wen* occurs as possessive marker in Yaminawa (e.g., *e-fẽ* 'my' and *a-fẽ* 'his, her;' Eakin 1991:30) and as instrumental / means in Kashinawa (e.g., *tsisuda-ven* 'with scissors,' *xaxu-ven* 'by canoe;' Montag 1981:593).

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Certain extended intransitive verbs require a special type of complement that codes "the person or thing in whom one is interested" (Faust 1973:81, translation mine). These complements of interest bear the special ending *-on* (glossed here as "interessive") on most pronouns. Second and third person plural pronouns, as well as nouns, simply exhibit the *-n* form also used to code ergative / instrumental, possessive, and some oblique functions. The generalizations regarding the allomorphic variants of *-n* forms provided in section 3.2.2 apply. Consider the following examples:

(4) E-a-ra *mi-on* */ja-on* */no-on* sinat-ai.
1-ABS-EV 2-INTRSS / 3-INTRSS / 1p-INTRSS be.angry-INC
'I am angry (at sb. else) on your / his / our account.'

(5) Ja joni-ra mi-*on* keen-ai / yoben-'iba-ke.
that man:ABS-EV 2-INTRSS want-INC ask.in.matrimony-PST2-CMPL
'That man loves you / has asked for you in matrimony.'

6.1.2. Emphatic Pronouns

Emphatic pronouns are used to highlight that the subject participant carried out the action by herself, or to produce a contrastive effect with regard to the object. Emphatic pronouns have been previously referred to as "reflexive pronouns" (Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:67), given that they can be found in middle-marked reflexive constructions. However, emphatic pronouns are not (generally) required for a reflexive construction to be grammatical, the middle suffix being sufficient. Moreover, there are constructions

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that contain an emphatic pronoun even though the relevant verb does not carry the middle suffix that triggers reflexive meaning.

Emphatic pronouns referring to an S / A argument are composed of a pronoun in the *-n* form followed by the emphatic *-bi*, and the participant agreement markers *-x* (for S) and *-0* (for A); the fixed *-n* pronominal ending is analyzed here as nominative case. The table below shows SK emphatic pronouns corresponding to intransitive clauses and hence exhibiting the S agreement ending *-x*. Some speakers employ the ending *-bi-ni-x* [-EM-LIG-S] with the second and third person plural pronouns. The stress falls on the second syllable in all cases:

Table 6.2. Shipibo-Konibo Intransitive Emphatic Pronouns

1	e-n-bi-x
2	mi-n-bi-x
3	ja-n-bi-x
1p	no-n-bi-x
2p	mato-n-bi-x ~ mato-n-bi-ni-x
3p	jato-n-bi-x ~ jato-n-bi-ni-x ~ jabaon-bi-ni-x

The following examples taken from Valenzuela (1997) show that neither the emphatic nor any other pronoun is necessary to obtain a reflexive meaning:

Transitive

(6) a. Tsoma-n-ra Wexá Betsa chachi-ke.
Tsoma-ERG-EV Wexá Betsa:ABS pinch-CMPL
'Tsoma pinched Wexá Betsa (with an arrow, a knife, something pointed).'

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Reflexive

b. Tsoma-ra (*ja-n-bi-x*) chachí-ke.
Tsoma:ABS-EV 3-NOM-EM-S pinch:MID-CMPL
'Tsoma (himself) pinched himself.'

The next example illustrating an emphatic pronoun contains the intrinsically intransitive verb *beno-* 'to get a husband, to marry a man;' i.e., the middle morpheme is not involved and yet the emphatic pronominal form *enbix* occurs nevertheless. Note also that *enbix* is further marked by the emphatic *-bi*:

(7) E-a-ra *e-n-bi-x*-bi-shaman beno-ama[-a] iki.
1-ABS-EV 1-NOM-EM-S-INTENS get.married-NEG-PP2 AUX
'I didn't get married on my own will.'

The following example has a reciprocalized (i.e., also detransitivized but not reflexive) verb form:

(8) *No-n-bi-x*-ra no-a rao-n-anan-kan-ai.
1p-NOM-EM-S-EV 1p-ABS medicine-TRNZ-REC-PL-INC
'We ourselves treat each other with (plant) medicine.'

The next example shows that emphatic pronouns in A function lack overt participant agreement marking:

(9) Wesna-n-ra *ja-n-bi* rao xea-ke.
Wesna-ERG-EV 3-NOM-EM medicine:ABS drink-CMPL
'Wesna herself drank the medicine.'

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When playing the object function, emphatic pronouns carry zero case-marking, as well as zero participant agreement:

(10) Nato r-iki e-n piti be-á;
this EV-COP 1-ERG eat-INF:ABS bring-PP2:ABS

ja-bi moa bo-tan-we.
3:ACC-EM already carry-go.and.do-IMP
'This is the fish I have caught; you better take THIS home already (rather than continue waiting for your father who also went fishing).'

Therefore, the overall distribution of emphatic pronouns is tripartite: *janbix* for S, *janbi* for A, and *ja(a)bi* for O. More about emphatic pronouns can be found in 8.1.

6.1.3. Doubled Pronouns

It is possible to repeat an ergative- or absolutive-marked pronoun for emphatic purposes (combinations of ergative and absolutive pronominal forms are judged ungrammatical):

(11) *E-n e-n* a-res-ke.
1-ERG 1-ERG do.T-just-CMPL
'I defeated him / her (on my own).'

(12) *E-a e-a* a-res-ai.
1-ABS 1-ABS do.T-just-INC
'(S)he is defeating me.'

(13) *E-a e-a* ka-ke.[3]
1-ABS 1-ABS go-CMPL
'I myself left.'

[3] This sentence is not acceptable to all the speakers consulted.

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6.1.4. Other Personal Pronominal Forms

The dative *-ki*, the chezative (i.e., a marker playing a similar function to the French *chez*) *-iba*, and the comitative *-bé* (a shortened form of *betan*) can be added to the following pronominal roots: *e-*, *mi-*, *ja-*, *no-*, *mato-*, *no-*, and *jato- / jabo-*. These pronominal forms are shown in Table 6.3.

Table 6.3. Other Personal Pronominal Forms

	Dative	Comitative	'Chezative'
1	e-ki	e-bé	e-iba
2	mi-ki	mi-bé	mi-iba
3	ja-ki	ja-bé	ja-iba
1 p	no-ki	no-bé ~ noa betan	no-iba
2 p	mato-ki	mato-bé ~ mato betan	mato-iba
3 p	jabo-ki ~ jato-ki	jabo-bé ~ jabo betan ~ jato-bé ~ jato betan	jabo-iba ~ jato-iba

Examples illustrating the use of the pronominal forms in the table above follow:

(14) ...*mi-ki* ainbo sinat-ai-tian....
2-DAT woman:ABS get.angry-S-DS
'...if a woman gets angry at you....'

(15) E-a-ra *mi-bé* *jato-iba* ka-kas-ai.
1-ABS-EV 2-COM 3p-CHEZ go-DES-INC
'I want to go with you to where they are / live.'

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It is worth mentioning here that pronominal roots also combine with phonologically attached postpositions such as: *-bebon* 'in front of,' *-kaman* 'up to,' *-manaon* 'high up with respect to,' *-napon* 'in the middle of,' *-meran* 'among,' *-patax* 'next to,' *-pekáo* 'behind,' *-naman* 'under.' Consider the following examples. In (17) *bebon* takes part in a comparative expression:

(16) Ochíti-ra e-*bebon* ka-[a]i.
dog:ABS-EV 1-in.front.of go-INC
'The dog goes in front of me.' (Faust 1973:56)

(17) Ja-ke nokon bake e-*bebon* onan...
exist-CMPL POS1 child:ABS 1-in.front.of knowledgeable
'I have a daughter who knows more than me....'

(18) Ponsen-ra *no-kaman* jo-ke.
sloth:ABS-EV 1p-LIM come-CMPL
'The sloth came up to us (i.e., up to where we are / were).' (Faust 1973:56)

(19) Bake-ra *e-manaon* iki jiwi-n yaka-t-a.
child:ABS-EV 1-above COP tree-LOC sitting.position.I-MID-PP2
'The boy is above me, on the tree.' (Faust 1973:56)

(20) Ja-ra *no-meran* yaka-t-ai.
3:ABS-EV 1p-inside.of sitting.position.I-MID-INC
'He sits among us.' (Faust 1973:57)

(21) Yawisha *no-napon* iki.
armadillo:ABS:EV 1p-in.the.middle.of COP
'The armadillo is in the middle of us.' (Faust 1973:57)

(22) Tso-a-rin *mi-pekáo*?
who-ABS-INT2 2-behind.of
'Who is behind you?' (Faust 1973:57)

(23) *no-patax* ik-á jema-bo
1p-next.to be-PP2 village-PL
'our neighboring villages'

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Alternate forms like the ones provided below are also attested:

(24) a. mi-naman [2-beneath] ~ mi-a naman [2-ABS beneath] 'beneath you'
b. no-naman [1p-beneath] ~ no-a naman [1p-ABS beneath] 'beneath us'

6.1.5. Interrogative Pronouns

There are two basic roots upon which interrogative pronouns are based: *jawe* 'what' and *tso-* 'who.' These are illustrated in the following question words (see section 8.4 on interrogative clauses for the distribution of *-rin* and *-ki*, and other related issues):

tso-a 'who (absolutive)'

(25) *Tso-a*-rin oa joni?
who-ABS-INT2 DIST man:ABS
'Who is that man over there?'

tso-n 'who (*-n* form)'

Ergative

(26) *Tso-n*-ki mi-a karo be-xon-a?
who-ERG-INT 2-ABS firewood:ABS bring-BEN-PP2
'Who brought you firewood?'

Genitive

(27) [*Tso-n* nonti-rin] nato?
who-GEN canoe:ABS-INT2 this:ABS
'Whose canoe is this?'

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Note that *tso-n* in (27) has a nominal head; on the other hand, *tso-n-a* in (28) fulfills the nominal position by itself:

(28) *Tso-n-a*-rin nato nonon?
who-GEN-NMLZ-INT2 this duck:ABS
'Whose duck is this? / For whom is this duck?'

jawe 'what (absolutive)'

(29) *Jawe*-rin nato?
what:ABS-INT2 this
'What is this?

jawen 'what (*-n* form)'

Instrumental

(30) *Jawe-n*-ki mi-n wame rete-a?
what-INST-INT 2-ERG *paiche*:ABS kill-PP2
'With what did you kill the *paiche* (fish)?'

jaweti 'how much, how many'

(31) *Jaweti* bake-ya-rin mi-a?
how.many child-PROP-INT2 2-ABS
'How many children do you have?'

jawerato 'which'

(32) *Jawerato* yoina-nin-ki xae jawen bichi
which animal-ERG-INT ant-eater:ABS POS3 skin:ABS

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yometso-a-ni?
become.thief-do.T-REM:NMLZ
'Which animal stole the skin from the ant-eater?'

jawerano ~ jaweno 'where (intransitive)'

(33) *Jawerano*-ki mi-a ka-[a]i?
where-INT 2-ABS go-PP1
'Where are you going?'

(34) *Jawerano*-ki Inka-bo ja-a?
where-INT Inka-PL:ABS exist-PP2
'Where did the Inkas live?

jaweranoxon 'where (A agreement)'

(35) *Jawerano-xon*-ki epa-n pi-ai?
where-A-INT paternal.uncle-ERG eat-PP1
'Where is paternal uncle eating?'

jaweranoa 'from where (O agreement)'

(36) *Jawerano-a*-ki mi-n paranta be-a?
where-ABL:O-INT 2-ERG banana:ABS bring-PP2
'From where did you bring banana?'

jaweranoax 'from where' (S agreement)

(37) *Jawerano-a-x*-ki mi-a jo-a?
where-ABL-S-INT 2-ABS come-PP2
'From where did you come?'

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jawetian 'when'

(38) *Jawe-tian*-ki mi-a noko-t-a?
what-TEMP-INT 2-ABS meet-MID-PP2
'When did you arrive?'

jawe kopí 'why?'

(39) *Jawe kopí*-ki mi-a ransa-kashama-[a]i?
what reason/cause-INT 2-ABS dance-DES:NEG-PP1
'Why don't you want to dance?'

jawe keská 'how (copular construction), what kind of'

(40) *Jawe keská*-rin mi-a?
what SIML-INT2 2-ABS
'How are you?'

(41) *Jawe keská* rono-rin ja?
what SIML snake-INT2 that:ABS
'What kind of snake is that?'

jawe keskatax 'how (S agreement)'

(42) *Jawe keskat-ax*-ki mi-a jo-a?
what SIML-S-INT 2-ABS come-PP2
'How did you come?'

jawe keskáxon 'how (A agreement)'

(43) *Jawe keská-xon*-ki yapa-n join-ai?
what SIML-A-INT fish-ERG breath-PP1
'How do fish breathe? ('breathe' is transitive in SK)'

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Additionally, interrogative pronouns occur with the enclitics *-bé*, *-iba*, and *-ki*, as well as with different postpositions:

(44) *Tso-bé*-shaman-ki mi-a ka-ti iki Kontámanain?
who-COM-INTENS-INT 2-ABS go-INF AUX Contamana:ALL
'With whom are you going to Contamana?'

(45) *Tso-a* *patax*-ki Wesna yaka-t-ai?
who-ABS next.to-INT Wesna:ABS sitting.position.I-MID-INC
'Next to whom is Wesna sitting?'

Interrogative pronouns also function as indefinites; this is shown in the following examples (indefinite constructions will be dealt with in 8.2.9):

(46) *Tso-a*-ra sai i-bira-i.
who-ABS-EV ONOM:cry.out.for.help do.I-INFR-INC
'Somebody is crying out for help.'

(47) Ja no-n joné merati-bo *tso-n* onan-yama-[a]i.
that 1p-GEN hidden lover-PL:ABS who-ERG know-NEG-INC
'Nobody knows (about) our secret lovers.'

(48) Jawen ani-baon *jawe*-bi a-xon-yama-ke.
POS3 parent-PL:ERG what:ABS-EM do.T-BEN-NEG-CMPL
'Her parents did not do anything (prohibited) to her benefit.'

The example above refers to the set of rules parents of a newborn must comply with so as not to provoke any harm against their baby. Note that the negative *-yama* has scope over the base predicate 'do' rather than over the applicative "predicate" *-xon*.

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6.1.6. Demonstrative Pronouns

Demonstratives function as nominal modifiers or as pronouns without bearing any overt derivation. Demonstratives exhibit three degrees of distance: *nato* visible proximate, *ja* (non)visible medial, and *oa* (non)visible distal. The following sentences illustrate the three demonstratives fulfilling argument positions:

(49) *Nato-n*-ra bakish paranta bo-ai.
this-ERG-EV one.day.from.today plantain:ABS carry-INC
'This one will carry plantain with her / him tomorrow.'

(50) Moa westíora oxe r-iki *ja* ik-á.
already one month EV-COP that:ABS be-PP2
'It's been already a month since that happened.'

(51) *Oa-bo*-ra e-n onan-a-bo iki.
DIST-PL:ABS-EV 1-ERG know-PP2-PL:ABS COP
'Those are my acquaintances.'

The italicized demonstrative pronouns in (49)-(51) may be replaced by the following NPs, respectively: *nato jonin* [this man-ERG] 'this man,' *ja jawéki* [that thing:ABS] 'that event,' and *oa jonibo* [DIST person-PL:ABS] 'those people (further away).'

6.1.7. Time-Location-Manner Demonstratives

It is possible to form time-location-manner words based on the demonstratives *ne-* ~ *nato* proximate, *ja-* medial, and *o(a)-* distal. As shown in Table 6.4, some paradigms are defective. Consider the following exx. involving time-place-manner demonstratives:

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(52) *Oa-tian*-ronki sapen icha ja-káti-ai, Paro-n.
DIST-TEMP-HSY manatee much:ABS exist-PST4-INC Ucayali-LOC
'In those times, it is said that there were a lot of manatees in the Ucayali River.'

(53) *Nato-tian*-kaya-ra sapen yama-ke moa.
this-TEMP-CONTRST-EV manatee:ABS exist.not-CMPL already
'But in these times there are no manatees anymore.'

(54) Tashi-nko-ronki metsá iki, *ja kopí*-ra e-a onan-kas-ai.
Salt-LOC-HSY beautiful COP that reason-EV 1-ABS know-DES-INC
'I heard it is beautiful in the Salt (Mountain), therefore I want to know it.'

Table 6.4. Time-Location-Manner Demonstratives

	Proximate	Medial	Distal
LOC / ALL	ne-no	jain	o-no
approximate location	ne-o	jao	
direction	ne-ri		o-ri
'on the side'	ne-ke		o-ke
'from the side'	ne-ke-a		o-ke-a
similative	ne-ská	ja-ská	
'at, against'	nato-ki	ja-ki	oa-ki
time	nato-tian	ja-tian	oa-tian
'in the back'	nato pekáo	ja pekáo	oa pekáo
'under'	nato naman	ja naman	oa naman
'on top of'	nato manaon	ja manaon	oa manaon
'in front of'	nato bebon	ja bebon	oa bebon
reason / cause	nato kopí	ja kopí	oa kopí
approximate size	nato-tío		

6.2. Nouns

Whereas the purpose in Ch. 5 was to distinguish nouns from other word classes, the present section focuses on the general morphological and syntactic properties of nouns.

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SK nouns form an open lexical class whose members can occur in a bare form without any additional morphology; alternatively, nouns combine with a number of modifiers. SK lacks noun classes as well as an obvious distinction between inalienably and alienably possessed nouns. Kinship and body-part terms do not exhibit deviant morpho-syntactic behavior (but see body-part prefixes below).

A noun can be replaced by a pronoun or simply be omitted when the speaker evaluates that the referent can be understood or recovered from the context:

(55) Ja-rá-ke ranó-ya joni, ja-ríba-ke ainbo
exist-EV-CMPL jealousy-PROP man:ABS exist-also-CMPL woman

ranó-ya, ja-ríba-ke ranó-oma-bo.
jealousy-PROP:ABS exist-also-CMPL jealousy-PRIV-PL:ABS
'There are jealous men and jealous women, there are also those (men and women) who are not jealous.'

For example, the next excerpt belongs to a text about a great shaman who goes to the higher world in order to put an end to the eclipse of the sun which was causing great suffering to the Shipibo. After accomplishing his goal, the great shaman comes back to this world and finds that the people are doing well already. Note that the people are not overtly expressed in the example below: in the first sentence it is the modifier *nekea* 'from this side' which functions as nominal taking the plural *-bo*, while in the second sentence the people are not overtly referred to in any way. In turn, the same-subject marker *-xon* tracks the references to the A participant, the great shaman:

(56) Jo-xon jis-á-ki ik-á iki moa
come-PSSA see-PP2-HSY2 be-PP2 AUX already

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ne-ke-a-bo-ki jakon-i....
PROX-on.the.side-ABL-PL:ABS-HSY2 good-S
'Coming back, he saw that the people from this world were well already....'

(57) Jain-xon-ki yoiy-a iki:....
there-PDCA-HSY2 tell-PP2 AUX
'Then, (the shaman) told (them)...'

Unless otherwise indicated by the context, omission of a required argument is normally understood as a zero third person singular form (see 8.2.3 on Transitive Clauses).

6.2.1. Female versus Male Distinction

There are no gender distinctions in SK. A systematic way to indicate male versus female differentiation in humans is by using the nouns *ainbo* 'woman' or *benbo* 'man' as modifiers. *Ainbo* derives from *awin-bo* ['wife' + plural] and *benbo* from *bene-bo* ['husband' + plural]. Consider the following examples:

(58)

bake ainbo	'daughter'	bake benbo	'son'
iná ainbo	'Indian woman'	iná benbo	'Indian man'
yonoti ainbo	'female servant'	yonoti benbo	'male servant'
piá ainbo	'cross niece'	piá benbo	'cross nephew'

Unlike humans, animals are modified by *awin* and *bene* for female and male, respectively:

(59)

atapa awin	'hen'	atapa bene	'rooster'
jono awin	'female peccary'	jono bene	'male peccary'
awá awin	'female tapir'	awá bene	'male tapir'
shino awin	'female capuchin monkey'	shino bene	'male c. m.'
chaxo awin	'female deer'	chaxo bene	'male deer'

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mananxawe awin	'female tortoise'	mananxawe bene	'male tortoise'
jasin awin	'female *paujil* (k. bird)'	jasin bene	'male *paujil*'

According to some native speakers, animal names such as 'capybara' and 'manatee' cannot be modified by *awin* or *bene*. Additionally, some speakers consider that fish, snakes, rats, and herons are always female. *Awin* and *bene* also combine with a couple of plants:

(60)				
	pocha awin	'female papaya'	pocha bene	'male papaya'
	binon awin	'female aguaje'	binon bene	'male aguaje'
	aná awin	'female *catahua*[4] tree'	aná bene	'male *catahua* tree'

6.2.2. Number

In SK it is possible to distinguish singular versus plural number, plural meaning more than one (verbs may carry the suffix *-bekon*, meaning action carried out by two participants). Singular number is unmarked, plural may be marked either on the nominal via plural pronouns or other nominals followed by *-bo*, or on the verb using the verbal plural *-kan*. The next ex. refers to a single bird flying, since no indication of plurality is given:

(61) a. Isá-ra noya-[a]i.
bird:ABS-EV fly-INC
'The / a bird is flying.'

In order to indicate that two or more birds are flying, the plural *-bo* may be used:

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[4] *Hura crepitans, Euphorbiaceae* (Tournon 1995, Appendix 1).

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b. Isá-bo-ra noya-[a]i.
bird-PL:ABS-EV fly-INC
'(The) birds are flying.'

Other possibilities are:

c. Isá-ra noya-kan-ai.
bird:ABS-EV fly-PL-INC
'The birds are flying.'

d. Isá-bo-ra noya-kan-ai.
bird-PL:ABS-EV fly-PL-INC
'The birds are flying.'

6.2.3. Non-Count Nouns

Non-count nouns do not combine with numerals and cannot take the plural *-bo*. In this group are included nature entities and meteorological forces such as *tashi* 'salt,' *jene* 'flowing water,' *onpax* 'contained water,' *oi* 'rain,' *wakanawa* 'school of fish,' *koin* 'cloud(s),' *niwe* 'wind,' *bechon* 'wave,' *mashi* 'sand,' *mai* 'land,' *mano* 'mud,' *nai* 'sky,' *manish* 'weed.' Also included are food and drink products like *aros* 'rice,' *atsa poto* 'yuca flour,' *bata* 'sugar,' *bexnan* 'sugarcane liquor.' Non-count body-parts are: *rani* 'body hair,' *bero karani* 'eyebrow,' *bero kexni* 'eyelash,' *keni* 'beard, moustache,' *boo* 'hair.' There are also non-count nouns denoting cultural items such as *mei* '*apacharama*' (powder made out of dried and charred *apacharama*[5] tree bark which is mixed with clay

[5] *Licania spp., Chrysobalanaceae* (Tournon 1995, Appendix 1).

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to manufacture pottery).[6] When functioning as subjects, *oi* 'rain,' *wakanawa* 'school of fish,' *koin* 'cloud(s),' *niwe* 'wind,' *bechon* 'wave' require the non-singular stems of the verbs 'come' and 'go' (see meteorological-nature verbs).

6.2.4. Count Nouns

Count nouns can be combined with numerals and may take the plural *-bo*. Here are some examples: *joni* 'person / man,' *nonti* 'canoe,' *makan* 'stone,' *yapa* 'fish,' *ison xoma* 'zapote[7] (tree or its fruit),' *wishtin* 'star,' *jiwi* 'tree,' *xobo* 'house,' *xawi* 'sugar cane,' *jina* 'tail,' *mapo* 'head,' *chopa* 'piece of clothes,' *kebí* 'lip,' *rekin* 'nose,' *rekin kini* 'nostril,' *paro* 'river,' *wean* 'creek,' *ian* 'lake,' *bata* 'candy,' *xaté* 'wound from a cutting,' *isin* 'pain (from illness),' *chexá* 'pain,' *mei* '*apacharama* tree,' *boo* 'hair,' etc.

6.2.5. Proper Nouns

Under this subcategory are grouped proper names of people, places, and ethnic units or clans. A Shipibo can have three different kinds of personal names: *ikon jane ~ janekon* 'true or core name,' *nawan jane ~ nawan join jane* 'Spanish name, name in the outsider's language,' and *shiro jane* 'joke name.' *Janekon* are compounded; while the first element

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[6] One consultant considered as count nouns the following: *wakanawa* 'school of fish,' *koin* 'cloud,' *bechon* 'wave,' *manish* 'weed,' *rani* 'body hair,' *bero karani* 'eyebrow,' *bero kexni* 'eyelash,' and *keni* 'beard, moustache.' Note that *boo* 'hair' is included in both classes, non-count and count nouns.

[7] *Matisia cordata, Bombacaceae* (Tournon 1995:Appendix 1).

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of the compound is generally shared by men and women, the second element is in the majority of cases sex specific. *Nawan jane* are the same names as those of the Spanish-speaking population; many Shipibo carry the last names of former *patrones*. *Shiro jane* are given by friends or relatives based on a funny personal anecdote.

Proper names of places may also be compounded; e.g., *kontá manan* [k. palm tree + 'hills'] lit. 'hills where there are *konta* palm trees.' Alternatively, placenames may consist of an animal or plant name followed by the proprietive *-ya*; e.g., *amakiri-ya* [k. fish + PROP] lit. 'place where *gamitana*[8] fish abound.'

Names of ethnic groups carry the plural or collective maker *-bo*. Panoan ethnonyms are commonly formed by an animal name plus *-bo*. For example, *Shipi-bo* ['tamarin monkey' + *-bo*] 'the Tamarin Monkey People,' *Koni-bo* ['eel' + *-bo*] 'the Eel People,' etc. Alternatively, Panoan ethnonyms may combine an animal name with the root *nawa* 'outsider, other people, enemy;' e.g., *Kashi-nawa* ['bat' + *nawa*], *Kapa-nawa* ['squirrel' + *nawa*]; ethnonyms with *nawa* might have been coined by neighboring ethnic groups.

6.2.6. Nouns Denoting Parts of the Body

There is a closed set of nouns, almost all referring to body-parts (an exception is *jene* 'flowing water'), that derive shortened forms generally identical to the first syllable of the source noun (but cf. *ra-* 'body' and *ne-* 'flowing water'). These shortened morphemes are

[8] *Colossoma macropomum, Colossoma oculus, Characidae, Characiforme* (Tournon 1995, Appendix 4).

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prefixed to other nouns, adjectives, and especially verbs to add an adverbial-like meaning, usually a locative, in what can be seen as obligatory possessor raising. In some cases, the root to which these body-part prefixes attach occurs in a shortened form too. Addition of body-part prefixes does not trigger a change in word class. Body-part prefixes and their source nouns are provided in Table 6.5.

Table 6.5. Body-Part Prefixes

Prefix	Source	
be-	bero	'eye'
	benaman	'face'
bo-	boo	'hair'
cha-	?	'two legs'
chi- ~ tsi-	chixo	'buttocks'
in-	inpé iti	'temple'
jan-	jana	'tongue'
jin-	jina	'tail, penis, male parts'
jon-	joboxko	'testicles'
ka-	kaxo	'spinal column'
ke-	kexá	'mouth'
	kebí	'lips'
	keni	'moustache, beard'
ki-	kishi	'upper leg'
ko-	koi	'jaw, lower jaw'
ma-	mapo	'head'
me-	meken	'hand'
	metoti	'finger'
ne-	jene	'flowing water'
	nete	'world'
na-	napo	'interior'
no-	noi	'abdomen'
pa-	pabíki	'ear'
pe-	peká	'back'
pi-	pishi	'rib'
pon-	ponyan	'arm'
ra-	yora	'body'

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ran-	rantonko	'knee'
re-	rekin	'nose'
ta-	tae	'foot'
tan-	tamo	'cheek'
	tampexko	'jaw'
te-	texo	'neck'
	teká	'nape (of the neck)'
	tepon	'vein in the neck'
	texkan	'bunch (e.g. of plantain)'
wi-	witax	'leg'
xan-	xani	'upper leg'
xe-	xeta	'tooth'
xo-	xochi	'chest'

(62) be-tonko 'swelling, bump / patch on the forehead or face'
be-wis 'black bump / patch on the forehead or face (caused by sun exposure or *huito*[9])'
be-weresh- 'scratch on the face'

In *be-wis* above, the adjectival root *wiso* occurs in a shortened form.

When dealing with derived adjectives in 5.2.2, it was also mentioned that these shortened forms of nouns denoting a body-part may function as roots and take the privative suffix *-nto*: *cha-nto* [BOTH.LEGS-PRIV] 'without the normal use of both legs' and *ji-nto* [TAIL-PRIV] 'without tail.' More about body-part prefixes can be found in sections 7.3 and 8.2.6.

[9] *Genipa americana, Rubiaceae* (Tournon 1995, Appendix 1).

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6.2.7. Group Nouns

A few nouns refer to groups of entities of the same kind, these terms are: *tsamá* 'group of,' *tonbó* 'group of (monkeys),' *kai* 'flock,' *senbó* 'group of (small creatures),' *texkan* 'large bunch of,' and *bero* 'grain of.' *Tsamá* is typically attested in reference to groups of peccaries and tapirs: *yawa tsamá* 'herd of white-lipped peccaries,' *awá tsamá* 'herd of tapirs.' However, *tsamá* has a wider range of use and may be considered as the general term for 'group.'

Tonbó refers to a group of monkeys: *iso tonbó* 'group of spidermonkeys,' *shino tonbó* 'group of capuchin monkeys,' *wasa tonbó* 'group of squirrel monkeys,' *roo tonbó* 'group of howler monkeys,' *shipi tonbó* 'group of tamarin monkeys,' *riro tonbó* 'group of *musmuque*[10] monkeys;' but **yawa tonbó* 'herd of white-lipped peccaries.'

The term *kai* is used at least for some birds. Differently from *tsamá* and *tonbó*, the nominal that combines with *kai* occurs in the *-n* form: *manxaman* [*manxan* + *-n*] *kai* 'flock of herons,' *bawa-n kai* 'flock of parrots,' *abo-n kai* 'flock of *manshaco*s,' *isko-n kai* 'flock of *paucar*s,' *pitso-n kai* 'flock of parakeets,' etc.

The term *senbó* refers to groups of small creatures such as insects and lizards: *jima senbó* 'group of ants,' *jenen yawa senbó* 'group of *esquila* (k. water insect),' *xanbo senbó* 'group of lizards.' *Senbó* can also be used to indicate a group or small bunch of

[10] *Aotus spp.*

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fruits: *xankon senbó* group of *uvilla* fruits, *wanin senbó* 'group of *pijuayo*[11] fruits,' *xenan senbó* 'group of *guaba*[12] fruits,' *binon senbó* 'group of *aguaje*[13] fruits.'

Texkan refers to large bunches of fruits (e.g., harvested bananas are brought from the chacra in *texkan* or large bunches): *wanin texkan* 'large bunch of *pijuayo* (fruit),' *paranta texkan* 'large bunch of plantain,' *binon texkan* 'large bunch of *aguaje*,' *isan texkan* 'large bunch of *ungurahui* (fruit).'

Bero 'seed, eye' may be used for 'grain (of corn).' There is no especial unit for *mashi* 'sand,' *aros* 'rice,' *asókaro* 'sugar,' or *tashi* 'salt.'

6.2.8. Origin / Augmentative *-n Ewá*[14]

According to Shipibo worldview, animals and plants have a "mother" or "owner" (these terms are a translation from Peruvian Amazonian Spanish *madre* and *dueño*).[15] This "mother" or "owner" is not viewed as either feminine or masculine, but simply as the origin of its kind. For instance, *waka-n ewá* [fish-*n ewá*] '*saltón*' (*Brachyplatystoma filamentosum, Pimelodidae, Siluriforme*) is considered as the "mother" of all fish without scales (Tournon 1995, Appendix 4); *iso-n ewá* [spidermonkey-*n ewá*] is said to be the

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[11] *Bactris gasipaes, Palmae* (Tournon 1995, Appendix 1). 'Peach palm' in English (Phil Young, p.c.)

[12] *Inga edulis, Leguminosae* (Tournon 1995, Appendix 1).

[13] *Mauritia flecuosa, Palmae* (Tournon 1995, Appendix 1).

[14] An alternative form is *-n ewa*, without stress on the final vowel; the *-n* form of *ewá* is *ewakan* while the *-n* form of *ewa* is *ewan*.

[15] Consultants differ as to whether all animals and plants have a "mother" or "owner" or only some.

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ancestor from which all kinds of monkeys derived. These original kinds are described as larger or somehow more salient than their descendents, commonly live in the forest or water, and may cause harm to those who do not abide by a set of established rules. The father of a newborn baby, for example, must avoid contact with certain trees like *xono* '*lupuna*' (*Ceiba pentandra, Bombacaceae*) and animals such as *rono-n ewá* 'aquatic boa' (*Eunectes murinus, Boideae*), or else these could harm his baby.

Commonly, the mother or owner of plants and animals is encoded via the [N-*n ewá*] construction shown in (63). Interestingly, the cognate of *ewá* means 'mother' in the related languages Yaminawa and Sharanawa but not in SK. Plausibly, the *-n* corresponds to the genitive and diachronically [N-*n ewá*] expressions are to be interpreted as 'X's mother / origin.' Here are some examples:

(63)	rono-n ewá	[snake-*n ewá*]	'aquatic boa'
	waka-n ewá	[fish-*n ewá*]	'*saltón*'
	koni-n ewá	[eel-*n ewá*]	'electric eel, *macana*'[16]
	chepa-n ewá	[k. large mosquito-*n ewá*]	k. huge mosquito found on cows
	yapa-n ewá	[fish-*n ewá*]	'*sábalo*'[17]
	iso-n ewá	[spidermonkey-*n ewá*]	k. huge monkey
	jina-n ewá	[tail / penis-*n ewá*]	'*charapilla*' k. male turtle
	bawa-n ewá	[parrot-*n ewá*]	k. large parrot
	ipo-n ewá	[*carachama*[18]*-n ewá*]	'*carachama* mother' fish

Ewá above may sometimes be replaced by *ibo* "owner." There are also combinations of N-*n tita* (*tita* 'mother'), such as *yawish-en tita* [armadillo-*n* mother] '*yanguaturi*'

[16] *Electrophors electricus, Electrophoridae; Hypopomus brevirostris, Hypopomidae, Gymnotoidei,* (Tournon 1995, Appendix 4).

[17] *Brycon spp., Characidae, Characiforme* (Tournon 1995, Appendix 4).

[18] *Pterygoplichtys multiradius, P. spp., Loricariidae, Siluriforme* (Tournon 1995, Appendix 4).

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(*Priodontes maximus*, Tournon 1995, Appendix 3), also called *yawishan ewá*; *atsa-n tita* [yuca-*n* mother] '*yuca mama*' (*Tapirira guianensis, Anacardiaceae*, Tournon 1995, Appendix 1); *rono-n tita* [snake-*n* mother] 'mother of the snakes,' origin of all kinds of snakes (identified by a speaker as the same as *kamox* '*shushupe*').

Below, *-n ewá* has augmentative meaning:

(64)	jene-n ewá	[flowing.water-*n ewá*]	'deluge'
	joni-n ewá	[person-*n ewá*]	'huge person'
	yamekan ewá	[darkness:*n ewá*]	'eclipse'

6.3. Derived Nominals

6.3.1. The Nominalizer *-Ti*

The marker *-ti* may be added to verbs in order to form nouns, especially instruments:

(65)	yaká-ti	[sit-*ti*]	'seat, chair, bench'
	to'-a-ti	[ONOM:shooting do.T-*ti*]	'shotgun'
	chachi-ti	[pinch-*ti*]	'shot, injection'
	mishki-ti	[fish w/hook-*ti*]	'hook'

6.3.2. Zero Nominalization on Verbs

There are instances of zero nominalization of a verb to a noun like *keen-* 'to want / desire (noun),' *mawá-* ~ *mawat-* 'to faint or die / fainted (one), corpse,' *shinan-* 'to think, to

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remember / mind, thinking.' The next examples illustrate *shinan-* functioning as verb and noun, respectively:

(66) E-n-ra *shinan*-ai ja Ani Xeati Kanaria jema-n i-ní.
1-ERG-EV think-INC that *Ani Xeati* Kanaria village-LOC do.I-REM:NMLZ
'I remember the *Ani Xeati* ceremony that took place in Kanaria village long ago.'

(67) Ja-ska-rain e-n rama nato *shinan* bi-i i-t-ai.
that-SIML-ra:LOC 1-ERG now this thinking:ABS get-SSSS be-PROG-INC
'In this way, I am now acquiring this experience.'

6.3.3. Participle Nominalizers

It is also possible to form nominals by adding the incompletive and completive participle markers *-ai* and *-a* to a verb stem:

(68) ...no-a i-ti atipan-ke benxoa-mis, *isin-ai-bo* benxoa-[a]i.
1p-ABS be-INF can-CMPL cure-HAB:AGTZ be.sick-PP1-PL:ABS cure-INC
'...we can become medicine people and cure the sick (ones).'

(69) Jain-xon-ribi yoi-kan-ai, ja *mawat-a*-ki ka-[a]i reboki....
there-PDCA-also say-PL-INC that die-PP2:ABS-HSY2 go-INC up.the.river
'It is also said that the dead people go to the upper Ucayali....'

6.3.4. Zero Nominalization on Time-Location-Manner Expressions

Time-location-manner expressions may function as nominals and take the corresponding morphology directly without requiring any overt derivation. For example, the locative-

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marked expressions *ransa-ti-ain* [dance-INF-LOC] and *aros bana-kan-a-ainko* [rice sow-PL-PP2-LOC:LOC] may be interpreted as 'the place to dance' and 'rice field,' respectively, and receive the plural *-bo* and other nominal morphology; see exx. (106) and (107). For examples involving ablative and similative expressions see sentences (56) and (87).

6.4. Derivational Morphemes on Nouns

6.4.1. The Instrumental Causativizer *-N*

Nouns may combine with the suffix *-n* to form instrumental causative verbs:

(70)	rao	'plant medicine'	rao-n-	'treat sb. with plant medicine'
	axa	k. plant poison	axa-n-	'poison (fish)'
	joi	'word'	joi-n-	'criticize sb.'
	xeni	'fat, grease'	xeni-n-	'grease sth.'
	bata	'sweet, sugar'	bata-n	'sweeten sth.'
	waste	k. plant with special powers	waste-n-	'change sb.'s behavior by treating her/him with waste'

6.4.2. The Distributive *-Ti(i)bi*

Nouns and pronouns may be marked by the suffix *-tiibi* ~ *-tibi* to code a distributive meaning, translatable into English 'each, every:'

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(71) Apo-n-ra jema-*tiibi* jawéki-bo meni-ke.
president-ERG-EV village-each thing-PL:ABS give-CMPL
'The President made a donation to each village.'

(72) Nete-*tibi*-ra e-a nashi-ai paro-n.
day-every-EV 1-ABS bathe-INC river-LOC
'Every day I bathe in the river.'

In the example immediately above, the noun marked by *-tibi* clearly functions as adjunct.

6.5. Nominal Compounding

With one attested exception (*iso koro* 'Humboldt's woolly monkey'), modifiers precede their modified noun in nominal compounding. Nominal compounds are generally composed of [noun-noun] or [noun-*n* - noun] combinations, where *-n* is interpreted as genitive marker. There are also some [adjective-noun] compounds and as mentioned above at least one instance of the [noun-adjective] sequence:

(73)

[ADJ N]		
Ani Xeati	[big drink]	'*Ani Xeati* ceremony'
Chexe Inka	[black Inka]	'Black Inka'
joxo nawabo	[white outsiders]	'*mestizo*s, white people'
wiso ino	[black jaguar]	k. puma '*yanapuma*'
[N N]		
xawan waran	[k. large parrot gourd]	k. fish '*pejetorres*'
[N-GEN N]		
nawa-n bai	[outsider-GEN way]	'rainbow'
jene-n yawa	[water-GEN white-lipped-peccary]	k. aquatic insect

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bawa-n poi	[parrot-GEN excrement]	'noodle' (neologism)
kashi-n mentsis	[bat-GEN paw]	k. vine 'cat's paw'[19]
[[ADJ N] N]		
wiso-ino isá	[[black jaguar] bird]	k. bird '*yanapuma* bird'
[N ADJ]		
iso koro	[spidermonkey gray]	'Humboldt's woolly monkey'
[[N ADJ] N]		
iso-koro paranta	[[spidermonkey gray] plantain]	k. plantain
poi-pisi jima	[[excrement stinky] ant]	k. black ant

Most nominal compounds refer to plant and animal names, especially below the generic level. The following compounds refer to different types of snakes for which a literal translation is given; in all instances, modifiers precede the head *rono* 'snake:'

(74)
awá rono 'tapir snake,' *bawa rono* 'parrot snake,' *kana rono* 'k. guacamayo snake,' *kapé rono* 'alligator snake,' *koma rono* 'k. bird snake,' *wasa rono* 'squirrel monkey snake,' *ino rono* 'jaguar snake,' *isko rono* 'paucar bird snake,' *iso rono* 'spidermonkey snake,' *jene rono* 'flowing water snake,' *maxe rono* 'achiote snake.'

As mentioned ealier, *chaxo ino* lit. 'deer jaguar' refers to a kind of jaguar and not to a kind of deer. [Noun-noun] and [noun-*n* - noun] compounds may code material and part-whole relationships; this was treated in the section on Modifying Nouns in 3.3.7.1.

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[19] *Macfadyena unguis-cati (L.) Gentry, Bignoniaceae* (Tournon 1995, Appendix 1).

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6.6. Noun Phrase Markers

6.6.1. The Proprietive *-Ya* and The Privative *-Oma*

The proprietive *-ya* and the privative *-oma* operate at the noun phrase level, changing a nominal into an adjectival or descriptive modifier (see also (2) and (53)):

(75)	bene-ya	[husband-PROP]	'married (woman)'
	bene-oma	[husband-PRIV]	'single (woman)'
	awin-ya	[wife-PROP]	'married (man)'
	awin-oma	[wife-PRIV]	'single (man)'
	ranó-ya	[jealousy-PROP]	'jealous'
	rano-oma	[jealousy-PRIV]	'not jealous'

6.6.2. The Diminutive *-Shoko* and The Deprecatory *-Isi* ~ *-Osi*

Other morphemes that attach to noun phrases are the diminutive *-shoko* which may have an emotional sense (see also (10)-(12)) and *-isi* ~ *-osi* (the second form is used when the host ends in /i/) indicating disdain:

(76)	ja-shoko	[that-DIM]	'that little one'
	tita-shoko	[mother-DIM]	'grandmother'
	papa-shoko	[father-DIM]	'grandfather'
	xobo-shoko	[house-DIM]	'little house'
	noibati-shoko	[poor-DIM]	'poor little one'
(77)	[ani joni]-osi	[[big man]-DEPREC]	'big man (with disdain)'
	[joni joxo]-isi	[[man white]-DEPREC]	'white man (with disdain)'

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As mentioned earlier, *-shoko* is not restricted to nominals and nor is the pejorative which may be found on a verb.

6.6.3. The Legitimative *-Kon* and Its Negative *-Koma*

When added to a noun, *-kon* adds the meanings of 'core, legitimate, true, real, authentic, very good.' For example, the Shipibo refer to themselves as *Joni-kon* 'Core People' from *joni* 'person' plus *-kon,* their language may be referred to as *Joi-kon* 'Core Language,' and Shipibo proper names are called *jane-kon* 'core name:'

(78) Nokon papa-n *jane-kon* i-káti-ai Kesin Tsoma.
POS1 father-GEN name-legitimate be-PST4-INC Kesin Tsoma
'My father's Shipibo name was Kesin Tsoma.'

Another example is *piti-kon* 'very good / core food' used by the Shipibo when referring to the fish and other types of food they preferably eat.[20]

The negative *-ma* can be suffixed to *-kon* thus yielding *-koma* 'bad:'

(79) Nato r-iki joni-*koma.*
this EV-COP person-bad
'This is a bad person.' (Faust 1973:98)

(80) Ne-ri-ra bai-*koma* iki.
PROX-about-EV way-bad COP
'Over here the way is not good / is hard.' (Faust 1973:98)

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[20] In her *Lecciones para el aprendizaje del idioma shipibo-conibo*, the SIL missionary linguist Norma Faust includes the following examples: *kirika-kon* 'authentic book, very good book, Bible' and *bai-kon* 'true way, very good way;' these terms were most probably coined for religious purposes (1973:97-98).

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When added to nominalized verbs ending in *-ti*, *-kon* and *-koma* have the meanings 'easy' and 'difficult or impossible to achieve,' respectively:

(81) Ja-ská-shaman-xon e-n jene-ti-*koma* ik-á iki.
that-SIML-INTENS-A 1-ERG leave-INF-hard / impossible be-PP2 AUX
'In that situation it was impossible / hard for me to leave (him).'

(82) Onan-ti-koma r-iki i-kon jawéki.
know-INF-hard / impossible EV-COP be-legitimate thing:ABS
'It is hard to know the truth.' (Faust 1973:98)

As shown in the example above, the verb *ik-* 'be, do (intr.)' plus *-kon* results in *ikon* 'true;' the verb *ja-* 'exist, live' plus *-kon* result in *jakon* 'good' whose negative is *jako(n)ma* 'bad.'

6.6.4. The Plural / Collective *-Bo*

Another marker found on pronouns, nouns, and other kinds of nominals is the plural / collective *-bo*. As mentioned earlier, *-bo* is commonly found in ethnonyms such as *Shipibo*, *Konibo*, *Xetebo*, *Kashibo*, as well as in *kaibo* 'co-member of the ethnic group;' in addition, the singular nouns *ainbo* 'woman' and *benbo* 'man' originally derive from *awin-bo* [female / wife-*bo*] and *bene-bo* [male / husband-*bo*], respectively. *-Bo* is also used to form the third person plural pronoun *ja-bo*.

The next example shows that *-bo* attaches to the last word of the corresponding noun phrase, even if it is not the head:

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(83) Jain-xon-ribi [sapa kenchá ani-osi]-*bo*
there-PDCA-also flat.on.one.side clay.pot large-DEPREC-PL:ABS

ak-á iki.
do.T-PP2 AUX
'She also made large flat clay pots.'

In the example below, *-bo* occurs twice: first on the noun phrase headed by *Kashibo* and secondly on the descriptive modifier *xapanantiyashoko* whose head is not overtly expressed; *xapanantiyashokobores* is the single syntactic element of a zero copula construction:

(84) Ja Kashibo-*bo* kikin joshin-res ik-á iki chopa-oma ik-ax,
that Kashibo-PL:ABS extremely red-just be-PP2 AUX clothes-PRIV be-PSSS

xapananti-[y]a-shoko-*bo*-res.
loincloth-PROP-DIM-PL:ABS-just
'The Kashibos looked all red because they wore no clothes, they only wore loincloths.'

Besides encoding plurality of individuals, *-bo* can also indicate plurality of kinds:

(85) Ja-ríba-ra-ke meskó keská nawa-shoko-*bo*.
exist-also-EV-CMPL different SIML *mestizo*-DIM-PL:ABS
'There are also different kinds of *mestizos*.'

(86) Moa-tian-ronki ja-káti-ai meskó keská joni-*bo*....
already-TEMP-HSY exist-PST4-INC different SIML person-PL:ABS
'It is said that long time ago there were different kinds of people...'

Below, *-bo* attaches to a similative-marked pronoun:

(87) Moa-tian i-káti-kan-ai *ja-ska-ra-shaman-bo*....
already-TEMP do.I-PST4-PL-INC that-SIML-*ra*-INTENS-PL:ABS
'Long time ago such (things) existed....'

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Although *-bo* generally behaves like a phrasal suffix, it is possible to find it simultaneously on a second element inside the NP. In the next example, *-bo* occurs on the quantifier *jatíribi* and also on its subsequent head noun:

(88) Inka-n yoi-ni keská-bi ja-ke rama jatíribi-*bo*
Inka-ERG say-REM:NMLZ SIML-EM exist-CMPL now some-PL

ainbo-*bo* kikin jawéki-a-ti onan-ma.
woman-PL:ABS extremely thing-do.T-INF knowledgeable-NEG
'Just like the Inka Woman said, there are nowadays some women who don't know at all how to do the things (that are proper of women).'

No obvious pause is heard between the two elements bearing *-bo* in the example above.

In the ex. below, *-bo* attaches to a pronoun (this use of *-bo* requires further study):

(89) Mato-bo moa mawat-a pekáo ik-ai.
2p-PL:ABS already die-PP2 after do.I-INC
'This will happen after you (all) die.'

In exx. (56), (106) and (107) *-bo* occurs on zero-nominalized ablative / locative adjuncts; in (87), *-bo* follows a zero-nominalized similative adjunct.

6.6.5. Case-Markers

Case-markers in SK are phrasal suffixes; i.e., they attach to the last element of the NP. The case-markers treated in this section are the following: absolutive, vocative, *-n*-form, interessive, locative-allative, ablative, dative *-ki*, chezative and temporal. In addition, I

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refer to the possible ways in which certain types of not fully grammaticalized nominal relationships such as source or reference (aboutness) can be encoded.

6.6.5.1. Absolutive

The first singular, second singular, and first plural personal pronouns, as well as the interrogative 'who' take the suffix *-a* to mark the absolutive case, other nominals remain unmarked. Absolutive-marked nominals function as intransitive subjects (active or inactive), object arguments, object of postpositions like *kopí* reason / cause, and possibly copula predicates. But given that pronouns do not occur in this latter function, the possibility that copula predicates are composed of a bare stem cannot be excluded.

(90) *Bake*-ra jo-ke.
child:ABS-EV come-CMPL
'A / the child came.'

(91) E-n-ra *bake* kena-ke.
1-ERG-EV child:ABS call-CMPL
'I called the child.'

(92) Nato r-iki *nokon bake.*
this:ABS EV-COP POS1 child(:ABS)
'This is my child.'

6.6.5.2. Vocative

Nouns in the vocative bear the stress on the last syllable:

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(93)	citation	vocative
'mother'	tita	titá
'child'	bake	baké
'man's brother-in-law'	chaikoni	chaikoní
proper name	Sani	Saní
'same-sex sibling'	wetsa	wetsá
'young girl'	xonta(ko)	xontá
'godchild'	pano	panó
'maternal uncle'	koka	koká
'sister-in-law'	tsabe	tsabé

(94) *Saní*, ne-ri jo-wé!
Sani:VOC PROX-towards come-IMP
'Sani, come over here!'

(95) Ja-tian e-n nokon wetsa Kesten Koshi yoyo ak-á
that-TEMP 1-ERG POS1 same.sex.sibling Kesten Koshi:ABS ONOM:say do.T-PP2

iki: "*wetsá*, e-a Tashi onan-kas-ai".'
AUX same.sex.sibling:VOC 1-ABS Salt:ABS know-DES-INC
'Then I told my brother Kesten Koshi: "Brother, I want to know the Salt (Mountain)".'

Metathesis is attested in the vocative form of *shino* 'capuchin monkey,' metaphorically 'woman' in certain traditional types of discourse (as opposed to *xawe* 'turtle' which refers to men): *shino* > *shoní*.

With diachronically trisyllabic nouns (i.e., disyllabic nouns whose unmarked form ends in a stressed vowel or a consonant), the third syllable present in the *-n* form is retained and the stress migrates to the last syllable. This suggests that at a previous stage of the language, before the rule that deleted the last vowel or syllable of trisyllabic nouns applied, vocatives may have been formed simply by switching the stress to the last

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syllable of the noun.[21] Vocatives remained trisyllabic, probably due to the fact that the final syllable carried the stress (cf. Features of Proto-Pano Grammar in 1.5.2). Consider the vocative form of nouns carrying acute stress on the citation form:

(96)	'enemy, rival'	rawí	rawiká
	'nephew, niece'	piá	piaká
	woman's step son, young boy	jomó	jomó ~ jomoká
	'penis, non-relative male'	boshí	boshiká
	'vagina, non-relative female'	xebí	xebiká
(97)	proper name	Ronin	Ronimá
	proper name	Kesin	Kesimá
	proper name	Sanken	Sankemá
	proper name	Kesten	Kestemá
	'wife'	awin	awimá
	k. parrot	beskon	beskomá

Trisyllabic nouns form their vocative by switching the stress to the last syllable (i.e., they do not add the ligature *-ni* present in the *-n* form, see 2.3.2):

(98)	'*pishtaco*'[22]	pishtáko	pishtakó
	borrowed proper name (< Isaías)	Isháko	Ishakó
	'man's brother in-law, *chaikoni*'	chaikoni	chaikoní

Words ending in the habitual agentive *-mis* exhibit no change with respect to their citation form: *pi-mis* > *pi-mis* 'one who always eats' (used when a parent pretends to call the jaguar in order to scare her child), *rete-mis* > *rete-mis* 'one who always kills, murderer.'

---

[21] In some related languages such as Kapanawa and Kashinawa, the *-n* form also plays a vocative function. Therefore, an alternative possibility is that the SK vocative resulted from the loss of nasalization of *-n* forms.

[22] White person who is believed to kill Indians in order to extract their fat. This fat is said to be sold in developed countries as fuel for different kinds of machines, e.g. airplanes.

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6.6.5.3. *-n* Form

Nominals in the *-n* form may encode any of the following functions: subject of a transitive verb, instrumental / means, genitive, locative / allative, temporal, other obliques. The examples in (99) illustrate the instrumental function. In the (b) sentence, the instrumental is followed by the negative *-ma* to code the meaning 'without.' Note that the emphatic *-bi* is also present (as with Negative Indefinites, see 3.6.9):

(99) a. Pia-*n*-ra rete-ke.
arrow-INST-EV kill-CMPL
'(He) killed (it) with an / the arrow.'

b. Pia-*n*-ma-bi-ra rete-ke.
arrow-INST-NEG-EM-EV kill-CMPL
'(He) killed (it) without an / the arrow.'

The following example illustrates the temporal, means, genitive, and locative functions:

(100) Rominko nete-*n*-ra nashi-a iki waste-*n* Rama-*n* xobo-*n*.
Sunday day-TEMP-EV bathe-PP2 AUX *piripiri*-MNS Rama-GEN house-LOC
'On Sunday (s)he bathed with *piripiri* in Rama's house.'

The sentence below shows the *-n* morpheme functioning as genitive (through the allomorph *-nin*) and transitive subject. Note that the ergative occurs only once, after the possessed coordinate noun phrase in A function:

(101) Ja pekáo, [xontako-*nin* [papa betan tita]]-*n* atsa xeati-a-[a]i.
that after girl-GEN father and mother-ERG yuca drink-do.T-INC
'After that, the girl's parents prepared the yuca beer.'

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6.6.5.4. Interessive

Generally, the complement of interest codes the participant in whose interest a subject experiences an emotion. While the first singular, first plural, second singular, and third singular personal pronouns exhibit a distinctive interessive form, nouns as well as the second and third person plural pronouns are formally identical to the *-n* form instead (for the distinct forms, see 6.1.4; see also the extended intransitive clauses in 8.2.2).

(102) Tita-ra nokon wetsa-*n* raket-ai.
mother:ABS-EV POS1 same.sex.sibling-INTRSS be.afraid-INC
'Mother fears for my sister.'

The complement of interest may be followed by the ablative and / or participant agreement markers, as in the example below:

(103) E-a-ra *mi-on-mea-x* axe-ai.
1-ABS-EV 2-INTRSS-ABL-S learn-INC
'I learn for you / from you.'

Finally, the object of the postposition *paranan* also occurs in the complement of interest as shown in ex. (81) which is repeated below:

(104) Ainbo-ra *e-on* *paranan* bachin-anan-ke.
woman:ABS-EV 1-INTRSS negative.reason pull.by.the.hair-REC-CMPL
'The women pulled each other by the hair because of me.'

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6.6.5.5. Locative-Allative

In addition to *-n* (< *-no*),[23] the markers *-nko* and *-ain* also play locative-allative functions. Nominals with even-numbered moras generally take *-nko* or *-n* (in free distribution) while those with odd-numbered moras take *-ain*. Disyllabic nominals ending with a stressed open syllable or in a closed syllable count as trimoraic (see also 3.1.6 and 3.2.3). Derived nominals take the forms *-ain* (odd-numbered moras) ~ *-ainko* (even-numbered moras):

Even-numbered moras

(105) ....moa bo-kan-ai wetsa-*nko* / wetsa-*n*.
already go.n.SG-PL-INC other-ALL
'They went somewhere else.'

Odd-numbered moras and derived nominals

(106) Ransa-ti-*ain*-bo ka-[a]i, Ani Xeati-*ain*-bo ka-[a]i,
dance-INF-ALL-PL go-INC *Ani Xeati*-ALL-PL go-INC

---

[23] In other Panoan languages including the closely-related Wariapano, the locative-allative is expressed through the phrasal suffix *-no*. In addition, there are reasons internal to SK to posit the form *-no* as (a former) locative-allative. Consider the following expressions:

ne-*no*	[PROX-LOC/ALL]	'here'
jawe-ra-*no*	[what-*ra*-LOC/ALL]	'where'
Ikito-ai-*no-a*	[Iquitos-LOC-LOC-ABL]	'from Iquitos'

Moreover, in his "Idioma Schipibo" Armentia (1898:61) registered as entry the phrase *hema-no putaqui* [out-LOC/ALL throw] 'to send somebody outside,' where the locative-allative is *-no* rather than *-n* as would be the case in the present-day language. Therefore, there is enough evidence to posit that *-no* rather than *-n* was the previous general locative-allative marker in SK, and that the allative-locative, ergative, etc. conflation is an innovation,

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meskó keskát-i ni-kan-ke.
different SIML-S walk-PL-CMPL
'(Widows nowadays) go to dances, to *Ani Xeatis*, they go wherever they want (i.e., the traditional mourning rites are not observed).'

(107) Nato isá-ra ja-ke icha mano piko-t-a
this bird:ABS-EV exist-CMPL much black.mud take.out-MID-PP2

manish-*ain*-bo, aros bana-kan-a-*[a]inko*-bo.
weed-LOC-PL rice sow-PL-PP2-LOC-PL
'This bird lives in the weeded shores with black mud, in the rice fields.'

Note in the two examples immediately above that the plural *-bo* follows locative-marked expressions which are in turn instances of zero nominalization.

6.6.5.6. Ablative

The ablative case is formed upon the locative-allative, resulting in different instances of "case-stacking;" ablative endings are: *-nkonia*, *-ainoa*, *-ainkonia*, *-mea*, and *-kea*. Locative-allatives ending in *-nko* add the ligature *-ni* before the ablative proper, while those ending in nasal lose this segment and add *-mea*. The ablative endings *-ainoa* [*-ain* locative + *-no* locative + *-a* ablative] and *-ainkonia* [*-ain* locative + *-nko* locative + *-ni* ligature + *-a* ablative] occur on derived nominals too. Intrinsically locative-allative elements (i.e., those which do not require overt locative-allative markers to play the functions at hand) ending in a vowel or the retroflex sibilant /ʂ/ simply take the ending *-kea* to form the ablative. Exceptions to these rules are *meran* 'inside' that may be alternatively marked by *-oa* (i.e., *meramea* ~ *meranoa*), and *manaon* that takes *-kea* in

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spite of ending in nasal (see also Alternate Mora Timing in 3.2.3). A locative form ending in a stressed vowel shifts its stress to the first syllable when taking the ablative *-kea*, as in *chichó* 'inside' > *chichokea* 'from inside:'

(108) Jepe Ian ainbo-bo iki wetsa-*nko-ni-a*-bo keská-ma.
Jepe Ian woman-PL:ABS COP other-LOC-LIG-ABL-PL SIML-NEG
'The women from the village of San Francisco are not like those from other villages.'

(109) No-n Inka iki mana*mamea*-ma....
1p-GEN Inka:ABS COP mountain:LOC:LOC:ABL-NEG
'Our Inka is not from the Andes....'

In the ex. above, the form *manamamea* is composed of the root *manan* 'mountain' + the *-n* form allomorph *-man* and the locative + ablative *-mea*. The following ablative forms are based on the locative-allative *-ain*:

(110) Biri-ra jo-ke Maioshi*aino-a*-x.
Biri:ABS-EV come-CMPL Pucallpa:LOC:LOC-ABL-S
'Biri came from Pucallpa.'

(111) Ja mai kini-*ainoa*-x pikó-xon joni-n yatan-a
that ground hole-LOC:LOC:ABL-S take.out:MID-PSSA man-ERG grab-PP2

iki ja ainbo jo-a.
AUX that woman:ABS come-PP2:ABS
'Coming out of the hole, the man grabbed the woman who had come nearby.'

In the example above, *mai kini* exhibits the ablative form based on the locative-allative *-ain* despite having an even number of moras; it may be the case that *mai kini* is treated as a compound. Below, *-ainoa* is added to a derived nominal:

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(112) ...ronin meno-t-*aino-a*-x piko-t-a iki
yacumama[24]:ABS burn-MID-LOC:LOC-ABL-S take.out-MID-PP2 AUX

ja waste.
that *piripiri*:ABS
.'...from the *yacumama*'s ashes originated that *piripiri*.'

An ablative form may be used alternatively to a locative one in order to indicate that the relevant participant is already at a location when the event takes place, or is perceived as belonging to a location. Both alternate forms translate into English or Spanish locative expressions. Compare the following examples:

(113) Abion-ra paké-ke kachio.
plane:ABS-EV cause.to.fall:MID-CMPL in.the.forest
'The plane fell in the forest.' (the plane was flying over an unspecified location and then fell in the forest.)

(114) Abion-ra paké-ke kachio-*kea*-x.
plane:ABS-EV cause.to.fall-CMPL in.the.forest-LOC:ABL-S
'The plane fell in the forest.' (the plane was flying over the forest and fell there)

An ablative (rather than a locative) form may also be used to semantically modify an S participant, given that overt S agreement only occurs on ablative-marked adjunts. The next example involves the ablative form *-ainkonia*, which combines the locatives *-ain* +

-nko before addition of the ligature *-ni* and the ablative proper *-a*:

(115) Ja-ská-ribi no-a i-ti ja-ke
that-SIML-also 1p-ABS do.I-INF exist-CMPL

[24] Huge mythological water-snake.

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Jepe I*ainko-ni-a*-x-bicho-ma....
Jepe Ian:LOC:LOC-LIG-ABL-S-only-NEG
'We must behave in this way (i.e., kindly) not only in Jepe Ian.....'

Finally, the next two examples illustrate inherently locative-allative expressions taking the ablative *-kea*:

(116) Ja-ra naiki-ai bachi chicho*kea*-x...
3:ABS-EV travel.to.upper.world-INC mosquito.net inside:LOC:ABL-S
'He (received the spirit of the *ayahuasca*[25] plant and) travelled to the upper world from inside his mosquito net.'

(117) Ochíti mecha a-nonxon-ronki bi-ti iki sokota pani bero,
dog:ABS good.hunter do.T-FSSA-HSY get-INF AUX six *yahuarango* seed:ABS

chosko "jono joboxko," chonka nia boan'is pei,
four collared-peccary testicle:ABS ten *sacha.sanango* leaf:ABS

kachio*kea*.
in.the.center:LOC:ABL:O
'To make a dog become a good hunter one has to bring from the forest six *yahuarango* seeds, four "collared-peccary testicles" plants, and ten *sacha sanango* leaves.'

6.6.5.7. Dative *-ki*

The morpheme *-ki* 'at, against' marks the stimulus of an emotion predicate, as well as certain locative NPs. *-Ki* is labelled here "dative" for convenience. Note in the example immediately below that *-ki* is formally identical to the shorter hearsay (and the interrogative although this latter is not illustrated here):

[25] *Banisteriopsis spp., Malpighiaceae.*

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(118) Rama kaman-bi-ki ino-*ki* xae sinat-ai.
now until-EM-HSY2 jaguar-DAT ant-eater:ABS be.angry.at-INC
'Even until today the ant-eater is angry at the jaguar.'

(119) ...no-n jawen kishi-bo taxkan-xon nexa-ti atipan-ke jiwi-*ki*.
1p-ERG POS3 leg-PL:ABS put.w/legs.up-PSSA tie-INF can-CMPL pole-DAT
'..holding (the dog) with its legs upwards we can tie its legs to a pole.'

6.6.5.8. Chezative -*iba*

The chezative -*iba* can be translated as 'to / at the place where X is / lives:'

(120) No-n onanya-bo-*iba* no-a isin-ai-tian bo-xon no-a
1p-ERG *onanya*-PL-CHEZ 1p-ABS get.sick-S-DS carry-PSSA 1p-ABS

benxo-ma-[a]i, ja-bo-*iba* no-n bo-ai jawéki-nin kopi-ke-tian.
heal-CAUS-INC 3-PL-CHEZ 1p-ERG carry-INC thing-ERG cause.harm-P-DS
'When we get sick we are taken to our *onanya*s (healers) and they heal us, to them we take (a child) when something has caused her harm.'

The next example illustrates the chezative -*iba* and also the dative -*ki*:

(121) Jain-xon-ribi yoi-kan-ai, ja mawat-a-ki ka-[a]i reboki,
there-PDCA-also say-PL-INC that die-PP2-HSY2 go-INC up.the.river

Para Inka Rios-*iba*, Inka-*ki*....
Para Inka Rios-CHEZ Inka-DAT
'It is also said that the dead go to the upper Ucayali River, where the Para Inka God (lives), to the Inka....'

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6.6.5.9. Temporal *-tian*

The temporal *-tian* may be added to certain nouns in order to refer to a life-stage:

(122) Bake-*tian* nokon yoxaman e-a ese-katit-ai
child-TEMP POS1 old.woman:ERG 1-ABS advice-PST4-INC

ne-ská a-kin.....
PROX-SIML do.T-SSSA
'When I was a child my grandmother used to advise me in the following way...'

(123) Ja-ra teet-ai *estudiante*-tian-bi.
3:ABS-EV work-INC student-TEMP-EM
'S/he works since s/he was a student.'

However, the temporal *-tian* is more commonly found on the medial demonstrative *ja* thus resulting in the connector *jatian* 'then,' on adverbs such as *moa* 'already' or *rama* 'now' to obtain other adverbials like *moatian* 'long time ago' and *ramatian* 'currently,' on nominalized clauses yielding adverbial clauses; additionally, the temporal *-tian* has developed a specialized function as a different-subject marker (see 9.2).

6.6.5.10. Other Types of Nominal Relationships

Source and reference (aboutness) are not fully grammaticalized in SK. Through elicitation it is possible to obtain sentences like (124a) and (125) below, however there are more common alternative ways to express the intended meanings as shown in (124b):

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(124) a. Tsoma-iba-ke-a ninkat-a.
Tsoma-CHEZ-LOC-ABL hear-PP2
'I heard it from Tsoma.'

b. Tsoma-n yoiy-ai ninkat-a.
Tsoma-ERG say-PP1:ABS hear-PP2
'I heard it from Tsoma.' (lit. I heard what Tsoma said.')

(125) Nokon tee-kiri a-kin-ra e-n wisha-ke.
POS1 work-*kiri* do.T-SSSA-EV 1-ERG write-CMPL
'I wrote (him) about my work.'

There are no special nominal forms for the following meanings: partitive, extent, distance measure, concessive, inclusion, exclusion, addition, 'across.' As for price or value, the word *kopía* (possibly from *kopí* reason / cause + *-ya* proprietive) is used:

(126) Rabé chonka soro kopía-ra e-n bi-ke.
two ten sol for-EV 1-ERG get-CMPL
'I bought it for 20 soles.'

(127) Westíora chopa kimisha chonka soro (kopía) iki.
one cloth:ABS three ten sol worth COP
'A cloth is worth 30 soles.'

For material and part-whole relationships see section 6.7.1; for circumstance see 6.7.9.

6.7. Word Order in the Noun Phrase

Nominal modifiers fall into two major groups on the basis of the relative order in which they occur with respect to their head. Modifying nouns, possessives and genitives,

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demonstratives, quantifiers except for *icha*, and numerals beyond 'two' obligatorily precede their head nominal. A second group of modifiers may either precede or follow their head with no obvious semantico-pragmatic shift. This second group includes adjectives, the quantifier *icha*, the numeral 'two' and to a lesser degree 'one,' the modifier *meskó keská* 'different kinds of,' and relative clauses. I will also refer to the members of this latter group as "ambipositional modifiers" and to the existence of alternate orders of modifier and head as an instance of "doubling" (Hawkins 1983).

6.7.1. Nouns and Modifying Nouns

Similarly to the situation described for nominal compounding, nouns modifying other nominals necessarily precede their modified element. [Noun noun] combinations encode different functions, one of them being material-product relationships:

(128)	chopa joni	[cloth person]	'doll made of cloth'
	jiwi xobo	[wood house]	'wooden house'
	yami kentí	[metal pot]	'metal pot'

The negative is formed by adding *-ma* to the [noun noun] structure:

(129)	chopa joni-ma	[[cloth person]-NEG]	'doll not made of cloth'
	jiwi xobo-ma	[[wood house]-NEG]	'not a wooden house'
	yami kentí-ma	[[metal pot]-NEG]	'not a metal pot'

Part-whole relationships are coded by mere juxtaposition [whole part] or by a possessive construction [whole-*n* part]. The former strategy seems to be more common:

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(130)

jiwi ponyan [tree branch]	/ jiwi-n ponyan [tree-GEN branch]	'tree branch'
ochíti jina [dog tail]	/ ochíti-nin jina [dog-GEN tail]	'dog tail'
yakáti tae [seat leg]	/ yakáti-nin tae [seat-GEN leg]	'seat leg'
rono mapo [snake head]	/ rono-n mapo [snake-GEN head]	'snake head'
koshoshka xeni [dolphin fat]	/ koshoshka-nin xeni [dolphin-GEN fat]	'dolphin fat'

6.7.2. Nouns and Possessive Modifiers

In possessive constructions the genitive marker is added to the possessor, while the possessum remains unmarked. Alternatively, a possessive pronoun (or a genitive-marked pronoun) may be used; again, the head carries no marking. The possessor obligatorily precedes the possessum:

(131) nato ainbo rabekan xobo
this woman two:GEN house
'these two women's house'

(132) nokon tita-n chomo
POS1 mother-GEN jar
'my mother's jar'

6.7.3. Nouns and Demonstrative Modifiers

The three demonstratives *nato*, *ja*, and *oa*, obligatorily precede their head. Consider the following examples involving the distal *oa*:

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(133) a. Oa ainbo-ra nokon tita iki.
DIST woman:ABS-EV POS1 mother:ABS COP
'That woman (over there) is my mother.'

b. *Ainbo oa-ra nokon tita iki.
woman DIST:ABS-EV POS1 mother COP
'That woman (over there) is my mother.'

c. Ainbo-ra oa nokon tita iki.
woman:ABS-EV DIST POS1 mother COP
'The woman over there is my mother.' (*oa* functions as locative)

In the (c) example above, *oa* functions as a locative and is not part of the subject NP as indicated by the second position evidential clitic *-ra* (which occurs after the first major constituent of a sentence, in this case the S). The next two examples show that the medial and proximate demonstratives cannot follow their head either:

d. Ja ainbo-ra nokon tita iki. / * ainbo ja-ra
that woman:ABS-EV POS1 mother COP
'That woman is my mother.'

e. Nato ainbo-ra nokon tita iki. / * ainbo nato-ra
this woman:ABS-EV POS1 mother COP
'This woman is my mother.'

6.7.4. Nouns and Non-Numeral Quantifiers

Jatíbi(ri) 'all' and *jatíribi* 'some' obligatorily precede their head. By contrast, *icha* 'much, many' may either precede or follow its head without any evident change in meaning:

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(134) a. *Jatíbi* benbo-ra mecha i-kan-ai.
all man:ABS-EV good.fisher/hunter be-PL-INC
'All men are good fisher / hunters.'

b. *Benbo *jatíbi*-ra mecha i-kan-ai.
man all:ABS-EV good.fisher/hunter be-PL-INC
'All men are good fisher / hunters.'

(135) a. *Icha* benbo-ra mecha i-kan-ai.
much man:ABS-EV good.fisher/hunter be-PL-INC
'Many men are good fisher / hunters.'

b. Benbo *icha*-ra mecha i-kan-ai.
man much:ABS-EV good.fisher/hunter be-PL-INC
'Many men are good fisher / hunters.'

The next examples involving *icha* are taken from naturalistic data:

(136) Bo-xon oin-kan-a-ki ik-á iki, paranta pei-tii-bi
come.n.SG-PSSA see-PL-PP2-HSY2 be-PP2 AUX plantain leaf-each-EM

bina icha, pani pani-tin-res-a.
wasp much:ABS hang hang-?-just-PP2
'When leaving they saw many wasps hanging on every plantain leaf.'

(137) Ja-tian-ki ik-á iki ja joni moa *icha nete*, ja bake
that-TEMP-HSY2 be-PP2 AUX that man:ABS already many day that child

xontako bi-ma-kan-a-ki ik-á iki moa
unmarried.girl:ABS get-CAUS-PL-PP2-HSY2 be-PP2 AUX already

westíora oxe.
one month
'By then the man had already spent many days there, already a month had passed since he had married the girl.'

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6.7.5. Nouns and Numerals

Only the numerals 'one' and 'two' have a Panoan origin, while numerals higher than 'two' have been borrowed from Quechua. Interestingly, only 'one' and especially 'two' are ambipositional modifiers; numerals of Quechua origin obligatorily precede their head:

(138) a. Jawen bene-n-ra shino westíora rete-ke.
POS3 husband-ERG-EV capuchin.monkey one:ABS kill-CMPL

b. Jawen bene-n-ra westíora shino rete-ke.
POS3 husband-ERG-EV one capuchin.monkey:ABS kill-CMPL
'Her husband killed one capuchin monkey.'

(139) a. Jawen bene-n-ra shino rabé rete-ke.
POS3 husband-ERG-EV capuchin.monkey two:ABS kill-CMPL

b. Jawen bene-n-ra rabé shino rete-ke.
POS3 husband-ERG-EV two capuchin.monkey:ABS kill-CMPL
'Her husband killed two capuchin monkeys.'

(140) a. *Jawen bene-n-ra shino kimisha rete-ke.
POS3 husband-ERG-EV capuchin.monkey three:ABS kill-CMPL

b. Jawen bene-n-ra kimisha shino rete-ke.
POS3 husband-ERG-EV three capuchin.monkey:ABS kill-CMPL
'Her husband killed three capuchin monkeys.'

In Quechua, the [numeral noun] order is fixed. This suggests that SK may have borrowed from Quechua not only numerals higher than two, but also the word order rule according to which numerals obligatorily precede their modified nominal.

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6.7.6. Nouns and Adjectives

Adjectives may either precede or follow the head they modify (from Valenzuela 2001a):

(141) joxo chitonti / chitonti joxo
white *pampanilla* *pampanilla* white
'white *pampanilla* (Shipibo skirt)'

(142) Bo-ax nokó-kan-a iki *ani manaman.*
go.n.SG-PSSS meet:MID-PL-PP2 AUX big mountain:LOC
'After walking they arrived at a big mountain.'

(143) Jain ik-á iki *manan keyá*, tso-n-bi mapé-ti-ma.
there be-PP2 AUX mountain steep who-ERG-EM climb-INF-NEG
'There stood a steep mountain that nobody could climb.'

It has been claimed that the [nominal adjective] order is used to emphasize the meaning expressed by the adjective (Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:36). However, this claim is not borne out by the data. In the excerpt below, for example, there is no reason to claim that the size of the canoe is emphasized in any way, since this feature is not relevant to the narrative and is not mentioned again in the text. What might be of relevance is the size of the person, given that the participant introduced is a child, the Inka's son:

(144) Ka-xon oin-a-ki ik-á iki *maxko-shoko joni*, *montária*
go-PSSA see-PP2-HSY2 be-PP2 AUX small-DIM person:ABS k.canoe

anitama-shoko-tonin-ki, ja axa-n-a paen-ai-tian
small-DIM-LOC-HSY2 that plant.poison-TRNZ-PP2 get.dizzy-S-DS

tsaka tsaka-be-i jo-i.
drive drive-bring-SSSS come-SSSS
'Once there he$_i$ saw a little person$_j$ in a small canoe, who approached him$_i$ driving the fish he$_j$ had previously poisoned with *barbasco* (k. plant poison).'

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When combining a noun with two adjectives, the preferred order is [adjective noun adjective]; i.e., an instance of "simultaneous doubling" (Hawkins 1983). For example, when combining 'dog' with 'fierce' and 'black' the order in (145a) is the preferred one (color terms tend to be expressed first) although other possibilities are also attested:

(145) a. E-n-ra oin-ke wiso ochíti siná.
1-ERG-EV see-CMPL black dog fierce:ABS
'I saw a fierce black dog.'

b. E-n-ra oin-ke siná ochíti wiso.
1-ERG-EV see-CMPL fierce dog black:ABS

c. E-n-ra oin-ke ochíti wiso siná.
1-ERG-EV see-CMPL dog black fierce:ABS

d. E-n-ra oin-ke wiso siná ochíti.
1-ERG-EV see-CMPL black fierce dog:ABS

There is no evidence available to claim that in the object NP above the adjectives modify the noun on two different layers necessarily; i.e., that the sequence in the (a) ex. for instance must be analyzed as [[wiso [ochíti]] siná] or as [wiso [[ochíti] siná]].

When asked to combine a noun and three adjectives, admittedly a highly uncommon situation, native speakers placed at least one adjective before the noun and at least a second adjective after it:

(146) a. Ani joxo ochíti siná 'a large, white, fierce dog'
large white dog fierce

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b. Nenké jiwi payo wiso 'a long, rotten, black log'
long log old black

6.7.7. Coordination of Nominal Modifiers

Two adjectives may be conjoined by *itan*. In this case, the conjoined sequence preferably follows rather than precedes the head noun (i.e., (147a) is preferred with respect to (147b)); this probably has to do with a preference to place heavy constituents in post-head positions (cf. exx. (142) and (143) involving *ani manaman* and *manan keyá, tsonbi mapétima*):

Number

(147) a. E-n-ra oin-ke ochíti wiso itan siná.
1-ERG-EV see-CMPL dog black and fierce:ABS

b. E-n-ra oin-ke wiso itan siná ochíti.
1-ERG-EV see-CMPL black and fierce dog:ABS
'I saw a fierce and black dog.'

Besides conjoining two adjectives, *itan* may link other types of nominal modifiers. Below, *itan* occurs with the nominalized modifier *ochó merati* and the quantifier *icha*:

(148) Moa-tian-ra i-káti-ai yoina-bo ochó-ma mera-ti *itan* icha.
already-TEMP-EV do.I-PST4-INC animal-PL:ABS far-NEG find-INF and many
'Long time ago, animals could be found nearby and in large numbers.'
Lit. 'Long time ago animals were (those) to find nearby and many.'

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6.7.8. Nominal Modifiers and the Free Intensifier *Kikin*

Besides the bound intensifiers *-yora* and *-shaman*, SK has a free intensifier *kikin* which most probably has a Quechua origin (from Quechua *kiki* 'same' + *-n* third person singular possessive). *Kikin* obligatorily precedes the adjective it modifies (although not always immediately),

(149) Jain ik-á iki kikin ani chomo-bo.
there be-PP2 AUX extremely large jar-PL
'There there were extremely large jars.'

and may cooccur with a bound intensifier:

(150) ...ikaxbi bi-ma-pao-kani-ke rayá joni....
but receive-CAUS-HAB-PL:REM-CMPL hard-working man:ABS

kikin mecha-*shaman*....
extremely good.fisher/hunter-INTENS
.'..but (our parents) made us marry a hard-working man....an extremely good fisher / hunter....'

Kikin also modifies more complex adjectivals:

(151) ...ainbo-bo kikin [jawéki-a-ti onan-ma]
woman-PL:ABS extremely thing-do.T-INF:ABS knowledgeable-NEG
.'...women who don't know at all how to do the things (proper of women).'

(152) Ja xebi-ana bi-kan-ai iki kikin
that vagina-tongue:ABS get-PL-PP1:ABS COP extremely

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[jawen tita-n rao-ak-á]....
POS3 mother-ERG adornment-do.T-PP2
'The girl whose clitoris they were going to extract had been very well adorned by her mother.' (the SK sentence is active)

Kikin is not always contiguous to its modified adjectival. This is so given that *kikin* necessarily precedes the noun phrase of which the adjectival is part and, as treated earlier, certain nominal modifiers may either precede or follow their head noun:

(153) Ka-xon oin-a-ronki ik-á iki *kikin* joni *icha.*
go-PSSA see-PP2-HSY be-PP2 AUX extremely man many:ABS
'Once arriving there, (s)he saw a large number of people.'

(154) Jaa napomea-x-ki piko-t-a iki
that middle:ABL-S-HSY2 take.out-MID-PP2 AUX

kikin-shaman ainbo xontako *metsá.*
extremely-INTENS woman unmarried.girl beautiful:ABS
'From the center (of the lake) came out an extremely beautiful young woman.'

In the two examples immediately above, *kikin* semantically modifies the quantifier *icha* and the adjective *metsá*, respectively. Therefore, it can be concluded that in SK elements that at least semantically belong to the same adjectival phrase may occur non-contiguously.

An additional example involving two instances of *kikin* is provided below. The first realization of *kikin* is separated by its modified element by the locative complement 'in the forest.' The second instance of *kikin* is preceded by *ponté* which functions as yet another free intensifier:

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(155) Jato keshan-beiran-i jo-xon, jis-á-ronki ik-á iki
3p:ABS inform-VEN2-SSSS come-PSSA notice-PP2-HSY be-PP2 AUX

ja ainbo-ki *kikin* nii meran jawen shinan-'oma-bi
that woman:ABS-HSY2 extremely forest inside POS3 mind-PRIV-EM

raka-t-a, ponté *kikin* pasná.
lying.position-MID-PP2 straight extremely pale
'When coming back from telling (her parents what had happened), he found the woman in the forest lying completely unconscious and extremely pale.'

6.7.9. Nouns and Circumstancial Modifiers

Circumstancial modifiers may either precede or follow the head noun. This applies also to complex modifiers exhibiting a [noun adjective] structure:

Circumstance

(156) a. westíora joni boo nenké.
one man hair long

b. westíora boo nenké joni
one hair long man
'a man with long hair'

Negative circumstance

(157) a. westíora joni boo nenké-ma
one man hair long-NEG

b. westíora boo nenké-ma joni
one hair long-NEG man
'a man without long hair'

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6.7.10. Nouns and *Meskó Keská* 'Different Kinds of'

Another instance of doubling is attested in combinations of a noun and the modifier *meskó keská* 'different kinds of' (from *meskó* 'several' and *keská* similative):

(158) meskó keská isá / isá meskó keská
different SIML bird bird different SIML
'different kinds of birds'

6.7.11. Nouns and *Texkan* 'Large Bunch of'

Texkan 'large bunch of' may either precede or follow the nominal head:

(159) westíora texkan paranta / westíora paranta texkan
one large.bunch.of plantain one plantain large.bunch.of
'a / one large bunch of plantain'

6.7.12. Nouns and Relative Clauses

In headed relative constructions, the relative clause may either precede or follow its head:

Prenominal relative clause

(160) [Papa-n rete-ibat-a] jono-ra moa no-n keyo-ke.
father-ERG kill-PST2-PP2 c.peccary:ABS-EV already 1p-ERG finish-CMPL
'We already finished the collared-peccary father killed yesterday.'

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Postnominal relative clause

(161) jono [(ja) papa-n rete-ibat-a]-ra moa no-n keyo-ke.
c.peccary 3:ABS father-ERG kill-PST2-PP2-EV already 1p-ERG finish-CMPL
'We already finished the collared-peccary father killed yesterday.'

In addition, relative clauses can contain their head; see section 10.2.

6.7.13. Comitative Postposition and Coordinating Conjunction: *Betan*

An apparent instance of doubling involves combinations of nominals with the element *betan*: [nominal *betan1*] and [nominal *betan2* nominal]. However, in the former structure, *betan1* functions as a comitative postposition, while in the latter structure *betan2* is a coordinating conjunction. Consider the following examples. In (162a) the subject is 'father' while 'mother' is a comitative adjunct:

(162) a. Papa-ra wai-nko ka-[a]i tita betan
father:ABS-EV chacra-ALL go-INC mother COM
'Father goes to the chacra with mother.'

An interrogative sentence questioning the subject of the example above as well as the appropriate answer are given in (162b) and (162c):

b. –Tso-a-ki wai-nko ka-[a]i?
who-ABS-INT chacra-ALL go-PP1
'Who is going to the chacra?'

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c. –Papa.
father:ABS
'Father.'

(162d) questions the comitative complement, and the answer is given in (162e):

d. Tso-bé-ki ka-[a]i papa wai-nko?
who-COM-INT go-PP1 father:ABS chacra-ALL
'With whom is father going to the chacra?'

e. Tita betan.
mother COM
'With mother.'

The difference between the two functions of *betan* becomes evident when comparing (162 a-e) with (163 a-c). In (163 a) the subject is 'father and mother' as corroborated by the position of the evidential *-ra* (also case-marking is appended to the coordinated NP, hence the corresponding ergative form would be *papa betan tita-n* [[father and mother]-ERG]):

(163) a. –Papa betan tita-ra wai-nko ka[a]i.
father CONJ mother:ABS-EV chacra-ALL go-INC
'Father and mother go to the chacra.'

Note that when questioning the subject, the interrogative pronoun takes the plural *-bo*:

b. –Tso-a-bo-ki ka-[a]i wai-nko?
who-ABS-PL-INT go-PP1 chacra-ALL
'Who are going to the chacra?'

c. –Papa betan tita.
father CONJ mother
'Father and mother.'

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The coordinating conjunction *betan* is placed between two nominals which almost always share relevant animacy features; e.g., [+human] or [-animate]:

(164) Jawe-tian-bi no-n pi-*osma* iki
what-TEMP-EM 1p-ERG eat-NEG.HAB.AGTZ COP

[xae *betan* ino].
ant-eater CONJ jaguar:ABS
'We never eat either anteater or jaguar meat.'

(165) *[Papa *betan* ochíti]-ra yomera-i ka-[a]i
father CONJ dog:ABS-EV get.fish/meat-SSSS go-INC
'Father and the dog are going hunting.'

The comitative postposition *betan* is employed to relate two animate participants, one of which is more involved in the situation described.

(166) Tita-ra ka-[a]i papa betan /ochíti betan / *rario betan / rario-ya
mother:ABS-EV go-INC father COM dog COM radio COM radio-PROP
'Mother is going with father / with the dog / with the radio.'

The comitative also conveys the meaning 'against:'

(167) Jain oa ainbo-bo *no-a* *betan* pota-kas-i-bo,
there DIST woman-PL:ABS 1p-ABS COM throw-DES-SSSS-PL:ABS

no-a bibo shiro bewakan ninká-ma-i-bo.
1p-ABS *bibo shiro* song:MNS hear-CAUS-SSSS-PL:ABS
'There were the women who wanted to fight against us provoking us with their *bibo shiro* songs.'

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Given that the cognate of SK *betan* is found as comitative in other Panoan languages (e.g. Kashibo-Kakataibo, Yaminawa, Chakobo, and Matses) it can be concluded that in SK the comitative *betan* developed into a coordinating conjunction, while retaining its former function (see also Stassen's 2000 distinction between "AND-languages" and "WITH-languages").[26]

6.7.14. Nominal Coordination

As shown above, the element *betan* can function as a coordinating conjunction linking two nominals that almost always share relevant animacy features. The next sentence is a text excerpt in which the coordinated elements are not equal in animacy status. The sentence refers to a moment during the *Ani Xeati* ceremony when the father of the girl undergoing the puberty rites publicly presents his daughter and the animal he has raised for the occasion in front of his guests:

(168) Jain-xon pishta ibo-n jawen bake xontako *betan* senen
there-PDCA *fiesta* owner-ERG POS3 child unmarried.girl and edge

yoina piko-ai.
animal:ABS take.out-INC
'Then, the owner of the *fiesta* would present (to his guests) his daughter and the grown animal (he had raised for the occasion).'

---

[26] In turn, *betan* is etymologically related to the numeral 'two,' reconstructed as **raßïta* (Shell 1975:168). Probably, the direction of this change is from the comitative to the numeral; the morpheme *ra-* is the body-part prefix deriving from the noun *yora* 'body' (or 'person' in other Panoan languages), i.e., *ra-beta* 'with body / person' > 'two.'

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Although the girl is the main protagonist of the *Ani Xeati* ceremony, whose climax is the *xebiana tsekati* or clitoridectomy, the raised animal can be said to be the protagonist of the subceremony called *yoina reteti* 'Animal Sacrifice.'

When coordinating more than one nominal, as when listing entities, the conjunction *jainoax* can be used before mentioning the last entity:

(169) Awá Mai a-kan-ai meráya-nin-ki jawen nishi paen meran
Awá Mai:ABS do.T-PL-PP1 g.shaman-ERG-HSY2 POS3 rope drinking inside

oin-a iki meskó yoina-bo: nato jono, awá, yawa, ano,
see-PP2 AUX different animal-PL:ABS this c.peccary tapir w.l.peccary paca

yawish, chaxo, *jainoax* mari.
armadillo deer and agouti
'The great shaman called Awá Mai saw different animals during his ayahuasca vision: collared peccaries, tapirs, white-lipped peccaries, pacas, armadillos, deers, and agoutis.'

For more discussion of the conjunction *jainoax* see 11.1.

Nominals may also be coordinated by mere juxtaposition:

(170) Bo-xon oin-kan-a ik-á iki jatíbi pi-ti jawéki-bo:
go.n.SG-PSSA see-PL-PP2 be-PP2 AUX all eat-INF thing-PL:ABS

nato wame, xawe, kabóri, sapen.
this *paiche charapa taricaya* manatee
'When they arrived they saw all kinds of edible animals: *paiche* fish, *charapa* turtle, *taricaya* turtle, (and) manatee.'

Another possibility is the use of the Spanish coordinating conjunction "*y*."

Nominal disjunction can be expressed through *iamax*, as illustrated in the negative construction below:

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(171) Ja jawe-tian-bi joxo nawa-baon *iamax* oa ani
3:ABS what-TEMP-EM white outsider-PL:ERG or DIST big

joni-baon-bi no-a bichin-ti atipan-yama-ke.
person-PL:ERG-EM 1p-ABS take.away.from-INF can-NEG-CMPL
'Neither the *mestizos* nor any other powerful people can ever take it (i.e., our knowledge to make designs) away from us.'

Also the Spanish disjunction "*o*" may be used.

6.7.15. Recombinations of Different Modifier Types

Demonstratives always precede possessives, possessives precede prenominal numerals, and prenominal numerals precede prenominal adjectives (but see below combinations where *moatian* functions as adjective):

(172) DEM POSS NUM ADJ N
a. nato nokon rabé maxko bake-bo
this POS1 two small child-PL
'these two little children of mine'

b. *Nato rabé nokon....
this two POS1

As illustrated earlier, adjectives and certain numerals may follow the head noun.

The adverb *moatian* 'long ago' may also function as an adjective meaning 'old, traditional.' When *moatian* combines with possessive modifiers, two alternate orders are attested:

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(173) Jatíbi-tian e-n shinan-ai *no-n* *moatian* axé-bo moa
all-TEMP 1-ERG think-INC 1p-GEN old custom-PL:ABS already

keyo-t-a. Icha a-kin e-n yoiy-ai *moatian* *no-n*
finish-MID-PP2 much do.T-SSSA 1-ERG say-INC old 1p-GEN

axé-bo jakiribi no-n bená a-ti atipan-ke.
custom-PL:ABS again 1p-ERG new do.T-INF can-CMPL
'Sometimes I think that our traditional customs have disappeared already. Many times I say that we could renew our traditional customs again.'

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CHAPTER 7

THE VERB AND THE VERB PHRASE

7.1. The Verb

A SK verb consists of a root or stem, minimally combined with a final marker and optionally bearing additional inflectional and derivational morphemes. Roots can be monosyllabic such as *pi-* 'eat' or disyllabic such as *koko-* 'eat sweet fruit;' a particularly long root is *onitsa-* 'become desperate, agitated.'[1] There are also a couple of suppletive pairs like *jo-* 'come (sg.)' vs. *be-* 'come (n.sg.) / bring' and *ka-* 'go (sg.)' vs. *bo-* 'go (n.sg) / take.' Furthermore, verbs can be compounded or reduplicated; reduplication indicates continuous action, iterativity or intensification (see 4.6). Most verb roots are inherently intransitive or transitive, requiring overt markers to change their valence.

Apart from roots, SK verbal morphology consists of the following markers: body-part prefixes, valence-changing suffixes, the desiderative *-kas*, the negative *-yama*, a number of deictic-directive and adverb-type suffixes, the habitual *-pao*, definite tense

[1] At least synchronically, *onitsa-* is not further segmentable but it may be based on *onis* 'sad;' an etymologically related verb is *onitsapi-* 'suffer,' although the element *-pi* has not been identified. As noted by Phil Young p.c., the sequence /pi/ also corresponds to the verb 'eat' (suffer < go without eating ?).

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markers, "less-fixed" clitics, the plural *-kan*, the preventive *-na*, and final aspectual / illocutionary force suffixes. Valence-changing suffixes, deictic-directive and adverb-type morphemes, "less-fixed" clitics, and the plural may occur more than once in a single verb form. The position and relative order of verbal morphemes is given below, although the following considerations must be noted: not all these morphemes occur simultaneously, there is certain morpheme order flexibility sometimes corresponding to scope distinctions, and morpheme classes for which only two or three slots are indicated may potentially be more numerous (although this has not been attested in spontaneous speech). Deictic-directive and adverb-type morphemes are symbolized here as ADV, obligatory morphemes are underlined:

(1) $PREF_1$-$PREF_2$-<u>ROOT</u>-(PL)-VAL_1-VAL_2-DES-NEG-ADV_1-ADV_2-ADV_3-HAB-(PL)-TENSE-$CLITIC_1$-$CLITIC_2$-PL-PREV-<u>FINAL</u>

In the following sentence a verb root is preceded by a body-part prefix and followed by various derivational and inflectional suffixes (a verb preceded by two body-part prefixes can be found in ex. (105) in Chapter 8):

(2) Nokon ochíti-ra e-a
POS1 dog:ABS-EV 1-ABS

ta-níni-nan-bain-kean-wan-kan-ke.
FOOT-pull-MAL-AND2-FRUSTR-PST1-PL-CMPL
'They almost pulled my dog by the foot while passing earlier today to my detriment.'

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The sentence above involves three arguments: the subject, a patient-object, and an applied object. Being a third person plural, the subject is coded through the verbal suffix *-kan*, but the objects must be kept outside the verbal complex. Despite the relative richness of its verbal morphology, SK does not code clausal arguments in the verb (with the partial exception of the plural *-kan*), and hence one of the most defining criteria of polysynthesis does not apply to this language.

In SK, nouns, adjectives and some adjuncts and postpositions can also function as predicates by adding verbal affixes directly to the root. This was illustrated in 5.4.1, when dealing with Predicative Function.

7.2. The Polyfunctional Auxiliaries *Ik-* and *Ak-*

SK has two semantically highly generic verbs or "auxiliaries," the intransitive *ik-* 'be, do (intr.), say' and the transitive *ak-* 'do (tr.), make, tell.' Except for the transitive verb *bi-* 'get,' the suppletive pairs 'come / bring' and 'go / carry,' and the positive and negative existentials, verbs can be replaced by the intransitive *ik-* or its transitive counterpart *ak-* (see Short Answers to Polar Questions in 8.5).

These two auxiliaries also occur in combination with short exclamations and onomatopoeic roots in order to form verbs (see 8.2.7). In addition, the transitive *ak-* may be added to different kinds of roots such as nouns, adjectives, and adjuncts in order to derive verbs, and seldom to an inherently intransitive verb to obtain a derived transitive. In these instances, *-ak* is often phonologically attached to its host; nevertheless, there are

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processes such as conjunction and reduplication that treat them as separate syntactic units. Consider the following examples, where two adjectival roots are coordinated through the conjunction *itan*, and *ak-* occurs only once after the second root:

(3) a. E-n-ra xobo nenké *a*-ke.
1-ERG-EV house:ABS (become)long do.T-CMPL
'I made the house long(er).'

b. E-n-ra xobo nenké itan naxbá *a*-ke.
1-ERG-EV house:ABS (become)long CONJ (become)wide do.T-CMPL
'I made the house long(er) and wide(r).'

Therefore, non-verbal roots plus *-ak* combinations may be viewed as somewhat loosely knit compounds (see also 16.2.5). Note that the adjectival roots *nenké* and *naxbá* may also function as inchoative verbs coding entrance into the state they refer to. This property of SK nominal, adjectival and adjunct roots renders their combination with the intransitive auxiliary *ik-* unnecessary.

Both *ik-* and *ak-* are also found in several periphrastic verbal constructions, as will be shown in 7.12. Finally, it must be mentioned that the copula *iki* is most probably based on the intransitive *ik-*

7.3. Prefixes

Shortened forms of nouns generally denoting body-parts may be prefixed to a verb root or stem. These "prefixes" and their sources were already given in 6.2.6. In some instances, also the verb root occurs in a shortened form (eg., in sentence (3) in Chapter 4).

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In almost all cases, addition of a prefix does not affect the valence of the verb but simply adds a locative modification. It must be noted however that the body-part element *me(e)-* can function as a predicate by itself with the meaning 'touch, hit with the hand' (cf. ex. 29). The morpheme *ta-* from *tae* 'foot' has been illustrated in (2). More on verbs with body-part prefixes can be found in 8.2.6.

7.4. Valence-Changing Derivations

Certain derivational morphemes change the number of core arguments of the verb. Valence-increasing morphemes are the causativizers *-ma*, *-n*, *-a*, and *a(k)-*, as well as the applicatives *-xon*, *-(V)naan ~ (V)n* and *-ki(i)n*. Valence-decreasing morphemes are the middle *-t* and the reciprocal *-(ana)nan ~ -anan*.

7.4.1. Causativizers

Most causative processes in SK are instances of directed derivation; i.e., of elaborations of the non-causative predicates. Given a basic verb, the addition of *-ma*, *-n*, and *-a* introduces an A argument and triggers the rearrangement of the basic verb's arguments. Causers are always marked ergative, while causees and affectees occur in the absolutive case. SK allows for more than one absolutive-marked NP in a single clause.

The more general causativization strategy is suffixation of *-ma*; this suffix combines with all kinds of verbs. *-Ma* has a very schematic semantics ranging from

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coercive and inducive, to permissive, enabling, and facilitating meanings. *-Ma* can follow any causativizer including itself. Consider the following relative clause constructions containing the verb *maxkat- ~ maxká-* 'lack:'

(4) [no-n jema maxkat-a] jawéki-bo
1p-GEN village lack-PP2 thing-PL
'the things our village lacks'

(5) [no-a jawe-bi maxká-*ma*-yama-[a]i] joni.
1p-ABS what:ABS-EM lack-CAUS-NEG-PP1 man
'a man who provides for us,' lit. 'a man who does not let us lack anything.'

A second morphological causativizer, *-n*, is restricted to a closed set of intransitive roots (and nouns, as shown in section 6.4.1). For example, *oxa-* 'sleep' vs. *oxa-n-* 'put to sleep,' *tipi-* 'lie (several things or animals of the same kind)' vs. *tepi-n-* 'lay (several things or animals of the same kind),' *pani-* 'hang (intr.)' vs. *pani-n-* 'hang (tr.).' The following example involves the root *oxa-* 'sleep:'

(6) Bake-ra oxa-[a]i.
child:ABS-EV sleep-INC
'The child is sleeping.'

(7) Yabi-n-ra bake oxa-*n*-ke.
Yabi-ERG-EV child:ABS sleep-TRNZ-CMPL
'Yabi put the child to sleep.'

Together with the middle *-t*, *-n* participates in alternate derivation mechanisms involving roots of body posture or movement to enter into a posture that are themselves neutral in terms of valence; this was introduced in 4.3. Consider the following example

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illustrating the causative counterparts of *yaka-t* 'sit' and *raka-t-* 'lie' (*-n*, glossed as TRNZ, is underlined in the example below):

(8) ...joni mawá-ke-tian miin-kati-kan-ai yoxan-baon ak-á
person:ABS die-P-DS bury-PST4-PL-INC old.woman-PL:ERG do.T-PP2
maweta-nin, ponté na-*yása-n*-res-kin
big.jar-LOC straight INTERIOR-sitting.position.T-TRNZ-just-SSSA

maweta meran, *raka-n*-a-ma.
big.jar inside lying.position-TRNZ-PP2-NEG
.'..when a person died (s)he was buried in a big jar which the elderly women had made, the dead was seated straight inside the big jar, (s)he was not laid.'

Unlike *-ma* and *-n* which are historically opaque, the causativizer *-a* is a grammaticalized version of the transitive auxiliary *ak-* 'do (tr.), make:'

(9) ...nokon tita-n e-a axe-*a* iki koton-a-ti....
POS1 mother-ERG 1-ABS learn-CAUS:PP2 AUX blouse-do.T-INF:ABS
.'...my mother taught me how to manufacture the blouse....'

In addition, nominal, adjectival, time-place-manner and postpositional roots combine with *ak-* 'do (tr.), make' in what can be considered instances of compound predicates with causative meaning:

(10) Pikó-ke-tian-bi no-a ani *a*-kan-ai....
take.out:MID-P-DS-EM 1p-ABS big do.T-PL-INC
'Since (we) are born (our parents) raise us.....'

In example (11) the compounded predicate is followed by the caustivizer *-ma*:

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(11) E-n-ra jato e-a mechá *a-ma*-yama-[a]i.
1-ERG-EV 3p:ABS 1-ABS (get)wet do.T-CAUS-NEG-INC
'I will not let them get me wet.'

The selection of causativizers tends to correlate with crucial semantic parameters. Specifically, when the causee is conceptualized as somehow initiating the event by its own internal force, *-ma* is selected; that is, *-ma* codes indirect causation. On the other hand, the remaining causativizers express more direct types of causation involving rather patientive causees.

The availability of alternate causativizers can be used to disambiguate polysemous roots, or to obtain different transitive verbs from roots bearing a single meaning. Consider the following derived verbs involving the root *bake* 'child, become a child, behave like a child:'

(12) bake-*ma*- 'cause someone to behave like a child / to become a child'
bake *ak*- 'engender / have a child'
bake-*n*- 'deliver a child'

7.4.2. Applicatives

There are three applicatives in SK: the benefactive *-xon* (also malefactive when added to intransitive stems), the associative *-ki(i)n* and the malefactive *-(V)naan ~ (V)n*. As a tendency, the shorter allomorphs *-anan* and *-kin* follow verbs with even-numbered moras, whereas *-ananan* and *-kiin* are appended to stems with odd-numbered moras. Unlike the benefactive and associative which can be added to both intransitive and transitive stems,

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the malefactive combines with transitive stems only. An intransitive verb plus *-xon* can have either a benefactive or a malefactive sense, depending on the context:

(13) Nokon bene-n-ra moa e-a ka-*xon*-ke. (*-*naan*)
POS1 husband-ERG-EV already 1-ABS go-BEN/MAL-CMPL
'My husband left already to my benefit / to my detriment.' (Valenzuela 1999:357)

The next sentence shows the benefactive and malefactive added to a transitive verb:

(14) Nokon bene-n-ra e-a pota-*xon*-ke / pota-*naan*-ke.
POS1 husband-ERG-EV 1-ABS abandon-BEN-CMPL abandon-MAL-CMPL
'My husband abandoned me to my benefit / to my detriment.' (Valenzuela 1999:357)

Example (15) illustrates the associative applicative *-kin* added to an intransitive verb root:

(15) E-n-ra nokon bake bachi-n jiki-*kin*-ai.
1-ERG-EV POS1 child:ABS mosquito.net-ALL enter-ASSOC-INC
'I am going into the mosquito net with my child.'

Causativizers and applicatives may co-occur in the same verb:

(16) E-n-ra mi-n bake mi-a nonti a-*ma-xon*-ke.
1-ERG-EV 2-GEN child:ABS 2-ABS canoe:ABS do.T-CAUS-BEN-CMPL
'On your behalf I made your son construct a canoe.' (Valenzuela 1997)

(17) Wetsa joni-ra mi-a bi-*ma-nan*-kan-na-ke.
other man:ABS-EV 2-ABS receive-CAUS-MAL-PL-PREV-CMPL
'Be careful she could be given in matrimony to another man to your detriment.'
(the SK sentence is active)

Although the causative *-ma* typically precedes applicatives, the reverse order may be attested depending on semantic scope:

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(18) Rona-n-ra Biri bake rao xea-*ma-kin*-ke.
Rona-ERG-EV Biri:ABS child:ABS medicine:ABS drink-CAUS-ASSOC-CMPL
'Rona helped Biri to give medicine to the child.'

(19) E-n-ra nokon bene xea-*kin-ma*-ke.
1-ERG-EV POS1 husband:ABS drink-ASSOC-CAUS-CMPL
'I made him drink with my husband.'

7.4.3. The Middle Marker -*T*

Transitive verbs can become intransitive by taking the suffix *-t*. The derived intransitive verb may take either an S_a or an S_o argument. However, in almost all cases addition of *-t* triggers a reflexive, anticausative, or agentless passive meaning (Valenzuela 1997, see also 18.1); an exception is *noko-t-* [meet:MID] 'arrive.'

The morpheme *-t* has different allomorphs. Generally, disyllabic roots ending in an open syllable take the allomorph *-t*; however, they may take the allomorph *-kaa(t)* too. When a morpheme beginning with a consonant follows the middle marker, the /-t/ is deleted and its preceding vowel gets compensatory stress. With some roots, *-t* triggers a change in quality and / or length in the last vowel of the root. Stems ending in /n/ lose this segment and take the allomorph *-mee(t)*. Other allomorphs of *-t* are *-(k)ee(t)*, *-(k)oo(t)* and *-(k)ii(t)*. In the sentence below, the absolutive pronoun *ja* cannot refer to Tsoma; i.e., this sentence cannot mean 'Tsoma poked himself.'

(20) Tsoma-n-ra ja chachi-ke.
Tsoma-ERG-EV 3:ABS poke-CMPL
'Tsoma$_i$ poked him$_j$ (with an arrow, knife, something pointed).'

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Now consider ex. (21) where addition of the middle marker yields a reflexive meaning:

(21) Ja-ra chachí-ke.
3:ABS-EV poke:MID-CMPL
'He poked himself.'

In the exx. below, *-t*-derived intransitive stems yield an anticausative or agentless passive sense. The transitive roots involved are *ponte-* 'straighten something' and *noko-* 'find:'

(22) Nonti bari-n yosho a-ibat-a-ra moa ponte-*t*-ai.
canoe sun-ERG warped do.T-PST2-PP2-EV already straighten-MID-INC
'The canoe that got warped by the sun is becoming straight (by itself) already.'[2]

(23) Nato bake-n tae-ra moa ja-n-bi-x ponte-*t*-ai.
this child-GEN foot:ABS-EV already 3-NOM-EM-S straighten-MID-INC
'This child's foot is becoming straight by itself already.' (Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:331)

(24) Kachio jabat-i ka-[a]x-bi-ra e-a noko-*kaa*-ke.
in.the.forest hide-SSSS go-PSSS-EM-EV 1-ABS find-MID-CMPL
'I hid in the forest, but I was found (by others).' (Valenzuela 1997)

Besides *noko-kaa-* illustrated in the example immediately above, the transitive *noko-* has the alternative detransitivized form *noko-t-* ~ *nokó-* meaning 'arrive.' The next example was first given in Chapter 6 as (142):

(25) Bo-ax *nokó*-kan-a iki ani manaman.
go.n.SG-PSSS meet:MID-PL-PP2 AUX big mountain:LOC
'After walking they arrived at a big mountain.'

[2] A small canoe warped by the heat of the sun may become straight again by itself after being left in the shade for some time.

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7.4.4. Reciprocal

The suffix *-(ana)nan ~ -anan* codes reciprocal action. Generally, the allomorphs *-anan* and *-(ana)nan* are added to stems with even- and odd-numbered syllables, respectively. Like *-t*, the reciprocal suffix has a detransitivizing effect: the clause tends to become objectless and the subject of the derived stem is always marked absolutive. Transitive, reflexive, and reciprocal forms of *boex-* 'comb' are illustrated in the sentences below:

(26) E-n-ra bake *boex*-ai.
1-ERG-EV child:ABS comb-INC
'I comb the child.'

(27) E-a-ra *boexet*-ai.
1-ABS-EV comb:MID-INC
'I comb myself.'

(28) Oa rabé-ra *boexeanan*-ai.
DIST two:ABS-EV comb:REC-INC
'Those two comb each other.'

A reciprocal construction can also have a singular subject with a comitative complement. In the example below, the first person singular subject *ea* has been omitted:

(29) Jawe-tian-bi nokon bene betan mee-kanan-yosma
what-TEMP-EM POS1 husband COM HAND-PL:REC-NEG.HAB.AGTZ

i-xon oin-a....
be-PSSA see-PP2
'It was never seen that my husband and I hit each other...' Lit. 'It was never seen that I hit with my husband in a reciprocal way.....'

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However, there may be reciprocal constructions with a singular subject and no overt comitative complement. In these instances, the subject participant knows her action is reciprocated or will be reciprocated in the future, but the agent of the second action is omitted (cf. 'response-reciprocal' in Kashinawa; Camargo, ms.):

(30) *E-a*-ra pota-*anan*-ke.
1-ABS-EV abandon-REC-CMPL
'I abandoned someone who also abandoned me.'

The actions described by a reciprocal construction may take place simultaneously or not. Additionally, the actions may be somewhat different or an action may be reciprocated by a participant who is not the object of the first action.

In SK the reciprocal stem *bi-ananan-* [get / receive-REC] has been lexicalized as the verb 'get married:'

(31) Jain onan-ma-i ka-i xontako moa *biananan*-a.
there know-CAUS-SSSS go-SSSS unmarried.girl:ABS already get.married-PP2
'There it will be made public that the young girl has already gotten married.'

The reciprocal suffix may combine with extended intransitive verbs:

(32) E-a-ra mi-on rabin-ai.
1-ABS-EV 2-INTRSS feel.embarrassed.of-INC
'I feel embarrassed at you.'

(33) Ja-bo-ra rabin-*anan*-kan-ai.
3-PL:ABS-EV feel.embarrassed-REC-PL-INC
'They feel embarrassed at each other.'

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When the reciprocal subject involves two participants, the verb can take the suffix *-bekon* indicating dual action. Note in the example below that *-bekon* can combine with the plural, and hence operates as a specification of the plural. The plural *-kan* normally follows the reciprocal; however, there are instances exhibiting the reverse order,

(34) Ja-ska-raino-a-xonki ino betan xae-ki
that-SIML-*ra*:LOC:LOC-ABL-S:HSY jaguar and anteater:ABS-HSY2

rawi-*kanan*-bekon-a iki.
(become)enemy-PL:REC-DUAL-PP2 AUX
'Since this time, the jaguar and the anteater are enemies.'

and cases where *-kan* occurs twice in the same verb, before and after the reciprocal:

(35) Ja-bo-ra nonti yoká-*ka*nan-*kan*-ai.
3-PL:ABS-EV canoe:ABS ask-PL:REC-PL-INC
'They asked each other for the canoe.'

The desiderative *-kas*, which follows valence-changing suffixes but precedes the negative *-yama* if present, may also have a partial detransitivizing effect. This is treated in section 8.2.8 on Desiderative Clauses.

7.5. Deictic-Directive Markers: Nuclear Verb Serialization

Besides the verbal negative "suffix" *-yama* which exhibits the same form as the negative existential verb, there are a few other morphemes which attach to a verb stem and are

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formally identical or similar to semantically related independent verbs in the language. These other morphemes add a deictic-directive meaning.

7.5.1. 'Going Up' and 'Going Down'

First, let us examine the markers related to the independent verbs *ina(t)-* 'go up (the river),' *pake-t-* 'go down (the river),' and *pake-* 'drop, cause to fall;' *pake-t-* 'go down (the river)' is a middle-marked, derived intransitive version of *pake-* 'cause to fall.'

When attached to verb stems, *-ina(t)* and *-paket* contribute the predictable meanings 'going up (the river)' and 'going down (the river),' respectively. By contrast, *-pake* functions as a distributive marker. In addition, *-paket* combines with intransitive verbs only, while *pake-* attaches to transitives; *-ina(t)* 'going up (the river)' attaches to both intransitive and transitive verbs. The next table summarizes the form and function of these morphemes when occurring as the first and as the second verb in an utterance:

Table 7.1. 'Going Up' and 'Going Down'

Verb		Verb 2	
ina(t)- (intr.)	'go up (the river)	-ina(t)	'going up (the river),' V1 is intr. or tr.
pake-t- (intr.)	'go down (the river)	-paket	'going down (the river), V1 must be intr.
pake- (tr.)	'cause to fall'	-pake	distributive,[3] V1 must be tr.

This set of V2s has a restricted number of members which occur phonologically bound to their V1; primary stress falls on the V1. Although there are reasons to analyze

[3] It is not clear how *pake-* 'cause to fall' and *-pake* distributive are semantically connected.

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these V1-V2 combinations as compounds, I am inclined to analyze the complex predicates at hand as instances of nuclear verb serialization, given the fact that the V2s belong to a semantically closed set of verbs and exhibit transitivity agreement restrictions *vis à vis* the V1s; both characteristics are also found in non-nuclear verb serialization (see 7.14 and 15.3.1). Consider the following examples:

-ina(t) 'up (the river)'

(36) Jainoa-xa no-a jo jó-*ina*-ke,
there:LOC-ABL-S:EV 1p-ABS come come-going.up-CMPL

jawé-bi wino-t-a-ma.
thing:ABS-EM pass-MID-PP2-NEG
'From there we came up the river without any problem.'
(Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:197)

(37) Sani-ra bewa-*inat*-ai.
Sani:ABS-EV sing-going.up-INC
'Sani is going up the river singing.'

(38) Sani-n-ra jawen bake moa-tian i-káti-ai jawéki-bo
Sani-ERG-EV POS3 child:ABS already-TEMP do.I-PST4-PP1 thing-PL:ABS

yoi-*[i]nat*-ai.
tell:going.up-INC
'Sani tells his son old stories going up the river.'

Although no instance of *-inat* in combination with an inactive intransitive verb has been attested in spontaneous speech, a consultant offered the form *oxa-inat-* [sleep-going.up] to refer to a situation where someone sleeps in a canoe while a second participant rows up the river.

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The next example is two-fold. First it illustrates the use of *ina(t)-* as an independent verb, and secondly it shows an instance of a phonologically-bound V2 *-paket* 'going down the river.'

ina(t)- 'go up (the river)' and *-paket* 'going down (the river)'

(39) Ja nonti-n wetsa ka-a iki *inat*-i,
that canoe-MNS other:ABS go-PP2 AUX go.up-SSSS

wetsa ka-a iki toxbá-*paket*-i.
other:ABS go-PP2 AUX float-going.down-SSSS
'With the canoes one (of the brothers) went up the river, while the second one floated down the river.'

The next examples show *pake-* as an independent verb (see also ex. (43) in Chapter 4) and as a distributive marker:

pake- 'cause to fall'

(40) Ja-tian-ki Yoashi-kon Inka-n ani niweaba
that-TEMP-HSY2 Stingy-true Inka-ERG big strong.wind:ABS

pake-a iki, ja chii noka-a-kas-kin.
cause.to.fall-PP2 AUX that fire:ABS shade-do.T-DES-SSSA
'Then the Stingy Inka caused a big strong wind trying to extinguish the fire.'

-pake distributive 'one by one' (ex. (41) was previously given in Chapter 4 as ex. (44); see also ex. (45) in that chapter)

(41) ...Bai Shita-n-ki jato yatan-xon jene
Bai Shita-ERG-HSY2 3p:ABS grasp-PSSA flowing.water:ABS

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rete-ma-*pake*-a iki.
kill-CAUS-one.by.one-PP2 AUX
'...the Bai Shita held them and drowned them one by one (lit. held them and caused the flowing water to kill (them) one by one).' (Soi Rawa 1995:17)

(42) Yometso-nin-ra jato koríki meni-*pake*-ke.
thief-ERG-EV 3p:ABS money:ABS give-DISTR-CMPL
'The thief distributed the money among his fellows.' (Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:314)

(43) Ja-ská-ke-tian-ki choro-*pake*-ni-ke....
that-SIML-P-DS-REP2 disentangle-DISTR-REM-CMPL
In that way (the sloth woman) disentangled (the thread)....

7.5.2. 'Going' and 'Coming'

Other verbs of inherently-directed movement are also attested in this type of complex predicate, probably initiating a process towards verb derivational morphology. Consider the following examples involving *-kawan*, structurally analyzable as *ka-wan* [go-earlier today past]; however, note that the events coded by the verb sequences at hand take place immediately one after the other and hence the 'earlier today' past meaning does not seem plausible:

-kawan 'going, moving away'

(44) Ja kena-a jo-xon jawen awin bachi merano-a-x
that call-PO>S/A come-PSSA POS3 wife:ABS mosquito.net inside:LOC-ABL-S

pikó-*kawan*-xon ikot-a iki.
take.out:MID-going-PSSA embrace-PP2 AUX
'When the one who had been called arrived, he came out of the mosquito net and embraced his wife.'

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(45) "Mi-n bene-n-ra e-a paran-a iki", nokon ini ainbo
2-GEN husband-ERG-EV 1-ABS deceive-PP2 AUX POS1 niece:ABS

yoiy-a iki. Bechiake-*kawan*-xon nokon rayos yoiy-a iki:
tell-PP2 AUX turn-going-PSSA POS1 son.in.law:ABS tell-PP2 AUX

"Mi-n-ra e-a paran-a iki" i-xon rishki-a iki westíora jiwi-n.
2-ERG-EV 1-ABS deceive-PP2 AUX do.I-PSSA hit-PP2 AUX one pole-INST
'"Your husband lied to me," she told my niece. Then turning towards the man she told my son-in-law (i.e., my niece's husband): "You lied to me;" and hit him with a pole.'

Two other verbs serving as phonologically bound modifiers in this type of complex predicate are *-be* 'coming' and *-bo* 'going;' so far these have been attested on transitive stems only. The next example was first introduced as (144) in Chapter 6:

(46) Ka-xon oin-a-ki ik-á iki maxko-shoko joni, montária
go-PSSA see-PP2-HSY2 be-PP2 AUX small-DIM person:ABS k.canoe

anítama-shoko-tonin-ki, ja axa-n-a pae-n-ai-tian
small-DIM-LOC-HSY2 that plant.poison-TRNZ-PP2 sour-VBLZ-S-DS

tsaka tsaka-*be*-i jo-i.
drive drive-coming-SSSS come-SSSS
'Once there he$_i$ saw a little person$_j$ in a small canoe, who approached him$_i$ driving the fish he$_j$ had previously poisoned with *barbasco* (k. plant poison).'

(47) No-n oin-patan-*bo*-a-bi r-iki, no-n iskóra-nko-bo
1p-ERG see-at.intervals-going-PP2-EM EV-AUX 1p-GEN school-LOC-PL

jainoax no-n jema-nko-bo no-n joi-n-bi-ribi-kaya
and 1p-GEN village-LOC-PL 1p-GEN language-OBL-EM-also-CONTRST

meskó keská jawéki-bo onan-ti yama yama-bi-res.
different SIML thing-PL know-INF:ABS exist.not exist.not-EM-just
'We see continuously that neither in our schools nor in our villages in general are there varied pedagogical materials in our language.' (Soi Rawa 1995:5).

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7.6. Andatives and Venitives

SK has two venitive and two andative suffixes. These markers are formally and semantically close to the verbs *jo- / be-* 'come, bring' and *ka- / bo-* 'go, carry;' moreover, they exhibit the same distribution with respect to number and transitivity status (see 4.5).

7.6.1. The Venitives *-Kiran / -Beiran*

The venitive *-kiran* is used with intransitive stems and singular subjects, while its alternate *-beiran* is employed with transitive stems or plural subjects (of intransitive or transitive verbs). These markers indicate movement in space towards a deictic center, but may also indicate movement in time, movement with no obvious deictic center, or entrance into a physical or psychological state. The following examples illustrate the distribution of *-kiran* and *-beiran*:

singular, intransitive

(48) westíora ainbo yamé merano-a-x pikó-*kiran*-xon
one woman:ABS darkness inside:LOC-ABL-S take.out:MID-VEN1-PSSA

nokon ini ainbo bachin-a iki.
POS1 niece:ABS pull.by.the.hair-PP2 AUX
'...a woman came out from the darkness and pulled my niece by the hair.'

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plural, intransitive (see also ex. (43) in Chapter 8)

(49) Ja beshé-a-ke-tian ainbo-bo tsamá-*beiran*-xon xoi-ti
that piece-do.T-P-DS woman-PL:ABS gather:MID-VEN2-PSSA roast-INF

bo-kan-ai.
take-PL-INC
'After (the meat) had been cut into pieces, the women got together and took the meat to roast.'

singular, transitive

(50) Ja-ská-xon ja koko-ai-tian-ronki ik-ai o-no-a-x-ki
that-SIML-A that eat.sweet.fruit-S-DS-HSY do.I-INC DIST-LOC-ABL-S-HSY2

rewe a-*beiran*-i jo-á iki awá-isi.
flute:ABS do.T-VEN2-SSSS come-PP2 AUX tapir-DEPREC:ABS
'While they were eating (*guayaba*), a tapir came playing the flute.'

(51) Jato keshan-*beiran*-i jo-xon, jis-á-ronki ik-á iki
3p:ABS inform-VEN2-SSSS come-PSSA notice-PP2-HSY be-PP2 AUX

ja ainbo-ki kikin nii meran jawen shinan-'oma-bi
that woman:ABS-HSY2 extremely forest inside POS3 mind-PRIV-EM

raka-t-a, ponté kikin pasná.
lying.position-MID-PP2 straight extremely pale
'When coming back from telling (her parents what had happened), he found the woman in the forest lying completely unconscious and extremely pale.'

plural, transitive

(52) Jato-ronki keshan-*beiran*-kan-ke.
3p:ABS-HSY inform-VEN2-PL-CMPL
'S/he said that they told them and came.'

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In the next examples the venitive is used to code entrance into a physical state and movement in time, respectively:

(53) Kimisha-a-kin xea-[a]x-ronki ik-á iki jawen yora
three-do.T-SSSA drink:PSSS-HSY be-PP2 AUX POS3 body:ABS

saki ik-i.....pasná-*kiran*-i.
ONOM:tremble do.I-SSSS (become)pale-VEN1-SSSS
'After drinking (the medicine) three times, (she) began to tremble and turned pale.'

(54) Ja kené iki no-n moa-tian yoxan-baon no-a
that design:ABS AUX 1p-GEN already-TEMP old.woman-PL:ERG 1p-ABS

yoi yoi-*beiran*-kan-a.
tell tell-VEN2-PL-PP2
'These designs were passed on to us by our foremothers.'

An example where *-beiran* codes entrance into an emotional state can be found in (72).

7.6.2. The Andatives *-Kain / -Bain*

The andatives *-kain* and *-bain* exhibit an analogous distribution to the one described for venitives; i.e., *-kain* is the intransitive and singular andative, while *-bain* is its transitive or plural counterpart.

singular, intransitive

(55) Pake-t-ax-ki chi-chá-yaka-*kain*-a iki.
drop-MID-PSSS-HSY2 BUTTOCKS-TWO.LEGS-sitting.p.I-AND1-PP2 AUX
'When she fell to the ground, she fell on her buttocks.'

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The next sentence, earlier introduced in Chapter 5 as (40b) shows that *-kain* may also encode entrance into a state:

(56) E-a-ra meran-*kain*-ke.
1-ABS-EV inside-AND1-CMPL
'I fell asleep.'

plural, intransitive

(57) Ja joni-n mishki mishki-kin oin-a-ki ik-á iki,
that man-ERG fish.w/hook fish.w/hook-SSSA see-PP2-HSY be-PP2 AUX

jawen bimi maan-ke-tian pi-ax-ki nato sipan,
POS3 fruit:ABS fall.down-P-DS eat-PSSS-HSY2 this pilchard:ABS

noya-*bain*-katit-i.
fly-AND2-PST4-SSSS
'While fishing with hook, the man saw that the fruits fell down from the tree and after eating them the pilchards flew away.'

singular, transitive

(58) Ka-ax-ronki noko-t-a iki iaman; nokó-xon-ki
go-PSSS-HSY meet-MID-PP2 AUX lake:ALL meet:MID-PSSA-HSY2

ak-á iki ian kexá bena bena-*bain*-kin.
do.T-PP2 AUX lake edge search search-AND2-SSSA
'Walking, she arrived to the lake; once there she went searching along the shore.'

plural, transitive

(59) Neno-ra bena-*bain*-kan-ke.
here-EV search-AND2-PL-CMPL
'They searched here and left.'

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For another instance of *-bain* added to a transitive stem in combination with a plural subject see ex. (31) in Chapter 4.

Very commonly, venitives and andatives encode a separate subsequent event, rather than providing a modification of the event depicted by the stem to which they attach:

(60) Xoi pi-á pekáo-ronki ka-a iki ainbo
roasted eat-PP2 after-HSY go-PP2 AUX woman:ABS

metsá-yon-*kain*-i.
(become)beautiful-completely-AND1-SSSS
'After eating, the woman made herself beautiful (designing her body with *genipa*) and left.'

In the example above, the andative coding a subsequent event co-occurs with the verb *ka-* 'go;' this is not necessarily the case, however, as shown in the example below:

(61) No-a shinan-beno-yama-[a]i a-kon-bires-kin no-a Inka-n
1p-ABS mind-fail-NEG-INC do.T-true-purely-SSSA 1p-ABS Inka-ERG

onan-ma-*bain*-i kopí.
know-CAUS-AND2-SSSS reason
'We don't forget (how to do these things) because the Inka Woman taught us very very well before leaving.'

The next example illustrates a sequence of two deictic-directive markers:

(62) ...tapiti keyan-tanan-ki nee-*ina*-*kain*-xon-ki....
ladder:ABS place.vertically-PSS-HSY2 climb-go.up-AND1-PSSA-HSY2
.'..placing the ladder vertically (against sth.), he climbed up....' (Soi Rawa 1995:17)

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In sum, the deictic-directive morphemes discussed so far can be traced back to SK independent verbs, and there seems to be a continuum from nuclear verb serialization to derivation (see also section 4.9). The verbal markers *-pake* distributive, *-paket* 'going down (the river), *-inat* 'going up (the river),' *-be* 'coming (tr.)' and *-bo* 'going (tr.)' are formally identical to the independent verbs *pake-* 'cause to fall,' *pake-t-* 'come out,' *inat-* 'go up (the river),' *be-* 'come (n.sing.), bring' and *bo-* 'come (n.sing.), take,' respectively. Note however that *pake-* 'cause to fall' and *-pake* distributive have very different meanings. In addition, the andatives and venitives deviate formally from their source verbs and take the ending *-ain*. Nevertheless, recall that venitives and andatives retain their capability of coding a separate successive event. I also mentioned above that the sequence *-kawan*, is most probably composed of *ka-* 'go' plus the 'earlier today' past marker *-wan*.

Finally, although andatives and venitives commonly follow valence-changing morphology, this is not necessarily the case as shown below:

(63) Mi-n koríki-ra mi-a bi-*bain-nan*-toshi-kan-na-ke.
2-GEN money:ABS-EV 2-ABS get-AND2-MAL-suddenly-PL-PREV-CMPL
'Beware, they could suddenly take your money to your detriment and leave.'

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7.7. Adverb-Type Markers

In addition to the deictic-directive markers introduced above, SK has at its disposal some ten other verbal morphemes that characterize the event in terms of manner, aspect, number, duration, direction, etc. These adverb-type markers proper are: *-tan* 'go do something (tr.) (and return),' *-wetsa-yama-* 'not again,' *-yon* 'completely,' *-toshi* 'suddenly / surprisingly,' *-men* 'quickly,' *-patan* 'at intervals (in space / time),' *-shin* 'all night long,' *-bai(t)* 'all day long,' *-kean* frustrative, *-bekon* dual subject specification.

7.7.1. *-Tan* 'Go Do Sth. (Tr.) (and Return)'

The morpheme *-tan* may attach to intransitive and transitive stems; most typically, it is found on motion verbs. The suffix *-tan* cannot be traced back to any independent verb.

(64) Jene-n ka-*tan*-ax jo-xon....
flowing.water-ALL go-go.do.and.return-PSSS come-PSSA
'If when coming back from the fishing....' lit. 'If when going to the river, doing sth. (i.e., catching fish) and coming back....'

(65) Yabí, karo bi-tan-we!
Yabi:VOC firewood:ABS get-go.do.and.return-IMP
'Yabi, go get firewood!'

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7.7.2. *-Toshi(t)* 'Suddenly, Surprisingly'

It has been suggested that this marker is etymologically related to the root *toshi-* 'burst, pop up' (Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:414).

(66) Ja jo-xon iso pota-*toshi*-ke-bi-ronki
3:ABS come-PSSA spidermonkey-ABS drop-suddenly-PDS-EM-HSY

jawen yoxaman-ki yoiy-a iki....
POS3 old.woman:ERG-HSY2 tell-PP2 AUX
'After he arrived and suddenly dropped the spidermonkeys (he had killed, to the ground), his wife told him....' (Soi Rawa 1995:17)

(67) Jo-anan-ki re-keyan-me-*toshit*-i....
come-SSS-HSY2 NOSE-land-MID-suddenly-SSSS
'Coming towards the shore, (the alligator-canoe) landed suddenly....'

See also example (63).

7.7.3. *-Bait* 'All Day Long'

The next text example illustrates the suffix *-bai* 'all day long:'

(68) ...moa nete-n xopainsi i-*bait*-i-bi-ki
already day-TEMP *secana*:DEPREC be-all.day.long-SSSS-EM-HSY2

moa ja yamé-ki moa ainbo.
already 3:ABS at.night-HSY2 already woman
.'..although during the day (she) was just a *secana* (k. gourd), at night she (turned into) a woman.'

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7.7.4. *-Shin* 'All Night Long'

(69) Jain e-n oin-yam[a]-a iki ransa-kan-ai, ponté mashá
there 1-ERG see-NEG-PP2 AUX dance-PL-PP1:ABS straight *mashá*

ik-ai-res, bewa bewa-*shin*-i-res nete-kan-ai.
do.I-PP1:ABS-just sing sing-all.night.long-SSSS-just be.up.'til.dawn-PL-INC
'There I did not see anybody dancing according to the *mestizo* style, they only performed the *mashá* (traditional singing and dancing), they kept on singing all night long until dawn.'

7.7.5. *-Bekon* Action Carried Out by Two Participants

Example (70) is taken from a text dealing with the traditional conflicts between the Shipibo and the Kashibo; particularly, this sentence refers to a scene in which an elderly couple gets ready to go in search of the Kashibo who had previously killed their grandchildren. Note that the singular form of the verb 'go' (i.e., *ka-* instead of *bo-*) is used, although the participants are the two grandparents. The selection of *ka-* suggests that *-bekon* signals that a single participant is accompanied by a second one, a meaning that would be compatible with its probable etymology; i.e., *-be* comitative + *-kon* 'true, core, legitimate.'

(70) Ja-skat-ax-ki pia nea yatanan-ki ka-*bekon*-a iki,
that-SIML-S-HSY2 arrow bundle:ABS grab:SSS-HSY2 go-DUAL-PP2 AUX

[baba rete-xon bo-kan-a] chiban-i....
grandchild:ABS kill-PSSA take-PL-PP2:ABS chase-SSSS
'After grabbing the bundle of arrows, the two of them left, chasing those who had killed their grandchildren and taken their corpses with them...' (Soi Rawa 1995:17)

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This example will be further discussed when treating Overlapping of Subject Reference in 9.5.

It is not uncommon to find combinations of deictic-directive and adverb-type markers in a single verb form. This can be observed in ex. (2) where the andative *-bain* and the frustrative *-kean* co-occur. Ex. (2) is repeated below for convenience; note that the andative precedes the frustrative:

(71) Nokon ochíti-ra e-a
POS1 dog:ABS-EV 1-ABS

ta-níni-nan-*bain-kean*-wan-kan-ke.
FOOT-pull-MAL-AND2-FRUSTR-PST1-PL-CMPL
'They almost pulled my dog by the foot while passing earlier today to my detriment.'

7.7.6. *-Yon* 'Completely'

In the next example, the suffix *-yon* 'completely' precedes the venitive *-kiran*. As in ex. (53) *-kiran* is used to signal entrance into a state:

(72) Rama kaman-bi chamá a-kin a-kan-a no-a
now LIM-EM *chama*:VOC do.T-SSSA do.T-PL-PO>S/A 1p-ABS

sinat-ai, jointi-ain-bi no-a jawe kesk-á-*yon-kiran*-ai.
get.angry-INC heart-LOC-EM 1p-ABS what SIML-do.T-completely-VEN1-INC
'Even until today, when we are called "*chama*" we get angry, something hurts us very much in our hearts.'

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7.7.7. *-Patan* 'At Intervals'

Below, *-patan* 'at intervals' precedes the andative *-kain*:

(73) No-a rao-meet-a ik-ax meskó keská
1p-ABS medicine-TRNZ:MID-PO>S/A be-PSSS different SIML

kené-bo no-n shinain pikó-*patan*-*kain*-ai…
design-PL:ABS 1p-GEN mind:LOC take.out:MID-at.intervals-AND1-INC
'If we have been cured (with special *piripiri*) we imagine all kinds of designs…'

In the following example *-patan* precedes a sequence of two deictive-directive markers. Note that the intransitive and singular andative *-kain* rather than *-bain* is used despite the presence of a plural subject:

(74) Jaa-ki choron-*patainai*-*kain*-ax poyan-tii-bi
choron-*patan*-*ina*-*kain*-ax
that-HSY2 jump-at.intervals:going.up-AND1-PSSS branch-each-EM

nee-kan-ke ja chosko xoxo bake-bo.
go.up-PL-CMPL that four illegitimate child-PL:ABS
'Very quickly they climbed up on different tree branches, the four illegitimate children.'

The selection of *-kain* in the example immediately above seems to be triggered by the fact that the situation described is composed of four micro-events corresponding to each grandchild climbing on a tree branch.

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7.7.8. The Frustrative *-Kean*

The frustrative *-kean* indicates that an event did not take place or was not completed. This morpheme is illustrated in ex. (2).

7.7.9. *-Men* 'Quickly'

The verbal suffix *-men* 'quickly' is commonly attested in imperative clauses. See examples (209)-(211) in Chapter 8.

7.7.10. *Wetsa-yama* 'Not Again'

Finally, the sequence *wetsa-yama* [other-NEG] 'not again' can also be attested on verbs; e.g., *tee-wetsa-yama-* [work-other-NEG] 'do not work again.' The morpheme *-wetsa* has not been attested by itself.

7.8. Definite Tenses

SK has a set of optional definite tense suffixes.[4] Apart from the currently uncommon suffix *-yat ~ -yá* which encodes a 'tomorrow' future, definite tense suffixes indicate

[4] The temporal semantics of unmarked forms (i.e. how verb forms lacking a tense marker are interpreted) and the obligatoriness of tense-markers requires further research.

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different degrees of past: *-wan* 'earlier the same day' past, *-ibat ~ -ibá* 'yesterday, a few days ago' past, *-yantan* 'some months, a few years ago' past, *-rabe* '*ca.* nine months to three years ago' past imperfective, *-kati(t)* distant 'many years ago' past (*-kato* when combined with the completive aspect suffix *-ke*), and *-ni* remote past. With the exception of *-wan*, which entails the event took place earlier on the same day, the time given for past tense suffixes is an approximation. Moreover, the same speaker, in the same piece of discourse, may employ different past tense suffixes when describing related contemporaneous events (cf. ex. (89)). The plural marker *-kan* follows any time suffix except the remote past *-ni*.

7.8.1. *-Yat ~ -Yá* 'Tomorrow' Future

(75) Bakísha Maioshiain ka-*yá*-ribi-ai.
one.day.away:EV Pucallpa:ALL go-tomorrow.FUT-REP-INC
'Tomorrow he will go to Pucallpa again.' (Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:421)

(76) Bakish i-*yat*-ai.
one.day.from.today do.I-tomorrow.FUT-INC
'It is going to take place tomorrow.'

7.8.2. *-Wan* 'Earlier Today' Past

(77) Wetsa-tian ik-ai iki moa miin-wan-ke-tian bachi-bo
other-TEMP do.I-PP1 AUX already bury-PST1-P-DS mosquito.net-PL:ABS

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ten ak-ai.
ONOM:tense.rope.vibrating do.T-INC
'Sometimes it happens that after having been buried in the day, the dead one moved the rope of the mosquito nets during the night.'

(78) Rama bariapan-ra ka-*wan*-ke.
now at.noon-EV go-PST1-CMPL
'He left today at noon.'

7.8.3. *-Ibat ~ -Ibá* 'Yesterday, A Few Days Ago' Past

(79) Ikaxbi bakisha e-n manxaman kawáti ao-bo icha
but one.day.away:EV 1-ERG *manxaman kawáti* k.tree-PL much:ABS

oin-*iba*-ke.
see-PST2-CMPL
'But yesterday I saw a lot of *manxaman kawáti* trees.'

(80) Jaino-a-x nokon papa manat-a iki moa westíora
there:LOC-ABL-PDCS POS1 father:ABS wait-PP2 AUX already one

oxe jawen wetsa-bo bo-*iba*-kan-ke-tian.
month POS3 same.sex.sibling-PL:ABS go.n.SG-PST2-PL-P-DS
'Then my father waited one month after his brothers had left.'

In examples (79) and (80) *-iba* is used for both 'yesterday' and 'one month ago.'

7.8.4. *-Yantan* 'Some Months, A Few Years Ago' Past

Examples (81) and (82) come from the same speaker, although from two different texts.

In these instances *-yantan* is used to refer to events taking place two months ago and a

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few years ago. In elicited example (83), *-yantan* takes part in the description of an event which took place about a year ago:

(81) Rabé oxe ka-*yantan*-ke-tian e-n ninkat-a ik-á iki, moa ja
two moon go-PST3-P-DS 1-ERG hear-PP2 be-PP2 AUX already that

ainbo mawat-a....
woman:ABS die-PP2:ABS
'Two months after she had left, I heard that that woman had already died....'

(82) E-n-ra oin-*yantan*-ke rabé bene-ya yoxan....
1-ERG-EV see-PST3-CMPL two husband-PROP adult.woman:ABS
'A few years ago I met a woman who had two husbands.....'

(83) Wetsa bari-tian-ra nokon wetsa-n yamékiri
other sun-TEMP-EV POS1 same.sex.sibling-ERG early.in.the.morning

jawéki-a pekáo kirika wisha-*yantan*-ke.
thing-do.T:PP2 after letter:ABS write-PST3-CMPL
'Last summer after the morning meal my brother wrote a letter.'

7.8.5. *-Rabe* 'Nine Months to Three Years Ago' Past

The suffix *-rabe* encodes roughly the same degree of past as *-yantan*; however, there is an aspectual distinction between the two morphemes since the former is imperfective while the latter is perfective. Compare (83) with the example below:

(84) Wetsa bari-tian-ra nokon wetsa-n yamékiri
other sun-TEMP-EV POS1 same.sex.sibling-ERG early.in.the.morning

jawéki-a pekáo kirika wisha-*rabe*-ke.
thing-do.T:PP2 after letter:ABS write-PST3:IMPERFECTIVE-CMPL
'Last summer after the morning meal my brother (usually) wrote letters.'

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(85) Maioshiain-ra pei xobo ja-*rabe*-ke,
Pucallpa:LOC-EV leaf house exist-PST3:IMPERF-CMPL

rama-ra yama-ke.
now-EV exist.not-CMPL
'Around three years ago, there were houses with palm leaf roofs in Pucallpa, now there aren't any.' (Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:354)

7.8.6. *-Kati(t)* Distant 'Many Years Ago' Past

Ex. (86) refers to a time of less contact between the Shipibo and the Spanish-speaking population, probably a couple of generations ago. By contrast, (87) refers to a remote mythical time, when the Agouti Man taught the Shipibo how to grow yuca:

(86) Moa-tian nawa-baon chopa no-n bi-ama-*katit*-ai.
already-TEMP mestizo-PL:GEN cloth 1p-ERG get-NEG-PST4-INC
'Long time ago, we did not buy pieces of cloth in the store.'

(87) Moa-tian-ronki no-n reken-baon xeati-a-kas-i
already-TEMP-HSY 1p-GEN forefather-PL:ERG drink-do.T-DES-SSSS

onitsa-pao-*kati*-kan-ai.
suffer-HAB-PST4-PL-INC
'Long time ago, when our forefathers wanted to prepare drink they suffered (since there were no chacras from where to obtain yuca).'

7.8.7. *-Ni* Remote Past

(88) Moa-tian-ronki i-pao-*ni*-ke jema-bo yama.
already-TEMP-HSY do.I-HAB-REM-CMPL village-PL:ABS exist.not
'It is said that in remote times there were no villages.'

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The following example shows that the plural *-kan* follows the distant past tense *-kati(t)* but precedes the remote past *-ni*, separating it from the habitual *-pao*:

(89) Moa-tian a-*káti-kan*-ai besté-ti... Ani Xeati… Reken-pari
already-TEMP do.T-PST4-PL-INC cut.bang-INF *Ani Xeati*:ABS first-yet

chopa a-*pao-kani*-ke.
clothes:ABS do.T-HAB-PL:REM-CMPL
'Long time ago (our ancestors) used to organize the *Ani Xeati* ceremony to cut the girl's bangs ... First of all, they manufactured the clothes....'

In the example above, both the organization of the *Ani Xeati* ceremony and the manufacture of the clothes take place during the same period of time; nevertheless, the speaker employs two different past tense markers.

The suffix *-pao* indicating habitual aspect may co-occur with the past tense markers *-kati(t)* and *-ni*, as shown in (87)-(89); *-pao* is only attested with these past suffixes.

7.9. "Less-Fixed" Clitics

As treated in 4.2.3, "less-fixed" clitics are those which lack a fixed position in the sentence and occur on different types of hosts. These clitics are: *-ribi ~ -riba* 'also / again,' *-yora* intensifier, *-tani* attenuative, *-pacho* 'always,' *-res* 'just,' *-bicho* 'only,' *-bires* 'purely,' *-shoko* diminutive, *-shaman* intensifier, and *-isi* deprecatory. This section focuses on the combination of "less-fixed" clitics and verbs.

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The position within the verb assigned to "less-fixed" clitics in (1) is only a tendency (for instance, cf. ex. (122) in Chapter 8, where *-shaman* precedes the negative for scope purposes). In the next example, the transitive auxiliary *ak-* takes the "less-fixed" clitics *-res* and *-bires* before the final non-finite marker *-kin*:

(90) ....no-n yoina-bo a-*res-bires*-kin no-n rete-yama-[a]i,
1p-GEN animal-PL:ABS do.T-just-purely-SSSA 1p-ERG kill-NEG-INC

jawen ibo-ya-bo-ribi i-ke-tian.
POS3 owner-PROP-PL:ABS-also be-P-DS
.'...we do not kill our animals indiscriminately, since they also have their owner.'

In the example above, *-ribi* 'also' occurs on the nominal *jawen iboyabo* '(those) having their owner;' below, this morpheme occurs first on a finite verb and then on nominals. However, note that in the last instance 'again' is realized as *-biri* rather than *-ribi*:

(91) Jain-xon e-n yoi-*ribi*-ai nokon tita-shoko-n-a-*ribi*,
there-PDCA 1-ERG tell-also-INC POS1 mother-DIM-GEN-NMLZ-also

nokon tita-n tita-n-a-*biri*.
POS1 mother-GEN mother-GEN-NMLZ-also
'Now I will also tell (you) about my grandmother, about my mother's mother.'

The distribution of the allomorphic forms *-ribi ~ -riba* on verbs is particularly interesting: these forms are employed when the verb stem has an even versus an odd number of moras, respectively (only vowels count as moraic, see description of the repetitive in Alternate Mora Timing in 3.2.3). That is, in the previous example *-ribi* is employed given that *yoi-* is bimoraic, while in the subsequent example the monomoraic existential root *ja-* requires the allomorph *-riba*:

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(92) Jaino-a-x ja-*ríba*-a iki jato ani xobo-n bo-ai
there:LOC-ABL-S exist-also-PP2 AUX 3p:ABS large house-ALL take-PP1

joni.
man:ABS
'There, there was also a man in charge of taking the people to the large house.'

Examples (93) and (94) illustrate the use of the deprecatory *-isi* and the intensifier *-yora* with verbs:

(93) Titá, samá-yama-*isi*-we! Mi-a-ra ii-kin
mother:VOC fast-NEG-DEPREC-IMP 2-ABS-EV do.I:do.I-SSSA

rete-mis a-kin a-kana-ke!
kill-HAB.AGTZ do.T-SSSA do.T-PL:PREV-CMPL
'Mother, don't fast (to acquire special powers)! Or else people might say you are a murderer (a witch).'

(94) Xate-kan-a-kaya-ra e-n a-*yora*-ke ja-ska-ra
cut-PL-PO>S/A-CONTRST-EV 1-ERG do.T-INTENS-CMPL that-SIML-*ra*

shinan-kin.
think-SSSA
'But after my operation I think about that very much.'

Examples (95) and (96) illustrate the clitic *-pacho* 'always' attached to both a verb and a pronoun:

(95) Ja r-iki chiponki-a-x jo-ai no-n ninká-*pacho*-ai.
3:ABS EV-COP down.the.river-ABL-S come-PP1 1p-ERG hear-always-INC
'He is the one (about whom) we always heard was coming from the lower Ucayali.' (Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:208)

(96) ...ja oin-a-ki awakan bai-shaman-ki pues
3:ABS see-PP2:HSY2 tapir:GEN way-INTENS:ABS-HSY2 *pues*

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ja-n-*pacho* ka-[a]i.
that-LOC-always go-INC
'... they found the tapir's way *pues*, along which he always walks.'

Further illustration of verbs taking "less-fixed" clitics is provided in 4.2.3.

7.10. The Preventive *-Na*

The preventive *-na* is added to a verb stem to express a warning, a situation to be prevented or guarded against. The preventive occurs in affirmative or negative clauses and always takes completive aspectual morphology. Consider the following affirmative preventive clauses (see also (93) above):

(97) Mi-bé ainbo-bo-ra mi-ki shiro-*na*-ke,
2-COM woman-PL:ABS-EV 2-DAT make.fun-PREV-CMPL

mi-bé ainbo-baon-ra mi-a osan-*na*-ke,
2-COM woman-PL:ERG-EV 2-ABS laugh.at-PREV-CMPL

yoxan i-xon-bi mi-n jawéki a-kin jakóma-[a]i-tian".
adult.woman be-PSSA-EM 2-GEN thing do.T-SSSA good:NEG:do.T-S-DS
'Beware that the women around you make fun of you, beware that the women around you laugh at you, when despite being an adult woman you don't do your things well.'

(98) Mi-a-ra mi-n bene-n pota-*na*-ke.
2-ABS-EV 2-GEN husband-ERG leave-PREV-CMPL
'Beware that your husband leaves you.'

The following preventive clauses are in the negative:

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(99) Ja-ra no-n senen-a-yama-*na*-ke
3:ABS-EV 1p-ERG edge-do.T-NEG-PREV-CMPL
'Beware that we do not finish it (on time).'

(100) Ja axa-n-kan-ke-bi joni ka-yama-a iki jawen awin
that poison-TRNZ-PL-PDS-EM man:ABS go-NEG-PP2 AUX POS3 wife:ABS

too-ya i-ke-tian; jawen awin too-ya i-xon yapa
round-PROP be-P-DS POS3 wife:ABS round-PROP be-PSSA fish:ABS

pae-n-ma-yama-*na*-ke-tian.
Sour-VBLZ-CAUS-NEG-PREV-P-DS
'Although the people of the village were fishing with *barbasco* (fish poison), the man did not go because his wife was pregnant; fearing that being pregnant his wife would prevent the fish from getting poisoned.'

The following example shows that the preventive follows the plural *-kan* (see also ex. (93)):

(101) Ochíti-baon-ra mi-a natex-*ka[n]-na*-ke. *natex-na-kan-ke
dog-PL:ERG-EV 2-ABS bite-PL-PREV-CMPL
'Beware, the dogs could bite you.'

7.11. Final Suffixes

Final suffixes can be finite or non-finite.

7.11.1. Finite Final Suffixes

Finite final suffixes vary depending on whether the verb is in the declarative, imperative, or prospective / jussive. Final markers in the declarative mood are the incompletive *-ai*

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(INC) and the completive *-ke* (CMPL). The incompletive *-ai* indicates that an event takes place habitually, that the event is taking place at the moment of the utterance, or that the event will take place soon after the utterance. The completive *-ke* indicates that the event has been finished by the time of some temporal point of reference, usually the moment of utterance. Other finite verb forms instantiating the declarative are those ending in *-kato* (which is actually a combination of the past *kati(t)* plus the completive *-ke*), those with the copula *iki*, and periphrastic verbal forms where *iki* functions as auxiliary. Since *-ke* and the copula (but not the auxiliary employed in periphrastic constructions) *iki* occur in declarative finite clauses only, they also serve as illocutionary force markers.

When a finite declarative verb is the first major constituent in a sentence, it may carry a second position clitic before the plural *-kan* (if present) and the final marker. Second position clitics that co-occur with finite verbs are the direct evidential / certainty marker *-ra*, the reportatives *-ronki* and *-ki* (although *-ki* has a freer distribution), and the speculative / dubitative *-mein*. The fact that second position clitics occur inside a finite verb suggests the relatively recent grammaticalization of the plural and aspectual morphemes, which led to the endocliticization of second position clitics. Note the position of *-ra* and *-ronki* in the next examples:

(102) Ja-ríba-*ra*-ke ainbo-bo, moa wetsa joni betan i-xon
exist-also-EV-CMPL woman-PL:ABS already other man COM do.I-PSSA

jato-n bene pota-[a]i.
3p-GEN husband:ABS leave-INC
'There are also women who, having an affair with another man, abandon their husbands.'

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(103) "Tita-shoko tene-non a-kan-we!" i-*ronki*-ai.
mother-DIM:ABS kill-P/J do.T-PL-IMP do.I-HSY-INC
'"Let's kill the grandmother!" they said.

Verbs in the imperative and prospective / jussive (the latter glossed as P/J) take the final markers *-we* and *(-ba) -non*, respectively; these occur in place of the incompletive *-ai* and the completive *-ke*. The example above exhibits an exhortative clause involving a first person plural inclusive addressee. Exhortatives in SK are biclausal constructions composed of a jussive / prospective clause and an imperative clause (see 8.6.3); hence in (103) the verb *tene-* is marked by the prospective / jussive *-non* while *a-kan-* takes the imperative *-we*. Further examples showing the alternative prospective / jussive marker *-ba -non* follow; (105) also contains two imperative clauses:

(104) Mi-a yoi-*ba-non*, ne-skat-a-ronki ik-á iki ja cuento
2-ABS tell-P/J-P/J PROX-SIML-PP2-HSY be-PP2 AUX that story

ja Wishmabo.
that Wishmabo
'Let me tell you / I'm going to tell you, so was the story of the "*Wishmabo*".'

(105) Baké, mapó tsaman-*we*, e-n mi-a wexa-xon-*ba-non*, oin-we!
child:VOC clay:ABS gather-IMP 1-ERG 2-ABS polish-BEN-P/J-P/J see-IMP
'Daughter, shape the clay, I will teach you how to polish, look!

7.11.2. Non-Finite Final Suffixes

Non-finite final suffixes can be subdivided into: participial (incompletive and completive) and reference markers (same-subject, different-subject, and object-to-subject).

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7.11.2.1. Participial Suffixes

Participial suffixes are the incompletive *-ai* (identical in form to the finite incompletive aspect marker) and the completive *-a* (which differs from its finite counterpart *-ke*). Verbs in interrogative sentences take participial suffixes. However, when requesting permission, the suffix *-pan* might be added to the verb in place of participial suffixes. Interrogative clauses may also exhibit periphrastic verb forms involving the auxiliary *iki* or lack a verb altogether if the copular interrogative *-ri(n)* is used.

Analogously to the situation described for declarative sentences, the non-copular interrogative *-ki* precedes participial markers if the verb is the first major constituent of the sentence (see ex. (147d) in Chapter 8).

In addition to interrogative sentences, participial-marked verbs are found in relative, complement, and non-reference marked adverbial clauses (see Chapter 10).

7.11.2.2. Reference-Markers

A non-finite verb form can also take one of a set of markers indicating subject (non)coreferentiality between two clauses, or referential identity between the object of the marked clause and the subject of a governing clause. A typologically unusal feature

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of SK and Panoan in general is the fact that some of these markers must match the transitivity of the verb in the matrix clause (see 9.1).

7.12. Periphrastic Verb Forms

In SK it is very common to express events through complex predicates in which a semantically main verb (hereafter, also lexical verb) occurs in a non-finite form, in combination with an auxiliary carrying tense-aspect-mood and number information. The lexical verbs take either participial or same-subject morphology. Auxiliaries are the semantically generic intransitive *ik-* 'do (intr.), be' and its transitive counterpart *ak* 'do (tr.), make.' I will refer to these types of complex predicates as 'Periphrastic Verb Forms' or 'Periphrastic Verbs.'

Additionally, the existential *ja-*, the negative existential *yama-*, and the ability verb *atipan-* 'can' occur as auxiliaries in periphrastic verb forms to encode modality specifications. However, modality will be dealt with in a separate section (7.13).

7.12.1. Participial Periphrastic Verbs

There are periphrastic verb forms whose lexical verb takes the participial suffixes *-ai* or *-a*; the auxiliary is generally the intransitive *ik-*. Although from a diachronic perspective *ik-* might be analyzed as a copula which combines with subject nominalized clauses,

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synchronically these complex structures are better interpreted as single periphrastic verb forms. Consider the following example:

(106) a. [E-n yoi-kas-*ai*] r-*iki*.
1-ERG tell-DES-PP1 EV-AUX
'I want to tell (the stories).'

Note in the example above that the case-marking assigned to the subject is determined by the lexical verb; see also the position of the direct evidential which generally occurs after the first major sentence constituent. A possible morpho-syntactic analysis would allow for the following reading: 'It is the case that I want to tell (the stories);' however, the construction above is interpreted (and translated) by Native speakers simply as an alternative expression to:

b. E-n-ra yoi-kas-ai.
1-ERG-EV tell-DES-INC
'I want to tell (the stories).'

Periphrastic verbs represent a paradigmatic choice in the expression of a state of affairs, an alternative to non-periphrastic verbs, and are in principle available to all verbs. Periphrastic verbs may represent a stylistic choice or play particular discourse-pragmatic functions (Güldemann, forthcoming, discusses similar constructions in some African languages). The fact that structurally, and probably diachronically, these constructions can be seen as combinations of auxiliaries or "dummy verbs" plus nominalized clauses has syntactic consequences, such as the possibility of major clausal constituents and second position clitics to occur between the lexical and the auxiliary verbs.

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7.12.1.1. The Narrative Past V-*a iki*

Probably the most common periphrastic verb form in SK narrative is V-*a iki*, employed when reporting perfective past events that advance the story-line in both personal and folk stories. In this construction, the lexical verb (symbolized by V) imposes its argument structure and case-marking frame. In the example below, the Inka Woman, angry after a Shipibo woman denied her roasted peanuts, decides to leave the Shipibo. Hence, the Inka Woman goes back home to persuade her husband to leave:

(107) Ja washit-a-ronki *ka-riba-a iki* jawen xobo-n.
3:ABS be.stingy.about-O>S/A go-REP-PP2 AUX POS3 house-ALL
'Having been denied (the roasted peanut), (the Inka Woman) went back home.'

Below, the narrative past is employed in an excerpt from a personal narrative:

(108) Jain-xon nokon papa-n ani wai *ak-á iki*....
there-PDCA POS1 father-ERG big chacra:ABS do.T-PP2 AUX
'Then my father cultivated a big chacra....'

As anticipated above, the auxiliary and the lexical verb may not be contiguous:

(109) No-a Shipibo-baon r-*iki* shino shipi-n jane *bi-a*.
1p-ABS Shipibo-PL:ERG EV-AUX monkey tamarin-GEN name:ABS get-PP2
'We, the Shipibo, got the tamarin monkey's name.'

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7.12.1.2. The 'Pluperfect' V-*a ik-á iki*

The 'pluperfect' is structurally a reduplicated form of the narrative past: [[V]-*a ik*]-*a iki*. The fixed sequence -*a iká iki* is added to a verb stem regardless of its transitivity value. As in the narrative past, it is the lexical verb which determines the argument structure and case-marking frame as well as (in)transitivity and / or participant agreement. The next example belongs to the context of the preparations for the *Ani Xeati* ceremony (girls' puberty rites). There are two verbs in the pluperfect, the intransitive *tee-* 'work' and the transitive *tsinki-* 'gather;' the latter triggers A agreement on the interclausal conjunction *jainxon*:

(110) Ja ik-á iki moa westíora oxe maxká-ke-tian. Ja moa
that:ABS do.I-PP2 AUX already one moon:ABS lack-P-DS that already

nokon papa rabé baritia *teet-a ik-á iki*. Jain-xon moa nokon
POS1 father:ABS two year work-PP2 be-PP2 AUX there-PDCA already POS1

papa-n wai-nko-ni-a yoa-bo *tsinki-a ik-á iki*.
father-ERG chacra-LOC-LIG-ABL:O food-PL:ABS gather-PP2 be-PP2 AUX
'This was just one month before (the *Ani Xeati*). By then my father had already worked for two years in the preparations. My father had already gathered the crops from the chacra.'

The example below brings us back to the story about the Inka Woman, already introduced in (107); the Inka Woman arrives at her home in search of her husband but does not find him:

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(111) Ja-tian jawen bene *ka-a* *ik-á* *iki* jato
that-TEMP POS3 husband:ABS go-PP2 be-PP2 AUX 3p:ABS

onan-ma-i tsaka-ti, wina-ti,
know-CAUS-SSSS shoot.with.arrow-INF:ABS row-INF:ABS

pia-a-ti....
arrow-do.T-INF:ABS
'By then her husband had gone to teach them (i.e., the Shipibo men) how to shoot with arrow, how to row, how to make arrows.....'

However, there are instances when the V-*a iká iki* structure does not code pluperfectivity and is translated into English by a simple past form. These instances commonly involve the perception verbs *oin-* 'see,' *jisá-* 'see / notice,' and *ninkat-* 'hear / understand' occurring at the beginning of a chain which introduces a new scene; therefore, it might be the case that the 'pluperfect' structure conveys mirativity in this context.[5] In the following example the Inka Woman has already abandoned the Shipibo women and is fleeing up the Ucayali River; wanting to have her back, the Shipibo women travel up the river following the Inka's traces. Obviously, the event of lighting the fire is previous to that of finding its traces. Note, however, that it is the equivalent of '(they) saw' and not 'lit the fire' which is coded through the 'pluperfect' structure:

(112) Mayá pekáo ka-xon *jis-á*-ki *ik-á* *iki*
meander after go-PSSA see-PP2-HSY2 be-PP2 AUX

[5] The use of pluperfect verb forms to express unexpected information is also attested in Peruvian Spanish, probably due to the influence from Quechua. Consider the following Peruvian Spanish example:

(i) ¡Resulta que Jorge había sido sobrino de Fujimori!
turn.out:3sg. that Jorge had been nephew of Fujimori
'Jorge turned out to be Fujimori's nephew!'

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chii keté-a-bain-a....
fire:ABS burn-do.T-going-PP2
'Following the turns of the river, (they) saw the fire she had lit on her way...'

As can be seen from its glossing, the element *-ki* in *jisá-ki* is the shorter hearsay marker and is not part of the pluperfect inflection. It must be noted that evidentials such as *-ki* do not interrupt syntactic elements of a constituent; therefore, the position of *-ki* in the example above suggests the recent grammaticalization of the construction in question as a single periphrastic verbal form.

7.12.1.3. Other Participial Periphrastic Verbs

There are additional periphrastic constructions involving a participial-marked lexical verb which combines with auxiliaries coding tense-aspect-mood specifications. Although the functions of these periphrastic verbs in SK require further study, one can point to a few tendencies. A first pattern, represented by exx. (113)-(115), has been attested after the opening of a narrative in order to describe a state of affairs serving as framework or backgrounded information that will become relevant for the subsequent main-line events. In these instances, the intransitive auxiliary is selected regardless of the transitivity status exhibited by the lexical verb, and past tense markers are present. Consider the following text excerpt about a man who married a *secana* (k. gourd / pumpkin) woman (i.e., she was a woman at night but a *secana* during the day); the auxiliaries in both sentences code distant past and incompletive aspect overtly:

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(113) Xopan ainbo-ki *bi-a* *i-káti-ai.*
secana woman:ABS-HSY2 get-PP2 do.I-PST4-INC
'(He) was married to a *secana* woman.

(114) Ja-tian yamé-bicho-ki *i-káti-ai* ainbo-ki
that-TEMP at.night-only-HSY2 do.I-PST4-INC woman:ABS-HSY2

ja betan *ox-ai...*
3 COM sleep-PP1
Then only at night the woman slept with him....'

The examples above have a transitive and an intransitive lexical verb, respectively; i.e., *bi-* 'get / receive' and *oxa-* 'sleep.' Literally, these examples could be translated as 'He was one married to a *secana* woman' and 'The woman was one sleeping with him only at night.'

In the following example, the auxiliary codes remote tense and habitual aspect:

(115) Moa-tian-ronki *i-pao-ni-ke* jema-bo *yam[a]-a.*
already-TEMP-HSY do.I-HAB-REM-CMPL village-PL:ABS exist.not-PP2
'It is said that long time ago there were no villages.'

A second pattern has been attested in direct quotes that form part of the main story-line. As can be seen in (116), the transitive auxiliary is used when the lexical verb is transitive (unlike (113) whose lexical verb is also transitive); further, the auxiliary lacks past tense marking:

(116) Jawe kopí-ki *ak-ai* mato-n bari *noka[a]*-a?
what reason-INT do.T-INC 2p-ERG sun:ABS extinguish:do.T-PP2
'Why have you extinguished the sun (causing the ongoing eclipse)?'

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In sum, periphrastic verbs involving participials may, but do not necessarily, take the transitive auxiliary *ak-* when the lexical verb is transitive. With intransitive lexical verbs, only the intransitive *ik-* is possible: Vtr. + Aux intr. / tr.; Vintr. + Aux intr. / *tr.

7.12.2. Same-Subject Marked Periphrastic Verbs

Periphrastic verb forms may be composed of the auxiliaries *ak-* or *ik-* which provide the relevant tense-aspect-mood information, and a lexical verb taking same-subject marking.

7.12.2.1. The Progressive V-*i itai*

The form V-*i itai* is used to overtly code progressive aspect. Since the auxiliary *i-t-ai* [do.I / be-PROG-INC] is intransitive, the lexical verb carries the simultaneous, same-subject, S agreement marker *-i*, invariably.

(117) Ja moa no-a *na-ne-t-i* *i-t*-ai-tian,
that already 1p-ABS INTERIOR-go.up-MID-SSSS do.I-PROG-S-DS

jo-xon ainbo-nin nokon sobrina bachin-ribi-a iki.
come-PSSA Woman-ERG POS1 niece:ABS pull.by.hair-REP-PP2 AUX
'Just when we were embarking in the canoe, the woman came and pulled my niece by the hair again.'

The progressive may have a partial detransitivizing effect, as shown in the following examples where the subjects are in the absolutive case despite the fact that the

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verbs *ak-* and *koko-* are transitive; these verbs retain, nevertheless, their second argument, and hence both arguments of *ak-* and *koko-* are marked absolutive:

(118) –Jawe *ak-i*-ki mato *i-t-ai*?
what:ABS do.T-SSSS-INT 2p:ABS do.I-PROG-INC
'What are you doing?:'

(119) –Binpish *koko-i*-ra no-a *i-t-ai.*
guayaba:ABS eat.fruit-SSSS-EV 1p-ABS do.I-PROG-INC
'We are eating *guayaba.*'

However, the selection of either ergative or absolutive marking on the subject of a transitive lexical verb in a progressive construction may depend on the pragmatic status of the object, a property shared with desiderative clauses (section 8.2.8). That is, absolutive case-marking on the subject will be selected when the object is non-specific, indefinite, or non-referential, while an object of the opposite characteristics will typically trigger ergative case-marking on the subject. The latter situation is illustrated in (120):

(120) Ja keská-shaman jawéki no-n *wisha-i* *i-t*-ai.
that SIML-INTENS thing:ABS 1p-ERG write-SSSS do.I-PROG-INC
'We are writing this kind of stories (like the one I have just described).'

The lexical verb may be reduplicated as an additional means of expressing continuous / progressive meaning.

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7.12.2.2. The Future V-*i kai*

As in many languages of the world, in SK the verb 'go' may be used to code future. Since *ka-[a]i* [go-INC] is intransitive, the syntactically-dependent verb takes the simultaneous same-subject marker *-i* invariably; unlike the progressive construction described above, the case-marking frame is determined by the transitivity of the lexical verb. In examples (121) and (123) subjects occur in the ergative case given that the lexical verbs are transitive, whereas in (122) and (124) subjects occur in the absolutive:

(121) Jain-xon no-n *onan-an-i* *ka-[a]i*, ainbo joni
there-PDCA 1p-ERG know-MAL-SSSS go-INC woman:ABS man:ABS

bi-ma-ti bewá, joni wanomaat-a wano-ma-ti.
get-CAUS-INF song:ABS man become.widower-PP2 marry-CAUS-INF
'Then we are going to learn the song to help a woman conquer a man, learn how to help a widower marry again.'

(122) Tita-ra keyo-t-ai, ja-tian no-a *banet-i* *ka-[a]i*
mother:ABS-EV finish-MID-INC that-TEMP 1p-ABS stay-SSSS go-INC

ja-n no-a axe-a-a jawéki-bo-ya.
3-ERG 1p-ABS get.used.to-do.T-PP2 thing-PL-PROP
'Our mother dies and we will be left with the things that she taught us.'

(123) Bakish-ra e-n xenan wai-nko-ni-a *bi-i* *ka-[a]i.*
one.day.away-EV 1-ERG guaba:ABS chacra-LOC-LIG-ABL:O get-SSSI go-INC
'Tomorrow I am going to bring *guabas* from the chacra.'

(124) Bakish-ra e-a yamékiri-bi *wenit-i* *ka-[a]i.*
one.day.away-EV 1-ABS early.in.the.morning-EM wake.up-SSSS go-INC
'Tomorrow I am going to wake up early in the morning.'

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Below, the first person plural is in the absolutive case and the lexical verb *axe-a-* 'teach' is transitive; therefore, *noa* is the object argument of the periphrastic verb:

(125) ...ja noi waste yoshin-baon-kaya no-a *axe-a-i* *ka-[a]i...*
that love *piripiri* spirit-PL:ERG-CONTRST 1p-ABS learn-CAUS-SSSS go-INC
.'..the spirit of the "love *piripiri*" will teach us....'

7.12.2.3. The Indefinite Future V-*nonx iki*

The periphrastic verb form V-*nonx iki* indicates a future event; however, it does not specify at which particular point in the future the event will take place. This construction is hence called "indefinite" future as opposed to the definite 'tomorrow' future coded by the suffix *-yat ~ yá* (treated in 7.8.1).

(126) E-n-ra mi-a bi-ai, mi-a-ra nokon awin i-*nonx iki.*
1-ERG-EV 2-ABS get-INC 1-ABS-EV POS1 wife:ABS do.I-FUT
'I am going to marry you, you will be my wife.'

The next example is taken from a text where the Canary Woman teaches a group of Shipibo children how to grow corn. But given that the children did not follow her directions exactly, the corn will take three months (rather than a couple of days) to be ready for consumption:

(127) Ne-ská-bi-ra mato ja-*nonx iki*: mato-n xeki bana-a-ra
PROX-SIML-EM-EV 2p:ABS exist-FUT 2p-ERG corn:ABS sow-PO>S/A-EV

ishto-n i-ama-*nonx iki*, kimisha oxe-pari-ra mato i-*nonx iki*
fast-ADVZ do.I-NEG-FUT three month-yet-EV 2p:ABS do.I-FUT

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jawéki-a-kas-i manat-i.
food-do.T-DES-SSSS wait-SSSS
'You will live just like this: when cultivating corn it will not grow quickly, you will first have to wait three months in order to eat it.'

7.12.2.4. Other Same-Subject Marked Periphrastic Verbs

As with their participial counterparts, the functions of certain same-subject periphrastic verbs are not well understood; however, a few tendencies will be pointed at here. In these constructions the auxiliaries *ik-* and *ak-* are usually chosen in agreement with the transitivity status of the lexical verb. In turn, the same-subject markers must agree in transitivity with the auxiliaries. Nevertheless, as shown above for certain participial periphrastic verbs, *ik-* may combine with a transitive lexical verb (ex. (136)), while *ak-* is never used with a lexical intransitive.

Auxiliaries marked by the aspect markers *-ai* and *-ke* exclusively have been attested in dialogues or direct quotes embedded within narratives. The next sentence is in the interrogative mood:

(128) Tso-n-ki *ak-ai* neno bake *pota-kin*?
who-ERG-INT do.T-INC here child:ABS leave-SSSA
'Who leaves his / her child here?' (Inuma 1993:18)

In the example above the transitive lexical verb *pota-* selects for the transitive auxiliary *ak-*; in turn, the same-subject marker *-kin* exhibits A agreement in correlation with the transitivity of the auxiliary.

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Example (129) also belongs to the story about the Inka Woman, who now tells her husband what had happened to her earlier; the verb *washí-* is transitive:

(129) …bake-baon-ra e-a *a-ke* tama toban
child-PL:ER-EV 1-ABS do.T-CMPL peanut roasted:ABS

washí-kin.
be.stingy.about-SSSA
'…(our female) children have denied me the roasted peanuts.'

In (130), the auxiliary occurs in sentence initial position and hence hosts the direct evidential endoclitic *-ra*:

(130) *A*-rá-*ke* *tsaka-kin* no-n benbo-baon…
do.T-EV-CMPL shoot.w/arrow-SSSA 1p-GEN man-PL:ERG
'Our men have shot it (i.e., the animal)…'

By contrast, the examples below are part of narratives and encode background information opening the text. The auxiliaries *ik-* and *ak-* take the distant past tense marker *-kati(t)* and the plural *-kan*, prior to incompletive aspect marking:

(131) Moa-tian-ronki Shipibo-bo-ki Kashibo-bo betan
already-TEMP-HSY Shipibo-PL:ABS-HSY2 Kashibo-PL COM

tekít-i jaa *i-pao-kati-kan-ai* Tawa-ya wean meran.
get.together-SSSS that be-HAB-PST3-PL-INC reed-PROP stream inside
'It is said that long time ago, the Shipibo lived together with the Kashibo on the banks of the stream of Tawaya.' (Soi Rawa 1995:16)

(132) Moa-tian-bi-ra nawa-baon no-a *a-káti-kan-ai*
already-TEMP-EMP-EV outsider-PL:ERG 1p-ABS do.T-PST4-PL-INC

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"chama" *a-kin*.
chama do.T-SSSA
'Long ago the outsiders used to call us "*chama*".'

The following examples, taken from the story about the *Secana* Woman, contain the complex auxiliary forms *iká iki* and *aká iki*, selected in agreement with the transitivity of the lexical verb. As mentioned above, the simultaneous same-subject markers *-i* and *-kin* must match the transitivity of the auxiliary. These constructions are employed to advance the main story-line. The free translations are given line by line:

(133) Ii-kin-ki *ak-á* *iki* joni-n-ki *too a-kin*....
do.I-SSSA-HSY2 do.T-PP2 AUX man-ERG-HSY2 make.pregnant-SSSA
'After some time, the man got her pregnant.... (lit., 'After some time, the man did it (to her) getting her pregnant.')

(134) ...jawen poi-n, bachi benxo benxo a-kin-bi-ronki
POS3 sister-ERG mosquito.net:ABS tidy.up tidy.up-SSSA-EM-HSY
...while his sister was tidying up his mosquito net,

ak-á *iki* xopan, xopan-ki *toe-nan-kin*,
do.T-PP2 AUX *secana*:ABS *secana*:ABS-HSY2 break-MAL-SSSA
she broke the *secana* (to his detriment),

(135) ja toe-nan-a-ki
3:ABS break-MAL-PP2-HSY2
after she broke it (to his detriment)

ik-á *iki* bake-ki *piko-t-i* chosko bake.
be-PP2 AUX child:ABS-HSY2 take.out-MID-SSSS four child:ABS
four children came out.'

In the next sentence a pluperfect sense is achieved by combining the complex auxiliary *iká iki* with a lexical verb taking previous (rather than simultaneous) same-subject

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marking. Notice that the intransitive auxiliary is used, despite the fact that the lexical verb is transitive:

(136) Ja-tian ja-bo bo-kan-ke-tian, nokon tita *ik-á* *iki*
that-TEMP 3-PL:ABS go.n.SG-PL-P-DS POS1 mother:ABS be-PP2 AUX

jatíbi ja-n nokon wetsa rabé raó a-ti *bi-ax*....
all that-INST POS1 same.sex.sibling two:ABS embellish-INF:ABS get-PSSS
'When they got back, my mother had already gotten all the adornments with which to embellish my two sisters....'

As discussed before, periphrastic verbs do not exhibit all the formal features of fully integrated verb forms; e.g., the lexical verb and the auxiliary may be separated by other sentence constituents (exx. (109), (114)-(116), (128)-(129), among others) and a second position clitic may occur between these two verb phrase elements (exx. (106), (118)-(119), (130)). In the illustrative sentence below, the periphrastic verb is composed by the auxiliary *akátiai* and the same-subject marked lexical verb *axeakin*; these two elements are separated by a number of nominals in object functions:

(137) Benbo Inka-n-ki *a-káti-ai* pia-a-ti,
male Inka-ERG-HSY2 do.T-PST4-INC arrow-do.T-INF:ABS

yomera-ti nonti-a-ti, xakiti-a-ti,
fish/hunt-INF:ABS canoe-do.T-INF:ABS grater-do.T-INF:ABS

biski-a-ti, jato *axe-a-kin*.
mix-do.T-INF:ABS 3p:ABS get.used-CAUS-SSSA
'The male Inka taught them how to make arrows, fish / hunt, construct a canoe, make graters, mixers, those (things).'

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7.13. Modality

This section treats expressions of capability, permission, possibility, and necessity, which usually involve the verbs *atipan-* 'can,' *ja-* 'exist,' and *yama-* 'exist not' (for the coding of desire see 8.2.8 and 10.3.1, for epistemic modality see Chapter 13).

Differently from other verbs taking a clausal complement (verbs of saying, cognition, perception, and desire), *atipan-*, *ja-*, and *yama-* lack an argument structure of their own: while the complement clause is always marked absolutive, the case-marking assigned to their subjects depends on the transitivity value of the accompanying verb. Therefore, *atipan-*, *ja-*, and *yama-* may function as auxiliaries rather than matrix verbs, and their subjects are arguments of the verb phrase composed by the auxiliary plus the semantically main verb. Similarly to the complements of *keen-* 'want' and other non-implicative complement-taking verbs, in these verb phrases the lexical verb takes the infinitive *-ti* which has an irrealis meaning.

7.13.1. V-*ti Atipan-*

Probably, the verb *atipan-* is composed of the Quechua root *ati-* 'can' to which the SK verbal morpheme *-pan* has been added. The latter is employed when requesting permission (see the examples in (145)).

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7.13.1.1. Capability

The central function of *atipan-* 'can' is to express capability:

(138) Rama-ra nee-ti atipan-ke.
Rama:ABS-EV climb-INF can-CMPL
'Rama can climb.'

(139) Rama-*n*-ra bi-ti atipan-ke.
Rama-ERG-EV get-INF can-CMPL
'Rama can get it.'

In the example below, the intransitive root *nashi-* takes an applicative suffix thus becoming transitive; consequently, the verb phrase subject *min* is marked ergative:

(140) ...mi-*n* pe-chi waste-n nashi-*xon*-ti atipan-ke.
...2-ERG BACK-BUTTOCKS *piripiri*-INST bathe-MAL-INF can-CMPL
.'..you can bathe with the "*piripiri* to be left behind," to his detriment (i.e., to get rid of him).'

The negative is formed by adding *-yama* to the verb coding capability:

(141) Rama-n-ra kirinko-nin joi ninká-ti atipan-*yama*-ke.
Rama-ERG-EV *gringo*-GEN language:ABS understand-INF can-NEG-CMPL
'Rama cannot understand English.'

(142) Jawen awin moa jene-n rete-a ik-á iki, nee-ti
POS3 wife:ABS already water-ERG kill-PP2 be-PP2 AUX go.up-INF

atipan-*yama*-ke-tian tooya ik-ax.
can-NEG-P-DS pregnant be-PSSS
'His wife had drowned already, she could not climb (up the tree) because she was pregnant.'

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The next example illustrates the combination of the capability verb *atipan-* and a reference-marked periphrastic verb form:

(143) Ja kopí-ra e-a yoyo-ik-ai no-n *a-ti* *atipan-ke*
that reason-EV 1-ABS ONOM:speak-do.I-INC 1p-ERG do.T-INF can-CMPL

Ani Xeati-*a-kin*.
Ani Xeati-do.T-PSSA
'Therefore I say that we could celebrate the *Ani Xeati* ceremony again.'

7.13.1.2. Permission

In addition to capability, *atipan-* can be used in declarative sentences expressing permission:

(144) Mi-a-ra jiki-ti atipan-ke.
2-ABS-EV enter-INF can-CMPL
'You can / may come in.'

The questions prompting the sentence above could be:

(145) a. E-a jiki-*pan*?
1-ABS enter-PERMISSIVE
'May I come in?'

b. E-a-ki jiki-ti atipan-a?
1-ABS-INT enter-INF can-PP2
'May I come in?'

The next example shows that the interrogative *-ki* cannot occur when the permissive morpheme *-pan* rather than the verb *atipan-* is used:

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c. *E-a-ki jiki-pan?
1-ABS-INT enter-PERMISSIVE
'May I come in?'

7.13.1.3. Possibility

In addition, constructions involving *atipan-* can code a possible event or situation:

(146) Icha-a-kin no-n ninkat-ai Kosko-n Inka-bo,
much-do.T-SSSA 1p-ERG hear.about-INC Cuzco-LOC Inka-PL:ABS

jainoa-ribi *i-ti* *atipan-ke*, Paro rebon ka-ax ja-o
there:LOC:ABL-also be-INF can-CMPL Ucayali edge go-PSSS that-LOC

mayat-a.
turn-PP2
'We hear a great deal about the Inkas in Cuzco, it is possible that those are our Inkas too, it is possible that once they got to the upper end of the Ucayali River (after having left the Shipibo) they turned (towards Cuzco).'

7.13.1.4. Necessity

Although it is not its usual function, the verb *atipan-* may code necessity when in the negative:

(147) Benbo bake-baon mapó *mee-ti* *atipan-yama-ke*, bakeranon
male child-PL:ERG clay:ABS HAND-INF can-NEG-CMPL boy:ABS

ik-ax-bi boshí wacho-na-ke-tian, mapó keská.
be-PSSS-EM penis:ABS (become)fluffy-PREV-P-DS clay SIML
'Male children must not touch the clay (to make pottery), since they are boys their penises could become fluffy just like the clay.'

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7.13.2. V-*ti Ja-* and V-*ti Yama-*

7.13.2.1. Necessity

A function of the existential *ja-* is to code necessity or obligation:

(148) Kesin Beso-ra ka-ti ja-ke.
Kesin Beso:ABS-EV go-INF have.to-CMPL
'Kesin Beso has to go.'

(149) Kesin Beso-*n*-ra wai oro-ti ja-ke.
Kesin Beso-ERG-EV chacra:ABS weed-INF have.to-CMPL
'Kesin Beso has to weed the chacra.'

Consider the following example, partially given earlier as (125):

(150) ...ja noi waste yoshin-baon-kaya no-a axe-a-i ka-[a]i,
that love *piripiri* spirit-PL:ERG-CONTRST 1p-ABS learn-CAUS-SSSS go-INC

ikaxbi *no-n samá-a-ti ja-ke.*
but 1p-ERG abstinence-do.T-INF exist-CMPL
.'..the spirit of the "love *piripiri*" will teach us, but we have to fast and abstain from having sex.'

7.13.2.2. Negative Necessity

The negative existential *yama-* is used in negative expressions of necessity. The following examples illustrate the auxiliary *yama-* in combination with active, inactive, and extended intransitive complement clauses:

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(151) E-*a*-ra ransa-ti yama-ke.
1-ABS-EV dance-INF exist.not-CMPL
'I don't have to / must not dance.'

(152) E-*a*-ra ino-ti yama-ke.
1-ABS-EV (become)jaguar-INF exist.not-CMPL
'I don't have to / must not turn into a jaguar.'

(153) No-*a*-ra westíora joni-n shiro-ti yama-ke, ja-ra
1p-ABS-EV one man-OBL make.fun.of-INF exist.not-CMPL 3:ABS-EV

ochó i-ke-tian.
far be-P-DS
'We must not be unfaithful to a man when he is far away.'

In the sentences below, *yama-* combines with transitive complement clauses:

(154) E-*n*-ra yoá a-ti yama-ke.
1-ERG-EV cook-INF exist.not-CMPL
'I don't have to / must not cook.'

(155) No-n chomo ak-ai-tian bake-*baon* no-a korá-xon-ti
1p-ERG jar:ABS make-S-DS child-PL:ERG 1-ABS make.noise-MAL-INF

yama-ke.
exist.not-CMPL
'When we are making pottery the children must not make noise (to our detriment).'

7.13.3. V-*ti Iki*

A second strategy to convey necessity is through the *V-ti iki* construction. This alternative is illustrated through the following examples extracted from a text about the origin of the *Whismabo* Constellation. In the scene at hand, the alligator has bitten off

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one of the illegitimate children's leg (*-rin* is the interrogative employed with copular clauses):

(156) –"Rama-ki jawe-keská-xon no-n kishi bi-ai? *Rete-ti-rin*?"
now-INT what-SIML-A 1-ERG leg:ABS get-PP2 kill-INF-INT2
'"And now, how do we recover the leg? Do we have to kill (the alligator)?"

(157) –"*Rete-ti* r-*iki*!" i-ronki-a-kan-ai ja xoxo bake-bo.
kill-INF EV-COP say-HSY-do.T-PL-INC that illegitimate child-PL:ABS
"We have to kill it!" said the (other) illegitimate children.

(158) –"Ja-skat-ax chaikoni ponseman noati *bi-ti* r-*iki*"....
that-SIML-S chaikoni sloth:GEN spear:ABS get-INF EV-COP
"Then we have to borrow the sloth's spear"....'

In the example below, the *V-ti iki* necessity construction combines with a reference-marked periphrastic verb. Observe the presence of a pause between the complex auxiliary *akanti iki* and the clause headed by the lexical verb:

(159) Ja benbo-baon-bi-ribi-ra *a-kan-ti* *iki*, atsa wai-*a-kin*.
that man-PL:ERG-EM-also-EV do.T-PL-INF AUX yuca chacra-do.T-SSSA
'Also the men have to cultivate yuca....'

7.14. Phasal Verbs

The verbs *peo-* 'begin', *keyo-* 'finish' and *jene-* 'stop' are inherently transitive and can function as main verbs. Alternatively, *peo-*, *keyo-* and *jene-* function as auxiliaries. In these instances, phasal verbs necessarily agree in transitivity with the syntactically dependent lexical verb; i.e., phasal verbs occur unmodified with transitive lexical verbs

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but take the detransitivizing middle marker *-t* if the lexical verb is intransitive. In addition, the lexical verb takes the markers *-i* or *-kin* in correlation with the transitivity of the phasal verb (see 9.1):

(160) E-*a*-ra ransa-*i* *peo-koo*-ke.
1-ABS-EV dance-SSSS begin-MID-CMPL
'I began to dance (e.g., at a party).'

(161) E-*n*-ra bana-*kin* *peo*-ke.
1-ERG-EV sow-SSSA begin-CMPL
'I began to plant (it).'

The two examples immediately above differ from each other in three important respects: the case-marking on the subject, the simultaneous same-subject marker on the lexical verb, and the transitivity status of the phasal verb. These morpho-syntactic differences are triggered by the transitivity value of the verbs *ransa-* and *bana-*, respectively. Examples with other phasal verbs follow:

(162) E-*a*-ra ransa-*i* *jené*-ke.
1-ABS-EV dance-SSSS stop:MID-CMPL
'I stopped dancing.'

(163) E-*n*-ra yoá a-*kin* *jene*-ke.
1-ERG-EV cook-SSSA stop-CMPL
'I stopped cooking (it).'

(164) E-*a*-ra ransa-*i* *keyó*-ke.
1-ABS-EV dance-SSSS finish:MID-CMPL
'I finished dancing.'

(165) E-*n*-ra pi-*kin* *keyo*-ke.
1-ERG-EV eat-SSSA finish-CMPL
'I finished the food.'

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In the examples examined so far the lexical verb takes simultaneous same-subject marking, while the phasal verb carries finite verbal morphology. Alternatively, combinations of a same-subject marked phasal verb and a finite lexical verb are possible, especially when the inceptives *peo- / peo-koot-* and the completives *keyo- / keyó-* are involved; the cessative *jene-* exhibits less flexibility in this respect. First, consider the examples involving the inceptives. At least for one speaker, the structure given below may have the additional meaning of beginning to do something for the very first time (Yoi Sani, p.c. 2000):

(166) E-*a*-ra peo-*koot-i* ransa-ke.
1-ABS-EV begin-MID-SSSS dance-CMPL
'I began to dance (at the party / for the first time in my life).'

(167) E-*n*-ra peo-*kin* bana-ke.
1-ERG-EV begin-SSSA sow-CMPL
'I began to sow (it).'

The following examples illustrate analogous expressions involving the verbs of completion *keyo-(t-)*:

(168) E-*a*-ra keyo-t-*i* ransa-ke.
1-ABS-EV finish-MID-SSSS dance-CMPL
'I finished dancing (the piece of music).'

(169) E-*n*-ra keyo-*kin* bana-ke.
1-ERG-EV finish-SSSA sow-CMPL
'I finished sowing (it).'

Analogous structures involving the cessative *jene-* are dispreferred.

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In the next text example, the transitive lexical verb *rete-* becomes intransitive after the suffixation of the reciprocal *-anan*. The derived intransitive *rete-anan-* is part of a same-subject marked periphrastic verb and requires the intransitive auxiliary *ikátikanai*; in turn this auxiliary calls for the S agreement same-subject marker *-i* (rather than *-kin*) on its lexical verb, thus yielding *rete-anan-i*. Furthermore, this intransitive periphrastic verb form combines with the inceptive *peo-* which must now be detransitivized; finally, *peokot-* takes the S agreement same-subject marker *-ax* given that the periphrastic *ikátikanai reteanani* is intransitive:

(170) Ja-ska-r[a]-ai-n *peokot-ax*-kaya-ki *i*-káti-kan-ai
that-SIML-ra-S-DS begin:MID-PSSS-CONTRST-HSY2 do.I-PST4-PL-INC

Shipibo-bo betan Kashibo-bo-ki rete-anan-*i*.
Shipibo-PL and Kashibo-PL:ABS-HSY2 kill-REC-SSSS
'It is said that because of this, the Shipibo and the Kashibo began to fight against each other.'

Now consider a transitive version of the above example:

(171) Ja-ska-r[a]-ai-n *peo-xon*-kaya-ki *a*-káti-kan-ai
that-SIML-ra-S-DS begin-PSSA-CONTRST-HSY2 do.T-PST4-PL-INC

Shipibo-*baon* Kashibo-bo-ki rete-*kin*.
Shipibo-PL :ERG Kashibo-PL:ABS-HSY2 kill-SSSA
'It is said that because of this the Shipibo began to kill the Kashibo.'

There are two additional verbs, *senen-'ak-* and *janken-'ak-*, which indicate the completion of an event. However, differently from the phasal verbs discussed in this section, these verbs combine with transitive, syntactically dependent lexical verbs only.

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CHAPTER 8

SIMPLE CLAUSES

8.1. Alignment

8.1.1. Ergative-Absolutive Case-Marking System

In terms of alignment, SK exhibits a fairly rigid ergative-absolutive case-marking system. Unlike what is most commonly found in languages of this type (Dixon 1994:83-104), including those of the Panoan family, it can be said that in SK there are no instances of case-marking splits triggered by the inherent semantics of the noun phrase, tense-aspect-modality distinctions, or the syntactic status of the clause (but cf. case-marking alternations due to the pragmatic status of the object in progressive and desiderative constructions, in sections 7.12.2.1 and 8.2.8 respectively). The ergative case is marked by the phrasal suffix *-n*. The absolutive marker is *-a* for the first singular, second singular, and first plural personal pronouns, as well as for the human interrogative *tso-*

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'who.' Other pronouns and nouns remain unmarked when instantiating the absolutive case. The ergative morpheme {*-n*} has the allomorphs *-n*; *-an, -en, -in*; *-kan, -ten, -tan*; *-man*; *-nin*; depending on the number of moras the underlying root has. In addition, *-ton* and *-tonin* are used with derived or inflected nominals, and the plural *-bo* is most commonly realized as *-baon* (Faust 1973, Valenzuela 1998, section 3.2.2). Besides having several morpho-phonologically-conditioned alternate forms, *-n* illustrates an interesting instance of case syncretism and polyfunctionality since it attaches to the last element of the noun phrase to code the ergative, genitive, instrumental, and other oblique functions such as locative-allative and temporal. While it is the only means to mark the ergative, instrumental and with most nominals the genitive case, there are alternative ways to mark the locative-allative and temporal functions (Valenzuela 1998, see also sections 6.1 and 6.6.5). Consider the following examples involving different allomorphs and functions:

(1) Sanke*man*-ra jawen pia*kan* pia-*n* koyaparo
Sanken:ERG-EV POS3 nephew:GEN arrow-INST tucunaré:ABS

tsaka-ke, ia*man*-xon.
shoot.arrow-CMPL lake-LOC-A
'Sanken killed a *tucunaré* fish with his nephew's arrow, in the lake.'

(2) Inka-*n* shina*man* manan-xawe-*n* pei-ki seke-nan-a iki.
Inka-ERG think:MNS hill-turtle-GEN wing:ABS-HSY2 break-MAL-PP2 AUX
'The Inka, with his mental power, broke the tortoise's wings.' (Valenzuela 1997)

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(3) Jisis-*in*-ra Sanke*man* bake natex-ke.
ischimi-ERG-EV Sanken:GEN child:ABS bite-CMPL
'The *ischimi* ant bit Sanken's child.'

(4) Cesar-*nin*-ra Maria-*nin* wai rera-ke machito-*nin*.
Cesar-ERG-EV Maria-GEN field:ABS fell.tree-CMPL machete-INST
'Cesar cleared Maria's field with a machete.' (Valenzuela 1997)

(5) Sabado-*nin*-ra e-a paboro-*nin* ka-kas-ai.
Saturday-TEMP-EV 1-ABS cove-ALL go-DES-INC
'On Saturday, I want to go to the cove.' (Valenzuela 1997)

The next examples show that SK case-markers are attached to the last word of the corresponding NP. Since the absolutive marker is zero, the ergative has been chosen to illustrate this claim; this case-marker occurs after a coordinated subject NP, a modified head noun, and a relative clause construction. Note also that the direct evidential *-ra* and the hearsay *-ronki* occur right after the first major constituent of the sentence (i.e., after the case-marked subjects):

(6) [Tita betan papa]-*n*-ra jato-n bake-bo ese-ai.
mother and father-ERG-EV 3p-GEN child-PL:ABS advise-INC
'The mother and the father advise their children.'

(7) [Wiso ino sina]*kan*-ronki joni rabé pi-ke.
black tiger fierce:ERG-HSY man two:ABS eat-CMPL
'It is said that the fierce black tiger ate the two men.'

(8) [Joni Kako-nko-ni-a-x nokó-ibat-a]-*tonin*-ra rono
man Caco-LOC-LIG-ABL-S meet:MID-PST2-PP2-ERG-EV snake:ABS

rete-ke.
kill-CMPL
'The man who arrived from Caco yesterday killed a snake.'

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The ergative pattern in SK is (in most cases) realized through a syntactically based case-marking system (see Dixon's distinction between semantically vs. syntactically based case-marking systems, 1994:23-5). That is, the marking of core arguments a verb requires has been grammaticalized based on the prototypical meaning of the verb, regardless of the actual instances of use. Therefore, the subjects of verbs such as 'kill,' 'overcome' or 'throw' will always be marked as ergative and their objects as absolutive, even if in particular instances of use the associated participants lack crucial agent or patient properties. The next examples involve non-volitional, non-human, inanimate agents; and frustrative clauses:

Non-volitional, non-controller, non-initiator agent

(9) Reokoo-xon-ra e-n jene xea-ke.
turn:MID-PSSA-EV 1-ERG flowing.water:ABS drink-CMPL
'Falling (from the canoe), I drank water.' (Valenzuela 1997)

Non-human agent

(10) Jiwi-n-ra Sani rishki-ke.
tree-ERG-EV Sani:ABS hit-CMPL
'The tree hit Sani.' (Valenzuela 1997)

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Inanimate agent

(11) Aros sako-n-ra e-a ares-ke.
rice sack-ERG-EV 1-ABS defeat-CMPL
'The sack of rice overcame me (with its weight).' (Valenzuela 1997)

Missed target:

(12) Roniman-ra to'-a-ti-nin ino kene-ke.
Wexá:ERG-EV ONOM:shooting-do.T-INF-INST jaguar:ABS miss-CMPL
'Wexá missed the jaguar with the shotgun.' (Valenzuela 1997)

8.1.2. Intraclausal Split-Ergativity

The ergative-absolutive alignment is retained with all types of nominals, moods, tense-aspect-modality combinations (except for certain periphrastic verb constructions), polarity values, and non-finite clauses. As mentioned earlier, there are instances of case-marking alternations that correlate with the definiteness, specificity or individuation of the object, but this strategy is not generalized. Nevertheless, there are two categories that obligatorily operate on a nominative fashion in simplex sentences: case-marking of emphatic pronouns and the verbal plural *-kan*. The former also differ in terms of the presence / absence of overt participant agreement morphology (see 8.1.2.3).

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8.1.2.1. Case-Marking of Emphatic Pronouns

As treated in 6.1.2, emphatic pronouns exhibit the *-n* form when referring to both A and S arguments, but the unmarked form when referring to an O argument; hence, case-marking on emphatic pronouns operates on a nominative-accusative basis. In the following sentences, already given in Chapter 6 as (6b) and (9), the emphatic pronoun exhibits the form *ja-n* in a detransitivized and a transitive clause, respectively:

(13) Tsoma-ra *ja-n*-bi-x chachí-ke.
Tsoma:ABS-EV 3-NOM-EM-S pinch:MID-CMPL
'Tsoma (himself) pinched himself.'

(14) Wesna-n-ra *ja-n*-bi rao xea-ke.
Wesna-ERG-EV 3-NOM-EM:A medicine:ABS drink-CMPL
'Wesna herself drank the medicine.'

An example of an emphatic pronoun referring to an object argument is given in (17).

8.1.2.2 The Verbal Plural *-Kan*

The verbal plural *-kan* also operates in a nominative fashion since it agrees with S and A arguments (see also 12.2.1):

(15) Ja-bo-ra pishiman yaká-*kan*-ke.
3-PL:ABS-EV rush.mat:LOC be.sitting-PL-CMPL
'They are sitting on the rush mat.'

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(16) Ja-baon-ra joni osan-*kan*-ai.
3-PL:ERG-EV person:ABS laugh.at-INC
'They are laughing at the man.'

8.1.2.3. Tripartite and Marked-S Distributions

In addition to the minor nominative-accusative patterns shown above, several types of participant agreement constructions operate on a non-ergative basis. For example, when comparing (13) and (14), it can be seen that only the emphatic pronoun in S function in (13) carries the overt participant agreement marker *-x*, whereas the A form in (14) is zero-marked. The sentence below (previously given in Chapter 6 as (10)) shows that also emphatic pronouns in O function carry zero participant agreement marking:

(17) Nato r-iki e-n piti be-á,
this EV-COP 1-ERG eat-INF:ABS bring-PP2:ABS

ja-bi moa bo-tan-we.
3:ACC-EM already carry-go.and.do-IMP
'This is the fish I have caught, you better take THIS home already (rather than continue waiting for your father who also went fishing).'

In sum, the overall distribution of emphatic pronouns is tripartite; the forms corresponding to the third person singular are: *janbix* for S, *janbi* for A and *jabi* for O. On the other hand, participant agreement in these instances exhibits a marked-S

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distribution through the markers *-x* for S versus *-0* for A / O). Participant agreement is dealt with in 8.3 and in Chapter 19.

8.2. Declarative Clause Types

The present section treats the basic transitivity types of declarative clauses found in SK: intransitive, extended intransitive, transitive, and ambitransitive. Clauses headed by cognate object verbs, prefixed verbs, and onomatopoeic verbs are also included. Finally, indefinite and desiderative clauses are dealt with.

8.2.1. Intransitive Clauses

Intransitive clauses are headed by intransitive or detransitivized verbs. Typically, an intransitive verb exhibts the following properties: it requires its single argument[1] to be marked absolutive; it imposes overt S agreement on ablative, life-stage, quantity and manner adjuncts as well as emphatic pronouns, and zero participant inflection on locative-allatives; it cannot take the middle, malefactive, or distributive suffixes; it requires the singular-intransitive forms of the suppletive andative and venitive pairs; it

[1] An argument of a verb or predicate is an (overtly expressed or not) obligatory complement (NP or adpositional phrase), whose semantic nature is imposed and restricted by that predicate.

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combines with detransitivized forms of phasal verbs and the intransitive auxiliary *ik-*; it may take the verbal modifier *-paket* 'going down (the river).'

Below I deal with inherently intransitive clauses, which can be subdivided into: copular, existential, and other types of intransitive clauses involving semantically inactive and active subject participants. Two distinct possessive constructions can be found under copular and existential clauses. For derived intransitive clauses see 7.4.3, 7.4.4, as well as Chapter 8.

8.2.1.1. Copular Clauses

In copular clauses the subject is marked absolutive and the complement remains unmarked (alternatively, it could be claimed that the complement occurs in the absolutive case). Below, I offer examples of defining, identificational, quality, locative, and possessive copular clauses. The copula element *iki*, based on the intransitive *ik-* 'do (intr.), be' occurs by itself or phonologically bound to the direct evidential *-ra* thus forming the word *-riki*: *-ra* + *iki* > *r-iki*. The copula *iki* has the same form with all grammatical persons, and it may precede or follow the predicate. In spontaneous discourse, the subject commonly occurs after the copula:

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Defining Clauses

(18) a. Ja-ra joni iki.
3/that.one:ABS-EV person COP

b. Ja r-iki joni.
3/that.one:ABS EV-COP person
'He / that one is a person.'

Identificational Clauses

(19) a. Ja r-iki Tsoma.
3/that.one:ABS EV-COP Tsoma

b. Ja-ra Tsoma iki.
3/that.one:ABS-EV Tsoma COP
'He / that one is Tsoma.'

Quality Clauses

(20) a. Ino-ra onsá yoina iki.
jaguar:ABS-EV dangerous animal COP

b. Ino r-iki yoina onsá.
jaguar:ABS EV-COP animal dangerous
'The jaguar is a dangerous animal.'

Locative Clauses

(21) a. Pitso-ra xobo naman iki.
parakeet:ABS-EV house under COP

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b. Pitso r-iki xobo naman.
parakeet:ABS EV-COP house under
'The parakeet is under the house.'

Possessive Clauses

Affirmative and negative possessive copular clauses carry, respectively, the morphemes *-ya* and *-oma* on the predicate nominal. There is no difference between alienable versus inalienable possession, or permanent versus temporary possession:

(22) E-a-ra radio-*ya* iki
1-ABS-EV radio-PROP COP
'I have a radio.'

(23) E-a-ra radio-*oma* *iki.*
1-ABS-EV radio-PRIV COP
'I don't have a radio.'

(24) E-a-ra rabé meken-*ya* / rabé meken-*oma* *iki.*
1-ABS-EV two hand-PROP two hand-PRIV COP
'I have two hands. / I don't have two hands.'

(25) Rabé paranta texkan-*ya* r-iki e-a.
two plantain large.bunch-PROP EV-COP 1-ABS
'I have two large bunches of plantain.'

(26) E-a rabé texkan paranta-*oma* iki.
1-ABS two large.bunch plantain-PRIV COP
'I don't have two large bunches of plantain.'

The following examples show the verb *ik-* 'be' bearing tense-aspect markers:

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(27) No-n papa Bari-ronki *i-pao-ni-ke* yawa iná-*ya*...
1p-GEN father Sun-HSY be-HAB-REM-CMPL w.l.peccary wild.animal-PROP
'Long ago our father Sun used to have white-lipped peccaries...'

(28) Bakish *i-yat-ai.*
one.day.from.today be-FUT1-INC
'It is going to take place tomorrow.'

The example immediately above was previously given in Chapter 7 as (76).

Some expressions denoting an illness are coded as possessive copular clauses (but cf. 'have diarrhea,' in ex. (40)):

(29) E-a-ra yoná-ya iki.
1-ABS-EV fever-PROP COP
'I have fever.'

A second type of possessive construction is described below, when dealing with Existential Clauses.

Verb-less Clauses

Clauses with a missing copula also occur in spontaneous discourse (see ex. (84) of Chapter 6):

(30) Ne-ke-a nete keská-ribi-ronki-ki ja jene meran.
PROX-LOC-ABL world SIML-also-HSY-HSY2 that flowing.water inside
'It is said that inside the water it is just like on this world.'

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In the example below, both clauses are verb-less:

(31) Xono raston, jato-n ponyan senen-ma.
lupuna broad 3p-GEN arm the.same-NEG
'The *lupuna* tree was too broad, their arms were not long enough (to embrace it).'

In addition, copular interrogative clauses are obligatorily verb-less and are marked by the dedicated interrogative *-ri(n)*.

8.2.1.2. Existential Clauses

Existential clauses are built upon the root *ja-* 'exist, live' and the negative existential *yama-*:

(32) Ne-ska-ra kopí icha moa-tian mawá *ja*-káti-ai.
PROX-SIML-*ra* because many already-TEMP dead.one:ABS exist-PST4-INC
'Because of this there were many deaths in those times.'

(33) Kikin-shaman jatíbi jawéki-ronki *ja*-ke.
extremely-nicely all thing:ABS-HSY exist-CMPL
'(She said that) there is absolutely everything (in the next life).'

The next sentence is the answer to the question 'Have you seen your niece?:'

(34) *Yama*-ra-ke, e-n-ra oin-a-ma iki.
exist.not-EV-CMPL 1-ERG-EV see-PP2-NEG AUX
'She is not here, I have not seen her.'

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(35) Benbo-n-a *yama*-katit-ai ja-n a-ti-ma jawéki-bo.
man-GEN-NMLZ exist.not-PST4-INC 3-ERG do.T-INF-NEG thing-PL:ABS
'There are no special restrictions for the husband to comply with (while his wife is pregnant).'

As indicated above, the existential *ja-* may also be translated as 'live:'

(36) Ne-no r-iki jakoinra *ja*-ti.
PROX-LOC EV-COP well:SSSS:INTENS live-INF
'This is a good place to live.'

Existential constructions also express possession:

(37) *Ja*-ke nokon rayos.
exist-CMPL POS1 son-in-law/man's.parent.in.law:ABS
'I have a son-in-law (lit. 'exists my son-in-law).'

The semantically generic intransitive *ik-* 'do (intr.), be' may be used with an existential sense:

(38) Reken-pari-ronki *i*-káti-ai westíora joni-ki, wano-oma-shoko,
first-yet-HSY do.I-PST4-INC one man:ABS-HSY2 wife-PRIV-DIM

ikaxbi-ki *i*-káti-ai ja tiempo-ki xopan ainbo-ki.
but-HSY2 do.I-PST4-INC that time-HSY2 *secana* woman:ABS-HSY2
'First there was a man, a single man, but there was in those times a *secana* (k. gourd) woman too.'

Ja- and *yama-* are also used to code deontic modality (see 7.13.2).

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8.2.1.3. Other Types of Intransitive Clauses

In SK there is no morpho-syntactic distinction between inactive and active intransitive verbs or clauses.[2] In both instances the subject is marked absolutive and, as will be shown in Chapters 16-17, both types of intransitives may take the same diathesis derivations.

The following examples illustrate clauses with intransitive verbs that take a patient subject.

Inactive Intransitive Clauses

(39) Mi-a-ra yaka-t-ai / nomi-ai / niskan-ai /
2-ABS-EV sitting.position-MID-INC be.thirsty-INC sweat-INC

oxa[a]i / xana-[a]i.
sleep-INC be.hot-INC
'You are sitting / thirsty / sweating / sleeping / hot.'

(40) E-a-ra chixot-ai.
1-ABS-EV have.diarrhea-INC
'I have diarrhea.'

Now consider the following instances of semantically active intransitive verbs:

[2] But see the descriptors *-mis*, *-kas*, and *-yosma*, which show a tendency to combine with active verbs (section 5.2.2).

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Active Intransitive Clauses

(41) Pena-ra sai ik-ai.
Pena:ABS-EV ONOM:cry.out.for.help do.I-INC
'Pena is crying out for help.'

(42) E-a-ra jiwi bochiki *nee*-ke bonko meran *jiki*-i.
1-ABS-EV tree up climb-CMPL foliage inside enter-SSSS
'I climbed up the tree hiding in the foliage.'

The next text example contains the following intransitive verbs: *ransa-* 'dance,' *rankó-* 'limp,' *bewa-* 'sing,' *be-* 'come (non-singular),' and *nashi-* 'bathe.' The subject of the main predicate *nashikana iki* is marked absolutive; the dependent verbs carry the simultaneous same-subject marker *-i* and the previous same-subject marker *-ax*, both indicating that their matrix clause subject is intransitive:

(43) ...jatíribi-bo ransa ransa-beiran-i, rankó rankó-beiran-i,
some-PL:ABS dance dance-VEN2-SSSS limp limp-VEN2-SSSS

bewa bewa-beiran-i; be-ax-ki kori jene-n
sing sing-VEN2-SSSS come.n.SG-PSSS-HSY2 gold water-OBL

nashi-kan-a iki.
bathe-PL-PP2 AUX
.'..some came dancing and dancing, limping and limping, singing and singing; once they had arrived, they bathed in the golden water.'

The venitive *-beiran* (rather than *-kiran*) is used above given that the subject is plural (see the distribution of Andatives and Venitives in 7.6.1 and 7.6.2).

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8.2.1.4. Clauses with Meteorological / Nature Verbs

Some meteorological / nature verbs occur in constructions involving the suppletive non-singular roots *be-* 'come (non-singular), bring' / *bo-* 'go (non-singular), carry:'

(44) a. Oi-ra be-ai.
rain:ABS-EV come.n.SG-INC
'It is raining / the rain is coming.'

b. Oi-ra bo-ai.
rain:ABS-EV go.n.SG-INC
'The rain is moving somewhere else / is stopping.'

(45) Jene-ra be-ai / bo-ai.
flowing.water:ABS-EV come.n.SG-INC go.n.SG-INC
'It is flooding, the water level is increasing / the water level is lowering.'

(46) Wakanawa-ronki be-ai / bo-ai.
school.of.fish:ABS-HSY come.n.SG-INC go.n.SG-INC
'The school of fish is approaching / is passing.'

8.2.2. Extended Intransitive Clauses

There are different types of two-argument or extended intransitive clauses. Verbs of 'happening' require an <ABS ABS> argument structure, verbs of emotion impose an <ABS -*ki*> frame, and verbs of 'lacking' occur in an <ABS OBL-*n*] frame. In addition, there are a couple of verbs that exhibit alternate frames: <ABS ABS> or <ABS INTRSS>.

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8.2.2.1. Verbs of 'Happening'

A couple of verbs such as *ik-* 'occur, happen' and *wino-t-* 'occur, happen, experience' take two absolutive-marked arguments:

(47) Kikin onis-ti-bires jawéki no-n axekan-bi-ribi
extremely be.sad-INF-purely thing:ABS 1p-GEN custom:OBL-EM-REP

no-a *ik-á.*
1p-ABS happen-PP2
'An extremely sad thing happened to us because of our custom.'

(48) Ja-ska-ra jawéki e-a *wino-t-a* *iki.*
That-SIML-*ra* thing:ABS 1-ABS pass-MID-PP2 AUX
'Such things I experienced / happened to me.'

8.2.2.2. Verbs of Emotion

With a handful of emotion verbs such as *bene-* 'be happy,' *sinat-* 'be angry,' and *shiro-* 'make fun,' experiencers are coded as absolutive-marked subjects while stimuli are marked by the dative *-ki.* Consider the following examples (see also ex. (97) of Chapter 7, and ex. (95) below):

(49) E-a-ra mi-ki bene-ai mi-n e-a a-xon-a kopí.
1-ABS-EV 2-DAT be.happy-INC 2-ERG 1-ABS do.T-BEN-PP2 reason
'I feel happy because of you, thanks to what you did for me.'

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(50) E-a-ra Yabi-ki sinat-ai.
1-ABS-EV Yabi-DAT be.angry-INC
'I am angry at Yabi.'

For some speakers it is possible to add a complement of interest to this type of clause, as shown in the example below:

(51) E-a-ra ino-ki (mi-on) raké-ke.
1-ABS-EV jaguar-DAT 2-INTRSS be.scared.of-CMPL
'I am scared of the jaguar (for you; i.e., because it may attack you).'

8.2.2.3. Verbs of 'Lacking'

The verbs *yoron-* 'suffer from the need / lack of' and *maxkat-* 'lack' take two arguments: the participant experiencing the need is coded as intransitive subject and hence marked absolutive, the lacking element occurs in the *-n* form, playing an argument function:

(52) No-*a*-ra jawekiati-*nin* yoron-ai.
1p-ABS-EV food-OBL suffer.from.need.of-INC
'We suffer from the lack of food.'

(53) Mawat-ax...no-*a* jawe-*n*-bi maxká-yama-ke....
die-PSSS 1p-ABS what-OBL-EM lack-NEG-CMPL
'When we die...we lack nothing....'

There is some evidence however suggesting that the case-marking on the object may actually depend on its pragmatic status (see ex. (132) and foonote 4).

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8.2.2.4. 'Be cold'

Unlike 'be hot' (ex. (39)) where *xana-* functions as predicate by itself and takes a single argument, 'be cold' is expressed by a basic extended intransitive construction in which the verb *ik-* 'do (intr.)' takes two arguments: an absolutive-marked subject coding the experiencer, and *matsi* 'cold' taking an oblique *-n* form. This is illustrated below:

(54) E-a-ra matsi-n ik-ai.
1-ABS-EV cold-OBL do.I-INC
'I am cold.'

Hence 'be cold' resembles extended intransitive 'verbs of lacking' with the difference that its second oblique-marked argument is invariably *matsin*.

8.2.2.5. Extended Intransitives Clauses with Alternate Case Frames

The verbs *keen-* 'want' and *shinanbenot-* 'slip the mind' require two arguments: an absolutive subject which codes the experiencer and a second argument coding the stimulus and bearing either absolutive or interessive case. These verbs exhibit an intermediate morpho-syntactic status between intransitives and transitives and are treated here as a type of extended intransitive.

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Valenzuela (1997) provides examples extracted from a narrative text about the 'Stingy Inka' suggesting that the case-marking alternation exhibited by the second argument of *keen-* may not be pragmatically significant. The sentence below lists what the animals wanted to obtain from the Stingy Inka: blood, bile, liver, and stomach; in this context, we can assume that all these props have the same discourse-pragmatic status. However, even within the same sentence, a second argument of *keen-* can be marked either interessive or absolutive:

(55) Ja-ska-ra ninkat-ax, [jawen *jimi-n*, tawi-*n*, *taka-n*,
that-SIML-*ra* hear-PSSS POS3 blood-INTRSS bile-INTRSS liver-INTRSS
stomach:ABS

poko, *ja-baon*] keen-i, be-kan-a iki, jatíbi
stomach:ABS 3-PL:OBL want-SSSS come.n.SG-PL-PP2 AUX all

yoina-bo.
animal-PL:ABS
'Hearing that, wanting his blood, bilis, stomach, all those, they came, all the animals.' (Bardales 1979:11-12, analyzed in Valenzuela 1997)

The next two examples belong to the same story and refer to technological innovations the Shipibo wanted to obtain from the Stingy Inka. While 'plantain' and 'fire' are marked interessive, 'pineapple' is marked absolutive:

(56) [*Paranta-nin*-ra] no-a keen-ai papá, no-n-ra atsa
plantain-INTRSS-EV 1p-ABS want-INC father:VOC 1p-ERG-EV yuca:ABS

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a-yama-ke, bona icha-yora i-ke-tian.
do.T-NEG-CMPL *isula*.ant much-INTENS:ABS do.I-P-DS
'We want plantain father, we didn't take the yuca because there were very many *isula* ants.' (Bardales 1979:15, analyzed in Valenzuela 1997)

(57) Bo-xon kankan yoká-ribi-kan-a iki:
go:PL-PSSA pineapple:ABS ask-REP-PL-PP2 AUX

"[*Kankan*-bicho-ressa] no-a keen-ai papá,"
pineapple:ABS-only-just:EV 1p-ABS want-INC father:VOC

a-kin a-kan-a iki.
do.T-SSSA do.T-PL-PP2 AUX
'Coming back, they asked (the Inka) for pineapple too: "At least we want pineapple, father," they told him.' (Bardales 1979:15, analyzed in Valenzuela 1997)

(58) Ja-tian-ronki ja Inka-bicho-res-ki chiia i-pao-ni-ke.
that-TEMP-HSY that Inka-only-just-HSY2 fire:PROP be-HAB-REM-CMPL

Ja chii-*kan*-kaya-ronki ikon-bi-res iki keen-kati-kan-ai
that fire-INTRSS-CONTRST-HSY true-EM-just AUX want-PST4-PL-INC
'In those times, the Inka was the only one who had fire. It is said that (they) really wanted the fire.' (Bardales 1979:15, analyzed in Valenzuela 1997)

However, when *keen-* is used with the sense of 'love,' the stimulus argument occurs in the interessive case necessarily. This feature might be related to the degree of animacy of the stimulus. Ex. (60) was partially introduced in Chapter 7 as (140):

(59) E-a-ra *mi-on* keen- ai. / *mi-a
1-ABS-EV 2-INTRSS want-INC
'I love you.'

(60) ...joni-shoko *mi-on* keen-ai-bi mi-a *ja-on* keen-yama-kin,
man-DIM:ABS 2-INTRSS want-SDS-EM 2-ABS 3-INTRSS want-NEG-SSSA

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mi-n pe-chi waste-n nashi-xon-ti atipan-ke.
2-ERG BACK-BUTTOCKS *piripiri*-INST bathe-MAL-INF:ABS can-CMPL
'Even if (that) little man loves you, if you don't love him you can bathe with the "*piripiri* to be left behind," to his detriment (i.e., to get rid of him).'

8.2.3. Transitive Clauses

8.2.3.1. Properties of Transitive Clauses

Transitive clauses are headed by inherent or derived transitive verbs. A transitive verb exhibits the following properties: it requires its subject and object to be marked ergative and absolutive, respectively; it imposes overt A agreement on locative / allative and manner adverbials, and triggers zero participant agreement inflection on ablatives and emphatic pronouns; it may take the dedicated malefactive applicative and the middle suffix *-t*; it requires the plural-transitive forms of the suppletive andative and venitive pairs; it combines with transitive forms of phasal verbs and may take the auxiliary *ak-*; it may take the distributive *-pake*.

In SK, omission of required subject or object is normally understood as a zero third person singular form, unless otherwise indicated by the context (Valenzuela 1997). Consider the examples in (61)-(62), taken from Valenzuela (1997):

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(61) a. Ja-n-ra e-a jamá-ke.
3-ERG-EV 1-ABS kick-INC
'(S)he kicked me.'

b. E-a-ra jamá-ke.
1-ABS-EV kick-CMPL.
'(S)he kicked me.'

(62) a. E-n-ra ja jamá-ke.
1-ERG-EV 3:ABS kick-CMPL
'I kicked him / her / it.'

b. E-n-ra jamá-ke.
1-ERG-EV kick-CMPL
'I kicked him / her / it.'

Sentence (62b) indeed designates an individuated, definite pronominal 'him / her / it,' since it is a valid answer to the question:

(63) Tso-n-ki nokon ochíti jamat-a?
who-ERG-INT POS1 dog:ABS kick-CMPL:INT
'Who kicked my dog?'

Besides contact and causation verbs, verbs of saying, cognition, and perception are morpho-syntactically treated as prototypical transitives. Below, the verb *yoi-* 'tell' takes an ergative subject and an absolutive object; furthermore, it triggers A agreement through the same-subject marker *-xon* on the dependent clause:

(64) ...noko-*xon*-ronki chaikoni joni-*n* yoiy-a iki ja joni...
find-PSSA-HSY chaikoni person-ERG tell-PP2 AUX that man:ABS
.'... after finding him, the *chaikoni* (people who now live on a different layer of reality) told the Shipibo man.'

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Transitive verbs of saying, cognition, and perception take clausal complements. This will be treated in 10.3.

8.2.3.2. Ditransitive Clauses

A subclass of transitive clauses are headed by verbs that take two semantically-obligatory objects (but recall that subject or object arguments may not be overtly expressed). Many languages have morpho-syntactic means of distinguishing between the direct object and the indirect object of a ditransitive verb, while another group of languages treat the two objects of a ditransitive verb alike. In SK there does not seem to exist any morpho-syntactic basis for grammatically distinguishing direct objects from indirect objects. In terms of case-marking, the patient and the recipient of a ditransitive verb such as *meni-* 'give' are both marked absolutive; to mark either the recipient or the patient with any oblique suffix would make the sentence ungrammatical. Consider the next text example:

(65) Tso-n-bira tita-shoko awá nami meni-a?
who-ERG-INFR mother-DIM:ABS tapir meat:ABS give-PP2
'Who could have given tapir meat to (our) grandmother?'

Furthermore, both objects can exchange positions without undergoing any morpho-syntactic change:

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(66) Tso-n-bira awá nami tita-shoko meni-a?
who-ERG-INFR tapir meat:ABS mother-DIM:ABS give-PP2
'Who could have given tapir meat to (our) grandmother?'

Further discussion is provided in section 12.3, when treating object properties. More ditransitive clauses involving inherently ditransitive verbs are provided below. Sentences (67) and (68) include the utterance verbs *yoká-* 'ask for' and *yoi-* 'tell;' whereas (69) and (70) include the verbs of giving *bane-* 'return' and *inan-* 'give as present:'

(67) Jato-n jawékiati keyó-ke-tian jo-á iki jawen awin e-a
3p-GEN food:ABS finish-P-DS come-PP2 AUX POS3 wife:ABS 1-ABS

paranta *yoká*-ti.
plantain:ABS ask.for-INF
'Once their food supplies were finished, his wife came to ask me for plantain.'

(68) ...bakish e-a *yoi*-iba-kan-ke meskó keská shinan.
one.day.away 1-ABS tell-PST2-PL-CMPL different SIML thinking:ABS
'Yesterday (during the meeting) people gave me all kinds of ideas.'

(69) Ino-n-ra xae jawen bichi kené-ya
jaguar-ERG-EV anteater-ABS POS3 fur design-PROP:ABS

bane-yama-ni-ke.
return-NEG-REM-CMPL
'The jaguar didn't return the anteater his designed fur.' (Valenzuela 1997)

(70) E-n-ra westíora koton nokon papa *inan*-ai.
1-ERG-EV one shirt:ABS POS1 father:ABS give.present-INC
'I am giving my father a shirt as a present.' (Valenzuela 1997)

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Ditransitive verbs can be derived from monotransitive ones (see Chapter 16 on Causativization and Chapter 17 on Applicativization).

8.2.4. Ambitransitive Clauses

Most SK verbs are inherently transitive or inherently intransitive and require explicit derivational morphology in order to change their valence. However, there is a limited set of verbs that can be used in transitive or intransitive clauses without formal marking of a change in transitivity. The actual transitivity status of these verbs in a given clause is recognized by the number of verb arguments, and through case-marking and other morpho-syntactic properties. An instance of such an ambitransitive verb is *mapet- ~ mapé-* 'go up (obliquely).' In the sentence provided below, *mapé-* takes a single absolutive-marked argument and is followed by a locative exhibiting S agreement:

(71) E-*a*-ra mapé-ke jene merano-a-x. / *e-n
1-ABS-EV go.up-CMPL flowing.water inside:LOC-ABL-S
'I came up from the water.'

Alternatively, *mapé-* can take a locative absolutive-marked object triggering ergative case-marking on its subject:

(72) E-*n*-ra *xobo* mapé-ke. / *e-a-ra
1-ERG-EV house:ABS go.up-CMPL
'I came up to the house.' (Lit. 'I came up the house.')

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The verb *bepo-* can also be used intransitively to convey the meaning 'have sleep in the eye' or transitively for 'cover somebody's eyes:'

(73) Nato bake-ra *bepo-ke*.
this child:ABS-EV have.sleep.in.the.eye-CMPL
'This child has sleep in his eyes.'

(74) E-n-ra bake *bepo-ke* nisakan.
1-ERG-EV child:ABS eye.cover-CMPL little.sticks/leaves:INST
'I covered the child's eyes with little sticks / leaves.'

A third ambitransitive verb is *beso-* 'awake, wake up' and also 'scrub somebody's face:'

(75) E-a-ra *beso*-ke.
1-ABS-EV wake.up-CMPL
'I woke up.'

(76) E-n-ra nokon bake *beso*-ke.
1-ERG-EV POS1 child:ABS face.scrub-CMPL
'I washed / scrubbed my child's face.'

Both verbs *bepo-* and *beso-* contain the body-part prefix *be-* derived from *bero* 'eye.'

Finally, the verb *maro-* translated into Spanish as 'sell, buy' takes two arguments but its subject may be marked either absolutive or ergative:

(77) E-a-ra chopa maro-ke.
1-ABS-EV clothes:ABS exchange-CMPL
'I bought / sold clothes.'

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(78) E-n-ra chopa maro-ke.
1-ERG-EV clothes:ABS exchange-CMPL
'I bought / sold clothes.'

8.2.5. Clauses with Cognate Object Verbs

Clauses with cognate object verbs exhibit distinct degrees of intermediate transitivity status. Cognate object verbs are those that take as their object a noun which does not contribute to the meaning of the sentence. The overt expression of their object tends to be more acceptable when these objects are somehow modified. In some of these cases, the modifiers contribute to the meaning of the clause, functioning rather like an adverbial (Levin 1993:95-6). The name "cognate object verbs" is due to the fact that the object is a noun-form of the verb (and thus "cognate"), or of a semantically-related verb. Cross-linguistically, clauses with cognate object verbs tend to conform to the agent-subject and patient-object syntactic case-marking pattern, thus resembling a transitive clause (Givón 1984:105). Here the notion of "cognate object verb" has been extended to instances where their object NPs are very restricted semantically and do not contribute to the meaning of the sentence, even though the verb roots and their objects are not genetically related. Some SK cognate object verbs are: *bake-n-* 'deliver (a baby),' *bewa-* 'sing,' *ae ik-* 'burp / belch,' *joti-* 'smoke,' *bekan-* 'spread (cotton),' *axa-n-* 'poison (fish),' *beax-* 'mix (the new yuca beer with the fermented one),' and *beten-* 'cook *beten* (kind of thick

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soup).' The examples below illustrate the use of these cognate object verbs with created objects.

Some cognate object verbs impose an <ABS ABS> case frame:

(79) Nokon awin-ra westiora benbo *bake-n-ke.*
POS1 wife:ABS-EV one male:ABS child-VBLZ-CMPL
'My wife gave birth to a baby boy.'

(80) Papa-shoko-ra mashá *bewai.*
father-DIM:ABS-EV *mashá*:ABS sing:INC
'Grandfather is singing a *mashá* (kind of traditional song).'

The sentences below show that a verb such as *ae ik-* 'burp, belch' does not allow an unmodified direct object:

(81) a. E-a-ra naranshi-*bires* *ae* *i-ke.*
1-ABS-EV pop.drink:ABS-purely ONOM:burp do.I-CMPL
'I burped pure pop drink.'

b. *E-a-ra naranshi *ae* *i-ke.*
1-ABS-EV pop.drink:ABS ONOM:burp do.I-CMPL
'I burped pop drink.'

Alternatively, some cognate object verbs impose an <ERG ABS> case frame:

(82) Tita-n-ra waxmen *bekan-ai.*
mother-ERG-EV cotton-ABS spread (cotton)-INC
'My mother is going to spread the cotton.'

(83) E-n-ra pichá, boe, moxo baton
1-ERG-EV *palometa*:ABS *boquichico*:ABS *lisa*-ABS

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axa-n-ke.
fish.poison-TRNZ-CMPL
'I poisoned *palometa*, *boquichico* and *lisa* fish.'

(84) E-n-ra wanin xeati *beax-ke.*
1-ERG-EV *pijuayo* drink:ABS mix.new.w/fermented.beer-CMPL
'I mixed the *pijuayo* (fruit of a palm tree, *Bactris gasipaes, Palmae*) beer.'

Another cognate object verb that imposes an <ERG ABS> case-frame is *beten-* 'cook *beten* (k. thick soup).' This verb root has the same form as the noun root *beten* 'k. of thick soup;' however, differently from other noun roots *beten-* has the peculiarity of being able to function as a transitive verb directly, without requiring any transitivization device:

(85) Tita-n-ra *beten-ke.*
mother-ERG-EV cook.*beten*-CMPL
'Mother cooked *beten* soup.'

As (85) shows, the root *beten-* by itself functions as a transitive verb, thus requiring its subject to be marked ergative. The same sentence with 'mother' marked absolutive instead of ergative is possible with the less likely meaning that a third person cooked mother. In the example below *beten-* takes a direct object:

(86) Tita-n-ra chaxo *beten-ke.*
mother-ERG-EV deer:ABS cook.*beten*-CMPL
'Mother cooked deer *beten.*'

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As mentioned above, clauses with cognate object verbs exhibit distinct degrees of intermediate transitivity status. I showed that *bake-n-* 'deliver a child,' *bewa-* 'sing' and *ae ik-* 'burp / belch' impose an <ABS ABS> case frame; on the other hand, verbs like *joti-* 'smoke,' *bekan-* 'spread cotton,' *axa-n-* 'poison fish,' *beax-* 'mix the new drink with the fermented one,' and *beten-* 'cook *beten* soup' call for an <ERG ABS> frame. Within the former group, *bewa-* 'sing' shows two idiosyncrasies: it can have an alternative <ABS OBL> case frame (as do some extended intransitives), and it can still take the malefactive applicative, generally restricted to transitives:

(87) E-a-ra shiro bewa*kan* bew-ai.
1-ABS-EV love.song:OBL sing-INC
'I am going to sing a love song.'

The context for the next sentence is that of a non-traditional competition where participants take turns to sing different songs:

(88) Mi-n-ra e-a i-kas-ai bewá-ribi mi-n-pari e-a
2-ERG-EV 1-ABS do.I-DES-INC song:ABS-also 2-ERG-first 1-ABS

bewa-*naan*-ke.
sing-MAL-CMPL
'You sang first the same song I wanted to sing (to my detriment).'

Clauses with cognate object verbs imposing an <ERG ABS> frame show almost all properties of transitive clauses, except for the impossibility of the verb taking the middle and reciprocal suffixes. An exception is *beten-* which can take the middle to become

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betemee- with the extremely unusual meaning 'turn into *beten* (k. thick soup)' (Valenzuela 1997).

8.2.6. Clauses with Prefixed Verbs

SK has a set of prefixes that refer to parts of the body and are usually formed by taking the first syllable of the correspondent nouns (see 6.2.6). These body-part prefixes productively combine with a set of intransitive and transitive verbs typically adding adverbial information, especially a locative relationship, with respect to the particular body-part; the meaning of the resulting stems is largely predictable. Hence body-part prefixes do not occupy an argument slot and the resulting verb forms generally keep the transitivity value of its base. Most clauses with prefixed verbs can be analyzed as obligatory "possessor raising" constructions, where the possessor is coded as a core argument while the possessed body-part functions as oblique.

There does not seem to exist a single criterion to distinguish verbs that take body-part prefixes from those that do not. However, this class of verbs might be accounted for by considering a cluster of meaning components, such as contact, motion / position, causation, and (change of) state. Some verbs exhibit a shortened root form when prefixed. Therefore, in these cases the verb stem is composed of a body-part prefix and a reduced verb root. A list of body-part prefixes was provided in 6.2.6.

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Intransitive roots

a) (Change of) State: *be-* < bero 'eye' + *jotit-* 'have a tic'

(89) E-a-ra *be*-otit-ai.
1-ABS-EV EYE-have.a.tic-INC
'I have a tic in the eye.' (Valenzuela 1997)

b) Motion / Position: *ne-* < jene 'flowing water' + *ni-* 'stand'

(90) Ja ani jema tenaman-ronki ik-á iki westíora jiwi kikin icha
that big village at.shore-HSY do.I-PP2 AUX one tree:ABS very many

bimi-ya *ne*-ni-t-a.
fruit-PROP WATER-stand-EP-PP2
'On the shore of the large village there was a tree full of fruit standing in the water.'

te- < *texkan* 'large bunch (e.g., of plantain)' + *piko-t* 'come out'

(91) Ja ani wai-nko moa xawi-bo wira-[a]x ik-ai-tian,
that large chacra-LOC already sugarcane-PL:ABS become.fat-PSSS do.I-S-DS

paranta *te*-piko-t-ai-tian, nokon tita-n
plantain:ABS LARGE.BUNCH-take.out-MID-S-DS POS1 mother-ERG

chopa-a-kin senen'-a iki.
clothes-do.T-SSSA edge-do.T-PP2 AUX
'When in the large chacra the sugarcanes were already becoming thick and the plantain was coming out in large bunches, my mother finished manufacturing the clothes.'

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c) Emotion: *xe-* < *xeta* 'tooth' + *rabin-* 'be embarrassed at'

(92) Piko-ra *xe*-rábin-ai.
Piko:ABS-EV TOOTH-be.embarrassed.at-INC
'Piko is embarrassed at his teeth.'

Transitive roots: *ta-* < tae 'foot' + *nexa-* 'tie'

(93) ...ja ochíti no-n mecha-a-kas-ai-bo-ki yatan-ti iki
that dog:ABS 1p-ERG good.hunter-do.T-DES-PP1-PL-HSY2 hold-INF AUX

nishi-n, *ta*-nex-nonxon.
rope-INST FEET-tie-FSSA
.'..the dogs we want to make good hunters must be held with a rope, tying them by the feet.' (Valenzuela 1997)

na- < *napo* 'interior' + *tsaka-* 'spear' (ex. (31) from Ch. 4 is repeated below)

(94) Ka-kin no-n *na-tsá'* *na-tsá*-bain-a iki,
go-SSSA 1p-ERG INTERIOR-spear INTERIOR-spear-AND2-PP2 AUX

na-tsá' *na-tsá*-bain-a iki.
INTERIOR-spear INTERIOR-spear-AND2-PP2 AUX
'While going (up the river) we kept on spearing (arrows) into the water.'

Some body-part prefixes are used with a less literal meaning; for example, *ma-* from *mapo* 'head' is also used as 'surface, top.' An example with *ke-* is given below:

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ke- < *kexá* 'mouth, lips;' also 'edge' + *sika-* 'paint, put something liquid'

(95) ...mi-ki ainbo sinat-ai-tian, mi-n jawen chitonti xeni-n
2-DAT woman:ABS get.angry-S-DS 2-ERG POS3 pampanilla fat-INST

ke-ski-nan-a, ja ainbo tsini-ti
MOUTH-put.liquid-MAL-PO>S/A that woman:ABS become.promiscuous-INF

ka-[a]i.
go-INC
.'..if a woman gets angry at you, you put (river dolphin's) fat on the edge of her *pampanilla* and then she will start having sex with any man.'

Although uncommon, a body-part prefix may co-occur with a body-part noun in locative function:

(96) Nokon ochíti-ra jawen *jina*-nko *ji*-natex-ke.
POS1 dog:ABS-EV POS3 tail-LOC TAIL-bite-CMPL
'My dog bit its (own) tail.'

(97) Tsoma-n-ra Rona (*meken*-ki) *me*[3]-tsó a-ke.
Tsoma-ERG-EV Rona:ABS hand-DAT HAND-ONOM:kiss do.T-CMPL
'Tsoma kissed Rona on the hand / kissed Rona's hand.'

As treated in 2.2.6, in SK words tend to bear primary stress on the first syllable unless the second syllable is heavy. Nevertheless, many verb roots whose first syllable is light retain their original stress when prefixed (i.e., stress does not migrate to the first syllable as would be expected), and hence it can be said that the verb stem is not treated as a prosodic word:

[3] Some speakers treat the verb *be-tsó-* [FACE-ONOM:kiss] as an unanalyzable element meaning 'kiss' and do not accept the form *me-tsó-*.

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na-yásan- [INTERIOR-'to seat'] 'put something in the interior of:'

(98) Ja-tian ani nonti-n westíora chomo *na-yásan*-kan-ai.
that-TEMP big caneo-LOC one jar:ABS INTERIOR-seat-PL-INC
'Then, they put (sit) a jar in the interior of a big canoe."

In some instances the stress on the second light syllable appears to compensate for the loss of segmental material (see also example (94) containing *na-tsá-*). Compare the stress of the following pair of stems involving the root *choka-* 'wash' and its middle-marked form *chokii(t)-* 'wash oneself'(for illustrative purposes, stress on the body-part prefixed verbs below is indicated even when words follow the stress rule):

ra- < *yora* 'body' + *choka-* 'wash'

(99) ra-chó- 'wash someone's body'
rá-chokii(t)- 'wash one's own body'

An analogous situation is found in the next sentence; while *jan-tsé-* which includes a shortened form of *tseka-* bears the stress on the root, in *ja-nia-* the stress is found on the body-part prefix:

ja(n)- < *jana* 'tongue' + *tseka-* 'take out' and *nia-* 'introduce, keep'

(100) Jainoa-ki ja joni-n, bimi *jan*-tsé-ti shinan-kin,
there:LOC:ABL-HSY2 that man-ERG fruit TONGUE-take.out-INF think-SSSA

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jawen metoti iso *ja*-nia-a iki.
POS3 finger:ABS spidermonkey:ABS TONGUE-introduce-PP2 AUX
'Then, planning to take the fruit out of the spidermonkey's mouth, the man introduced his finger in its mouth.' (Valenzuela 1997, Ministerio de Educación and ILV 1982:4)

But there are also instances where the root keeps both its segmental integrity and its original stress. The verb forms below include the incompletive marker *-ai*:

(101) *rabin-ai* 'be embarrassed at' > *xe-rábinai* 'feel embarrased at one's teeth'
kewé-ak-ai 'embroider' > *pe-kewé-ak-ai* 'embroider the back (of a man's shirt)'

As mentioned earlier, once the body-part has been prefixed, the resulting verb generally keeps the transitivity value of the basic root; however, there are exceptions to this rule. In the following example, the intransitive root *ik-* 'do (intr.)' becomes transitive when taking the body-part prefix *ma-*, as indicated by the ergative marker on its subject and the presence of the absolutive-marked second argument *panyon*:

ma- < *mapo* 'head' + *ik-* 'do (intr.), be' 'put something on one's own head'

(102) [E-*n* panyon *ma*-i-ke-tian]-ra, e-a joni-baon
1-ERG kerchief:ABS HEAD-do.I-P-DS-EV 1-ABS person-PL:ERG

osan-ke.
laugh.at-CMPL
'When I put a kerchief on my head people laughed at me.' (Valenzuela 1997, Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:241)

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Generally the transitive action is performed on a non-coreferential participant (i.e., the subject is not the owner of the body-part), as in *ki-pas-* 'pad someone's thigh;' however, with some verbs such as *ki-pish-* 'to have one's own thigh joint dislocated,' the subject and the owner of the body-part are co-referential (see also ex. (102)):

(103) ki-pas- [*ki-* THIGH + *patsa-* 'pad') 'pad somebody's thigh'
ki-pish- [*ki-* THIGH + *pisha-* 'unhook') 'have one's own thigh joint dislocated'

Since both verb roots, *pisha-* and *patsa-* are transitive, there is no clue as to whether the action of the resultative stem will be performed reflexively or on a non-coreferential participant.

There are also combinations of two body-part prefixes and a root, two body-part prefixes without any verb root, a body-part prefix and an onomatopoeic root, etc. Below, two body-part prefixes coding location are attached to the same verb:

(104) Pake-t-ax-ki
drop-MID-PSSS-HSY2

chi-chá-yaka-*kain*-a iki.
BUTTOCKS-TWO.LEGS-sitting.position.I:MID-AND1-PP2 AUX
'When she fell to the ground she fell on her buttocks.'

The next example containing two body-part prefixes is particularly interesting; while *ma-* HEAD codes location, *me-* HAND codes instrument:

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(105) Rima-mea-x jo-xon-ra papa-shoko-n jawen baba-bo
Lima-LOC:ABL-S come-PSSA-EV father-DIM-ERG POS3 grandchild-PL:ABS

ma-me-pas-ke.
HEAD-HAND-pass-CMPL
'Returning from Lima, grandfather patted his grandchildren's heads.'
(Valenzuela 1997; Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:241-2)

In the next sentences the predicate carries two body-part prefixes but no verbal root. Note that while the functions of *pe-* and *chi-* in (105) seem straightforward, the function of *chi-* in (106) is not obvious:

(106) Ja-ra pe-chi-ke.
3:ABS-EV BACK-BUTTOCKS-CMPL
'He is turning his back on someone.' (the SK sentence is monovalent)

(107) a. E-n-ra jasin tsaka-kin kene-ke, wetsa-ori-res
1-ERG-EV *paujil*:ABS shoot-SSS miss-CMPL other-by-just

me-chi-xon.
HAND-BUTTOCKS-PSSA
'Shooting the arrow towards the wrong point, I missed the *paujil* (kind of wild turkey).' (Valenzuela 1997; Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:257)

b. Ja-ra neno me-chi-ke.
3:ABS-EV here HAND-BUTTOCKS-CMPL
'She moved his hand towards here.'

The root *me(e)-* 'hand' can function as a verb by itself with the meaning 'touch, do something negative to somebody (generally but not necessarily using the hands).' This is illustrated through example (108):

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(108) Kinan-a pekáo moa, jakiribi moa semana pia
vomit-PP2 after already again already week arrow:ABS

me-yama[-a] pekáo, no-a ka-ríba-a iki.
HAND-NEG-PP2 after 1p-ABS go-REP-PP2 AUX
'After throwing up (the plant preparation to become a good fisher / hunter) and after not having touched an arrow for a week, we went (to fish) again.'

8.2.7. Clauses with Onomatopoeic Verbs

A number of SK verbs consist of an onomatopoeic root in combination with the auxiliaries *ik-* 'do (intr.)' and *ak-* 'do (tr.)' thus heading intransitive and transitive clauses, respectively (see also Double Auxiliarization in 4.7). Let us examine a few examples:

xonxin ik- 'whistle' vs. *xonxin ak-* 'whistle at'

(109) a. Tsoma-ra *xonxin* *i*-ke.
Tsoma:ABS-EV ONOM do.I-CMPL
'Tsoma whistled.'

b. Tsoma-n-ra ainbo *xonxin* *a*-ke.
Tsoma-ERG-EV woman:ABS ONOM do.T-CMPL
'Tsoma whistled at the woman.'

teash ik- 'break (intr.) producing a noise'
teash ak- 'break sth. by stepping on it and making it produce a noise'

(110) Xena-ra bochiki-a-x pake-t-i *teash* *i*-ke.
worm:ABS-EV up-ABL-S drop-MID-SSSS ONOM do.I-CMPL
'Falling from upwards, the worm died producing a noise.' (Valenzuela 1997)

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(111) E-n-ra xena *teash* *a*-ke.
1-ERG-EV worm:ABS ONOM do.T-CMPL
'I stepped on the worm producing a noise.' (Valenzuela 1997)

In (111) and (112) the meanings 'died' and 'stepped' are completely inferred. Literally, these sentences could be translated as 'Falling from upwards, the worm produced a noise "teash" (dying);' and, 'I caused the worm to produce a noise "teash" (by stepping on it).'

tii ik- 'the horn blows' vs. *tii ak-* 'blow a horn'

(112) a. Moa-ra *tii* *i*-ke.
already-EV ONOM do.I-CMPL
'(The horn) blew already.' (Valenzuela 1997)

b. E-n-ra moa *tii* *a*-ke.
1-ERG-EV already ONOM do.T-CMPL
'I made the horn blow already.' (Valenzuela 1997)

jojó ik- 'bark' vs. *jojó ak-* 'bark at'

The next example has been extracted from a traditional type of discourse used when treating a dog with plant medicine to make it become a good hunter:

(113) ...mi-n *jojó* *a*-yama-[a]i-tian-ra e-n mi-a
2-ERG ONOM:bark do.T-NEG-S-DS-EV 1-ERG 2-ABS

rao-n-ribi-ai, mecha ochíti ik-ai kaman!
plant.medicine-TRNZ-REP-INC good.hunter dog do.I-PP1 until
'If you do not bark (at animals) I will treat you with plant medicine again, until you become a good-hunter dog.' (being told to a dog while "curing" it)

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biski ik- 'shake oneself' vs. *biski ak-* 'shake something'

(114) Ochíti jene-nko pota-kan-a mapet-ax-a
dog water-LOC throw-PL-PO>S/A go.up.obliquely-PSSS:EV

biski *biski* *ik*-ai.
ONOM:shake ONOM:shake do.I-INC
'The dog that was thrown into the water climbed up (to the land) and is shaking.' (Valenzuela 1997)

(115) Tita-n-ra paranta xea-ti biski biski ak-ai.
mother-ERG-EV plantain drink-INF:ABS ONOM:shake ONOM:shake do.T-INC
'Mother is beating the plantain drink.' (Valenzuela 1997)

mox ik- 'creak' vs. *mox ak-* 'chew'

(116) Ronon ewa-n peká-ronki mox ik-ai no-n jamat-a.
boa-GEN back:ABS-HSY ONOM do.I-INC 1p-ERG step.on-PO>S/A
'It is said that the boa's back creaks if we step on it.' (Valenzuela 1997; Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:274)

(117) E-n-ra paranta xoo mox a-ke.
1-ERG-EV plantain raw:ABS ONOM do.T-CMPL
'I chewed the raw plantain.' (Valenzuela 1997)

An onomatopoeic verb containing the intransitive auxiliary may function as reflexive when the subject is human; e.g., *to' ak-* 'shoot' vs. *to' ik-* 'suicide, shoot oneself,' *me-tsó ak-* 'kiss someone on the hand' vs. *me-tsó ik-* 'kiss oneself on the hand.' Preceding the onomatopoeic element *tsó*, the verba forms *me-tsó ak- / ik-* bear the body-

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part prefix *me-* 'on the hand' (in order to say 'kiss on the face' *be-tsó* would be used instead).

There is a subset of verbs involving a short direct quote working as lexical root:

"kawé" ak- 'take someone somewhere' vs. *"kawé" ik-* 'say good-bye, leave'

(118) a. E-n mi-a "ka-wé" ak-ai
1-ERG 2-ABS go-IMP do.T-INC
'I am taking you.' (Lit. 'I am telling you "go!"'). (Valenzuela 1997)

b. Ja-ra "ka-wé" ik-ai moa.
3:ABS-EV go-IMP do.I-INC already
'He is leaving.' (Lit. 'He is saying "go!" already'). (Valenzuela 1997)

"kai" ak- 'say good-bye to somebody leaving'
"kai" ik- 'say good-bye when leaving'

(119) a. Ja-n-ra moa no-a "ka-[a]i" ak-ai.
3-ERG-EV already 1p-ABS go-INC do.T-INC
'He is saying "good-bye!" to us already.' (Valenzuela 1997)

b. Ja-ra moa "ka-[a]i" ik-ai.
3:ABS-EV already go-INC do.I-INC
'He is saying "good-bye!" already.' (Valenzuela 1997)

"bewé" ak- 'ask / order someone to bring something'

(120) E-n-ra "be-wé" a-ke yami rabé.
1-ERG-EV bring-IMP do.T-CMPL ax two:ABS
'I ordered (him / her) to bring the two axes.' (Lit. 'I told (him / her) "bring!" the two axes'). (Valenzuela 1997)

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"iráke" ak- 'thank someone'

(121) E-n-ra mi-a "iráke" ak-ai mi-n e-a a-kin-a kopí.
1-ERG-EV 2-ABS thanks do.T-INC 2-ERG 1-ABS do.T-ASSOC-PP2 reason
'I thank you for your help.'

Combinations of onomatopoeic roots and semantically generic verbs or auxiliaries are a productive strategy for coining new words in SK. For example: *chaka chaka a-ti* [ONOM do.T-INF] 'sowing machine.'

8.2.8. Desiderative Clauses

The addition of the desiderative suffix *-kas* to a transitive verb might result in a case-marking change on the subject from ergative to absolutive (desiderative clauses involving the verb *keen-* are treated in 10.3.1). This case-marking change can be accounted for by Hopper and Thompson's (1980) notion of clause-level transitivity, according to which desiderative clauses rank lower in transitivity than the prototypical transitive ones. This decrease of transitivity responds to the fact that a desiderative clause violates all the semantic principles of a prototypical transitive clause, since it refers to an irrealis non-action, with a non-agent subject, and a non-affected patient. It can also be added that a

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desiderative clause, unlike a non-desiderative one, encodes a non-implicative proposition.[4]

(122) *E-n* *onan*-shaman-yama-ke o-ri-bo.
1-ERG know-INTENS-NEG-CMPL DIST-about-PL:ABS
'I don't know those (places) well.'

(123) Tashi-nko-ronki metsá iki, ja kopí-ra *e-a* *onan-kas*-ai.
salt-LOC-HSY beautiful COP that reason-EV 1-ABS know-DES-INC
'I heard that it is beautiful the place where the salt is, therefore I want to know it.'

Exceptions to this rule have been documented in Valenzuela (1997, 2000b). For example, the subject in the following sentence might retain the ergative marker if the object 'fish' is definite (particularly, if the fish in question can be seen by the speech-act participants at the moment of utterance); by contrast, the subject might be marked absolutive if 'fish' is non-individuated or not in sight:

(124) a. E-*a*-ra yapa pi-kas-ai.
1-ABS-EV fish:ABS eat-DES-INC
'I want to eat fish.'

b. E-*n*-ra yapa pi-kas-ai.
1-ERG-EV fish:ABS eat-DES-INC
'I want to eat the fish (e.g., that is on the table).'

[4] Complementarily, absolutive case-marking on the subject could be accounted for from a diachronic perspective. As mentioned in 3.2.2.2, the desiderative suffix most probably originated from the descriptor -*kas* which derives adjectives from verbs, and hence desiderative clauses might have developed from nominalized constructions.

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The difference in the case-marking frame of the sentences above is compatible with Hopper and Thompson's claim that clauses with highly individuated objects rank higher in transitivity than those with non-individuated ones (see 15.1-15.2).

Roughly the same principle is found in the two following text examples. In (125) the subject of *yoikasai* is marked ergative in correlation with a definite highly individuated object:

(125) *E-n*-ra mato moa-tian joi-bo yoi-kas-ai, nokon
1-ERG-EV 2p:ABS already-TEMP word-PL:ABS tell-DES-INC POS1

papa-shoko-n e-a oxe napon yaká-xon yoi-katit-ai-bo.
father-DIM-ERG 1-ABS moon in.the.middle.of sit-PSSA tell-PST4-PP1-PL:ABS
'I want to tell you the old stories that my grandfather used to tell me when we sat together in the moonlight.'

In the next example, the speaker refers to her adoptive son's desire of finding a *mestizo* girlfriend; he has no particular woman in mind, which coincides with the presence of absolutive case-marking on the subject:

(126) Nokon onan bake-ra ik-á iki universidain kirika ak-í.
POS1 adoptive child:ABS-EV be-PP2 AUX university:LOC book do.T-SSSS

Ja-tian *bake* ik-á iki nawa merati a-kas-i.
that-TEMP child:ABS be-PP2 AUX *mestizo* girlfriend:ABS do.T-DES-SSSS
'My adoptive son was studying at the university. Then he wanted to have a *mestizo* girlfriend.'

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8.2.9. Indefinite Clauses

8.2.9.1. Affirmative Indefinite Clauses

Affirmative clauses with indefinite subjects contain the appropriate interrogative pronoun and the clitic *-bira* (with inferential, probabilitive, and approximative functions). The latter usually falls on the verb *ik-* 'do (intr.), be' or on a focused element in the sentence:

(127) *Tso-a*-ra sai i-*bira*-[a]i.
who-ABS-EV ONOM:cry.out.for.help do.I-INFR-INC
'Somebody is crying out for help.'

(128) Nokon poi-ra beno-ai *tso-betan-bira.*
POS1 sister:ABS-EV marry-INC who-COM-INFR
'My sister will marry somebody.' (man speaking)

(129) *Tso-a*-ra jema-n rario-nin-*bira* yometso-ke.
who-ABS-EV village-GEN radio-OBL-INFR become.thief-CMPL
'Somebody stole the village's radio.'

(130) *Tso-n*-ra jema-n koshi-*bira* rishki-ke.
who-ERG-EV village-GEN chief:ABS-INFR hit.w/pole-CMPL
'Somebody hit the village chief (with a pole).'

(131) Kesiman-ra e-a bo-ma-iba-ke westíora
Kesin:ERG-EV 1-ABS carry-CAUS-PST2-CMPL one

jawe-bira-ribi....
what:ABS-INFR-also
'Kesin sent me something....'

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8.2.9.2. Negative Indefinite Clauses

Negative indefinite clauses also contain interrogative pronouns, commonly followed by the emphatic clitic *-bi*; the (main) verb occurs in the negative. It is also common to hear the Spanish conjunction *ni* 'neither' preceding the interrogative pronoun.

(132) Ka-xon oin-a iki jatíbi jawéki, moa *jawe*[5]*-bi* maxká-*yama*-[a]i...
go-PSSA see-PP2 AUX all thing:ABS already what-EMP miss-NEG-INC
'After having gone there I saw everything, nothing was missing...'

(133) Ja no-n joné meratibo *tso-n* onan-*yama*-[a]i.
that 1p-GEN hidden lover-PL:ABS who-ERG know-NEG-INC
'Nobody knows (about) our secret lovers.'

(134) Ja-ská-ribi *jawe-tian-bi* no-n ponsen pi-*[y]ama*-[a]i.
that-SIML-also what-TEMP-EM 1p-ERG sloth:ABS eat-NEG-INC
'Likewise, we never eat sloth.'

(135) *Jawe-keská* a-xon-*bi* pota-ma-ti atipan-*yama*-ke
what-SIML do.T-PSSA-EM leave-CAUS-INF can-NEG-CMPL

jawen keen i-ke-tian.
POS3 will be-P-DS
'There is no way I can make her leave him since it is her will (to be with him).'

(136) E-a-ra moa *jawe-keskat-ax-bi* ka-*yama*-[a]i!
1-ABS-EV already what-SIML-S-EM go-NEG-INC
'There is no way I am going (back)!'

[5] Note that in this example the second argument of *maxká-* is marked absolutive instead of oblique as expected from verbs of 'lacking.' This case-marking alternation may be associated to the low degree of specificity of the object.

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8.3. Participant Agreement

In SK (and other Panoan languages) certain adjuncts, nominals in adjunct function, and adjunct clauses exhibit special inflectional morphology in accordance with the syntactic function of the (matrix) clause subject. This typologically salient feature of Panoan grammar (previously described in terms of transitivity agreement; but see discussion in 15.3, 19.2.1 and 19.2.2, as well as examples (142a-b)), seems in contradiction with one generally proposed criterial property for adverbiality; i.e., invariability of form, or at least absence of inflectional morphology.[6] Participant agreement (hereafter also PA) can be analyzed at the intraclausal and interclausal levels. In this section, I deal with intraclausal PA only, whereas interclausal PA is treated in 9.1. In addition, Chapter 19 is devoted to the treatment of this particularly interesting feature.

In monoclausal constructions, place, manner, life-stage and quantity adjuncts as well as nominals in these functions exhibit different endings depending on the function of the participant they predicate about (see also emphatic pronouns in 6.1.2). Time expressions are not sensitive to PA distinctions (Valenzuela 1999:358).

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[6] In some aboriginal Australian languages adverbials or adverbial-like elements agree in case with the arguments they modify (Austin 1988 and 1995, Austin & Bresnan 1996, Goddard 1983:56-61). However, at least some of the languages in question are of the so-called "non-configurational" kind and thus case on non-subjects, which in these languages are the same as the regular case-markers, can be analyzed as instances of case agreement of modifiers with their head nouns (Givón 1990:886, see also Valenzuela 1999:366-8). On the other hand, in Maori, manner adverbial particles agree in voice with the verb (Bauer 1993:92).

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8.3.1. Locative-Allative Adjuncts

The following examples show that locative-allative adjuncts carry the additional marker *-xon* when they are semantically oriented towards an A participant (ex. (138)); with intransitive predicates the adjunct is necessarily oriented towards the S participant and no additional marking is required or possible (ex. (137)):

(137) Bake-ra *xobo-n* tsini-ai. / **xobo-n-xon*
child:ABS-EV house-LOC play-INC
'The child is playing at home.' (Valenzuela 1999:358)

(138) Jatian ja bake-n-a ainbaon *jawen bene-n*
that-TEMP that child-TRNZ-PP2 woman:ERG POS3 husband-GEN

xobo-n-xon bake-shoko ani-a-[a]i. / **xobo-n*
house-LOC-A child-DIM:ABS (become)big-do.T-INC
'Then, the woman who delivers a baby raises the little child in her husband's house.'

8.3.2. Ablative Adjuncts

On the other hand, ablative adjuncts in non-copular intransitive clauses require the agreement marker *-x* indicating their semantic orientation towards the S participant (139); when ocurring in copular clauses ablatives do not carry any additional marker since in these instances they function as adjectival modifiers (ex. (140)). Ablatives in transitive

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clauses are necessarily O-oriented, and hence they exhibit no overt PA marking in these instances either (ex. (141)):

(139) Jaino-a-x bewa-kan-ai ja iná
there:LOC-PDC-S sing-PL-INC that animal:ABS

tsak[a]-ainko-ni-a-*x*...
shoot.w/arrow-LOC:LOC-LIG-ABL-S
'Then, they sang from (the place) where they shot at the animal...'

(140) Ma-péken-xon oin-a iki xoxo bake-bo *nai-kamea* ik-ai.
head-uncover-PSSA see-PP2 AUX illegitimate.child-PL sky-LOC:ABL be-INC
'Uncovering them, (he) saw the illegitimate children that were from the sky.'

(141) Jain-xon moa nokon papa-n yoa-bo tsinki-a ik-á iki
there-PDCA already POS1 father-ERG crop-PL:ABS gather-PP2 be-PP2 AUX

wai-nko-ni-a.
chacra-LOC-LIG-ABL:O
'By that time, my father had already gathered the crops from the chacra.'

The following examples more clearly illustrate that the inflectional markers in question signal an orientation of the adjunct towards one of the clausal arguments. Consider (142a-b) showing that a transitive clause may take different inflections on the adjunct:

(142) a. E-n -ra *kachio-kea* ninká-ke.
1-ERG-EV in.the.forest-ABL:O hear-CMPL
'I heard it from the forest.' (the noise came from the forest)

b. E-n-ra *kachio-xon* ninká-ke.
1-ERG-EV in.the.forest-A hear-CMPL
'I heard it from the forest.' (I was in the forest)

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8.3.3. From Place Adjuncts to Conjunctions

Place adjuncts based on the locative demonstrative *jain* 'there' and carrying the agreement markers introduced above are also employed as conjunctions at different levels (see *jainoax*, *jainxon*, and *jainoa* as intersentential conjunctors in exx. (36), (110), and (121) of Chapter 7, and in exx. (141) and (95) of the present chapter; see also *jainoax* as intrasentential conjunctor in ex. (169) of Chapter 6, and ex. (47) of Chapter 7).

8.3.4. Quantity and Manner Adjuncts

Most quantity and manner adjuncts may receive overt S or A agreement marking. Thus consider the following examples with the root *jatik ~ jatí*, 'altogether, all:'

(143) Ja-ská-ke-tian, *jatik-ax*-bi bo-kan-a iki, neet-i.
that-SIML-P-DD altogether-S-EM go.n.SG-PL-PP2 AUX go.up-SSSS
'Then, they started to go up altogether.' (Valenzuela 1999:362)

(144) Jain-xon-ronki nami yoá a-káti-kan-ai *jatí-xon*-bi pi-ti.
there-PDCA-HSY meat:ABS cook-PST4-PL-INC altogether-A-EM eat-INF
'Then they cooked the meat in order to eat altogether.' (Valenzuela 1999:362)

Exx. (145) and (146) show that 'well,' which has the same root as the adjective 'good,' can take two alternative sets of S and A agreement markers (Valenzuela 1999:362-3):

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(145) a. *Jakon-ax* ja-kan-we!
good-S exist-PL-IMP
'Live well!'

b. *Jakon-i* ja-kan-we!
good-S exist-PL-IMP
'Live well!'

(146) a. *Jakon-a-xon* yoá a-wé!
good-do.T-A cook-IMP
'Cook well!'

b. *Jakon-a-kin* yoá a-wé!
good-do.T-A cook-IMP
'Cook well!'

The S and A agreement markers in (145a) and (146a), *-ax* and *-xon*, coincide with those found on ablative and locative adjuncts, respectively. In contrast, the markers in the (b) examples coincide with multiclausal same-subject markers in simultaneous events (to be discussed in section 9.1.2; see also the presence of S agreement marking in *kikin-i*, examples (2) and (27) of Chapter 4, as well as (20) and (37) of Chapter 5).

The fact that the transitive *a(k)-* 'do (tr.), make' in exx. (146a-b) is present in manner adjuncts but not in locative and ablative adjuncts, has been taken as evidence to propose that some adjuncts must be analyzed, at least diachronically, as biclausal or serialized constructions (Valenzuela 1999).

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8.4. Interrogative Clauses

8.4.1. Polar Questions

With the exception of copular clauses, polar questions are formed by appending the clitic *-ki* to the first major constituent of the sentence, which is typically the focused element; placing *-ki* in any other position yields ungrammatical utterances. Expressions containing more than one instance of *-ki* are also ungrammatical. In interrogative sentences, the verb takes a non-finite participial form. In SK questions tend to exhibit a rising intonation. Consider the following examples:[7]

(147) a. Mi-a-ra atsa wai-nko ka-[a]i.
2-ABS-EV yuca chacra-ALL go-INC
'You are going to the yuca chacra.'

b. Mi-a-*ki* atsa wai-nko ka-[a]i?
2-ABS-INT yuca chacra-ALL go-PP1
'Are you going to the yuca chacra?'

c. Atsa wai-nko-*ki* mi-a ka-[a]i?
yuca chacra-ALL-INT 2-ABS go-PP1
'Are you going to the yuca chacra?'

[7] Most sentences illustrating interrogatives have been provided by Mr. Yoi Sani (Luis Márquez Pinedo). Less common constructions therefore require confirmation.

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If the first or only major constituent of a sentence is a verb, *-ki* precedes the aspectual nominalizing morpheme and occurs verb-internally:

d. Ka-*ki*-ai mi-a atsa wai-nko?
go-INT-PP1 2-ABS yuca chacra-ALL
'Are you going to the yuca chacra?'

It is also possible to omit the interrogative *-ki*. In this case, a question can be recognized simply by its distinct intonational pattern, and by its verb form if it differs from its finite equivalent.

A specific element of the clause can be questioned by pronouncing it with emphatic force and rising intonation, and marking it with the morpheme *-shaman*:

(148) Mi-a-ki bewa-*shaman*-kas-ai?
2-ABS-INT sing-shaman-DES-PP1
'Do you want to SING? (rather than dance)?'

Copular clauses are questioned employing the interrogative *-rin* instead of *-ki*:

(149) Wesna-*rin* jakon shinan-ya ainbo?
Wesna-INT2 good mind-PROP woman
'Is Wesna a generous / smart woman?'

(150) Jawe ak-í-*rin* mi-a, ainbo?
what:ABS do.T-SSSS-INT2 2-ABS woman
'Woman, what are you doing?'

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8.4.2. Content Questions

Content questions involve question words based on the interrogative pronouns *jawe* 'what' and *tso-* 'who.' The whole set of question words accompanied by illustrative examples was given in 6.1.5, when discussing Interrogative Pronouns. Further examples can also be found in the next section.

8.4.2.1. Questioning Constituents of the Main Clause

Any main clause constituent can be questioned by placing it in sentence initial position and marking it with the interrogative.

Declarative

(151) Wesna-n-ra sabado-nin atsa xeati Tsoma
Wesna-ERG-EV Saturday-TEMP yuca drink:ABS Tsoma:ABS

xea-ma-iba-ke, escuelainko-xon
drink-CAUS-PST2-CMPL school:LOC:LOC-A
'Wesna invited Tsoma to drink yuca beer, on Saturday, in the school.'

Questioning the Transitive Subject:

(152) *Tso-n-ki* Tsoma atsa xeati xea-ma-ibat-a
who-ERG-INT Tsoma:ABS yuca drink:ABS drink-CAUS-PST2-PP2

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sabado-nin, escuelainko-xon?
Saturday-TEMP school:LOC:LOC-A
'Who invited Tsoma to drink yuca beer on Saturday in the school?

Questioning the Patient Object:

(153) *Jawe-ki* Wesna-n Tsoma xea-ma-ibat-a
what:ABS-INT Wesna-ERG Tsoma:ABS drink-CAUS-PST2-PP2

sabado-nin, escuelainko-xon?
Saturday-TEMP school:LOC:LOC-A
'What did Wesna invite Tsoma to drink on Saturday in the school?

Questioning the Recipient Object:

(154) *Tso-a-ki* Wesna-n xea-ma-ibat-a atsa xeati,
who-ABS-INT Wesna-ERG drink-CAUS-PST2-PP2 yuca drink:ABS

sabado-nin, escuelainko-xon?
Saturday-TEMP school:LOC:LOC-A
'Whom did Wesna invite to drink yuca beer on Saturday in the school?

Questioning a Time Adjunct:

(155) *Jawe-tian-ki* Wesna-n Tsoma atsa xeati
what-TEMP-INT Wesna-ERG Tsoma:ABS yuca drink:ABS

xea-ma-ibat-a escuelain-xon?
drink-CAUS-PST2-PP2 school:LOC:LOC-A
'When did Wesna invited Tsoma to drink yuca beer in the school?

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Questioning a Locative Adjunct:

(156) *Jaono-xon-ki* Wesna-n Tsoma atsa xeati xea-ma-ibat-a
where-A-INT Wesna-ERG Tsoma:ABS yuca drink:ABS drink-CAUS-PST2

sabado-nin?
Saturday-TEMP
'Where did Wesna invite Tsoma to drink yuca beer on Saturday?

Questioning the Predicate:

(157) Wesna-n-ki Tsoma *jawe ak-á* escuelain-xon, Sabado-nin?
Wesna-ERG-INT T.:ABS what do.T-PP2 school:LOC:LOC-A Saturday-TEMP
'What did Wesna do to Tsoma in the school, on Saturday?

Questioning Manner Adjuncts

Manner adjunct interrogatives are complex in that they require the use of a pro-verb in the comparative expression:

(158) Wesna-n-ra jakon a-kin yoa ak-ai.
Wesna-ERG-EV good do.T-SSSA cook-INC
'Wesna cooks well.'

(159) *Jawe keská a-kin* Wesna-n yoa ak-ai?
what SIML do.T-SSSA Wesna-ERG cook-PP1
'How does Wesna cook?

(160) Wesna-n-ra yoa ak-ai jawen tita-n keská.
Wesna-ERG-EV cook-INC POS3 mother-ERG COMP
'Wesna cooks like her mother.'

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(161) *Tso-n yoa ak-ai keská a-kin-ki* Wesna-n yoa ak-ai?
who-ERG cook-PP1 COMP do.T-SSSA-INT Wesna-ERG cook-PP1
'Like whom does Wesna cook?'

8.4.2.2. Questioning Two Sentence Constituents

Although two sentence constituents can be questioned simultaneously, *-ki* can occur only once, after the first sentence constituent (which is also the first questioned constituent); alternatively, *-ki* may be left out altogether:

(162) E-n-ra Wesna Ronóyain-xon onan-a iki.
1-ERG-EV Wesna:ABS Ronoya:LOC-A know-PP2 AUX
'I met Wesna in Ronoya.'

(163) Jawerano-xon(*-ki*) mi-n tso-a onan-a iki?
where-A-INT 2-ERG who-ABS know-PP2 AUX
'Where did you meet whom?'

(164) –Tso-a(*-ki*) mi-n jawerano-xon onan-a iki?
Who-ABS-INT 2-ERG where-A know-PP2 AUX
'Whom did you meet where?'

The answer to the previous interrogative sentence would be:

(165) –Wesna, Ronóyain-xon.
Wesna:ABS Ronoya:LOC-A
'Wesna, in Ronoya.'

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8.4.2.3. Questioning Constituents of a Subordinate Clause

To question the A or O complement of a subordinate clause, the corresponding interrogative pronoun is placed at the beginning of the subordinate clause. However, the interrogative marker *-ki* retains its position following the first major sentence constituent and hence occurs postposed to the subordinate clause:

(166) [Tsoma-n Wesna wame meni-a]-ra mi-n oin-ke.
Tsoma-ERG Wesna:ABS paiche:ABS give-PP2-EV 2-ERG see-CMPL
'You saw that Tsoma gave *paiche* to Wesna.'

Questioning the Transitive Subject

(167) a. [*Tso-n* Wesna wame meni-a]-*ki* mi-n oin-a?
who-ERG Wesna:ABS paiche:ABS give-PP2-INT 2-ERG see-PP2

b. *Tso-n-*ki* Wesna wame meni-a mi-n oin-a?
'Who did you see gave *paiche* to Wesna?

Questioning the Patient Object

(168) a. [*Jawe* Tsoma-n Wesna meni-a]-*ki* mi-n oin-a?
what:ABS Tsoma-ERG Wesna:ABS give-PP2-INT 2-ERG see-PP2

b. *Jawe-ki Tsoma-n Wesna meni-a mi-n oin-a?
'What did you see that Tsoma gave Wesna?'

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Questioning the Recipient Object

There are two possible ways to question the recipient object of a subordinate clause. The first possibility is to place the corresponding interrogative pronoun at the beginning of the subordinate clause and mark the whole subordinate clause by *-ki*; this is the construction described for subjects and patient objects. Alternatively, the interrogative pronoun can bear the interrogative marker itself; i.e., the interrogative pronoun can be said to have been extracted from the subordinate clause:

(169) a. [Tso-a Tsoma-n wame meni-a]-*ki* mi-n oin-a?
who-ABS Tsoma-ERG paiche:ABS give-PP2-INT 2-ERG see-PP2
'To whom did you see that Tsoma give *paiche*?'

b. [Tso-a-*ki*] Tsoma-n wame meni-a mi-n oin-a?
who-ABS-INT Tsoma-ERG paiche:ABS give-PP2 2-ERG see-PP2
'To whom did you see that Tsoma give *paiche*?'

The grammaticality of sentences such as (169b) may constitute the only morpho-syntactic difference between recipient and patient objects (this hypothesis requires confirmation).

Questioning from adjuncts is possible through the fronting strategy; i.e., placing the corresponding interrogative element at the beginning of the subordinate clause and marking the whole subordinate clause by *-ki*.

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8.4.2.4. Questioning Noun Phrase Elements

A whole possessive construction may be marked by *-ki* when questioning the possessor, as shown below:

(170) a. [Tso-n ochíti]-*ki* mi-n oin-a?
who-GEN dog:ABS-INT 2-ERG see-PP2
'Whose dog did you see?'

It is also possible to extract the questioned possessive element only:

b. [Tso-n]-*ki* mi-n ochíti oin-a?
who-ERG-INT 2-ERG dog:ABS see-PP2
'Of whom did you see a dog?'

When questioning the possessum, the whole possessive construction must be marked by the clitic *-ki*; the possessum alone cannot be extracted. This is shown below through the agrammaticality of the (b) sentence:

(171) a. [Tsoma-n jawe]-*ki* mi-n oin-a?
Tsoma-GEN what:ABS-INT 2-ERG see-PP2

b. *[Jawe]-*ki* mi-n oin-a Tsoma-n?
what:ABS-INT 2-ERG see-PP2 Tsoma-GEN
'What of Tsoma did you see?'

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8.4.2.5. Questioning the Object of a Postpositional Phrase

When questioning the object of a postpositional phrase, the interrogative clitic *-ki* comes obligatorily after the whole postpositional phrase:

(172) Tso-a kopí-*ki* mi-a jo-a?
[who-ABS reason/cause]-INT 2-ABS come-PP2
'Because of whom did you come?'

(173) [Jawe patax]-*ki* Wesna yakat-ai?
what next.to-INT Wesna:ABS sit-PP1
'Next to what does Wesna sit?'

8.4.3. Further Types of Questions

8.4.3.1. Partial Echo-questions

-Ki cannot occur in echo-questions composed of the questioned element only:

(174) a. –E-a-ra bakish Maioshiain ka-[a]i.
1-ABS-EV one.day.away Pucallpa:ALL go-INC
'I am going to Pucallpa tomorrow.'

b. –Bakish?
one.day.away

c. –*Bakish-*ki*?
one.day.away-INT
'Tomorrow?'

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However, *-ki* may occur if the predicate accompanies the questioned element:

d. –Bakish-*ki* ka-[a]i?
one.day.away-INT go-PP1
'Tomorrow (you) are going?'

The same holds for echo-questions containing a question word:

e. –Jawe-tian?
what-TEMP

f. –*Jawe-tian-*ki*?
what-TEMP-INT
'When?'

g. –Jawe-tian-*ki* ka-[a]i?
what-TEMP-INT go-PP1
'When are (you) going?'

The examples above suggest that the interrogative clitic cannot occur utterance finally.

8.4.3.2. Complete Echo-Questions

When the whole question is echoed by the questioned participant, *-ki* is not attested:

(175) a. –Mi-a-ki bakish Maioshiain ka-[a]i?
2-ABS-INT one.day.away Pucallpa:ALL go-PP1
'Are you going to Pucallpa tomorrow?'

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b. –Jawe? E-a bakish Maioshiain ka-[a]i?
what 1-ABS one.day.away Pucallpa:ALL go-PP1
What? Am I going to Pucallpa tomorrow?

The same is true of complete echo-questions reacting to interrogatives involving question words; i.e., *-ki* cannot occur in this context:

c. –Jawerano-*ki* mi-a ka-[a]i?
where-INT 2-ABS go-PP1
'Where are you going?'

d. –Jawerano e-a ka[a]i?
where 1-ABS go-PP1

e. *–Jawerano-*ki* e-a ka-[a]i?
where-INT 1-ABS go-PP1
'Where am I going?'

8.4.3.3. The Confirmative *Ikon*

Ikon (from *i-* 'do (intr.) + the legitimative *-kon*) is used to confirm the truth-value of information that is somehow available to the speaker; it can be translated as 'right?:'

(176) Bakish mi-a ka-[a]i, ikon?
one.day.away 2-ABS go-PP1 right
'You are leaving tomorrow, right?'

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8.4.3.4. The Conversation Reorientative *-Kan*

The morpheme *-kan* may be added to a noun phrase expressing an out-of-focus participant or entity, towards which the speaker wishes to reorient the conversation:

(177) Rona: Sani-ra jo-ai.
Sani:ABS-EV come-INC
'Sani is coming.'

Wexá: Jawen awin-kan?
POS3 wife-*kan*
'And (what about) his wife?'

In the next conversation excerpt, Wexá is asked by Rona about the crops he and his relatives are growing in their village. Then, Rona asks about the availability of fish in the area, and Wexá switches to this topic of conversation employing the marker *-kan*:

(178) Rona: Ya, xekia paranta ni-ai.
O.K., corn:PROP plantain:ABS inroduce-INC
'O.K., he is going to sow corn and plantain.'

Wexá: Jen jen, xeki koséchan-ai paranta piko-t-ai.
yes corn:ABS harvest-INC plantain:ABS take.out-MID-INC
'Yes, he harvests the corn and then the plantain comes out.'

.....

Rona: Yapa-ki ja-ríba-a jain?
fish:ABS-INT exist-REP-PP2 there
'Is there also fish there?'

Wexá: Yapa-kan ja-[a]i.
fish:ABS-*kan* exist-INC
'Fish there is too.'

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8.4.3.5. Leading Questions

The interrogative *-tsi* indicates expectation on the part of the speaker that the answer to her question will be positive. The following questions can be asked when the speaker already has reasons to believe that her addressee is leaving tomorrow, or has already heard about the theft and wants to prompt the addressee to tell her the story:

(179) –Mia-tsi bakish ka-[a]i?
2-ABS-LEAD one.day.away go-PP1
'You are leaving tomorrow, aren't you?'

(180) –Mi-a-tsi nawa-n yometso-a?
2-ABS-LEAD *mestizo*-ERG steal-PP2
'So, the *mestizo* stole from you?'

In the next example, the leading interrogative *-tsi* is used when the speaker does not recall something very well and assumes the hearer will be able to provide him with more precise information. The topic here is the belief that by killing a *shansho* bird and burying it, one can make those who have emigrated to other villages or towns return to their place of origin:

(181) –Jawe-*tsi* i-[y]antan-a Elva, nexnex, nexnex rete-anan
what-LEAD do.I:PST3-PP2 Elva:ABS *shansho*:ABS *shansho*:ABS kill-PSS

miin-ti no sé jawe *keska*-ra i-bira-[a]i.
bury-INF I.don't.know what SIML-EV be-INFR-INC
'What did Elva say some time ago, that one should kill a *shansho* (bird) and bury it? How was it?'

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There are also combinations of the interrogatives *-tsi-ki*; the function of this combination appears to be the same as that of the interrogative *-ki*.

8.4.3.6. Alternative Questions

Constructions with alternative questions generally employ the Spanish disjunction marker *o* 'or;' the interrogative *-ki* may be left out in the examples below:

(182) Mi-n(-ki) e-a a-kin-ai *o* a-kin-yama-[a]i?
2-ERG-INT 1-ABS do.T-ASSOC-PP1 or do.T-ASSOC-NEG-PP1
'Are you going to help me or not?

(183) Mi-a(-ki) e-bé wano-ai *o* mi-a i-[y]ama-[a]i?
2-ABS-INT 1-COM marry-PP1 or 2-ABS do.I-NEG-PP1
'Are you gonna marry me or not?' (man speaking)

(184) Ikax ma akí iki *o* ak-á-ma-pari?
But already do.T-SSSI COP or do.T-PP2-NEG-yet
'But is he making (plantain chacra) already or not?'

8.4.3.7. Courteous Questions and Requests

The attenuative *-tani* may be used to soften a request:

(185) Jawe-tian-ki mi-n tari a-*tani*-ai?
what-TEMP-INT 2-ERG *cushma*:ABS do.T-ATT-PP1
'When could you make a *cushma* (for me)?'

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Also the clitic *-shaman* may be used to encode courtesy (the example below was previously given in Chapter 6 as (44)):

(186) Tso-bé-*shaman*-ki mi-a ka-ti iki Kontámanain?
who-COM-INTENS-INT 2-ABS go-INF AUX Contamana:ALL
'With whom are you going to Contamana?'

Another way to express a courteous request is by using the clitic *-mein* (speculative, dubitative). Compare the sentences below:

(187) a. Mi-n-*mein* e-a nokon wai oro-kin-ti-ma iki?
2-ERG-SPCL 1-ABS POS1 chacra:ABS clear-ASSOC-INF-NEG AUX
'Would you please / perhaps help me clear my chacra?'
b. Mi-n-*ki* e-a nokon wai oro-kin-ti-ma iki?
2-ERG-INT 1-ABS POS1 chacra:ABS clear-ASSOC-INF-NEG AUX
'Will you help me clear my chacra?'

8.5. Short Answers to Polar Questions

The fixed expressions *jenjen* (male speech) and *jojo* (female speech) (see exx. (178) and (220)) are equivalent to English 'yes' and 'no.' In addition to this, affirmative and negative answers to polar questions may be formed by using the semantically generic verbs *ik-* 'do (intr.)' and *ak-* 'do (tr.)' as pro-verbs. For affirmative answers, a same-subject marker for simultaneous events is added to the pro-verb, in agreement with the transitivity of the verb and pro-verb. Therefore, affirmative answers are *ik-i* [do.I-SSSS]

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for questions involving an intransitive verb and *a-kin* [do.T-SSSA] for those involving transitives. The intransitive and transitive negative answers are *ik-á-ma* [be-PP2-NEG] and *ak-á-ma* [do.T-PP2-NEG], respectively; these are formed by the appropriate pro-verb, followed by the completive participle *-a* and the non-verbal negative *-ma*. Consider the following examples (see also 15.3.4):

(188) a. –Bima-n-ki xenan koko-ai?
Bima-ERG-INT *guaba*-ABS eat.sweet.fruit-INC
– 'Does Bima eat *guaba*?'

b. –Bima-n-ki xenan koko-a?
Bima-ERG-INT *guaba*:ABS eat.sweet.fruit-PP2
– 'Did Bima eat *guaba*?'

c. –A-kin / ak-ama
do.T-SSSA do.T-NEG
– 'Yes'/'No.'

(189) a. –Jisbe-ki ransa-shin-ai?
Jisbe:ABS-INT dance-all.night.long-PP1
– 'Does Jisbe dance all night long?'

b. –Jisbe-ki ransa-shin-a?
Jisbe:ABS-INT dance-all.night.long-PP2
– 'Did Jisbe dance all night long?'

c. –Ik-í / ik-áma
do.I-SSSS do.I-NEG
– 'Yes.'/'No.'

However, there is a closed set of intransitive and transitive motion verbs that deviate from the pattern illustrated above. Instead of making use of the pro-verbs *ik-* and

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ak-, these few verbs retain their own roots in short answers to polar questions. Note in the answers given in (190) and (191) that intransitive verbs co-occur with the simultaneous same-subject S agreement marker *-i*, while transitive verbs correlate with the A agreement counterpart *-kin*:

Intransitive roots		Positive / Negative Short answers
(190)	ka- 'go'	ka-i [go-SSSS] / k-ama [go-NEG]
	bo- 'go.n.SG'	bo-i [go.n.SG-SSSS] / bo-ama [go.n.SG-NEG]
	jo- 'come'	jo-i [come-SSSS] / jo-ama [come-NEG]
	be- 'come.n.SG'	be-i [come.n.SG-SSSS] / be-ama [come.n.SG-NEG]

Transitive roots		Positive / Negative Short answers
(191)	bi- 'get, receive'	bi-kin [get-SSSA] / bi-ama [get-NEG]
	be- 'bring'	be-kin [bring-SSSA] / be-ama [bring-NEG]
	bo- 'carry'	bo-kin [carry-SSSA] / bo-ama [carry-NEG]

Also the existential *ja-* and the negative existential *yama-* employ their own roots in short answers to polar questions. As described earlier in this chapter, these verbs may take part in possessive constructions. Differently from the motion verbs presented above, *ja-* takes the incompletive and completive suffixes *-ai* and *-ke*, thus yielding the usual finite forms. *Yama-* remains unmarked in the incompletive aspect but takes the suffix *-ke* in the completive. The forms *jaráke* and *yamarake* containing the direct evidential *-ra* are also common:

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(192) a. –Mi-a-ki mecha ochíti-a iki?
2-ABS-INT good.hunter dog-PROP COP
– 'Do you have a good hunter dog?'

b. –Ja-[a]i / ja-rá-ke.
exist-INC exist-EV-CMPL
– 'Yes.'

c. –Yama / Yama-ra-ke / -Ja-yá-oma
exist.not exist.not-EV-CMPL 3-PROP-PRIV
– 'No.'

8.6. Directives

The term "directive" refers here to jussive, exhortative, imperative, and prohibitive constructions; possibility, necessity, and permission have been treated separately (see section 7.13). Since Shipibo greetings and leave-takings employ directive forms, these have been included in the present section.

The endings *-we* and *(-ba) -non* take part in directive constructions; when added to roots composed of a single open syllable such as *pi-* 'eat' or *ka-* 'go,' *-we* and *(-ba) -non* carry the stress and are thus written with acute accent as *-wé* and *-bánon*. *-We* is a single morpheme indicating (second person) imperative. *(-Ba) -non* codes jussive and it is even possible to insert the morphemes *-kan* plural or *-tan* 'go do sth. and return' in-between. *(-Ba) -non* is restricted to the first and third persons; it cannot occur in forms involving a second person addressee (including first person plural inclusive).

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Evidentials do not occur in directive expressions, the only exception being the possibility of adding the shorter reportative *-ki* to an imperative utterance (speakers hesitate or simply reject the longer reportative *-ronki* in this context) to indicate that the speaker is transmitting an order or request on behalf of a third participant.

8.6.1. Jussive

The sequence *(-ba) -non* is added to verb stems in order to form directives that do not involve a second person; i.e., *(-ba) -non* is restricted to first and third person singular, third person plural, and first person plural exclusive expressions. As mentioned earlier, *(-ba) -non* can also function as a prospective marker expressing intention or purpose to do something. *-Non* is part of the final verb morphology. Consider the following ex.:

(193) Moa-tian e-n oin-a jawéki-bo mi-a onan-ma-*non*,
already-TEMP 1-ERG see-PP2 thing:PL:ABS 2-ABS know-CAUS-P/J

mi-a yoi-*non*, ja-ribi mi-n bake-bo a-táanan
2-ABS tell-P/J 3:ABS-also 2-ERG child-PL:ABS do.T-PSS

mi-n axe-a-*non*.
2-ERG get.used.to-do.T-FDS
'I will teach you the things I saw long time ago, I will tell them to you, so that when you have your children you pass these things on to them too.'

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As shown in the last clause of example (193), the form *-non* (glossed FDS) is also a different-subject morpheme marking a clause whose event temporally or logically follows the event coded by the matrix clause.

In most instances, first and third person singular jussive forms lack overt subject NP and are differentiated by context solely:

(194) Ka-bá-non!
go-P/J-P/J
'I am leaving! / Let me leave! / May he leave!

(195) Piti pi-bá-non!
fish:ABS eat-P/J-P/J
'I will eat fish! / Let me eat fish! / May he eat fish!

(196) Piti piáma-ba-non!
fish:ABS eat:NEG-P/J-P/J
'I will not eat fish! / May he not eat fish!'

The only way to distinguish a first person plural exclusive form from the first and third singular forms above is by making the corresponding pronoun explicit:

(197) No-a-pari pikó-ba-non!
1p-ABS-first take.out:MID-P/J-P/J
'We (exclusive) will come out first! / Let us (exclusive) come out first!'

(198) No-n-pari pi-bá-non!
1p-ERG-first eat-P/J-P/J
'We (exclusive) will eat first / Let us (exclusive) eat first!'

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However, the subject may also remain unexpressed in first person plural exclusive jussives:

(199) I-bá-non nato Xetebo-bo, Xetebo Iain ja-bo ik-ax.
do.I-P/J-P/J this Xetebo-PL:ABS Xetebo lake:LOC 3-PL:ABS do.I-PSSS
'We'll call these ones "Xetebos," since they live at Xetebo Lake.'

Third person plural jussives are formed by simply inserting the plural *-kan* between *-ba* and *-non*:

(200) Piti pi-bá-ka[n]-non!
fish:ABS eat-P/J-PL(3)-P/J
'May they eat fish!'

(201) Piti piáma-ba-ka[n]-non!
fish:ABS eat:NEG-P/J-PL(3)-P/J
'May they not eat fish!'

As shown in (198) jussives may carry an overt nominal in A function.

8.6.2. Imperative

Imperative expressions proper code orders or requests targeted to a second person and are formed by adding the suffix *-we* to a verb stem. Like the prospective *-non*, *-we* cannot co-occur with the aspect markers *-ai* and *-ke*, or the copula / auxiliary *iki*.

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Intransitive imperative expressions containing *-we* do not generally express the S argument overtly, although this is a possibility; an overt object but not a transitive subject might be present when the verb is transitive. Consider the following examples:

(202) (Mi-a) ka-tan-we!
2-ABS go-go.do-IMP
'(You) go!'

(203) a. Piti pi-wé!
fish:ABS eat-IMP
'Eat fish!'

b. Mi-n piti pi-wé!
2-ERG fish:ABS eat-IMP
'*Eat fish! / Eat your fish!'

The fact that S and O arguments but not A arguments may be overtly expressed in imperative clauses represents an instance of intraclausal syntactic ergativity.

The negative imperative or prohibitive is formed by negating the verb. In the next example the stress moves to the first syllable of the verb form after the addition of the verbal negative *-yama*, as predicted by the stress placement rule:

(204) Piti pi-yama-we!
fish:ABS eat-NEG-IMP
'Don't eat fish!'

Second person plural imperatives carry the verbal plural *-kan*, which is obligatory and precedes the imperative *-we*. Examples in the affirmative and negative follow:

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(205) Piti pi-kan-we!
fish:ABS eat-PL-IMP
'Eat fish (2p.)!'

(206) Piti pi-yama-kan-we!
fish:ABS eat-NEG-PL-IMP
'Don't eat fish (2p.)!'

When the verbs 'come' or 'go' are involved in plural imperative expressions, the non-singular suppletive forms are required in addition to the plural *-kan*:

(207) Be-kan-we!
come.n.SG-PL-IMP
'Come (2p.)!'

(208) Bo-kan-we!
go.n.SG-PL-IMP
'Go (2p.)!'

The morpheme *-men* 'quickly, rapidly, immediately' is commonly added to second person imperative verb forms. Exx. (209) and (210) are biclausal; *-men* is added to the motion verb preceding the imperative whereas the non-motion verb carries simultaneous same-subject marking:

(209) Jo-*men*-we pi-i!
come-quickly-IMP eat-SSSS
'Come quickly to eat!'

(210) Ka-*men*-tan-we bi-i!
go-quickly-go.do.and.return-IMP get-SSSS
'Go quickly and get (it)!'

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Another marker with a similar meaning, *-panon* 'quickly,' may be added to the imperative-marked verb. This is illustrated through the next sentence:

(211) Pi-men-we-*panon* no-a ishto-n ka-men-non.
eat-quickly-IMP-quickly 1p-ABS fast-ADVZ go-quickly-FDS
'Eat quickly so that we leave soon.' (Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:312)

As mentioned earlier, the shorter hearsay marker *-ki* may be added to an imperative sentence thus forming a reported imperative expression:

(212) Onpax-*ki* be-wé!
water:ABS-HSY2 bring-IMP
'Bring water on her / his behalf.'

8.6.3. Exhortative

Exhortative expressions target the first person plural inclusive and follow a periphrastic biclausal strategy. A first clause takes the prospective *-non*, while a second clause carries the imperative *-we*. The former clause contains a verb stem whose semantics is specific to the situation; the latter clause contains a pro-verb matching the transitivity of the verb in the former clause. The plural *-kan* may be present or not:

(213) a. No-n-pari pi-non a-wé!
1p-ERG-first eat-P/J do.T-IMP
'Let's eat first!'

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b. Piti pi-non a-kan-we!
fish:ABS eat-P/J do.T-PL-IMP
'Let's eat fish!'

It is generally not acceptable to switch the order of the two clauses, even if the pro-verb carries the prospective marker and the specific verb the imperative *-we*:

c. *Piti a-kan-we pi-non!
fish:ABS do.T-PL-IMP eat-P/J

d. *Piti a-non pi-kan-we!
fish:ABS do.T-P/J eat-PL-IMP
'Let's eat fish!'

Structurally, exhortatives consist of a (first person) jussive clause plus an imperative clause, and can be literally interpreted as 'I am going to eat the fish, you do it too.'

In negative exhortatives only the clause carrying the semantically specific verb is negated. Again, it is not acceptable to reverse the order of the two clauses:

(214) a. Piti piáma-non a-kan-we!
fish:ABS eat:NEG-P/J do.T-PL-IMP
'Let's not eat fish!' (Lit. 'I am not going to eat fish, you do it (like me).')

b. *Piti a-kan-we piáma-non.
fish:ABS do.T-PL-IMP eat:NEG-P/J

c. *Piti a-yama-non pi-kan-we.
fish:ABS do.T-NEG-P/J eat-PL-IMP
'Let's not eat fish!'

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A special situation is attested in exhortatives involving the verb *ka-* 'go.' Firstly, the first clause may contain the root *ka-* marked by the prospective / jussive *-non* while the second clause contains the intransitive pro-verb *ik-* followed by the imperative *-we*; secondly, both clauses may contain the verb 'go' (which then takes its singular suppletive form):

(215) a. Ka-non i-wé!
go-P/J do.I-IMP

b. Ka-non ka-wé!
go-P/J go-IMP
'Let's go!'

Furthermore, the order of the verb carrying the prospective / jussive and the imperative-marked verb may be reversed:

c. Ka-wé ka-non!
go-IMP go-P/J
'Let's go!'

The following examples illustrate yet another possibility where a semantically specific verb marked by the prospective combines with *kawé*:

(216) Ka-non ka-wé, Inka *bi-non ka-wé*!
go-P/J go-IMP Inka:ABS get-P/J go-IMP
'Let's go, let's bring the Inka back.'

(217) *Chibá-non ka-wé*!
follow-P/J go-IMP
'Let's follow (her/him/it).'

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Finally, exhortatives involving 'go' may be based on the non-singular suppletive form *bo-* instead of *ka-*:

(218) Moa bo-non bo-kan-we!
already go.n.SG-P/J go.n.SG-PL-IMP
'Let's go already!'

8.6.4. Polite Imperative

Similarly to the situation found with courteous requests, the attenuative *-tani* may be added to an imperative expression to indicate courtesy or politeness:

(219) Ishton-*tani* ka-tan-we!
quickly-ATT go-go.and.return-IMP
'Please go and do (it)!'

8.6.5. Greetings and Leave-Takings

The imperative forms of the verb 'come' are the typical Shipibo ways to greet people and welcome them into one's house. The second person singular and plural forms of 'go' are the appropriate answers to people having expressed their intention to leave:

(220)
Greeting: –Jo-wé! 'Come!' (greeting welcoming one person)
come-IMP

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	–Be-kan-we! come.n.SG-PL-IMP	'Come!' (greeting welcoming two or more people)
Answer:	–Jenjen!	'Yes' (answer by a woman)
	–Jojo!	'Yes' (answer by a man)
Leave-taking:	–Ka-bá-non! go-P/J-P/J	'I am leaving!'
	–Bo-bá-kanon! go.n.SG-P/J-P/J	'We are leaving!'
Answer:	–Ka-wé! go-IMP	'Go (singular)'!
	–Bo-kan-we! go.n.SG-IMP	'Go (plural)!'

8.7. Comparison

8.7.1. Equal Comparison

In equal comparisons, the similative *keská ~ -ská* must follow a nominal and may also follow a participial clause (as shown in 10.4.6, when treating Similative Adverbial Clauses). Commonly, the expression is followed by a simultaneous same-subject marked semantically generic verb, which matches the transitivity of the matrix verb. Examples are given below:

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(221) E-n noi-ke nokon rayos, nokon bake-n bene,
1-ERG love-CMPL POS1 in.law POS1 child-GEN husband

nokon bake-bi *keská*.
POS1 child:ABS-EM SIML
'I love my son in-law, my daughter's husband like my own child.'

Example (222) contains two equal comparisons; the former illustrates the negative, while the latter shows that the similative *keská* may be absent when a participial clause is employed:

(222) No-n ja-*ská*-a-*yama*-[a]i; panshin yapa-n pi-ti-n pi-á
1p-ERG that-SIML-do.T-NEG-INC panshin fish-ERG eat-INF-OBL? eat-PP2

a-kin no-n ak-ai, too a-patan-bain-kin.
do.T-SSSA 1p-ERG do.T-INC ONOM do.T-at.intervals-AND2-SSSA
'We don't pass (the soccer ball) like that (i.e., like the *mestizo* women do); we play like the *panshin* fish eats (i.e., very quickly), kicking the ball and carrying it across the field .'

In the zero copula construction below, the clitic *-ribi* 'also, again' is employed together with the similative *keská*:

(223) E-a-ra mi-a *keská* siná-*ribi*.
1-ABS-EV 2-ABS COMP brave-also
'I am as brave as you.'

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8.7.2. Unequal Comparison

Comparative forms of adjectives and adverbs carry the diminutives *-shoko*, *-cha*, or simply the Spanish loan *más* 'more:'

(224)

ani	'large'	ani-*shoko*, ani-*cha*, *mas* ani	'larger (than)'
ori	'over yonder'	ori-*shoko*, ori-*cha*, *mas* ori	'further (than)'

The postposition *bebon* 'in front of' is used when the standard of comparison is overtly expressed:

(225) E-a-ra mi-a *bebon* siná iki.
1-ABS-EV 2-ABS in.front.of brave COP
'I am braver than you.'

(226) Ja-ke nokon bake e-*bebon* onan...
exist-CMPL POS1 child:ABS 1-in.front knowledgeable
'I have a daughter who knows more than me.'

(227) E-n-ra noi-ke nokon awin mi-n awin
1-ERG-EV love-CMPL POS1 wife:ABS 2-GEN wife:ABS

mi-n ak-á *bebon*.
2-ERG do.T-PP2 front
'I love my wife more than you love yours.'

(228) E-n-ra icha-ira siribisa xea-ke mi-n atsa xeati
1-ERG much-INTENS beer:ABS drink-CMPL 2-ERG yuca beer:ABS

ak-á *bebon*.
do.T-PP2 front
'I drank more beer than you yuca beer.'

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There is no grammaticalized way to express a lower degree comparative; i.e., 'less than.'

8.7.3. Superlative

There is no grammaticalized superlative construction, but the two expressions below were offered by consultants:

(229) E-a-ra kikin siná iki.
1-ABS-EV extremely brave COP
'I am the bravest.' Lit. 'I am extremely brave.'

(230) E-a-ra mato xewin-a siná iki
1-ABS-EV 2p:ABS surpass-PP2 brave COP
'I am the bravest (among you all and I).' Lit. 'I surpass you (in being) brave.'

8.8. Voice

SK supports a proposed feature of Amazonian languages regarding the absence of voice mechanisms of the canonical sort such as agentive passive (Derbyshire and Pullum 1986:19) and antipassive with an oblique-marked patient (Dixon and Aikhenvald 1999:xxvii). SK strategies functionally equivalent to patient promotion / agent demotion mechanisms in other languages are: OAV / OVA constituent order, agentless transitive clauses with plural-marked verbs, and middle-marked structures with a patient-subject

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and an unexpressed agent (see also the discourse function of the object-to-subject coreferentiality marker *-a* in 14.2. Furthermore, a couple of sentences suggesting the possible development of a promotional passive in certain non-finite clauses have been attested. On the other hand, mere object omission may be used to downplay the patient-object; in these instances, the verb remains transitive and the subject retains ergative case-marking.

8.8.1. Non-Basic Constituent Order

The following example is the beginning of a narrative text about a man who was taken by the *chaikoni* or 'hidden people' to live in their world. The pragmatically-marked OVA order is used to introduce the man and establish him as discourse topic. At the same time, the *chaikoni* are introduced as less central but nevertheless worth to mention participant:

(231) Westíora joni-ronki bo-a iki chaikoni joni-n,
one man :ABS-HSY carry-PP2 AUX *chaikoni* person :ERG

iaman yomera-i i-t-aitian.
lake:LOC fish-SSSS be-PROG-SDS
'It is said that a man was taken by a *chaikoni* while fishing in the lake (the SK sentence is active.'

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The next nominalized clause is the title of a story about a man who tries to kill a paca agouti but unexpectedly gets killed by it instead; the OAV order reflects the higher topicality of the patient:

(232) Joni ano-n rete-ni.
man:ABS paca.agouti-ERG kill-REM:NMLZ
'The man who was killed by a paca agouti.'

8.8.2. Impersonal passive

A cross-linguistically common way to express functional equivalents of canonical passives is via an active clause with a third plural subject which does not refer to any specific group of individuals (Keenan 1985b:247). SK has a construction whose active transitive verb bears the plural verbal suffix *-kan* and whose subject NP is obligatorily missing. This construction plays an impersonal passive function; that is, even though the verb carries plural subject marking the subject is really non-referential and not necessarily plural:

(233) Shee a-rá-*kan*-ai yapa.
ONOM:frying do.T-EV-PL-INC fish:ABS
'Fish is being fried / Someone is frying fish.'

(234) Ja-tian jain i-kan-ai ja xontako rabé tanti-ma-*kan*-a...
that-TEMP there do.I-PL-INC that young.girl two rest-CAUS-PL-PP2:ABS
'And then there were the two young girls who had been put to rest…'

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(235) Joni-bo benoya ainbo betan ik-ai-ra wexa-*kan*-ai.
man-PL married woman COM do.I-PP1:ABS-EV cut.w/*wexati*-PL-INC
'Men who have an affair with a married woman get cut with the *wexati* knife.'

In the examples given above, there is no implication that the subject is plural despite the presence of the suffix *-kan* (see also ex. (17) in Chapter 7):

8.8.3. Middle Voice

The presence of the middle suffix *-t* broadly indicates subject affectedness. As shown in 3.4.4.3, the addition of the middle suffix *-t* to a transitive verb may result in a reflexive, anticausative, or agentless passive meaning (see also 18.1.9). This latter function is illustrated in the example below containing the root *bachin-* 'pull sb. by the hair' to which the middle marker has been added (*-mee(t)* is an allomorph of *-t*):

(236) Yanka-biresa e-a *bachimee*-ke ikon-tani
in.vain-purely:EV 1-ABS pull.by.the.hair:MID-CMPL true-ATT

i-ke-n-ma-bi.
be-P-DS-NEG-EM
'I was pulled by the hair unfairly, without it being true.' (i.e., a woman thought I was having an affair with her husband and pulled me by the hair.)

The suffixation of the middle morpheme sometimes appears to indicate self-benefit (see ex. (1) in Ch. 18, but cf. 18.1.6); in addition, the middle is commonly attested on verbs of motion, position, and emotion (exx. (2)-(5) of Ch. 18).

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8.8.4. Promotional Passive?

The next example, given in Ch. 6 as (55), consists of a matrix clause followed by two conjoined reason clauses. The presence of the same-subject marker *-ax* on the latter clauses indicates the subjects of the stative habitual predicates are the bad unkind people. Whereas the *-n* on the elders *anibaon* is interpreted as genitive in the first clause, this reading is not possible in the second clause where the elders must be read as oblique-marked agents:

(237) Ja-rá-ke joni-bo jakóma shinan-ya [jawen ani-baon
exist-EV-CMPL person-PL:ABS good:NEG thinking-PROP POS3 big-PL:GEN

esé ninká-yosma ik-*ax*], itan-ribi [jawen ani-baon
advice:ABS hear-NEG.HAB.AGTZ be-PSSS or-also POS3 big-PL:ERG

rao-n-yosma ik-*ax*].
medicine-TRNZ-NEG.HAB.AGTZ be-PSSS
'There are bad / unkind people either because they never listened to their elders' advice or because their elders never cured them with plant medicine.'

The example immediately above is the only instance where what can be called a canonical passive has been attested.

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8.8.5. Object Demotion

Objects may be demoted by simply leaving them unexpressed; as mentioned earlier, the verb is not detransitivized in any way and the subject retains ergative case-marking:

(238) No-n-ra moa pi-ke.
1p-ERG-EV already eat-CMPL
'We have eaten already.'

The construction illustrated above may be considered as the SK "antipassive." However, given that zero anaphora is possible, (238) may also mean 'We have eaten it already.' See also examples (33) and (34) in Ch. 15 where it is suggested that the verb *rebes-* 'die' resulted from the lexicalization of an "antipassive" construction.

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CHAPTER 9

CLAUSE-CHAINING AND SWITCH-REFERENCE

The main reference-tracking mechanism of SK is its elaborate switch-reference system. Same- or switch-reference marking is found in particular types of multiclausal constructions in which a matrix clause is modified by one or more (immediately) preceding or following dependent clauses; alternatively, the dependent clause may be embedded in the matrix clause. These dependent clauses are obligatorily verb-final and exhibit a morpheme signalling whether the subject in the matrix clause is the same referent as the subject of that clause or not. In addition, there is a marker which indicates that the object of the dependent clause is coreferential with the matrix clause subject.

In most instances, reference-marked clauses ground the situation described by the main clause; however, the exact relationship between the events in the two clauses is not specified but left to be inferred from the context. Alternatively, a reference-marked clause can encode an event that advances the main storyline. Hence, SK reference-marked clauses may correspond to English temporal, purposive, conditional, reason, concessive, and even coordinate clauses.

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9.1. Same-Subject Marked Clauses

Same-subject reference-marked clauses are non-finite; the markers coding identity of subjects (where subject is the conflation of S and A) and syntactic dependency replace the crucial aspectual / illocutionary force morphology found in finite declarative verbs. The most interesting feature of same-subject markers is the use of different inflections in correlation with the S / A function of the matrix verb subject (the only exceptions being the same-subject markers *-taanan* and *-anan*). In addition, same-subject markers express the relative temporal or logical order of the events depicted by the marked clause and its matrix clause (see also 19.2.1).

9.1.1. Previous Events

When the event in the dependent clause is presented as prior to that in the matrix clause, and the matrix verb is intransitive, the S agreement marker *-ax* might be selected; when the event in the dependent clause is presented as prior to that in the matrix clause but the matrix verb is transitive, the A agreement morpheme *-xon* might be employed instead (alternatively, *-taanan* could occur in both contexts, as will be shown in 9.1.4). Sentence (1) contains a single main verb form, the intransitive *manóresa iki*, preceded and followed by two dependent clauses marked by *-ax* (glossed as Previous, Same-Subject, S

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agreement); the use of *-xon* in any of the dependent clauses would yield an ungrammatical sentence:

(1) [...bachi meran jiki-*ax*] Ashi manó-res-a iki [moa
mosquito.net inside enter-PSSS Ashi:ABS disappear-just-PP2 AUX already

ka-*ax*].
go-PSSS
'... Ashi entered into the mosquito net and disappeared, after leaving (for the upper world).' (Soi Rawa 1995:27, analyzed in Valenzuela 2002a:427)

In (2), the matrix verbs 'boil' and 'chew' are transitive and hence *-xon* (Previous, Same-Subject, A agreement) rather than *-ax* must be employed. Note that a matrix verb can be either main like *nakakatikanai* or dependent like *kobin axon*:

(2) [[Jawen tapon bi-*xon*] kobin-'a-*xon*] naka-kati-kan-ai.
POS3 root:ABS get-PSSA ONOM:boil-do.T-PSSA chew-PST4-PL-INC
'After getting its (i.e., the *yotokonti* plant's) root and boiling it, they chewed it.'

Sentence (3) illustrates that the selection of either *-ax* or *-xon* is determined by the transitivity status of the matrix, and in these instances also subsequent, verb; as already shown in (2), a matrix verb can be main like *wexaanankatitai* or dependent like *joxon* and *meraax*. Recall that the reciprocal *-anan* triggers detransitivization:[1]

(3) [[[Jene-n ka-tan-*ax*] jo-*xon*] jawen awin
flowing.water-ALL go-go.and.return-PSSS come-PSSA POS3 wife:ABS

[1] Note that according to the English translation the subject of *merax* is not exactly the same as the subject of *wexaanankatitai* but is part of it (i.e., 3 singular vs. 3 plural). This point is discussed later when dealing with partial identity of subjects in 9.5.

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mera-*ax*] wexa-anan-katit-ai joni-bo.
find-PSSS cut.w/*wexati*-REC-PST4-INC man-PL:ABS
'If when coming back from the fishing he found his wife (with another man), then the men would cut each other with the *wexati* knife...'

9.1.2. Simultaneous Events

When the events in the two clauses are viewed as overlapping in time or simultaneous, a different set of same-subject markers is employed. Again, the distribution of these markers correlates with the transitivity status of the matrix verb; thus, *-i* (Simultaneous, Same-Subject, S agreement) is used with intransitive matrix verbs and *-kin* (Simultaneous, Same-Subject, A agreement) with transitive ones:

(4) Ikaxbi-kan ja pishta-nko chiban-res-kan-ai
however-*kan* that *fiesta*-LOC follow-just-PL-INC

oa iná-bo tsaka-*kin*.
DIST domesticated.animal-PL:ABS shoot.w/arrow-SSSA
'However, the other participants at the fiesta continued (it), sacrificing the domesticated animals.'

(5) Jaino-a-ki, ja mawá raka-t-a-bi,
there:LOC-ABL-HSY2 that dead lying.position-MID-PP2:ABS-EM

papiake-beiran-*i* jo-a iki bene-shaman.
carry.on.the.back-VEN2-SSSS come-PP2 AUX happy-INTENS
'Without delay, (the Deer) put the dead (Jaguar) on its back and went back home feeling very happy.

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9.1.3. Following Events

Finally, when the event in the marked clause is subsequent to that in the matrix clause, *-nox* (Following, Same-Subject, S agreement) indicates subject coreferentiality and correlates with intransitivity of the matrix verb, while *-noxon* (Following, Same-Subject, A agreement) signals subject coreferentiality and the presence of a transitive matrix verb. Clauses marked by *-nox* and *-noxon* often have a purposive meaning.

(6) E-a-ra ka-ai, [oa joni-bo osan-*nox*]....
1-ABS-EV go-INC DIST person-PL:ABS laugh.at-FSSS
'I will go in order to laugh at those people.'

In (7) the same-subject marked clause is embedded in the main clause:

(7) ....no-a i-ti ja-ke [westíora metsá ainbo i-*nox*]
1p-ABS do.I-INF exist-CMPL one beautiful woman do.I-FSSS

raoti-a.
adornment-PROP
'....we must be adorned in order to be a beautiful woman.'

(8) Ono xeki ak-í-ra boan-kan-ke [joa-*noxon*].
DIST corn:ABS do.T-SSSS-EV go.n.SG:PST1-PL-CMPL cook-FSSA
'They went (to the chacra) earlier today to harvest corn in order to cook it.'

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9.1.4. The Previous Same-Subject Marker *-Ta(a)nan*

There is an additional same-subject marker, *-ta(a)nan* (glossed as Previous, Same-Subject), which is not sensitive to the syntactic function (i.e. S versus A) of the controller or transitivity distinctions. In comparison to *-ax* and *-xon*, *-ta(a)nan* usually entails a sense of immediateness (Faust 1973:105). In (9) the matrix peripheral verb form *iká iki manota iki* is intransitive:

(9) [Jato a-*taanan*]-ki ik-á iki moa Chichíporo
3p:ABS do.T-PSS-HSY2 do.I-PP2 AUX already Canary

Ainbo-ki manot-a iki.
Woman:ABS-HSY2 disappear-PP2 AUX
'After telling them that, the Canary Woman disappeared.'

The matrix verb of the *-taanan*-marked clause below (i.e., *sotameet-*) is a derived intransitive:

(10) Ja-skáa-xon joni-n oin-a-ronki ik-á iki Awá jo-i,
that-SIML-PDCA man-ERG see-PP2-HSY be-PP2 AUX Tapir:ABS come-SSSS

[ja jo-ai oin-*taanan*]-ki joni sotameet-a iki.
3:ABS come-PP1 see-PSS-HSY2 man:ABS spy:MID-PP2 AUX
'Then the man saw the Tapir coming, seeing him coming the man hid to spy.'

In ex. (11), the matrix clause *non aki kai* is transitive and yet *-taanan* is employed:

(11) Ja-tian [no-n bake a-*taanan*] ja-ská-ribi no-n ak-í ka-ai.
that-TEMP 1p-GEN child do.T-PSS that-SIML-also 1p-ERG do.T-SSSS go-INC
'Then we will do the same when having our children.'

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9.1.5. The Simultaneous Same-Subject Marker *-Anan*

The simultaneous same-subject marker *-anan* is also neutral in terms of the S / A controller distinction and thus co-occurs with intransitive and transitive matrix verbs. In the next two examples, dependent clauses marked by *-anan* combine with an intransitive (*tsiniai*) and a transitive (*aká iki potakin*) matrix verb, respectively:

(12) No-a tsini-ai no-n chitonti-a-bi, [kikin-i nishi-n
1p-ABS play-INC 1p-GEN *pampanilla*-PROP-EM extremely-S rope-INST

chi-nexeet-*anan*].
BUTTOCKS-tie:MID-SSS
'We play (soccer) wearing our *pampanillas*, tying them very tightly with a rope.'

(13) Jain-xon-ronki ak-á iki kikin a-kin-ki yochi
there-PDCT-HSY do.T-PP2 AUX extremely do.T-SSSA-HSY2 chili.pepper

motsá jato-ki pota-kin, [joné-*anan*].
mixed.w/water:ABS 3p-DAT throw-SSSA hide-SSS
'Then, (the man) spread the (ground) chili pepper that had been well mixed with water on the place where they (i.e., the Nutrias) were, without being seen.'

9.2. Different-Subject Marked Clauses

9.2.1. Previous and Simultaneous Events

Unlike their same-reference marked counterparts, switch-reference marked clauses may take the finite aspect morphemes *-ai* or *-ke* and thus can be said to be (more) finite. In

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accordance with their incompletive and completive aspect functions, *-ai* is used when the two events are viewed as contemporary or overlapping, while *-ke* is selected when the marked clause is presented as previous. However, in the majority of cases switch-reference marked clauses take additional oblique subordinating morphology, specifically the temporal *-tian* or the oblique *-n* which may serve a temporal function too; these morphemes have specialized as different-subject markers. The selection of *-tian* over *-n* usually but not necessarily implies that the event in the matrix clause took place immediately after the event in the reference-marked clause. In (14) and (15) the reference-marked verbs carry the completive / previous event marker *-ke* while the finite verbs are marked with the incompletive *-ai*, thus showing that the two clauses can differ in aspect:

(14) [Pikó-*ke-tian*]-bi no-a ani a-kan-ai…
take.out:MID-P-DS-EM 1p-ABS big do.T-PL-INC
'From the moment we are born, they (our parents) take care of us….'

(15) [Xeta joxo-bicho i-*ke-n*]-ki osan-kati-kan-ai.
tooth white-only do.I-P-DS-HSY2 laugh.at-PST4-PL-INC
'If one had the teeth just white, then people would laugh at one.'

A second crucial difference between same- and switch-reference marked clauses is that the latter never index the controller's syntactic role and therefore are not sensitive to the transitivity status of the matrix verb. Thus compare (14) and (15) where the matrix verbs are transitive, with (16) which combines with an intransitive matrix verb:

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(16) [Pi-kin senen-'a-kan-*ke-n*]-bi jenetia-a iki.
eat-SSSA edge-do.T-PL-P-DS-EM flood-PP2 AUX
'When they had just finished eating, the flooding started.'

In (16) the switch-reference marker *-ken* is selected over *-ketian* despite the obvious sense of immediateness. Now let's turn to an example involving two simultaneous events:

(17) [Jene-n rete-*ai-tian*]-ra
flowing.water-ERG kill-S-DS-EV

ainbo sai ik-ai.
woman:ABS ONOM:cry.out.for.help do.I-INC
'Since (s)he$_i$ was drowning, the woman$_j$ cried out for help.'
(i.e., the one drowning is not the one crying out for help)

In addition to coding non-identity of subjects, *-ken, -ketian, -ain* and *-aitian* indicate that the object of the marked clause is non-coreferential with the subject of its matrix clause (see also 9.3 below).

A third 'simultaneous' different-subject marker *-nontian* indicates that an event takes place and is completed during the course of another event with a longer duration:

(18) [...jema-n pishta i-*nontian*] ka-a iki alcalde,
village-GEN fiesta:ABS do.I-SDS go-PP2 AUX mayor:ABS

jainoax wetsa koshi-bo-ribi.
and other authority-PL:ABS-also
'...during the *fiesta* of the village, the mayor and other authorities came.'

(19) Ja Ani Xeati ik-á iki Kanaria jema-nko, [ja-tian nokon
that *Ani Xeati* do.I-PP2 AUX Kanaria village-LOC that-TEMP POS1

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ani-bo ja-pari-*nontian*].
parent-PL:ABS exist-yet-SDS
'That *Ani Xeati* took place in Kanaria village, at that time my parents were still alive.'

In the two examples immediately above, the clause marked by *-nontian* codes the more encompassing event, the one with the longer duration, while the matrix clause codes the event which has been completed during the course of the former event. This is exactly the reverse situation of the one described by Faust (1973:109) who provides examples such as the following:

(20) [Ja jo-*nontian*]-ra, e-a nii meran iba-ke, Tito betan.
3:ABS come-SDS-EV 1-ABS forest inside do.I:PST2-CMPL Tito COM
'When he came, I was in the forest with Tito (i.e., he came and left before Tito and I came back, or while we were in the forest).' (Faust 1973:109)

Since Faust's examples are judged grammatical by Native speakers, it can be concluded that *-nontian* expresses a relationship between two partially overlapping events, in which a shorter completed event takes place during an ongoing more comprising event. Either of these two events may be encoded by the marked clause or by its matrix. Clauses marked by *-nontian* must be distinguished from clauses marked by *-nontianb*; the latter will be treated in 10.4.

Different-subject marked clauses (except for those involving *-nontian*) may lack the morphemes *-tian* or *-n* and thus look just like finite clauses; in these instances, their

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dependent status can be inferred from the constructional contexts in which they occur.[2] (See exx. (66) and (100) in Ch. 7, as well as ex. (60) in Ch. 3.)

9.2.2. Following Events

Finally, *-non* signals subject non-coreferentiality and the fact that the event in the marked clause is viewed as subsequent to that in the matrix clause:

(21) [Bake-shoko oxa-*non*] e-a bewa-ba-non.
child-DIM:ABS sleep-FDS 1-ABS sing-P/J-P/J
'So that the baby sleeps I am going to sing.'

The verb marked by *-non* commonly forms a complex predicate with the intransitive auxiliary *ik-* followed by the same-subject markers *-ax* or *-xon* indicating agreement with an S or A controller in the matrix clause, respectively:

(22) [[No-n oin-*non*] ik-*ax*], ochíti betan jo-wé.
1p-ERG see-FDS do.I-PSSS dog COM come-IMP
'Come with the dog, so that we see it.' (Faust 1973:111)

(23) Ja-shoko-bo onan-ma-kin no-a ani a iki,
that-DIM-PL:ABS know-CAUS-SSSA 1p-ABS big do.T:PP2 AUX

[[no-n tita ke-ská-ribi no-a i-*non*] i-*xon*].
1p-GEN mother SIML-also 1p-ABS do.I-FDS do.I-PSSA
'Our mother raised us teaching us those little things, so that we become like her too.'

[2] For example, only an *-ai*-marked dependent clause is negated by addition of the non-verbal negative morpheme *-ma* or occurs in a periphrastic verb form with the auxiliary *iki*.

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This is the only different-subject construction exhibiting participant agreement.

9.3. Object-to-Subject Coreferentiality

9.3.1. Previous Events

A more idiosyncratic reference-marker is *-a*, which indicates that the object of the dependent clause, which codes a previous event, is coreferential with the subject (S / A) argument of its matrix clause. This marker is glossed as Previous Object-to-Subject Coreferentiality (PO>S/A). Consider exmples (24) and (25) involving an intransitive and a transitive matrix verb subject, respectively:

(24) [Ja-n rao-n-*a*]-ra e-a ka-wan-ke.
3-ERG medicine-TRNZ-PO>S/A-EV 1-ABS go-PST1-CMPL
'(S)he treated me with plant medicine and I left.'

(25) [Ja-n e-a rao-n-*a*]-ra e-n nonti
3-ERG 1-ABS medicine-TRNZ-PO>S/A-EV 1-ERG canoe:ABS

benáwan-ke.
look.for-PST1-CMPL
'(S)he treated me with plant medicine and I looked for a canoe.'

In a converse situation, i.e. when the dependent subject and the matrix object are coreferential, different-subject marking must be employed. Example (14), which is repeated below, is an instance of previous subject-to-object coreferentiality:

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(26) [Pikó-*ke-tian*]-bi no-a ani a-kan-ai....
take.out:MID-P-DS-EM 1p-ABS big do.T-PL-INC
'From the moment we are born, they (our parents) take care of us....'

9.3.2. Simultaneous Events

There is no dedicated morpheme, equivalent to *-a*, coding object-to-subject coreferentiality with simultaneous events. However, the restriction that "different-subject" entails object-to-subject non-coreferentiality still holds. Let's return to (17), repeated below for convenience:

(27) [Jene-n rete-*ai-tian*]-ra
flowing.water-ERG kill-S-DS-EV

ainbo sai ik-ai.
woman:ABS ONOM:cry.out.for.help do.I-INC
'Since she$_i$ was drowning, the woman$_j$ cried out for help.
*Since she$_i$ was drowning, the woman$_i$ cried out for help.'

In the SK sentence the subject of the dependent clause is *jene* 'flowing water.' A literal translation of (27) is 'Since the flowing water was killing her, the woman cried out for help;' there is no verb equivalent to 'drown' in the language. If *-aitian* strictly coded simultaneity of events and non-identity of subjects, the second interpretation above would be perfectly possible.[3] However, the drowning woman being the object of the dependent clause cannot be the one crying out for help, or else it would be an instance of object-to-

[3] Although after some reflection one consultant accepted the second interpretation, the preferred reading is always the first one.

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subject coreferentiality. A possible way to code this type of situation is through a non-reference marked relative or adverbial clause, as in the next examples:

(28) Ainbo jene-n rete-ai]-ra
woman:ABS flowing.water-ERG kill-PP1-EV

sai ik-ai.
ONOM:cry.out.for.help do.I-INC
'The woman who was drowning cried for help.'

(29) Ja-n e-a xeyot-ai kaman-ra e-a bewa-[a]i.
3-ERG 1-ABS massage-PP1 LIM-EV 1-ABS sing-INC
'While he was massaging me, I kept on singing.'

9.3.3. Following Events

Only in dependent clauses coding a subsequent event can different-subject marking be used in object-to-subject coreferentiality situations:

(30) [(E-a) xeyó-non (ik-ax)]-ra e-a bewa-ke.
1-ABS massage-FDS do.I-PSSS-EV 1-ABS sing-CMPL
'So that he massages me, I sang.'

Therefore, when the dependent clause codes previous or simultaneous events, "different-subject" in SK means, in addition to subject non-coreferentiality, that the object of the dependent clause also cannot be the same referent as the subject of its matrix clause, even though also in such a situation the subjects are different. This restriction does not hold for constructions involving dependent subsequent or following events.

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9.4. Syntactic Pivot

In discussing markers coding same-reference, I have made use of the notion of *subject* without discussing the possibility that the pivot might be of a semantic nature; that is, that markers like *-ax* and *-xon* actually code agent or patient rather than subject coreferentiality. This is not the case however, as shown in the examples below, where the same-subject markers *-xon* and *-ax* link clauses whose subjects play patientive versus agentive semantic roles (see also ex. (141) in Ch. 10):

(31) Ja-tian jawen bene-n raté-*xon*
that-TEMP POS3 husband-ERG get.scared:MID-PSSA

ino to' a-ke
jaguar:ABS ONOM:shooting do.T-CMPL
'Then her husband got scared and shot the jaguar.'

(32) Ikaxbi tita i-*xon* no-n axe-a-ti atipan-ke
but mother:ABS do.I-PSSA 1p-ERG get.used.to-do.T-INF can-CMPL

no-n bake xontako-bo....
1p-GEN child unmarried.girl-PL:ABS
'But being mothers we could teach our young daughters....'

(33) Jawe onan-ma ik-*ax* no-a jainka-ma
what knowledgeable-NEG do.I-PSSS 1p-ABS there:?-NEG

nokó-yamai.
meet:MID-NEG:INC
'If we are not knowledgeable we will not meet our goals.'

A third possibility is that "same-subject" markers actually code topic coreferentiality. In the next example, the speaker talking about himself is best interpreted

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as the topic of all three clauses; nevertheless the first clause does not bear a same-subject marker, given that its subject is not the speaker but *xeta* 'tooth:'

(34) Xeta-n chexa-*a*-ra rimon bero chaka-*xon* rao-n-ke.
tooth-ERG ache-PO>S/A-EV lemon seed grind-PSSA medicine-TRNZ-CMPL
'Since I had a toothache, I ground lemon seeds and treated it.'

The example above also illustrates the important discourse function of the marker *-a*. Switch-reference systems track the identity of the subject argument rather than a topic. However, through the marker *-a*, a topical participant can be kept in the center of the discourse scene even when being the patient rather than the agent of a transitive event. That is, *-a* can be viewed in this context as the SK functional equivalent of the English passive voice.

In the next example, *-a* is used to introduce a new central participant. Previously, the text has described how a woman makes a plant preparation and bathes with it in order to conquer a man. In the second clause below, *-a* is used to switch the reference from the woman to the man:

(35) Ja waste-n i-xon ainbo-nin joni noko-*a*,
that *piripiri*-INST do.I-PSSA woman-ERG man:ABS meet-PO>S/A

keen-yama-pacho-kin-bi kikin a-kin noi ka-i.
want-NEG-always-SSSA-EM extremely do.T-SSSA love:SSSI go:INC
'Making use of that *piripiri*, when the woman meets the man, even though he didn't want her before, he is going to fall in love with her.'

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The table below summarizes the distribution of reference-markers in SK. The term "neutral" indicates that the reference marker does not code S or A agreement and hence the transitivity value of the matrix clause is irrelevant.

Table 9.1. Shipibo-Konibo Switch-Reference System

Event of Dep-endent Clause	MAIN CLAUSE	SUBJECTS Coreferential	Non-coreferential	O>S/A
PREVIOUS to event in main clause	intransitive neutral transitive	*-ax* *-ta(a)nan* *-xon*	*-ke-n, -ke-tian*	*-a*
SIMULTANEOUS	intransitive neutral transitive	*-i* *-anan* *-kin*	*-ain, -ai-tian, -nontian*	
FOLLOWING (subsequent)	intransitive neutral transitive	*-nox* *-no(n)xon*	*-non*	

9.5. Overlapping of Subject Reference[4]

When the dependent clause event is presented as previous, and the referent of the dependent clause subject properly includes the referent of the matrix clause subject,

[4] This topic is developed in Comrie (1998) with respect to the Papuan language Haruai. In Haruai, medial clauses take same-subject marking when the referent of the final clause subject is properly included in the referent of the medial clause subject. In the converse situation, the medial clause takes same-subject marking only if the two subjects are of the same grammatical person. The coding of overlapping reference has also been discussed for Huichol (Uto-Aztecan) and can be found in Comrie (1983).

The SK data upon which this subsection is based come from Mr. Barin Meni (Carlos Panduro) and Mr. Yoi Sani (Luis Márquez Pinedo) for constructions involving previous events, and from the latter speaker for constructions involving simultaneous and following events. It must be pointed out that Mr. Barin Meni and Mr. Yoi Sani totally coincided in their judgments with regard to previous events constructions, in spite of the fact that the former comes from Nuevo Edén (Piski River, Lower Ucayali) whereas the latter is original from "Dos Unidos" de Pachitea (Upper Ucayali).

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same-subject marking is used; when the dependent clause event is previous, and the referent of the matrix clause subject includes the referent of the dependent clause subject, different-subject marking is required.

However, the selection of same- versus different-subject marking is not straightforward when the dependent clause depicts a simultaneous or a subsequent event. With simultaneous events, different-subject marking is also a possibility when the dependent clause subject is a third and specially a second person plural, even if it properly includes the matrix clause subject referent. With subsequent events, transitivity and person become relevant: if the referent of the dependent clause subject properly includes the referent of the matrix clause subject, the matrix verb is transitive, and the two subjects are of the same grammatical person, then same-subject is required with the first person and possible with the third person; in all other instances the dependent verb takes different-subject marking. These generalizations are summarized in Table 9.2.

Table 9.2. Proper Inclusion of Subject Referents

DEP	MAT	DEP. Event	MAT	VALUE	MARKER
1pl	1sg/2sg/3sg	previous	tr.	SS	-xon
2pl	2sg/3sg	previous	tr.	SS	-xon
3pl	3sg	previous	tr.	SS	-xon
1pl	1sg/2sg/3sg	previous	intr.	SS	-ax
2pl	2sg/3sg	previous	intr.	SS	-ax
3pl	3sg	previous	intr.	SS	-ax
1sg/2sg/3sg	1pl	previous	tr./intr.	DS	-ketian
2sg/3sg	2pl	previous	tr./intr.	DS	-ketian
3sg	3pl	previous	tr./intr.	DS	-ketian

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1pl	1sg/2sg/3sg	simult.	tr.	SS	-kin
2pl	2sg/3sg	simult.	tr.	DS/SS	-ain/-kin
3pl	3sg	simult.	tr.	DS/SS	-ain/-kin
1pl	1sg/2sg/3sg	simult.	intr.	SS	-i
2pl	2sg/3sg	simult.	intr.	DS/SS	-ain/-i
3pl	3sg	simult.	intr.	SS	-i
1sg/2sg/3sg	1pl	simult.	tr./intr.	DS	-ain
2sg/3sg	2pl	simult.	tr./intr.	DS	-ain
3sg	3pl	simult.	tr./intr.	DS	-ain
1pl	1sg	follow.	tr.	SS	-nonxon
1pl	2sg/3sg	follow.	tr.	DS	-non
2pl	2sg/3sg	follow.	tr.	DS	-non
3pl	3sg	follow.	tr.	DS/SS	-non/-nonxon
1pl	1sg/2sg/3sg	follow.	intr.	DS	-non (*-nox)
2pl	2sg/3sg	follow.	intr.	DS	-non
3pl	3sg	follow	intr.	DS	-non
1sg/2sg/3sg	1pl	follow.	tr.	DS	-non
2sg/3sg	2pl	follow.	tr.	DS	-non
3sg	3pl	follow.	tr.	DS	-non
1sg/2sg/3sg	1pl	follow.	intr.	DS	-non
2sg/3sg	2pl	follow.	intr.	DS	-non
3sg	3pl	follow.	intr.	DS	-non

The examples below illustrate that, in previous dependent clauses, same-subject marking is employed when the dependent clause subject is 1pl. and the matrix clause subject 1sg., but different-subject marking is required if the subjects are reversed:

(36) (No-a) jema-n nokó-*xon*-ra e-a koshi-bo bena-i
1p-ABS village-LOC meet:MID-PSSA-EV 1-ABS chief-PL:ABS search-SSSS

ka-[a]i.
go-INC
'When we arrive at the village, I will look for the authorities.'

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(37) E-n wame chachi-*ke-tian*-ra jatí-xon-bi no-n pi(-kan)-ai.
1-ERG *paiche*:ABS drive-P-DS-EV altogether-A-EM 1p-ERG eat-PL-INC
'Once / when I drive a *paiche*, we will eat altogether.'

The following example, shows a dependent clause depicting a subsequent event. The marked-clause subject is the first person plural and properly includes the main clause subject which is the second person singular; the matrix clause is transitive. As shown in the table above, this situation requires the different-subject marker *-non*:

MAIN DEPENDENT

(38) Pi-men-we-panon no-a ishto-n ka-men-*non*.
eat-quickly-IMP-quickly 1p-ABS fast-ADVZ go-quickly-FDS
'Eat quickly so that we leave soon.' (Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:312)

Now let's reconsider example (3), which is repeated below. The dependent verb *meraax* bears the same-subject marker *-ax vis-à-vis* the matrix clause verb *wexaanankatitai*, which is also the main finite verb:

(39) [[[Jene-n ka-tan]-*ax* jo]-*xon* jawen awin
flowing.water-ALL go-go.and.return-PSSS come-PSSA POS3 wife:ABS

mera]-*ax* wexa-anan-katit-ai joni-bo.
find-PSSS cut.w/wexati-REC-PST4-INC man-PL:ABS
'If when coming back from the fishing he found his wife (with another man), then the men would cut each other (on the back of the head) with the *wexati* knife...'

According to the English translation, the referent of the main clause subject (*jonibo* 'the men') properly includes the referent of the dependent clause subject (the husband); i.e., this is an instance of dependent third singular and matrix third plural subjects, and thus

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different- instead of same-subject marking would be required. This is not the case however. (It must be mentioned that (39) has been taken from a spontaneous narrative text and its grammaticality was further corroborated by two other native speakers.) The choice of same-subject marking in this context may be associated to the possibility in SK of having singular reciprocal subjects, as mentioned when dealing with reciprocals in 7.4.4. Hence, a literal translation of (39) would be 'If when coming back from the fishing he found his wife (with another man), then he would cut him with the *wexati* knife and this action would be reciprocated in turn....' Reciprocal constructions are further treated in 18.2.

Now let's return to ex. (70) from Ch. 7, which is repeated below as (40):

(40) Ja-skat-ax-ki [pia nea yata*nan*]-ki ka-bekon-a iki,
3-SIML-PDCS-HSY2 arrow bundle:ABS grab:SSS-HSY2 go-DUAL-PP2 AUX

[baba rete-xon bo-kan-a] chiban-i....
grandchild:ABS kill-PSSA take-PL-PP2:ABS chase-SSSS
'After grabbing the bundle of arrows, the two (grandparents) left, chasing those who had killed their grandchildren and had taken their corpses with them...' (Soi Rawa 1995:17)

From the text context it is obvious that it is only the old man who grabs the arrows and then he and his wife leave the house together; i.e., the first two clauses would represent an instance of a 3sg. marked clause subject and a 3pl. matrix clause subject, and hence would require different-subject instead of same-subject marking. However, in discussing example (70) in Chapter 7 it was pointed out that the main verb *kabekona iki* is based on the singular form of the verb 'go' (i.e., *ka-*) rather than of its non-singular suppletive

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counterpart (i.e., *bo-*). This choice suggested that a literal translation of the sentence at hand is 'After (he) grabbed the bundle of arrows, he left accompanied by a second participant, chasing those who had killed their grandchildren and had taken their corpses with them.' Under this analysis, the relevant clauses would have identical subjects, which would account for the selection of same-subject marking morphology. Moreover, both the complement of a reciprocal (coded by a *betan*-marked NP) and the *bekon*-marked verb include the comitative *be(tan)*; this coincidence in formal marking supports the claim that the subject argument of such clauses is singular in number, the second participant being a comitative complement.

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CHAPTER 10

NOMINALIZATION OF CLAUSES

10.1. Nominalization

Nominalized clauses in SK function as relative, complement and adverbial clauses. But before dealing with each one of these functions, central morpho-syntactic features of SK nominalized clauses are examined; namely, verb morphology, argument structure and alignment, participant agreement, second position clitics, and constituent order. The term *nominalized verb* is abbreviated as V_{NMLZ}.

10.1.1. Verb Morphology

Nominalized verbs take the following final markers: the incompletive participle *-ai* (PP1), the completive participle *-a* (PP2), the narrative past *-a iki* (PP2 AUX), zero on stems carrying the remote tense suffix *-ni* (with the stress shifting to the second syllable if the root is monosyllabic), and the infinitive irrealis marker *-ti* (INF) used to encode purpose, obligation, future, and general situations. In addition, a few verbs exhibit zero

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nominalization. Some verbal endings are shared by nominalized and fully finite main declarative clauses. This is shown in Table 10.1, where the verb *pota-* 'leave, abandon' is used for illustration:

Table 10.1. Nominalizing and Finite Verb Morphology

	Nominalized	Main
Incompletive	*pota-ai*	*pota-ai*
Completive	pota-a	pota-ke
Narrative Past	*pota-a iki*	*pota-a iki*
Remote Incompletive	pota-ni-0	pota-ni-ai
Remote Completive	pota-ni-0	pota-ni-ke
Infinitive / Irrealis	pota-ti	pota-ti iki

Although the nominalized and finite forms italicized above are structurally identical, they differ in distribution and function. In accordance with their derived status, nominalized verbs, and not finite ones, can take nominal morphology (including case-marking when occurring NP-finally) and fill NP positions. The next sentence illustrates an *-ai*-marked finite clause where the relevant morpheme is preceded by the verbal negative *-yama* and the verbal plural *-kan*:

(1) Shipi-baon-ra kapé pi-[y]ama-kan-ai.
Shipibo-PL:ERG-EV alligator:ABS eat-NEG-PL-INC
'The Shipibo don't eat alligator.'

Sentence (1) is a finite independent clause that can stand by itself. In contrast, (2) illustrates an *ai*-marked nominalized clause followed by the nominal plural *-bo* and the

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non-verbal negative *-ma*. Notice, however, that the verbal plural suffix *-kan* is retained under nominalization:

(2) Shipibo-ra kapé pi-kan-ai-bo-ma iki.
Shipibo:ABS-EV alligator eat-PL-PP1-PL-NEG COP
'The Shipibo don't eat alligator.' More literally: "The Shipibo are not alligator-eaters."

Kapé pi[y]amakanai in (1) is a verbal phrase with a predicative function, while *kapé pikanaiboma* in (2) is a nominal copula complement. Moreover, (1) cannot function as a nominal due to the presence of the direct evidential clitic *-ra*, which does not occur inside a major clause constituent.[1]

Nominalized verbs may take a wide range of verbal morphology, except for the finite aspect / illocutionary force markers.[2] Furthermore, some tense-nominalizer combinations are not possible as shown in Table 10.2:

Table 10.2. Tense-Nominalizer Combinations

	PP1 *–ai*	PP2 *-a*	Zero
'Earlier Today' Past	*pota-wan-ai	pota-wan-a	
'Yesterday' Past	*pota-ibat-ai	pota-ibat-a	
'Few Years Ago' Past	*pota-yantan-ai	pota-yantan-a	
Distant Past	*pota-katit-ai	pota-kato	
Remote Past	*pota-ni-ai	*pota-ni-a	pota(-pao)-ni-0

[1] The only exceptions are finite verb forms when being the only or first sentence constituent (see also non-referential relative clause constructions in Valenzuela 2002b).

[2] As shown in Table 10.1, nominalized verbs cannot take the finite aspect marker *-ke*. As for the incompletive, it could be said there are two homonymous morphemes: the finite *-ai*$_1$ and the nominalizing participle *-ai*$_2$. The former may attach to verbs carrying the remote tense marker *-ni* while the latter cannot. A similar argument could be made for *-a iki*.

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Like *-ai*, the infinitive-irrealis marker *-ti* does not combine with the past tense suffixes. As mentioned above, the remote *-ni* does not take any overt nominalizer but attracts the stress when appended to a monosyllabic root; the way to distinguish between a main and a nominalized clause in the remote past is the absence of aspect marking on the latter (i.e., *pota-ni-ke / pota-ni-ai* versus *pota-ni-0*, see also Table 10.1). The sequence *-a iki* is more commonly found in main finite rather than nominalized clauses.

The following elicited example (based on (2) in Chapter 7) contains a nominalized verb carrying a bodypart prefix, as well as various derivational and inflectional suffixes (in SK relative clauses are nominalized):

(3) Nokon koka r-iki
POS1 maternal.uncle:ABS EV-COP

[jawen ochíti ta-nini-nan-yama-bain-wan-kan-a] joni.
POS3 dog:ABS FOOT-pull-MAL-NEG-AND2-PST1-PL-PP2 person
'The man whose dog they did not pull by the foot to his detriment while passing earlier today is my maternal uncle.'

10.1.2. Argument Structure, Alignment, and Adjunct Status

SK nominalized verbs retain the full array of arguments and case-marking frame characteristic of main verbs; therefore, it can be said that SK nominalized clauses are not as nominalized as some of their equivalent structures in other languages.[3]

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The following example shows that the transitive verb *yoi-* 'tell,' even when being part of a nominalized clause, requires an ergative-marked A and an absolutive-marked O. Therefore, in (4) *yoi-* takes the third person singular ergative pronominal form *jan* (rather than its possessive counterpart *jawen*):

(4) Jain ja-ke westíora yoxan [*ja-n* jato yoi-ai]
there exist-CMPL one old.woman 3-ERG 3p:ABS tell-PP1:ABS
'There there was an old woman who told them/telling them…'

The same can be observed in nominalized clauses involving a first person singular pronoun in A function, where the ergative *en* rather than the possessive *nokon* is attested:[4]

(5) [*e-n* atsa xeati a-ma-ibat-a]
1-ERG yuca drink:ABS do.T-CAUS-PST2-PP2
'that I invited (to drink) yuca beer'

The next examples are two-fold. First, they show that adjuncts in nominalized clauses exhibit the same participant agreement morphology they bear in finite clauses. Secondly, the examples illustrate that nominalized verbs, when occurring NP-finally, carry case-marking *vis-à-vis* the role of that NP in the matrix clause. In (6) the subject of *nokota* obligatorily imposes S agreement on the ablative 'from Kako;' at the same time,

[3] Turkish and Cuzco Quechua, for example, have nominalized clauses that are structurally a possessive construction; i.e., subjects are in the genitive rather than in the nominative denoting their status as nominal modifiers of the nominalized verb, and the nominalized clause is marked for possession.

[4] Recall that the remaining pronouns and nouns exhibit the same form when playing ergative and possessive functions.

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the nominalized verb receives ergative case-marking, given that the NP of which it is a constituent plays the A function in the main clause:

(6) a. [Ainbo [Kako-nko-ni-a-*x* nokot-a]]-*tonin*-ra rao
woman Kako-LOC-LIG-ABL-S arrive-PP2-ERG-EV plant.medicine:ABS

kobin ak-ai.
ONOM:boil do.T-INC
'The woman who arrived from Kako is boiling the plant medicine.'

b. Ainbo-ra Kako-nko-ni-a-*x* nokó-ke.
woman:ABS-EV Kako-LOC-LIG-ABL-S meet:MID-CMPL
'The / a woman arrived from Kako.'

The subject of *onanyantaana* in (7) imposes A (rather than S) agreement on the locative adjunct; being the last element of the NP functioning as S in the main clause, *onanyantaana* is (un)marked for absolutive case:

(7) a. Ainbo [Makáyain-*xon* e-n onan-yantaan-a]-ra ne-no
woman Makaya:LOC-A 1-ERG know-PST3-PP2:ABS-EV PROX-LOC

nokó-ke.
meet:MID-CMPL
'The woman I met in Makaya last year arrived here'.

b. E-n-ra ainbo onan-yantan-ke Makáyain-*xon*.
1-ERG-EV woman:ABS know-PST3-CMPL Makaya:LOC-A
'I met a / the woman in Makaya last year.'

Examples exhibiting participant agreement on manner adjuncts follow:

(8) a. [jatik-*ax*-bi teet-ai]
altogether-S-EM work-PP1
'who / that work altogether'

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b. [jatí-*xon*-bi sepa-[a]i]
altogether-A-EM slash-PP1
'who / that slash a chacra altogether'

Since only adjuncts (i.e., adverbial-like elements) and not adjectives receive participant agreement inflection, it can be concluded the former retain their status as such under nominalization.[5]

10.1.3. Sentence Second Position Clitics

The direct and reportative markers *-ra* and *-ronki*, as well as the interrogative *-ki* are second position clitics which occur after the first major constituent of a sentence. Being (part of) a major sentence constituent and not an independent sentence in itself, a nominalized clause cannot contain a second position clitic. A whole nominalized clause, however, may take one of these morphemes when initiating the sentence of which it is part. This can be seen in a great deal of examples. For instance, compare (6a) and (7a) with their (b) counterparts. In the former, the direct evidential *-ra* occurs after the first sentence constituent; i.e., after the whole nominalized clause.

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[5] This feature differentiates SK nominalized clauses from similar constructions in English, where semantic manner adverbs tend to be expressed as adjectival modifiers (Givón 1990:507-8):

i. a. The enemy *rapidly* destroyed the city
b. The enemy's *rapid* destruction of the city

ii. a. She *quickly* departed
b. Her *quick* departure

A similar loss of adverbial status is attested in Cuzco Quechua.

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10.1.4. Constituent Order

Unlike the constituent order flexibility found in main clauses, nominalized clauses are obligatorily verb-final. Moreover, in the text data, almost all transitive nominalized clauses with two expressed arguments follow the AOV order. (9a) is a nominalized complement clause following the preferred order:

(9) a. [Nawa profesor-nin bake-bo onan-ma-ti]-ra
mestizo teacher-ERG child-PL:ABS know-CAUS-INF:ABS-EV

a-ti-koma iki.
do.T-INF-true:NEG COP
'That a *mestizo* teacher teaches (Shipibo) children is hard.'

Although somewhat dispreferred with respect to (9a), (9b) exhibiting OAV order is also possible; in contrast, the non-verbfinal versions are clearly ungrammatical:

b. [Bake-bo nawa profesor-nin onan-ma-ti]-ra.... OAV
child-PL:ABS *mestizo* teacher-ERG know-CAUS-INF:ABS-EV

c. *[Bake-bo onan-ma-ti nawa profesor-nin]-ra.... *OVA
child-PL:ABS know-CAUS-INF *mestizo* teacher:ERG-EV

d. *[Nawa profesor-nin onan-ma-ti bake-bo]-ra.... *AVO
mestizo teacher-ERG know-CAUS-INF child-PL:ABS-EV
'That a *mestizo* teacher teaches (Shipibo) children is hard.'

Sentence (10) illustrates the possible orders in a relative clause; again, it can be seen that nominalized clauses are necessarily verb-final:

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(10) a. Nokon wetsa-n-ra [baikan nonti be-ai]
POS1 same.sex.sibling-ERG-EV water.current:ERG canoe:ABS bring-PP1

tsasi a-ke.
stop do.T-CMPL
'My brother stopped the canoe that was being brought by the river current.'
(Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:417; analyzed in Valenzuela 2002b:15-16).

Example (10b) has two possible interpretations since *nonti* 'canoe' may be part of the relative clause or an external preceding head; both possibilities are grammatical as will be discussed in 10.2.1. Ex. (10d) is possible only if *nonti* is read as head:

b. [nonti baikan be-ai] / nonti [baikan be-ai] OAV
canoe:ABS w.c:ERG bring-PP1 canoe w.c.:ERG bring-PP1

c. *[nonti be-ai baikan] *OVA
canoe:ABS bring-PP1 w.c.:ERG

d. [baikan be-ai] nonti / *[baikan be-ai nonti] *AVO
w.c.:ERG bring-PP1 canoe w.c.:ERG bring-PP1 canoe
'...the canoe that was being brought by the river current' (elicitation)

(11) is a text excerpt containing a relative clause with overt AOV constituents:

(11) ...[nokon papa-n e-a yoi-katit-ai] jato yoi-ti ja-ke.
POS1 father-ERG 1-ABS tell-PST4-PP1:ABS 3p:ABS tell-INF exist-CMPL
'...(I) have to pass on to them what my father used to tell me.'

In (12) the recipient object of a ditransitive nominalized clause occurs clause-initially; this is clearly related to its high animacy / topicality status. Alternative orders keeping the verb-final principle were accepted but dispreferred with respect to (12):

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(12) [E-a maistoro-n taría a-ti meni-a-bi]-ra a-ti-koma iki.
1-ABS teacher-ERG work do.T-INF give-PP2-EM-EV do.T-INF-true:NEG COP
'The work the teacher assigned me is difficult.' (Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:97; my analysis)

Nominalized clauses with three overt arguments are non-existent in the text data.

As for non-arguments, these may occur at different positions inside a nominalized clause, except for clause-finally:

(13) a. [*Bakish* mi-n ainbo onan-ibat-a]-ra moa ka-ke.
one.day.away 2-ERG woman:ABS know-PST2-PP2-EV already go-CMPL
'The woman you met yesterday left already.'

b. [mi-n *bakish* ainbo onan-ibat-a]ra moa ka-ke.
2-ERG one.day.away woman:ABS know-PST2-PP2-EV already go-CMPL

c. *[mi-n ainbo onan-ibat-a *bakish*]-ra moa ka-ke.
2-ERG woman:ABS know-PST2-PP2 one.day.away-EV already go-CMPL

Therefore, it can be concluded that SK nominalized clauses are obligatorily verb-final, the preferred order in transitive clauses being AOV.

Summarizing the discussion in this section, I have shown that SK nominalized clauses, though somewhat restricted in terms of verb finite marking and constituent order, maintain important main clause features: the verb retains its full array of arguments and these arguments keep the case-marking found in independent clauses. Furthermore, adjuncts in nominalized verbs exhibit participant agreement indicating they preserve their status as such (rather than becoming more adjective-like). The following table summarizes the similarities and differences between main declarative clauses and nominalized clauses in SK.

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Table 10.3. Comparison of Main Declarative and Nominalized Clauses

MAIN DECLARATIVE	NOMINALIZED
-Flexible constituent order including non-verb final orders.	-Strictly verb-final and strong AOV tendency.
-V keeps full array of arguments.	-V_{NMLZ} keeps full array of arguments, arguments take case-markers as in Cl_{MAIN}.
-V has no tense-aspect restrictions.	-V_{NMLZ} exhibit reduced tense and aspect combinations, and a set of nominalizers.
-V cannot take nominal morphology	-Being nominalized, V_{NMLZ}s may take nominal morphology directly.
-Adjuncts may carry transitivity agreement	-Adjuncts keep their status and may carry participant agreement.
-Clause can contain second position clitics like the direct evidential *-ra* and the interrogative *-ki*.	-Cannot contain second position clitics.

As mentioned at the beginning of the present chapter, nominalized clauses in SK function as relative, complement and adverbial clauses; in the latter case, they are generally accompanied by peripheral cases or postpositions. We now turn to examine each one of these functions.

10.2. Relative Clauses

Relative clauses (Cl_{REL}s) in SK are encoded through the type of moderately nominalized clause described above. In this section relative clause constructions are described in

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terms of positional types, as well as the syntactic roles that can be relativized on and the relativization strategies employed in each case. It will be shown that SK utilizes structurally similar prenominal, postnominal and circumnominal Cl_{REL} constructions; a feature that may be uncommon cross-linguistically. Also, it must be highlighted that relativization constitutes the only area of the grammar where a syntactic ergative pattern has been attested. In this chapter nominal heads have been underlined and relative clauses appear within brackets; the abbreviation V_{REL} stands for relativized verb.

10.2.1. Positional Types

10.2.1.1. Headed Relative Constructions

As for the relative position of head nominal and Cl_{REL}, the three potential orders can be attested in SK. Cl_{REL}s can be prenominal as in examples (14)-(16); postnominal, exx. (17)-(19); and circumnominal or internally-headed as in (20)-(22). Examples (14), (17) and (20) are elicited and have been included for comparison.

Prenominal relative clauses

(14) [Papa-n rete-ibat-a] jono-ra
father-ERG kill-PST2-PP2 collared.peccary:ABS-EV

moa no-n keyo-ke.
already 1p-ERG finish-CMPL
'We already finished the collared-peccary father killed yesterday.'

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(15) [Jain jato bi-ai] joni-bo ik-á iki tanpóra-ya…
there 3p:ABS get-PP1 person-PL:ABS do.I-PP2 AUX drum-PROP
'The people who came to welcome them there had drums…'

(16) Tita-ra keyo-t-ai, ja-tian no-a bane-ti ka-[a]i
mother:ABS-EV finish-MID-INC that-TEMP 1p-ABS stay-INF go-INC

[ja-n no-a axe-a-a] jawéki-bo-ya.
3-ERG 1p-ABS get.used.to-do.T-PP2 thing-PL-PROP
'Our mother dies and then we are left with the things that she taught us.'

Postnominal relative clauses

(17) jono [papa-n rete-ibat-a]-ra moa no-n keyo-ke.
c.peccary father-ERG kill-PST2-PP2:ABS-EV already 1p-ERG finish-CMPL
'We already finished the collared-peccary father killed yesterday.'

(18) Ja iki Shipibo [mashá ik-í nena-ni].
that:ABS COP Shipibo *mashá* do.I-SSSS turn.into.*nena*-REM:NMLZ
'Those (*nena* palm trees forming a circle) were the Shipibo who very long time ago, while performing the *mashá* (singing and dancing), turned into *nena* trees.'

(19) Jain-xon… mashá i-kan-ai… xeati [yaka-t-a]-ki,
there-PDCA *mashá* do.I-INC drink sitting.position.I-MID-PP2-DAT

ja xobo [yaka-t-a]-ki,
that house sitting.position.I-MID-PP2-DAT

ja witá [ni-a-bo]-ki.
that logs.holding.the.house stand-PP2-PL-DAT
'Then, they performed the *mashá* honoring…the drink in the jars, the house standing there, and the logs (that hold the house) standing there.'

Circumnominal relative clauses

(20) [Papa-n jono rete-ibat-a]-ra moa no-n
father-ERG collared.peccary:ABS kill-PST2-PP2:ABS-EV already 1p-ERG

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keyo-ke.
finish-CMPL
'We already finished the collared-peccary father killed yesterday.'

(21) [No-n ja rao xea-a] ik-á iki
1p-ERG that plant.medicine:ABS drink-PP2:ABS do.I-PP2 AUX

ja-skat-i kikin moka kinan-ti.
that-SIML-S extremely bitter vomit-INF
'The plant medicine we drank was extremely bitter so as to provoke vomiting.'

(22) [Mi-n yawa maan-ibat-a]-ra onsá-yora iki.
2-ERG w.l.peccary:ABS bring.down-PST2-PP2:ABS-EV dangerous-very COP
'The white-lipped peccaries you brought down [from the sky] are too dangerous.'

Given that SK clearly utilizes internally-headed Cl_{REL}s, a question that arises is whether the constructions in (17)-(19), analyzed above as postnominal, can alternatively be interpreted as internally-headed. However, there are different arguments in favor of the existence of postnominal Cl_{REL}s. First, in certain instances an internally-headed interpretation would violate the preferred AOV constituent order found in Cl_{REL}s and nominalized clauses in general. This would be the case of (23) and (24) where *manan keyá* 'steep mountain' and *nokon machíto* 'my machete' function as Cl_{REL} objects:

(23) Jain ik-á iki manan keyá, [tso-n-bi mape-ti]-ma
there do.I-PP2 AUX mountain steep who-ERG-EM climb-INF-NEG
'There, there was a steep mountain that nobody could climb.'

(24) Meráya-nin-ra e-a namá-xon-ke nokon machíto
great.shaman-ERG-EV 1-ABS dream-BEN-CMPL POS1 machete

[e-n manó-ma-yantan-a].
1-ERG get.lost-CAUS-PST3-PP2:ABS
'The great shaman dreamed for me of the machete I had misplaced some time ago.'

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Nevertheless, constituent order is not a decisive counterargument given that, as shown in 10.1.4, the OAV order (although dispreferred) may occur in elicited nominalized clauses or when an object referent is high in animacy / topicality.[6]

Case-marking provides much stronger support in favor of the postnominal analysis. In some transitive Cl_{REL}s analyzed here as postnominal, the head does not bear a case *vis-à-vis* its Cl_{REL}. In the next sentence, the main clause verbal complex *iká iki neeti* is intransitive and requires an absolutive subject, while the V_{REL} *shinan-* is transitive and would require an ergative subject. Since *jonibo* is in the absolutive, it can be concluded that this nominal functions as the main clause subject and hence the Cl_{REL} is postnominal:

(25) …jato-n xobo-n-bo-ki joni-bo [ja shinan-tani-ai-bo]
3p-GEN house-ALL-PL-HSY2 person-PL that/3:ABS think-ATT-PP1-PL:ABS

ik-á iki neet-i.
do.I-PP2 AUX go.up.SSSI
'Those who were a little bit conscious climbed up to their houses.' (Inuma 1993:25)

---

[6] An analogous question is discussed by DeLancey (1999) in a study of Lhasa Tibetan relatives. DeLancey evaluates whether (iii), which he interprets as containing a postnominal Cl_{REL}, could be alternatively analyzed as an internally-headed relative like (iv) (from DeLancey, op. cit.):

(iii) mi [sha gtub=mkhan de]
person meat chop=NMLZ DEM
'the person who chopped the meat' (p. 243)

(iv) [nga-s sha btsos-pas de]
I-ERG meat cooked-NMLZ DEM
'the meat which I cooked' (p. 246)

In Lhasa Tibetan main clause objects may precede subjects for purposes of topicalization.

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In (25) the demonstrative *ja* occurs between *jonibo* and the V_{REL}, suggesting the possibility that (25) may be an instance of a nominal followed by a headless relative (*ja* functions as definitizer and as anaphoric pronoun, see 10.2.3). However, the same sentence without *ja* is perfectly fine. A similar example is (26a); again, the matrix verb is intransitve, the V_{REL} is transitive and the head occurs in the absolutive case. Compare the occurrences of *yamekan ewa* in (26a) and (26b); in the latter instance ergative case-marking is required:

(26) a. Ja-ská-xon jis-á-ki ik-á iki
that-SIML-PDCA see-PP2-HSY2 be-PP2 AUX

yamekan ewa [moa bari noka ak-ai].
darkness:*n* AUG already sun:ABS shade do.T-PP1:ABS
'Then they saw the eclipse that shaded the sun already.'

b. Yamekan ewa-*n*-ra moa bari noka ak-ai.
darkness:*n* AUG-ERG-EV already sun:ABS shade do.T-INC
'The great darkness shaded the sun already.'

There is no evidence to suggest that certain syntactically dependent clause types in SK trigger a split of the ergative-absolutive alignment. On the contrary, all clear instances of overt A arguments within Cl_{REL}s and nominalized clauses in general indicate that the ergative alignment is kept.

An additional argument in support of the postnominal interpretation has to do with the probable parallelism between relative and adjectival constructions. In SK, adjectives can either precede or follow their modified head with no obvious semantic difference; both orders are commonly attested in spontaneous speech (see 6.7.6), with a

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probable preference to place heavy constituents in post-head positions (6.7.7). The examples below were introduced in Chapter 6 as (142) and (143):

(27) Bo-ax nokó-kan-a iki *ani manaman.*
go.PL-PSSS meet:MID-PL-PP2 AUX big mountain:LOC
'Getting there they arrived at a big mountain'.

(28) Jain ik-á iki *manan keyá,* [tso-n-bi mape-ti]-ma
there be-PP2 AUX mountain steep:ABS who-ERG-EM climb-INF-NEG
'There, there was a steep mountain that nobody could climb.'

Given that both adjectives and Cl_{REL}s can be seen as playing very similar functions (they are optional descriptive nominal modifiers), the possibility of having postnominal Cl_{REL}s would be supported by a parallelism between relative and adjectival constructions (a comparable situation may be found in Lhasa Tibetan, DeLancey 1999).

Another important piece of evidence in favor of the postnominal Cl_{REL} analysis is provided in utterances such as (29) and (30); (29) was introduced earlier as (4):

(29) Ja-tian jain ja-ke westíora yoxan [*ja-n* jato yoi-ai]....
that-TEMP there exist-CMPL one old.woman 3-ERG 3p:ABS say-PP1:ABS
'And then there was an old woman who told them / telling them...'

(30) Jain iki pionis bepon [*ja-n* rao-n-kati-kan-ai].
there COP *pionis* resin 3-INST plant.medicine-TRNZ-PST4-PL-PP1:ABS
'There is the resin *pionis* with which they cured (the girls).'

Analyzing *yoxan* and *pionis bepon* as contained within their respective Cl_{REL}s would entail that the heads are expressed in the Cl_{REL} by an unreduced nominal and an anaphoric pronoun simultaneously. This situation would be rather odd, especially in subject-relativization (see also exx. (85)-(87), (89)-(96), among others).

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Additionally, it must be pointed out that in certain cases a pause between the proposed external head and the subsequent Cl_{REL} has been attested:

(31) …jawe-ra i-bir[a]-ai tepacha a-ti iamax rapichi,
what:ABS-EV do.I-INFR-INC tepacha do.T-INF or trapiche

[*ja-n* xawi jene-bo potsi-ti].
3-INST sugar.cane flowing.water-PL:ABS squeeze-INF
'…what will we use, a *tepacha* or a *trapiche*, to extract the cane juice (with it).'

Finally, consider the following sentence where it seems obvious that the head is part of the main clause. In (32), the nominal *westíora nawa* carries the emphatic *-bi* which in combination with the negative existential *yamarake* yield the meaning 'there is not a single *mestizo*' (a similar construction is found with negative indefinites treated in 8.2.9.2.; see also ex. (45)):

(32) Yama-ra-ke westíora nawa-bi [no-n joi
exist.not-EV-CMPL one *mestizo*-EM 1p-GEN language:ABS

jakon-i yoyo ik-ai].
good-S ONOM:speak do.I-PP1:ABS
'There is not a single *mestizo* who can speak our language well.'

I conclude that there is enough evidence to claim that SK exhibits prenominal, postnominal and circumnominal or internally-headed Cl_{REL}s.[7] These three positional types are found in spontaneous text as well as elicited data, and none of them can be said to be uncommon.

[7] A distinction between internally-headed and circumnominal relatives is not relevant in SK.

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Finally, it is possible for a head to be preceded and followed by a Cl_{REL} simultaneously:

(33) [Ja bi-ti] ainbo [jawen papa-n raan-a] i-ká iki
that get-INF woman POS3 father-ERG send-PP2:ABS do.I-PP2 AUX

chi-yaká.
BUTTOCK-sitting.position.I:MID:PP2
'The woman he had to take as wife and who had been sent by her father was seated in the back of the canoe.'

Again, a parallelism between relative and adjectival constructions can be observed. As discussed in 6.7.6, when combining one noun with two adjectives, the sequences below are the preferred ones:

(34) a. wiso ochíti siná
black dog fierce
'black fierce dog'

b. mecha joni shinan-ya
good fisherman/hunter person thinking-PROP
'good fisherman / hunter, well-intentioned man'

In some instances a pause may be heard after the head:

(35) Inka-ronki i-ká iki [wai-n teet-ai] joni, [jatíbi jawéki
Inka:ABS-HSY be-PP2 AUX chacra-LOC work-PP1 man all food:ABS

ban-ai].
sow-PP1
'The Inka was a man who practiced agriculture and grew all kinds of crops.'

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This flexibility in the relative order of head and Cl_{REL} constitutes a characteristic of particular typological interest. According to Keenan (1985a:144-5), the postnominal type of Cl_{REL} is the most commonly found as dominant in verb-initial and SVO languages (although in SVO languages it is easier to find both prenominal and postnominal Cl_{REL}s). Verb-final languages like SK have a tendency to exhibit prenominal Cl_{REL}s as the dominant type, but it is also common to find any of the other kinds as dominant. However, it might be unusual for a language to commonly utilize structurally similar prenominal, postnominal and circumnominal Cl_{REL}s to relativize the same syntactic positions or case-roles.

In section 10.2.4.8 yet another possible argument for the postnominal analysis over the internally-headed one in certain relative constructions is offered; namely, the fact that clearly internally-headed Cl_{REL}s occur only in O-relativization in the text corpus.

10.2.1.2. Headless Relative Constructions

It is common to have attributive clauses which only differ from the ones examined so far in that they lack an expressed head. These headless clauses constitute NPs by themselves and function directly as matrix clause arguments. The following example is taken from a traditional story according to which the only Shipibo man surviving a deluge is visited by two women, the Inka's daughter and her servant. After being captured by the man, the servant pronounces the following expression containing two headless relatives:

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(36) a. E-a-ma r-iki [no-n Inka-n raan-a],
1-ABS-NEG EV-COP 1p-GEN InKa-ERG send-PP2

oa-kaya r-iki [mi-n bi-ti].
DIST-CONTRST EV-COP 2-ERG receive-INF
'I am not the one sent by our Inka; it is the one over there that you must take as wife.'

The head *ainbo* 'woman' could be easily added to one or both of the relative constructions above; however, expressions with two postnominal relatives are rejected by native speakers:

b. E-a-ma r-iki [no-n Inka-n raan-a] ainbo,
1-ABS-NEG EV-COP 1p-GEN Inka-ERG send-PP2 woman

oa-kaya r-iki [mi-n bi-ti] ainbo.
DIST:ABS-CONTRST EV-COP 2-ERG get-INF woman

c. E-a-ma r-iki [no-n Inka-n raan-a] ainbo
1-ABS-NEG EV-COP 1p-GEN Inka-ERG send-PP2 woman

oa-kaya r-iki ainbo [mi-n bi-ti].
DIST:ABS-CONTRST EV-COP woman 2-ERG get-INF

d. *E-a-ma r-iki ainbo [no-n Inka-n raan-a],
1-ABS-NEG EV-COP woman 1p-GEN Inka-ERG send-PP2

oa-kaya r-iki ainbo [mi-n bi-ti].
DIST:ABS-CONTRST EV-COP woman 2-GEN get-INF

e. ??E-a-ma r-iki ainbo [no-n Inka-n raan-a],
1-ABS-NEG EV-COP woman 1p-GEN Inca-ERG send-PP2

oa-kaya r-iki [mi-n bi-ti] ainbo.
DIST:ABS-CONTRST EV-COP 2-ERG get-INF woman
'I am not the woman sent by our Inka, it is the woman over there that you must take as wife.'

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10.2.1.3. Relative Clauses that Interrupt a Determiner-Head Sequence

Demonstrative modifiers in SK occur in NP-initial position. A very common type of Cl_{REL} is one separating such a determiner from its head. The examples below illustrate the three demonstratives, *nato* (proximate), *ja* (medial) and *oa* (distal), separated from their heads by a Cl_{REL}. Again, a parallel with adjectival constructions can be noted; the Cl_{REL}s in the (a) sentences can be easily replaced by a simple adjective, as shown in the (b) examples:

(37) a. Nato [jene-n rete-a] ainbaon-ra moa join-ai.
this flowing.water-ERG kill-PP2 woman.ERG-EV already breathe-INC
'This woman who was drowning is breathing already.' (Lit. "The woman (whom) the flowing water had killed is breathing already.") (Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:230)

b. Nato yoashi ainbaon-ra moa join-ai.
this stingy woman:ERG-EV already breathe-INC
'This stingy woman is breathing already.'

(38) a. Ja [wexa-anan-a] joni rabé raká-kan-ai
that cut.w/*wexati*-REC-PP2 man two:ABS lying.position:MID-INC

westíora oxé.
one moon:TEMP
'The two men who cut each other with the *wexati* knife lay for one month.'

b. Ja yopa joni rabé-ra raká-kan-ai
that bad.hunter/fisher person two:ABS-EV lying.position:MID-PL-INC

westíora oxe.
one moon
'Those two bad hunter / fisher men lay for a month...'

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(39) a. Jain ik-á iki oa [no-a shiro bewakan ninká-ma-ai-bo]
there do.I-PP2 AUX DIST 1p-ABS *shiro* song:MNS hear-CAUS-PP1-PL

ainbo-bo.
woman-PL:ABS
'There stood the women who provoked us with their *shiro* songs.'

b. Jain ik-á iki oa siná ainbo-bo.
there do.I-PP2 AUX DIST brave woman-PL:ABS
'There stood those brave women.'

A similar situation can be attested when numerals precede their modified nominal (as treated in section 6.7.5, a numeral may either precede or follow its head):

(40) a. E-n-ra mato yoi-ai westíora [nokon yosi-shoko betan e-a
1-ERG-EV 2p:ABS say-INC one POS1 elder-DIM CONJ 1-ABS

winó-ni] jawéki....
pass:MID-REM:NMLZ thing:ABS
'I will tell you one thing that happened to me and my grandfather...'

b. E-n-ra mato yoiy-ai rabé onis jawéki.
1-ERG-EV 2p:ABS tell-INC two sad thing:ABS
'I am going to tell you two sad things.'

10.2.1.4. Relative Clauses that Interrupt a Complex Predicate

The following headless Cl_{REL} occurs between the auxiliary *iká iki* and its structurally dependent verb *biax*; i.e., the complete complex predicate is the periphrastic *iká iki...biax*:

(41) Ja-tian ja-bo bo-kan-ke-tian, nokon tita ik-á iki
that-TEMP 3-PL:ABS go.n.SG-PL-P-DS POS1 mother:ABS be-PP2 AUX

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[jatíbi ja-n nokon wetsa rabé raó a-ti] *bi-ax*:
all 3-INST POS1 same.sex.sibling two:ABS embellish-INF:ABS get-PSSS

kori, nane, maxe, meskó keská jawéki-bo.
lower.lip.ornament genipa, achiote different SIML thing-PL:ABS
'By the time they (the uncles) left, my mother had already gotten all (those things) with which to embellish my two sisters: lip ornaments, genipa, achiote, all kinds of things.'

10.2.1.5. Discontinuous Relative Constructions

There are instances in which a head and its Cl_{REL} are separated by another modifying expression. In (42), an adjective separates the head from its modifying clauses:

(42) Ja-ke Shipibo *jakon-ma*-ribi [ja no-a oin-ax "jo-wé"
exist-CMPL Shipibo good-NEG:ABS-also that 1p-ABS see-PSSS come-IMP

i-ama-[a]i-bo-ribi], [no-a oinn-a-ma jis-á-res
do.I-NEG-PP1-PL:ABS-also 1p-ABS see-PP2-NEG pretend-PP2-just

ik-ai].
do.I-PP1:ABS
'There are also bad Shipibo (men) who do not greet us when they see us, who act as if they had not seen us.'

It is also possible that the head and the Cl_{REL} be separated by a numeral:

(43) Ja-tian jain i-kan-ai ja xontako rabé [tanti-ma-kan-a]...
that-TEMP there do.I-PL-INC that young.girl two rest-CAUS-PL-PP2:ABS
'And then there were the two young girls who had been put to rest...' (the SK sentence is active)

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In the next example, the clause *kikin xeta wisobiribi iki* ends in the same-subject marker *-i*, which indicates its dependency on an intransitive matrix clause; i.e., on the main clause whose verb is *jakátiai*. In this case, the reference-marked clause interrupts the relative construction and can be interpreted as playing an attributive function with respect to the relative head:

(44) Ja-káti-ai [yotokonti pi-á] kikin xeta wiso-bi-ribi ik-í
exist-PST4-INC *yotokonti*:ABS eat-PP2 extremely tooth black-EM-also do.I-SSSI

joni-bo.
person-PL:ABS
'There were people who ate *yotokonti* and whose teeth were extremely (shiny) black.'

There are also instances of extraposed Cl_{REL}s. In (45), the fronted sequence *westíora jonibi*, 'a single man,' constitutes a semantic unit with the subsequent Cl_{REL}s. Nevertheless, the relative construction is interrupted by the AV sequence. Notice also the occurrence of the adjective *mecha* between two Cl_{REL}s:

(45) Ikaxbi rama-tian westíora joni-bi no-n mera-yama-[a]i
but now-TEMP one man:ABS-EM 1p-ERG find-NEG-INC

[wai-a-[a]i], mecha, [ja sapen rete-ai], [wame
chacra-do.T-PP1 good.fisher/hunter that manatee:ABS kill-PP1 *paiche*:ABS

rete-ai].
kill-PP1
'But nowadays we can't find a single man who knows how to make chacra, a good fisher / hunter, who kills manatee, kills *paiche*.'

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Two more text examples with extraposed relative clauses follow:[8]

(46) …jain-xon-ribi-ra a-ti iki mi-n wetsa-n
there-PDCA-also-EV do.T-INF AUX 2-GEN same.sex.sibling-ERG

chomo ani a-kin, kentí ani a-kin,
jar big do.T-SSSA pot big:ABS do.T-SSSA

[ja-n atsa xeati yasa-n-ti].
3-LOC yuca drink:ABS sitting.position.T-TRNZ-INF
'…also, your sister has to manufacture big jars and pots in which to put the yuca beer.'

(47) No-a ainbo-bo iki joxo nawa-bo keská-ma,
1p-ABS woman-PL:ABS COP white outsider-PL SIML-NEG

[koríki-nin-bicho jawéki ak-ai-bo].
money-INST-only thing:ABS do.T-PP1-PL
'We, Shipibo women, are not like the (female) white outsiders, who only know how to do things with money.'

A discontinuous relative construction can also have a fronted Cl_{REL}:

(48) [Awaranpiti naman raka-t-a]-ra e-n mananxawe bi-ke.
k.vine under lying-MID-PP2-EV 1-ERG tortoise:ABS get-CMPL
'I caught a tortoise that was lying under the / one vine.' (Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:87)

(49) [Taxbakan nono-ai]-ra epa-n ano rete-ke.
tahuampa:LOC swim-PP1-EV paternal.uncle-ERG paca:ABS kill-CMPL
'Uncle killed a paca that was swimming in the *tahuampa*'[9] (Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:91)

---

[8] Sentences (46) and (47) are comparable to the following English examples, where 'who was invited' modifies 'everyone' in the same way in both sentences (from Jacobson 1994:719):

iii. a. Everyone who was invited arrived.
b. Everyone arrived who was invited.

[9] Seasonal flood plain.

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Although (48) and (49) have no overt means to indicate which argument of the transitive main clause is the head, only the O can be interpreted as such. This will be dealt with in 10.2.4.8.

The next example, partially given in (40a), illustrates another instance of a discontinuous Cl_{REL}. The adjunct clause *yomerai kaax* bears the previous same-subject marker *-ax* indicating agreement with an S argument; i.e., the Cl_{REL} subject. Not only the Cl_{REL} separates the numeral from its head, but also the head separates the relativized matrix clause from its dependent same-subject marked clause:

(50) E-n-ra mato yoi-ai westíora [nokon yosi-shoko betan e-a
1-ERG-EV 2p:ABS say-INC one POS1 elder-DIM CONJ 1-ABS

winó-ni] jawéki yomera-i ka-[a]x].
pass:MID-REM:NMLZ thing:ABS get.prey-SSSS go-PSSS
'I will tell you one thing that happened to me and my grandfather once we went fishing.'

Also a headless Cl_{REL} may have its own dependent clauses, as shown in the sentence below. In (51) *ainbo bikaskin* is dependent on *raonti*, as indicated by the same-subject marker *-kin* which exhibits A agreement and hence a transitive controlling verb:

(51) Koshoshka-nin xeni iki [[*ainbo bi-kas-kin*] rao-n-ti].
river.dolphin-GEN fat:ABS COP woman get-DES-SSSA medicine-TRNZ-INF
'The river dolphin's fat is (that which is used) to cure a woman when one wants to conquer her.'

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10.2.2. The Absence of a Differential Nominalization Strategy

As will be shown in 10.2.4, the most common relativization strategies in SK are gapping and anaphoric pronominalization. In this section, however, other related issues are discussed; namely, the absence of a differential nominalization strategy and the use of the medial demonstrative *ja* as definitizer.

Many languages of the world not only make use of nominalized structures in relative constructions but also employ nominalization as a means to identify the grammatical role of the relativized element. Given that SK Cl_{REL}s are clearly nominalized one may ask whether this device is used as a relativization strategy.

The examples that follow will show that this hypothesis is incorrect since in SK nominalizers provide no semantic role or syntactic function information. In examples (52)-(53) the subordinate verb *pi-á* is used in the relativization of A and O, respectively ((52) was previously given as (44)):

(52) Ja-káti-ai [yotokonti *pi-á*] kikin xeta wiso-bi-ribi
exist-PST4-INC *yotokonti*:ABS eat-PP2 extremely tooth black-EM-also

ik-í joni-bo.
do.I-SSSS person-PL:ABS
'There were people who ate *yotokonti* and whose teeth were extremely (shiny) black.'

(53) [*Pi-á*]-tonin-ra e-a kinan-ma-ke.
eat-PP2-ERG-EV 1-ABS vomit-CAUS-CMPL
'What I ate made me vomit'.

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In the following sentence we find an *-a* nominalized clause used in S-relativization:

(54) E-a-ra beno-a iki [nokon papa yokat-i jo-*a*]
1-ABS-EV get.married-PP2 AUX POS1 father:ABS ask-SSSS come-PP2

joni betan.
man COM
'I got married with the man who came to ask (my hand to) my father.'

The same can be shown for *-ai* nominalized clauses. Exx. (55)-(57) illustrate instances of A-, S- and O-relatives, respectively:

(55) ...jain oa ainbo-bo [no-a ...shiro bewakan ninká-ma-*ai*-bo].
there DIST woman-PL 1p-ABS *shiro* song:INST hear-CAUS-PP1-PL:ABS
'...there (were) the women who provoked us with their *shiro* songs.'

(56) Mapéken-xon oin-a iki xoxo bake-bo [naikamea ik-*ai*] .
uncover-PSSA see-PP2 AUX illegitimate.child-PL:ABS sky:LOC:ABL do.I-PP1
'Uncovering (them) (he) saw the illegitimate children who were from the sky.'

(57) ...jain-xon [no-n tita-n a-káti-*ai*] jawéki-ribi no-n
there-PDCA 1p-GEN mother-ERG do.T-PST4-PP1 thing:ABS-also 1p-ERG

chiban-ai.
follow-INC
'...and then we continue practicing the things that our mother used to do.'

The next sentences show clauses nominalized by *-ni* functioning as A-, S- and O-relatives:

(58) Ja-ki ik-á iki ja [Inka bake bi-*ní*] joni.
3:ABS-HSY2 be-PP2 AUX that Inka child get-REM:NMLZ man:ABS
'He / this was the man who had rescued the Inka child long time ago'.

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The next example was previously given as (18):

(59) Ja iki Shipibo [mashá ik-í nena-*ni*].
that:ABS COP Shipibo *mashá* do.I-SSSS turn.into.*nena*-REM:NMLZ
'Those (*nena* palm trees forming a circle) were the Shipibo who very long time ago, while performing the *mashá* (singing and dancing), turned into *nena* palm trees.'

(60) Ja-tian no-n tita no-n kikin a-kin shinan-ai
that-TEMP 1p-GEN mother:ABS 1p-ERG extremely do.T-SSSA think-INC

[ja-n no-a a-ma-*ni*] jawéki-bo.
3-ERG 1p-ABS do.T-CAUS-REM:NMLZ thing-PL:ABS
'Then, we remember our mother very much and the things that she taught us.'

Nominalizations marked by the infinitive *-ti* in S-, O- and instrumental-relatives follow:[10]

(61) Ja r-iki [no-n axé i-*ti*]-n-a
that:ABS EV-COP 1p-GEN custom do.I-INF-GEN-NMLZ
'This is what belongs to our custom.'

(62) Payári r-iki [pia-n tsaka-*ti*].
arahuana:ABS EV-COP arrow-INST drive-INF
'The *arahuana*[11] is (something) to drive with arrow.' (Valenzuela 1998:239)

(63) ...ja iki [ja-n xawi jene potsi-*ti*].
3:ABS COP 3-INST sugar.cane juice:ABS extract-INF
'...it (a *tepachati*) is (something) to extract the cane juice with.'

---

[10] *-Ti*-relatives are comparable to English infinitival relatives, which also fail to signal the role of the relativized nominal (from Keenan 1985:169):

iv. a. The man to see is Fred.
b. The first man to cross the line will get a prize.

SK *-ti*-relatives appear to be more frequent than English infinitival relatives.

[11] K. fish; *Osteoglossum bicirrhosum.*

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The nominalizer *-ti* has general sense / purposive meanings in the examples above, and a necessity sense in the sentence below:

(64) [Ja bi-ti] ainbo-ki ik-á iki
that get-INF woman:ABS-HSY2 do.I-PP2 AUX

chi-yaká.
BUTTOCK-sitting.position.I:MID:PP2
'The woman he had to take (as wife) was sitting in the back of the canoe.' (Inuma 1993:34; analyzed in Valenzuela 2002b:48)

As has been shown here, nominalizers in SK provide tense-aspect-modality information but do not help identify the grammatical role of the relativized argument. Therefore, I conclude that SK relatives make use of nominalization as a structure but not as a differential strategy. One may also conclude that coding the grammatical role of the relativized argument is just a by-product of the functions played by nominalizers and not one of their central functions.

10.2.3. The Demonstrative *Ja*

A challenging issue in the analysis of SK relatives has to do with the interpretation of the *ja* element. On the one hand, *ja* is part of a set of demonstratives which can function both as determiner or pronoun; in certain uses *ja* is equivalent to a definite article (see 6.1.6). In addition to this, *ja* functions as the third person singular pronoun without any gender distinction (6.1.1).

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In relative constructions *ja* may be found as a determiner or definitizing modifier before an expressed or implied relativized nominal; this is relevant given that the addition of a determiner is a possible modification found in nominalized clauses with respect to main clauses (Givón 1990). Another possibility is for *ja* to function as an absolutive anaphoric pronoun within the relative clause. Given that there is no particular marker indicating where exactly a relative clause begins, a decision between the two potential interpretations of *ja* when preceding an intransitive V_{REL} is not straightforward; this yields a number of ambiguous cases as illustrated below:

(65) a. …ja [re-yaká]-ki ik-á iki Inka ainbo-ma.
that NOSE-seated:ABS-HSY2 be-PP2 AUX Inka woman-NEG
'…the one sitting in the front of the canoe was not the Inka woman.'

b. …[ja re-yaká]-ki ik-á iki Inka ainbo-ma.
3:ABS NOSE-seated:ABS-HSY2 be-PP2 AUX Inka woman-NEG
'…the one sitting in the front of the canoe was not the Inka woman.'

There is no potential ambiguity in Cl_{REL}s containing transitive V_{REL}s, since in this situation an anaphoric pronoun would occur in the ergative (i.e., *jan*) rather than in the absolutive or unmarked form (i.e., *ja*):

(66) …ja joni-ki i-ká iki [ja-n bi-a]…
that man:ABS-HSY2 be-PP2 AUX 3-ERG get-PP2
'…this was the man who rescued (him).'

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10.2.4. Relativizability and Relativization Strategies

The positions that can be relativized on in SK are patient object, other kinds of objects (recipients and applicative objects), S (active, inactive, reciprocalized), A (transitive and ditransitive), second argument of extended intransitives (stimulus), OBL (instrumental, locative, ablative, causal, associative), and possessive. With the exception of the second argument of extended intransitives and possessives which were only obtained through elicitation, the order in which syntactic positions were listed above follows the frequency of occurrence in a random corpus containing some 135 relative clause constructions taken from spontaneous texts. All the numbers given in this section refer to this database.

10.2.4.1. Relativization on Objects

Most instances in this category are patient-relatives, there is only one instance where an applicative object is involved. Recipient-relatives were readily obtained in elicitation. Headless, prenominal, postnominal, and internally-headed O-relatives are attested in the corpus; all these types seem fairly common. Gapping is the preferred relativization strategy (some 30 out of 43 instances). There are a few cases (4) where an anaphoric pronoun analysis is plausible. The following sentences illustrate different types of O-relatives:

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Prenominal O-relative, gap strategy (the next ex. was given earlier as (57))

(67) …jain-xon [no-n tita-n a-káti-ai] jawéki-ribi no-n
there-PDCA 1p-GEN mother-ERG do.T-PST4-PP1 thing:ABS-also 1p-ERG

chiban-ai.
follow-INC
'…and then we follow the things that our mother used to do.'

Postnominal O-relative, gap strategy (see also exx. (71)-(73))

(68) Moa-tian-ra i-káti-ai yoinabo [[ochó-ma mera-ti] itan
already-TEMP-EV do.I-PST4-INC edible.animal-PL far-NEG find-INF CONJ

icha].
much
'Long time ago, animals could be found nearby and in large numbers.'
Lit. 'Long time ago animals were (those) to find nearby and many.'

In the following example, the speaker refers to the neighboring Kokama people who have lost their distinct indigenous identity. The sentence contains two Cl_{REL}s, an internally-headed O-relative and a headless one; the gap strategy is employed in both cases:

(69) Ja-tian [neno-n-xon bake-bo a-kan-a-bo] iki
that-TEMP here-LOC-A child-PL:ABS do.T-PL-PP2-PL:ABS COP

[jato-n joi-n moa shinan-benot-a-bo].
3p-GEN language-OBL already mind-fail-PP2-PL
'Then, the children they procreated here have already forgotten their language.'

The following headless O-relative has two possible interpretations. The analysis in (a) entails the anaphoric pronoun strategy:

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Headless O-relative, possible anaphoric pronoun strategy

(70) a. Jaino-a-x-ki bewa bewa-kai[n]-ni-i ka-a iki,
there:LOC-ABL-S-HSY2 sing sing-AND1-REM-SSSS go-PP2 AUX

onis onis-kai[n]-ni-i [*ja* joni-n bi-a-ma].
be.sad be.sad-AND1-REM-SSSS 3:ABS man-ERG get-PP2-NEG:ABS

b. ……ja [joni-n bi-a-ma].
that man-ERG get-PP2-NEG:ABS
'Then she left singing and singing, feeling sad very sad, the one the man didn't take as wife.'

Ex. (71) is interesting given that the reciprocal V_{REL} also bears the associative applicative *-kin*. This is the only instance of an applicative object-relative in the text corpus:[12]

(71) Ja iki koshi shinan-ya-bo ja ainbo-bo
that:ABS COP strong thinking-PROP-PL that woman-PL

[kopi-anan-*kin*-ai-bo].
revenge-REC-ASSOC-PP1-PL:ABS
'Those were brave the women they competed against.'

The following elicited examples illustrate instances of benefactive and malefactive applicative object-relativization:

(72) Oa joni [e-n rao a-*xon*-a] r-iki nokon koka.
DIST man 1-ERG plant.medicine do.T-BEN-PP2:ABS EV-COP POS1 m.uncle
'That man for whom I prepared medicine is my maternal uncle.'

(73) Oa joni [e-n atapa yometso:*anan*-a] r-iki nokon koka.
DIST man 1-ERG chicken:ABS steal:MAL-PP2:ABS EV-COP POS1 m.uncle
'That man to whose detriment I stole the chicken is my maternal uncle.'

[12] *Ainbobo* cannot be interpreted as reciprocal complement, since in that case it would bear the comitative.

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10.2.4.2. Relativization on Intransitive Subjects

S_o-relatives are slightly more common than S_a-relatives.[13] In addition to this, there is an instance of a reciprocal and thus detransitivized subject. In terms of positional types, prenominal and postnominal Cl_{REL}s are found in the text corpus; however, there is no unambiguous internally-headed S-relative. Headless relatives are very common. The preferred relativization strategy is gapping:

Possible prenominal S_o-relative, gap strategy

(74) a. Jain-ribi-ronki be-kan-a iki... oa bake
there-REP-HSY come.n.SG-PL-PP2 AUX DIST child

[moa xontako-ai]...
already (become)young.woman-PP1:ABS
'There also came...those girls (who were) already turning into young women...'

b. ....[bake moa xontako-ai]...
child:ABS already (become)young.woman-PP1:ABS

Prenominal S_a-relative, gap strategy (the next sentence was introduced as (54))

(75) E-a-ra beno-a iki [nokon papa yokat-i jo-a]
1-ABS-EV get.married-PP2 AUX POS1 father:ABS ask-SSSS come-PP2

joni betan.
man COM
'I got married with the man who came to ask (my hand to) my father.'

[13] This subclassification has been made on semantic grounds given that SK does not have any generalized formal means to distinguish S_a from S_o. In a few instances the distinction appeared as rather arbitrary.

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Reciprocal S-relative, gap strategy (ex. (76) was already given as (38))

(76) Ja [wexa-*anan*-a] joni rabé raká-kan-ai
that cut.w/*wexati*-REC-PP2 man two:ABS lying.position:MID-PL-INC

westíora oxé.
one moon:TEMP
'The two men who had cut each other with the *wexati* knife lay for one month.'

There are instances where the relative clause can be said to have been fronted as in the next example (previously given as (48)):

Fronted S-relative

(77) [Awaranpiti naman raka-t-a]-ra e-n mananxawe
k.vine under lying.position-MID-PP2-EV 1-ERG tortoise:ABS

bi-ke.
get-CMPL
'I caught a tortoise that was lying under the / one *awaranpiti* vine.'

Crucially, clear instances of internally-headed S-relatives could be obtained in elicitation. Consider the example below:

(78) E-n-ra bena-[a]i [Kako-nko-ni-a-x joni noko-t-a].
1-ERG-EV look.for-INC Kako-LOC-LIG-ABL-S man:ABS meet-MID-PP2:ABS
'I am looking for the man who arrived from Kako.'

In (78) the subject of the derived intransitive V_{REL} *nokot-* 'arrive' triggers S agreement inflection on the ablative; this adjunct cannot apply to the main clause which contains a transitive verb. Hence, the head *joni* is necessarily internal to the C_{REL}. This feature will

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become especially relevant when examining the restrictions imposed on internally-headed relatives.

Gapping is the most common way of representing the head within the Cl_{REL}. Nevertheless, it seems that the anaphoric pronoun strategy is also possible, as suggested by the following sentences. Note that *ja* occurs twice in the relative construction below, plausibly first as a definitizer and then as an anaphoric pronoun:

(79) Ja Mararina-ronki ik-á iki [*ja* ainbo
that Mararina-HSY be-PP2 AUX that woman

[*ja* chi-[y]aká]].
3:ABS BUTTOCKS-sitting.position.I:MID:PP2
'It is said that the woman who was seated in the back of the canoe was named Mararina.' (Inuma 1993:34)

A similar elicited example follows:

(80) Pena-ronki ik-á iki *ja* ainbo [*ja* Iparia-nko ka-a].
Pena:ABS-HSY be-PP2 AUX that woman 3:ABS Iparia-ALL go-PP2
'It is said that Pena was (the name of) the woman who went to Iparia.'

Alternatively, the expressions in brackets above may be analyzed as headless relatives in apposition to the NP 'the woman,' with the second occurrence of *ja* functioning as definitizer (but compare the analogy between these examples and ex. (83)). The latter analysis however is not possible in the next text example where the alleged absolutive anaphoric pronoun is plural (i.e., *jato*). In contrast, modifiers lack a plural form:[14]

[14] A language consultant rejected the text example below. This may be related to a more general rejection of plurals as anaphoric pronouns, see exx. (84) and (86).

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(81) Jain-xon.....mashá i-kan-ai [*jato* jo-a-bo]-ki...
there-PDCA *mashá* do.I-PL-INC 3p:ABS come-PP2-PL-DAT
'Then...they performed the *mashá* honoring those who had come...'

10.2.4.3. Relativization on Transitive Subjects

A-relatives involve transitive and ditransitive V_{REL}s. Most instances are externally-headed Cl_{REL}s of the prenominal and postnominal type. There are also a few instances of headless Cl_{REL}s. Similarly to the situation found in S-relativization, there are no instances of internally-headed Cl_{REL}s in the text corpus. The only possible counter-examples involve an indefinite pronoun:

(82) [*Jawerato-n*-ki yokat-ai] ja meni-kati-kan-ai.
which-ERG-INT ask-PP1:ABS 3:ABS give-PST4-PL-INC
'They gave her (her daughter) to whoever asked for (her).'

The preferred relativization strategy in A-relatives is gapping (25 of the 33 text examples). The anaphoric pronoun strategy is clearly attested (7 cases) as shown below:

(83) Pena-ronki ik-á iki ja ainbo [*ja-n* mapó ak-ai].
Pena:ABS-HSY be-PP2 AUX that woman 3-ERG clay do.T-PP1:ABS
'Pena was the woman who made pottery.'

The possibility of anaphoric pronouns in the plural was rejected generally by language consultants:

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(84) ??Metsá-ronki i-kan-a iki ja ainbo-bo [*ja-baon* mapó ak-ai]
beautiful-HSY be-PL-PP2 AUX that woman-PL 3-PL:ERG clay do.T-PP1:ABS
'These were beautiful the women who made pottery.'

The anaphoric pronoun strategy is rare in prenominal Cl_{REL}s, probably because the use of anaphoric pronouns prenominally violates the preferred order in anaphoric situations (Keenan and Comrie 1977, Keenan 1985a:149). Interestingly, SK has clear instances of the anaphoric pronoun strategy in prenominal CL_{REL}s, as illustrated by the following A-relative:

(85) Nete be-ai-tian pikó-pao-ni-ke [*ja-n* ak-ai]
day come.n.SG-S-DS take.out:MID-HAB-REM-CMPL 3-ERG do.T-PP1

joni oxa oxa-yama-i.
man:ABS sleep sleep-NEG-SSSS
'When the day arrived the organizer came out (of his mosquito net) without sleeping much.'

In the example below, it is clear that *jan* although in the singular is coreferential with the plural head *jonibo*:

(86) [Ja-n jato bi-ai] joni-bo ik-á iki tanpóra-ya.
3-ERG 3p:ABS get-PP1 person-PL:ABS be-PP2 AUX drum-PROP
'Those men who welcomed them had drums.'

Similar instances are easily found in neologisms like the one below:

(87) [*Ja-n* yoiy-a] ainbo
3-ERG tell-PP2 woman
'the woman who told (the story) (i.e., the narrator)'

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Prenominal Cl_{REL}s with anaphoric pronouns might also be present in absolutive-relativization. But as mentioned earlier, it is difficult to unequivocally identify these constructions, since an absolutive-marked pronoun is identical in form to the modifying *ja*.

10.2.4.4. Relativization on Obliques

The term "oblique" does not refer here to an argument of the V_{REL}, but rather to optional constituents. Relative constructions involving oblique-marked arguments of extended intransitives are discussed later.

In the corpus there are 18 instances of oblique-relativization, corresponding to the following sub-cases: instrumental (11), ablative (1), locative / allative (3), comitative (1), cause (1), and stimulus 'aboutness' (1). The gap strategy is attested in oblique-relativization with headless Cl_{REL}s.[15] The next example has been given earlier as (51):

Headless, gap strategy, instrumental-relative

(88) Koshoshka-nin xeni iki [[ainbo bi-kas-kin]
river.dolphin-GEN fat:ABS COP woman:ABS get-DES-SSST

rao-n-ti].
plant.medicine-TRNZ-INF
'The river dolphin's fat is (that which is used) to cure a woman when we want to conquer her.'

[15] Keenan (1985:154) mentions instances of gapping in lower positions in older forms of English: 'the village that I walked down the main street....'. Similar constructions may also be heard in modern spoken English.

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However, at this position on the Accessibility Hierarchy (Keenan and Comrie 1977) gapping is not the preferred strategy (only 3 instances were attested). Instead, it is common to find anaphoric pronominalization with headless, postnominal and prenominal Cl_{REL}s:

Headless and anaphoric pronoun strategy, instrumental-relative

(89) Rama a-non a-wé [*ja-n* no-n jato kena-i ka-ti].
now do.T-P/J do.T-IMP 3-INST 1p-ERG 3p:ABS call-SSSS go-INF:ABS
'Now let's prepare what we are going to invite them with (i.e., manioc beer).'

All externally-headed oblique-relatives in the text corpus employ the anaphoric pronoun strategy:

Postnominal, anaphoric pronoun strategy, locative/allative-relative

(90) Jain-xon-ribi-ra a-kan-ti iki, kawin [*ja-n* yawa
there-PDCA-also-EV do.T-PL-INF AUX rush.mat 3-LOC w.l.peccary:ABS

raka-n-ti]…
lying.position-TRNZ-INF
'Also they have to make rush mats on which to place the white-lipped peccaries.'

Postnominal, anaphoric pronoun strategy, ablative-relative

(91) No-n mapo r-iki westíora kirika [*jainoa* oin-xon a-ti]
1p-GEN head:ABS EV-COP one book there:ABL see-PSSA do.T-INF

keská-ribi.
SIML-also
'Our heads are like a book from where (we) see (the designs we imagine) and then reproduce (them).'

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The following example illustrates an extraposed oblique-relative in combination with the anaphoric pronoun strategy:

Extraposed, anaphoric pronoun strategy, locative / allative-relative (given earlier as (46))

(92) …jain-xon-ribi-ra a-ti iki mi-n wetsa-n
there-PDCA-also-EV do.T-INF AUX 2-GEN same.sex.sibling-ERG

chomo ani a-kin, kentí ani a-kin,
jar big do.T-SSSA pot big:ABS do.T-SSSA

[*ja-n* atsa xeati yasa-n-ti].
3-LOC yuca drink:ABS sitting.position.T-TRNZ-INF
'…also, your sister has to manufacture big jars and pots in which to put the yuca beer.'

Prenominal relatives with an anaphoric pronoun are also attested in oblique-relativization:

Prenominal, anaphoric pronoun strategy, locative/allative-relative

(93) No-a [*jain* wirákocha-bo keská rao-meet-[t]i]
1p-ABS there White-PL SIML plant.medicine-TRNZ:MID-INF

xobo-oma iki, ospital-oma iki.
house-PRIV COP hospital-PRIV COP
'We have no houses where we can get cured, like the White people; we have no hospitals.'

The next example involves a similar cause-relative.

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Prenominal, anaphoric pronoun strategy, cause-relative

(94) [*Ja kopí* e-a tima-nan-a] ainbo-ra moa ka-ke.
that cause 1-ABS hit-REC-PP2 woman:ABS-EV already go-CMPL
'The woman because of whom I fought already left.'

Prenominal, anaphoric pronoun strategy, instrumental-relative

(95) [*Ja-n* nokon poi-n awá rete-ibat-a] to'ati-ra...
that-INST POS1 opp.sex.sibling-ERG tapir:ABS kill-PST2-PP2 rifle:ABS-EV
'The rifle with which my brother killed the tapir...'

Consider the comitative oblique-relative below, where the anaphoric pronoun does not occur at the beginning of the Cl_{REL}:

Prenominal, anaphoric pronoun strategy, comitative-relative

(96) Nato r-iki [mi-a *ja-bé* ik-ai] joni, nato r-iki koshoshka
this:ABS EV-COP 2-ABS 3-COM do.I-PP1 man this:ABS EV-COP river.dolphin
'This is the man you are having an affair with, this is a river dolphin.'

Internally-headed oblique-relatives have been obtained in elicitation only:

Internally-headed, instrumental-relative

(97) [E-n ja machíto-nin oro-ibat-a]-ra nokon papa-n-a
1-ERG that machete-INST clear-PST2-PP2:ABS-EV POS1 father-GEN-NMLZ

iki.
COP
'The machete with which I cleared the chacra yesterday is my father's.'

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In sum, obliques are easily relativizable in SK, instrumental-relatives being the most common. Although gapping is possible, the anaphoric pronoun strategy is clearly preferred at this position on the hierarchy. Prenominal, postnominal and extraposed relative clauses are found in the corpus; internally-headed instrumental-relatives were obtained through elicitation.

10.2.4.5. Relativization on Second Argument of Extended Intransitives

SK has a set of two-argument intransitive verbs which generally encode emotion. In these instances, the experiencer or first argument is marked absolutive while the stimulus or second argument is marked by *-ki* (see 8.2.2.2). Although the text corpus does not contain any instance of second argument-relative, an elicited example is given below for the sake of completeness:

(98) a. No-a-ra ino-ki raket-ai.
1p-ABS-EV jaguar-DAT be.scared.of-INC
'We are scared of the jaguar.'

b. Ino [no-a ja-ki raket-ai]-ra, kikin siná iki.
jaguar 1p-ABS 3-DAT be.scared.of-PP1-EV extremely fierce COP

c. [Ja-ki no-a raket-ai] ino-ra kikin siná iki.
3-DAT 1p-ABS be.scared.of-PP1-EV jaguar:ABS-EV extremely fierce COP
'The jaguar we are scared of is extremely fierce.'

The optionality or obligatoriness of the anaphoric pronoun in the (b) and (c) exx. above needs to be corroborated.

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10.2.4.6. Relativization on Possessors

Although possessor-relatives were not represented in the text corpus, instances of this construction were easily obtained in elicitation. Possessor-relatives require the presence of an anaphoric pronoun in the Cl_{REL}, a characteristic compatible with its rather low position on the Accessibility Hierarchy (AH). Consider the following examples (see also ex. (3)):

(99) Oa ainbo [*jawen* bake mawat-a]-ra nokon awin-wetsa iki.
DIST woman POS3 child:ABS die-PP2:ABS-EV POS1 wife-other COP
'That woman whose child died is my sister-in-law.'

(100) Ja joni [*jawen* ochíti e-n rete-a]-tonin-ra e-a tima-kas-ai.
that man POS3 dog:ABS 1-ERG kill-PP2-ERG-EV 1-ABS hit.w/fist-DES-INC
'The man whose dog I killed wants to hit me.'

10.2.4.7. Case Attraction?

There are instances of instrument-relativization in which "case attraction" seems to take place. That is, what appears to be an external head is case-marked *vis-à-vis* its role in the Cl_{REL}. These are not instances of "equi-case" since the role of the head in the main clause is that of S.[16] Unfortunately, there is no conclusive evidence demonstrating that

[16] Similar constructions have been reported for Huallaga Quechua where a case "appears to have floated up to the head of the RC" (Keenan 1985:154-5, data from Weber 1978). In both SK and Quechua the examples that allow for the case attraction analysis are instances of oblique-relatives.

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the heads are in fact external to the Cl_{REL}; however, I assume it would be unlikely for the head to be represented in the Cl_{REL} by the full nominal and an anaphoric pronoun simultaneously. Case attraction is illustrated by the examples below (ex. (99) was rejected by a second language consultant):

(101) To'ati-*nin* [e-n (ja-n) shino rete-ai]-ra nokon-a iki.
rifle-INST 1-ERG 3-INST monkey:ABS kill-PP1:ABS-EV POS1-NMLZ COP
'The rifle with which I kill monkeys is mine.'

(102) ??Winti-*n* [e-n (ja-n) wina-ai]-ra nokon-a iki.
paddle-INST 1-ERG that-INST row-PP1:ABS-EV POS1-NMLZ COP
'The paddle with which I row is mine.'

10.2.4.8. Disambiguation in Internally-Headed Relative Clauses and Syntactic Ergativity

In many languages internally-headed relative constructions allow for a significant degree of ambiguity, since there may be no way to decide which element of the Cl_{REL} should be interpreted as a main clause argument.[17] This potential ambiguity is not present in SK. In internally-headed transitive Cl_{REL}s, it is always the O argument which must be interpreted as head and hence as coreferential with an argument of the main clause. Consider the following examples:

[17] This is illustrated by the following Diegueño examples:

v. [Xatəkcok-0 wi:-m ʔtuc-pu-c] nyiLy
dog-DO rock-COM I hit-DEF-SUBJ was black
'The rock I hit the dog with was black.'
'The dog that I hit with the rock was black.' (Keenan 1985:163)

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(103) [Joni-n ino rete-a]-ronki kikin siná ik-á iki.
man-ERG jaguar:ABS kill-PP2:ABS-HSY extremely brave/fierce be-PP2 AUX
'The jaguar that the man killed was extremely fierce'
*'The man who killed the jaguar was extremely brave'

(104) [Pitso-n bake natex-a]-ra nokon-a iki.
parokeet-ERG child:ABS bite-PP2:ABS-EV POS1-NMLZ COP
'The child the parokeet bit is mine.'
*'The parokeet that bit the child is mine.'

The next sentence shows that the O-argument of an internally-headed Cl_{REL} is interpreted as head even when this reading would run against semantico-pragmatic feasibility:

(105) [Joni-n yawa rete-ibat-a]-ra nokon koka iki.
man-ERG w.l.peccary:ABS kill-PST2-PP2:ABS-EV POS1 m.uncle COP
'The white-lipped peccary the man killed is my maternal uncle.'
*The man that killed the white-lipped peccary is my maternal uncle.'

Given that the main clauses in (103)-(105) are intransitive, one may wonder whether the interpretation of the O arguments as heads is due to some kind of absolutive arrangement. This is not the case, however. In (106) the O argument is read as head even when the coreferential participant plays the A function in the main clause:

(106) [Pitso-n bake natex-a]-tonin-ra joshin pi-ke.
parokeet-ERG child:ABS bite-PP2-ERG-EV banana:ABS eat-CMPL
'The child the parokeet bit ate the banana.'
*'The parokeet that bit the child ate the banana.'

To relativize on the A argument, an externally-headed Cl_{REL} construction must be used:

(107) [Yawa rete-ibat-a] joni-ra nokon koka iki.
w.l.peccary:ABS kill-PST2-PP2:ABS man:ABS-EV POS1 m.uncle COP
'The man who killed the white-lipped peccary is my maternal uncle.'

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(108) [Bake natex-a] pitso-n-ra joshin pi-ke.
child:ABS bite-PP2 parokeet-ERG-EV banana:ABS eat-CMPL
'The parokeet that bit the child ate the banana.'

The next example shows that it is also possible to relativize on an S argument through internally-headed relativization. Note that the V_{REL} is semantically active; i.e., it is O / S arguments and not patients that serve as pivot in this specific construction:

(109) [Mi-bé ainbo jo-a]-ra no-n onan-yama-ke.
2-COM woman:ABS come-PP2:ABS-EV 1p-ERG know-NEG-CMPL
'We don't know the woman who came with you.'

Therefore, internally-headed relativization exhibits an absolutive pivot and probably constitutes the only instance of interclausal syntactic ergativity in SK. The employment of an ergative-absolutive pattern in a language whose syntax is otherwise organized in a nominative-accusative fashion seems compatible with the major functions played by relative clauses in general and their interaction with S and O (Fox 1987:861-864).[18] Other languages where internally-headed relatives have an absolutive pivot are

[18] According to Fox, a major function of Cl_{REL}s is to situate a referent which is being introduced, as a relevant part of the ongoing discourse. This general function may be accomplished in two different ways:

(a) "The Cl_{REL} provides a stative description of some aspect of the referent that situates it, and justifies its introduction." This strategy typically utilizes intransitive clauses where the relativized referent is the subject; hence, the large number of S-relatives.

(b) "The Cl_{REL} provides a link via a referent that has already been introduced into the discourse". This strategy typically utilizes a transitive Cl_{REL} where the A argument tends to be a personal pronoun (especially first and second) and the relativized referent is encoded as object; hence, the large number of O-relatives.

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Tibetan, Belhare (Tibeto-Burman), and probably Korean (Van Valin and LaPolla 1997:304 and references therein).

10.2.4.9. Disambiguation in Fronted and Extraposed Relative Clauses

When a Cl_{REL} is fronted or extraposed and the main clause is transitive and contains no overt indication as to which argument must be interpreted as head, it is the object that is read as such. Example (48) is repeated below as (110a):

(110) a. [Awaranpiti naman raka-t-a]-ra e-n mananxawe
k.vine under lying.position-MID-PP2-EV 1-ERG tortoise:ABS

bi-ke.
get-CMPL
'I caught a tortoise that was lying under an *awaranpiti* vine.'

Again, a prenominal Cl_{REL} could be used to allow the A argument be read as head:

b. [Awaranpiti naman raka-t-a] joni-n-ra mananxawe
k.vine under lying.position-MID-PP2 man-ERG-EV tortoise:ABS

bi-ke.
get-CMPL
'The man who was lying under an *awaranpiti* vine caught a tortoise.'

The next ex. was previously introduced as (49):

(111) a. [Taxbakan nono-ai]-ra epa-n ano rete-ke.
tahuampa:LOC swim-PP1-EV paternal.uncle-ERG paca:ABS kill-CMPL
'Uncle killed a paca that was swimming in the *tahuampa*.'

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b. ??[Taxbakan nono-ai] epa-n-ra ano rete-ke.
tahuampa:LOC swim-PP1 paternal.uncle-ERG-EV paca:ABS kill-CMPL
'Uncle swimming in the *tahuampa* killed a paca (not acceptable because people do not normally swim in the *tahuampa*).'

In the next example, the fronted Cl_{REL} is transitive; again, the main clause O argument must be interpreted as head:

(112) [Atsa pi-ai]-ra epa-n ano oin-ke.
manioc:ABS eat-PP1-EV paternal.uncle-ERG paca:ABS see-CMPL
'Uncle saw the paca that was eating the manioc.'
*Uncle who was eating manioc saw the paca.

The same rule applies if the order of relative clause and finite clause is reversed; i.e., exx. (113a) and (113b) can only mean that it was the manatee and not the man that was going up the river:

(113) a. Joni-n-ra sapen rete-ke [paro-n inat-ai].
man-ERG-EV manatee:ABS kill-CMPL river-OBL go.up-PP1

b. [Paro-n inat-ai]-ra joni-n sapen rete-ke.
river-OBL go.up-PP1-EV man-ERG manatee:ABS kill-CMPL
'The man killed the manatee that was swimming up the river.'

c. [Paro-n inat-ai] joni-n-ra sapen rete-ke.
river-OBL go.up-PP1 man-ERG-EV manatee:ABS kill-CMPL
'The man who was going up the river killed the manatee.'

The next sentence illustrates an extraposed transitive Cl_{REL}:

(114) Epa-n-ra ano oin-ke [atsa pi-ai].
paternal.uncle-ERG-EV paca:ABS see-CMPL yuca:ABS eat-PP1
'Uncle saw the paca that was eating the yuca.'

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In sum, in combinations of fronted or extraposed Cl_{REL}s and transitive main clauses, it is the main clause O argument that is read as Cl_{REL} head.

The distribution of relativization strategies with respect to the grammatical roles that can be relativized in SK are given in Table 10.4 (Stimulus refers to the second argument of certain extended intransitive verbs):

Table 10.4. Grammatical Roles and Relativization Strategies

Accessibility Hierarchy (Keenan and Comrie 1977)

Positions relativized	O	S	A	Oblique	Stimulus	Poss.
Preferred strategy	gap	Gap	gap	anaph.	anaph.	anaph.
Possible strategy	anaph.	Gap	gap	gap	gap?	

As discussed in 12.2, there is strong evidence in SK to consider the conflation of S and A as subject. If the occurrences of S- and A-relatives are added together, subject-relatives are clearly more common than object-relatives; this interpretation of the data would support the Accessibility Hierarchy Hypothesis proposed in Keenan and Comrie (1977). Still, it is interesting to point out that O-relatives are the most numerous of the three types, as mentioned above, closely followed by S-relatives; this finding, on the other hand, is compatible with the Absolutive Hypothesis proposed by Fox (1987). We now turn to the examination of complement clauses.

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10.3. Complement Clauses

In complement clause constructions a nominalized clause functions as core argument of a matrix clause. Complement clauses in SK involve the following verbs: *keen-* 'want,' *raan-* 'send (sb. to do sth.),' *yono-* 'order / send sb. (to work), ask for sth.,' *axea-* 'teach / make sb. get used to do sth.,' *shinan-* 'think, remember, plan,' *onan-* 'know,' *yoi-* 'say to / tell (sb. to do sth.),' *oin-* 'see / realize,' *ninkat-* 'hear / understand,' *namat-* 'dream.' All these verbs behave morpho-syntactically like transitive verbs with the exception of *keen-* 'want' (see Extended Intransitive Clauses with Alternate Case Frames in 8.2.2.5).

10.3.1. Non-Implicative Manipulation Verbs

The verb *keen-* 'want' imposes either an <ABS ABS> or an <ABS OBL> case-marking frame. Additionally, *keen-* can function as a modality verb when the subjects of the desiderative and the subordinate clause have the same referent, or as a manipulation verb when the subjects of the two clauses differ. In both cases, *keen-* may precede or follow the subordinate clause:

Keen- 'want'

(115) E-a-ra keen-ai [Kontámanain ka-*ti*]-n. modality
1-ABS-EV want-INC Contamana:ALL go-INF-OBL
'I want to go to Contamana.'

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(116) E-a-ra keen-ai [mi-n piti meni-*ti*]-nin. manipulation
1-ABS-EV want-INC 2-ERG food:ABS give-INF-OBL
'I want you to give (me) the food / fish.'

(117) E-a-ra [Sani rete-kan-*ti*] keen-ai. manipulation
1-ABS-EV Sani:ABS kill-PL-INF:ABS want-INC
'I want them to kill Sani.'

As can be seen in the examples above, complement clauses functioning as arguments of the verb *keen-* carry the irrealis complementizer or nominalizer *-ti*, which is glossed as infinitive (INF). Other verbs whose clausal complements are marked by *-ti* are *raan-* 'send (sb. to do sth.),' *yono-* 'order, send sb. to work,' and *axea-* 'teach, make sb. get used to sth.;' as will be shown below, all these are non-implicative verbs. Differently from *keen-*, the verbs *raan-*, *yono-* and *axea-* require non-coreferential complement clause subjects. In the following examples involving the verb *raan-*, it can be seen again that the complement clause may either precede or follow its matrix clause:

Raan- 'send (somebody to do something)'

(118) Jain-xon-ronki raan-kan-a iki [samá-*ti*]
there-PDCA-HSY send-PL-PP2 AUX abstain-INF:ABS

onanya i-ti kopí.
shaman do.I-INF purpose
'Then they (i.e., the Inkas) directed her to abstain (from eating certain foods and having sexual intercourse), in order to become a shaman.'

(119) [Onibirisitáro a-*ti*-ra] nokon bake e-n Rima-n raan-ke.
university do.T-INF:ABS-EV POS1 child:ABS 1-ERG Lima-ALL send-CMPL
'I sent my son to Lima in order to study at the university.' (Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:354, analyzed in Valenzuela 1997)

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In the next sentence, a father whose son does not return home decides to send a second son in search of the former one:

(120) Moa basi manat-a-bi jo-yam-ai-tian, jawen chiní
already long.time wait-PO>S/A-EM come-NEG-S-DS POS3 youngest

bake raan-ribi-a iki, [jawen wetsa bena-*ti*].
child:ABS send-REP-PP2 AUX POS3 same.sex.sibling search-INF:ABS
'Since (the oldest son) didn't come back, after waiting for a long time (the father) sent his youngest son to look for his brother.' (Ministerio de Educación and ILV 1982:33, analyzed in Valenzuela 1997).

Yono- 'order / send someone (to work), ask for something'

(121) Ja-n-ra yono-ke [paranta bi-*ti*].
3-ERG-EV order-CMPL plantain:ABS get-INF:ABS
'He ordered (them) to bring plantain.' (Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:428; analyzed in Valenzuela 1997)

(122) Ii-kin-bi-ronki beskon yono-kan-a iki,
be-SSSA-EM-HSY *chirriclés*:ABS order-PL-PP2 AUX

[jaa chii bi-*ti*].
that fire:ABS get-INF:ABS
'So, (they) ordered the *chirriclés* (kind of bird) to bring the fire.'
(Ministerio de Educación and ILV 1982:27, analyzed in Valenzuela 1997).

The verb *axea-* 'teach' is a derived transitive composed of the root *axe-* 'get used to, learn' plus the semantically generic transitive verb *-a(k)* which works as causativizer:

Axea- 'teach, make someone get used to do something'

(123) Reken-pari nokon tita-n e-a axe-a iki
first-yet POS1 mother-ERG 1-ABS get.used.to-do.T:PP2 AUX

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[koton-a-*ti*].
traditional.blouse-do.T-INF:ABS
'First, my mother taught me how to manufacture the blouse.'

(124) Ja-n-ra e-a [atapa chachi-*ti*] axe-a-[a]i.
3-ERG-EV 1-ABS chicken prick-INF:ABS get.used-do.T-INC
'(S)he will teach me how to vaccinate chickens.' (Faust 1973:83, analyzed in Valenzuela 1997)

All the complement-taking verbs treated so far are non-implicative manipulation verbs; i.e., the realization of the manipulative event does not necessarily imply the realization of the event depicted by the complement verb. Consider the following examples where the complement event is frustrated:

(125) E-n-ra Wesna raan-ke [onpax bi-ti], ikaxbi
1-ERG Wesna:ABS send-CMPL water:ABS get-INF:ABS but

be-yama-ke.
bring-NEG-CMPL
'I sent Wesna to get some water but she didn't bring it.'

(126) Inka-n-ronki joni-bo yono-a iki, [jaa jo-ai kaman
Inka-ERG-HSY person-PL:ABS order-PP2 AUX 3:ABS come-PP1 LIM

atsa xeati xea-ti-ma], ikaxbi senean-yama-n-a iki.
yuca drink:ABS drink-INF:ABS-NEG but edge:do.T-NEG-MALF-PP2 AUX
'The Inka ordered the people not to drink the yuca beer until his return, but they didn't comply with this to his detriment.'

(127) E-n-ra Wesna axe-a-ke [jonxe a-ti],
1-ERG-EV Wesna:ABS get.used.to-do.T-CMPL bracelet do.T-INF:ABS

ikaxbi axe-yama-ke.
but get.used.to-NEG-CMPL
'I taught Wesna how to make bracelets but she didn't learn.'

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10.3.2. Cognition and Utterance Verbs

A second group of verbs may mark their complements either with *-ti* or with the participials *-ai* or *-a* depending on an irrealis vs. realis distinction. These verbs are *yoi-* 'tell,' *onan-* 'know' and *shinan-* 'think, plan:'

Yoi- 'tell'

(128) Nita-n-ra e-a yoi-ke [mi-a piróta-nin ik-*ai*].
Nita-ERG-EV 1-ABS say-CMPL 2-ABS ball-INST do.I-PP1:ABS
'Nita told me that you know how to play soccer.' (Valenzuela 1997)

Onan- 'know'

(129) Ja-n-ra [raké-*ti*] onan-yama-ke.
3-ERG-EV get.scared-INF:ABS know-NEG-CMPL
'He never gets scared.' (Lit. 'He doesn't know how to get scared.') (Valenzuela 1997)

(130) E-n-ra onan-ke [nato ochíti-nin bake natéshama-*a*].
1-ERG-EV know-CMPL this dog-ERG child:ABS bite:NEG-PP2:ABS
'I know that this dog did not bite the child.' (Valenzuela 1997)

Shinan- 'think, plan'

(131) E-n-ra shinan-ai [nokon papa-n nonti be-*ai*].
1-ERG-EV think-INC POS1 father-ERG canoe:ABS bring-PP1
'I think that my father is going to bring the canoe.' (Faust 1973:89, analyzed in Valenzuela 1997)

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10.3.3. Perception Verbs

A third group of complement-taking verbs take the incompletive and completive participial complementizers *-ai* and *-a*. These constructions involve the perception verbs *ninkat-* 'hear' and *oin-* 'see,' as well as *namat-* 'dream.' The inclusion of *namat-* in this group may be revealing of the way dreams are conceptualized in Shipibo society. For example, through his dreams a shaman may be able to determine the location of a misplaced object or identify those responsible of a theft (see ex. (24)).

Namat- 'dream'

(132) [Wakanawa be-*ai*-ra] e-n namá-ke.
school.of.fish:ABS come.n.SG-PP1:ABS-EV 1-ERG dream-CMPL
'I dreamt that the school of fish is coming.' (Valenzuela 1997)

Ninkat- 'hear'

(133) [Nawa-n Sani rete-*a*-ra] e-n ninká-ke.
mestizo-ERG Sani:ABS kill-PP2:ABS-EV 1-ERG hear-CMPL
'I heard that the outsider killed Sani.' (Valenzuela 1997)

Oin- 'see, realize'

(134) Wetsa nete-n-ki, ja nonon rabekan oinn-a iki, [jato-n
other day-TEMP-HSY2 that duck two:ERG see-PP2 AUX 3p-GEN

ian tsosin-*ai*].
lake:ABS get.lower-PP1:ABS
'One day, the two ducks realized that the water from their lake was lowering.'
(Valenzuela 1997)

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A complement clause construction may involve a periphrastic complement-taking verb. In this case the complement clause may carry reference-marking:

(135) Jain-xon-ronki oin-a iki, jaa koshi-ama-kin toxbá-xon
there-PDCA-HSY see-PP2 AUX that strong-NEG-SSSA float-PSSA

oin-a-ronki ik-á iki [westíora awá joni-ki *jo-i*].
see-PP2-HSY do.I-PP2 AUX one tapir man:ABS-HSY2 come-SSSS
'From there (his canoe) he saw, without rowing just floating, he saw that a tapir man was coming.'

10.4. Adverbial Clauses

In addition to reference-marked clauses which usually code adverbial modifications, nominalized clauses, often carrying semantically-specific enclitics or postpositions, may fulfill these functions. Most semantic types of adverbial clauses have alternate encodings.

10.4.1. Purpose

A purpose proposition may be expressed through an infinitival clause, an infinitival plus *kopí* clause, or a reference-marked clause. Furthermore, certain same- or switch-reference values may have alternate encodings. The purpose clause in the example below has four possible expressions:

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(136) a. Nokon yosi-n-ra e-a moa-tian joi-bo yoi-ke,
POS1 elder-ERG-EV 1-ABS already-TEMP word-PL:ABS tell-CMPL

nokon bake e-n ja-ribi yoi-*ti* (*kopí*).
POS1 child:ABS 1-ERG 3:ABS-also tell-INF purpose
'My grandfather told me old stories, so that I tell them to my children afterwards.'

b. Nokon yosi-n-ra e-a moa-tian joi-bo yoi-ke,
POS1 elder-ERG-EV 1-ABS already-TEMP word-PL:ABS tell-CMPL

nokon bake e-n ja-ribi yoi-*non* (*i-xon*).
POS1 child:ABS 1-ERG 3:ABS-also tell-FDS do.I-PSSA
'My grandfather told me old stories, so that I tell them to my children afterwards.'

More nominalized purpose clauses follow; observe that the postposition *kopí* remains optional since the infinitive *-ti* can code purpose by itself.[19] Adverbial clauses either precede or follow the main clause:

(137) Nokon machíto e-n bi-ké ja-n bai a-*ti* (*kopí*).
POS1 machete 1-ERG get-CMPL 3-INST way do.T:INF
'I grabbed my machete to clear the way with it.' (speaker from Nuevo Edén, Piski)

(138) Xeta wiso-*ti* (*kopí*) moa-tian yoxan-baon
tooth black-INF in.order.to already-TEMP old.woman-PL:ERG

pi-káti-kan-ai yotokonti.
eat-PST4-PL-INC *yotokonti*:ABS
'Long time ago, adult women ate *yotokonti* in order to blacken their teeth.'

[19] This alternate encoding involving the optional postposition *kopí* may have originated in instances of bilingual parallelism, given that *kopí* most probably has a Quechua origin. Currently, *kopí* is considered a native word. See also footnote 20.

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Movement / position intransitive verbs (e.g., *ka- / bo-* 'go,' *jo- / be-* 'come,' *yakat-* 'sit' *napokoo-* 'enter,' *neet-* 'go up') often combine with purposive clauses marked with the S agreement simultaneous same-subject marker *-i* (see also ex. (8) in Ch. 9, as well as exx. (50) and (54) in the present chapter):

(139) E-a-ra [mi-a bena-*i*] jo-ke.
1-ABS-EV 2:ABS look.for-SSSS come-CMPL
'I came to look for you.'

10.4.2. Reason

In the examples below *kopí* takes part in reason clauses:

(140) E-n i-rá-ke ak-ai ja-ska-ra joni e-a
1-ERG do.I-*ra*-CMPL do.T-INC that-SIML-*ra* man:ABS 1-ABS

meni-kan-a (*kopí*)...
give-PL-PP2 cause
'I am thankful because they (my parents) gave me (in matrimony) to a man like him...'

(141) Nokon tita noko-t-a *kopí*-ra rama no-n atapa
POS1 mother:ABS meet-MID-PP2 cause-EV now 1p-ERG chicken:ABS

rete-ai.
kill-INC
'Since my mother arrived, now we will kill a chicken.'

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10.4.3. 'After'

Subsequent temporal clauses are also nominalized and carry the postposition *pekáo* (analyzable into *peká* 'back' + *-o* approximate locative):

(142) Kinan-*a* *pekáo*, jakiribi moa semana pia me-yama-*a*
vomit-PP2 after again already week arrow:ABS HAND-NEG-PP2

pekáo, no-a ka-ríba[-a] iki.
after 1p:ABS go-REP[-PP2] AUX
'After throwing it up (the plant preparation to become good a fisher / hunter) and after not having touched an arrow for a week, we went (fishing) again.'

(143) Moa chaní-kan-*a* *pekáo*, joni-baon wino-ai, ja-yá
already invite-PL-PP2 after man-PL:ERG *macana*-do.T:INC that-PROP

Ani Xeati-nin be-noxon.
Ani Xeati-ALL bring.n.SG-FSSA
'After having been invited, the men manufactured *macana*s to bring them to the *Ani Xeati*.'

10.4.4. 'Before'

The temporal adverbial clause below is interesting in that it consists of a nominalized clause to which no case-marker or postposition has been added; the negative *-ma* and the emphatic *-bi* follow the participle *-a* in order to render the meaning 'before:'

(144) Yamet-*a*-ma-bi-ra jain oxa-ti bena-kan-ke.
(become)night-PP2-NEG-EM-EV there sleep-INF look.for-PL-CMPL
'Before it became night, they looked for a place to sleep.'

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This type of temporal adverbial clause also has reference-marked equivalents; see section 4.1.3.

10.4.5. Limitative

Limitative adverbial clauses require the presence of the postposition *kaman*.[20] Prior to its combination with *kaman*, the verb in the adverbial clause is either nominalized,

(145) Xontako-bo-ra jawen papa betan ik-ai beno-ai *kaman*.
unmarried.girl-PL:ABS-EV POS3 father COM do.I-INC marry-PP1 until
'Young girls live with their parents until they get married.'

or else carries the morpheme *-non*. Recall from 9.2.2 that *-non* is a different-subject marker used when the event in the dependent clause is viewed as subsequent with respect to that in the matrix clause. Nevertheless, in limitative adverbial clauses *-non* may be present even when the subjects of the two clauses are coreferential:

(146) Kikin-i paen-a ik-á iki ja xontako rabé,
extremely-S get.drunk-PP2 do.I-PP2 AUX that unmarried.girl two:ABS

shinan-yama-*non* *kaman*...
think-NEG-*non* until
'The two young girls had gotten completely drunk, until they became unconscious...'

[20] The postposition *kaman* clearly originates from the Quechua suffix *-kama* playing the same function. However, differently from *kopí*, *kaman* is not optional (see footnote 19).

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10.4.6. Similative

Similative adverbial clauses are obligatorily nominalized and must carry the similative postposition *keskat- ~ keská* (see also equative constructions in 8.7.1):

(147) E-n-ra mapó ak-ai nokon yoxaman e-a
1-ERG-EV clay do.T-INC POS1 old.woman:ERG 1-ABS

axe-a-*ni* *keská.*
get.used-CAUS-REM:NMLZ SIML
'I make pottery like my grandmother taught me (long ago).'

(148) Tsoma-ra yoyo ik-ai Pishki-bo
Tsoma:ABS-EV ONOM:speak do.I-INC Pishki.people-PL:ABS

yoyo ik-*ai* *keská.*
ONOM:speak do.I-PP1 SIML
'Tsoma speaks like the Pishkibo people speak.'

(149) Ja no-n chitonti kewé-a-*[a]i* *keská*-ribi a-kin,
that 1p-GEN skirt embroidering-do.T-PP1 SIML-also do.T-SSSA

chomo-nko no-n raó ak-ai.
jar-LOC 1p-ERG adornment do.T-INC
'In the same way we embroider our skirts, we decorate the jars.'

10.4.7. 'Since'

This type of temporal clause is formed by a reference-marked 'when' clause plus the addition of the emphatic *-bi*. The next example was previously given in Ch. 9 as (14); the pronoun 'we' is used in a generic sense, equivalent to English 'one:'

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(150) Pikó-ke-tian-*bi* no-a ani *a*-kan-ai....
take.out:MID-P-DS-EM 1p-ABS big do.T-PL-INC
'Since (we) are born (our parents) take care of us.....'

Differently from the simultaneous different-subject marker *-nontian*, the emphatic-marked *-nontianbi* may link two clauses with identical subjects:

(151) Koshoshka iki no-a joni-*nontianbi* no-n
river.dolphin:ABS AUX 1-ABS become.people-since 1p-ERG

pi-osma.
eat-NEG.HAB.AGTZ
'Since the time we began to exist, we never eat river dolphin.'

10.4.8. Manner / Means

Manner /means adverbial clauses, such as the last clause in the example below, are exclusively coded through reference-marked clauses:

(152) Ja-tian ja-bo onan-ma-ti i-ke-n-bi, Inka raan-kan-a
that-TEMP 3-PL:ABS know-CAUS-INF be-P-DS-EM Inka send.away-PL-PP2

iki tama toban washí-*xon*.
AUX peanut roasted:ABS be.stingy.about-PSSA
'Despite the fact that she still had to teach them (how to do things), they drove the Inka (Woman) away by denying her roasted peanuts.'

10.4.9. Irrealis Conditional

Irrealis conditional clauses are also reference-marked:

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(153) Nokon tita kai-n-ra e-a-ribi kai.
POS1 mother:ABS go:S-DS-EV 1-ABS-also go:INC
'If my mother is going, I am going too.'

The following sentence was previously given in Ch. 9 as (3):

(154) Jene-n ka-tan-ax jo-xon jawen awin
flowing.water-ALL go-go.do.and.return-PSSS come-PSSA POS3 wife:ABS

mera-[a]x, wexa-anan-katit-ai joni-bo.
find-PSSS cut.w/wexati-REC-PST4-INC man-PL:AB
'If when coming back from the fishing he found his wife (with another man), the men cut each other with the *wexati* knife.'

(155) Ja-tian ja joni raké-ma ik-ax, chama ak-á
that-TEMP that man:ABS coward-NEG be-PSSS *chama* do.T-PO>S

piko-t-ai.
take.out-MID-INC
'Then if the man was not a coward he would come out (from his house) when being called "*chama*".'

10.4.10. Counterfactual Conditional

Counterfactual conditional clauses are reference-marked; additionally, the main clause carries the frustrative *-kean*:

(156) E-a bake i-ke-tian nokon papa-baon e-a raon-yama-a-ra,
1-ABS child do.I-P-DS POS1 father-PL:ERG 1-ABS cure-NEG-PO>S/A-EV

kikin yopa i-*kean*-ke.
extremely incompetent be-FRUSTR-CMPL
'If my parents had not treated me with plant medicine when I was a child, I would be a total incompetent (i.e., a bad fisher / hunter) now.'

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(157) Nokon tita-n e-a meráya-iba bo-yama-a-ra
POS1 mother-ERG 1-ABS great.shaman-CHEZ take-NEG-PO>S/A-EV

e-a moa mawat-a i-*kean*-ke.
1-ABS already die-PP2 be-FRUSTR-CMPL
'If my mother had not taken me to the great shaman, now I would be dead.'

(158) Bakish oi be-yama-iba-*ke-tian*-ra,
one.day.away rain:ABS come.n.SG-NEG-PST2-P-DS-EV

e-n moa pei bi-a i-*kean*-ke.
1-ERG already leaf:ABS get-PP2 do.I-FRUSTR-CMPL
'If it had not rained yesterday, I would have gone to get palm leaf (for the roof).'

(159) Moa atsa wai a-*xon*-ra, no-n rama atsa xeati
already yuca chacra do.T-PSSA-EV 1p-ERG now yuca drink:ABS

a-*kean*-ke.
do.T-FRUSTR-CMPL
'If we had planted a yuca chacra, we would drink yuca beer now.'

10.4.11. Concessive / Adversative

Concessive / adversative clauses are formed by adding the emphatic *-bi* to a clause marked for same-reference or switch-reference:

(160) Maioshiain ka-xon-*bi*-ra e-n chopa xate bi-ama-ke.
Pucallpa:ALL go-PSSA-EM-EV 1-ERG cloth piece:ABS get-NEG-CMPL
'Although I went to Pucallpa, I didn't buy any / the piece of cloth.'
'I went to Pucallpa, but I did not buy any / the piece of cloth.'

(161) Kikin icha nami-a i-xon-bi-ra e-a a-ma-yama-kan-ke.
very much meat-PROP do.I-PSSA-EM-EV 1-ABS do.T-CAUS-NEG-PL-CMPL
'Even though they had a lot of meat, they did not invite me anything.'
'They had a lot of meat, but they did not invite me anything.'

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(162) Paxkin-a ik-ax-*bi*-ra Sani ni-wan-ke.
get.tired-PP2 do.I-PSSS-EM-EV Sani-ABS walk-PST1-CMPL
'Despite being tired, Sani kept on walking.'

(163) Mato r-iki e-n kena-a, pishta jakon-ma-shoko a-xon-*bi*.
2p:ABS EV-COP 1-ERG call-PP2 *fiesta* good-NEG-DIM:ABS do.T-PSSA-EM
'I have invited you in spite of having organized a not so good *fiesta*.'

In sum, most types of adverbial clauses can be expressed through alternate structures. Only similative clauses carry overt nominalizing morphology and the dedicated postposition *keská ~ keskat* obligatorily. Purpose can be expressed by an infinitival nominalized clause to which the postposition *kopí* is optionally added, or by reference-marked clauses. *Kopí* may also take part in reason clauses. Temporal clauses are predominantly reference-marked. Subsequent temporal propositions may alternatively be expressed through adverbial clauses marked by the completive participle *-a*, usually followed by the postposition *pekáo* 'after.' 'Since' clauses are formed by adding the emphatic *-bi* to reference-marked temporal clauses. Negation and the emphatic *-bi* are appended to a completive participial clause in order to render the meaning 'before.' Limitative adverbial clauses may be nominalized or else may be marked by *-non* (which does not function as a different-subject marker in this context), and must carry the postposition *kaman*. Finally, manner / means, conditionals, and concessive / adversative clauses must be reference-marked. The matrix verb of a counterfactual conditional construction bears the frustrative *-kean*; in concessive / adversative clauses the emphatic *-bi* is added to the reference-marked clause.

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CHAPTER 11

COORDINATION OF CLAUSES

This chapter deals with combinations of clauses exhibiting the same syntactic status. It must be kept in mind however that the SK equivalents of English coordinate clauses might involve clause-chaining and reference-marking. Coordinate clauses are used to express conjunction, disjunction, and adversative meanings.

11.1. Conjunction

11.1.1. Juxtaposition

There are different ways to express conjunction. First, conjoined clauses can be simply juxtaposed, without addition of any linguistic material. The two clauses in (1) express consecutive events; both clauses are finite and bear the completive aspect marker *-ke*:

(1) [Yoxan-shoko-ki rete-kan-*ke*], [paranta pei kakaa-kan-*ke*]....
old.woman-DIM:ABS-HSY2 kill-PL-CMPL plantain leaf:ABS extend-PL-CMPL
'They killed the grandmother and extended the plantain leaves on the ground....'

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In (2), the two conjoined clauses carry the finite incompletive aspect marker *-ai*:

(2) [Ja-tian ja xeta kikin-i penet-ai], [payó-yama-ai].
that-TEMP that teeth:ABS extremely-S become.shiny-INC become.old-NEG-INC
'Then, the teeth became extremely shiny, they didn't get worn out.'

In (1) and (2) the coreferential A and S arguments have been elided in the second clause; i.e., they have undergone "equi-subject deletion," following a nominative syntactic configuration. By contrast, in (3) and (4) non-coreferential subjects must be overtly expressed in each clause.

The example below (first given in Chapter 7 as (39)) consists of two juxtaposed complex sentences; each complex sentence contains a main clause headed by the finite narrative past form *kaa iki* and a dependent clause taking the simultaneous same-subject morpheme *-i* which additionally signals S agreement:

(3) [Ja nonti-n wetsa ka-a iki [inat-i]], [wetsa ka-a iki
that canoe-MNS other:ABS go-PP2 AUX go.up-SSSS other:ABS go-PP2 AUX

[toxbá-paket-i]].
float-going.down-SSSS
'By canoe one went up the river and the other one floated down the river.'

11.1.2. *-Ribi* 'Again, Also'

The finite clauses in (4) encode two like events involving different subjects, the element *-ribi* 'also' marks the subject of each clause:

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(4) [Ja-tian Ino-*ribi* jene-nko ka-ke], [Xae-*ribi*
that-TEMP Jaguar:ABS-also flowing.water-ALL go-CMPL Sloth:ABS-also

jene-nko ka-ke].
flowing.water-ALL go-CMPL
'Then the Jaguar went to the river and the Sloth went to the river too.'

11.1.3. Conjunctions

SK has a set of conjunctions based on the medial demonstrative *ja-* which generally take case-marking and switch-reference / participant agreement morphology. These conjunctions operate at different levels linking NPs, clauses, chains, and paragraphs. As in ex. (4), *-ribi* 'also' marks both subjects in (5), but the conjunction *jatian* is additionally present between the two clauses (*jatian* also initiates (4) and (5) linking them to the previous chain):

(5) [Ja-tian-ki Ino-n-*ribi* jawen tari jope-ke],
that-TEMP-HSY2 Jaguar-ERG-also POS3 *cushma*:ABS take.off-CMPL

ja-tian [Xae-n-*ribi* jawen tari jope-ke].
that-TEMP Sloth-ERG-also POS3 *cushma*:ABS take.off-CMPL
'Then the Jaguar took off his *cushma*, and the Anteater took off his *cushma* too.'

The conjunction *jatian* contains the temporal *-tian* which has become a different-subject marker in SK (see 9.2). In addition, *jatian* encodes discourse discontinuity in a broader sense (14.1).

Below, *jainxon* conjoins two object complement clauses, the coreferential subject having been elided in the second complement clause; *jainxon* is followed by *-ribi* 'also:'

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(6) Ja-tian e-n shinan-ai, bake-ya i-xon, [[nokon bake-baon
that-TEMP 1-ERG think-INC child-PROP be-PSSA POS1 child-PL:ERG

onan-ti] *jain-xon-ribi* [no-n jawéki-bo sawe-ti]].
know-INF:ABS there-A-also 1p-GEN thing-PL:ABS wear-INF:ABS
'Therefore, as I have children of my own, I plan that they learn (our customs) and also that they wear our traditional clothes.'

The selection of the A controlled conjunction *jainxon* in the example above is determined by subject coreferentiality (a kind of discourse continuity) and by the fact that the following clause headed by *sawe-* 'put on (clothes)' is transitive. The next example shows that the transitivity value of the first clause is irrelevant; i.e., *jainxon* is selected since the subsequent clause is transitive regardless of the fact that the prior clause is intransitive:

(7) Ja-tian westíora Ne-ino joni-a iki,
that-TEMP one WATER-jaguar:ABS (become)man-PP2 AUX

jain-xon yokat-a iki.....
there-A ask-PP2 AUX
'Then a Nutria turned into a man and asked him....'

On the other hand, the S inflected *jainoax* occurs in the example below given that the subjects have the same referent and *benxokaa-* 'get ready' is intransitive:

(8) [Kesin-ra nashi-ke] *jaino-a-x* [benxokaa-ke].
Kesin:ABS-EV bathe-CMPL there:LOC-ABL-S get.ready-CMPL
'Kesin took a bath and got ready.'

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In the next example *jainoax* conjoins different subjects carrying out the same event; this is presented as a type of discourse continuity. S agreement on the conjunction is triggered by the monovalent verb *bane-*:

(9) Bane-ki-a-kan-a iki, westíora yosi-shoko,
stay-HSY2-do.T-PL-PP2 AUX one old.man-DIM:ABS

yoxan-shoko *jaino-a-x* bake-bo-res.
old.woman-DIM:ABS there:LOC-ABL-S child-PL:ABS-just
'The only ones who stayed were an old man, an old woman, and the children.'

However, there is evidence showing the conjunction *jainoax* is becoming more generic, losing its S agreement requirement. The next example (given in Chapter 6 as (169)) shows that *jainoax* is also used to conjoin O arguments that are part of an enumeration:

(10) Wetsa nete, Awá Mai a-kan-ai meráya-nin-ki jawen nishi
other day Awá Mai:ABS do.T-PL-PP1 great.shaman-ERG-HSY2 POS3 vine

paen meran oin-a iki meskó yoina-bo: nato jono,
dizziness inside see-PP2 AUX different animal-PL:ABS this c.peccary:ABS

awá, yawa, ano.... *jainoax* mari.
tapir:ABS w.l.peccary:ABS paca:ABS and agouti:ABS
'One day, the great shaman called Awá Mai saw, in his ayahuasca vision, different kinds of animals: collared peccaries, tapirs, white-lipped peccaries, pacas....and agoutis.'

Moreover, in the sentence below, *jainoax* links A arguments:

(11) Iskorainko ik-á bake-baon yoyo a-ti,
elementary.school:LOC:LOC do.I-PP2 child-PL:ERG ONOM:speak do.T-INF

koríjio ak-ai bake-ranon-baon itan
secondary.school:ABS do.T-INC child-young.boy-PL:ERG CONJ

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xontako-baon-ribi yoyo a-ti, *jainoax*
unmarried.girl-PL:ERG-also ONOM:speak do.T-INF and

jato axe-ai-baon-ribi yoyo a-ti kopí.
3p:ABS learn-CAUS:PP1-PL:ERG-also ONOM:speak do.T-INF purpose
'So that the children in the elementary schools read it, secondary school boys and girls read it, and those who teach them also read it.'

The generalization of a conjunction formally marked through *-ax*, and its consequent loss of S agreement, is also attested with regard to the adversative *ikaxbi*, to be treated below.

Some conjunctions appear to have developed from the combination of a case-marked demonstrative with the transitive pro-verb *ak-*, reference-marking morphemes having been added to this combination: *ja-ská-ke-tian* [that-SIML-P-DD] < *ja-keská a-ke-tian* [that-SIML do.T-P-DD].

11.1.4. *-Kan* 'And'

Yet another coordinating strategy consists of the addition of the element *-kan* 'and, whereas' to a verbless clause (see also 8.4.3.4). The sentence below consists of two copular clauses, the latter being a zero copula construction whose subject carries the element *-kan*; this element plays a contrastive function:

(12) [Shipibo-baon joi iki ponté-bicho],
Shipibo-PL:GEN speech:ABS COP straight-only

[Konibo-baon-a-*kan* maké-ya].
Konibo-PL:GEN-NML-and/whereas accent-PROP
'The Shipibo's speech is just straight whereas the Konibo's speech has an accent.'

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Nominalized descriptive clauses are conjoined through the element *itan*, which conjoins adjectivals in general (see exx. (3a-c) in Chapter 5):

(13) Jatíribi Shipibo bake-ranon-bo no-n joi-n
some Shipibo child-young.boy-PL:ABS 1p-GEN language-OBL

yoyo ik-ai, ikaxbi jatíribi-bo-ra ja-ke
ONOM:speak do-INC but some-PL:ABS-EV exist-CMPL

moa i-ama-[a]i-bo *itan* ninká-yama-[a]i.
already do.I-NEG-PP1-PL CONJ understand-NEG-PP1
'Some Shipibo young boys speak in our language, however there are some who don't speak (in our language) anymore and who don't understand it.'

For nominal conjunction see 6.7.14 dealing with the comitative and conjunction *betan*.

11.1.5. Negative Conjunction

The way to encode the equivalent of English 'neither....nor' is through a conjunction and a verb in the negative:

(14) No-n oin-patan-bo-a-bi r-iki, no-n iskóra-nko-bo
1p-ERG see-at.intervals-going-PP2-EM EV-AUX 1p-GEN school-LOC-PL

jainoax no-n jema-nko-bo no-n joi-n-bi-ribi-kaya
and 1p-GEN village-LOC-PL 1p-GEN language-OBL-EM-also-CONTRST

meskó keská jawéki-bo onan-ti *yama* *yama*-bi-res.
different SIML thing-PL:ABS know-INF:ABS exist.not exist.not-EM-jus
'We see continuously (when visiting the villages) that neither in our schools nor in our villages in general are there varied pedagogical materials in our own language.' (Soi Rawa 1995:5).

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11.1.6. Non-Restrictive Conjunction

Consider the next illustrative sentence where the meaning 'not only X but also Y' is coded in a way almost identical to its English and Spanish equivalents with the difference that in SK an adversative element is not obligatory:

(15) ...no-n joi-n-bi-ribi wisha-bo, bake-baon
1p-GEN language-OBL-EM-also write:PP2-PL:ABS child-PL:ERG

yoyo a-ti iskoira-nko-xon-*bicho-ma* no-n xobo-nko-xon-*ribi*.
ONOM:speak do.T-INF school-LOC-A-only-NEG 1p-GEN house-LOC-A-also
'Children should read books in our own language not only in the school but also at home.' (Soi Rawa 1995:5)

It is not uncommon to hear utterances similar to (15) to which the Spanish adverbial conjunction *sino* has been added before the last conjoined element.

11.2. Disjunction

Disjunction between two clauses with identical subjects may be expressed through the elements *iamax* / *iamaxon*, analyzable as [be/do.I-NEG-PSSS] and [be/do.I-NEG-PSSA], respectively. Alternatively, the Spanish disjunction *o* may be employed.

In the sentence below *iamax* is used when preceding a derived intransitive clause (the reciprocal has a detransitivizing effect):

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(16) Ja-tian nawa-bo-bi-ribi jawen rawí noko-ax
that-TEMP outsider-PL:ABS-EM-also POS3 rival:ABS meet-PSSS

[[tima-anan-kan-ai] *iamax* [tantash i-anan-kan-ai]].
hit-REC-PL-INC or:S ONOM do.I-REC-PL-INC
'Also the *mestizos* when encountering their rival hit each other or punch each other.'

In the example below *iamax* precedes a periphrastic verb form involving a causativized transitive lexical verb. The use of the S-marked disjunction may be related to a decrease in transitivity resulting from combining this verb with the 'go' future:

(17) Rama-ra e-n nokon awin nashi-ma-i ka-[a]i,
now-EV 1-ERG POS1 wife:ABS bathe-CAUS-SSSS go-INC

iamax xea-ma-i ka-[a]i benxo-non i-xon.
or:S drink-CAUS-SSSS go-INC get.well-FDS do.I-PSSA
'Now I will bathe my wife (with the plant preparation), or I will have her drink it so that she gets well.'

Now let us consider an example involving the A controlled form *iamaxon*:

(18) No-n awin no-a chota-nan-kan-ke-tian-ra no-n jato
1p-GEN wife:ABS 1p-ABS copulate.with-MAL-PL-P-DS-EV 1p-ERG 3p:ABS

tsewe-a-ti iki wexati-nin *iamaxon* wino-n....
harm.w/*wexati*-do.T-INF AUX *wexati*-INST or:A *macana*-INST
'If another man copulates with our wife to our detriment we must harm him with the *wexati* knife or with the *macana* (wooden club).'

The elements *iamax* and *iamaxon* also encode the meaning 'that is (to say)' (Loriot, Laurialt, and Day 1993:193).

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In the example below, the element *itan* followed by *-ribi* 'also' is used to code disjunction between two reason clauses with different subjects (as mentioned earlier, *itan* also expresses conjunction between two adjectivals):

(19) Ja-rá-ke joni-bo jakóma shinan-ya [[jawen ani-baon
exist-EV-CMPL person-PL:ABS good:NEG thinking-PROP POS3 big-PL:GEN

esé ninká-yosma ik-ax], *itan*-ribi [jawen ani-baon
advice:ABS hear-NEG.HAB.AGTZ be-PSSS or-also POS3 big-PL:ERG

rao-n-yosma ik-ax]].
medicine-TRNZ-NEG.HAB.AGTZ be-PSSS
'There are bad / unkind people either because they never listened to their elders' advice or because their elders never cured them with plant medicine.'

Note that in (11) the element *itan* is translated by the conjunction 'and' in the expression 'secondary school boys and girls.' However, in this instance 'and' is simply used to include both male and female students given the lack of a gender neutral term in SK, and does not imply that boys and girls would read the books together. In the latter situation, the nominal conjunction *betan* (which derived from the comitative) would be employed.

11.3. Adversative

SK is lexicalizing the element *ikaxbi* [be/do.I-PSSS-EM] as an adversative conjunction translatable as 'but.' Structurally, *ikaxbi* is a reference-marked verb to which the emphatic *-bi* is added to provide the adversative meaning, similar to the situation observed in concessive clauses. Consider the following illustrative sentence:

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(20) [Maioshiain-ra ka-tan-ke no-n koráka], *ikaxbi*-ra
Pucallpa:ALL-EV go-go.do.and.return-CMPL 1p-GEN chief:ABS but-EV

[nawa koshi-bo betan yoyo i-ama-ke].
mestizo authority-PL COM ONOM:speak do.I-NEG-CMPL
'Our chief went to Pucallpa but he did not speak with the *mestizo* authorities.'

The adversative *ikaxbi* contains the S controlled same-reference marker *-ax* which in principle would require that its matrix (in these cases following) clause be intransitive. However, one sign of the lexicalization of *ikaxbi* is its common loss of obligatory S agreement. Ex. (21) shows that *ikaxbi* may link two transitive clauses, actually only the transitivity status of the second clause is relevant:

(21) [Jain-xon moa beno-ma-kati-kan-ai], *ikaxbi*
there-PDCA already get.husband-CAUS-PST4-PL-INC but

[bi-ma-pao-ka:ni-ke rayá joni]....
receive-CAUS-HAB-PL:REM-CMPL hard.worker man:ABS
'Then, they made (the girl) get married, but they married her to a hard-working man....'

However, *ikaxbi*'s A controlled counterpart can also be attested:

(22) Wetsa joni-ronki i-káti-ai mansána wai-a, *i-xon-bi*-ki
other man:ABS-HSY be-PST4-INC apple chacra-PROP be-PSSA-EM-HSY2

joni-n jawen bimi koko-yama-katit-ai.
man-ERG POS3 fruit:ABS eat.sweet.fruit-NEG-PST4-INC
'It is said that a man had an apple chacra long ago, but he could never eat his fruit.' (Ministerio de Educación and ILV 1982:31)

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It is also common for SK speakers to employ the Spanish adversative *pero*, often following the SK adversative *ikaxbi* in an instance of bilingual parallelism.

(23) [E-a-ra Maioshiain ka-tan-ke] *ikaxbi pero*
1-ABS-EV Pucallpa:ALL go-go.do.and.return-CMPL but but

[chopa xate bi-ama-ke].
cloth piece:ABS get-NEG-CMPL
'I went to Pucallpa, but I did not buy any piece of cloth.'

The next sentence (given in Chapter 7 as (147)) illustrates the use of a non-lexicalized *ikaxbi*:

(24) Ja-tian benbo bake-baon mapó mee-ti atipan-yama-ke;
that-TEMP male child-PL:ERG clay HAND-INF can-NEG-CMPL

bakeranon *ik-ax-bi* boshí wacho-na-ke-tian, mapó keská.
boy be-PSSS-EM penis:ABS fluffy-WARN-P-DS clay SIML
'Male children should not play with clay; being boys their penises might become fluffy, just like the clay.'

The next text excerpt contains the adversative *ikaxbi*, as well as two instances of *-ribi* conjoining reference-marked clauses:

(25) Nokon papa betan nokon tita-n e-a meni-a iki,
POS1 father CONJ POS1 mother-ERG 1-ABS give-PP2 AUX

ikaxbi e-n shinan-yama-[a]i pota-ti,
but 1-ERG think-NEG-INC leave-INF:ABS

[moa ja-bé icha bake-ya i-xon],
already 3-COM many child-PROP be-PSSA

[icha-bi-res e-a ja-bé-*ribi* axe-a ik-ax],
much-EM-just 1-ABS 3-COM-also get.used-PP2 be-PSSS

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[jakoin-ra joni-*ribi* i-ke-tian].
good:S-EV man-also be-P-DS
'My father and my mother gave me in matrimony, but I never considered divorce because I already have many kids with him, I have gotten very used to him, and he is a good man.'

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CHAPTER 12

FURTHER REFLECTIONS ON GRAMMATICAL RELATIONS

This section discusses the coding and behavioral properties of grammatical relations in SK; i.e., of syntactic relations independent of semantic and pragmatic roles. It must be pointed out that certain subject- or object-related properties commonly described across languages such as constituent order, verb agreement (of any argument), pronominal cross-referencing morphology in the verb or auxiliary, or promotional passivization assigning subject status to the patient of a transitive verb are not applicable (or apply only marginally) to SK. Nevertheless, there are various other properties that do reflect grammatical relations.

12.1. Ergative and Absolutive

12.1.1. Case-Marking System

As we have seen, SK employs an ergative-absolutive case-marking system. With a transitive verb, the most agent-like participant is marked ergative, while the most patient-

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like one occurs in the absolutive case. With an intransitive verb there is a neutralization of semantic roles with regard to case-marking, since the S can be an agent, an experiencer, or a patient. This argues for the existence of a syntactic rather than a semantic relation, even though this restrictive neutralization involves intransitive verbs rather than transitives. Semantically, the A argument is generally an agent or force, sometimes an experiencer or even a body-part stimulus when the verb 'ache' is involved, but never a patient. The O argument may be a patient, a recipient or an experiencer, but never an agent (see also 8.1.1).

12.1.2. Case-Marking on Doubled Pronouns

As shown in an earlier section with the same heading, a pronoun may be repeated for emphatic purposes; in these instances the doubled pronoun keeps its ergative or absolutive form. Exx. (11)-(13) from Chapter 6 are repeated below:

(1) *E-n* *e-n* a-res-ke.
1-ERG 1-ERG do.T-just-CMPL
'I defeated him / her (on my own). / Only I hit him / her.'

(2) *E-a* *e-a* a-res-ai.
1-ABS 1-ABS do.T-just-INC
'Only s/he is defeating / hitting me (I cannot hit back).'

Ex. (3) involving an active intransitive verb is accepted by some speakers; whereas ex. (4) involving an inactive intransitive verb was considered ungrammatical by all the speakers I consulted:

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(3) *E-a e-a* ka-ke.
1-ABS 1-ABS go-CMPL
'I myself left.'

(4) **E-a e-a* onitsapit-ai.
1-ABS 1-ABS suffer-INC
'I myself suffer.'

Therefore, with intransitive verbs, all speakers consulted rejected repetition of an unaccusatively used pronoun, while some but not all accepted repetition of an unergatively used pronoun. Doubled pronouns differ from 'emphatic pronouns' as will be seen below.

12.1.3. Participant Agreement on Locative / Allative Adjuncts

Participant agreement on locative / allative adjuncts operates on an ergative-absolutive basis, since the marker *-xon* occurs only when the adjunct is A-oriented (ex. (5)), whereas S- and O-oriented adjuncts receive no participant agreement marking (exx. (6) and (7), respectively):

(5) Wesna-n-ra yoman ak-ai, *xobo-n-xon.*
Wesna-ERG-EV thread:ABS do.T-INC house-LOC-A
'Wesna is spinning the thread in the house.'

(6) Bake-ra *xobo-n* tsini-ai.
child:ABS-EV house-LOC:S play-INC
'The child is playing in the house.'

(7) Joni-n-ra jawen nonti *napon* xoton-bain-a iki.
man-ERG-EV POS3 canoe:ABS to.the.middle:O push-AND2-PP2 AUX
'The man pushed his canoe to the middle (of the river).'

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Further examples illustrating the Participant Agreement System on locative / allative adjuncts can be found in Chapter 19.

12.1.4. Internally-Headed Relatives

Internally-headed relativization operates on an absolutive basis and represents the single documented instance of interclausal syntactic ergativity (i.e., an absolutive pivot) in the language (probably this distribution also applies to fronted and extraposed relativization; see 10.2.4.9). As discussed in 10.2.4.8, in transitive internally-headed relative clauses it is the object which must be interpreted as a main clause argument:

(8) [Joni-n yawa rete-ibat-a]...
man-ERG w.l.peccary:ABS kill-PST2-PP2
'The white-lipped peccary the man killed...'
*The man that killed the white-lipped peccary...'

Intransitive internally-headed relative clauses are also possible in SK, the single S argument being coreferential with an argument in the matrix clause:

(9) [Mi-bé ainbo jo-á]....
2-COM woman:ABS come-PP2
'the woman who came with you....'

Note that 'white-lipped peccary' in (8) is a patient, while woman in (9) is rather an agent; therefore, it is not the semantic role that serves as pivot but the syntactic function O / S.

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12.1.5. Imperatives

In transitive imperative clauses only the object argument may be expressed overtly, while in the intransitive counterparts the S noun phrase may be present. Therefore, overt NPs in imperative clauses exhibit an absolutive distribution.

(10) a. Piti pi-wé!
fish:ABS eat-IMP
'Eat fish!'

b. Mi-n piti pi-wé!
2-ERG fish:ABS eat-IMP
'*Eat fish! / Eat your fish!'

(11) (Mi-a) ka-tan-we!
2-ABS go-go.do-IMP
'(You) go!'

12.2. Subjecthood

Above we have seen several types of evidence for the relevance of Absolutive as a grammatical relation in SK. However, there are a handful of grammatical constructions that treat A and S alike and differently from all other arguments or obliques. These constructions are: the verbal plural *-kan*, emphatic pronouns, deletion under coreference, the same-subject markers *-ax*, *-xon*, *-ta(a)nan*, *-i*, *-kin*, *-anan*, *-nox*, *-noxon*, and to a lesser extent *-a* indicating coreferentiality between a dependent clause object and a matrix clause subject (S / A). Although all these constructions have been discussed in different

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earlier sections, I briefly review them here so that the evidence in support of a subject syntactic category can be found together.

12.2.1. The Verbal Plural *-Kan*

The verbal suffix *-kan* indicates that the S or A argument of the clause is plural; when the plurality of the subject is expressed in the subject nominal, *-kan* remains optional. What is of relevance here is that *-kan* operates on a nominative basis, being sensitive to syntactic rather than semantic or pragmatic relations. Consider the examples below (see also 6.2.2):

S_o argument is plural

(12) Ja bari noka-[a]i-tian joni-bo onitsapi-*kan*-a iki.
that sun:ABS eclipse-S-DS person-PL:ABS suffer-PL-PP2 AUX
'Since there was an eclipse of the sun, the people were suffering.'

S_a argument is plural

(13) Jaino-a-x bo-*kan*-ai chiponki....
there:LOC-ABL-S go.n.SG-PL-INC down.the.river
'Then they went down the river....'

A argument is plural

(14) Ja-tian ani nonti-n westíora atsa xeati chomo na-yásan-*kan*-ai...
that-TEMP big canoe-LOC one yuca drink jar:ABS INTERIOR-seat-PL-INC
'Then they put a jar of yuca beer in a big canoe.....'

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O argument is plural (no *-kan* occurs)

(15) ...ja joni icha piti-a bané-ni-ke;
that man:ABS much food-PROP remain-REM-CMPL

jatíbi roo rete-kin keyo-ax.
all howler.monkey:ABS kill-SSSA finish-PSSS
'And so the man remained with a lot of food, after having killed all the howler monkeys.'

The plural *-kan* is not restricted to topical participants. Even more, *-kan* is attested in impersonal passive constructions:

(16) Xate-*kan*-a-kaya-ra e-n a-*yora*-ke ja-ska-ra shinan-kin.
cut-PL-PO>S/A-but-EV 1-ERG do.T-INTENS-CMPL that-SIML-*ra* think-SSSA
'But after my operation I think about that very much.'

12.2.2. Case-Marking on Emphatic Pronouns

As treated in 6.1.2, emphatic pronouns occur necessarily in the *-n* form and are coreferential with the S or A argument of the same clause. Below, *janbix* is coreferential with the S_o argument *Mane*:

(17) Mane-ra ja-*n*-bi-x mawá-ke.
Mane:ABS-EV 3-NOM-EM-S die-CMPL
'Mane himself died / died by his own action.'

In the next example, *janbix* refers to the S of the intransitive reflexive predicate:

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(18) Mane-ra ja-*n*-bi-x xaté-ke.
Mane:ABS-EV 3-NOM-EM-S cut:MID-CMPL
'Mane cut himself.'

The next examples clearly show that emphatic pronouns may refer to an S_a argument:

(19) E-a-ra e-*n*-bi-x-bi-shaman beno-ama-[a] iki.
1-ABS-EV 1-NOM-EM-S-nicely get.married-NEG-PP2 AUX
'I didn't get married according to my own will.'

(20) Mane-ra ja-*n*-bi-x jabá-ke.
Mane:ABS-EV 3-NOM-EM-S escape-CMPL
'Manera himself escaped.'

The next two examples are two-fold. First, they show that emphatic pronouns also receive the case-marker *-n* when referring to an A argument; second, they illustrate the fact that when playing the A function emphatic pronouns do not carry the S agreement marker *-x*:

(21) Wesna-n-ra *ja-n*-bi rao xea-ke.
Wesna-ERG-EV 3-NOM-EM medicine:ABS drink-CMPL
'Wesna herself drank the medicine.'

(22) Mane-ra *ja-n*-bi xeati mots-ai.
Mane:ABS-EV 3-NOM-EM drink:ABS mix.w/water-INC
'Mane is preparing his banana drink himself (there is no woman to do it for him).'

In the next text excerpt a female speaker talks about how their mothers used to arrange a matrimony for them:

(23) Jawen keen joni i-ke-tian, moa *ja-n-bi*
POS3 want:NMLZ man:ABS be-P-DS already 3-NOM-EM:A

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bo-xon-bo no-a meni-i.
carry-PSSA-PL:ABS 1-ABS give-SSSS
'Once they found a man they liked, they themselves would take us and give us in matrimony.'

Finally, the next sentence (given as (17) in Ch. 8) illustrates an emphatic pronoun which is coreferential with the patient-object; crucially, there is no *-n*:

(24) Nato r-iki e-n piti be-á,
this EV-COP 1-ERG eat-INF:ABS bring-PP2:ABS

ja-bi moa bo-tan-we.
3:ACC-EM:O already carry-go.and.do-IMP
'This is the fish I have caught, you better take THIS home already (rather than continue waiting for your father who also went fishing).'

12.2.3. Deletion under Coreference

When two conjoined clauses with coreferential subjects are juxtaposed, the subject of the second clause, whether S or A, is elided. This was shown in Ch. 11 through examples (1) and (2), which are repeated below for convenience. Note that the elided subject is a transitive agent in (25) but an intransitive patient in (26):

(25) [Yoxan-shoko-ki rete-kan-*ke*], [paranta pei kakaa-kan-*ke*]....
old.woman-DIM:ABS-HSY2 kill-PL-CMPL plantain leaf:ABS extend-PL-CMPL
'They killed the grandmother and extended the plantain leaves on the ground....'

(26) [Ja-tian ja xeta kikin-i penet-ai], [payó-yama-ai].
that-TEMP that teeth:ABS extremely-S become.shiny-INC become.old-NEG-INC
'Then, the teeth became extremely shiny, they didn't get worn out.'

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The same principle is found in biclausal constructions involving the verb *keen-* 'want.' The complement clause bears no overt subject when *keen-* functions as a same-subject modality verb, while the non-coreferential subject must be expressed in manipulative constructions. Examples (101) and (102) from Ch. 10 are repeated as (27a) and (28), respectively:

(27) a. E-a-ra keen-ai [Kontámanain ka-ti-n]. modality
1-ABS-EV want-INC Contamana:ALL go-INF-OBL
'I want to go to Contamana.'

b. *E-a-ra keen-ai [e-a Kontámanain kati-n]
1-ABS-EV want-INC 1-ABS Contamana:ALL go-INF-OBL
'I want to go to Contamana.'

(28) E-a-ra keen-ai [*mi-n* piti meni-ti-nin] manipulation.
1-ABS-EV want-INC 2-ERG food:ABS give-INF-OBL
'I want you to give (me) the food / fish.'

In the next example the non-coreferential subject in the complement clause is expressed through the plural *-kan*:

(29) E-a-ra [Sani rete-*kan*-ti] keen-ai. manipulation
1-ABS-EV Sani:ABS kill-PL-INF:ABS want-INC
'I want them to kill Sani.'

12.2.4. Same-Subject Markers

The markers *-ax*, *-xon*, *-taanan*, *-i*, *-kin*, *-anan*, *-nox*, and *-noxon* indicate, among other things, that the subjects of the marked and the matrix clauses have the same reference.

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Under the heading Syntactic Pivot in 9.4, I showed that these morphemes encode grammatical rather than semantic or pragmatic relations. Here I simply offer additional examples (and also repeat one) in support of the claim that "same-subject" is organized in a nominative fashion. In the example below, the same-subject marker *-xon* is employed even though the first person singular subject is an experiencer in the first clause but a patient in the marked clause (in SK, subjects of perception verbs exhibit the same morpho-syntactic properties as prototypical transitive subjects; see 10.3.3):

(30) E-n oin-a iki Ani Xeati a-kan-ai
1-ERG see-PP2 AUX *Ani Xeati* do.T-PL-PP1:ABS

chonka rabé baritia-ya i-*xon*.
ten two year-PROP be-PSSA
'When I was twelve years old, I saw how the *Ani Xeati* ceremony was practiced.'

Below, the same-subject marker *-ax* is used to encode coreferentiality between A (agent) and S (patient) arguments:

(31) E-a-ra [Mane tima-*ax*] paké-ke.
1-ABS-EV Mane:ABS hit-PSSS cause.to.fall:MID-CMPL
'I hit Mane and fell.'

In the following example the same-subject marker *-i* is employed to link two clauses with an active intransitive subject and what could be considered a patientive subject:

(32) ...bewa bewa-shin-*i*-res nete-kan-ai.
sing sing-all.night.long-SSSS-just receive.the.new.day-PL-INC
'Singing and singing all night long they received the new day.'

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Ex. (33) shows that same-subject marking cannot be used when subjects are non-coreferential, even if the linked clauses share the same topic participant:

(33) Xeta-n chexa-*a*-ra rimon bero chaka-xon rao-n-ke.
tooth-ERG ache-PO>S/A-EV lemon seed grind-PSSA medicine-TRNZ-CMPL
'Since I had a toothache, I ground lemon seeds and treated it.'

12.2.5. The Object-to-Subject Marker *-A*

Though most reference markers are sensitive to the nominative category, we have seen that the marker *-a* signals coreferentiality between the object of a marked clause and the S / A argument of its matrix clause. In (33) above *-a* is employed for O > A coreferentiality while in the sentence below this morpheme indicates identity of O > S reference:

(34) E-a bake i-ke-tian nokon papa-baon e-a raon-yama-*a*-ra,
1-ABS child do.I-P-DS POS1 father-PL:ERG 1-ABS cure-NEG-PO>S/A-EV

kikin yopa i-*kean*-ke.
extremely incompetent be-FRUSTR-CMPL
'If my parents had not treated me with plant medicine when I was a child, I would be a total incompetent (i.e., a bad fisher / hunter) now.'

12.3. Objecthood: Symmetrical Objects

An object can be defined as the most patient-like absolutive-marked argument of a transitive clause. In addition, subordinate clause objects function as pivot in *-a*-marked

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clause linkage, and must be interpreted as head in transitive internally-headed, fronted, and extraposed relative clauses.

However, a clause may have more than one object, and for SK I argue that the objects of a clause are symmetrical. The term "symmetrical object" is used here somewhat differently from Bresnan and Moshi (1990) with regard to Bantu languages, where two objects may share object-related properties simultaneously but nevertheless there are ways to distinguish a direct from an indirect object. By contrast, in SK there is no independent morpho-syntactic basis for grammatically distinguishing direct from indirect objects in finite clauses (though see certain interrogative clauses in 8.4.2.3), and this is the sense in which the term "symmetrical object" is employed in this section. Thus in a construction with a ditransitive verb, both patient and recipient arguments are marked absolutive. Furthermore, it is possible for both objects to exchange positions without displaying any morpho-syntactic differences.

12.3.1. Constituent Order and Case-Marking

The two examples immediately below show that the patient and the recipient arguments of *meni-* 'give' are marked absolutive; moreover, the two objects can exchange positions:

(35) a. Pena-n-ra bake-bo esé-bo meni-ai.
Pena-ERG-EV child-PL:ABS advice-PL:ABS give-INC
'Pena gives advice to the children.'

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b. Pena-n-ra esé-bo bake-bo meni-ai.
Pena-ERG-EV advice-PL:ABS child-PL:ABS give-INC
'Pena gives advice to the children.'

There seems to be a tendency nevertheless to express the recipient object prior to the patient object.

12.3.2. Causativization

The next sentence contains a causativized predicate and two human objects; notice that any of the absolutive-marked arguments can be interpreted as causee (although given Shipibo customs the first interpretation is preferable):

(36) Pena-n-ra ranon jawen xontako bi-ma-ke.
Pena-ERG-EV young.man:ABS POS3 unmarried.girl:ABS get-CAUS-CMPL
'Pena married her daughter to the young man (lit. made her unmarried daughter get / receive the young man).
/Pena married the young man to her daughter (lit. made the young man get / receive her unmarried daughter).'

12.3.3. Applicativization

Furthermore, both arguments can function as the object of an applicative such as the benefactive *-xon*:

(37) Pena-n-ra xontako joni mera-xon-ke.
Pena-ERG-EV unmarried.girl:ABS man:ABS find-BEN-CMPL
'Pena found a man for the unmarried girl / Pena found an unmarried girl for the man.'

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12.3.4. Object-to-Subject Coreferentiality

As treated earlier, in a type of complex sentence the marker *-a* is used to encode subsequent events where the object of a dependent clause is coreferential with the subject of the matrix clause. When the dependent clause is ditransitive, either object, the recipient or the patient, can be selected for this process:

(38) Pena-n bake-shoko meni-a-ra ainbo xobo-n ka-ke.
Pena-ERG child-DIM:ABS give-PO>S/A-EV woman:ABS house-ALL go-CMPL
'After Pena gave (her) the baby, the woman went home.'

(39) Pena-n ainbo meni-a-ra bake-shoko wini-ke.
Pena-ERG woman:ABS give-PO>S/A-EV child-DIM:ABS cry-CMPL
'After Pena gave (it) to the woman, the baby cried'.

12.3.5. Externally-Headed Relativization

In addition to occurring unmarked, both objects can be relativized upon:

(40) Esé-bo Pena-n bake-bo meni-ai r-iki
advice-PL Pena-ERG child-PL:ABS give-PP1:ABS EV-COP

moa-tian no-n axé.
already-TEMP 1p-GEN traditional.knowledge/custom
'The advice that Pena gives the children is part of our traditional custom.'

(41) Bake-bo Pena-n esé-bo meni-ai r-iki jawen
child-PL Pena-ERG advice-PL:ABS give-PP1:ABS EV-COP POS3

baba-bo.
grandchild-PL
'The children to whom Pena is giving advice are her grandchildren.'

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12.3.6. Internally-Headed Relativization

As discussed earlier, in transitive internally-headed relatives it is the O argument that must be interpreted as a main clause argument. The following examples show that both patient and recipient may exhibit this property:

(42) a. [Tsoma-n joni koríki meni-a]-ra ono yaká-ke.
Tsoma-ERG man:ABS money:ABS give-PP2-EV DIST sit-CMPL
'The man to whom Tsoma gave money is sitting further over there.'

b. [Tsoma-n joni koríki meni-a]-ra jawen pisha-n iki.
Tsoma-ERG man:ABS money:ABS give-PP2-EV POS3 bag-LOC COP
'The money that Tsoma gave to the man is in his bag.'

However, at least for some speakers when the verbs *meni-* 'give' and *bichin-* 'take away' are part of an internally-headed relative there was a tendency to interpret the patient as the relativized element.

Internally-headed relativization does not differentiate between base and applicative objects:

(43) E-n-ra bena-[a]i
1-ERG-EV look.for-INC

[Beso-n nawa ainbo kena-xon-a].
Beso-ERG *mestizo*:ABS woman:ABS call-BEN-PP2:ABS
'I am looking for the woman that Beso called for the *mestizo*.'
'I am looking for the woman for whom Beso called the *mestizo*.'
'I am looking for the mestizo that Beso called for the woman.'
'I am looking for the mestizo for whom Beso called the woman.'

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In sum, the various types of evidence discussed in this section show that the objects of a SK clause are symmetrical. Since SK lacks a canonical promotional passive, passivization is not available as a test for direct objecthood.

12.4. Tripartite Alignment

After examining several morpho-syntactic properties that target the absolutive category or the nominative category, now we turn to the distribution of emphatic pronouns. Although emphatic pronouns follow a nominative-accusative distribution in terms of case-marking, their overall alignment is tripartite given that only S emphatic pronouns receive the overt participant agreement marker *-x*. The distribution of emphatic pronouns is then as follows: PRO-*n* + *-x* for S (exx. (19) and (20)), PRO-*n* + *-0* for A (exx. (21)-(23)), and PRO-*0* + *-0* for O (ex. (24)).

12.5. S-Marked Alignment

Through the term "S-marked alignment" I refer to a configuration where only the S argument receives overt marking, whereas the A and O arguments remain unmarked. This is manifested through the S agreement morphology on emphatic pronouns as well as ablative and other adjuncts (for the ablatives, see 8.3.2; see also Chapter 9).

In sum, it can be said that SK exhibits a variety of configurations in terms of coding properties; however, almost all interclausal control properties operate on a

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nominative-accusative basis. Hence it can be said that in SK the syntactic relation of "subject" is the conflation of S and A. On the other hand, there is no morpho-syntactic evidence to differentiate different types of objects (although whether the two objects behave in exactly the same way in certain types of questions remains to be examined; see 8.4.2.3).

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CHAPTER 13

EVIDENTIALITY AND EPISTEMIC MODALITY

SK marks evidentiality at two different levels. First there is a major distinction between first-hand information (*-ra*) versus second-hand information (*-ronki*); an additional specification may occur to code either inference (*-bira*) or speculation (*-mein*). If elicited in isolation, ex. (1a) would be judged "incomplete" by native speakers, who most probably would volunteer (1b) instead:

(1) a. ??Jawen jema ani iki.
POS3 village:ABS large COP
'Her village is large.'

b. Jawen jema-*ra* ani iki.
POS3 village:ABS-EV large COP
'Her village is large.' (I have been there.)

Another possibility involves the hearsay *-ronki*:

c. Jawen jema-*ronki* ani iki.
POS3 village:ABS-HSY large COP
'Her village is large.' (I have not been there, I have been told that it is large.)

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There is an obvious evidential distinction between the two sentences immediately above, as can be seen from the parenthesized information. Two other possibilities involve the morphemes *-bira* and *-mein*. *-Bira* generally co-occurs with *-ra*, while combinations of the speculative *-mein* and *-ra* are less common:

d. Ani-*ra* i-*bira*-[a]i jawen jema.
large-EV be-INFR-INC POS3 village:ABS
'Her village must be large.' (e.g., because it has a secondary school)

e. Ani-*mein*(*-ra*) iki jawen jema.
large-SPECL-EV COP POS3 village:ABS
'Perhaps her village is large.' (I am just guessing, "I ask myself")

Additionally, *-bira* and *-mein* may combine with *-ronki*:

f. Ani-*ronki* i-*bira*-[a]i jawen jema.
large-HSY be-INFR-INC POS3 village:ABS
'Her village must be large (from what I heard I infer).'

g. Ani-*mein*(*-ronki*) iki jawen jema.
large-SPECL-HSY COP POS3 village:ABS
'Perhaps her village is large. (from what I heard I speculate)'

Cross-linguistically, evidentials tend to be part of obligatory finite verb inflection; interesting interactions and combinatorial constraints can be attested between evidentials and other grammatical categories such as tense-aspect, mode, person, and verb class (Aikhenvald, to appear). By contrast, SK evidentials are not verbal morphemes and exhibit few combinatorial restrictions of the types mentioned above.

As commonly attested in languages with a grammatical evidential system, in SK some morphemes may play both evidential and epistemic functions; these morphemes

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are: *-ra* direct evidentiality / certainty, *-bira* inferential / probability, and *-mein* speculation / doubt. However, the possibility of combining *-ra* with with *-bira* or *-mein* shows that all these cannot be given a basic epistemic interpretation, or else some expressions attested in the language would render contradictory meanings such as: 'I am sure that I doubt' (i.e., when combining *-ra* and *-mein*). Note that while epistemic values such as certainty can be derived from evidential distinctions such as direct sensory experience, the reverse situation seems less plausible. Reportative or hearsay markers are special in that these play an evidential function solely.

13.1. The Direct Evidential / Certainty Marker *-Ra*

The direct evidential *-ra*, which is restricted to the declarative, indicates that the speaker is a performer in the situation described, an observer, or has first-hand sensory experience through vision, hearing, smell, taste or touch. *-Ra* is also used in future expressions, when referring to generally known facts, in warnings, and in threats; in these instances, *-ra* codes certainty. *-Ra* is a second position clitic occurring after the first major constituent of the sentence. As expected, *-ra* is ubiquituous in autobiographical accounts:

(2) a. Nokon jane *r*-iki Inkan Soi.
POS1 name:ABS EV-COP Inkan Soi.
'My name is Inkan Soi.

b. E-a *r*-iki Bawanixo-nko-ni-a.
1-ABS EV-COP Bawanixo-LOC-LIG-ABL
I am from Bawanisho.

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c. E-n-*ra* mato yoi-ai westíora nokon yosi-shoko betan
1-ERG-EV 2p:ABS say-INC one POS1 elder-DIM CONJ

e-a winó-ni jawéki yomera-i ka-[a]x.
1-ABS happen:MID-REM thing:ABS get.prey-SSSS go-PSSS
I'll tell you what happened to me and my grandfather when we went fishing.

d. Westíora nete-n-*ra* ka-a iki nokon yosi betan e-a, piti
one day-TEMP-EV go-PP2 AUX POS1 elder CONJ 1-ABS fish:ABS

bena-i....
search-SSSS
'One day my grandfather and I went to look for fish....'

The following examples corroborate the second position clitic behavior of *-ra*, occurring after a coordinated subject NP, a relative clause construction, and a biclausal adverbial (in (5) *-ra* is realized as *-a* after a sibilant consonant):

(3) [Papa betan tita]-*ra* wai-nko ka-békon-ai.
father CONJ mother:ABS-EV chacra-ALL go-DUAL-INC
'Father and mother (-RA) are going to the chacra.'

(4) [E-n xeati a-ma-ibat-a joni]-*ra* moa ka-ke.
1-ERG drink:ABS do.T-CAUS-PST2-PP2 man:ABS-EV already go-CMPL
'The man whom I invited beverage yesterday (-RA) already left.'

(5) [No-n papa nokó-ke-tian oin-ax]-*a* no-a raro-ke.
1p-GEN father:ABS arrive-P-DS see-PSSS-EV 1p-ABS become.happy-CMPL
'When we saw that our father arrived (-RA), we became happy.'

If an utterance starts with a vocative expression, *-ra* skips the vocative occurring again after the first major sentence constituent:

(6) Papá, mi-a-*ra* bake wetsa-baon kena-ma-ke...
father:VOC 2-ABS-EV child other-PL:ERG call-CAUS-CMPL
'Father, my brothers sent me to call you....'

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However, when the first or single constituent is a finite verb, *-ra* precedes the plural *-kan* (if present) and the aspect markers, and thus occurs word-internally. Consider the following examples:

(7) toxbá-paké-yama-*ra*-kan-ai
float-going.down-NEG-EV-PL-INC
'(they) do not go floating down the river'

(8) bi-bain-yama-*ra*-kan-ke
get-going.T-NEG-EV-PL-CMPL
'they did not get it while going / they did not get it and left'

-Ra also functions as a "default" evidential when describing events the speaker might have witnessed. For example, if asked to translate the sentence "The dog caught a paca," a Shipibo speaker will most probably employ *-ra* without further inquiring about the source of the information. The relatively broad semantic area covered by *-ra* might be accounted for by the hypothesis that *-ra* probably developed from a former declarative / indicative marker into a direct evidential (Valenzuela 2003).

13.2. The Reportative *-Ronki*

The reportative *-ronki* is used when the speaker has obtained the information from an identified or an anonymous source. *-Ronki* does not indicate disbelief or a lower degree of reliability with regard to the information, but simply second-hand information. *-Ronki* is the preferred evidential in folk and other kinds of traditional stories which commonly

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start with *Moatianronki* 'It is said that long time ago...' or *Nete benatianronki* 'It is said that when the world was new.'

Once the reported nature of the utterance has been established, *-ronki* is not attested in all clauses, sentences, or conversational turns; instead, *-ronki* seems to mark certain discourse units. Consider the following excerpt from a myth of origin. In (9a) the narrator employs *-ronki* to open the text, where the general living conditions of the Shipibo in remote times are described; several clauses unmarked for evidentiality follow:

(9) a. Nete bena-tian-*ronki*, no-n reken-bo onitsap-i-bires
world new-TEMP-HSY 1p-GEN first-PL:ABS suffer-SSSS-purely

ja-pao-ni-ke; wetsa-nko-bires rakat-ax oxa-ai-bo,
live-HAB-REM-CMPL other-LOC-purely lie-PSSS sleep-PP1-PL:ABS

chopa sawe-ti onan-ma-bo, piti oa
clothes put.on-INF:ABS knowledgeable-NEG-PL:ABS fish DIST

jawékiati-bo onan-ma-bo, bimi-bicho
crop-PL:ABS knowledgeable-NEG-PL:ABS fruit:ABS-only

koko-ai-bo, boan-boan-res-i ja-kan-a-bo.
eat.sweet.fruit-PP1-PL:ABS go.n.SG-go.n.SG-just-SSSS live-PL-PP2-PL:ABS
'When the world was new (-RONKI), our ancestors lived just suffering; they lay and slept anywhere, they didn't wear any clothes, they did not know (how to obtain) fish or crops, they ate just fruit, they lived walking and walking.

A second instance of *-ronki* occurs on the adverbial clause initiating (9b), then the God Sun is introduced and the main story-line begins:

b. Ja-ska-ra onitsap-i-bires i-t-ai oin-xon-*ronki* no-n
that-SIML-*ra* suffer-SSSS-purely do.I-PROG-INC see-PSSA-HSY 1p-GEN

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Bari Rios-en jawen rabé bake no-a raan-xon-ni-ke:
Sun God-ERG POS3 two child:ABS 1p-ABS send-BEN-REM-CMPL

Papa Inka Rios betan Xane Inka Rios.
Papa Inka God CONJ Black Inka God
Seeing that they were suffering (-RONKI), our God Sun sent us his two sons: Papa Inka God and Xane Inka God.

The next instances of *-ronki* coincide with a discontinuity in the story-line, when the two Inkas sent by the Sun are characterized in a contrastive fashion; *-ronki* occurs after the mention of each one of them:

c. Ja Papa Bari Inka Rios-*ronki* i-ni-ke jakon shinan-ya, ikaxbi
that Papa Sun Inka God:ABS-HSY be-REM-CMPL good mind-PROP but

ja Xane Inka Rios-*ronki* i-ni-ke jakon-ma shinan-ya.....
that Black Inka God:ABS-HSY be-REM-CMPL good-NEG mind-PROP
Papa Inka Bari God (-RONKI) was generous, but Xane Inka God (-RONKI) was stingy....' (Fucshico 1998:11)

Although *-ronki* and *-ra* are not overtly marked in every clause, sentence, or conversational turn, evidentiality is "obligatory" in the sense that the evidential value of the information has always been grammatically marked in the forgoing discourse and is clear to native speakers. Once this has been established in the text, *-ra* and *-ronki* can be left out in certain clauses that can be said to be under the "scope" of a previous overt evidential. This analysis is compatible with the fact that either *-ra* or *-ronki* is required in declarative expressions produced in isolation (280a), since in these instances there is no context from where their evidential value can be derived. When there is a switch in evidential value, this has to be indicated overtly.

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-Ronki is a clitic and occupies the same position as *-ra* in the sentence; i.e., it occurs to the right of the first major constituent. Furthermore, *-ronki* also precedes the plural and aspect markers if the first or single constituent is a finite verb:

(10) a. A-*ronki*-ai.
do.T-HSY-INC
'It is said that she will do (it)./ She says that she will do it.'

b. A-*ronki*-a iki
do.T-HSY-PP2 AUX
'It is said that she did (it)./ She says that she did (it).'

However, *-ronki* cannot co-occur in the same word with the completive *-ke* or the plural *-kan* unless a pro-verb is placed in-between:

c. *A-*ronki*-ke.
do.T-HSY-CMPL
'It is said that she did (it)./She says that she did (it).'

d. A-*ronki*-a-ke.
do.T-HSY-do.T-CMPL
'It is said that s/he did (it)./S/he says that s/he did (it).'

e. A-*ronki*-a-kan-a iki.
do.T-HSY-do.T-PP2 AUX
'It is said that they did (it).'

By contrast, *-ra* may combine with the plural, the completive *-ke* and the "narrative past" *-a iki* directly. Hence *-ra*, *-ronki* and the interrogative *-ki* (see 8.4.1-8.4.2) occupy the

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same position in the sentence with the minor reservations in (10c-e). In the absence of any evidence to the contrary, this suggests that the three clitics form a single paradigm.[1]

An interesting use of SK *-ronki* is that it marks instances of indirect speech describing someone else's utterances or thoughts:

(11) Jain-xon nokon papa-n ninkat-a iki
there-PDCA POS1 father-ERG hear-PP2 AUX

[moa-*ronki* be-kan-a iki].
already-HSY come.n.SG-PP2 AUX
'Then my father heard (from someone else) that they were coming already.'

In the next example *-ra* marks the first clause corresponding to an event in which the speaker participated himself; *-ronki* occurs in the complement clause where the speaker reports what Beso told him:

(12) a. Beso-n-*ra* e-a yoi-ke
Beso-ERG-EV 1-ABS say-CMPL

[Kontámanain-*ronki* oi be-ai.]
[Contamana:LOC-HSY rain:ABS come.n.SG-PP1]
'Beso told me that it is raining in Contamana.'

By contrast, *-ronki* is not acceptable when the speaker reports something she has previously said herself:

b. *E-n-*ra* yoi-ke [Kontámanain-*ronki* oi be-ai].
1-ERG-DIR.EV say-CMPL Contamana:LOC-REP rain:ABS come-PP1
'I said that it was raining in Contamana.'

[1] Cf. Jaqaru, an Aymara language from Peru where markers for questions, first-hand information, and reportative are part of the same paradigm; Hardman (1986:129).

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The reportative *-ronki* is not used to avoid responsibility or to distance oneself from the information. In addition, either *-ra* or *-ronki* may be employed when the speaker refers to an event that took place while being drunk, the selection depending on whether she has a recollection of the events or was just told about them:

(13) E-a-*ron i / -ra* tima-nan-iba-ke.
1-ABS-HSY/-EV hit.with.fist-REC-PST2-CMPL
'I had a fight.' (I was told, I don't recall it./ I recall it, although I was drunk.)

Although the use of *-ronki* by itself has no negative implication as to the reliability of the information, it may be used sarcastically in combination with other means (such as a marked intonation, a gesture, and / or a smile):

(14) Nato oxe-*ronki* mi-a *sueldo* neen-xon-ai apo-n,
this moon-HSY 2-ABS salary:ABS raise-BEN-INC chief-ERG

oin-tan-we!
see-go.do.and.return-IMP
'(It is said that) this month the president will raise your salary. Go see it!' (I am sure this is not true.)

13.3. The Reportative *-ki*

There is a second reportative, *-ki*, which may be a shorter form of *-ronki*. Note that this reportative is identical in form to the general interrogative. Like *-ronki* and the interrogative *-ki*, the reportative *-ki* may behave as a second position clitic and also

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precedes the plural and aspectual markers when attaching to a finite verb. However, the reportative *-ki* is peculiar in that it may occur more than once in the same sentence:

(15) Ii-kin-*ki* ak-á iki joni-n-*ki* too a-kin,
do.I-SSSA-HSY2 do.T-PP2 AUX man-ERG-HSY2 make.pregnant-SSSA

toya-*ki* moa.
pregnant-HSY2 already
'After some time, the man got her pregnant, she was pregnant already.'

-Ronki and *-ki* may co-occur on different constituents of the same chain. The example below contains the sequence *-ronki-ki*, the reverse order **-ki-ronki* is unattested:

(16) Ne-ke-a nete-keská-ribi-ronki-ki ja jene meran.
PROX-LOC-ABL world-SIML-also-HSY-HSY2 that flowing.water inside.
'(It is said that) inside the water it is just like on this world.'

Note that the expression above does not code second-degree hearsay (which will be treated in 14.3.3).

The shorter reportative *-ki* can occur in an imperative expression (in this context *-ronki* was clearly dispreferred or simply rejected by native speakers):

(17) Onpax-ki bi-wé! *-ronki
contained.water:ABS-HSY2 get-IMP
'Bring water!' (on her / his request)

The shorter reportative *-ki* is identical in form to the general interrogative which is also a second position clitic. A possible analysis is to view reportative and interrogative as two

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subfunctions of a single morpheme whose more encompassing function is to mark information that would count as second-hand for the speaker.

13.4. The Inferential / Probabilitive *-bira*

Unlike all other evidential markers, the inferential *-bira* is not a second position clitic but marks a focused element and commonly occurs on the semantically generic intransitive verb *ik-*; it is attested in declarative and interrogative expressions. *-Bira* codes inference, indicating that the speaker has a fairly well-substained hypothesis with regard to the proposition; it also codes probability.

(18) Beka-ra pi-kas-i-bira i-t-ai.
Beka:ABS-EV eat-DES-SSSS-INFR be-PROG-INC
'Beka must be hungry.' (since everybody knows there is no fish in her village)

(19) "Janso-i-ra i-bira-[a]i mi-n bene ja-skat-i,
lie-SSSS-EV be-INFR-INC 2-GEN husband:ABS that-SIML-SSSS

ja ikon i-ke-tian-ra moa ak-á i-kean-ke
that:ABS true be-P-DS-EV already do.T-PP2 be-FRUST-CMPL

yawa maan-kin" a-kin-ronki ak-á iki
w.l.peccary:ABS bring.down-SSSA do.T-SSSA-HSY do.T-PP2 AUX

jawen wetsa ja ainbaon.
POS3 same.sex.sibling:ABS that woman:ERG
'The woman told her sister: "Your husband must be lying, if it were true (that there are white-lipped peccaries in the upper world) he would have already brought them down." (Soi Rawa 1995:25)

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-Bira can also indicate a lesser degree of precision:

(20) Jaino-a-x kimisha oxe-*bira* ik-á iki.
there:LOC-ABL-S three month-INFR do.I-PP2 AUX
'Then, about three months passed.'

-Bira is attested in hesitations when trying to recall information that might be retrievable.

When on non-verbal elements, *-bira* can generally be replaced by the comparative *keská* which may be translated as 'it seems that, I think that.' Although *keská* can function as an evidential, its basic meaning is that of a similative or equative marker; therefore, *keská* is best analyzed as an "evidential strategy" (in the sense of Aikhenvald 2003) rather than as an evidential marker proper. The following example suggests that *-bira* and *keská* play the same function:

(21) Ja-o-*bira*-kan, osea ja-ó *keska*-ra
that-APPROX.LOC-*kan* that.is that-APPROX.LOC SIML-EV

forestal-bo we-i-kan-ai.
forest.police-PL:ABS enter.many-do.I-PL-INC
'Hmm, I think in that area; that is, I think the forest policemen enter in that area.'

The use of both the similative and the inferential in the same expression is also possible, especially in the phrase *jawe keskára ibirai*:

(22) R: Ikax ma akí iki o ak-á-ma-pari?
But already do.T-SSSI COP or do.T-PP2-NEG-yet
'But is he making (plantain chacra) already or not?'

S: Ma ak-í r-iki jawe *keska*-ra i-*bira*-[a]i.
already do.T-SSSI EV-COP what SIML-EV be-INFR-INC
'He might be doing it already. How might it be?'

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(23) Jawe-tsi i-[y]antan-a Elva, nexnex, nexnex rete-anan miin-ti
what-INT do.I:PST3-PP2 Elva shansho:ABS shansho:ABS kill-PSS bury-INF

no sé jawe *keska*-ra i-*bira*-[a]i.
I.don't.know what SIML-EV be-INFR-INC
'What did Elva say, that one should kill a shansho (bird) and bury it? How was it?

(24) Joni jawe-*keskat*-a-ra no-n oin-*bira*-ke bai napon
man:ABS what-SIML-PP2-EV 1p-ERG see-INFR-CMPL road middle.of

raka-t-a.
lying.position-MID-PP2
'We saw a man lying on the road. What could have happened to him?' (Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:211)

13.5. The Speculative / Dubitative *-Mein ~ -Main*

The morpheme *-mein ~ -main* (in free distribution) is also a second position clitic and precedes the plural *-kan* and aspect markers when attached to a finite verb. However, *-mein* may be followed by *-ra*, or the reportatives *-ronki* or *-ki*. Like *-bira*, *-mein* is attested in both declarative and interrogative sentences. Although clauses marked by *-mein* structurally look like finite declarative clauses (they may carry the completive aspect marker *-ke* which is replaced by *-a* in questions and other types of nominalized clauses), these constructions are interpreted by native speakers as a sort of rhetorical question or a guessing. *-Mein* is used when the evidence behind the assertion is rather poor or even non-existent. Additionally, *-mein* codes doubt and mirativity (i.e., unexpected information). In the following example, a man is fishing and sees that a fruit

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falls down from a tree into the water. Next, pilchards swim towards the fruit; a few minutes later, the pilchards fly. At this moment the man "asks himself:"

(25) Nato jiwi bimi pi-ax-*mein*(-ra) sipan noya-ke.
this tree fruit:ABS eat-PSSS-SPECL(-EV) pilchard:ABS fly-CMPL
'Having eaten the fruit from this tree perhaps the pilchards flew?'

In the sentence above *-mein* codes not only speculation but also mirativity. However, an instance of *-mein* does not need to express unexpected information, as can be drawn from the example below:

(26) Nato joxo koríki miin-kan-ni bi-ax-*main*, no-a
this white money:ABS bury-PL-REM:NMLZ get-PSSS-SPECL 1p-ABS

yometso i-ti iki.
become.thief do.I-INF AUX
'If we take these coins buried long ago, perhaps we would be taken as thieves.'
(Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:241)

In addition to *-mein*, the emphatic *-bi*, the contrastive *-kaya*, or a periphrastic verb form involving a doubled auxiliary may be used to encode mirativity.

-Mein is also used in questions to express courtesy and involvement on the part of the speaker (see 8.4.3.7).

Table 13.1 summarizes the distribution of evidentials / epistemic markers across clause types.

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Table 13.1. Distribution of Evidentials / Epistemic Markers across Clause Types

Clause Type	-Ra EV	-Ronki HSY	-Bira INFR	-Mein SPECL	-Ki HSY2
main declarative	+	+	+	+	+
dependent	+	+	+	+	+
(*-ki*-marked) interrogative	-	-	-	+	?
imperative	-	-	-	-	+

13.6. Evidentials and Cultural Attitudes

The Shipibo employ the reportative when narrating one's own dreams. Apparently, the use of *-ronki* in this context contradicts its basic function; i.e., marking information one has heard. The following sentence could be used in reporting a dream:

(27) E-a-*ronki* i-wan-ke ani aros wai napo chankat-a.
1-ABS-HSY do.I-PST1-CMPL large rice chacra center stand-PP2
'(It is said that) I was standing in the center of a large rice chacra.'

Under influence of the hallucinogen ayahuasca (*Banisteriopsis spp., Malpighiaceae*), the Shipibo shaman travels to a different layer of reality, to the upper world, and relates with beings such as the 'hidden people' or *chaikoni*, as well as with allied and evil spirits. During a healing session with *ayahuasca*, the shaman sees designs and knots on a patient's face and body and gets help from his allied spirits to arrive at a diagnosis and heal the patient (Tournon 1991 and references therein). What follows is a very short excerpt of a song sung during a healing session (from Tournon 1991:196, my analysis):

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(28) ...joni yora senen-ma,
...man body:ABS edge-NEG
'...the man's body is not fully healed,

yora senen-mamea e-n-*ra* keyo-bo-ai jakon koshi bewakan,
body edge-NEG:LOC:ABL 1-ERG-EV finish-go.T-INC good strong song:INST
I will complete the healing of the body with my good and powerful song,

...e-n-*ronki* jakon ak-ai....
1-ERG-HSY good do.T-INC
...they (my allied spirits) say that I do it well....'

This use of *-ra* when describing *ayahuasca* visions, but of *-ronki* when reporting dreams is very revealing of Shipibo culture. While *ayahuasca* trances are viewed as part of reality, at least some dreams are not, and this distinction is encoded in the grammar.

In addition, reportative rather than direct evidentiality is employed in procedural speech, even when the speaker has also performed the procedure in question herself.

13.7. Evidentials and European Innovations

The function of evidentials has been extended in order to talk about events involving European innovations such as books, radio, and T.V. Watching an image on television is considered as experiencing the event oneself, since one actually "sees" the event taking place. Therefore, when watching a soccer match, the ongoing events as well as the results will be described using *-ra*. On the other hand, if the match was heard on the radio, the hearsay *-ronki* must be employed since the speaker was told about the events by the reporter:

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(29) a. Penal *r*-iki.
penalty:ABS EV-COP
'It is a penalty.' (I am watching it on television)

b. Penal-*ronki* iki.
penalty:ABS-HSY COP
'It is a penalty.' (I am hearing it on the radio)

However, if one hears the news on television without watching images on what is being reported *-ronki* rather than *-ra* would be appropriate.

-Ronki is also employed for information one hears over the telephone and reads in the newspaper (because "the newspaper says it") or in a book. *-Ronki* is ubiquitous when dealing with Peruvian history in the bilingual elementary schools:

(30) No-n reken Inka-ronki ik-á iki Manco Capac.
1p-GEN first Inka:ABS-HSY be-PP2 AUX Manco Capac
'(It is said that) our first Inka was Manco Capac.'

Commenting about geography classes, a teacher explained that if one reads in a book about the location of a given place, *-ronki* would be used; however, if one obtains the same information from a map, *-ra* would be chosen instead:

(31) a. Alemania-*ronki* Holanda patax iki.
Germany:ABS-HSY the.Netherlands next.to COP
'Germany is next to the Netherlands'. (I read it in a book)

b. Alemania-*ra* Holanda patax iki.
Germany:ABS-EV the.Netherlands next.to COP
'Germany is next to the Netherlands'. (I saw it on a map)

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The use of *-ra* in the context of European innovations reinforces its analysis as a first-hand (i.e., first-source) evidential, while *-ronki* has been extended from coding information one has heard to information one has read.

The grammatical coding of evidentiality seems to be an innovative feature within Panoan, and languages seem to be developing / have developed an evidential system more or less independently from each other (Valenzuela 2003).

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CHAPTER 14

NOTES ON DISCOURSE ORGANIZATION

14.1. Narrative Organization

A SK narrative begins with one or several clauses, the first one marked for evidentiality, providing a static description of the state of affairs and / or introducing important participants. In a subsequent group of chains or paragraph the main story-line begins. SK chains of paragraphs are typically linked by a case-marked, reference-marked conjunction, and / or by a reference-marked clause recapitulating a previous scene; often an evidential marker occurs here too. The following text excerpt illustrates reference-marked clauses recapitulating a previous event:

(1) Ja-tian ja keot-ai-tian-ki, ainbaon mawa mawa-a iki.
that-TEMP 3:ABS roar-S-DS-HSY2 woman:ERG imitate imitate-PP2 AUX
'Then, hearing (the black-jaguar bird) roaring, the woman imitated it.

(2) Ja mawa maw-ai-tian-ki, ja wiso-ino isá jo-a iki.
3:ABS imitate imitate-S-DS-HSY2 that black-jaguar bird:ABS come-PP2 AUX
As she was imitating it, the black-jaguar bird came (to where the woman was).

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(3) Jo-ax-ki ja isá-bi ino-a iki.
come-PSSS-HSY2 that bird:ABS-EM (become)jaguar-PP2 AUX
Once there, this same bird turned into a jaguar.

(4) Ino-xon-ki ja ainbo pi-á iki.
(become)jaguar-PSSA-HSY2 that woman:ABS eat-PP2 AUX
Turning into a jaguar, it ate the woman.' (Ministerio de Educación and ILV 1979:10)

Conjunctions play a very important function for discourse cohesion; 'same-subject' and 'different-subject' markers may play more encompassing functions, signaling other kinds of discourse continuity or discontinuity. Thus consider the next text excerpt; while the first instance of *jatian* coincides with the reintroduction in subject function of the male Inka and hence with a change of subject, the second instance does not. In fact, the subjects in (c) and (d) have the same referent, but *jatian* is used to indicate a different type of discontinuity, the switch from narrative to direct quote in the chain. Note that in (d) the subject 'her husband' is overtly stated so that the hearer does not misinterpret *jatian* as indicating a change in subject:

(5) a. Ja washit-a-ronki ka-a iki.
3:ABS be.stingy.about-O>S/A go-PP2 AUX
'Being denied (the toasted peanut), (the Inka Woman) left.'

b. *Ja-tian* jawen bene ka-a ik-á iki jato
that-TEMP POS3 husband:ABS go-PP2 be-PP2 AUX 3p:ABS

onan-ma-i, tsaka-ti, wina-ti,
know-CAUS-SSSI shoot.w/arrow-INF:ABS row-INF:ABS

pia a-ti, yomera-ti axe-a-i.
arrow do.T-INF:ABS fish/hunt-INF:ABS get.used-do.T-SSSI
'By that moment her husband had gone to teach them (i.e. the Shipibo men) how to shoot with arrow, row, make arrow, fish / hunt, to train them.'

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c. Jo-xon jis-á-ronki ik-á iki Inka Ainbo wini wini-i.
come-PSSA notice-PP2-HSY be-PP2 AUX Inka woman:ABS cry cry-SSSI
'When (he) returned, he saw the Inka Woman crying and crying.'

d. *Ja-tian* jawen bene-n raté-xon yokat-a iki:
3-TEMP POS3 husband-ERG scare:MID-PSSA ask-PP2 AUX

"Jawe-kopí-ki mi-a wini-ai?"
what-REASON-INT 2-ABS cry-INC
'Then her husband got scared and asked (her): 'Why are you crying?''

In the next sentence *jainoax* carries "same-subject" despite the fact that the subjects are actually different; nevertheless, it refers to a single event and hence this marker is actually encoding a type of discourse continuity.

(6) Bane-ki-a-kan-a iki, westíora yosi-shoko,
stay-HSY2-do.T-PL-PP2 AUX one old.man-DIM:ABS

yoxan-shoko *jaino-a-x* bake-bo-res.
old.woman-DIM:ABS there:LOC-ABL-S child-PL:ABS-just
'The only ones who stayed were an old man, an old woman, and the children.'

Reference-marked clauses commonly encode background information. The next example illustrates an uncommonly long chain describing how the ancestors of the Shipibo lived in remote times without agriculture and fire. The first clause functions as a sentential topic, providing background information, "a framework within which the main predication holds" (Chafe 1976, Bickel 1999). Note also that reference-marked clauses form groups depicting a scene; these groups are demarcated by the shorter hearsay or reportative *-ki* (the longer hearsay marker *-ronki* cannot play this function). The single

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finite verb is underlined; reference-marked clauses are given in square brackets, while *-ki*-marked units are in simple brackets.

(7) a. [Ja-ska-ra i-*xon*-ronki] a-káti-kan-ai
that-SIML-*ra* do.I-PSSA-HSY do.T-PST4-PL-INC

b. {[yapa axa-n-*xon*]
fish:ABS fish.poison-TRNZ-PSSA

c. [bi-*xon*-ki]}
get-PSSA-HSY2

d. {[makaman benes a-*kin*]
stone:INST thin do.T-SSSA

e. [chaka-*xon*-ki]}
crush-PSSA-HSY2

f. {[bari-n raka-n-*xon*-ki]}
sun-LOC lying.position-TRNZ-PSSA-HSY2

g. {[moshi-ke-tian bi-*xon*-ki]}
dry-P-DS get-PSSA-HSY2

h. [pi-*kin*] no-n moa-baon,
eat-SSSA 1p-GEN ancestor-PL:ERG

i. [chii-oma i-*xon*].
fire-PRIV do.I-SSSA

'Living in such conditions, our ancestors poisoned the fish and collected them, crushed them with a stone making them thinner, and lay them in the sun so that it dried; getting them they ate them, because they had no fire.' (Soi Rawa 1995:9).'

Reference-marked clauses may also advance the main line of the story when preposed to the finite clause. The next example refers to two twin brothers who shoot arrows up in order to make a ladder to the sky. The subjects are always the same, the two twin brothers:

(8) Ja pia-n-ribi, wetsa pia poinki tsaka-*xon*,
that arrow-INST-also other arrow end:ABS shoot.w/arrow-PSSA,

nenké-a-*xon*, mai-ki noko-*ax*, bo-ríba-kan-a iki,
(become)long-do.T-PSSA ground-DAT meet-PSSS go.n.SG-REP-PL-PP2 AUX

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jakiribi, jato-n xobo-n.
again 3p-GEN house-ALL
'Again with this arrow they shot at another arrow's end, and making (the arrow ladder) longer, they reached the ground, and then went back to their house.'
(Ministerio de Educación and ILV 1982:23, analyzed in Valenzuela 1997)

Some traditional narratives exhibit a closing sentence commenting on how the events just described account for a present state of affairs:

(9) Ja-skat-ax-ronki i-ni-ke no-a Shipibo jane-ti.
that-SIML-PSSS-HSY do.I-REM-CMPL 1p-ABS Shipibo:ABS name-INF
'And it was in this way how we were given the name Shipibo.'

(10) Ja-ska-raino-axonki ino betan xae-ki
that-SIML-*ra*:LOC:LOC-ABL:S:HSY jaguar CONJ anteater-HSY2

rawi-kanan-bekon-a iki.
(become)rival-PL:REC-DUAL-PP2 AUX
'In this way, the jaguar and the ant-eater became rivals.

(11) Rama kaman-bi-ki ja-ki xae sinat-ai.
now LIM-EM-HSY2 3-DAT anteater:ABS be(come).angry-INC
And even until today, the ant-eater is mad at the jaguar.'

Most narratives contain direct quotes and instances of indirect speech may also be present.

14.2. Object-to-Subject Coreferentiality

As treated in 9.3.1, through the marker *-a* a participant can be kept, introduced, or reintroduced as topic even when being the patient rather than the agent of an event. In

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this respect constructions involving *-a* can be viewed as fulfilling the pragmatic function of the passive voice in languages like English. The sentence below has been extracted from a text about a great shaman. After the protagonist is introduced at the beginning of the narrative, a couple of clauses follow describing how people used his services to communicate with dead relatives. The object-to-subject construction is employed to reintroduce the protagonist:

(12) Ja-ská-a-kin yoi-kan-*a* jo-ax-ki
that-SIML-do.T-SSSA tell-PL-P>S/A come-PSSS-HSY2

yaka-t-ai bachi kexá.
sitting.position.I-MID-INC mosquito.net edge.of
'Once being called, he would come and sit at the edge of the mosquito net.'

This same function of reintroducing the protagonist can be seen in the next text excerpt:

(13) a. Ja Inka Ainbo-ronki ik-á iki tama pi-kas.
DEM Inka Woman:ABS-HSY be-PP2 AUX peanut eat-one.who.likes.to
'It is said that the Inka woman loved to eat peanut.'

b. Ja i-t-ai-bi, westíora Shipibo ainbaon-ki
3:ABS do.I-PROG-SDS-EM one Shipibo woman:ERG-DM

ak-á iki tama toban washí-kin.
do.T-PP2 AUX peanut roasted be.stingy.about-SSSA
'Then, a Shipibo woman denied her toasted peanut.'

c. Ja washit-a-ronki ka-a iki.
3:ABS be.stingy.about-O>S/A go-PP2 AUX
'Being denied (the toasted peanut), (the Inka Woman) left.'

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In the next example, the speaker talking about himself is the topic of all three clauses; since *chexa* 'ache' requires the body-part stimulus to be coded as A and the experiencer as O, *-a* is employed to keep the man as topic:

(14) Xeta-n chexa-*a*-ra rimon bero chaka-*xon*
tooth-ERG ache-PO>S/A-EV lemon seed grind-PSSA

rao-n-ke.
medicine-TRNZ-CMPL
'Since I had a toothache, I ground lemon seeds and treated it.'

In (15) a woman is talking about her plans for the future and how an operation she underwent is having an influence on her views; those who carried out the operation only get mentioned through the plural marker *-kan*, and *-a* is employed given that the woman is the patient of that clause:

(15) Xate-kan-*a*-kaya-ra e-n a-yora-ke ja-ska-ra shinan-kin.
cut-PL-PO>S/A-but-EV 1-ERG do.T-INTENS-CMPL that-SIML-*ra* think-SSSA
'But after my operation I think about that very much.'

In (16) the *-a* construction is used to shift who is the central participant:

(16) Ja waste-n i-xon ainbo-nin joni noko-*a*,
that *piripiri*-INST do.I-PSSA woman-ERG man:ABS meet-PO>S/A

keen-yama-pacho-kin-bi kikin a-kin noi ka-i.
want-NEG-always-SSSA-EM extremely do.T-SSSA love:SSSS go:INC
'Making use of that *piripiri*, when the woman meets the man, even though he didn't want her before, he is going to fall in love with her.'

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14.3. Direct and Indirect Speech

14.3.1. Direct Quotes

Although direct quotes are the most common way to communicate someone else's utterances or thoughts, instances of indirect speech are not uncommon. Embedded direct quotes are preceded and followed by verbs of saying or the semantically generic intransitive and transitive verbs *ik-* and *ak-* translatable in this context as 'say' and 'tell,' respectively. A direct quote often carries sentence second position clitics, especially *-ra* indicating direct evidentiality.

The following example illustrates an instance of a direct quote which is introduced by the verb *yoi-* 'tell' and closed by a periphrastic verb form involving the transitive *ak-*:

(17) Ja-n e-a *yoi-katit-ai*: "Moa-tian e-n oin-a jawéki-bo
3-ERG 1-ABS tell-PST4-INC already-TEMP 1-ERG see-PP2 thing-PL:ABS

mi-a onan-ma-non, mi-a yoi-non, ja-ribi mi-n bake-bo
2-ABS know-CAUS-P/J 2-ABS tell-P/J 3:ABS-also 2-GEN child-PL:ABS

a-taanan mi-n axe-a-non", a-kin e-a *a-káti-ai*.
do.T-PSS 2-ERG learn-do.T-P/J do.T-SSSA 1-ABS do.T-PST4-INC
'He told me: "I will teach you the things I saw long time ago, I will tell them to you, so that when you have your children you will pass these things on to them too," he told me.'

The next example also illustrates a direct quote, this time introduced and closed by the intransitive *ik-*:

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(18) Ja-ská-ke-tian-ronki ja washit-a-ma-bo *ik*-á iki: "¡Ka-non
that-SIML-P-DS-HSY that deny-PP2-NEG-PL:ABS do.I-PP2 AUX go-P/J

ka-wé, Inka bi-non ka-wé, chibá-non ka-wé!," *ik*-í.
go-IMP, Inka:ABS get-P/J go-IMP follow-P/J go-IMP do.I-SSSS
'Then the woman who had not denied her the roasted peanuts said: "Let's go, let's bring the Inka back, let's follow her!" they said.'

In the two examples immediately above, the direct quote lacks a second position clitic given that the quoted utterances are directive expressions (which generally lack second position clitics). By contrast, the direct quote in the ex. below is a question and hence is marked by the interrogative *-ki*; the transitive *ak-* surrounds the quote:

(19) Ja-tian nokon papa-n-bi-ribi *ak*-á iki: "Moa-ki mi-n
that-TEMP POS1 father-ERG-EM-again do.T-PP2 AUX already-INT 2-ERG

ak-á Kesten Yabi senen-'a-kin?", *ak*-á iki.
do.T-PP2 Kesten Yabi edge-do.T-SSSA do.T-PP2 AUX
'Then my father asked (her) too: "Did you finish already Kesten Yabi?," he told (her)'

14.3.2. Indirect Speech

As treated when dealing with evidentiality, indirect speech is marked overtly through the hearsay or reportative clitics *-ronki* or *-ki* and introduced by a verb of saying. The next example illustrates *-ki* in this function:

(20) Joxo nawa-baon ne-ke be-xon no-a yoi yoi-kan-ai
white mestizo-PL:ERG PROX-LOC come.n.SG-PSSA 1p-ABS tell tell-PL-INC

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no-a-*ki* mai ibo-ma iki,
1p-ABS-HSY2 land owner-NEG COP

no-n-*ki* jawe onan-yama-ke].....
1p-ERG-HSY2 what:ABS know-NEG-CMPL
'But when the *mestizos* come here they tell us that we are not the owners of the land, that we don't know anything....'

14.3.3. Second Degree Hearsay

The next example illustrates an instance of second degree hearsay. It is an excerpt from a text where the Shipibo plan to deceive the Sun, in order to get the white-lipped peccaries he keeps in the upper world. The protagonist is the shaman Ashi, who is supposed to visit the Sun and have him come down to the earth; in the meanwhile Ashi will set the peccaries free. The excerpt contains an instance of direct speech closed by the transitive pro-verb *ak-*. In turn, this instance of direct speech contains an embedded indirect speech expression which is introduced by verbs of saying and contains the hearsay morpheme *-ronki*:

(21) "Ja noko-xon-ra e-n yo-i ka-[a]i ne-ská-a-kin:
3:ABS find-PSSA-EV 1-ERG tell-SSSS go-INC PROX-SIML-do.T-SSSA

"Papá, mi-a-ra bake wetsa-baon kena-ma-ke,
father:VOC 2-AB-EV child same.sex.sibling-PL:ERG call-CAUS-CMPL

[mi-n-ronki xea-i ka-ti iki]"" a-kin ak-á.
2-ERG-HSY drink-SSSS go-INF AUX do.T-SSSA do.T-PP2
'"Once I find him I will tell (him) the following: "Father, my brothers sent (me) to call you, they say that you have to go (down to the earth) to drink,"" he said'.

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14.4. Conversation Sustainers

Together with exclamations, non-finite reference-marked verb forms that close the immediately uttered expression may be echoed by the hearer as a conversation sustainer. The following conversation excerpt is taken from Illius (1999:113, glosses are mine):

(22) C- Yoi-yantan-ke-betin, amen-*ronki* a-tiki rete-kin],
say-PST3-CMPL-certainly capybara:ABS-HSY do.T-INF:AUX kill-SSSA
'And the others say certainly that one has to kill the capybara.

D- rete-kin.
kill-SSSA
kill (them)

C- no-n-ronki rete-tiki.
1p-ERG-HSY kill-INF:AUX
that we have to kill them.

D- Mjm.

C- Rete-xon-ronki no-n a-tiki. Jawen poko
kill-PSSA-HSY 1p-ERG do.T-INF:AUX POS3 stomach:ABS

ja-ke-betin jawen beshe poko.
exist-CMPL-certainly POS3 small stomach:ABS
We have to kill them. There is as you know (as remedy against them) the intestines, the small intestines.

D- Mjm.

C- Ja-ronki a-tiki, no-n-ki xate-pake-kin—
3:ABS-HSY do.T-INF:AUX 1p-ERG-HSY2 cut-DISTR-SSSA
This is what we have to do, cut the small intestine (of a dead capybara) into pieces

D- xate-pake-kin.
cut-DISTR-SSSA
cut it into pieces'.

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PART II

ISSUES IN TRANSITIVITY

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CHAPTER 15

TRANSITIVITY

15.1. The Notion of Transitivity

There are different ways to approach transitivity. It can be viewed semantically and morpho-syntactically; we can also refer to "clause-level" as opposed to (but complementary with) "inherent" verb-level transitivity. Transitivity can also be viewed as a discrete versus a gradient phenomenon.

15.1.1. Semantic and Morpho-Syntactic Transitivity

15.1.1.1. Semantic Transitivity

When dealing with the semantic structure of verbs it is important to take into account that case roles, like any other semantic categories, encode mental representations of events rather than objective facts (DeLancey 1991:346). The semantic representation of events is a mental construal that departs from reality and does not exactly match with it. Case

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roles are defined and assigned in terms of constraining event schemas and not with reference to the larger more amorphous scenarios found in the lexical semantics of verbs (1991:343). For example, a verb such as 'buy' has four semantic arguments (the seller, the buyer, the merchandise, and the payment); however, languages encode this kind of event in terms of two or three-argument clauses.

Givón (1995:76) offers a semantic definition of transitive events subsuming the notion of transitivity in the following three central features present in the clause (see also the reference to Hopper and Thompson's (1980) transitivity parameters in 15.1.2):

- Agent: "a volitional, controlling, actively-initiating agent who is responsible for the event, thus its salient cause."
- Patient: "a non-volitional, inactive, non-controlling patient who registers the event's changes-of-state, thus its salient effect."
- Verbal modality: a "perfective (non-durative), sequential (non-perfect) and realis (non-hypothetical) [event]. The prototype transitive event is thus fast-paced, completed, real, and perceptually-cognitively salient."

Semantically, an intransitive verb is one that involves a single core participant, which can play the semantic roles of agent, patient of change, or patient of state. A transitive verb is one that involves two or more core participants, most typically described in terms of agent and patient. The prototypical transitive verb has an initiator, volitional, controller, salient agent subject, and involves a physical, obvious, concrete,

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observable change in the state of its patient object; a patient may be created, manipulated, or changed in the process (Givón 1984:96, Davidse 1996:98).

15.1.1.2. Morpho-Syntactic Transitivity

Morpho-syntactic transitivity has to do with the mapping between case roles and grammatical relations that takes place in the clause. Transitivity has profound consequences in the way the core arguments of the clause -typically agent and patient- will be encoded, and particularly in the way this coding corresponds to the grammatical relations of the sentence.

Syntactically, verbs can be classified according to the number of core arguments they require. An intransitive verb is one which requires a single core argument, whose grammatical relation is typically subject. A transitive verb requires two or more core arguments, whose grammatical relations are typically subject and direct object.

Often, languages have overt signals of morpho-syntactic transitivity. For example, languages with ergative-absolutive case-marking differentiate intransitive subjects from transitive ones. Yup'ik, an Inuit language of Central Alaska, makes use of special suffixes to indicate whether a verb stem is intransitive or transitive, in addition to ergative-absolutive case-marking. The sentences below (taken from T. Payne 1997 and p.c. 1997) show that intransitive verb stems are marked with the corresponding suffix *-u*, while transitive ones require the suffix *-a*:

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(1) Doris-aq aya-llru-*u*-q.
Doris-ABS travel-PAST-INTRNS-3SG
'Doris traveled.' (T. Payne 1997:135)

(2) Tom-aq quyi-llru-*u*-q.
Tom-ABS cough-PAST-INTRNS-3SG
'Tom coughed.' (T. Payne p.c. 1997)

(3) Nerre-llru-*a*-nga.
eat-PAST-TRNS-1SG
'I ate it.' (T. Payne p.c. 1997)

The next examples show that an inherently (i.e., lexically subcategorized) transitive verb such as *nerre-* 'eat' requires the intransitive suffix *-u* when undergoing detransitivization; in this case, antipassivization:

(4) Yero-m keme-q nerre-llru-*a*-0.
Yero-ERG meat-ABS eat-PAST-TRNS-3SG/3SG
'Yero ate the meat.' (T. Payne 1997:219)

(5) Yero-q (kemer-meng) nerre-llru-*u*-q.
Yero-ABS meat-INSTR eat-PAST-INTRNS-3SG.
'Yerro ate (meat).' (T. Payne 1997:219)

In Panare (Carib, Venezuela) intransitive verbs have distinct tense-aspect-mode suffixes and person marking prefixes than those exhibited by transitive verbs (T. Payne 1990:431). For example, Panare has different intransitive and transitive imperfective aspect allomorphs. While *-nëpëj* is used with intransitive verbs, *-mpëj* is used with transitive ones[1] (examples taken from Payne, Payne and Gildea 1992:176, 183):

[1] The glosses for the Panare examples include the following: NEU neutral, DETRANS detransitivizer, IMPERF:I imperfective intransitive, NONSPEC:I non-specific intransitive, TRNS transitive, IMPERF:T imperfective transitive, 1SG first person singular, OI object initial sentence.

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(6) A-s-awantë-*nëpëj* ejkikë.
NEU-DETRANS-endure-IMPERF:I maybe
'Maybe he is sick.'

(7) Asoonwa wëënë y-uchi-n a-t-a'ma-*nëpëj*.
three moon 3-be-NONSPEC:I NEU-DETRANS-prepare-IMPERF:I
'For three months he will prepare (to get good aim with the blowgun).'

(8) A-y-itya-*mpëj* chu.
2-TRNS-listen-IMPERF:T 1SG
'I am listening to you.'

(9) Paamë y-akóika-*mpëj* e'ñapa.
salt TRNS-OI:take:last-IMPERF:T people
'Someone is buying up all the salt.'

Whereas the Panare examples above involve aspect markers, in Dulong / Rawang (Tibeto-Burman) transitivity distinctions are manifested in the past tense markers (LaPolla 2000:293; see also Kittilä 2002:68). A less commonly attested feature is found in Wangkankurru (Pama Nyungan), where imperative markers differ depending on transitivity (Kittilä 2002:69):

(10) thadna-*ru*
leave-IMP
'Leave it alone' (Kittilä 2002:69, from Hercus 1994:180)

(11) kathi-*ra*
turn.back-IMP
'Turn back' (Kittilä 2002:69, from Hercus 1994:180)

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15.1.2. Clausal Level and Inherent Transitivity

In a very influential article Hopper and Thompson (1980) challenge the traditional notion of transitivity which restricts itself to the presence of a direct object in the clause, so that an activity is "carried-over" or "transferred" from an agent to a patient. According to these authors, transitivity is a global property of a clause that involves a number of components. They identify ten parameters according to which clauses can be ranked along the transitivity continuum. Each one of these parameters "...involves a different facet of the effectiveness or intensity with which the action is transferred from one participant to another" (1980:242). The values of these parameters are: two or more participants (rather than one), action (rather than non-action), telic aspect (rather than atelic), punctual action (rather than non-punctual), volitionality (rather than non-volitionality), affirmative (rather than negative), realis mode (rather than irrealis), agent high in potency (rather than low), highly individuated object (rather than non-individuated), and a totally affected object (rather than a partially affected or non-affected object). Kibrik (1996:279) suggests that Hopper and Thompson's list should include a parameter dealing with agent individuation or definiteness of agent. Kibrik points out that many languages (such as Ute, Navajo, and Lithuanian) have been shown to be sensitive to the referential status of the agent. Specifically, in these languages indefinite "actors" (Kibrik employs two macro-roles of which "actor" corresponds to the most agent-like) trigger a morpho-syntactic transitivity decrease of the clause.

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A prototypical transitive clause will exhibit a realis, punctual, completed action, involving at least two participants, in which A is a definite / individuated initiator and controller, acting purposefully on an affected and individuated O. A crucial consequence of Hopper and Thompson's definition of transitivity is that a single-participant clause may rank higher along the transitivity continuum than a two-participant one, if it shows more relevant transitivity components. They argue that morpho-syntactic markings tend to be sensitive to clause-level transitivity.

Based on her analysis of Yagua (Peba-Yaguan, Peru) verbs, D. L. Payne (1985) contrasts the notion of "inherent transitivity" with that of clause-level transitivity. Payne argues that in Yagua there are degrees of transitivity that depend on the properties of the verb roots themselves. Verb roots are subcategorized according to three criteria: number of participants (obligatory object participant, optional object participant, single participant); semantic role of expressed direct object (patient vs. instrument); and allowance for taking valence-increasing or valence-decreasing morphology. While the first two parameters have a universal nature, the last one is specific to Yagua. Payne shows that these properties cannot be attributed to clause-level transitivity, since they do not depend on either larger semantic or syntactic contexts. To the contrary, it is the subcategorization properties of the verb roots themselves which partially determine the contexts where they may be used. Payne claims that clause-level and inherent transitivity are similar and partially overlapping concepts, and a universal theory of transitivity must include both of them (see also Lemmens 1998).

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15.1.3. Encoding Degrees of Transitivity

A central aspect on which the different authors cited above agree is that transitivity is a graded phenomenon that depends on a cluster of syntactic, semantic, pragmatic, and possibly other properties; therefore, we expect to find better and poorer examples of (in)transitive verbs and clauses, rather than absolutely discrete categories. As has been discussed in section 1.8.4 on Prototype Theory, these views constitute the core of the categorization framework adopted in this study.

Languages tend to employ formal means to express differences in transitivity that are viewed as sufficiently relevant to be marked explicitly. As expected, languages differ significantly from each other with regard to the kind of semantico-pragmatic changes that trigger a formal change (Kittilä 2002:63, 65). These formal expressions involve the number of overt arguments, case-marking alternations, verbal cross-referencing morphology alternations, and other verbal morphological changes. In Finnish, for example, distinctions in the degree of transitivity may be morpho-syntactically encoded through distinct case-marking on the object or second argument, depending on the degree of affectedness associated with this participant. The examples below illustrate the <nominative accusative> case frame in a prototypical transitive clause (from Kittilä 2002):

(12) Mies tappo-i karhu-*n*.
man.NOM kill-PAST-3SG bear-ACC
'The man killed the bear.' (Kittilä 2002:56)

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(13) Mies näk-i karhu-*n*.
man.NOM see-3SG.PAST bear-ACC
'The man saw the bear.' (Kittilä 2002:61)

Whereas (12) in fact denotes a highly transitive event, this is not the case in (13). In the latter instance, the prototypical transitive case pattern is maintained despite the lower degree of semantic transitivity of the event expressed. Hence, the use of the basic transitive clause can be said to have been extended to some non-prototypical instances. Contrast (12) and (13) with the Hunzib examples below where a visual perceptual event is treated differently from a highly transitive one:

(14) sɨ-bur-la-l n-uq xo
bear-PL-OBL-ERG 5-eat-PRES meta.5
'The bears eat meat.' (Kittilä 2002:79, from Van den Berg 1995:42)

(15) αbu-u ãc'ɘ-r ože
father-DAT 1-see-PRET boy.1
'Father saw the boy.' (Kittilä 2002:79, from Van den Berg 1995:42)

Turning again to Finnish, the next two examples differ in the degree of affectedness of the patient-object; in (16), the accusative marks perfective aspect:

(16) Mies jo-i maido-*n*.
man.NOM drink.PAST-3SG milk-ACC
'The man drank the milk (up).' (Kittilä 2002:62)

(17) Mies jo-i maito-*a*.
man.NOM drink.PAST-3SG milk-PART
'The man drank (some) milk.' (Kittilä 2002:63)

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Although the semantics of the verbs in examples (18)-(20) calls for two participants, these clauses do not denote (highly) transitive events and this is manifested in the object marking which appears in the partitive or in the illative case; being restricted to highly transitive events, accusative case-marking cannot occur in these instances:

(18) Mies viha-si maito-*a*.
Man.NOM hate-3SG.PAST milk-PART
'The man hated milk.' (Kittilä 2002:63)

(19) Mies ajattel-i lapsi-*a*-an
man.NOM think.about-3SG.PAST child.PL-PART-3POSS
'The man thought about his children.' (Kittilä 2002:114)

(20) Mies rakastu-i naise-*en*.
man.NOM fall.in.love-3SG.PAST woman-ILL
'The man fell in love with the woman.' (Kittilä 2002:57)

Finally, consider the next Turkish sentences where accusative case-marking highlights the definiteness of the patient:

(21) Hasan öküz-ü aldı
Hasan-NOM ox-ACC buy.PAST.3SG
'Hasan bought the ox.' (Comrie 1989:132)

(22) Hasan bir öküz aldı
Hasan.NOM an ox buy.PAST.3SG
'Hasan bought an ox (non-specific).' (Comrie 1989:132)

SK behaves analogously to Finnish in that perceptual events are expressed through a basic transitive clause; however, this pattern is also used in SK to express the equivalent of (19), while the situations denoted by (18) and (20) would require two different types of "extended intransitive" clauses: <absolutive *-ki*> and <absolutive

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interessive>, respectively. While formal distinctions coding the degree of affectedness of the patient-object as in (16) and (17) are absent in SK, case-marking alternation on the subject-agent may be used in two-argument desiderative clauses to distinguish highly individuated from non-individuated objects (exx. (24a-c)).

15.2. Transitivity in Shipibo-Konibo

Valenzuela (1997) defined transitivity in SK as a componential notion involving a cluster of associated properties, with prototypical and non-prototypical members of the major classes of intransitive and transitive verbs; therefore, one cannot always expect a clear-cut boundary between these classes.

The notion of inherent transitivity accounts for the dominant patterns in SK; that is, most verb roots are lexicalized as either intransitive or transitive in that certain properties are either true, or not true, for all instances of use of the root in question. On the other hand, a significant number of transitive roots can occur in intransitive clauses, and vice versa, by adding the appropriate morphology (e.g. *noko-* 'meet, find' and *nokot-* < *noko-* + middle 'arrive'). Complementarily to inherent transitivity of verbs and regular derivation, the broader notion of clause-level transitivity (cf. Hopper and Thompson 1980; as well as Lazard 1998) is required to account for some non-prototypical members as well as for a relatively small number of constructions in which referential status of the patient, agent control, and the derivational history of the particular verb appear to be relevant (Valenzuela 1997). For example, as mentioned in section 8.2.8, the addition of

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the desiderative *-kas* to a transitive root generally results in a change in the case-marking of the subject from ergative to absolutive:

(23) a. E-n-ra wame rete-ai.
1-ERG-EV *paiche*:ABS kill-INC
'I kill *paiche* (k. fish, *Arapaima gigas*).'

b. E-a-ra wame rete-kas-ai.
1-ABS-EV *paiche*:ABS kill-DES-INC
'I want to kill *paiche*.'

The case-marking change observed in (23b) correlates with a decrease in transitivity, given that a desiderative clause encodes an irrealis non-action, with a non-agent subject and a non-affected second argument. However, a desiderative clause may involve an ergative-marked subject in order to signal the presence of a highly referential individuated object. Consider the following examples:

(24) a. E-a-ra wame pi-kas-ai.
1-ABS-EV *paiche*:ABS eat-DES-INC
'I want to eat *paiche* (referential or non-referential).'

b. E-*n*-ra wame pi-kas-ai.
1-ERG-EV *paiche*:ABS eat-DES-INC
'I want to eat the *paiche* (referential only).'

An utterance such as (24b) is particularly favored in a situation where the speaker can see the fish in front of her. The next sentence could be heard from a Shipibo speaker who is in the capital city, Lima, where the kind of fish referred to does not exist; therefore, the subject is necessarily marked absolutive:

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c. E-a-ra wame pi-kas-kiran-ke. / *E-*n*-ra
1-ABS-EV *paiche*:ABS eat-DES-VEN2-CMPL
'I would like to eat *paiche* when I come (to the Ucayali).'

This type of case-marking alternation can also be used to accomplish a contrastive effect. The ergative case-marking on the subject of desiderative clauses seems to be even more acceptable when choosing between two or more things; that is, when the goal is to more clearly individuate the object from surrounding items (note also the absolutive marking on the subject of the second clause):

(25) E-n-ra wame pi-kas-ai, wetsa piti-bo-ra
1-ERG-EV *paiche*:ABS eat-DES-INC other food/fish-PL:ABS-EV

e-a a-kásham-ai.
1-ABS do.T-DES:NEG-INC
'I want to eat *paiche*, other kind of food / fish I don't want.'

The choice of the <ergative absolutive> frame in (24b) and (25), instead of the <absolutive absolutive> one, seems to support Hopper and Thompson's (1980) claim that clauses with a highly individuated object rate higher in transitivity and this is then reflected in the syntax. While desiderative constructions with alternate case-marking on the subject analogous to (24a-b) were not accepted when other transitive base verbs were involved, utterances equivalent to (25) involving the stems *xea-kas-* 'want to drink' and *bi-kas-* 'want to get' were attested (Valenzuela 1997).

Another instance that cannot be accounted for by the notion of inherent or lexicalized transitivity is the controller vs. non-controller distinction with the verb root *kinan-* 'vomit.' This verb behaves like a prototypical transitive verb in terms of the

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morpho-syntactic parameters to be described in 15.2.1. However, *kinan-* has the peculiarity (typical of cognate object verbs) of not allowing an unmodified / bare object, unless it refers to a provoked, and thus controlled, action. It can be argued that this peculiarity of *kinan-* needs to be understood in the context of Amazonian cultures, in which beverages that induce vomiting are drunk in order to acquire socially valued qualities or skills:

(26) a. *E-n-ra kinan-ke aros.
1-ERG-EV vomit-CMPL rice:ABS
'I vomited (the) rice.'

b. E-n-ra kinan-ke aros-*bires*..
1-ERG-EV vomit-CMPL rice:ABS-pure
'I vomited pure rice.'

(27) a. *E-n-ra kinan-ke yapa.
1-ERG-EV vomit-CMPL fish:ABS
'I vomited (the) fish.'

b. E-n-ra kinan-ke yapa-*bires*.
1-ERG-EV vomit-CMPL fish:ABS-pure
'I vomited pure fish.'

Now consider the following examples in which *kinan-* 'vomit' refers to a controlled action: unmodified / bare object allowed

(28) E-n-ra kinan-ke manxaman kawáti.
1-ERG-EV vomit-CMPL heron:GEN bridge:ABS
'I vomited the *manxaman kawáti* (lit. 'heron's bridge;' i.e., a beverage drunk to become good fisher / hunter).'

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(29) Bake-n-ra kinan-ke atsa-n tita.
child-ERG-EV vomit-CMPL yuca-GEN mother:ABS
'The child vomited the *atsan tita* (lit. 'yuca's mother;' i.e., a beverage given to children in order to make them become fatter).'

Other instances of unexpected or unpredictable case-marking may be better explained by the need to avoid conflation between two different but formally identical verb stems, or due to the derivational history of the verb in question (see 15.2.3).

An additional advantage of adopting a prototype-based approach is that it accounts for the fact that certain verbs exhibit double membership. An instance of double membership is the verb root *keen-* 'want,' which can take a nominal complement with alternate expression of arguments (<absolutive absolutive> / <absolutive interessive>), a clausal complement with coreferential subjects (modality verb), and a clausal complement with non-coreferential subjects (manipulation verb).

15.2.1. Properties of Transitive Verbs

Prototypical transitive verbs have been semantically defined as having an initiator, volitional, controller agent, that causes a physical, obvious, concrete, observable change in the state of its patient. In the prototypical case, agent and patient are mapped onto the grammatical relations of subject and direct object, respectively, which in SK take the <ergative absolutive> case forms. As mentioned earlier, the transitive pattern has been metaphorically extended to utterance, perception, cognition, and memory verbs, in spite

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of having an experiencer subject (rather than an agent) and a stimulus object (rather than a patient).

A prototypical transitive verb exhibits the following properties in SK: it allows for an object argument; it requires its subject and object to be marked ergative and absolutive, respectively; its subject imposes overt A agreement on locative / allative and manner adjuncts, and zero inflection on ablatives and emphatic pronouns; it may take the malefactive applicative and the middle suffix *-t* to signal reflexive; it requires the suppletive plural / transitive forms of the andative and venitive suffixes; it combines with transitive forms of phasal verbs; it may combine with the transitive auxiliary *ak-* and be replaced by the transitive pro-verb of the same form; it may take the distributive morpheme *-pake*. Finally, complement-taking transitive verbs select for the complementizers *-ti*, *-ai*, or *-a*.

Some of these properties seem to be more central to the definition of transitive verbs than others; according to Valenzuela (1997), the possibility of taking an object, as well as taking the middle-reflexive suffix, have surfaced the strongest criteria for identifying a transitive verb.

Ditransitive verbs are a subclass of transitive verbs that take two NP objects. In SK, there does not seem to exist any systematic morpho-syntactic difference between the two objects (but cf. 8.4.2.3 and footnote 11 of Ch. 17).

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15.2.2. Properties of Intransitive Verbs

Intransitive verbs take a single absolutive marked argument that can play the semantic role of agent, patient of state or patient of change. As shown in 8.2.1, intransitive verbs in SK include the copula and the positive and negative existentials; certain motion / position verbs; meteorological / nature verbs; inchoative verbs which zero-derive from nouns or adjectives, and movement verbs which zero-derive from adjuncts or postpositions. Inherently directed motion verbs take locative and clausal complements; closed subsets of this group also have differentiated singular / non-singular roots, and the alternative of taking a locative object.

A prototypical intransitive verb exhibits the following properties: it requires its single argument to be marked absolutive; its subject imposes overt S agreement on ablative, life-stage, quantity and manner adjuncts as well as emphatic pronouns, and zero inflection on locative-allatives; it cannot take the middle (to signal reflexive), reciprocal, malefactive, or distributive suffixes; with a singular subject, it requires the singular-intransitive forms of the suppletive andative and venitive pairs; it combines with detransitivized forms of phasal verbs; it combines with the intransitive auxiliary *ik-* and may be replaced by the intransitive pro-verb of the same form; it may take the verbal modifier *-paket* 'going down (the river).' Complement-taking intransitive verbs take the complementizer *-i*.

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TABLE 15.1. Transitivity Parameters in Shipibo-Konibo

VERBS	OBJECT	SUBJECT	PRO-VERB	MALF.	OVERT PART. AGREEM.	MIDDLE	RECIPR.
prototypical transitive	ABS	ERG	*ak-*	yes	*-xon, -kin, noxon*	reflex.	possible
'see', 'hear,' 'smell,' etc.	ABS	ERG	*ak-*	yes	*-xon, -kin, -noxon*	reflex.	possible
'row'	elicitation only	ERG	*ak-*	yes	*-xon, -kin, -noxon*	reflex.	possible
'pole (a canoe, bote)'	elicitation only	ERG	*ak-*	yes	*-xon, -kin, -noxon*	no	no
'slip the mind'	ABS/INTRSS	ABS	*ik-*	yes	*-ax, -i, -nox*	reflex.	possible
'want, like, love'	ABS/INTRSS	ABS	*ik-*	no	*-ax, -i, -nox*	no	possible
intransitive w/locative object							
'go up obliquely'	OBL	ABS	*ik-/ak-*	no	*-ax, -i, -nox*	yes	no
	ABS	ERG	*ak-*		*-xon, -kin, -noxon*	no	
'be ashamed of'	no	ABS	*ik-*	no	*-ax, -i, -nox*	no	possible
'be afraid of'	no	ABS	*ik-*	?	*-ax, -i, -nox*	non-reflex.	possible
'be happy about'	no	ABS	*ik-*	no	*-ax, -i, -nox*	no	no
w/cognate object							
'sing'	modified/OBL	ABS	*ik-*	yes	*-ax, -i, -nox*	no	no
'deliver a child'	modified	ABS	*ik-*	no	*-ax, -i, -nox*	no	no
prototypical intransitive	no	ABS	*ik-*	no	*-ax, -i, -nox*	non-reflex.	no

15.2.3. Non-Prototypical Intransitive and Transitive Verbs

There are different classes of non-prototypical transitive and intransitive verbs; some exhibiting more transitive properties than others. Under this supra-category are found cognate object verbs (not all of which exhibit the same morpho-syntactic behavior); the roots *keen-* 'want' and *shinanbenot-* 'slip the mind,' which allow for alternate <absolutive absolutive> / <absolutive interessive> case frames; verbs that (tend to) occur with a single overt argument which is an ergative marked subject; and emotion verbs taking an absolutive marked subject and a second argument marked by the dative *-ki*. In addition to case frame and its associated participant agreement features, these verbs will differ in their ability to take the middle-reflexive, reciprocal, malefactive applicative, and other verb suffixes. The behavior of the different transitivity types of verbs with respect to the parameters discussed here is summarized in Table 15.1.

It must be pointed out that even verb roots seemingly belonging to a fairly homogeneous class may behave differently in terms of the morpho-syntactic parameters at hand. For example, different distributions in terms of transitivity associated parameters are found between verb pairs such as *rabin-* 'be ashamed of' and *raké-* 'be afraid of,' and between *keen-* 'want / love' and *shinanbenot-* 'slip the mind;' only *rabin-* and *keen-* may take reciprocal marking.

The roots *wina-* 'row' and *jono-* 'pole (a raft or canoe)' can be considered as belonging to the same subclass. In addition to their seeming semantic similarity, in both cases the subject is marked ergative and a second argument is absent in spontaneous

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discourse. Nevertheless, *wina-* exhibits more transitivity properties than *jono-*, in that the former can take the middle and reciprocal suffixes while the latter cannot. Further examination reveals that, whereas *wina-* allows for a human absolutive marked object, *jono-* can only take raft, canoe or boat as objects.

The verbs *join-* 'breathe' and *rebes-* 'die' do not allow an object (although some speakers allow nominals such as *niwe* 'wind' and *jakonma koin* 'harming smoke' as second arguments of *join*; see ex. (117) in Ch. 17), in spite of requiring their subjects to be marked ergative. The verb root *join-* 'breathe' can be considered as closer to the intransitive prototype, since except for case-marking and the participant agreement properties associated to it, *join-* lacks other characteristics of transitive verbs such as the possibility of taking the malefactive, middle, and reciprocal suffixes. The next sentence shows the verb *join-* with a single overt argument, the subject, which takes ergative marking:

(30) Nato jene-n rete-a *ainbaon*-ra moa *join*-ai.
this flowing.water-ERG kill-PP2 woman.ERG-EV already breathe-INC
'This woman who almost drowned is breathing already.' (Lit. 'The woman whom the flowing water killed is breathing already.') (Loriot, Lauriault and Day 1993:230, analyzed in Valenzuela 1997)

The sentences below illustrate that the subject of *join-* cannot be marked absolutive (from Valenzuela 1997):

(31) a. E-n-ra join-ai.
1-ERG-EV breathe-INC
'I breathe.'

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b. *E-a-ra join-ai.
1-ABS-EV breathe-INC
'I breathe.'

Although sentence (31b) is ungrammatical when wanting to express the equivalent to the English 'I breathe,' the form is grammatical with a different meaning and morpho-syntactic analysis:

(32) E-a-ra joi-n-ai.
1-ABS-EV word-TRNZ-INC
'S/he is criticizing me.'

To mark the subject of *join-* absolutive (as expected for 'breathe') would cause a potential confusion between (31a) and (32), and this might be solved by marking the subject of *join-* as ergative. However, example (32) also suggests that *joi-* 'word' might be the ultimate root in the verb 'breathe' to which the instrumental causativizer *-n* is added, making it into a transitive verb. If this second hypothesis is correct, the history of the verb form would explain the ergative case-marker on the subject (Valenzuela 1997).

Similarly to *join-* described above, the verb *rebes-* 'die' requires its subject to be marked ergative, in spite of allowing no object (from Valenzuela 1997):

(33) Moa-ra papa-*n* rebes-ke.
already-EV father-ERG die-CMPL
'My father died already.'

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In this case, the probable explanation of the unexpected case-marking on the subject is different. The intransitive verb *rebes-* 'die' seems to originate from the transitive one *rebes-* 'reach the end of,' illustrated in the following example (from Valenzuela 1997):

(34) Moa-ra e-n paro rebes-ke.
already-EV 1-ERG river:ABS reach.the.end.of-CMPL
'I reached the end of the river already.'

Therefore, the use of this verb root with the meaning 'die' might be considered as the lexicalization of an antipassive construction (Valenzuela 1997).

15.2.4. Other Verb Classes

Valenzuela (1997) grouped certain verb-types independently from the notion of transitivity. For example, the modal auxiliaries *atipan-* 'can' and *ja-* 'have to' lack an argument structure of their own and depend for this on their accompanying lexical verb. Onomatopoeic verbs are very productive in SK; generally, they are formed by attaching the semantically generic verbs *-ik* 'be, do (intransitive), say' or *-ak* 'make, do (transitive), tell' to onomatopoeic roots in order to form intransitive and transitive verbs, respectively. Also, there is a closed set of fluid or ambitransitive verbs which can occur in either an intransitive or transitive frame without taking any derivational device. Furthermore, a set of verb roots take body part prefixes; the prefixed stems usually keep the transitivity value of the root. Intransitives that take these body part prefixes seem to bear motion / position, (change of) state semantic components; while transitives seem to code events

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involving cause and contact. In addition, a few inherently directed motion verbs do not take the intransitive / transitive pro-verb forms for short answers to polar questions, but use non-finite forms based on their own roots instead. Besides these motion verbs, also the positive and negative existentials use their own roots for short answers to polar questions; however, differently from motion verbs, answers to polar questions involving existentials exhibit the usual finite forms. A treatment of the transitivity types of verbs in SK has been provided in Chapter 8, whereas valence-changing derivations are dealt with in detail in Chapters 16-18.

15.3. Transitivity Agreement

Agreement has been defined as the existence of "some systematic covariance between a semantic or formal property of one element and a formal property of another" (Steele 1978:610). SK exhibits atypical types of agreement which are associated to transitivity and are not manifested inside the noun phrase. Although previously treated together (see e.g. Valenzuela 1999 and Loos 1999), it is proposed here that two basic types of transitivity-associated agreements must be distinguished in SK and Panoan languages in general: transitivity agreement versus participant agreement. The former notion refers to phenomena that are best accounted for in terms of the transitivity status of the (lexical) verb (sometimes in combination with other factors such as number), whereas the latter depends on the syntactic function the controlling argument plays. Further, transitivity agreement phenomena target the verb phrase, while participant agreement targets

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adjuncts. Given that constructions exhibiting transitivity agreement (TA) are treated in separate chapters of this work, in the present section I confine myself to presenting TA phenomena in a unified and succinct fashion. Participant agreement, on the other hand, is the main topic of Chapters 19 and 20.

15.3.1. Phasal Verbs

The verbs *peo-* 'begin,' *keyo-* 'finish,' and *jene-* 'stop' are inherently transitive and can function as main verbs. Alternatively, *peo-*, *keyo-* and *jene-* may occur in combination with lexical verbs in what can be considered as a type of non-core serialized construction (Foley and Olson 1985; see also 7.14). In these instances, phasal verbs must agree in transitivity with the lexical verb; i.e., phasal verbs occur unmodified with transitive lexical verbs, but take the detransitivizing middle suffix *-t* if the lexical verb is intransitive. Further, either the lexical or the phasal verb takes the simultaneous same-subject markers *-i* or *-kin* in agreement with the transitivity status of the accompanying verb, which occurs in its finite form:[2]

(35) a. E-*a*-ra ransa-*i* *peo-koo*-ke.
1-ABS-EV dance-SSSS begin-MID-CMPL
'I began to dance (e.g., at a party).'

b. E-*a*-ra peo-*koot-i* ransa-ke.
1-ABS-EV begin-MID-SSSS dance-CMPL
'I began to dance (at the party / for the first time in my life).'

(36) a. E-*n*-ra bana-*kin* *peo*-ke.

[2] Previous same-subject marking may also be attested.

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1-ERG-EV sow-SSSA begin-CMPL
'I began to sow (it).'

b. E-*n*-ra peo-*kin* bana-ke.
1-ERG-EV begin-SSSA sow-CMPL
'I began to sow (it).'

The two text sentences below illustrate the transitive root *peo-* 'start, begin' in combination with a lexical transitive verb. In the first sentence *peo-* occurs in a finite form functioning as the syntactically main verb, whereas the lexical *xobo a(k)-* takes the corresponding simultaneous same-subject marker *-kin*:

(37) Wetsa nete winó-ke-tian, xobo a-kin peo-kan-a iki.
other day:ABS pass:MID-P-DS house do.T-SSSA start-PL-PP2 AUX
'On the next day, they started building the house.'

The next sentence is particularly interesting. The lexical verb *Ani Xeati-a(k)-* 'to organize, celebrate the *Ani Xeati* ceremony,' is syntactically dependent on *peo-*, thus forming a verb phrase which in turn depends on the transitive periphrastic pro-verb *akana iki* which is finite. The transitive value of the complex verb phrase is determined by the lexical *Ani Xeati-a(k)-*:

(38) Ja-ska-rain-xon-ronki a-kan-a iki no-n reken-baon
that-SIML-*ra*:LOC-PDCA-HSY do.T-PL-PP2 AUX 1p-GEN first-PL:ERG

[[Ani Xeati-a-kin] peo-kin].
Ani Xeati-do.T-SSSA start-SSSA
'And it was in this way that our ancestors started celebrating the *Ani Xeati* ceremony.'

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In the following example, the intransitivity value of the complex verb phrase is determined by the intransitive lexical verb *tsinkit-* 'to gather (intr.),' which in turn is formed by detransitivizing the root *tsinki-* 'to gather (tr.).' Consequently, the intransitive semantically generic verb *ik-* is selected as pro-verb, and the phasal *peo-* must be detransitivized:

(39) Ja-ska-ra i-t-i-bi-ronki ik-á iki, joni-bo
that-SIML-*ra* do.I-PROGR-SSSS-EM-HSY do.I-PP2 AUX man-PL:ABS

[[Komankaya mai-n tsinki-t-i] peo-koot-i].
Komankaya land-LOC gather-MID-SSSS begin-MID-SSSS
'Then, people began to gather in Komankaya forming a village.'

Examples (40) and (41) below illustrate the transitive *keyo-* 'finish' and its detransitivized counterpart *keyó-* ~ *keyo-t-*, in combination with a lexical transitive and intransitive verb respectively:

(40) Ja-ská-a-xon-ki ja joni icha piti-a bané-ni-ke;
that-SIML-do.T-PSSA:HSY that man:ABS much food-PROPR stay-REM-CMPL

jatíbi roo *rete-kin* *keyo*-ax.
all howler.monkey:ABS kill-SSSA finish-PSSS
'And so the man got a lot of food, having killed all the howler monkeys.'

(41) Jato meni-a bi-xon, ian napon ne-níchin-kan-a,
3p:ABS give-PO>S/A get-PSSA lake inside FLOW.WATER-insert-PL-PP2

jene *tsosin-i* *keyo-t*-a iki.
flowing.water:ABS lower-SSSS finish-MID-PP2 AUX
'Taking (the spear) they were given, they inserted it in the middle of the lake and the water lowered completely.'

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Similar instances of transitivity agreement are found in Dulong / Rawang, a Tibeto-Burman language spoken on both sides of the China-Myanmar border, where a set of inherently transitive auxiliary verbs must take the detransitivizing reflexive / middle suffix when combining with an intransitive matrix verb. These auxiliaries translate into English as 'continue,' 'begin to,' 'be finished,' 'be about to,' and 'be willing to.' In the next pair of examples, the auxiliary *mv̄n* 'continue' is followed by the detransitivizing suffix *-shì* when combining with an intransitive matrix verb only:

(42) a. à:ngí shóng rímā:nòē
àng-í shóng rí-mv̄n-ò-ē
3sg-AGT tree/wood carry-continue-3+TR.N.PAST-N.PAST
'He is continuing to carry the wood.' (LaPolla 2000:293)

b. àng yøpmv̄nshìē
àng yøp-mv̄n-*shì*-ē
3sg sleep-continue-R / M-N.PAST
'He is continuing to sleep.' (LaPolla 2000:294)

As can be observed in the examples above, in Dulong / Rawang transitive subjects have the possibility of taking the "agentive" marker *-í* (intransitive subjects do not); further, transitive verbs require the presence of the non-past third person O marker (*ò*) before the non-past affirmative / declarative particle (*ē*) (LaPolla, ibid.:283-284).

These types of constructions according to which verbs with aspectual / modality meanings adjust to match the lexical main verb in terms of transitivity, suggest a close relationship between the two verbs so that they need to share the same argument structure.

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15.3.2. 'Going Down' and Distributive Suffixes

The transitive verb *pake-* 'drop, throw' and its derived intransitive *pake-t-* ~ *paké* 'fall' are grammaticalizing as verb suffixes which exclusively combine with either transitive or intransitive verb stems, respectively. This transitivity matching requirement between the two elements is reminiscent of phasal verb constructions, thus suggesting a similar verb serialization origin.

pake-	'drop, throw'	> -pake distributive	added to transitive stems
pake-t-	'fall'	> -paket 'going down (the river)'	added to intransitive stems

The following examples illustrate the independent verbs *pake-* 'drop' and *pake-t-* 'fall:'

(43) Abioni-n-ra kirika pake-ke.
airplane:LIG-ERG-EV letter:ABS drop-CMPL
'The small airplane dropped a letter.' (Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:314)

(44) Yaká yaká-kin oin-a-ronki ik-á iki
sitting.position.I:MID sitting.position.I:MID-SSSA see-PP2-HSY be-PP2 AUX

westíora bimi ani jiwimea-x pake-t-i
one fruit:ABS big tree:LOC:ABL-S drop-MID-SSSS

jene-nko-shaman.
flowing.water-LOC-INTENS
'Just when he was sitting there he saw that a fruit fell from a big tree into the water.'

The example immediately above involves the intransitive stem *yaka-* 'sitting position' which has *yasa-* as its transitive counterpart.

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The next sentence illustrates the distributive suffix *-pake*, which only combines with transitive stems:

(45) Ja-skat-ai-tian-ronki ak-á iki, ja joni-n-ki
that-SIML-S-DD-HSY do.T-PP2 AUX that man-ERG-HSY2

jiwi bi-xon ma-rishki-*pake*-kin keyo-kin.
pole:ABS get-PSSA HEAD-hit-DISTR-SSSA finish-SSSA
'Then the man grabbed a pole and killed all the monkeys hitting them on the head one by one.'

As mentioned above, *-pake* cannot combine with intransitive stems. However, SK has at its disposal at least two alternative means to encode distributive meaning (see 4.6). In example (46), reduplication of the numeral *westíora* is employed to obtain the English equivalent of 'one by one' (note also the phasal verb matches the intransitiviy of *maan-* 'come down'):

(46) Westíora westíora-bo, maan-i keyó-kan-a iki.
one one-PL:ABS come.down-SSSS finish:MID-PL-PP2 AUX
'One by one, they finished coming down.'

The example below contains two instances of the complex suffix *pake-t-* (or V2) 'going down (the river)' which combines with intransitive verb stems only:

(47) Tii i-*paket*-i jato yoi yoi-*paket*-i.
ONOM do.I-going.down-SSSS 3p:ABS tell tell-going.down-SSSS
'Playing the horns, they went down the river inviting the people (to the *Ani Xeati* ceremony).'

The intransitive verb *inat-* 'go up' may also occur as a verb suffix, but differently from *pake-t-*, *-inat* combines with both intransitive and transitive verbs.

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15.3.3. 'Come' and 'Go'

There are two sets of suppletive motion verbs in SK, their distribution depending on both number and transitivity distinctions:

jo- 'come (sing.)'	ka- 'go (sing.)'
be- 'come (non-sing.), bring'	bo- 'go (non-sing.), carry'

These verbs are the only ones in the language that make use of two unrelated roots to distinguish singular versus non-count and plural subject nominals. Thus, *jo-* and *ka-* are used for singular subjects, while *be-* and *bo-* are used for subjects such as 'rain,' 'flooding,' 'clouds,' 'school of fish,' 'wind,' 'waves,' etc., as well as for plural subjects. The next two examples illustrate the non-singular use of *be-* and *bo-*:

(48) a. Koshi mee-anan-kan-ax *bo*-kan-ai [atsa xeati xea-[a]i].
strength HAND-REC-PL-PSSS go.n.SG-PL-INC yuca drink:ABS drink-SSSS
'After trying their strength against each other, they went to drink yuca beer.'

b. Jain-xon-ribi iná tsaka-kan-ai, ja Ani Xeati-nin
there-PDCA-also animal:ABS shoot.w/arrow-PL-INC that *Ani Xeati*-ALL

be-a joni-baon.
come.n.SG-PP2 person-PL:ERG
Afterwards, those people who had come to the *Ani Xeati* ceremony shot arrows at the animal.'

When looking at the transitive uses of *be-* 'bring' and *bo-* 'carry, take,' we are faced with what appears to be a case of homophony between 'come (n.sg.)' and 'bring' on the one hand, and 'go (n.sg.)' and 'carry' on the other:

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(49) No-n-ra joni *be*-ke no-n jema-nko.
1p-ERG-EV person:ABS bring-CMPL 1p-GEN village-ALL
'We brought the man to our village.'

(50) No-n-ra joni *bo*-ke jawen jema-nko.
1p-ERG-EV person:ABS carry-CMPL POS3 village-ALL
'We carried / took the man to his village.'

However, there is evidence to claim that the selection of the suppletive pairs *jo- / be-* and *ka- / bo-* is determined not just on the basis of a number distinction but also on transitivity-causality grounds. Under this analysis, the roots *be-* 'come (n.sg.) / bring' and *bo-* 'go (n.sg.) / take, carry' would be the non-singular and transitive counterparts of the singular intransitives *jo-*'come' and *ka-* 'go.' Hence, the proposed distribution is the following:

Table 15.2. Distribution of the Suppletive Forms *Jo-, Be-, Ka-* and *Bo-*

jo-	movement towards (singular and intransitive)
be-	movement towards (non-singular or transitive)
ka-	movement away (singular and intransitive)
bo-	movement away (non-singular or transitive)

Thus, (part) of the meaning of *be-* would be 'cause sth. / sb. to come, come with sth. / sb.,' i.e. 'bring;' (part) of the meaning of *bo-* would be 'cause sth. / sb. to go, go with sth. / sb.,' i.e. 'carry, take.'

There are two pieces of evidence in favor of the analysis that *be-* and *bo-* are also the transitive counterparts of *jo-* and *ka-*, respectively. First, the four roots discussed here are included in the closed set of verbs that do not require semantically generic verbs to

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function as pro-verbs in answers to polar questions (the other roots are the existential *ja-*, the negative existential *yama-*, and the transitive *bi-* 'get;' see section 8.5). That is, while the way to answer polar questions involving most SK verbs is by using either the intransitive pro-verb *ik-* or the transitive pro-verb *ak-*, the verbs in question employ their own root instead, following the same distribution as in Table 15.2 (see also 8.5). This is exemplified below (for the dominant pattern see exx. (55) and (56).

Table 15.3. Distribution of Answers to Polar Questions with *Jo-*, *Ka-*, *Be-* and *Bo-*

-Tita-ki jo-ai? mother:ABS-INT come-PP1 -'Is mother coming?'	-jo-i / jo-ama come-SSSS come-NEG -'yes / no'
-Tita-ki moa kai? mother:ABS-INT already go:PP1 -'Is mother leaving already?'	-ka-i / kama come-SSSS come:NEG -'yes / no'
-Oi-ki be-ai? rain:ABS-INT come.n.SG-PP1 -'Is it raining?'	-be-i / be-ama come.n.SG-SSSS / come.n.SG-NEG -'yes / no'
-Oi-ki bo-ai? rain:ABS-INT go.n.SG-PP1 -'Is the rain moving away?'	-bo-i / bo-ama go.n.SG-SSSS go.n.SG-NEG -'yes / no'
-Nawa-bo-ki be-kan-ai? outsider-PL:ABS-INT come.n.SG-PL-PP1 -'Are the outsiders coming?'	-be-i / be-ama come.n.SG-SSSS come.n.SG-NEG -'yes / no'
-Nawa-bo-ki bo-kan-ai? outsider-PL:ABS-INT go.n.SG-PL-PP1 -'Are the outsiders leaving?'	-bo-i / bo-ama go.n.SG-SSSS go.n.SG-NEG -'yes / no'
-Tita-n-ki be-ai? mother-ERG-INT bring-PP1 -'Is mother bringing (it)?'	-be-kin / be-ama bring-SSSA bring-NEG -'yes/no'

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-Tita-n-ki bo-ai?	-bo-kin / bo-ama
mother-ERG-INT carry-PP1	carry-SSSA carry-NEG
-'Is mother carrying (it)?'	-'yes / no'

Notice that the 'yes' answers to *be-* 'come (n.sg.)' and *bo-* 'go (n.sg.)' differ from those corresponding to *be-* 'bring' and *bo-* 'carry,' in that the former take the same-subject marker *-i* that correlates with intransitive matrix clauses, while the latter take its transitive counterpart *-kin*.

A second piece of evidence is provided by the verbal morphemes *-kiran / -beiran* 'coming' and *-kain / -bain* 'going,' with respect to a place set up in the discourse (7.6.1-7.6.2). These pairs might have arisen through grammaticalization of forms involving the roots *jo- / be-* and *ka- / bo*, respectively. In addition, these verbal morphemes have roughly the same meaning as the independent verbs, and also a similarity in form can be observed (with the exception of *-kiran* where one would rather expect *j(e)iran*). However, what makes this argument especially convincing is that the seemingly strange distribution of the verbal morphemes can be accounted for straightforwardly if we consider that the main verb forms *be-* and *bo-* are not only the non-singular but also the transitive counterparts of *jo-* and *ka-*; that is, that *be-* 'come (non-singular)' and *be-* 'bring' are the same root, as well as *bo-* 'come (non-singular)' and *bo-* 'carry.' The distribution of the verbal morphemes is as follows:

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Table 15.4. Distribution of the Venitives *-Kiran / -Beiran* and the Andatives *-Kain / -Bain*

-kiran	movement towards (singular and intransitive)
-beiran	movement towards (non-singular and intransitive, or transitive)
-kain	movement away (singular and intransitive)
-bain	movement away (non-singular and intransitive, or transitive)

The verbal morphemes above function as modifiers of the predicate they are attached to. But often they retain what was plausibly their former function, that of coding subsequent events. The distribution of these number-and-transitivity sensitive verb stems and suffixes is discussed in 7.6.1 and 7.6.2; here a few further examples are provided. First, consider the use of the venitive suffixes. In the ex. below *-kiran* is selected given that the subject of the last verb is singular, and the host *xoo i-* is an intransitive onomatopoeic predicate:

(51) Ja-ská-tian jo-ai oin-a-ronki ik-ai, ja-skat-i
that-SIML-TEMP come-PP1 see-PP2-HSY do.I-PP1 that-SIML-SSSS

kapé-isi *xooo* *i*-res-*kiran*-i.
alligator:ABS-DEPREC ONOM do.I-just-VEN1-SSSS
'When (they) saw what was coming, it was a huge alligator approaching producing a noise *xooo* in the water.'

In the example below, while the subject of *rewe a-* 'play the flute' is also singular, this complex verb is transitive and hence the venitive *-beiran* is required:

(52) Ja-ská-xon ja koko-kan-ai-tian-ronki ik-ai
that-SIML-PDCA that eat.sweet.fruit-PL-S-DS-HSY do.I-INC

o-no-a-x-ki *rewe a-beiran*-i, jo-a oin-a-ki
DIST-LOC-ABL-S-HSY2 flute do.T-VEN2-SSSS come-PP2 see-PP2-HSY2

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awá-isi
tapir:ABS-DEPREC
'While they were eating fruit, a tapir appeared and came playing the flute.'

Now consider the distribution of the andatives. In the example below, the subject of *noya-* 'fly' is singular, and this verb is intransitive; therefore, the form *-kain* is selected:

(53) Paké-ke-tian-ki ik-á iki yapa-bo
drop:MID-P-DS-HSY2 do.I-PP2 AUX fish-PL:ABS

tsamá-boan-i. Ja basi-ma-bi-ronki
gather:MID-pass.many-SSSS that delay-NEG-EM-HSY

ik-á iki pichá *noya-kain*-i.
do.I-PP2 AUX *palometa*:ABS fly-AND1-SSSS
'When (the fruit) fell (into the water) all the fish gathered around it. A little bit later a *palometa* (fish) flew away.'

The following example has been taken from a text where the Jaguar threatens the Deer with eating him if he does not bring meat to eat. Despite the fact that we are dealing with a singular subject, the venitive suffix *-bain* rather than *-kain* is used given that it attaches to the transitive stem *(masá-)shinan-* 'be sad:'

(54) Ja-tian Chaxo masá-shinan shinan-*bain*-i ka-a iki,
that-TEMP Deer:ABS sad-think think-VEN2-SSSS go-PP2 AUX

piti bena-i.
meat:ABS search-SSSS
'So the Deer went to look for meat, feeling very sad and scared.'

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Therefore, I conclude that *be-* and *bo-* are the plural and transitive (causative) suppletive forms of *jo-* and *ka-*, respectively. One could speculate that, after all, when one brings or carries someone or something it is implied that one comes or goes with that someone or something.

15.3.4. Semantically Generic Verbs

SK has two semantically highly generic verbs: the intransitive *ik-* 'do (intr.), be, say' and the transitive *ak-* 'do (tr.), make, tell.'[3] Most verbs can be replaced by the semantically generic verbs functioning as pro-verbs; this can be observed, for instance, in short answers to polar questions (from Valenzuela 1997; see also 8.5):

(55) a. -Mi-n chai-ki moa neno noko-t-a?
2-GEN brother.in.law-ABS-INT already here meet-MID-PP2
-'Did your brother-in-law arrive here already?'

b. -Ik-í / Ik-ama
do.I-SSSS / do.I-NEG
-'Yes / No'

(56) a. -Mi-n papa-n-ki wiso ino rete-a?
2-GEN father-ERG-INT black puma-ABS kill-CMPL:INT
-'Did your father kill the black puma?'

---

[3] According to Wistrand (1969:157), there are three semantically generic verbs functioning as auxiliaries or pro-verbs in the genetically-related language Kashibo-Kakataibo: the intransitive *ʔi-* 'be,' the transitive *ʔa-* 'do,' and the bitransitive *o-* 'make, do.' The author further adds that *o-* is 'one type of causative.' Interestingly, a similar three-way distinction can be found in the genetically-unrelated Tukanoan languages. For example, in Secoya: *më-i* 'go up,' *më-a* 'raise,' and *më-o* 'cause to raise;' dai 'come,' da 'bring,' dao 'make bring' (Johnson and Levinsohn 1990:59). In languages of the Eastern branch, these three morphemes occur as prefixes (Gómez-Imbert, p.c.).

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b. -A-kin / Ak-ama
do.T-SSSA / do.T-NEG
'-Yes / No'

In the next two examples the verbs *rete-* 'kill' and *ishto-* 'run (away)' occur in a non-finite form and respectively select for the transitive and intransitive pro-verbs *a(k)-* and *i(k)-* which provide tense-aspect and number information. Furthermore, the conjunction *jain(oa)* and the adjunct *jati(k)* receive participant agreement inflection in correlation with *a(k)-* (i.e. *-xon*) and *i(k)-* (i.e. *-(a)x*) (see 19.2.2.8 and 19.2.2.11). Finally, the same-subject markers on the lexical verbs (i.e. *-kin* and *-i*) must agree with the transitivity status of the pro-verb:

(57) Jain-*xon*-ronki *a*-kan-a iki jatí-*xon*-bi awá rete-*kin*.
there-PDCA-HSY do.T-PL-PP2 AUX altogether-A-EM tapir:ABS kill-SSSA
'Then, it is said that altogether they killed the tapir.'

(58) Jainoa-*x*-ronki *i*-kan-a iki jatik-*ax*-bi ishto-*i*.
there:LOC:ABL-S do.I-PL-PP2 AUX altogether-S-EM run-SSSS
'Then, it is said that altogether they ran (away).'

Combinations of the pro-verbs *ik-* and *ak-* with non-finite lexical verbs have been reanalyzed as single periphrastic verb forms (7.12). Periphrastic verbs may represent a stylistic choice or play particular discourse-pragmatic functions; in some instances (such as the "narrative past"), periphrastic verbs have become fixed specific tense-aspect forms of the verbal paradigm.

In addition, complex predicates may be formed by the combination of different types of non-verbal roots (noun, adjective, onomatopoeia, short exclamation, loan word) with these semantically generic verbs (see also ex. (38)):

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(59)	mashá ik-	[*mashá* do.I]	'perform the *mashá* (traditional singing, dancing)
	Ani Xeati ak-	[*Ani Xeati* do.T]	'organize, carry out the *Ani Xeati* (girls' puberty rites)
	bake ak-	[child do.T]	'engender, have a child'
	ani ak-	[big do.T]	'raise, enlarge'
	yoyo ik-	[ONOM:speak do.I]	'say'[4]
	yoyo ak-	{ONOM:speak do.T]	'tell'
	shee ik-	[ONOM:fry do.I]	'fry (intr.)'
	shee ak-	[ONOM:fry do.T]	'fry (tr.)'
	"ka-wé" ik-	[go-IMP do.I]	'say good-bye, leave'
	"i-rá-ke" ak-	["do.I-EV-CMPL" do.T]	'thank sb.'
	sonso ak-	[silly (Spanish loan) do.T]	'be unfaithful to sb.'
	kirika ak-	[paper (Quechua loan) do.I]	'study, read'

The relatively less common use of the intransitive *ik-* in predicate formation is partially due to the fact that non-verbal roots by themselves may function as inchoatives; e.g., *bake* 'child / become a child / behave like a child,' *ani* 'big / become big'

The transitive *ak-* is also used as factitive in combination with a noun root (see ex. (37)):

(60)	xobo ak-	[house do.T]	'build (a) house'
	pia ak-	[arrow do.T]	'make (an) arrow'
	nonti ak-	[canoe do.T]	'make (a) canoe'
	mapó ak-	[clay do.T]	'make pottery'
	chitonti ak-	[chitonti do.T]	'manufacture *chitonti* (traditional skirt) '

Finally, the semantically generic verbs *i(k)-* and *a(k)-* are often used as quotatives either instead of, or in combination with, specific verbs of saying. Examples (61) and (62) illustrate the use of transitive quotatives:

[4] The verb *yoi-* 'tell' itself may have arisen from the combination of the onomatopoeic root *yo* 'speak' and the intransitive *i(k)-*.

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(61) E-n nokon tita *yoká-katit-ai*: "Titá, jawe kopí-ki
1-ERG POS1 mother:ABS ask-PST4-INC mother:VOC what reason-INT

moa-tian Ani Xeati a-káti-kan-ai? E-a-ra onan-kas-ai
already-TEMP *Ani Xeati* do.T-PST4-PL-PP1 1-ABS-EV know-DES-INC

jawe-kaya-rin ja i-xon," *a-kin a-káti-ai.*
what-CONTRST-INT2 that:ABS do.I-FSSA do.T-SSSA do.T-PST4-INC
'I asked my mother: "Mother, why was the *Ani Xeati* celebrated in the past?
I want to know what is the meaning of the *Ani Xeati.*"'

(62) a. -"Xoxo bake-bóoo!" *a-ronki-ai* jato,
illegitimate child-PL:VOC do.T-HSY-INC 3p:ABS

"jawe ak-í-ki mato i-t-ai?"
what:ABS do.T-SSSS-HSY2 2p:ABS do.I-PROGR-INC
'"Illegitimate childreeen," he called them, "What are you doing?"

b. -"Binpish koko-i-ra no-a i-t-ai"
guayaba:ABS eat.sweet.fruit-SSSS-EV 1p-ABS do.I-PROGR-INC

a-ronki-a-kan-ai.
do.T-HSY-do.T-PL-INC
"We are eating guayaba," they answered (him).

In the next two examples the intransitive *ik-* functions as quotative:

(63) Ja-ská-ke-tian-ronki ja washit-a-ma-bo *ik-á iki*:
that-SIML-P-DD-HSY that deny-PP2-NEG-PL:ABS do.I-PP2 AUX

"Ka-non ka-wé, Inka bi-non ka-wé, chibá-non ka-wé!" *ik-í.*
go-P/J go.IMP Inca:ABS get-P/J go-IMP follow-P/J go-IMP do.I-SSSS
'Then, the ones who had not denied (the Inca Woman the roasted peanut) said:
"Come on, let's go get the Inca Woman, let's follow her".'

(64) "Jeee" *i-ronki-ai* ja-skat-i "tita-shoko-n-ra awá
jee do.I-HSY-INC that-SIML-SSSS mother-DIM-ERG-EV tapir

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piti-a-ke. Tso-n-bira awá meni-a" *i-ronki-ai.*
food-do.T-CMPL who-ERG-INFR tapir:ABS give-PP2 do.I-HSY-INC
'"Jee," said one of the grandchildren, "grandmother has cooked tapir meat. Who might have given her the tapir meat?," he said.

In summary, the semantically generic verbs *ak-* 'do (tr.), make' and *ik-* 'do (intr.), be' function as pro-verbs, as complex predicate constituents, and as quotatives; in addition, semantically generic verbs play a predicativization function when combined with non-verbal roots. The distribution of *ak-* and *ik-* depends on the transitivity status of the predicate they replace, accompany, or contribute to create. Although *ak-* and *ik-* are commonly attested as quotatives and hence translated as verbs of saying, I consider this to be a secondary development from their more general pro-verb function.[5] *Ik-* also functions as copula verb, as treated in 8.2.1.1.

Interestingly, Güldemann (forthcoming) describes a type of complex predicate which is commonly found in Northeast African languages and that consists of two constituents: a "content sign" and a semantically generic verb. The content sign may be an onomatopoeic root (or a similar expressive one-word sign); a short quote (exclamation, interjection, imperative); a loan word; lexical items used otherwise as nouns, adjective or adverbs; lexical items used otherwise as verbs. Consider the following examples (from Güldemann, forthcoming, and references therein); the semantically generic verb is glossed as AUX:

[5] An in-depth discussion arguing that quotatives in Northeast African languages derive from semantically generic verbs can be found in Güldemann (2001). However, the Northeast African picture might differ from the one suggested here.

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(65)

Afar (Cushitic)	kowkàw-*iyy*-	[ONOM:chatter AUX] 'chatter'
	tàssa-*iyy*-	[happiness-AUX] 'become happy'
Kunama (isolate, Nilo-Saharan)	katábō-*da*	[Arabic loan-AUX:INF] 'write'
	óo-*da*	[ONOM-AUX:INF] 'cry'
	bárē-*da*	[two-AUX:INF] 'tear apart'
Zayse (Omotic)	ˈellé-*ydi*	[fast-AUX:PERF] 'move, travel rapidly'
	ˈeró-*ydi*	["O.K."-AUX:PERF] 'obey, agree'

There is great similarity between the complex predicates above and the SK data in (59) and (60).

In addition to their predicativization function, semantically generic verbs in Northeast African languages also combine with other verbs serving as a "focusing predication operator" (i.e., signaling foregrounding, focus, attenuation, etc.). Over time, these pragmatically marked complex predicates may become unmarked simple predicates. This second function of semantically generic verbs described by Güldemann is comparable to the functions of *ak*- and *ik*- in periphrastic verbs (see exx. (57)-(58) and section 7.12). Thirdly, semantically generic verbs in Northeast African languages may also be used as quotatives (glossed as QV):

Shona (Benue-Congo)

(66) va-bereki vaka-*ti* v-ana chi-mbo-garai pano
2-parent 2:REM.PST-QV 2-children POL-just-sit:IMP.P here
'The parents said, "Children, just sit down here!"'

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Moreover, some Northeast African languages (e.g., Afar (Cushitic), Tigre (Semitic), Dongola (Nubian); see Güldemann, op. cit.) have semantically generic verbs that correlate with transitivity. The main difference between SK *ik-* and *ak-* and the corresponding verbs in Northeast African languages appears to be that the latter do not work as general pro-verbs.

15.3.5. Malefactive Marking

There is yet one more type of transitivity agreement in SK, which has to do with the distribution of affective applicatives. SK has two affective applicatives, the benefactive / malefactive *-xon* and the dedicated malefactive *-(V)naan ~ -(V)n*. In order to convey malefactive meaning, only the former may be added to an intransitive verb, while a transitive verb requires the selection of the latter (see 17.2 and 17.3). The next sentences involve the intransitive *korá-* 'produce noise (several people)' and the transitive *keyo-* 'finish, exterminate;' as can be observed, this difference in transitivity status determines the selection of either *-xon* or *-nan* to signal malefactive meaning:

(67) Bake-baon-ra no-a korá-*xon*-ke. *-nan
child-PL:ERG-EV 1p-ABS produce.noise-CMPL
'The children made noise to our detriment.'

(68) Moa-tian joxo joni-bo jo-xon no-a *-xon
already-TEMP white person-PL:ABS come-PSSA 1p-ABS

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keyo-*nan*-kean-kan-a iki no-n yoina-bo.
finish-MAL-FRUSTR-PL-PP2 AUX 1p-GEN animal-PL:ABS
'Long time ago the white people came and almost exterminated our animals to our detriment.'

Whereas it is ungrammatical to attach the dedicated malefactive applicative to an intransitive verb (ex. (67)), the example immediately above could involve the marker -*xon* rather than -*nan* and still be grammatical although with an implausible benefactive meaning; i.e., 'Long time ago the white people came and almost exterminated our animals to our benefit.'

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CHAPTER 16

CAUSATIVIZATION

16.1. Introduction

Prototypical causation has been defined as a cluster of interactional properties (i.e., 'properties characterizable only in terms of the interaction of human beings as part of their environment,' Lakoff 1987:56), and the different types of causation as deviations from the prototype. A central instance of causation is a process in which a prototypical agent directly affects a perceptible change of state in a prototypical patient, and the affectation and subsequent effect are conceptualized as a single event[1] (Lakoff 1987:55, Lemmens 1998:21). Furthermore, Lakoff claims that in an instance of prototypical causation the 'agent is looking at the patient' and perceives the change. Verbs such as 'hit,' 'kill,' and 'break' are cited as good exemplars, although in these cases the notion of

[1] A prototypical agent has the positive features: volitional, inititator, controller, responsible, highly individualized and human; a prototypical patient is an affected, non-coreferential with the agent, highly individualized participant. Direct affectation implies the exertion of physical energy (by use of hands, body, or some instrument) without any intervening entity (Hopper and Thomspon 1980, Givón 1984, Lakoff 1987).

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causation is inherent or 'sublexical' in the sense that it is not coded separately (Langacker 1991:408, see also Lemmens 1998:27).

Within different linguistic frameworks (e.g., Transformational Grammar, Generative Semantics, Relational Grammar, Incorporation-Government and Binding Theory, Lexical-Functional Grammar) causative constructions have been characterized as derived structures resulting from the combination of two (or more) underlying syntactic or semantic units (Baker 1988:154; see also Kemmer and Verhagen 1994:115-6, Dixon 2000:30).[2] In Kemmer and Verhagen (1994), on the other hand, (analytic) causative constructions are seen as structurally and conceptually modeled on simple, i.e. noncausativized, constructions. These authors argue against the view that causative constructions derive, by reduction, from more complex underlying structures. Instead, causative constructions are seen as extensions or elaborations of noncausative clauses; namely, two-participant clauses, and three-participant clauses of the ditransitive or transitive plus instrumental complement types.[3] Consequently, the case-marking

[2] For example, from a Lexical-Functional Grammar perspective, causative constructions have been defined as complex predicates arising from the combination of a matrix causative predicate and an embedded base predicate. The matrix predicate takes two arguments, the causer and the caused event; the former affects or acts upon a participant of the latter. There are theory-specific mechanisms or principles that map argument structure to syntax and assign case. Although a complex predicate can be expressed synthetically or analytically, causative constructions are all assumed to have the same argument structure. In contrast, predicate composition (i.e., the combination of two argument structures to yield a single complex argument structure) is said to take place in the lexicon in the case of synthetic causatives (i.e., Chichewa) but in the syntax in analytic causatives (e.g., Catalan) (Alsina 1992, 1997).

[3] Kozinsky and Polinsky (1993:235) point out that the similarity between causative constructions and other clause types had been observed in Nedjalkov and Sil'nickij (1969); see also Shibatani (1976:29-31).

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alternations commonly found in causative constructions are seen as systematically related to the semantics of case-marking in noncausative clauses.[4]

This chapter, based on Valenzuela 2002a, investigates causative constructions in Shipibo-Konibo. As I will show, SK exhibits interesting characteristics, especially regarding the interplay between causative constructions and transitivity-related phenomena. It is also the aim of this chapter to explore how current conceptual frameworks dealing with causation account for the phenomena found in SK, and vice versa; i.e., how the facts of SK grammar can contribute to a better understanding of causation and the ways it is encoded in language.

Section 16.2 deals with the causativization strategies available in the language, their distribution, and the way they interact with transitivity, switch-reference and participant agreement in general. In section 16.3, I discuss semantic distinctions of causative constructions, especially the use of alternate means to express direct and indirect causation situations. Section 16.4 treats the interplay between the different scopes of adjuncts or adverbial-like elements and transitivity. Finally, section 16.5 summarizes the conclusions of the present chapter.

[4] The semantics of particular case-markers, as well as the relationship of case-marking alternations in noncausative and causative constructions, are also discussed in Cole (1983).

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16.2. Causativization: Forms and Structures

In section 10.3.1, three subclasses of verbs that can take clausal complements as their direct object have been described. Under one of these subclasses are found the manipulative non-implicative verbs: *keen-* 'want, wish;' *raan-* 'send (sb. (somewhere) to do sth.);' *yono-* 'order / send sb. (to work), ask for sth.;' *yokat-* 'ask (for) sth.,' and *axea-* 'teach, make sb. get used to sth.' Although constructions involving these verbs are not treated in the present chapter, it is worth pointing out that these might be considered as the only clear instances of periphrastic causativization in SK.

16.2.1. The General Causativizer *-Ma*

In SK, causative verb forms can arise from the addition to a verb stem of the general causativizer *-ma*.[5] The meaning of *-ma* can be said to be schematic since, depending on the constructional and pragmatic contexts in which it occurs, it translates into English 'make,' 'have,' 'cause,' 'let,' 'allow,' and even 'contribute' and 'invite.' Consider the following examples illustrating the different force-dynamics (Talmy 1985) of *-ma* constructions:

---

[5] Interestingly, David Payne (1990:77-8) lists a causative affix of the form */mV/* as one of five widespread grammatical forms in South America. In fact, the causative suffix *-mV* is not only found in Panoan and Takanan languages, but also in the Carib languages Apalaí, Hixkaryana (listed as a benefactive), and others; also, the causative suffix *-miti* is found in Aguaruna (Jivaroan). As causative prefix, *mV-* is found in certain Arawakan languages of the Pre-Andine and Southern branches, in the Tupi languages Tupinambá and Munduruku, as well as in Yuracaré, Ona, Pirahã, Nadëb and Yanomama. The form *m-* is found in Tehuelche and Trumai, and *ɨm-* in Mapudungun.

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(1) ...ja-ská-xon-ki xea-*ma*-kan-a iki meskó xeati...
that-SIML-PSSA-HSY2 drink-CAUS-PL-PP2 AUX different drink:ABS
'...then, they invited (him) different kinds of drinks...'

(2) ...paro rebo-n ka-xon.... jato noko-*ma*-yama-a iki.
river extreme-ALL go-PSSA 3p:ABS meet-CAUS-NEG-PP2 AUX
'...getting to the end of the (Ucayali) river... (she) didn't let them find her.'

The next sentence belongs to the context of the girl's fringe-cutting ceremony, which is part of the traditional puberty rites:

(3) Ja r-iki nokon bake, jakon-tani-shoko i-ke-ma-bi
that:ABS EV-COP POS1 child:ABS good-ATT-DIM be-PDS-NEG-EM

mato be-ste-*ma*-kas-kin e-n a-t-ai, kena
2p:ABS FOREHEAD-cut-CAUS-DES-SSSA 1-ERG do.T-PROGR-INC call

kena-*ma*-kin.
call-CAUS-SSSA
'This is my daughter, and although she is only a bit good / pretty, I have invited you all, wishing to have you cut her fringe.'

(4) Ja-tian ja xontako jawen tita-n
that-TEMP that unmarried.girl:ABS POS3 mother-ERG

xoi meni-*ma*-[a]i keen-yama-[a]i-bi...
roasted.meat/fish:ABS give-CAUS-INC want-NEG-SDS-EM
'Then, her$_j$ mother$_i$ makes the unmarried girl$_j$ give roasted meat / fish (to the man who had asked her in matrimony) even though she$_j$ doesn't want to...'

The specific type of force-dynamic relation may be encoded through a same-reference-marked clause which functions as a manner adjunct, as in (5b-d):

(5) a. E-n-ra jo-ma-ke.
1-ERG-EV come-CAUS-CMPL
'I made / had / allowed / invited him (to) come.'

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b. E-n-ra nini-xon jo-ma-ke.
1-ERG-EV pull-PSSA come-CAUS-CMPL
'I forced / obliged him to come, by pulling him.'

c. E-n-ra tea-res-kin jo-ma-ke.
1-ERG-EV bother-just-SSSA come-CAUS-CMPL
'I obliged / demanded him to come (by bothering him / insisting on it).'

d. E-n-ra mee-res-kin jo-ma-ke.
1-ERG-EV HAND-just-SSSA come-CAUS-CMPL
'I insisted / begged him to come (no physical contact necessarily).'

The weakest kinds of causation might be coded in an even more indirect way with the desired result expressed in a separate subordinate clause. Thus, in the following example the causativizer *-ma* is not attached to the result predicate but to *shinan-* 'think, plan, consider:'

(6) a. E-n-ra mi-a shinan-ma-kas-ai jo-ti.
1-ERG-EV 2-ABS think-CAUS-DES-INC come-INF
'I suggest that you come (lit. I wish to make you consider come).'
(Also, 'I want to remind you to come.')

An even more semantically indirect possibility is to use the associative applicative *-kin* instead of the causativizer *-ma*:

b. E-n-ra mi-a shinan-*kin*-kas-ai jo-ti.
1-ERG-EV 2-ABS think-ASSOC-DES-INC come-INF
'I'd suggest that you come (lit. I wish to accompany you in considering to come. / I wish to consider with you the possibility of coming).'

An area of functional overlap between the causativizer *-ma* and the associative applicative *-kin* can be attested in what Dixon (2000:62, 73) calls the 'involvement

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parameter' in relationship to the causer, and Shibatani and Pardeshi (2002) refer to as 'sociative causation.' Thus, a sentence like (7) may render a sociative causation, a comitative, or an assistive reading (notice that ex. (6) might also be interpreted as an instance of sociative causation):

(7) Yoxaman-ra bake bachi-n jiki-*kin*-ke.
old.woman:ERG-EV child:ABS mosquito.net-ALL enter-ASSOC-CMPL
'The old woman made the child enter the mosquito net (by entering herself). / The old woman accompanied the child into the mosquito net. / The old woman helped the child enter the mosquito net.'

SK allows for the causer to be a force; i.e., a non-volitional, inanimate nature-meteorological entity seen as ultimate cause. Moreover, the only way to express the equivalent of the English 'drown (intr.)' is in a transitive construction with 'kill,' coding the flowing water[6] as the A argument and the participant undergoing drowning as O:[7]

---

[6] *Jene* 'flowing water' is distinguished from *onpax* 'contained water,' see exx. (9), (59), and (68).

[7] DeLancey (1984:208) noted that languages such as English and Hare (Athabaskan) allow forces in A function, given that they are interpreted as direct, ultimate causes. However, since forces are incapable of volitional action, both languages have preferred alternative constructions where these are rather coded as obliques (English and Hare examples from DeLancey 1984:208):

POSSIBLE
(i) Lightning killed him.
(ii) 'idikóné' ye-wéhxį
lightning 3OBJ-killed
'Lightning killed him.'

PREFERRED
(iii) He was killed by lightning.
(iv) 'idikóné' k'é lánįwe
lightning died
'He died from / due to lightning.'

Hence, SK 'drown' is noteworthy, not in the flowing water's potential to function as transitive subject, but in that the given structure is the only possible way to code this meaning. This characteristic is related to the lack of a promotional passive.

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(8) Jene-n-ronki bake-bo rete-ke.
flowing.water-ERG-HSY child-PL:ABS kill-CMPL
'(I heard that) the children drowned (lit. the flowing water killed the children).'

In turn, the equivalent of the transitive 'drown (somebody)' is a causativized predicate with the flowing water coded as causee; here, the causer is animate:

(9) ...Bai Shita-n-ki jato yatan-xon jene
Bai Shita-ERG-HSY2 3p:ABS catch-PSSA flowing.water:ABS

rete-ma-pake-a iki.
kill-CAUS-DISTR-PP2 AUX
'...the Bai Shita held them and drowned them one by one (lit. held them and caused the flowing water to kill (them) one by one).' (Soi Rawa 1995:17)

Two further examples of force causees are:

(10) E-n-ra koshon-xon oi be-ma-ke.
1-ERG-EV bewitch.w/tobacco-PSSA rain:ABS come.n.SG-CAUS-CMPL
'Bewitching with tobacco smoke, I caused the rain (to come).'

(11) Yobekan-ra mayan niwe xontako a-ma-ke.
sorcerer:ERG-EV whirlwind:ABS unmarried.girl:ABS do.T-CAUS-CMPL
'The sorcerer caused the whirlwind to harm the unmarried girl.'[8]

SK *-ma* can be combined with all kinds of verb stems. So far, I have included instances of ditransitive (ex. (4)), transitive (exx. (1), (2), (3), (6), (9), and (11)), and active intransitive (exx. (5) and (10)) predicates causativized by the addition of *-ma*.

[8] The whirlwind is considered a negative spirit. When the whirlwind reaches somebody, it causes this person to suffer health problems.

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Below, I include examples involving different kinds of intransitive base predicates whose subjects cannot be said to be active participants:

The S-argument is an experiencer:

(12) E-a-ra xontako-nin waste-n-xon
1-ABS unmarried.girl-ERG *piripiri*-TRNZ-PSSA

keen-ma-ke / shinanbeno-ma-ke.
want-CAUS-CMPL slip.the.mind-CAUS-CMPL
'The unmarried girl made me love / forget her by treating me with *piripiri*.'

(13) Mi-n-ra tita siná-ma-ke koríki yoi-xon.
2-ERG-EV mother:ABS (become)angry-CAUS-CMPL money tell-PSSA
'You made mother get angry, telling her about the money (e.g., that you lost).'

(14) Mi-n-ra tita bene-ma-ke koríki yoi-xon.
2-ERG-EV mother:ABS (become)happy-CAUS-CMPL money tell-PSSA
'You made mother feel happy, telling her about the money (e.g., you earned).'

(15) Mi-n-ra tita rabin-ma-ke yometso-xon.
2-ERG-EV mother:ABS (become)ashamed-CAUS-CMPL be.thief-PSSA
'You made mother feel ashamed, having stolen.'

The S-argument is a patient:

(16) Ja-n-ra e-a niskan-ma-ke tobí a-xon.
3-ERG-EV 1-ABS sweat-CAUS-CMPL dislocated.bodypart:ABS do.T-PSSA
'S/he made me sweat massaging the area of my dislocated bodypart (to reset it).'

(17) E-a-ra nokon patóro-nin nomi-ma-ke.
1-ABS -EV POS1 master-ERG be.thirsty-CAUS-CMPL
'My master made me undergo thirst (he didn't give me anything to drink while working the whole day).'

(18) E-a-ra piti tashianka-nin nomi-ma-ke.
1-ABS-EV fish salted-ERG be.thirsty-CAUS-CMPL
'The salty fish (I ate) made me feel thirsty.'

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(19) E-n-ra Piko neté-ma-ke.
1-ERG-EV Piko:ABS (become)quiet-CAUS-CMPL
'I made Piko become quiet (either by asking him to shut up or by putting my hand on his mouth.'

(20) ...nishi xea-xon-ki Iskon Niwe-n jawen yora
rope:ABS drink-PSSA-HSY2 Iskon Niwe-ERG POS3 body:ABS

yoshin-ma-[a]i, saki saki-i i-non kaman.
(become)spirit-CAUS-INC tremble tremble-SSSS be-FDS LIM
'...drinking *ayahuasca*, Iskon Niwe made his body turn into spirit until it trembled repeatedly.'

Note that ex. (18) combines a patient causee with an inanimate causer.

Inherently transitive verbs can become intransitive by taking the middle suffix *-t*, which has different allomorphs. Although the derived intransitives may take either an S_a or an S_o argument, in most cases addition of *-t* triggers a reflexive, anticausative or even a passive meaning (ex. (32), 7.4.3 and 18.1). The causativizer *-ma* can be added to these decausatives, as shown in Table 16.1 (this is unlike the situation found in Japanese and other languages as discussed in Shibatani and Pardeshi 2002:86-87):

Table 16.1. Addition of *-Ma* to Decausative Stems

	Transitive	Decausative Intransitive	Decausative + *-ma* Transitive
'burn'	meno-	meno-t-	menó-ma-
'take out'	piko-	piko-t-	pikó-ma-
'meet'	noko-	noko-t-	nokó-ma-
'drop'	pake-	pake-t-	paké-ma-
'hide'	jone-	jone-t-	joné-ma-
'break'	toe-	toe-t-	toé-ma-
'straighten'	ponte-	ponte-t-	ponté-ma-
'open'	chope-	chope-t-	chopé-ma-

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'wash face'	choka-	chokiit-	chokí-ma-
'peel'	xoka-	xokoot-	xokó-ma-
'turn over'	naranbe-	naranbeet-	naranbee-ma-
'comb'	boex-	boexeet-	boexee-ma-
'open'	kepen-	kepemee-	kepemee-ma-
'hang'	rontan-	rontamee-	rontamee-ma-

As shown in the previous sentences in this section, in SK *-ma* constructions the single or A argument of the base predicate is necessarily coded as the O of the causativized predicate, and is thus marked absolutive. When the subject of the base predicate is an A argument, its A / O alternation is reflected in the case-marking change from ergative to absolutive:

(21) *Rabi-n*-ra bi-ke mecha joni.
Rabi-ERG-EV get-CMPL good.fisher/hunter person:ABS
'Rabi got (as husband) a good fisherman / hunter.'

(22) Tita betan papa-n-ra *Rabi* bi-ma-ke
mother and father-ERG-EV Rabi:ABS get-CAUS-CMPL

mecha joni
good.fisher/hunter person:ABS
'Mother and father made Rabi get (as husband) a good fisherman / hunter.'

The transitivity increase produced by *-ma* can also be seen in the selection of the appropriate pro-verb in answers to polar questions,

(23) a. Rabi-ki beno-a?
Rabi:ABS-INT get.married-PP2
'Did Rabi get married?'

b. *Ik*-í / *ik*-[y]áma
do.I-SSSS / do.I-NEG
'Yes / No'

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c. Rabi-ki beno-*ma*-a?
Rabi:ABS-INT get.married-CAUS-PP2
'Did s/he make Rabi get married?'

d. *A*-kin / *ak*-[y]áma
do.T-SSSA do.T-NEG
'Yes / No'

and in the selection of the appropriate locative adjunct forms functioning as a conjunction. Ex. (24a) contains the intransitive middle-marked stem *benxokaa-* 'get ready;' however, in (24b), the stem takes the causativizer *-ma* and hence the conjunction changes in correlation with the transitivity of the subsequent predicate:

(24) a. Kesin-ra nashi-ke *jainoa-x* benxokaa-ke.
Kesin:ABS-EV bathe-CMPL there:ABL-S get.ready-CMPL
'Kesin took a bath and got ready.'

b. Kesin-ra nashi-ke *jain-xon* benxokaa-*ma*-ke.
Kesin:ABS-EV bathe-CMPL there-A get.ready-CAUS-CMPL
'Kesin took a bath and made (her / him) get ready.'

The causative *-ma* can occur recursively as shown below:

(25) E-n-ra mi-a kirika bo-*ma-ma-ma*-ke.
1-ERG-EV 2-ABS letter:ABS carry-CAUS-CAUS-CAUS-CMPL
'I had her / him have her / him send you a letter.'

It is also possible for *-ma* to co-occur with applicatives in the same verb. In these cases, *-ma* generally precedes the applicatives (but see ex. (193) in Ch. 17):

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(26) Moa-ra mi-n e-a chomo toe-*ma-anaan*-ke.
already-EV 2-ERG 1-ABS jar:ABS break:MID-CAUS-MAL-CMPL
'Already you made the jar break, to my detriment.' (Valenzuela 1997:128-9)

(27) E-n-ra mi-n bake mi-a nonti a-*ma-xon*-ke.
1-ERG-EV 2-GEN child:ABS 2-ABS canoe:ABS do.T-CAUS-BEN-CMPL
'On your behalf I made your son construct a canoe.' (Valenzuela 1997:129)

Given that causees are marked absolutive regardless of the valency of their base predicate, in causative constructions with a transitive base predicate both the causee and the "affectee"[9] are marked in the same way. In this respect, SK differs from what appears to be the most common pattern cross-linguistically; i.e., that causees are marked differently from affectees and intransitive causees are marked differently from transitive causees (Comrie 1976). This fact of SK causative constructions can be accounted for straightforwardly if we view them as extensions of simple transitive and ditransitive clauses (Kemmer and Verhagen 1994:123-4). Recall that in SK the patient and the goal of a ditransitive construction are marked absolutive.[10] Furthermore, since SK does not impose restrictions either on double causativization or on combinations of causativization and applicativization, it is possible to have several absolutive-marked arguments in the

[9] Kemmer and Verhagen (1994) define the affectee as 'the endpoint of the energy (physical or metaphorical) expended in the entire causative event...' (p. 119).

[10] I am not dealing here with a few verbs / constructions that may allow the causee to be marked with the comitative postposition *betan*. One of these instances is illustrated by the sentence below, where the associative marking on the causee seems to be triggered, partially, by the unusually large number of arguments (see also ex. (206a) in Ch. 17):

(v) Joni-baon-ronki jato-n papa mawat-a-ton kaya kena-ma-kan-ai
person-PL:ERG-HSY 3p-GEN father die-PP2-GEN soul:ABS call-CAUS-PL-INC

meráya betan.
meráya COM
'The people have their late fathers' souls called by the *meráya*.'

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same clause as illustrated in example (27) above (cf. Givón 1976:333-5 and 339-40 for restrictions on causativization in some Bantu languages).

16.2.2. Other Causativization Strategies

An interesting characteristic of SK grammar is the fact that nouns, adjectives and even adjuncts and postpositions can take verbal affixation directly without requiring any formal derivation. Crucially, most verbs do require special overt derivation to function as nonpredicates. Thus, a root such as *nenké* can be analyzed both as an adjective, 'long,' or an inactive intransitive verb with its only argument having the patient-of-change semantic role, i.e. 'become long.'[11] These adjectival roots causativize by the addition of */ak/*, also realized just as */a/* especially in Shipibo as opposed to Konibo; this morpheme most probably corresponds to the semantically generic transitive verb *ak-* 'do (tr.), make, tell.' Examples (28) and (29) illustrate the use of */nenké/* in adjective and predicate functions, while (30) shows the causativized stem:

(28) Westíora nishi *nenké*-pari e-a bi-xon-we!
one rope long:ABS-first 1-ABS get-BEN-IMP
'First, get me a long rope!'

(29) Tita-n mapó taran-a-ra *nenké*-ke.
mother-ERG clay:ABS knead-PP2:ABS-EV (become)long-CMPL
'The clay that mother had kneaded became long(er).'

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[11] Notice that the English equivalent of *nenké-* is a periphrastic derivation, while a morphological derivation of English adjectives results in transitive verbs as in the alternations short/shorten, sick / sicken, dark / darken (also intransitive), large / enlarge.

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(30) Joni-boan-ra jato-n-bi tsinkíti *nenké* *a*-kan-ai.
person-PL:ERG-EV 3p:ERG-EM meeting:ABS (become)long do.T-PL-INC
'The people themselves make the meeting (become) longer.'

In addition to adjectival roots, adjuncts and postpositions can also causativize with */ak/*, as well as a group of noun and verb roots.[12] For example: *bebon* 'in the front, in front of,' *bebon-* 'get to the front,' *bebon a(k)-* 'put something in the front;' *ota* 'shadow,' *ota-* 'become shadowy,' *ota a(k)-* 'shade (tr.).'

A third causativizer is the suffix *-n*, which applies to a restricted number of noun and intransitive verb roots to yield transitive-causative stems. When combined with nouns, *-n* contributes the meaning of affecting somebody using that which is referred to by the noun; i.e., a kind of instrumental causativizer (6.4.1). Consider the following example with the noun root *rao* 'medicine (generally plants):'

(31) Moa-tian nawa-n *rao*-bo yama-katit-ai, no-n
already-TEMP outsider-GEN medicine-PL:ABS exist.not-PST4-INC 1p-GEN

rao-n-bi-ribi payó-bo *rao-n*-kati-kan-ai.
medicine-TRNZ-EM-REP wounds-PL:ABS medicine-TRNZ-PST3-PL-INC
'Long time ago, there were no Western medicines, and they (our ancestors) cured the (infected) wounds with our own medicine.'

In (32), the causativized stem *rao-n-* 'treat someone with medicine' is further decausativized thus resulting in *raomeet-* 'be treated (with medicine)' (the form *rao-n-ma-* is found in ex. (55)):

[12] I am not including here the instances where */ak/* follows a concrete noun and has the meaning 'build, manufacture;' e.g., *xobo ak-* 'build (a) house,' *nonti ak-* 'build a canoe,' *chopa ak-* 'make cloth.'

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(32) No-a jain wirákocha-bo keská raomeet-[t]i
1p-ABS there white.people-PL SIML medicine:TRNZ:MID-INF

xobo-oma iki, ospital-oma iki.
house-PRIV COP hospital-PRIV COP
'Unlike the white people, we have no houses where to be treated; we have no hospitals.'

Other instances of "instrumental causativization" are: *axa* 'kind of plant poison' / *axa-n-* '(to) poison fish,' *joi* 'word' / *joi-n-* 'criticize,' *xeni* 'fat' / *xeni-n-* 'grease something,' *waste* '*piripiri*' / *waste-n-* 'change somebody's behavior by treating him / her with *piripiri*' (ex. (12)), *bata* 'sweet, sugar' / *bata-n* 'sweeten.' *-N* can also be added to a few intransitive roots like *oxa-* 'sleep' / *oxa-n-* 'put to sleep,' *pani-* 'hang (intr.)' / *pani-n-* 'hang (trans.),' *kesha-* 'confess (intr.)' / *kesha-n-* 'tell, give notice:'

(33) a. Ani texó jiwi-n-ra nato shino pani-ai.
big *quinilla* tree-LOC-EV this monkey:ABS hang-INC
'This monkey (usually) hangs on the big *quinilla* tree.'

b. Nokon koka-n awinin-ra jawen chopa patsa-a
POS1 maternal.uncle-GEN wife:ERG-EV POS3 clothes wash-PP2:ABS

pani-n-ai.
hang-TRNZ-INC
'My maternal uncle's wife is hanging her recently washed clothes.'

As described in 4.3., the suffix *-n* also takes part in double derivation processes involving a closed set of roots which refer to body postures or movements to enter into a posture, and which are neutral in terms of transitivity. The corresponding decausativizer

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is the middle suffix *-t*. The root *raka-* 'lying position' is used here to illustrate the double derivation process:

(34) …bo-xon kawin taraman-ki raka-*n*-kan-a iki.
carry-PSSA rush.mat extend:LOC-HSY2 lying.position-TRNZ-PL-PP2 AUX
'…carrying [the white-lipped peccaries] they laid them on the extended rush mat.'

(35) Nato yawa rabé rete-kan-a raka-*t*-a
this white.lipped.peccary two:ABS kill-PL-PO>S lying.position-*t*-PP2:ABS

chopa bi-xon mapo-we!
cloth:ABS get-PSSA cover-IMP
'Get a cloth and cover these two white-lipped peccaries that [they] have killed and that are lying (there)!'

16.2.3. Alternate Auxiliarization

As described in 4.7 and 8.2.7, there is also a set of (often obvious) onomatopoeic roots that can be used either transitively or intransitively depending on the semantically generic verb or auxiliary they take. Thus, a root such as *kobin* combined with the intransitive auxiliary *ik-* means 'boil (intr.),' while the same root plus the transitive auxiliary *ak-* results in 'boil (tr.).' Two further examples are *biski ik-* 'to shake oneself' versus *biski ak-* 'to shake something;' *shee ik-* 'fry (intr.) versus *shee ak-* 'fry (tr.).'

I will return to alternate auxiliarization in 16.3.4.

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16.2.4. 'Come' / 'Bring' and 'Go' / 'Carry'

As treated in 4.5 and 15.3.3, the selection of the suppletive verb pairs *jo- / be-* and *ka- / bo-* is determined on the basis of number and transitivity-causality grounds. That is, *jo-* 'come (singular)' and *ka-* 'go (singular)' have a singular and intransitive meaning, while their suppletive counterparts *be-* 'come (non-singular), bring' and *bo-* 'go (non-singular), carry' are their non-singular / causative counterparts.

16.2.5. On the Syntactic Status of Causatives

SK overtly distinguishes monoclausal from multiclausal constructions (crucially, a clause cannot end in a verb root or stem but must take a final finite or non-finite marker), and it is obvious that the causativized predicates discussed here are monoclausal. However, a question that arises is whether all these processes constitute instances of synthetic derivation, where the cause and the result predicate are expresed in a single word composed of two morphemes, or whether there are also cases of analytic causativization with cause and effect being expressed through different words.

Although in most cases */ak/* is realized as phonologically bound to the base predicate, it seems to be the case that its syntactic status is somewhat different from that of the remaining causativizers.[13] Unlike *-ma* and *-n, /ak/* behaves, at least to a certain

[13] While *-ma* and *-n* are clearly morphological causativizers, phonologically bound to their stem, the status of */ak/* is not clear in this respect. For example, Loriot, Lauriault, and Day (1993:96-7) distinguish between *xobo a-ti* 'build a house' and *xobo-a-ti* 'house build,' thus providing evidence for different stages of

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extent, as a more independent element. Consider the following examples, where two roots coding the resulting change of state can be coordinated through the conjunction *itan* and the cause predicate occurs only once, following the conjoined sequence:[14]

(36) E-n-ra lejía-nin soro pené itan
1-ERG-EV bleach-INST *sol*.coin:ABS (become)shiny CONJ

bená a-ke.
(become)new do.T-CMPL
'I made the *sol* coin look shiny and look like new.'

(37) E-n-ra xobo nenké itan naxbá a-ke.
1-ERG-EV house:ABS (become)long CONJ wide do.T-CMPL
'I made the house longer and wider.'

(38) E-n-ra bake mankoa-nin potó itan
1-ERG-EV child:ABS mango-MNS (become)full CONJ

keras a-ke.
(become)dirty do.T-CMPL
'With the mangos, I made the child become stuffed and dirty.'

In contrast, when causativizing with *-ma*, there is no possibility of coordinating two result predicates without having *-ma* repeated.[15] The following sentences include two alternative ways to express the equivalent to the English 'Jisbe made them burn the chacra and build the house.' Notice that only the sentences where *-ma* is repeated after each caused predicate are grammatical:

---

grammaticalization of *ak-* 'do (tr.), make.' See Shibatani and Pardeshi (2002), who propose a continuum in the formal dimension, both inter- and intra-linguistically. For a more exhaustive contrast of the syntactic differences between morphological versus syntactic causativization, see Alsina 1997:221).

[14] Although phonologically bound, I am transcribing the adjetival root plus */a(k)/* sequence as two independent words, as a way to highlight its peculiar syntactic properties.

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(39) a. Jisbe-n-ra jato wai meno-*ma*-xon xobo
Jisbe-ERG-EV 3p:ABS chacra:ABS burn-CAUS-PSSA house:ABS

a-*ma*-ribi-ke.
do.T-CAUS-REP-CMPL

b. *Jisbe-n-ra jato wai meno-xon
Jisbe-ERG-EV 3p:ABS chacra:ABS burn-PSSA

xobo a-*ma*-ribi-ke.
house:ABS do.T-CAUS-REP-CMPL

c. Jisbe-n-ra jato wai meno-*ma*-ke jain-xon
Jisbe-ERG-EV 3p:ABS chacra:ABS burn-CAUS-CMPL there-A

xobo a-*ma*-ribi-ke.
house:ABS do.T-CAUS-REP-CMPL

d. *Jisbe-n-ra jato wai meno jain-xon
Jisbe-ERG-EV 3p:ABS chacra:ABS burn there-A

xobo a-ma-ribi-ke.
house:ABS do.T-CAUS-REP-CMPL
'Jisbe made them burn the chacra and build the house.'

The sentences below illustrate the same claim, this time with base predicates taking a single argument. The English equivalent is 'Jisbe made the child cry and dance:'

(40) a. Jisbe-n-ra bake wini-*ma*-xon-bi
Jisbe-ERG-EV child:ABS cry-CAUS-PSSA-EM

ransa-*ma*-ribi-ke.
dance-CAUS-REP-CMPL

[15] When trying to elicit sentences such as (39b) and (39d) below, one language consultant explained to me that those sentences were not correct because 'the *meno* (part) is incomplete' (Ronon Meni, p.c. 2000).

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b. *Jisbe-n-ra bake wini-xon-bi ransa-*ma*-ribi-ke.
Jisbe-ERG-EV child:ABS cry-PSSA-EM dance-CAUS-REP-CMPL

c. Jisbe-n-ra bake wini-*ma*-ke jain-xon
Jisbe-ERG-EV child:ABS cry-CAUS-CMPL there-A

ransa-*ma*-ribi-ke.
dance-CAUS-REP-CMPL

d. *Jisbe-n-ra bake wini jain-xon ransa-*ma*-ribi-ke.
Jisbe-ERG-EV child:ABS cry there-A dance-CAUS-REP-CMPL
'Jisbe made the child cry and dance.'

Furthermore, it is possible to causativize adjectival roots by using *-ma* instead of */ak/* (with a slightly different meaning, see section 16.3.1). However, in these instances, it is ungrammatical to coordinate the two result predicates using the causativizer only once:

(41) a. E-n-ra bake ani-*ma*-ke jain-xon
1-ERG-EV child:ABS (become)big-CAUS-CMPL there-A

xoa-*ma*-ke.
(become)fat-CAUS-CMPL

b. *E-n-ra bake ani jain-xon xoa-*ma*-ke.
1-ERG-EV child:ABS (become)big there-A (become)fat-CAUS-CMPL

c. *E-n-ra bake ani itan xoa-*ma*-ke.
1-ERG-EV child:ABS big CONJ fat-CAUS-CMPL
'I caused the child to grow and get fat.'

Hence, the causativizer */ak/*, at least with adjectival roots, shows more structural independence than the general causativizer *-ma*, since it allows for independent words to occur between the result predicate and itself. This formal characteristic is compatible with the fact that */ak/* is semantically transparent while *-ma* and *-n* are not. Nevertheless,

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the same degree of structural dependency is not shown by the transitive auxiliary *ak-*, despite their formal and etymological identity and the fact that *ak-* is not phonologically bound to the base stem to its left (this last feature is evidenced by the frequent realization of a glottal stop or little pause between the stem and the auxiliary *ak-*). This can be seen in the following sentences, showing that coordination of two accompanying predicates is not possible unless the auxiliary is repeated:

(42) a. E-n-ra yapa kobin *ak*-ai jain-xon
1-ERG-EV fish:ABS ONOM:boil do.T-INC there-A

xeni shee *ak*-ai.
fat:ABS ONOM:fry do.T- INC

b. *E-n-ra yapa kobin jain-xon xeni shee *ak*-ai.
1-ERG-EV fish:ABS ONOM:boil there-A fat:ABS ONOM:fry do.T-INC
'I boiled the fish and fried the fat.'

(43) a. E-n-ra nami shee *ak*-ai ja-pekao kobin *ak*-ai.
1-ERG-EV meat:ABS ONOM:fry do.T-INC that-after ONOM:boil do.T-INC

b. *E-n-ra nami shee ja-pekao kobin *ak*-ai.
1-ERG-EV meat:ABS ONOM:fry that-after ONOM:boil do.T-INC
'I fried the meat and then boiled it.'

Another property of causative constructions involving an adjectival root plus */ak/* is the possibility of inserting in-between modifying "less-fixed" clitics such as the intensifier *-shaman*, the diminutive *-shoko*, and the attenuative *-tani*:

(44) Mi-n-ra papashoko raro-tani a-ke.
2-ERG-EV grandfather:ABS (become)happy-ATT do.T-CMPL
'You made grandfather a little bit happy.'

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(45) E-n-ra tapo keyá-shoko a-ke.
1-ERG-EV palm-bark.floor:ABS (become)high-DIM do.T-CMPL
'I made the palm-bark floor somewhat high.'

(46) E-n-ra xobo kikin ani-shaman ak-ai.
2-ERG-EV house:ABS very (become)big-INTENS do.T-CMPL
'You made the house quite large.'

The root *bata* '(become) sweet' allows for causativization through */ak/* and *-n*, thus resulting in the transitive 'sweeten.' While the former mechanism allows for insertion of the diminutive *-shoko* directly after the root, the same is not possible with *-n*:

(47) a. E-n-ra xeati bata a-ke.
1-ERG-EV drink:ABS (become)sweet do.T-CMPL

b. E-n-ra xeati bata-n-ke.
1-ERG-EV drink:ABS (become)sweet-TRNZ-CMPL
'I sweetened the drink.'

c. E-n-ra xeati bata-shoko a-ke.
1-ERG-EV drink:ABS sweet-DIM do.T-CMPL

d. *E-n-ra xeati bata-shoko-n-ke
1-ERG-EV drink:ABS sweet-DIM-TRNZ-CMPL
'I sweetened the drink a little bit.'

Therefore, in formal terms, causativization through */ak/* differs from other similar processes in SK. The */ak/* causative construction may be analyzed as a kind of compound predicate, comparable to the French *faire* causative construction; the latter, despite occurring next to the caused predicate in most cases, allows some adverbs and the negative to occur in-between.

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16.2.6. Causativization and the Determination of Reference

According to Weber (1989:306; see also pp. 12, 292-3), in Huallaga Quechua reference-marking applies prior to causativization; that is, reference-markers must combine with the base predicates rather than with the causativized predicates. In SK, reference-marking is determined in terms of the cause predicate. In the following complex sentence, each clause contains a cause predicate, expressed through the transitive auxiliary *ak-* and the suffix *-ma*, respectively. In both clauses, the subject of the basic intransitive predicate is the sugar cane juice and the subject of the causativized predicate a third person plural participant. Therefore, the mere use of a same-subject marker would not make it clear whether establishment of reference applies before or after causativization. Nevertheless, recall that SK same-subject markers additionally code the syntactic function of the controller or matrix clause subject, thus revealing the transitivity status of the matrix clause; the presence of *-xon* indicates that the marked clause is A-controlled and the corresponding matrix clause is necessarily transitive. Therefore, in (48) below, it is clear that causativization is taking place prior to reference-marking:

(48) …xawi jene kobin a-*xon*
sugar.cane juice:ABS ONOM:boil do.T-PSSA

pae-ma-kan-a iki.
become.sour-CAUS-PL-PP2 AUX
'…they boiled the cane juice and let it ferment.'

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In the following sentence, the use of the same-subject marker *-ax* indicates that the participants going to Caco are coreferential with the causers of the first clause; hence causativization is prior to reference-marking, again:

(49) Rabi beno-ma-[a]x-ra Kako-nko bo-kan-ke.
Rabi:ABS get.married-CAUS-PSSS-EV Caco-ALL go.n.SG-PL-CMPL
'After making Rabi get married, they went to Caco (maybe with Rabi and her husband too).

The morpheme *-a* indicating object-to-subject coreference also shows that in the example below causativization precedes the establishment of reference:

(50) Tita betan papa-n beno-ma-a-ra Rabi
mother COM father-ERG get.married-CAUS-PO>S/A-EV Rabi:ABS

Kako-nko ka-ke.
Caco-ALL go-CMPL
'After mother and father made her get married, Rabi went to Caco.'

16.3. Semantic Aspects: Direct versus Indirect Causation

This section deals with two types of semantic distinctions involving causativization. First, I examine the use of alternate strategies in coding direct versus indirect causation, discussing the semantic specifications that may be involved in the given distinction. Secondly, I discuss the restrictions on the use of a given causativization mechanism, that I view as particularly associated with the degree of animacy of the causee, and hence its potential for being an initiator.

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So far, I have focused on constructions in which different causativizing morphemes can be analyzed as occuring in complementary distribution depending, roughly, on the nature of the predicate to which they are attached. However, not surprisingly, SK has also alternate ways to causativize the same basic predicate. It has been widely argued that alternate causative constructions are semantically nonequivalent since they reflect differences in the conceptualization of a given extra-linguistic situation; it is this difference in conceptualization that leads to alternate grammatical construals (Fodor 1970; Shibatani 1976:28-38; Hetzron 1976; Wierzbicka 1980; Cole 1983; Haiman 1983; Lemmens 1998:21; inter alia). The various semantic distinctions have been subsumed in the familiar opposition between "direct" versus "indirect" causation, for which Kemmer and Verhagen (1994:120) offer the following parameters: physical vs. nonphysical, direct vs. mediated, and cause *per se* vs. enablement and permission. In turn, Dixon (2000:61-78) proposes an elaborate set of nine partially interdependent parameters found cross-linguistically. First, a distinction is made between states and actions. Next, control, volition and affectedness in relation to the causee are discussed. In relation to the causer, the parameters identified are directness, intention, naturalness, and involvement. Finally, Shibatani and Pardeshi (2002) establish the distinction between direct vs. indirect causation in terms of two basic causative situations, from which secondary, prototypical manifestations may be derived. These two situations are dependent on the way the causee is conceptualized; thus, direct causation is defined as a situation involving an agentive causer and a patientive causee, while in an indirect causation situation both the causer and the causee are agentive participants.

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Among the most well known coding mechanisms employed to express the direct-indirect causation distinction are: lexical vs. periphrastic causatives, morphological vs. periphrastic causatives, and alternate codings of the causee. In his typology of causatives, Dixon (2000:63-77) includes other mechanisms attested cross-linguistically such as alternate affixes, sequence of affixes, affix versus particle, affix versus phoneme mutation, reduplication, and tense-aspect-modality distinctions. As I will show, in SK it is possible to code direct as opposed to indirect causation by selecting different causativizing mechanisms. A second possibility is a construction which combines detransitivizing and transitivizing processes on the same stem; arguably, in order to decrease the force-dynamics of an inherently direct causative, to further assign it an enablement meaning. Furthermore, there are sets of more than two alternate constructions involving lexical and morphological changes.

16.3.1. Alternate Causativizers

In section 16.2.1, *-ma* was characterized as the more general causativizer, both in terms of its distribution as well as of the range of causation types it can encode; in addition, *-ma* is the only causativizer that can occur recursively or follow other causativizers. It will be shown here that, when alternate causative constructions are possible, it is the one containing *-ma* that will express the least direct type of causation. To return to a classic example, the verb stem *mawá-ma-* ('die' + *-ma*) is best translated as to 'let someone die,' and not as to 'kill.' For instance, *mawá-ma-* would be appropriate when somebody is

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taking care of a sick person and this person dies. The idea of 'kill' is expressed through a different verb root, *rete-*:[16]

(51) E-n-ra nokon bake mawá-ma-kean[17]-ke ishton
1-ERG-EV POS1 child:ABS die-CAUS-almost-CMPL quickly

onanya-iba bo-yama-xon.
onanya-CHEZ carry-NEG-PSSA
'I almost caused my son to die, by not taking him to the *onanya* quickly.'

(52) E-n-ra misho rete-kean-ke nokon kawá pi-ke-tian.
1-ERG-EV cat:ABS kill-almost-CMPL POS1 wrapped:ABS eat-P-DS
'I almost killed the cat for having eaten my *patarashca* (fish wrapped in a leaf and roasted).'

A similar distinction is found in alternate constructions involving *-ma* and */ak/*. It seems to be always the case that the expressions containing *-ma* code less direct causation than those containing */ak/*. Thus, in the examples below, the stem *benxo-ma-* is given a mediative interpretation 'to have someone cured (by somebody else),' for example by taking her / him to the shaman; as opposed to the direct *benxo a(k)-* 'to cure somebody' (e.g., if one is a shaman or knows how to use plants):

(53) No-n onan-ya-bo-iba no-a isin-ai-tian bo-xon
1p-GEN *onanya*-PL-CHEZ 1p-ABS get.sick-S-DS carry-PSSA

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[16] It may be interesting to point out that the relationship between 'die' and 'kill,' expressed via suppletive roots in SK, is coded by morphological means in the genetically-related language Kashibo-Kakataibo: *bama-* 'die' vs. *bama-mi-* (die-CAUS)'kill' (Shell 1987:91-2). In a third Panoan language, Marobo, 'die' and 'kill' are also expressed by distinct roots although different from those found in SK: /ˈvupi/ 'die' vs. /yamama/ 'kill' (Costa 1998:pp.68, 76). However, in SK the form /yamama/ would clearly be analyzable as causative: *yama-* negative existential + *–ma* causative.

[17] The adverbial modification 'almost' is coded as a suffix attached to the verb stem, I will return to this in the following section.

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no-a *benxo-ma*-i / *benxo a-[a]i
1p-ABS get.well-CAUS-INC
'When we get sick (our parents) take us to the *onanya* and have us cured.'

(54) Ikaxbi ja-ska-ra jakon-ma shinan-ya joni-bo no-n
but that-SIML-*ra* good-NEG think-PROPR person-PL:ABS 1-ERG

benxo a-ti atipan-ke rao-n-xon. / **benxo-ma*-ti
get.well do.T-INF can-CMPL medicine-TRNZ-PSSA
'But we can cure this kind of bad men by treating them with (plant) medicine.'

(55) Nokon bene mee-mis i-ke-tian-ra e-n nokon
POS1 husband:ABS HAND-HAB:AGTZ do.I-P-DS-EV 1-ERG POS1

tita *rao-n-ma*-ke.
mother:ABS medicine-TRNZ-CAUS-CMPL
'Since my husband used to beat me, I had my mother cure him with (plant) medicine (in order to change his behavior).'

What the female speakers are referring to in (54) and (55), is that, according to Shipibo culture, men with a bad behavior can be made to change by having them drink, without them realizing, a beverage containing the appropriate plant medicine.

In (56) and (57), we have two noun roots in predicative function; *xono* '(become) *lupuna* tree' is further causativized by */ak/*, while *yoshin* '(become) spirit' takes *-ma* ((57) was previously given as (20):

(56) Binpish jamá-xon-ronki awakan *xono a*-ni-ke.
guayaba:ABS kick-PSSA-HSY tapir:ERG *lupuna* do.T-REM-CMPL
'Kicking the guayaba (tree), the tapir turned it into a *lupuna* (tree).'

(57) ...nishi xea-xon-ki Iskon Niwe-n jawen yora
rope:ABS drink-PSSA-HSY2 Iskon Niwe-ERG POS3 body:ABS

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yoshin-ma-[a]i, saki saki-i i-non kaman.
(become)spirit-CAUS-INC tremble tremble-SSSS be-FDS LIM
'...drinking the *ayahuasca*, Iskon Niwe made his body turn into spirit until it trembled repeatedly.'

From the sentence context in (56), it is clear that the tapir caused the transformation unintentionally and was even unaware of the potential consequences of its kicking the guayaba tree. In contrast, the shaman intentionally and consciously drank ayahuasca in order to perform his duty. However, while the tapir acts by itself upon a completely inactive causee, when the shaman drinks ayahuasca it is actually the spirit of the plant that is conceptualized as the active / causing participant.

Another example of a semantic distinction by means of alternate causativizers can be found in Loriot, Lauriault, and Day (1993:417) who register two alternate causatives for the intransitive root *tsasi-* 'stop,' *tsasi a-* and *tsasi-ma*. The authors state that although both causative forms can be translated as 'stop (tr.),' *tsasi a-* "implies an intercepted object," for example a canoe being brought down by the water, while *tsasi-ma-* rather "refers to the fact of stopping the movement, e.g., of a horse..." (my translation). In these cases, there is a significant and obvious difference in the degree of agentivity of the causees.

In section 16.2.2, I characterized */ak/* as the corresponding causativizer for adjective-inchoative stems. Thus, a root such as *ani* '(become) big, grow' most frequently combines with */ak/* in order to obtain the corresponding causative 'raise.' However, in section 16.2.5, I mentioned that the root *ani* may also take the general

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causative suffix *-ma*, again with a somewhat different meaning. Thus compare the following sentence pair:

(58) a. E-n-ra bake *ani* *a(k)*-ai.
1-ERG-EV child:ABS (become)big do.T-INC
'I raise the child.'

b. E-n-ra bake *ani-ma*-ai.
1-ERG-EV child:ABS (become)big-CAUS-INC
'I make / help the child grow (taking special care of her / him; e.g. by giving her / him special food or vitamins).' (Valenzuela 1997:108)

The adjective-inchoative root *xana* '(become) hot' exhibits a similar alternation:

(59) a. E-n-ra onpax *xana* *a(k)*-ai.
1-ERG-EV water:ABS (become)hot do.T-INC
'I heat the water (put it on the fire and probably leave it).'

b. E-n-ra onpax *xana-ma*-ai.
1-ERG-EV water:ABS (become)hot-CAUS-INC
'I heat the water (taking constant care of it, by using a fan to keep the fire high, etc.).' (Valenzuela 1997:109)

Exx. (58) and (59) above can be interpreted in the following way: the use of */ak/* implies that the causer brings about the corresponding change of state of the causee and thus the latter is construed as a patientive participant; with the addition of *-ma*, on the other hand, the causer is rather seen as someone contributing to make an inminent process take place faster, better, or to a greater degree.

Interestingly, in the cases of alternate constructions involving *-ma* and */ak/*, it is the causativizer exhibiting more structural independence (cf. 16.2.5) (and that being

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etymologically transparent) the one which encodes a more direct type of causation. That is, there seems to be a mismatch between conceptual and structural integration.

As for the cases where an alternation between *-ma* and *-n* has been attested, the same basic distinction applies, in that the construction containing *-n* entails a more direct kind of causation with respect to the one containing *-ma*. In the following examples, *nee-n-* is often interpreted by native speakers as a situation involving physical contact and a rather patientive causee, while the one containing *-ma* favors an inducive reading, and therefore requires a more agentive causee:

(60) a. E-n-ra bake nee-n-ke jiwi bochiki.
1-ERG-EV child:ABS on.top.position-TRNZ-CMPL tree up:O
'I put the child up on the tree (I hold the child and put in on the tree).'

b. E-n-ra bake nee-ma-ke jiwi bochiki.
1-ERG-EV child:ABS on.top.position-CAUS-CMPL tree up:O
'I caused the child to go up on the tree (e.g., by asking her / him to do it).'

It is also possible to exploit the availability of different causativizers in order to achieve disambiguation in cases where the base predicate has two potential meanings. For example, the adjective *menkó* is ambiguous, since it means 'upside down' but also 'laying (hen).' When causativizing this root, *menko-n-* is used to express 'put someone upside down,' while *menkó-ma-* means to 'place a hen in its nest so that it lays eggs' (Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:259). Alternative causativizers are also used to obtain different verbs from a single unambiguous root. For example, *bake* 'child' can be combined either with *-n* to get *bake-n-* 'deliver a child' or with */ak/* to obtain *bake a-* 'engender / have a child.' In general, *-n* appears to have a more physical meaning (cf.

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instances of double derivation in 4.3, where *-n* is used to causativize stems of body posture or movement to enter into a posture).

16.3.2. The Detransitivizing Strategy

In addition to the selection of different causativizers, it is possible to encode the distinction between direct versus indirect causation by employing the same transitive root without or with two subsequent instances of derivation. In this option, direct causation is expressed by the bare root, while indirect causation requires two morpho-syntactic processes. Firstly, the root is detransitivized or decausativized through addition of the middle suffix *-t*; secondly, the detransitivized stem is causativized by means of the general causativizer *-ma* (Table 16.1). Again, it is the construction containing *-ma* that encodes indirect causation. Thus, the literal meaning of this construction seems to be 'to allow someone, something to undergo the change of state expressed by the decausativized stem.'

In the following examples, the speaker talks sadly about the loss of Shipibo traditional culture. The direct use of the transitive *keyo-* 'finish, kill, exterminate,' refers to a more active involvement on the part of the causer, who provokes the caused event; on the other hand, *keyó-ma-* expresses a less agentive participation of the causer, and an event which seems to take place independently:

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(61) …no-a no-n-a-bi jawéki-bo *keyó-ma*-i
1p-ABS 1p-GEN-NMLZ-EM thing-PL:ABS finish:MID-CAUS-SSSS

i-t-ai. Ja-ska-ra i-xon no-n Ani Xeati
do.I-PROGR-INC that-SIML-*ra* do.I-PSSA 1p-ERG *Ani Xeati*:ABS

oin-yam-ai, no-n be-sté-kan-ai-bo
see-NEG-INC 1p-ERG FOREHEAD-cut:MID-PL-PP1-PL:ABS

oin-yam-ai, no-n mashá i-kan-ai-bo oin-yam-ai.
see-NEG-INC 1p-ERG *mashá* do.I-PL-PP1-PL:ABS see-NEG-INC

Rama-tian no-a jawe-oma-bi….
now-TEMP 1p-ABS what-PRIV-EM

no-n bake-bo jawe-bi onan-ma iki…
1-GEN child-PL:ABS what:ABS-EM know-NEG COP
'…we are letting our customs disappear. Thus, we don't see any *Ani Xeati* ceremony, we don't see the cutting of the girls' fringes, we don't see those who perform the *mashá*. Nowadays we have absolutely nothing…our children are completely ignorant of this...'

Continuing her analysis, the speaker finds reasons to blame the Shipibo themselves for the loss of their traditional culture. Specifically, she thinks that the Shipibo could overcome the process of culture loss if they chose to do so. In this more stronger statement, almost an accusation, the bare root *keyo-* is used instead. Notice also the use of the emphatic pronoun *nonbi* 'we ourselves:'

(62) No-a-ra jakiribi i-ti atipan-ke ne-skat-i, ikaxbi
1-ABS -EV again do.I-INF can-CMPL this-SIML-S but

no-n-bi-kaya-ra no-n axé-bo *keyo*-i
1p-ERG-EM-CONTRST-EV 1p-GEN custom-PL:ABS finish-SSSS

i-t-ai… joxo nawa-bo-res no-n onan-ma-[a]i.
do.I-PROGR-INC white outsider-PL:ABS-just 1p-ERG know-CAUS-INC

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Ja-tian ja-bo-res no-n yo-i ka-[a]i, ja-tian moa
that-TEMP 3-PL:ABS-just 1-ERG tell-SSSS go-INC that-TEMP already

no-a ja-ska-ra-ton shinan-benot-ai.
1p-ABS that-SIML-*ra*-INTRSS mind-fail-INC
'We could practice this again, but instead, we ourselves are finishing with our customs…we only show it to the white outsiders. Thus, we tell only them, and we are forgetting these things already.'

The following pair of examples further illustrates the semantic distinction between a bare transitive root and its *-ma*-marked detransitivized counterpart. In sentence (63) *menó-ma-* refers to a regrettable involuntary action, an accident, while *meno-* in (64) is a purposeful action in order to comply with the custom of burning or just abandoning the house following a relative's death:

(63) E-n-ra xobo *menó-ma*-ke mari bina
1-ERG-EV house:ABS burn:MID-CAUS-CMPL *mari* wasp:ABS

meno-kas-kin.
burn-DES-SSSA
'I caused the house to burn wanting to kill the wasp (by burning it).'

(64) E-n-ra nokon xobo *meno*-ke jainoa-x nokon papa
1-ERG-EV POS1 house:ABS burn-CMPL there:ABL-S POS1 father:ABS

mawá-ke-tian.
die-P-DS
'I burnt my house because my father died there.'

Further examples are the pairs *rate- / raté-ma-* and *payo- / payó-ma*:

(65) a. E-n-ra bake *rate*-ke.
1-ERG-EV child:ABS scare-CMPL
'I scared the child (by hiding in the dark and coming out suddenly).'

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b. E-n-ra bake *raté-ma*-ke.
1-ERG-EV child:ABS scare:MID-CAUS-CMPL
'I let the child get scared' (e.g., I left the child alone, and while I was away the child got scared; I feel responsible about it).

(66) a. E-n-ra chopa *payo*-ke.
1-ERG-EV clothes:ABS make.something.look.old-CMPL
'I wore out my clothes (through the normal daily use).'

b. E-n-ra chopa *payó-ma*-ke.
1-ERG-EV clothes:ABS make.something.look.old:MID-CMPL
'I let my clothes become worn out (by not taking appropriate care of them, by leaving them for too long in the water while washing, etc.).'

16.3.3. Combined Strategies

It is possible to have not just pairs but even larger sets of alternate causative constructions as shown in Table 16.2:

Table 16.2. Combinations of the Root *Pake-*

pake-	'drop, throw, bring down'	transitive bare root
paké-	'fall, come down, get off'	root + middle
paké-ma-	'cause to fall, come down, get off'	root + middle + *-ma*
pota-	'leave, throw, abandon'	suppletion

The middle-marked form *paké-* (in combination with the imperative) may be used when directly ordering or asking a person or a dog to come down from a tree, a hammock or house,[18] or to get off a canoe; *paké-ma-* would then be used to report one's order or request. It is not generally acceptable to use *paké-ma-* when reporting a causative

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situation involving an inanimate causee such as money or a cup (the case of a fruit is different, since fruits can fall by themselves). *Paké-ma-* may also be used in a situation when one is in charge of a child and, while being busy in other tasks, the child falls to the ground; or, if one is swinging a hammock and the child falls from it. Generalizing, *paké-ma-* implies that the speaker feels responsible for the result, although s/he has not provoked it directly.

In turn, *pake-* is preferably used when one acts physically on a child bringing it down from a tree, when one swings the hammock hard causing the child to fall, or if one turns over the canoe and as a result the dog falls; the last two situations may be purposeful or not. Also in the last two cases, speakers allow the use of *paké-ma-*:

(67) a. E-n-ra bake paké-ma-ke, yono-xon.
1-ERG-EV child:ABS bring.down:MID-CMPL order-PSSA

b. *E-n-ra bake pake-ke, yono-xon.
1-ERG-EV child:ABS bring.down-CMPL order-PSSA
'I had the child come down by ordering her / him to do it.'

(68) a. E-n-ra bake xobo-nko-ni-a
1-ERG-EV child:ABS house-LOC-LIG-ABL:O

paké-ma-ke, onpax bi-i ka-xon.
bring.down:MID-CAUS-CMPL water:ABS get-SSSS go-PSSA

b. *E-n-ra bake xobo-nko-ni-a pake-ke,
1-ERG-EV child:ABS house-LOC-LIG-ABL:O bring.down-CMPL

onpax bi-i ka-xon.
water:ABS get-SSSS go-PSSA
'I let the child fall from the house while going to get water.'

[18] Shipibo houses typically stand on poles.

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The English equivalents of the following sentences are, roughly: (69) 'I caused the child to fall from the hammock,' (70) 'I caused the dog to fall from the canoe,' and (71) 'I caused the money to fall from (my) pocket:'

(69) a. E-n-ra bake paké-ma-ke
1-ERG-EV child:ABS throw:MID-CAUS-CMPL

weyóti-aino-a.
hammock-LOC:LOC-ABL:O

b. E-n-ra bake pake-ke weyóti-aino-a.
1-ERG-EV child:ABS throw-CMPL hammock-LOC:LOC-ABL:O

(70) a. E-n-ra ochíti paké-ma-ke nonti-mea.
1-ERG-EV dog:ABS throw:MID-CAUS-CMPL canoe-LOC:ABL:O

b. E-n-ra ochíti pake-ke nonti-mea.
1-ERG-EV dog:ABS throw-CMPL canoe-LOC:ABL:O

(71) a. ??E-n-ra koríki paké-ma-ke
1-ERG-EV money:ABS throw:MID-CAUS-CMPL

borosicho-nko-ni-a.
pocket-LOC-LIG-ABL:O

b. E-n-ra koríki pake-ke borosicho-nko-ni-a.
1-ERG-EV money:ABS throw/drop-CMPL pocket-LOC-LIG-ABL:O
'I threw / dropped the money from the pocket.'

The distinction between the (a) and the (b) sentences is often interpreted as that between a purposeful as opposed to an accidental action on the part of the causer, as in (63) and (64).

Consider another example with an adjectival / inchoative root:

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Table 16.3. Combinations of the Root *Pae-*

pae-	'sour, become sour, ferment'	adjectival / inchoative bare root
pae-n-	'get drunk'	root + *-n* (resulting stem is intransitive)
pae-ma-	'let something ferment'	root + *-ma*
pae-n a(k)-	'get someone drunk'	root + *-n* + */a(k)/*
pae-n-ma-	'let someone get drunk'	*-n* (result is intransitive) + *-ma*

(72) Nato xeati r-iki xawi jene kobin a-xon
this drink:ABS EV-AUX sugar.cane juice ONOM:boil do.T-PSSA

pae-ma-kan-a.
(become)sour-CAUS-PL-PP2
'After boiling the sugar cane juice they let this drink ferment.'

(73) ...ja-n kikin-i *pae-n*-kan-a iki.
3-INST very-S (become)sour-VBLZ-PL-PP2 AUX
'...with it (sugar cane liquor) they got completely drunk.'

(74) Moa a-ti nete xabat-ai-tian, nokon wetsa rabé
already do.T-INF day clear-S-DS POS1 same.sex.sibling two:ABS

pae-n *a*-kan-a iki.
(become)sour-VBLZ do.T-PL-PP2 AUX
'When the day (to carry out the *Xebiana Tsekati* ceremony) cleared, they got my two sisters drunk.'

(75) Nokon xobo-n ka-xon-ra e-n jato
POS1 house-ALL go-PSSA-EV 1-ERG 3p:ABS

pae-n-ma-res-ke.
(become)sour-VBLZ-CAUS-CMPL
'I went home and just let them get drunk.'

The set of examples provided in Table 16.4 involve the nominal inchoative root *bake* 'child:'

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Table 16.4. Combinations of the Root *Bake*

bake	'(become / behave like a) child'	nominal, inchoative bare root
bake-ma-	'make someone become/behave like a child, treat someone like a child'	root + *-ma*
bake a(k)-	'engender / have a child'	root + *a*
bake-n-	'deliver a child'	root + *-n*
bake a-ma-	'make animals mate'	root + *a* + *-ma*

Finally, consider the following sentence (given as (24) in Ch. 10):

(76) Meráya-nin-ra e-a namá-xon-ke nokon machíto
great.shaman-ERG-EV 1-ABS dream.of-BEN-CMPL POS1 machete:ABS

e-n *manó-ma*-yantan-a.
1-ERG get.lost/out.of.sight-CAUS-PST3-PP2:ABS
'The great shaman dreamt, on my behalf, of the machete I had misplaced some time ago.'

In principle, the causative construction in (76) could be analyzed similarly to the combined strategies discussed above; that is, as a transitive root *mano-* meaning 'to lose sth.,' marked by the middle and further causativized by *-ma*. Therefore, the expected way to obtain a corresponding direct causation equivalent would be by simply using the transitive root *mano-*. In fact, the expected transitive root is found in SK, but it bears the specialized meaning 'to look for sb. by asking others.' A direct causation meaning could be obtained by using a different transitive root such as *pota-* 'to abandon, throw.'

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16.3.4. Semantic Restrictions

As mentioned in section 16.2.1 (see also footnote 7), in SK forces and abstract entities such as an illness can be conceptualized and encoded as transitive subjects. Concrete, perceptible inanimates can be treated as transitive subjects when they are not part of the causal chain; i.e., when they are not seen as instruments but as ultimate causes (ex. (18)). As pointed out in DeLancey (1984:181), although both forces and instruments lack volition, the latter are under external control of an agent while the former are not. For example, in SK one could say that a particular fruit hit Yoi on the head, but it supposes that the fruit fell from the tree and not that somebody threw it against Yoi. This is comparable to what has been reported for Hare (Athabaskan), where a gun going off spontaneously can be encoded as transitive subject of the verb 'kill,' while a gun put to work by an external causer cannot (DeLancey ibid.:187).

Also a body-part may be encoded as transitive subject of the verb *chexa-* 'ache.' Consider the following example (see also ex. (34) in Ch. 9):

(77) E-a xeta-n chexa-ke-tian-ra, e-n rokotoro
1-ABS tooth-ERG ache-P-DS-EV 1-ERG doctor:ABS

tseka-ma-ke
take.out-CAUS-CMPL
'Because my tooth was aching, I had the dentist pull it out.' (Valenzuela 1997:144; see also Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:162)

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Valenzuela (1997:110-11, 230-2) noted semantic restrictions in the possibility of combining a given causativizer with certain base predicates, and interpreted it in relationship to the kind of causee involved. As mentioned when commenting on the distinction between *pake-* ('bring down, throw, drop') and *paké-ma-* ('cause to come down, cause to fall') in the section above, the latter form is not generally acceptable with a causee such as money (ex. (71)). In contrast, *paké-ma-* may be used with a fruit as causee, given that fruits have the potential of falling by themselves. A similar situation is found in the next exx. illustrating the use of the same root with different causativizers:

(78) a. E-n-ra bená *a*-[a]i soro. / bená ak-ai
1-ERG-EV (become)new do.T-INC *sol*:ABS
'I make the coin (look) new.'

b. *E-n-ra soro bená-*ma*-ai.
1-ERG-EV *sol*:ABS (become)new-CAUS-INC
'I make the coin (look) new.'

But:

(79) a. E-n-ra kaimito bimi-*ma*-ai.
1-ERG-EV *caimito*:ABS (yield)fruit-CAUS-INC
'I am taking care of the *caimito* (e.g. by treating it with snail egg or by not letting anybody touch it) till it yields fruit.'

b. *E-n-ra kaimito bimi *a*-ai.
1-ERG-EV *caimito*:ABS (yield)fruit do.T-INC
'I made the *caimito* yield fruit.'

Ex. (78b) was considered unacceptable by several language consultants since it would imply that the coin has some possibility of becoming new by itself, without the subject's intervention. This interpretation is consistent with the analysis of *-ma* as an indirect

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causation marker; that is, with a situation where the causee is construed as an active participant. As for *bimi-* 'yield fruit,' it was argued that it takes the causativizer *-ma* rather than */ak/*, given that trees yield fruit by themselves without requiring an external causer (Valenzuela 1997:110-11).[19] There are however, instances such as *raké a-* 'frighten, threaten' where the causativizer */ak/* is used with a human causee. Nevertheless, it could be argued that similarly to *benά a-* but differently from *bimi-ma-*, the event expressed by *raké a-* could not have taken place without the intervention of an external causer, or simply that it is possible to construe certain situations involving a potentially active causee in terms of a direct causation schema. In sum, although in 16.2 the distribution of the different causativizers was accounted for in terms of syntactic criteria (i.e., roughly, in terms of stem classes), finer analysis reveals the interaction of these formal properties with relevant semantic features.

Semantic restrictions are also observable in relation to the alternate auxiliarization strategy. The corresponding predicates are instances of onomatopoeic roots which combine with either the intransitive or the transitive auxiliary. The following pair can be taken as the pattern for these causatives. Observe that the root *jojo* plus the intransitive auxiliary *ik-* result in 'bark,' while the combination of *jojo* with the transitive auxiliary *ak-* results in 'bark at,' actually adding an object argument (Valenzuela 1997:229):

(80) a. Ochíti-ra jojo ik-ai joni-bo kopí.
dog:ABS-EV ONOM do.I-INC person-PL reason
'The dog is barking because of the people.'

[19] I wish to thank Inkan Soi (Kruger Pacaya Cruz) for sharing with me his insights on this particular issue.

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b. Ochíti-nin-ra joni-bo jojo ak-ai.
dog-ERG-EV man-PL:ABS ONOM do.T-INC
'The dog is barking at the people.'

c. E-n-ra ochíti jojo i-ma-[a]i joni-bo kopí.
1-ERG-EV dog:ABS ONOM do.I-CAUS-INC person-PL reason
'I make the dog bark because of the people.'

d. E-n-ra ochíti joni-bo jojó a-ma-[a]i.
1-ERG-EV dog:ABS person-PL:ABS ONOM do.T-CAUS-INC
'I make the dog bark at the people.'

e. *E-n-ra ochíti jojo ak-ai.
1-ERG-EV dog:ABS ONOM do.T-INC
'I make the dog bark.'[20]

As seen in (80a) and (80b), the use of an onomatopoeic root plus the auxiliaries *ik-* and *ak-* result in intransitive and transitive clauses, respectively, with the dog functioning as S or A argument. The same is true for onomatopoeic predicates involving a human single or A participant such as *betsó* 'kiss' and *too* 'shoot,' although in these cases combination with the intransitive auxiliary yields a reflexive sense.

Similarly to the 'dog' case but differently from the situation found with humans, onomatopoeic predicates with other nonhuman participants result in a nonreflexive intransitive reading when the intransitive auxiliary is used:

(81) a. Xena-ra tiash i-ke.
worm:ABS-EV ONOM do.I-CMPL
'The worm produced a noise *tiash* (e.g. when falling from a branch).'

---

[20] However, (80e) is grammatical with the less plausible meaning 'I bark at the dog.'

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b. Atapa bachi xaká-ra moish i-ke.
chicken egg shell:ABS ONOM do.I-CMPL
'The chicken egg shell produced a noise *moish* (e.g. when breaking).'

c. Motóro-ra tokotoko ik-ai.
engine:ABS-EV ONOM do.I-INC
'The engine is producing a noise *tokotoko* (when starting or working).'

However, unlike dogs and humans, in these cases combination of the onomatopoeic root and the transitive auxiliary (i.e., addition of an object argument) is not acceptable:

(82) a. *Xena-n-ra tiash a-ke.
worm-ERG-EV ONOM do.T-CMPL

b. *Atapa bachi xakakan-ra moish a-ke.
chicken egg shell:ERG-EV ONOM do.T-CMPL

c. *Motóro-nin-ra tokotoko ak-ai.
engine-ERG-EV ONOM do.T-INC

A way to obtain a causative predicate is by adding *-ma* to the onomatopoeic root plus the intransitive auxiliary combination,

(83) a. E-n-ra xena tiash i-ma-ke.
1-ERG-EV worm:ABS ONOM do.I-CAUS-CMPL

b. E-n-ra atapa bachi xaká moish i-ma-ke.
1-ERG-EV chicken egg shell:ABS ONOM do.I-CAUS-CMPL

c. E-n-ra motoro tokotoko i-ma-[a]i.
1-ERG-EV engine:ABS ONOM do.I-CAUS-INC
'I caused the worm / chicken egg shell / engine to produce a noise *tiash / moish / toko toko.*'

or by adding an A participant and coding the underived subject as object:

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(84) a. E-n-ra xena tiash a-ke.
1-ERG-EV worm:ABS ONOM do.T-CMPL

b. E-n-ra atapa bachi xaká moish a-ke.
1-ERG-EV chicken egg shell:ABS ONOM do.T-CMPL

c. E-n-ra motoro tokotoko a-ke.
1-ERG-EV engine:ABS ONOM do.T-CMPL
'I made the worm / chicken egg shell / engine produce the noise *tiash / moish / toko toko* (e.g., by stepping on it, by starting it, etc.)

Although the examples presented here by no means exhaust the range of onomatopoeic verbs available in SK, the data examined so far suggests different combination properties of these predicates in association with the degree of animacy and potential agentivity of the base S or A participant involved.

16.4. Adverbial Scope and Causativization

Differences in the domain of application of adverbials have been used as arguments in the discussion on whether or not lexical causatives derive from underlying periphrastic expressions (Hochster 1974, Shibatani 1976:9-13). The SK data discussed in the prior section strongly support the functional-cognitivist principle according to which, when languages have alternate causal structures (regardless of their formal nature; i.e., lexical, morphological or syntactic), these correspond to differences in the conceptualization of what can be seen as roughly the same objective event. Nevertheless, the interaction of causative constructions and adverbial scope is worth investigating beyond the derivation

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question. Hence, from a typological perspective, one could investigate the means that languages have available for disambiguating or unambiguously signaling the portion of the construction to which a given adverbial applies. These strategies include: word or morpheme order, intonational pattern,[21] different kinds of reference-tracking devices, and formal differences of the kind *klugerweise / klug* in German and Dutch (Dik et alia 1990:36-7). For example, Fodor (1970) points out that while in sentence (85a) the adverbial 'by swallowing his tongue' can apply to either the cause predicate or just the caused portion of the expression, in (85b) the adverbial applies to the cause predicate only:

(85) a. John caused Bill to die by swallowing his tongue (i.e., there is ambiguity as to who swallowed the tongue).

b. John killed Bill by swallowing his tongue (i.e., only John swallowed his tongue).

In SK the ambiguity in the scope of such elements (which I have described as adjuncts), even when a periphrastic causative is involved, could be solved, for instance, through the use of same or switch-reference markers. Sentence (86) contains the reference-marked clause *imakaskinmabi*, the closest equivalent to the English 'involuntarily, against somebody's will:'

(86)	Tita-n-ra	Chonon Biri	bewa-ma-ke,
	mother-ERG-EV	Chonon Biri:ABS	sing-CAUS-CMPL

[21] In fact, in differentiating representational from interpersonal adverbial constituents (equivalent to Quirk et alia's (1985) adjuncts and disjuncts, respectively) Dik et alia (1990) claim that only the former fall under the same intonation pattern with the core predication (p.41).

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i-*ma*-kas-*kin*-ma-bi.
do-CAUS-DES-SSSA-NEG-EM
'Mother$_i$ made Chonon Biri$_j$ sing against her$_i$ will (lit. 'w/o wanting to cause it').'

In principle, it seems plausible to apply this adjunct modification either to the base predicate (i.e., Chonon Biri didn't want to sing) or to the cause predicate (the mother didn't want to make Chonon Biri sing). But unlike the English 'against her will' in the free translation, *imakaskinmabi* is not ambiguous in SK, since the selection of same-subject marking and the presence of the causativizer *-ma* disambiguate the scope of the marked clause. In contrast, in (87) below, a semantically equivalent adjunct applies to the caused event, and therefore different-subject marking is used instead:

(87) Ja-tian ja xontako jawen tita-n
that-TEMP that unmarried.girl:ABS POS3 mother-ERG

xoi meni-ma-[a]i keen-yam[a]-ain-bi...
roasted.meat/fish:ABS give-CAUS-INC want-NEG-SDS-EM
'Then, her$_j$ mother$_i$ made the unmarried girl$_j$ give roasted meat / fish (to the man who had asked her in matrimony) even though she$_j$ didn't want to...'

Another instance of how a language can disambiguate the scope of an adverbial in a causative construction is the use of gender agreement, as in the following Spanish sentences (woman speaking):

(88) a. Le hice pag-ar la cuenta por tont-o.
3:OBJ made:1SUB pay-INF the bill because stupid-MASC
'I made him pay the bill because he is stupid.'

b. Le hice pag-ar la cuenta por tont-a.
3:OBJ made:1SUB pay-INF the bill because stupid-FEM
'I made him pay the bill because I am stupid.'

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While the preferred interpretation for (88a) is that the reason why the man paid the bill is his own stupidity, (88b) means that it was stupid on the part of the woman to make him pay the bill.

On the other hand, in the Hindi examples below, according to its position 'slowly' can apply only to the result predicate as in (89a) or to the whole sentence as in (89b) (from van Olphen 1975:199, see also Kulikov 1993:146-7):[22]

(89) a. Admī-ne mātā-se bacce-ko dhīre khil-vā-yā
man-ERG mother-INSTR child-DAT slowly eat-CAUS.INDIR-PAST
'The man had the mother feed the child slowly.'

b. Admī-ne dhīre mātā-se bacce-ko khil-vā-yā
man-ERG slowly mother-INSTR child-DAT eat-CAUS.INDIR-PAST
'The man slowly had the mother feed the child.'

An instance of a language using morpheme order to signal the different scopes of adverbials in causative constructions is Asheninka (David Payne 2002).

As shown in sentences (51) and (52), repeated here as (90) and (91), the adverbial modification 'almost' is coded as a suffix attached to the verb stem in SK:

(90) E-n-ra nokon bake mawá-ma-kean-ke ishton
1-ERG-EV POS1 child:ABS die-CAUS-almost-CMPL quickly

onanya-iba bo-yama-xon.
onanya-CHEZ carry-NEG-PSSA
'I almost caused my son to die for not taking him to the *onanya* quickly.'

(91) E-n-ra misho rete-kean-ke nokon kawá pi-ke-tian.
1-ERG-EV cat:ABS kill-almost-CMPL POS1 wraped:ABS eat-P-DS
'I almost killed the cat for having eaten my *patarashca*.'

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Given the information in the causal clause, the domain to which *-kean* applies is unambiguous in the former example; i.e., I did something (waiting a long time before taking my son to the *onanya*) that almost caused my son to die. The latter sentence seems ambiguous, probably in the same ways as the English sentence 'John almost killed Harry' (Shibatani 1976:9):

(92) a. John almost did something that could have killed Harry.
b. John did something that almost caused Harry to die.
c. John did something that caused Harry to become almost dead.'

As for *ishton* 'quickly' in (90), its domain of application is unambiguously established by its position in the sentence.

In what follows, I will deal with a strategy that appears to be very peculiar to SK (and possibly Panoan in general); namely, the possibility of using participant agreement as a means to disambiguate the domain of application of some adjunct phrases.

Like most same-subject marked clauses, non-clausal adjuncts exhibit different endings depending on the syntactic status of the participant they predicate of. Therefore, in the intransitive clauses below only the S- / O-oriented locative forms *tapon*, *bachin*, and *nii meran* are possible; their A-oriented counterparts *tapon-xon*, *bachin-xon*, and *nii meran-xon* would yield ungrammatical sentences:

(93) Nokon ochíti-ra tapo-n ransa-[a]i.
POS1 dog:ABS-EV palm.bark.floor-LOC:S dance-INC
'My dog is dancing on the palm-bark floor.'

[22] According to Olphen (1975), this position flexibility is only possible with "second causatives."

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(94) Nokon bake-ra bachi-n oxa-[a]i.
POS1 child:ABS-EV mosquito.net-LOC:S sleep-INC
'My child is sleeping in the mosquito net.'

(95) Nokon ochíti-ra jojo ik-ai nii meran.
POS1 dog:ABS-EV ONOM:bark do.I-INC forest inside:S
'My dog is barking in the forest.'

However, when causativizing the intransitive root *ransa-* 'dance,' both the S-oriented and the A-oriented locative adjunct forms are possible:

(96) a. E-n-ra nokon ochíti ransa-ma-[a]i tapo-n.
1-ERG-EV POS1 dog:ABS dance-CAUS-INC palm.bark.floor-LOC:S
'I make my dog dance on the palm-bark floor.' (specifies location of causee)

b. E-n-ra nokon ochíti ransa-ma-[a]i tapo-n-xon.
1-ERG-EV POS1 dog:ABS dance-CAUS-INC palm.bark.floor-LOC-A
'I make my dog dance on the palm-bark floor.' (specifies location of causer)

As expected, sentences (96a) and (96b) entail a difference in meaning. The former implies that the dog is on the palm-bark floor but the causer is not. On the other hand, its (b) counterpart indicates that it is the causer who is on the palm-bark floor while the location of the dog remains unspecified. That is, the S-oriented *tapon* refers to the location of the effect predicate subject only, while the A-oriented *tapon-xon* refers to the location of the cause predicate subject. A similar distinction in scope is found in the following alternative sentences:

(97) a. E-n-ra nokon bake oxa-ma-[a]i bachi-n.
1-ERG-EV POS1 child:ABS sleep-CAUS-INC mosquito.net-LOC:S
'I make my child sleep in the mosquito net.' (specifies location of causee)

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b. E-n-ra nokon bake oxa-ma-[a]i bachi-n-xon.
1-ERG-EV POS1 child:ABS sleep-CAUS-INC mosquito.net-LOC-A
'I make my child sleep in the mosquito net.' (specifies location of causer)

In (97a), it is indicated that the place where the child sleeps is the mosquito net; (97b) specifies that, being both participants in the mosquito net, the causer puts the child to sleep. Similarly, sentence (98a) indicates that the causer stays somewhere else but sends her / his dog to the forest to bark (at animals). In (98b), both the causer and the dog are in the forest and the causer makes the dog bark (at animals):

(98) a. E-n-ra nokon ochíti jojo i-ma-[a]i nii-meran.
1-ERG-EV POS1 dog:ABS ONOM:bark do.I-CAUS-INC forest-inside:S
'I make my dog bark in the forest.' (specifies location of causee)

b. E-n-ra nokon ochíti jojo i-ma-[a]i nii-meran-xon.
1-ERG-EV POS1 dog:ABS ONOM:bark do.I-CAUS-INC forest-inside-A
'I make my dog bark in the forest.' (specifies location of causer)

The next pair of sentences is particularly interesting, since in these instances both cause and result are expressed in a single root. As can be seen, also in this situation an alternation in the adjunct forms is attested:

(99) a. E-n-ra bake pake-ke weyóti-aino-a.
1-ERG-EV child:ABS bring.down-CMPL hammock-LOC:LOC-ABL:O
'I made the child fall from the hammock.' (only the causee was in the hammock)

b. E-n-ra bake pake-ke weyóti-ain-xon.
1-ERG-EV child:ABS bring.down-CMPL hammock-LOC-A
'I made the child fall from the hammock.' (the causer was also in the hammock.)

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In example (100), we find an intransitive verb of body posture transitivized by *-n*. This sentence also contains a locative-allative adjunct, *ani nontin*, which receives O-orientation marking (the A-oriented form would be *ani nontin-xon*):

(100) Ja-tian *ani nonti-n* westíora atsa xeati chomo
that-TEMP big canoe:LOC:O one yuca drink jar:ABS

na-yása-n-kan-ai.
INTERIOR-sitting.position.T-TRNZ-PL-INC
'Then, they put a jar of yuca beer inside the big canoe.'

Thus, the adjunct in (100) specifies that it is the jar that is put inside the big canoe, and not that, while being in the canoe the people placed the jar in it. Compare (100) with (101) below, where both the people drinking the yuca beer and the drink are located inside the big canoe:

(101) a. ...*ani nonti-n-xon* westíora atsa xeati chomo keyo-kan-ke.
big canoe-LOC-A one yuca drink jar:ABS finish-PL-CMPL

b. *...*ani nonti-n* westíora atsa xeati chomo keyo-kan-ke.
big canoe-LOC:O one yuca drink jar:ABS finish-PL-CMPL
'...they finished a jar of yuca beer in the big canoe.'

Further discussion on the interplay between causative constructions and participant agreement can be found in 19.2.2.2. The point I would like to make here is that even in synthetic and sublexical causativization, the morphosyntax of the language seems to distinguish two levels of predication, corresponding to the complex internal structure of the event. In this respect, causativized constructions (probably including lexical

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causatives in general) do not seem to resemble any other kind of construction in the language corresponding to simple unitary events.

Similar alternative constructions were not possible with the adjunct 'three times' (cf. Shibatani 1976:15). The following sentences show that the forms *kimishai* and *kimishaakin* are used as S- and A-oriented adjuncts, respectively:

(102) Bake-ra choron-ke kimisha-i.
child:ABS-EV jump-CMPL three-S
'The child jumped three times.'

(103) Ochíti-nin-ra bake natex-ke kimisha a-kin.
dog-ERG-EV child:ABS bite-CMPL three do.T-A
'The dog bit the child three times.'

However, in a causativized sentence like (104a) below, only the A-oriented alternative is possible:

(104) a. Sani-n-ra bake choron-ma-ke kimisha a-kin.
Sani-ERG-EV child:ABS jump-CAUS-CMPL three do.T-A
'Sani made the child jump three times.'

The construction above implies that both events, Sani's manipulation of the child and the child's jumping, took place three times. In contrast, the S-oriented counterpart *kimishai* cannot be applied to modify the base predicate of a causativized construction:

b. *Sani-n-ra bake choron-ma-ke kimisha-i.
Sani-ERG-EV child:ABS jump-CAUS-CMPL three-S
'I made the child jump three times (I told him once to jump three times).'

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When asked for a way to specify that Sani's action took place only once in such a way that the child jumped three times, a language consultant offered the alternative below where 'three times' applies to the effect predicate only:

(105) E-n-ra bake yoi-ke (westíora a-kin-bicho)
1-ERG-EV child:ABS tell-CMPL one do.T-SSSA-only

kimisha-i choron-ti.
three-S jump-INF:ABS
'I told the child (once) to jump three times.'

This asymmetry cannot be accounted for in terms of the construction type, properties of the base predicate or semantic roles of the arguments; in these respects, sentence (104b) is equivalent to sentences (96a) and (98a). Rather, this phenomenon might be due to the characteristics of the adjunct in question (see the distinction between place vs. manner and quantity adjunct phrases in Ch. 19). Let us mention here that, in contrast to locative adjuncts, manner and quantity adjuncts mark both S versus A agreement overtly, and it is even possible to find two sets of each being used with the same adjunct; the forms of these agreement markers correspond to reference markers of the PSS and SSS types.

I began this section by pointing out the need to further investigate the domains of application of adverbial-like expressions from a cross-linguistic perspective. In particular, I have focused on a Panoan-specific means to resolve the potential ambiguity in the scope of certain adjuncts, through the use of switch-reference and participant agreement in general. Although the interaction between participant agreement and adverbial scope requires further examination, the data presented here have illustrated a

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typologically unusual strategy that, to my knowledge, had not been previously discussed in the literature.

16.5. Summary

Although by no means exhaustively, the present study has examined core morphological, syntactic and semantic characteristics of causative constructions in SK, highlighting their various kinds of interaction with transitivity distinctions.

Besides lexical causativization (and periphrastic with non-implicative manipulative verbs), SK has available different grammatical mechanisms that, in principle, can be seen as interacting in complementary distribution. Among these, morphological causativization through the suffixation of *-ma* has been characterized as the more general strategy. On the one hand, when being the unmarked or only mechanism possible, *-ma* has a schematic semantics ranging from coercive and inducive, to permissive, enabling, and facilitating meanings. In terms of distribution, I have shown that *-ma* combines with all kinds of verb stems. Furthermore, *-ma* can follow any causativizer including itself. A second morphological causativizer, *-n*, is restricted to a closed number of nouns and intransitive roots, and together with *-t*, participates in two subsequent derivation mechanisms involving roots of body posture that are themselves neutral in terms of valency. Generalizing, *-n* appears to have a more physical meaning.

Unlike *-ma* and *-n* which are morphologically dependent and semantically opaque, the causativizer */ak/* is semantically transparent and, in combination with certain

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roots, exhibits a higher degree of syntactic independence. */ak/* combines with nouns, adjectival-inchoatives, as well as adjunct and postpositional roots, in what could be considered instances of compound predicates. A separate mechanism, alternate auxiliarization, is found with onomatopoeic roots; in section 16.3.4, I proposed an association between the distribution and meaning of these predicates and characteristics of the participants involved. Probably the most idiosyncratic strategy is represented by the suppletive pairs *jo- / be-* and *ka- / bo-*, for which an association between plurality and transitivity-causation has been proposed. Finally, ablaut may co-occur with derivation (*yaka-t-* 'sit' vs. *yasa-n-* 'seat'), while labile roots are rather rare.

Leaving aside labile and suppletive roots, as well as double derivation and auxiliarization, SK causative clauses can be analyzed as nonbasic with respect to their noncausative counterparts in terms of both morphological and semantic complexity. In fact, these causative processes are instances of directed derivation; i.e., of elaborations of the noncausative predicates. Given a basic verb, the addition of *-ma*, *-n* and */ak/* introduces an A argument and triggers the rearrangement of the basic verb's arguments: causers are always marked ergative, causees and affectees are marked absolutive (but see footnote 10). SK is quite permissive in that it allows for more than one absolutive-marked NP in a single clause. So far, no systematic morpho-syntactic mechanism has been found to grammatically distinguish different kinds of objects, and therefore the case-marking pattern of (most) causative constructions can be accounted for straightforwardly from the pattern found in (di)transitive noncausativized constructions.

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Causativizers and applicatives may co-occur in the same verb; in the spontaneous corpus analyzed, applicatives follow causatives.

Semantic analysis of the SK data corroborates previous linguistic findings such as the distinction between participants that can be seen as ultimate cause versus true instruments; only the former can be encoded as transitive subjects. In 16.3.4 it was also mentioned that the distribution of different causativizing mechanisms seems to correlate with semantic parameters, such as whether the change of state requires an obvious external causer in order to take place (and hence */ak/* is preferred), or whether the patient-of-change can be seen as somehow initiating the event by its own internal force (and thus *-ma* is selected).

A topic which has attracted significant interest in the literature is that of the semantic nonequivalency of alternate causative constructions and their use for distinguishing "direct" versus "indirect" causation. Regardless of the nature of the formal mechanisms involved, analysis of the SK corpus supports the generalization that alternate causatives refer to different ways of conceptualizing what can be seen as roughly the same ontological situation. When more than one mechanism is possible, it becomes obvious that, like case-markers and lexical items, causatives are symbolic units having an inherent semantics and force-dynamics. As mentioned above, when being the only option available *-ma* can be said to have a schematic semantics. Nevertheless, when being an alternative means, it becomes obvious that *-ma* codes indirect causation and requires a more agentive causee; in these situations, *-ma* yields the meanings of 'cause,' 'have,' 'allow' or 'contribute (to a process).' On the other hand, *-n* and */ak/* express more

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direct types of causation involving rather patientive causees. The same mechanisms can also be exploited for disambiguation of polysemous roots (e.g., *menko-n-* 'put sb. upside down' vs. *menkó-ma-* 'place a hen in its nest so that it lays eggs'), or to obtain different transitive verbs from roots bearing a single meaning (e.g., *bake a(k)-* 'engender / have a child' vs. *bake-n-* 'deliver' a child').

An interesting means to indicate the distinction between direct and indirect causation is the detransitivization plus causativization through *-ma* strategy discussed in 16.3.2. In these cases, the inherent force-dynamics of a transitive root (which would otherwise indicate direct causation) can be said to be neutralized by the addition of the middle suffix. In the predicates in question, derivation gives rise to what is best analyzed as an anticausative construction indicating that the patient undergoes the change of state referred to by the root, without the involvement of an obvious causer. At the same time, suffixation of *-ma* introduces a nonprototypical agent who allows for or contributes to the process in question, in a situation involving a rather agentive causee.

Languages displaying ergative-absolutive case-marking are especially sensitive to the transitivity increase triggered by causativization. Specifically, transitivity alternation processes are ubiquitously expressed in the morpho-syntax of SK. In most transitivity-related respects, causative clauses appear to be modeled on transitive and ditransitive simple clauses. As mentioned above, in terms of case-marking, (most) Vintr-*ma* and Vtr-*ma* clauses behave just like their Vtr. and Vditr. counterparts, respectively. Furthermore, the establishment of reference treats a causativized clause as a single unit, and the same occurs in terms of pro-verb selection, intrasentential and intersentential conjunction, and

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participant agreement on dependent clauses. Nevertheless, there is at least one transitivity-related process that seems to treat causative and noncausative clauses differently, namely, intraclausal participant agreement; this feature of SK grammar allows for independent specification of the location of causees and causers, and hence of the predicates in which they take part. Although further research is needed in this respect, the possibility of certain causative clauses of taking alternate adjunct forms does not seem to be available for simple noncausative clauses. Through these alternate possibilities the grammar of SK seems to express that at least some causatives differ from other clause types in an essential way. These instances of causativization can be seen as representing a "single complex macro-situation," where each of the combining components or "micro-situations" (to use Comrie's 1989:165 terms) can be modified independently, a distinction which is not typically grammaticalized in languages.

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CHAPTER 17

APPLICATIVIZATION

17.1. Introduction

The purpose of the present chapter is to provide an account of the applicativization system of Shipibo-Konibo, based on the examination of some 150 applicative constructions taken from spontaenous text, as well as plenty of elicited examples.

SK has three applicative suffixes: the "affective" (i.e., benefactive or malefactive) *-xon*, the associative *-kin ~ -kiin*, and the malefactive *-(V)naan ~ -(V)n*. The allomorphic distributions of the associative and malefactive are partially determined by the moraic structure of the base predicates to which they attach.[1] Since the three applicative types mentioned above are rather common cross-linguistically, the SK system cannot be said to be particularly rich either in terms of number or kinds of applicative constructions. Nevertheless, applicative constructions in this language exhibit certain points of special interest with regard to the presence / absence of non-applicative paraphrases, morpho-syntactic properties of objects, interaction with transitivity,

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semantic requirements of arguments, and preferred interpretation of a given construction depending on the base verb. It must also be stressed that applicative constructions have not yet received a detailed treatment in any Panoan language. Therefore, the present study will contribute to a broader understanding of Panoan syntax and enrich the cross-linguistic literature on valence-changing processes.

In the remainder of section 17.1, I provide a general, typologically-informed introduction to applicative constructions that will serve as framework for the subsequent discussion. In addition, I refer to the interaction between applicativization and causativization, and its manifestations in SK. (This point will become particularly relevant when dealing with the associative in section 17.4.1). Section 17.1 ends with an introduction to the SK applicatives. Sections 17.2, 17.3, and 17.4 constitute the core of the study, and are devoted to the synchronic characterization of SK applicative constructions, including their text frequency, distribution, object properties, and presence / absence of non-applicative paraphrases. In section 17.5, I briefly illustrate multiple applicative constructions. Section 17.6 summarizes the findings of the study.

17.1.1. Definition of Applicative Construction

An applicative construction can be defined as a syntactic construction with overt verbal morphology which allows the coding of a thematically peripheral argument as a core object argument (Peterson 1999:1); cross-linguistically, applicative constructions are

[1] As stated by Faust (1973:70-72), *-kiin* and *-naan* or *-n* are added to verbs with an even number of

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typically transitivizing (but cf. 17.1.2.6). Kinyarwanda (Bantu; Kimenyi 1980), Nez Perce (Sahaptian; Rude 1986), Nomatsiguenga (Maipuran Arawak; Wise 1971, David Payne 1990), Caquinte (Maipuran Arawak, Swift 1988), and Haka Lai (Tibeto-Burman; Peterson 1999) have been described as being especially rich in terms of applicative constructions.

Consider the following examples from Haka Lai. This language exhibits dominantly ergative-absolutive case-marking with nominals, but nominative-accusative cross-referencing verb morphology. Since the clause in (1a) is intransitive, its single argument is marked absolutive and the verb does not (and cannot) take an object marker. In contrast, the added applicative in (1b) introduces an object argument which is cross-referenced on the verb; accordingly, the subject NP carries ergative case. In semantic terms, the addition of *-piak* signals that the applicative object is an affected participant, in this case a beneficiary:

(1) a. tsewmaŋ door=ʔaʔ ʔa-kal
tsewmaŋ market=LOC 3sS-go
'Tsewmang went to the market.' (Peterson 1999:11)

b. tsewmaŋ=niʔ door=ʔaʔ ʔa-ka-kal-piak
tsewmaŋ-ERG market=LOC 3sS-1sO-go-BEN
'Tsewmang went to the market for me.' (Peterson 1999:11)

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syllables; in turn, *-kin* and *-Vnaan* or *-Vn* follow verbs with odd-numbered syllables. But see ex. (114).

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17.1.2. Typological Variation

This section is an overview of the parameters along which applicative constructions may vary. Three of these parameters will prove to be especially relevant to the present study: the relationship between applicatives and oblique nominal markers, obligatoriness vs. optionality of applicative constructions, and transitivity restrictions.

17.1.2.1. Applicative and Oblique Nominal Markers: Cognate versus Alternative Forms

In some languages having applicative constructions, a marker which is cognate with the applicative is also attested on nominals. As pointed out by Wise (2000), this is the case of certain languages spoken in the Peruvian Amazon such as Yagua (Peba Yaguan), Arabela (Zaparoan), and Nomatsiguenga (Arawak Maipuran). Consider the following Arabela examples involving the forms *-ta* ~ *-tia*, a kind of comitative / instrumental applicative (from Rich 1999:54-57; also Wise 2000):

(2) kua morehaka tiurii-*tia*-ree-nihia
1sg yuca stumble-APPL-CMPL-1sg
'I stumbled while carrying my load of yuca.' (Rich 1999:55, Wise 2000)

(3) a. haniya kia-*ta* kia-nu pani-ya-ni
1sg 2sg-COM go-INF want-CONT-1R (relation to first person)
'I want to go with you.' (Wise 2000)

b. kia kia-a-re kia nukua-*ta*
2sg go-CONT-IRR 2sg mother-APPL
'Go with your mother!' (Rich 1999:403)

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A similar situation has been reported for Warrwa (Eastern Nyulnyulan, Australia), where the suffix *-ngany* can attach to nominal and verbal roots; while nominal *-ngany* is principally an instrumental marker, verbal *-ngany* is the comitative / instrumental applicative[2] (McGregor 1998:171).

17.1.2.2. Encoding of Applicative Object

In Warrwa, there are instances where both the inflected verb and the NP are simultaneously marked by *-ngany* or another oblique morpheme (McGregor ibid.). But first let us consider an instance of an applicative construction that follows the prototype. In the examples below, the addition of *-ngany* introduces a second unmarked participant to the clause, and triggers a case-marking change on the subject from absolutive to ergative:

(4) a. linyju nguy jina.
policeman return he:did
'The policeman returned.'

b. linyju-na nguy jina-*ngany*-jirr, kuya jirra.
policeman-ERG return he:did-APP-them mother their
'The policeman brought back their mother.' (McGregor 1998:174)

Now, consider (5) and (6) which deviate from the canonical pattern in that the element in the applicative semantic role does not occur unmarked as an O argument.

[2] It also marks "an implicated construction, which basically signals that the referent situation is projected or intended for the future" (McGregor 1998:171).

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(5) biina jirrwadaj jan-*ngany*, bakal-*ngany*,
ant:eggs yandy she:does-APP coolamon-INST
'She yandies (separates by shaking) the ant eggs in a coolamon.' (McGregor 1998:191)

(6) ngayi-na nganjalany-*ngany* kinya wamba wariny-*warri* wamba
I-ERG I:saw-APP this man one-COM_1 man
'I saw him with his mate.' (McGregor 1998:185)

The Haka Lai construction below illustrates another way in which the coding of an applicative object may deviate from that of a base object. Although the applicative object is marked as absolutive rather than oblique, it is not nevertheless cross-referenced on the verb (presumably due to animacy restrictions in the cross-referencing verbal pronouns; Peterson 1999:13). Recall from (1b) that subjects precede objects in the verb:

(7) ka-naam khaa tsewmaŋ=ni? ʔa-*ń*-tshuʔn-naak.
1S POSS-knife DEIC Tsewmang=ERG 3sS-2sO-$stab_2$-INST
'Tsewmang stabbed you with my knife.' (Peterson 1999:13)

However, it is possible to indicate the plurality of the applicative object through a verb suffix:

(8) tsewmaŋ=ni? ka-naam khaa ʔa-ń-tshuʔn-naak-*hnaa*
Tsewmang=ERG 1s POSS-knife DEIC 3sS-2sO-$stab_2$-INST-PL OBJ
'Tsewmang stabbed you (sg.) with my knives.' (Peterson 1999:14)

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17.1.2.3. Monofunctional versus Polyfunctional Applicative Forms

Another way in which applicative constructions vary cross-linguistically is in the presence / absence of a single applicative form to signal different semantic roles of their objects.[3] Thus, while Haka Lai has seven applicative markers, each with a different semantic function, in Kichaga (Bantu) a single form yields a range of different meanings. A single language may combine monofunctional and polyfunctional applicative forms (e.g., Tukang Besi, Donohue 1999; see also Peterson 1999:4-8, 31-33).

In some Arawak languages of Peru such as Pajonal Asheninka and Yanesha, the same verbal suffix may be used with a rather vague meaning, which may be translated as "with reference to, including, or concerning X" (Wise 1986:592). Consider the following Yanesha examples involving the suffix *-am^{y}p^{y}* (unless otherwise indicated, taken from Wise 2000, originally in Duff-Tripp 1997:100):

(9) a. 0-kow-een-aan chesha-t^{y}oll
3sg-look-CONT-OBJ.FOLLOWS child-DIM
'S/he is looking at the small child.'

b. 0-kow-*am^{y}p^{y}*-een-aan chesha-t^{y}oll
3sg-look-APPL-CONT-OBJ.FOLLOWS child-DIM
'S/he is caring for the small child.'

(10) a. ye-maʔyoch-een-s-a
1pl-pray-CONT-2PL-REFL
'We pray to you (pl).'

[3] The terms "homophonous" and "non-homophonous" applicative forms have been employed to refer to this oposition (Peterson op. cit).

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b. ye-maʔyoch-*amʸpʸ*-een-s-a
1pl-pray-APPL-CONT-2PL-REFL
'We pray for you (pl) (along with others).'

(11) a. 0-chekmʸ-et-een tʸooñ-o
3sg-to.night-EP-CONT trail-LOC
'It's dark / night along the trail.'

b. ye-chekmʸ-et-*amypy*-es tʸooñ-o
1pl-to.night-EP-APPL-ES trail-LOC
'The darkness overtook us (while we were still) on the trail.'

(12) a. 0-ahn-om-a
3sg-to.fly-COMP-REFL
'It (the bird) flew.'

b. y-ahn-om-*amʸpʸ*-s-a
1pl-to.fly-COMP-APPL-EP-REFL
'We flew (in the plane).'

(13) a. ne-maht-a
1sg-run-REFL
'I run.' (Wise 1986:592)

b. ne-maht-*amʸpʸ*-s-apy-a
1sg-run-APPL-EP-2sg-REFL
'I run away from you.' (Wise 1986:592)

(14) y-atʸoor-*amʸpʸ*-een-ʸ ony
1pl-to.fan-APPL-CONT-3sg water
'We fan the fire to heat the water.' (lit. 'we blow / fan the water contained')

(15) 0-aʔnos-*amʸpʸ*-s-aan-a rreera po-choy-oor
he-climb-APPL-EP-OBJ.FOLLOWS-REFL hawk 3sg-child-POS
'He climbed up to where the hawk's chicks were.'

A similar semantically vague "argument adding" derivational suffix has been noted in the Northern Arawak language Tariana (Aikhenvald 2000:166-170). As for the Arabela applicative illustrated in (2), Rich (1999:54) describes it as a generally object-adding

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mechanism, potentially having different functions such as passive comitative, containing something, abnormal condition, and even indicating pity on the part of the speaker.

17.1.2.4. Symmetry versus Asymmetry of Objects

As discussed in 12.3, the term "symmetrical object" has been used with regard to Bantu languages to refer to a situation where two objects may share object-related properties simultaneously, even though there are morpho-syntactic means in the language that distinguish a direct from an indirect object (Bresnan and Moshi 1990). By contrast, in SK there is no systematic morpho-syntactic means for grammatically distinguishing direct from indirect objects.

Applicative constructions vary language externally and language internally both with respect to the distribution of object properties between the applicative object and the base object, and among constructions with different applicatives. As mentioned above, animacy restrictions are found in the cross-referencing verbal pronouns of Haka Lai. Whereas a beneficiary applicative object triggers person cross-referencing on the verb (ex. (1b)), an instrumental applicative object does not (ex. (7)); the latter, however, can still trigger number agreement after the verb stem (ex. (8)). Other object-associated properties with respect to which base and applicative objects may differ are constituent order, case-marking, access to passivization, access to relativization, cross-clausal pivot control, reflexivization and reciprocalization control, etc.

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According to Donohue (1999), in Tukang Besi applicative constructions the valency of the base verb plays a role in determining the syntactic properties of an applicative object. In addition to this, the applicative object displays different syntactic properties depending on the semantic role assigned to it by the polyfunctional applicative *-ako* (which yields dative, instrument, theme, cause, and purpose meanings). For example, sentences (16)-(18) show that "dative" applicative objects, but not "theme" applicative ones, can appear as a nominative argument (exx. (18a-b)) and be indexed on the verb by object suffixes:

Dative

(16) a. No-ala te kau.
3R-fetch CORE wood
'She fetched the wood.'

b. No-ala-ako te ina-su te kau.
3R-fetch-APPL CORE mother-1SG.POSS CORE wood
'She fetched the wood as a favour for my mother.' (Donohue 1999:231)

Theme

(17) a. No-balo te ama-no
3R-answer CORE father-3POSS
'She answered her uncle.' (Donohue 1999:231)

b. No-balo-ako te kampo te ama-no.
3R-answer-APPL CORE village CORE father-3POSS
'She answered her uncle with the (name of the, information about the) village.' (Donohue 1999:232)

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Addition of object suffix to the verb

(18) a. No-ala-ako-'e na ina-su.
3R-fetch-APPL-3OBJ NOM mother-1SG.POSS
'She fetched (it) as a favour to my mother.' (Donohue 1999:232)

b. *No-balo-ako-'e na kampo.
3R-answer-APPL-3OBJ NOM village
'She answered with the (name of the, information about the) village.'
(Donohue 1999:232)

Different properties for base objects are also attested depending on the semantic role assigned to the applicative object. For example, the base object of a dative applicative construction, but not that of a theme applicative construction, can be the head of a relative clause. Donohue (op. cit.:268) concludes that "rather than classifying a language, or even a construction, as symmetrical or asymmetrical, each individual combination of grammatical construction, semantic role, and transitivity needs to be separately examined."

17.1.2.5. Obligatory versus Optional Applicative Types

Although not explicitly mentioned in the definition given in 17.1.1, the prototypical applicative construction is generally viewed as alternative to a non-applicative one. This is illustrated in the next Kinyarwanda examples:

(19) a. Umugóre a-rá-vug-a *n*|âgahiinda.
woman she-pres-say-asp with sorrow
'The woman is talking with sorrow.' (Kimenyi 1980:84)

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b. Umugóre a-rá-vug-*an*-a agahiinda.
woman she-pres-say-APP-asp sorrow
'The woman is talking with sorrow.' (Kimenyi 1980:84)

However, it may be the case that a language has one or more obligatory applicative construction(s); that is, one or more constructions lacking a semantically close non-applicative paraphrase. This is the case of Tzotzil where the only way to express a recipient semantic role is by the addition of the suffix *-be* to the verb:

(20) a. Ba y-ak'-0 ʔune.
go E3-give-A3 PTS
'He went to give it.'

b. ti mi č-av-ak'-b-on ʔep tak'ine
if ASP-E2-give-BE-A1 much money
'if you will give me a lot of money' (Aissen 1983:280)

After the addition of *-be*, the recipient argument functions as a direct object (i.e., triggers person and number agreement on the verb, and may be passivized). Nominals are not marked for case in Tzotzil (Aissen 1983).

17.1.2.6. Valency-Increasing versus Semantic Role Rearrangement Applicative Types

Although this point will not prove to be relevant in the discussion of SK applicatives, it must be mentioned that in many languages the addition of an applicative, particularly to a transitive base, does not always result in increased transitivity of the clause. Therefore,

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applicativization has been characterized as the rearrangement of the argument structure (Comrie 1985:312-319).

Doris Payne (2000) points out that in Yagua the applicative *-ta* sometimes may not result in a transitivity increase or affect the semantic role of an object, but rather add a sense of greater "intensity" to the meaning of the verb. This situation can also be observed by comparing the Yanesha examples (9a) and (9b). In (9b) the addition of the applicative did not introduce object cross-referencing on the verb as it did in (13b); instead, the applicative added the sense of greater "intensity" mentioned by Payne. Similarly, it was stated above that the Arabela applicative may add somewhat idiosyncratic meanings to the clause, such as abnormal condition and even pity on the part of the speaker. Similar functions of applicatives have been reported in Bantu languages (D. L. Payne op.cit.).

17.1.2.7. Transitivity Restrictions

Transitivity restrictions can be divided into two kinds: minimum transitivity requirement and maximum transitivity requirement.

According to Aissen (1983:294-296), in Tzotzil the benefactive *-be* can only be combined with transitive stems; a similar situation has been mentioned with regard to the Panoan language Matses (Kneeland 1979). Shibatani (1996) interprets the minimum transitivity requirement for the benefactive in many languages in terms of the 'give' schema they are based on which requires three core participants.

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On the other hand, languages can be found which do not allow applicativization with a ditransitive basic verb. This group includes the Papuan languages Yimas and Alamblak, as well as Sesotho (Narrow Bantu) (Peterson 1999:47). The following examples are from Sesotho:

(21) a. ntate o-f-a bana lijo
father agr-give-FV children food
'My father gives food to the children.' (Peterson 1999:47, from Machobane 1989:109)

b. *ntata o-f-el-a morena bana lijo
father agr-give-app-FV chief children food
'My father gives food to the children for the chief.' (Peterson 1999:47, from Machobane 1989:111)

17.1.3. Functions of Applicative Constructions

From a cognitive perspective, applicative constructions have been characterized as alternative construals that change the perspective on a scene (Croft 1994); they bring a peripheral participant onto center stage (T. Payne 1999), by assigning it to direct object role. Subjects represent the starting point of an event and are associated with the "ultimate cause," whereas objects represent the endpoint and are associated with the "final result;" oblique NPs represent other entities more or less directly involved in the event. Through a derived applicative construction a peripheral participant (rather than the "normal" object of the action denoted by the basic verb) is construed as the endpoint of the verbal segment, as the "chief locus of the effect of the action" (Croft op.cit.).

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In a study dealing with the discourse-function of applicative constructions in Nez Perce (Sahaptian), Rude (1986) shows that applicative objects display a higher degree of topicality with respect to other objects; Rude employs Givón's (1983) methodology to measure "topic continuity" (i.e., referential distance and topic persistence). With a similar goal in mind, Peterson (1999:49-77) applies two different methodologies to narrative texts in Haka Lai and Wolof (Niger Congo): Givón's (1983) "topic continuity" and Thompson's (1990) "topicworthiness." Peterson's results suggest that in accounting for the motivations for applicative constructions an essential distinction should be made between animate versus inanimate referential entities. The former show topic continuity and topicworthiness properties comparable to those exhibited by recipient objects and surpassing those of patient objects; furthermore, animate applicative objects are far more topical than their corresponding obliques. In contrast, inanimate applicative objects do not generally exhibit a relatively high degree of topicality. In these cases the applicative constructions appear to be morpho-syntactically motivated; i.e., they allow for pronominal instantiation and a preferred means to express an object in relativization, clefting, or topicalization constructions. Similar motivations have also been attested in Olutec (Mixean). In this language applicative constructions are obligatory when the otherwise peripheral argument is relativized, clefted-focused, questioned, and "when it is part of conjoined clauses in which the extra-thematic argument acts as clausal topic" (Zavala 2002). That is, the coding of an otherwise oblique element as direct object can be seen as a means to get the referent into the right syntactic role so that other processes can apply, or to enable it to function as discourse topic (see also Dixon 2000:32).

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In addition, Peterson (op. cit.:37-38) points out that in some languages, the principal motivation for using an applicative construction may be semantic (for example, to distinguish static locative versus allative meanings). As mentioned earlier, an applicative may also be used to add semantico-pragmatic nuances such as greater intensitiy, pity on the part of the speaker, and maybe intentionality.

Generalizing, when compared with their non-applicative counterparts (if available) applicative constructions can be said to be more marked not only structurally, but also functionally; they may also be less frequent (McGregor 1998:194).

17.1.4. Applicativization and Causativization

Applicativization and causativization are prototypically valency-increasing mechanisms that differ in the kind of argument that is added to the clause; a non-patient object in the former case and a causer subject in the latter. It has been noted that a number of geographically and genetically unrelated languages may employ the same form with both causative and applicative (especially benefactive) functions.[4] According to Song (1990:181-9), this is a common feature in a number of North and Central Amerindian languages such as Sierra Miwok (Miwok), Jacaltec (Mayan), Maidu (Penutian), and those belonging to the Uto-Aztecan family. The same situation is found in certain Aboriginal

[4] A discussion of the conceptual issues that drive the applicative-causative connection is offered by Shibatani and Pardeshi (2002); see also 16.2.1. Further research is needed with regard to which applicatives participate in signaling causation.

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languages of Australia, those of the Austronesian family, Khasi (Mon-Khmer), and Wolof (Niger Congo) (Comrie 1981:176).

In South America, the Yagua applicative *-ta* might be cognate with the causative marker *-tániy*, although synchronically these are best considered as two different morphemes (T. Payne 1999).

For some languages it has been reported that the specific interpretation of a single such morpheme is closely associated to the kinds of verbs with which it combines. For example, in Asheninka (Maipuran Arawak) the combination of the "inflectional causative" suffix *-akag* with most verbs of physical activity yields two possible interpretations, a causative and a comitative one; in natural text, however, the latter meaning is the most common (David Payne 2002:490-491):

(22) j-atai-t-aka-an-ak-e-ri jenoki panko-tsi-ki.
3M-climb-&-CAUS-DEP-PERF-MODE-3M high house-UNPOS-LOC
'They climbed up with him / caused him to climb up high in the house.'

In contrast, when attached to verbs such as 'live,' only the causative sense is possible as shown below:

(23) j-aña-aka-ak-e-ri
3M-live-CAUS-PERF-MODE-3M
'He caused them to live on' (i.e. did something dramatic, perhaps even sacrificing his own life, to enable his family to go on living). *'he lived with them'

In a similar fashion, in Seko Padang (Western Austronesian), the suffix *-ing* is said to function as applicative when added to transitive verbs but as causative with certain

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intransitive verbs (T. Payne 1999, exx. 16-17). According to Austin (1993:5), some Australian languages have a single affix that works either as causative or applicative depending on the type of verb root to which it is attached. Other Australian languages have two or more suffixes; one used with unaccusative verbs to form causatives, and the second one restricted to unergative verbs to form applicatives. In Hualapai (Yuman) the same verbal suffix derives causatives from stative predicates but benefactives from active ones (Ichihashi-Nakayama 1996:232).

As pointed out in Valenzuela (1997:100-131), SK employs different forms for causativization and applicativization, suggesting that the addition of an A argument is viewed differently from the addition of an O argument. Nevertheless, as shown in 16.2.1, there are constructions where the two categories meet. In the following sentence the associative applicative *-kin* is used instead of the causativizer *-ma*, in order to express a particular kind of indirect causation. Unlike (20b), (20a) implies that the old woman also enters the mosquito net:

(24) a. Yoxaman-ra bake bachi-n jiki-*kin*-ke.
old.woman:ERG-EV child:ABS mosquito.net-ALL enter-ASSOC-CMPL
'The old woman made the child enter the mosquito net (by entering herself). /
The old woman accompanied the child into the mosquito net. /
The old woman helped the child enter the mosquito net.'

b. Yoxaman-ra bake bachi-n jiki-*ma*-ke.
old.woman:ERG-EV child:ABS mosquito.net-ALL enter-CAUS-CMPL
'The old woman made / had the child enter the mosquito net (but she did not enter herself).

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I will return to the discussion of sociative causation in section 17.4.1, when dealing with the verb *tee-* 'work.'

17.1.5. Applicatives in Shipibo-Konibo

As mentioned in the introduction, SK has three morphologically distinct applicatives: the affective (i.e., benefactive or malefactive) *-xon*, the associative *-kin ~ -kiin*, and the specific malefactive *-(V)naan ~ -(V)n*. These suffixes immediately follow the verb stem, and generally precede modifying,[5] tense, number, and aspectual morphology. As will be shown in the following sections, the addition of any of the three applicatives increases the transitivity of the clause by one. Another characteristic of SK, and probably of Panoan in general, is the fact that applicatives lack cognate NP markers (see 17.2.5, 17.3.6, and 17.4.4). Table 17.1 shows that applicatives differ a great deal in terms of text frequency; in addition, they distribute differently with intransitive and transitive verbs. The column corresponding to intransitives includes extended intransitive and reciprocalized verbs, while that for transitives also includes ditransitives; under the category "others," are grouped (additional) non-prototypical transitive or intransitive verbs:

[5] By verbal "modifying" morphology I mean suffixes such as the negative and the desiderative, as well as others whose meanings are commonly encoded through adverbials in other languages (see 7.7).

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Table 17.1. Text Frequency of Shipibo-Konibo Applicatives

	Intrans. Stems	Trans. Stems	Others	Total
affective *-xon*	6	76	2	84
associative *-kin*	21	23	1	45
malefactive *-(V)naan*	0	17	0	17
TOTAL	27	116	3	146

17.2. The Affective *-Xon*

The addition of *-xon* to a verb stem indicates the introduction of an object argument which is semantically a beneficiary or maleficiary of the situation described by the verb. The benefactive applicative type has been claimed to be the most common cross-linguistically (Croft 1994:95, Peterson 1999:4 and Chapter 5).

As shown in Table 17.1, *-xon* is by far the applicative with the highest frequency of occurrence. Although it can be added to both intransitive and transitive verbs, its combination with the latter is overwhelmingly more frequent. Table 17.2 lists the specific verbs to which *-xon* attaches in the text data (the number of occurrences per verb is indicated within parentheses).[6]

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[6] The lists of verbs and frequencies in Tables 17.2, 17.4, and 17.6 are relative to my corpus; I do not wish to make any claims about what verbs applicatives might combine with if a different corpus were chosen. Nevertheless, I have decided to include this information to provide a picture of what verbs applicatives do occur with. Even though the applicative constructions analyzed here are totally productive, this does not mean in actual discourse applicatives occur with every potential base. As for the number of occurrences, this information provides an overall impression of how frequently applicative constructions occur.

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Table 17.2. Verb Stems Occurring with the Applicative *-Xon*

Intransitive Stems: 6 instances

korá-	'produce noise (by several people)' (1)
ik-	'be, do (intr.)' (1)
nashi-	'bathe' (2)
yoran ik-	'have sexual intercourse' (1)
reken-	'lead the way' (1)

Non-prototypical transitive Stem: 2 instances with same verb

wina-[7]	'row' (2)

Transitive Stems: 76 instances

ak-	'make, do (tr.)' (18)
bi-	'get, extract' (7)
na-raka-n-	'apply on the interior' (1)
rao-n-	'treat with medicine' (2)
ninkat-	'hear' (4)
pe-kewé ak-	'embroider on the back' (1)
wi-kené ak-	'design on the leg' (1)
wexa-	'scratch, scrape' (1)
bena-	'search, look for' (1)
oro-	'sow' (1)
keté ak-	'light up' (1)
bo-	'carry, take' (3)
ponte-	'correct, guide' (1)
raan-	'send' (2)
tseka-	'take out, extract' (1)
repi-n-	'dock a canoe on the shore' (1)

[7] The verb root *wina-* is considered a non-prototypical transitive verb for the following reasons: *wina-* triggers transitivity agreement, requires its subject to be marked ergative and to impose A agreement. Furthermore, in elicitation *wina-* allows for the presence of an absolutive marked object (either a means of transportation such as a canoe or a person). However, all the text occurrences of *wina-* I have come across so far lack an expressed object (see also Valenzuela 1997:181-184).

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senen ak-	'abide by, keep' (1)
be-	'bring' (4)
pota-	'leave' (1)
chia(k)-	'tighten (the mosquito net)' (4)
nia(k)-	'introduce (in this case, a bone making a bodypart stand)' (1)
motsa-	'grind' (1)
kobin-a(k)-	'boil' (1)
nane-	'embark, put on board' (1)
napó-	'put inside the canoe' (2)
axe-a-	'teach' (2)
taria-a(k)-	'do the homework' (1)
onan-ma-	'show, teach' (1)
toa-	'have in the lap' (1)
xeati-a(k)-	'prepare drink' (3)
yoi-	'tell' (2)
tsaka-	'drive (e.g. a fish)' (1)
benxoa-	'cure' (1)
kopi-	'cast a spell on someone (in return)' (1)
jopé-	'take off (the clothes)' (1)

17.2.1. *-Xon* with Intransitive Stems

When added to an intranstive verb, *-xon* works as a transitivizer adding a second participant to the clause. The subject of the applicative construction (the base S) takes the ergative marker, and the applicative object is marked absolutive. Consider the following examples:

(25) Pexé Piko-ra tee-ke. / *Pexé Piko-n-ra
Pexé Piko:ABS-EV work-CMPL
'Pexé Piko worked.'

(26) Pexé Piko-*n*-ra e-a tee-*xon*-ke. / *Pexé Piko-ra
Pexé Piko-ERG-EV 1-ABS work-*xon*-CMPL
'Pexé Piko worked for me (e.g., in my chacra).'

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(27) Kashibo joni-ra reken-ke.
Kashibo person:ABS-EV first-CMPL
'The Kashibo man led (the way).'

(28) Kashibo joni-*n*-ra Shipibo reken-*xon*-ke jawen
Kashibo person-ERG-EV Shipibo:ABS first-*xon*-CMPL POS3

kaibo betan rete-anan-ti-nko-bo.
fellow.countrymen COM kill-REC-INF-LOC-PL
'The Kashibo man led (the way) for the Shipibo during the confrontations against his fellow Kashibos.'

In combination with certain verbs, a *-xon*-marked applicative construction may indicate that the subject performs an action in place of the object to which *-xon* refers:

(29) E-a isin-ai-tian-ra nokon wetsa-n e-a
1-ABS be.sick-S-DS-EV POS1 same.sex.sibling-ERG 1-ABS

tee-tan-xon-ke.
work-go.do.and.return-*xon*-CMPL
'Since I was sick, my brother went to work for me.'

The choice between a benefactive and a malefactive reading is often achieved by context. Of course, the semantics of the verb involved play an important role in making one of the interpretations most plausible. For example, when added to verbs such as *tee-* 'work' or *jo-* 'come,' *-xon* is most likely interpreted as a benefactive (ex. 29); on the other hand, when attached to verbs such as *isin-* 'get sick,' *mawat-* ~ *mawá-* 'die,' *rabin-* 'feel embarrassed,' *jison-* 'urinate' a malefactive reading is most plausible. Consider the following example (see also (38)):

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(30) Bake-n-ra e-a isin-*xon*-ai.
child-ERG-EV 1-ABS get.sick-*xon*-INC
'My child is sick on me.'

The sentence below illustrates an instance where either a benefactive or a malefactive interpretation is possible, depending on the situational and cultural context:

(31) Nokon bake-n-ra e-a kinan-*xon*-ke.
POS1 child-ERG-EV 1-ABS vomit-*xon*-CMPL
'My child vomited (to my benefit / detriment).'

Shipibo (grand)parents treat their male children with vegetal medicine so that they become good fishers / hunters. This treatment induces vomiting which is expected to free the child from negative characteristics such as lazyness, poor shooting, etc. In such a circumstance, the sentence above would have a benefactive reading. If instead the child throws up for no apparent reason, the same expression would be given a malefactive interpretation since it could mean that the child is sick. Similarly, by simply replacing the verb *kinan-* in (31) by *oxa-* 'sleep' the meanings 'My child slept (to my benefit / detriment)' would be obtained. Again, the choice between a benefactive and a malefactive reading would depend on the specific situation.

Examples (32)-(34) illustrate the use of *-xon* as a malefactive applicative in the text data. In (32), a woman is advized to make use of a specific *piripiri*[8] in case she wants to separate from her partner but evaluates that he will not agree to the separation. Therefore, the use of the *piripiri* is viewed as detrimental to the man's interests:

[8] The *pechi waste* is a type of *piripiri* (plant with special powers) used when one wishes to be abandoned by one's spouse or lover.

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(32) Ja joni-shoko mi-on keen-ai-bi
that man-DIM:ABS 2-INTRSS want-SDS-EM

mi-a ja-on keen-yama-kin,
2-ABS 3-INTRSS want-NEG-SSSA

mi-n pe-chi waste-n nashi-*xon*-ti atipan-ke.
2-ERG BACK-BUTTOCK *piripiri*-INST bathe-*xon*-INF can-CMPL
'Even if that little man loves you, if you do not love him, you can bathe with the "to be abandoned" *piripiri* (to his detriment).'

The example below involves the intransitive stem *korá-* 'to be noisy, produce noise (by several individuals).' Given that a woman needs concentration when making pottery, the fact that children around her are being noisy is clearly seen as detrimental to her work:

(33) No-n chomo ak-ai-tian bake-baon no-a korá-*xon*-ti
1p-ERG jar:ABS do.T-S-DS child-PL:ERG 1p-ABS produce.noise-*xon*-INF

yama-ke.
exist.not-CMPL
'When we are making pottery, the children must not produce noise (to our detriment).'

According to Shipibo culture, the father of a newborn child must carefully abide by a set of specific rules, avoiding certain activities (e.g. eating certain kinds of meat, touching certain trees in the forest, lifting heavy objects, having sexual intercourse especially with a woman other than the child's mother, playing soccer) in order not to affect the good development of the baby. In (34), the father did not comply with one of the prohibitions, and therefore his child has been adversely affected:

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(34) Jawen papa-n yora-n i-*xon*-a bicha-bo
POS3 father-ERG body-OBL do.I-*xon*-PO>S/A phlegm-PL:ABS

kinan-ai ja bake-shoko-n.
vomit-INC that child-DIM-ERG
'Because his father had sexual intercourse (to the baby's detriment), the baby is vomiting phlegm.'

Ex. (35) is an alternative expression of (34), where it is evident that the baby is in fact the applicative object of the cause clause. Notice also that in both examples the affective object serves as pivot of the object-to-subject coreferentiality indicated by *-a* (cf. 17.2.3.4):

(35) Bake-shoko jawen papa-n yora-n i-xon-*a*
child-DIM:ABS POS3 father-ERG body-OBL do.I-*xon*-PO>S/A

bicha-bo kinan-ai.
phlegm-PL:ABS vomit-INC
'Because its father had sexual intercourse to its detriment, the baby is vomiting phlegm.'

The depreciatory marker *-isi* may be used to force the malefactive interpretation of *-xon* in a construction where otherwise a benefactive reading would be most plausible:

(36) a. Oa-tonon-ra jo-xon-ke.
DIST-ERG-EV come-*xon*-CMPL
'Those (people) came (to my benefit).'

b. Oa-*tonioinsi*-ra jo-xon-ke.
DIST-ERG:DEPREC-EV come-*xon*-CMPL
'Those (people) came (to my detriment).'

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The following examples show the suffix *-xon* functioning as a benefactive (37) and as a malefactive (38), in combination with inactive intransitive roots; after the addition of *-xon* the subject is marked as ergative given that the whole clause is now transitive:

(37) Nokon choncho-baon-ra moa e-a ani-xon-ke.
POS1 chicken-PL:ERG-EV already 1-ABS (become)big-*xon*-CMPL
'My chickens grew already (to my benefit).'

(38) Nokon shino-n-ra e-a mawá-xon-ke.
POS1 monkey-ERG-EV 1-ABS die-*xon*-CMPL
'My monkey died on me.'[9]

Examples (39) and (40) illustrate the use of *-xon* not only with inactive intransitive verbs but also with inanimate patient-subjects:

(39) Atsa xeati-nin-ra moa no-a pae-xon-ke.
yuca drink-ERG-EV already 1p-ABS (become)sour-*xon*-CMPL
'The yuca beer already fermented to our benefit.'

(40) Nonti-n-ra e-a payó-xon-ke.
canoe-ERG-EV 1-ABS become.rotten-*xon*-CMPL
'(My) canoe became rotten to my detriment.'

The examples above are particularly interesting from a cross-linguistic perspective, given that languages sometimes restrict subjects of applicatives to volitional agent-like entities (Austin 1997, Ichihashi-Nakayama 1996, Shibatani and Pardeshi 2002).

Zero-derived intransitive verbs consisting of a nominal, adjectival root, or even a postposition, may also take the affective applicative (see also exx. (28) and (39)):

[9] The form *mawá-xon-* is not acceptable in combination with a human patient subject (Yoi Sani, p.c. 2000).

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shino 'monkey'
shino- 'turn into a monkey, behave like a monkey'

(41) Ranoman-ra bake-bo shino-xon-ke.
young.man:ERG-EV child-PL:ABS turn.into.monkey-*xon*-CMPL
'The young man behaves like a monkey to please the children.'

napon 'in the middle / center of'
napon- 'get to the middle / center (e.g. of the river or lake)'

(42) Nokon bake-n-ra e-a napon-xon-ke e-n
POS1 child-ERG-EV 1-ABS get.to.the.middle-*xon*-CMPL 1-ERG

rishki-kas-a-bi.
hit-DES-PO>S/A-EM
'My child got to the middle (of the river / lake) to my detriment, because I wanted to hit him.'

As will be discussed in 17.2.2 and 17.3.1, the double function of *-xon* as benefactive and malefactive is related to the fact that intransitives cannot generally take the dedicated malefactive marker.

17.2.2. *-Xon* with Transitive Stems

So far, I have shown that it is possible for *-xon* to occur with different kinds of intransitive stems. Nevertheless, in spontaneous utterances *-xon* is mostly attached to transitives. In these latter instances, *-xon* functions almost exclusively as a benefactive marker. Consider the following text examples:

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(43) E-a nonti a-*xon*-we!
1-ABS canoe:ABS do.T-*xon*-CMPL
'Make a canoe for me!'

(44) "E-n mi-a raan-*xon*-i jo-bá-non westíora nonti ani bocho kabóri."
1-ERG 2-ABS send-*xon*-SSSS come-P/J-P/J one canoe big full *taricaya*

Jain-xon-ronki napó-*xon*-a iki kabóri…
there-PDCA-HSY put.inside-*xon*-PP2 AUX *taricaya*:ABS
'"I am going to send you (with sb. else) a big canoe full of *taricayas* (k. turtle);" (he said). Then he placed the *taricayas* inside (the canoe)…'

(45) Ja-tian jawe-bi maxká-yam[a]-ai: wetsa-n-ki piti
that-TEMP what:ABS-EM lack-NEG-INC other-ERG-HSY food/fish:ABS

bena-*xon*-ai, wetsa-n wai oro-*xon*-ai; ja-ska-ra.
search-*xon*-INC other-ERG chacra:ABS clear-*xon*-INC that-SIML-*ra*
'Then, (the shaman woman with two husbands) did not lack anything: while one (husband) searched for food / fish (for her), the other one cleared the chacra (for her); so it was.'

The following two sentences represent counterexamples found in the text data to the generalization that *-xon* when combined with transitive base verbs necessarily yields a benefactive reading. In both examples the negative *-yama* is involved:

(46) Ja-tian ja bake-shoko jawen ani-baon jawe-bi
that-TEMP that child-DIM:ABS POS3 big-PL:ERG what-EM:ABS

a-xon-yama-a jakon-shoko ani-ai, wini-yam-ai.
do.T-*xon*-NEG- PO>S/A well-DIM (become)big-INC cry-NEG-INC
'Then, if its parents have not done anything (prohibited) to its detriment that baby will grow nicely, it will not cry.'

(47) No-n bene pota-bain-a noibati-shoko, no-n
1p-ERG husband leave-AND2-PP2-ABS poor-DIM 1p-ERG

ja-ská-*a-xon*-ti atipan-yama-ke.
that-SIML-do.T-*xon*-INF can-NEG-CMPL
'And as to the poor husband whom we have left (in the village), we cannot do this (i.e. be unfaithful) on him.'

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Notice also that in both sentences above, *-xon* combines with the transitive (pro-)verb *a(k)-*, and thus one may entertain the hypothesis that the apparent counterexamples result from the lexicalization of the sequence *a-xon-*, or from some kind of restriction precluding the combination of *ak-* with the malefactive applicative (but see 17.2.2).[10]

Further instances of a malefactive sense achieved by the addition of the negative *-yama* to a *-xon*-marked stem are given below. In particular *ninká-xon-* in (48) appears to be (developing as) a fixed expression in SK; bilingual speakers translate *ninká-xon-* into the Spanish *hacer caso* 'pay attention, listen to, follow somebody's advice:'

(48) Piróta a-ti-n no-a a-kan-ai *alcalde* i-táanan; jakon a-kin
ball do.T-INF-OBL 1p-ABS do.T-PL-INC mayor be-PSS good do.T-SSSA

no-a ninká-*xon*-yama-kan-ai no-n jema maxkat-a jawéki-bo
1p-ABS hear-*xon*-NEG-PL-INC 1p-GEN town lack-PP2 thing-PL:ABS

no-n yoiy-ai-tian.
1p-ERG say-S-DS
'Once elected mayor (the former candidates) treat us like a ball (i.e. they send us from one office to the next one); they don't listen to us when we expose to them the necessities of our town.'

The predicate *senen a-xon-*, which is illustrated below, also seems to have lexicalized as 'comply with something:'

(49) Moa no-a senen'a-*xon*-yama-kan-ai-tian no-n xepo-ti ja-ke
already 1p-ABS edge do.T-*xon*-NEG-PL-S-DS 1p-ERG lock-INF exist-CMPL

[10] As suggested by Phil Young (p.c.), in both cases the detrimental act does not occur; i.e. both are cases of something that would be detrimental not happening.

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karaboso-ain westíora nete.
jail-LOC one day
'When people don't comply with their obligations towards us, we have to lock them in the village jail for one day.'

Forces can be encoded as subjects of applicative constructions with a transitive base verb:

(50) E-a oi jene-n nokon nonti choka-*xon*-a.
1-ABS rain flowing.water-ERG POS1 canoe:ABS wash-*xon*-PP2
'The rain washed my canoe well to my benefit.'

(51) Bai koshi-n-ra e-a nokon pisha be-*xon*-ke.
way strong-ERG-EV 1-ABS POS1 bag:ABS bring-*xon*-CMPL
'The water current brought my bag (to the shore) to my benefit.'

(52) Bari-n-ra nokon chopa e-a ishton manxan a-xonke.
sun-ERG-EV POS1 clothes:ABS 1-ABS quickly dry do.T-*xon*-CMPL
'The sun dried my clothes very quickly to my benefit.'

Unlike subjects, which do not need to be human or even animate, it appears that beneficiaries must be animates (see also maleficiaries in 17.3.3):

(53) E-n-ra joshin pitso / shino be-xon-ke.
1-ERG-EV red:ABS paroqueet:ABS / capuchin.monkey:ABS bring-*xon*-CMPL
'I brought ripe banana for (my) paroqueet / capuchin monkey.'

(54) a. *E-n-ra pei xobo be-xon-ke.
1-ERG-EV leaf:ABS house:ABS bring-*xon*-CMPL
'I brought leaves for my house (i.e. for the roof).'

b. E-n-ra pei be-ke xobo jakon a-noxon.
1-ERG-EV leaf:ABS bring-CMPL house:ABS good do.T-FSSA
'I brought leaves to improve my house.'

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(55) a. *E-n-ra iskoira kirika-bo be-xon-ke.
1-ERG-EV school:ABS book-PL:ABS bring-*xon*-CMPL
'I brought books for the school.'

b. E-n-ra kirika-bo be-ke iskoira-na i-ti.
1-ERG-EV book-PL:ABS bring-CMPL school-GEN:NMLZ be-INF
'I brought books for the school (lit. so that they are of the school).'

The category "transitive verbs" includes monotransitives and ditransitives; in the text data, however, only one instance of *-xon* attached to a ditransitive verb has been attested. Also in this case the addition of *-xon* has a valency-increasing effect. This example is given as (58) in the section below.

17.2.3. Object Properties in *-Xon* Applicative Constructions

In this section, I examine morpho-syntactic properties of base and applicative objects in order to determine whether ditransitive *-xon* applicative constructions in SK treat their objects symmetrically, or whether base and applicative objects behave differently in any relevant respect. Since SK has no object (or subject) agreement in the verb and it lacks canonical passive (or antipassive) constructions, the related object properties are not pertinent to our purposes. The object-associated criteria that may be relevant in SK and therefore will be considered in this section are: constituent order, case-marking, access to relativization, reciprocalization control, and interclausal pivot control.

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17.2.3.1. Coding Properties: Case-Marking and Constituent Order

When the applicative *-xon* is added to a transitive root, the resulting verb is ditransitive. Given that both the base and the applicative object occur in the absolutive case, and that their relative order is not fixed, neither constituent order nor case-marking may distinguish between them. Example (56) containing two objects of equal animacy status shows that either absolutive-marked (i.e., unmarked) argument may be interpreted as patient or benefactive:

(56) E-n-ra Rawa Piko kopi-xon-ke.
1-ERG-EV Rawa:ABS Piko:ABS cast.a.spell.on.sb.in.return-*xon*-CMPL
'(In return) I cast a spell on Rawa to Piko's benefit.' /
'(In return) I cast a spell on Piko to Rawa's benefit.'

At least in elicitation, either object may precede the other one, even when there is a clear difference in the degree of animacy of the referents:

(57) a. Ainbo-nin-ra meráya tari a-xon-ke.
woman-ERG-EV great.shaman:ABS *tari*:ABS do.T-*xon*-CMPL

b. Ainbo-nin-ra tari meráya a-xon-ke.
woman-ERG-EV *tari*:ABS great.shaman:ABS do.T-*xon*-CMPL
'The woman made a *tari* (traditional men's clothes) for the great shaman.'

The next sentence is the only instance in the spontaneous data where *-xon* combines with a ditransitive root. As is generally the case with text examples involving multiple arguments, not all of the objects in the quoted clause are overtly expressed:

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(58) Awakan yoiy-a iki, "mi-n ibo e-a yoi-*xon*-tan-we,"
tapir:ERG say-PP2 AUX 2-GEN owner:ABS 1-ABS say-*xon*-go.and.return-IMP

a-kin-ki ak-á iki, kimisha-a-kin.
do.T-SSSA-HSY2 do.T-PP2 AUX three-do.T-SSSA
'The tapir told (the fish), "go tell your owner for me!" So he said (to it) three times.'

Nevertheless, it is possible to elicit, without any difficulty, applicative constructions with three absolutive-marked overt arguments:

(59) Nokon papa-n-ra e-a Kesten Beso jawen baba
POS1 father-ERG-EV 1-ABS Kesten Beso:ABS POS3 grandchild:ABS

yoká-xon-ke, e-n awin a-ti.
ask-*xon*-CMPL 1-ERG wife do.T-INF
'My father asked Kesten Beso for his granddaughter for me, so that I could marry her.'

Another test that has been employed in distinguishing applicative objects from base objects is left-dislocation. According to Peterson (1999:16-22), in Haka Lai applicative objects but not base objects can be left-dislocated (however, this is possible if the non-dislocated object has a discourse deictic). Consider the next Haka Lai exx. :

AG BEN GOAL
(60) tsewmaŋ=ni? taaynaamkooŋ niihuu ?a-0-tshi?m-piak
Tsemang-ERG Taaynaamkoong Niihuu 3sS-3sO-say$_2$-BEN
'Tsewmang said it to Niihuu for Taaynaamkoong.'

BEN AG GOAL
(61) taaynaamkooŋ tsewmaŋ=ni? niihuu ?a-0-tshi?m-piak
Taaynaamkoong Tsemang-ERG Niihuu 3sS-3sO-say$_2$-BEN
'Tsewmang said it to Niihuu for Taaynaamkoong.'
* 'Tsewmang said it to Taaynaamkoong for Niihuu.'

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	BEN	AG	GOAL	
(62)	niihuu	tsewmaŋ=ni?	taaynaamkooŋ	?a-0-tshi?m-piak
	Niihuu	Tsewmang-ERG	Taaynaamkoong	3sS-3sO-say$_2$-BEN

*'Tsewmang said it to Niihuu for Taaynaamkoong.'
'Tsewmang said it to Taaynaamkoong for Niihuu.'

In SK, however, both objects can be preposed:

(63) a. E-n-ra bake tita raan-xon-ke.
1-ERG-EV child:ABS mother:ABS send-*xon*-CMPL

b. Bake-ra e-n tita raan-xon-ke.
child:ABS-EV 1-ERG mother:ABS send-*xon*-CMPL
'I sent my child for mother (e.g. to accompany her).' /
'I sent mother for my child.')

or right-dislocated:

(64) a. Ainbo-nin-ra tari a-xon-ke, meráya.
woman-ERG-EV *tari*:ABS do.T-*xon*-CMPL great.shaman:ABS

b. Ainbo-nin-ra meráya a-xon-ke, tari.
woman-ERG-EV g.shaman:ABS do.T-*xon*-CMPL *tari*:ABS

c. Tari-ra ainbo-nin a-xon-ke, meráya.
tari:ABS-EV woman-ERG do.T-*xon*-CMPL g.shaman:ABS

d. Meráya-ra ainbo-nin a-xon-ke, tari.
g.shaman:ABS-EV woman-ERG do.T-*xon*-CMPL *tari*:ABS
'The woman made a *tari* for the great shaman.'

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17.2.3.2. Relativization

Additionally, both the applicative object and the base object may be extracted. In these instances, the resulting structure may function as a relative clause. Therefore, I will treat extraction together with relativization. The examples in (65) show that either the patient or the applicative object may be extracted or relativized on:

(65) a. Nato r-iki tari [ainbo-nin meráya a-xon-a].
this EV-COP *tari*:ABS woman-ERG great.shaman:ABS do.T-*xon*-PP2:ABS
'This is the *tari* that the woman made for the great shaman.'

b. Nato r-iki ja[11] meráya [ainbo-nin tari a-xon-a].
this EV-COP that g.shaman:ABS woman-ERG *tari*:ABS do.T-*xon*-PP2:ABS
'This is the great shaman for whom the woman made a *tari*.'

It is possible in some cases to obtain ambiguous readings. Hence, in (66a) and (66b) the relativized element is given a patient object and a benefactive object interpretation, respectively:

(66) a. *Joni* [*yobekan* *kopi-xon-a*]-*ra*
person sorcerer:ERG cast.a.spell.on.in.return-*xon*-PP2:ABS-EV

moa mawá-kas-ai.
already die-DES-INC
'The man on whom the sorcerer cast a spell (in return) (to sb. else's benefit) is dying.'

[11] Note that the applicative object, which is also higher in animacy than the patient object, takes the demonstrative *ja*. A further question to explore is whether the distribution of deictic elements may serve to differentiate between these two types of objects in discourse. For example, in Haka Lai, the deictic *khaa* tends to occur more with applicative objects than with other objects, thus suggesting a higher degree of topicality for the deictically marked object (Peterson 1999:14-16).

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b. *Joni* [*yobekan* *kopi-xon-a*]-*ra*
person sorcerer:ERG cast.a.spell.on.in return-*xon*-PP2:ABS-EV

raro-shaman iki.
happy-INTENS COP
'The man for whom the sorcerer cast a spell (on sb. else) (in return) is happy.'

In addition to following their head nominals, relative clauses in SK may also precede or surround their heads. In the latter instances only objects (and intransitive subjects, see 10.2.4.8) can be interpreted as the relativized element or NP_{REL}. The following set of examples show the same basic sentence with prenominal, internally-headed and postnominal relatives. Moreover, with internally-headed relatives there are two options, either the beneficiary precedes the patient or vice versa (in each case the argument interpreted as NP_{REL} is underlined):

(67) a. E-n-ra oin-ke <u>tari</u> PRENOMINAL
1-ERG-EV see-CMPL *tari*

[ainbo-nin ja meráya a-xon-a].
woman-ERG that great.shaman:ABS do.T-*xon*-PP2:ABS

b. E-n-ra oin-ke INTERNAL
1-ERG-EV see-CMPL

[ainbo-nin ja meráya <u>tari</u> a-xon-a].
woman-ERG that g.shaman:ABS *tari*:ABS do.T-*xon*-PP2:ABS

c. E-n-ra oin-ke INTERNAL
1-ERG-EV see-CMPL

[ainbo-nin <u>tari</u> ja meráya a-xon-a].
woman-ERG *tari*:ABS that g.shaman:ABS do.T-*xon*-PP2:ABS

d. E-n-ra oin-ke POSTNOMINAL
1-ERG-EV see-CMPL

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[ainbo-nin ja meráya a-xon-a] tari.
woman-ERG that g.shaman:ABS do.T-*xon*-PP2 *tari*:ABS
'I saw the *tari* that the woman made for the great shaman.'

The four expressions above are grammatical and, consistently, a language consultant interpreted them as instances of patient object relative constructions. In accordance with this finding, the four expressions below are grammatical in principle. Nevertheless, (68c) and (68d) were consistently rejected if assigned an applicative object (i.e., benefactive) relative meaning:

(68) a. E-n-ra oin-ke ja meraya PRENOMINAL
1-ERG-EV see-CMPL that g.shaman

[ainbo-nin tari a-xon-a].
woman-ERG *tari*:ABS do.T-*xon*-PP2:ABS

b. E-n-ra oin-ke POSTNOMINAL
1-ERG-EV see-CMPL

[ainbo-nin tari a-xon-a] meraya.
woman-ERG *tari*:ABS do.T-*xon*-PP2 g.shaman:ABS

c. *E-n-ra oin-ke INTERNAL
1-ERG-EV see-CMPL

[ainbo-nin ja meraya tari a-xon-a].
woman-ERG that g.shaman:ABS *tari*:ABS do.T-*xon*-PP2:ABS

d. *E-n-ra oin-ke INTERNAL
1-ERG-EV see-CMPL

[ainbo-nin tari ja meraya a-xon-a].
woman-ERG *tari*:ABS that g.shaman:ABS do.T-*xon*-PP2:ABS
'I saw the great shaman for whom the woman made *tari*.'

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That is, in internally-headed relatives, when both objects were overtly expressed it is the base object that was interpreted as NP_{REL}. Similar results were obtained when sentences (69a)-(69f) were examined by the same consultant:

(69) a. E-n-ra benai [Beso-n kirika bake be-xon-a].
1-ERG-EV search:INC Beso-ERG book:ABS child:ABS bring-*xon*-PP2:ABS

b. E-n-ra benai [Beson bake kirika be-xon-a].
1-ERG-EV search:INC Beso-ERG child:ABS book:ABS bring-*xon*-PP2:ABS

c. E-n-ra benai [Beson bake be-xon-a] kirika.
1-ERG-EV search:INC Beso-ERG child:ABS bring-*xon*-PP2 book:ABS

d. E-n-ra benai kirika [Beso-n bake be-xon-a].
1-ERG-EV search:INC book:ABS Beso-ERG child:ABS bring-*xon*-PP2:ABS
'I am looking for the book that Beso brought for the boy.'
*'I am looking for the boy for whom Beso brought a / the book.'

e. E-n-ra benai bake [Beso-n kirika be-xon-a].
1-ERG-EV search:INC child:ABS Beso-ERG book:ABS bring-*xon*-PP2:ABS

f. E-n-ra benai [Beso-n kirika be-xon-a] bake.
1-ERG-EV search:INC Beso-ERG book:ABS bring-*xon*-PP2 child:ABS
'I am looking for the boy for whom Beso brought a / the book.'

It must be pointed out that for (69b), *kirika* was interpreted as the relativized object in three out of four trials (obtained at different opportunities), and thus in this particular case the underlined element corresponds to the one that was dominantly chosen (in the fourth trial the applicative object was chosen instead). In conclusion, this piece of evidence suggests that in *-xon* applicative constructions it is base / patient objects that are generally relativized through an internally-headed strategy. Although it must be stressed that the results above derive from the judgements of a single native speaker, these were fairly

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consistent.[12] However, all of this does not differentiate whether it is base object syntactic status versus patient semantic role that is the relevant factor in these examples.

17.2.3.3. Reciprocalization

Since an object generally has the property of being able to be reflexive or reciprocal with the subject, a question that may arise is which of the objects of a ditransitive applicative construction controls reciprocality. First, consider the following English examples to illustrate the potential ambiguity when the subject and both objects are animate (from Peterson 1999:23):

(70) a. We met each other for the children.
b. We met the children for each other.

In both sentences above the expression 'each other' is coreferential with the subject. However, while in (70a) 'each other' encodes the patient participant, in (70b) it refers to the beneficiary. Crucially, when similar expressions are encoded through applicative constructions (with the exception of instrumentals), only the applicative object may be understood as reciprocal with the subject in Haka Lai (1999:22-24):

[12] Furthermore, the same pattern was found with the patient and the (anti)recipient objects of the verbs *meni-* 'give' and *bichin-* 'take away;' that is, in these instances when an internally-headed relative was offered to the consultant his interpretation corresponded to that of a patient relative. In contrast, other ditransitive stems such as *bi-ma-* 'cause to receive (e.g. someone in matrimony)' show no difference in the relativization of either object through an internally-headed construction (but this example is admitedly problematic given that *bi-ma-* is potentially a reciprocal; i.e., if I cause X to receive Y in matrimony, then I also cause Y to receive X).

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(71) tsewmaŋ ʔan-ʔii-tshoʔn-piak
Tsewmang 3pS-REFL-talk.to$_2$-BEN
'They talked to Tsewmang for the benefit of each other.'
*They talked to each other for the benefit of Tsewmang.' (Peterson 1999:23)

Utterances where the applicative *-xon* and the reciprocal have been added to a verb root (in this order) are found in the text data. In all instances, 'each other' is interpreted as the applicative object:

(72) Ja-bo-ra kokoti-bo *be-xon-anan*-ai.
3-PL:ABS-EV fruit-PL:ABS bring-BEN-REC-INC
'They bring fruit for each other.'

(73) Ja-bo-ra *bi-xon-anan*-ai.
3-PL:ABS-EV get-BEN-REC-INC
'They buy from each other / for each other.'

(74) Oa rabé-ra ia *bi-xon-anan*-i iki.
DIST two:ABS-EV lice:ABS get-BEN-REC-SSSS COP
'Those two are searching each other for lice.'

However, the text data does not contain any instance in which *-xon* and the reciprocal combine on the same verb and all the arguments are human. The remainder of this section is based on elicited examples from a single native speaker, and thus the results are necessarily provisional. Example (75b) was offered to a language consultant who provided the free translation ((75a) is given here for comparison):

(75) a. Nokon bake-bo noko-ananan-ke.
POS1 child-PL:ABS meet-REC-CMPL
'My children met each other.'

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b. E-a-ra nokon bake-baon noko-*ananan-xon*-ke.
1-ABS-EV POS1 child-PL:ERG meet-REC-*xon*-CMPL
'My children met each other for me.'

The sentence above was readily accepted, and the patient object was understood as reciprocal with the subject (see also ex. (87)). When asked whether the beneficiary could also be understood as reciprocal with the subject, the consultant included additional material to make the sentence acceptable; hence, this interpretation seems to be acceptable but dispreferred:

(76) E-a-ra nokon bake-baon noko-ananan-xon-ke,
1-ABS-EV POS1 child-PL:ERG meet-REC-*xon*-CMPL

jato-n-a jakon jawéki.
3p-GEN-NMLZ good thing
'My children met me for each other, for their own benefit.'

When given a second analogous sentence, the interpretation according to which the patient object and the subject are reciprocal was readily accepted. However, the second possibility; i.e., that with beneficiary object and subject reciprocality, was rejected. Even more, the SK sentence was considered unacceptable if accompanied by an additional expression as in (77b):

(77) a. Ja-baon-ra e-a pota-*anan-xon*-ke.
3-PL:ERG-EV 1-ABS leave-REC-*xon*-CMPL
'They separated (lit. left each other) for me.'
*They left me for each other.'

b. *Ja-baon-ra e-a pota-*anan-xon*-ke, jato-n-a jakon jawéki.
3-PL:ERG-EV 1-ABS leave-REC-*xon*-CMPL 3p-GEN-NMLZ good thing
'They left me for each other, for their own benefit.'

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The preliminary results offered here suggest that in the constructions at hand either the applicative or the base object may be reciprocal with the subject depending on the relative order in which the reciprocal suffix and the applicative *-xon* occur.

17.2.3.4. Interclausal Coreferentiality Control

In one type of complex sentence, the marker *-a* is used to encode anterior events where the object of a dependent clause is coreferential with the subject (i.e., S / A argument) of its matrix clause. When the dependent clause is ditransitive, either object (i.e., the recipient or the patient) may be selected for this process (from Valenzuela 2002):

(78) Pena-n (bake-shoko) meni-*a*-ra ainbo xobo-n ka-ke.
Pena-ERG child-DIM give-PO>S/A-EV woman:ABS house-ALL go-CMPL
'After Pena gave (her) the baby, the woman went home.' (Valenzuela 2002:422)

(79) Pena-n (ainbo) meni-*a*-ra bake wini-ke.
Pena-ERG woman:ABS give-PO>S/A-EV child:ABS cry-CMPL
'After Pena gave (it) to the woman, the child cried.' (Valenzuela 2002:422)

In examining applicative constructions, the question that arises is whether also in these instances either object (i.e., the applicative or the base object) may be interpreted as coreferential with the matrix subject. Consider the following example:

(80) E-n-ra Rono tita raan-xon-ke.
1-ERG-EV Rono:ABS mother:ABS send-*xon*-CMPL
'I sent Rono for my mother's benefit.' / 'I sent my mother for Rono's benefit.'

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Let us imagine a situation where the speaker's elderly mother lives alone in another village and the speaker sends Rono to take care of her. In this case, Rono would be the base object and the mother would be the applicative object. Now, consider the following sentences:

(81) E-n raan-xon-*a*-bi-ra nokon tita isin-ke.
1-ERG send-*xon*-PO>S/A-EM-EV POS1 mother:ABS get.sick-CMPL
'Even though I sent him (for her), my mother got sick.'

(82) E-n raan-xon-*a*-bi-ra Rono ka-yama-ke.
1-ERG send-*xon*-PO>S/A-EM-EV Rono:ABS go-NEG-CMPL
'Even though I sent (him) for her, Rono did not go.'

Therefore, it is possible for both the applicative object and the base object to be interpreted as coreferential with the matrix clause subject in an *-a*-marked complex sentence.

The following table summarizes the findings of section 17.2.3 regarding the morpho-syntactic properties of base and applicative objects.

Table 17.3. Morpho-Syntactic Properties of Base and Affective Objects

	Base Object	Applicative Object
Case	ABS	ABS
Pre-verbal orders	+	+
Preposing	+	+
Right-Dislocation	+	+
Prenominal Rel.	+	+
Postnominal Rel.	+	+
Internally-headed Rel.	+	- (strong tendency)
Reciprocality control	+	+ (different order of suffixes)
Cross-clausal control	+	+

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In sum, base and affective applicative objects do not differ in coding properties, prenominal and postnominal relativization, or cross-clasual coreferentiality control. However, the data indicate that affective applicative objects have fewer object properties than base objects in terms of internally-headed relativization. In reciprocalized constructions, both objects may be read as reciprocal with the subject, possibly depending on the relative order of the applicative and reciprocal suffixes. In conclusion, it may be said that the patient object exhibits one more object property than the *-xon* applicative object, but that the two are highly symmetrical.

17.2.4. The Applicative *-Xon* and Other Valency-Changing Devices

In the data the applicative *-xon* follows other valency-increasing devices when such a combination is possible. The addition of *-xon* to a causativized stem is the most common of these combinations (sentences exhibiting the opposite order were rejected):

(83) No-n joi-n-bi-ra no-n profesor-baon no-a
1p-GEN language-OBL-EMP-EV 1p-GEN teacher-PL:ERG 1p-ABS

onan-*ma-xon*-ti atipan-ke. / *onan-xon-ma-ti
know-CAUS-*xon*-INF can-CMPL
'In our own language the teachers can teach (our children) (to our benefit).'

(84) E-a jo-*ma-xon*-we. / *jo-xon-ma-we
1-ABS go-CAUS-*xon*-IMP
'Make him / her come for me.'

(85) E-a ani *a-xon*-we. / *ani-xon-a-we
1-ABS (become)big do.T-*xon*-IMP
'Grow it for me.'

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(86) E-a chopa pani-*n*-*xon*-we. / * pani-xon-n-we
1-ABS clothes:ABS hang-TRNZ-*xon*-IMP
'Hang the clothes for me.'

As shown in examples (72)-(77), the applicative *-xon* can either precede or follow the reciprocal. The example below further illustrates the combination of *-xon* with a reciprocalized (and thus also detransitivized) stem:

(87) Ja-baon-ra e-a bi-*ananan*-*xon*-ke.
3-PL:ERG-EV 1-ABS get-REC-*xon*-CMPL
'They got married for me.'

The occurrence of *-xon* with a middle-marked or detransitivized stem in general seems to be rare. In fact, the reciprocalized stem in the example above may be considered as lexicalized ('get married'). For expressions comparable to the English 'He washed for me,' the preferred construction is one marking the NP coding the benefactive participant with *kopi* 'because of' (see 17.2.5.3). However, an instance where *-xon* can combine with a middle-marked stem is the following (*-kaa* is the middle morpheme):

(88) Kaisi-nin-ra mi-a ishton benxo*kaa*-*xon*-ke.
Kaisi-ERG-EV 2-ABS quickly get.ready-*xon*-CMPL
'Kaisi got ready quickly for you.'

That the applicative *-xon* rarely co-occurs with the middle suffix might have to do with the fact that this latter morpheme already signals subject affectedness, and hence introduction of an additional affected participant would be incompatible.

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17.2.5. Obligatoriness of *-Xon* Applicative Constructions

Another way in which applicative constructions may vary is in whether their use is obligatory or optional. By optional it is meant that there is a semantically very close paraphrase of the applicative construction involving a non-applicative verb and a case-marked NP encoding the affective participant; i.e., essentially the same proposition can be expressed in two ways, only one of which involves the applicative.

At first sight, it can be said that the text frequency of *-xon*-marked constructions is relatively high. In addition to this, it is not straightforward to come up with a close enough paraphrase for this kind of applicative construction (which in principle would be expected to be more frequent than its applicative counterpart; see 17.1.2). However, there are three potential candidates to consider as possible components of alternative non-applicative expressions: complements of interest, possessive pronouns, and reason-marked NPs. Let us briefly examine each one of them.

17.2.5.1. Complements of Interest

In SK some NPs functioning as second argument of an extended intransitive verb are expressed through a special set of pronouns that do not coincide with any member of other pronominal paradigms. In contrast, nouns in this function take the same *-n* form which also marks ergative, genitive, instrumental-means, locative-allative, and temporal

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functions (6.1.4, 6.6.5, and 8.2.2). The extended intransitive verbs in question tend to encode mental-emotional states or changes of state; the NPs in the "interessive" case generally encode the participant in whose interest the subject experiences the emotion in question (e.g., be happy about something for X, be angry at somebody for X, love X, forget X, feel jealous about X, ask X in matrimony).

Nevertheless, attempts to construct paraphrases for the *-xon*-marked applicative construction by utilizing complements of interest turned out to be unsuccessful. In fact, all the paraphrases yielded ungrammatical sentences:

(89) a. Ainbo-nin-ra e-a bewa-xon-ke.
woman-ERG-EV 1-ABS sing-*xon*-CMPL
'The woman sang for me.'

b. *Ainbo-ra e-on bewa-ke.
woman:ABS-EV 1-INTRSS sing-CMPL

(90) a. E-a nonti a-xon-we.
1-ABS canoe:ABS do.T-*xon*-IMP
'Make a canoe for me.'

b. *E-on nonti a-we.
1-INTRSS canoe:ABS do.T-IMP

(91) a. Rono-n-ra mi-a paranta be-xon-ke.
Rono-ERG-EV 2-ABS plantain:ABS bring-*xon*-CMPL
'Rono brought you plantain.'

b. *Rono-n-ra mi-on paranta be-ke. / *Rono-ra
Rono-ERG-EV 2-INTRSS plantain:ABS bring-CMPL Rono:ABS-EV

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If grammatical expressions involving the complement of interest are re-formulated with a *-xon*-marked applicative construction, the resulting meanings are different, as in the following pair of sentences:

(92) a. E-a-ra mi-on keen-ai.
1-ABS-EV 2-INTRSS want-INC
'I love / want you.'

b. E-n-ra mi-a keen-xon-ai. / * E-ara
1-ERG-EV 2-ABS want-*xon*-INC
'I want (it) for you (e.g., a piece of clothing).'

One speaker, Mr. Yoi Sani, considered that the two constructions at hand may be interpreted as semantically equivalent:

(93) a. E-a-ra mi-on raket-ai.
1-ABS-EV 2-INTRSS fear-INC
'I fear for you.' / 'I am afraid of you[13].'

b. E-n-ra mi-a raké-xon-ai. / *E-ara
1-ERG-EV 2-ABS fear-*xon*-INC
'I fear for you.'

Other native speakers however disagreed with respect to the grammaticality of (93a) and offered (93b) instead to encode a benefactive meaning.

In 19.2.2.3 I discuss affective adjuncts composed of an interessive-marked pronoun to which participant agreement inflection has been added. These adjuncts may constitute equivalents to *-xon*-marked constructions; however, these pronominal forms

[13] Although according to one language consultant this sentence is ambiguous, it is more general to mark the participant towards whom / what one feels fear with the dative *-ki*.

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have only been obtained through elicitation when carrying out comparative work and are not found in the spontaneous data. Although further examination is needed with respect to this issue, at present I am not inclined to consider participant agreement-marked interessive pronouns as taking part in non-applicative equivalents of *-xon* constructions, especially due to the low text frequency these pronominal forms might exhibit.

17.2.5.2. Possessive NPs Marked by *-A*

Possessive NPs marked by *-a* are generally translated as 'something for X' / 'something of X.' However, utterances involving *-a*-marked possessive NPs (when accepted) yielded a somewhat different meaning from the *-xon*-marked applicative construction:

(94) a. ?nonti a-wé *nokon-a*
canoe:ABS do.T-IMP POS1-NMLZ:ABS

If accepted, the sentence above would mean 'make the canoe that was / is mine' and not 'for me.' A preferred means of expressing (94a), however, is:

b. *Nokon-a*-bi-pari nonti a-wé.
POS1-NMLZ:ABS-EM-first canoe:ABS do.T-IMP
'Make first the canoe that I was doing (lit. that was mine).'

Analogously, the next two sentences, both grammatical, were judged as semantically different by native speakers:

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(95) a. E-n-ra nokon tita karo xate-*xon*-ke.
1-ERG-EV POS1 mother:ABS firewood:ABS cut-*xon*-CMPL
'I cut firewood for my mother.'

b. E-n-ra karo xate-ke *nokon tita-n-a.*
1-ERG-EV firewood:ABS cut-CMPL POS1 mother-GEN-NMLZ
'I cut the firewood that belonged to my mother.'

A reading with mother as beneficiary was only achieved by the utterance containing *-xon.* Ex. (95b) could be used if, for instance, the speaker goes to his mother's house, cuts the firewood she had stored there, and takes it home for his own use. Further, an expression may contain both the applicative *-xon* and the possessive nominalizer *-a*:

(96) a. E-n-ra karo xate-*xon*-ke *nokon tita-n-a.*
1-ERG-EV firewood:ABS cut-*xon*-CMPL POS1 mother-GEN-NMLZ
'I cut the firewood that belonged to my mother for her.'

Ex. (96a) was judged to mean the same as (96b):

b. E-n-ra nokon tita-n karo xate-xon-ke.
1-ERG-EV POS1 mother-GEN firewood:ABS cut-*xon*-CMPL
'I cut my mother's firewood for her.'

17.2.5.3. The Reason Markers *Kopí / -N Paranan*

There are two ways to mark cause / reason NPs in SK: the "neutral" *kopí* requires an absolutive-marked NP, while *paranan* (which has a negative connotation) combines with interessive-marked NPs. In some cases, it is possible to paraphrase a *-xon*-marked applicative expression with one employing *kopí* and / or *paranan*:

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(97) a. Yobekan-ra Rawa Piko kopi-xon-ke.
sorcerer:ERG-EV Rawa:ABS Piko cast.a.spell.on.sb.in.return-*xon*-CMPL
'The sorcerer (in return) cast a spell on Rawa for Piko.' (or 'cast a spell on Piko for Rawa').'

b. Yobekan-ra Rawa kopi-ke Piko kopí.
sorcerer:ERG-EV Rawa:ABS cast.a.spell.on.in.return-CMPL Piko reason
'The sorcerer (in return) cast a spell on Rawa because of Piko.'

c. Yobekan-ra Rawa kopi-ke Pikon paranan
sorcerer:ERG-EV Rawa:ABS cast.a.spell.on.in.r-CMPL Piko-*n* reason
'The sorcerer (in return) cast a spell on Rawa because of Piko's fault.'

(98) a. E-a nonti a-*xon*-we!
1-ABS canoe:ABS do.T-xon-CMPL
'Make a canoe for me.'

b. E-a kopí nonti a-wé. / *eon paranan
1-ABS reason canoe:ABS do.T-IMP
'Make a canoe for / because of me.'

Although (98a) may be translated in the same way as (98b), they do not refer to the same situation. From (98a) it is understood that the hearer would make a canoe for the speaker's use or in the place of the speaker making it. Sentence (98b) would be acceptable if, for example, a father asks his son to learn how to make canoes so that he acquires this ability for the future. The canoe may be for the son's use, but the reason why the son makes the canoe is to please his father. Additionally, it cannot be understood that the son makes the canoe in the place of his father. Therefore, language consultants clearly distinguish an expression with a *kopí*-marked NP from its seeming *-xon*-marked applicative paraphrase.

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Again, while in (99a) it is understood that the *taricayas* are for the father or that Rawa is placing them in the canoe instead of the father placing them there; these readings are not obtained in (99b). According to (99b) the reason why Rawa puts the *taricayas* inside the canoe is because of his father (maybe because his father is traveling by canoe with a group of people and the *taricayas* are a way to pay for his trip, or to make sure that the group does not suffer from hunger during the trip given that his father is part of it). Thus a clear meaning distinction is established between the two constructions in question:

(99) a. Rawa-n-ra papa kabóri napó-xon-ke.
Rawa-ERG-EV father:ABS *taricaya*:ABS put.inside-*xon*-CMPL
'Rawa put the *taricayas* inside the canoe for father.'

b. Rawa-n-ra kabóri napó-ke papa kopí.
Rawa-ERG-EV *taricaya*.turtle:ABS put.inside-CMPL father reason
'Rawa put the *taricayas* inside the canoe because of father.'

Although (100a) may be assigned two possible English translations, only one of them, the non-benefactive one, may also be expressed through (100b) containing *kopí*:

(100) a. Rawa-ra e-n rabin-xon-ai.
Rawa:ABS-EV 1-ERG feel.embarrassed.of-*xon*-INC
'I feel embarrassed by Rawa (because of something negative he has done).'/
'I feel embarrassed for Rawa (because of sth. negative that was done to him).'
b. E-a-ra rabin-ai Rawa kopí. / *Rawan paranan
1-ABS-EV feel.embarrassed-INC Rawa:ABS reason
'I feel embarrassed (because) of Rawa (because of something he has done).'

The evidence discussed in this section leads to the conclusion that there is no alternative non-applicative construction that is a semantic paraphrase of *-xon*-marked expressions. Therefore, the *-xon* applicative construction can be said to be obligatory

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whenever the affective meaning (benefactive / malefactive) is to be communicated. Further study with regard to participant agreement-marked interessive pronouns is needed.

17.3. The Malefactive *-(V)na(a)n ~ -(V)n*

A second applicative suffix is the malefactive *-(V)naan ~ -(V)n*, which indicates that the event or action in question is detrimental to someone else. Table 17.4 shows the stems that combine with the malefactive in the corpus:

Table 17.4. Verb Stems Occurring with the Malefactive Applicative

Transitive Stems: 17 occurrences

ke-ski-	'put, apply (e.g. painting, fat) on the edge of' (1)
kató-	'select' (1)
osan-	'laugh at' (2)
keyo-	'finish' (3)
yoi-	'say, tell' (1)
rishki-	'hit (with a stick/pole)' (1)
bo-	'carry' (1)
wake-	'lift' (1)
pi-	'eat' (4)
tseka-	'take out' (1)
seke-	'break' (1)

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17.3.1. The Malefactive Applicative Construction

Going back to Table 17.1, the first observation to be drawn is that the text frequency of the malefactive is relatively low (17 instances as opposed to 84 for the *-xon* contruction and 45 for the associative). In addition to this, all the verb stems in Table 17.4 are transitive; i.e., unlike *-xon*, the malefactive suffix attaches to transitive verbs only. This finding confirms the minimal transitivity requirement imposed by the malefactive that had been pointed out in previous work (Faust 1973:72, Valenzuela 1997:126). For exclusively illustrative purposes, I include below a list of intransitive verbs followed by the malefactive. These combinations were judged ungrammatical by native speakers; alternatively, the related *-xon*-marked form was offered to add the malefactive meaning:

(101)

'go'	*ka-(a)naan-	ka-xon-
'arrive'	*nokó-(o)naan-	nokó-xon-
'dance'	*ransa-(a)naan-	ransa-xon-
'bathe'	*nashi-(i)naan-	nashi-xon-
'work'	*tee-(a)naan-	tee-xon-
'behave like a monkey'	*shino-(o)naan-	shino-xon-
'die'	*mawa-(a)naan-	mawá-xon-
'become rotten, used up'	*payó-(o)naan-	payó-xon-

Notice that the list above includes both active and inactive intransitives, thus showing that the restriction in question correlates with verb valency rather than with an unaccusative versus unergative distinction (see Peterson 1999:45-46). One dominantly intransitive stem, however, was accepted by language consultants when given in combination with the malefactive. The context for the next sentence (given as (88) in Ch.

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8) is that of a non-traditional competition where participants take turns to sing different songs:

(102) Mi-n-ra e-a i-kas-ai bewá-ribi mi-n-pari e-a
2-ERG-EV 1-ABS do.I-DES-INC song:ABS-also 2-ERG-first 1-ABS

bewa-*naan*-ke.
sing-MAL-CMPL
'You sang first the same song I wanted to sing (to my detriment).'

Bewa- 'sing' is a cognate object verb in that it can take an absolutive-marked object (referring to the different kinds of Shipibo traditional songs), but still its subject is marked absolutive and triggers S agreement, etc. (section 8.2.5). This and other subtypes of two-argument verbs will be discussed below.

A further observation that can be drawn from Table 17.4 is that the combination of *a(k)-* 'do (tr.)' with the malefactive suffix is not attested. This fact is particularly surprising given that *a(k)-* is also the transitive pro-verb and pro-verbs are expected to have high text frequency. In elicitation however, the combination of *a(k)-* with the malefactive can be easily obtained:

(103) a. Ja-n-ra e-a a-anan-ke.
3-ERG-EV 1-ABS do.T-MAL-CMPL
'S/he did it on me.'

Unlike other stems that require the malefactive to be next to the root and thus precede other verbal morphology like the negative *-yama* and the plural *-kan* (in this

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order), *a(k)-* requires the plural to precede the malefactive; the negative, however, keeps its expected position:

b. Ja-baon-ra e-a a-kan-an-ke. / * a(a)nan-kan-ke
3-PL:ERG-EV 1-ABS do.T-PL-MAL-CMPL
'They did (it) on me.'

c. Ja-baon-ra e-a a-kan-an-yama-ke
3-PL:ERG-EV 1-ABS do.T-PL-MAL-NEG-CMPL
'They did not do (it) on me.'

Both the benefactive *-xon* and the malefactive can also follow the transitive pro-verb *a(k)-* when the latter is added to the adjunct *jaská-* (see also ex. (47)):

(104) a. Jato-n rika *ja-ská-a-xon-ti* jakon r-iki.
3p-GEN net:ABS that-SIML-do.T-BEN-INF good EV-COP
'It is a good idea to do their net in this way for them.'

b. Jato-n rika *ja-ská-anan-ti* jakon r-iki.
3p-GEN net:ABS that-SIML:do.T:MAL-INF good EV-COP
'It is a good idea to do their net in this way on them (i.e., to their detriment).'

In (104a) the pro-verb form may be used, for example, instead of *benxoa-xon-ti* (fix-*xon*-INF) 'to fix something for someone,' while in (104b) *ak-* could replace *jonan-an-ti* (hide-MAL-INF) 'to hide something on someone.'

Finally, the malefactive can also attach to *a(k)-* in compound stems such as *senen-'a-naan-* 'to complete something, to comply with something' (cf. ex. (49)):

(105) Ja-baon-ra e-a senen 'a-naan-ke.
3-PL:ERG-EV 1-ABS edge do.T-MAL-CMPL
'They took a little bit (of my chacra) on me (i.e., they made their chacra right on the border with mine, and it even overlaps a bit with mine).'

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We can now return to the discussion motivated by sentences (46)-(47), where *-xon* in combination with the transitive stem *a(k)-* was given a malefactive rather than the expected benefactive reading. It was there suggested that the counterexamples in (46)-(47) may be due to the possible ungrammaticality of the sequence *a(k)-* + malefactive. However, as shown in (103)-(105), this sequence is perfectly acceptable and thus the hypothesis in question must be discarded. What might be of relevance instead is that both (46) and (47) involve negative predicates.

There are nevertheless instances of transitive verbs that when combined with the malefactive yield unacceptable expressions. This is the case of *be-* 'bring' (also 'come (non-sing.)'), which can only combine with *-xon* in order to achieve either a benefactive or a malefactive meaning:

(106) Joxo nawa-baon-ra no-a rao/ jakon joi/
white outsider-PL:ERG-EV 1p-ABS medicine:ABS good word:ABS

jakon-ma isin be-xon-ke. / *be(e)naanke
good-NEG illness:ABS bring-*xon*-CMPL
'The white outsiders brought us medicine / good news / bad illnesses.'

In 17.2.1 I referred to the role of verb semantics in assigning *-xon* either a benefactive or a malefactive reading when combining with intransitives. It was also mentioned that when *-xon* follows *jo-* 'come (sing.),' the singular / intransitive suppletive form of *be-*, it is most plausibly given a benefactive interpretation. In accordance with that latter observation, it may be posited that it is the inherent meaning of 'bring' and its probably

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frequent use with a benefactive sense that led to the fixation of the combination *be-xon-* and thus to the unacceptability of the *be*-MAL sequence (cf. *kene-* in (112) below). In addition to the suppletive forms *jo-* 'come (sing.)' / *be-* 'come (non-sing.), bring,' there is in SK another pair of stems that work in an analogous way: *ka-* 'go (sing.) / *bo-* 'go (non-singular), carry.' But unlike *be-*, *bo-* can take both applicatives, *-xon* and the dedicated malefactive *-(V)naan*:

(107) Ainbo jakon i-ke-tian-ra jawen tita-n *bo-xon*-ai,
woman:ABS good be-P-DS-EV POS3 mother-ERG carry-*xon*-INC

jawen bake pota-ma-kashama-kin.
POS3 child:ABS leave-CAUS-DES:NEG-SSSA
'When a woman$_i$ is good, his (the husband's) mother$_j$ takes her$_i$ (where her$_j$ son is), because she$_j$ doesn't want to let her$_j$ son abandon her$_i$.'

(108) Jato-n xobo patax ik-á bakeranoman-kaya bo-*onaan*-
3p-GEN house next.to be-PP2 young.man:ERG-CONTRST carry-MAL-PP2

ik-á iki jawen bake xontako.
be-PP2 AUX POS3 child young.girl:ABS
'Instead, a young man who lived next to their house had taken his young daughter with him.'

Further examples extracted from the text data are given below. In all instances the roots are prototypical transitives and the malefactive meaning is clear:

(109) Ja-tian mi-ki ainbo sinat-ai-tian, mi-n jawen chitonti
that-TEMP 2-DAT woman:ABS be.angry-S-DS 2-ERG POS3 *chitonti*:ABS

xeni-n *ke-ski-nan*-a, ja ainbo tsini-ti k-ai.
fat-INST MOUTH-paint-MAL-PO>S/A that woman:ABS play-INF go-INC
'If a woman is angry at you, you can apply (dolphin's) fat on the edge of her *chitonti* (traditional skirt) to her detriment, and she will become an easy woman.'

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(110) Moa-tian joxo joni-bo jo-xon no-a
already-TEMP white person-PL:ABS come-PSSA 1p-ABS

keyo-nan-kean-kan-a iki no-n jono...
finish-MAL-almost-PL-PP2 AUX 1p-GEN peccary:ABS

no-n awá, no-n mari, meskó keská mebi-a-bo.
1p-GEN tapir:ABS 1p-GEN agouti:ABS various SIML finger-PROPR-PL:ABS
'Long ago when the white people came they almost exterminated our peccaries... our tapirs, our agoutis, and all kinds of monkeys (to our detriment).'

(111) Ja-ská-ke-tian-ki, wetsa-o-ri-kea kishi-ki,
that-SIML:do.T-P-TEMP-HSY2 other-DIST-about-LOC:ABL leg:ABS-HSY2

kapetan *tseka-nan-a* iki,
alligator:ERG take.out-MAL-PP2 AUX

jawen ibo-n joi ninká-xon-yama-ke-tian.
POS3 owner-GEN voice:ABS hear-BEN-NEG-P-DS
'And so it is said that the alligator on the other side (of the lake) bit off his leg to his detriment, for not having followed its owner's warning.'

The only counterexample in the text data, in the sense that the "malefactive" suffix adds a benefactive rather than a detrimental meaning, is the following:

(112) Maxokan-ra e-a atapa kene-nan-ke.
opossum:ERG-EV 1-ABS chicken:ABS fail-*nan*-CMPL
'The opossum failed (to catch) my chicken (to my benefit).'

When the sequence **kene-xon-* was offered to a language consultant, it was rejected. The verb *kene-* is most commonly used to express that one missed one's prey when shooting or driving a hunting weapon (see also Lauriault, Loriot, and Day 1993:339). Therefore, one might argue that, since *kene-* is generally employed with a detrimental meaning, the combination *kene-nan-* has become fixed and thus the generally malefactive suffix was

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assigned a broader affective function. That is, this situation could be interpreted as the converse of the one described for the verb *be-* 'come (non-singular), bring.'

Other verbs that combine with the malefactive (either offered by consultants or found in other texts) are:

(113)

pota-	'leave, abandon'
raan-	'send (someone to do something)'
pi-	'eat'
koko-	'eat (fruit)'
xea-	'drink'
toe-	'break'
meno-	'burn'
chiban-	'follow, chase'
yoká-	'ask, request'
bena-	'search, look for'
mera-	'find, meet'
osan-	'laugh at'
rete-	'kill'
mecho-	'worsen, spoil'
kobin-a(k)-	'boil (tr.)'
paen a(k)-	'get someone drunk'
rami a(k)-	'spoil, ruin, insult'

In the list of verb forms below, mono-moraic stems take malefactive allomorphs starting with a vowel (also some kind of vowel harmony can be observed with *bo-* 'carry') while bimoraic stems take those starting with the nasal consonant (see footnote 1). Nevertheless, alternative allomorphs that are not accounted for by this rule are also attested:

(114)

pi-	'eat'	pi-ana(a)n- ~ pi-an
rete-	'kill'	rete-na(a)n- ~ rete-n-

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bo-	'carry'	bo-ona(a)n- ~ bo-on-
toe-	'break'	toe-na(a)n- ~ toe-n-
miin-	'bury'	miin-na(a)n- ~ mii-n-
rishki-	'hit w/pole'	rishki-na(a)n- ~ rishki-n-
waxa-	'tear (clothes/bag)'	waxa-na(a)n- ~ waxa-n-

17.3.2. The Malefactive and Verbs of Intermediate Transitivity

In 17.3.1 I showed that the malefactive applicative imposes a minimal transitivity requirement on the base verb to which it attaches, given that its combination with different kinds of clearly intransitive stems yields ungrammatical forms. In this section, I examine the ability of non-prototypical transitive and intransitive verbs to combine with the malefactive suffix. These different verb types and the clauses in which they occur are described in sections 8.2.1-8.2.7.

SK has a set of verbs that, although requiring their subjects to be marked ergative and although being associated with A-agreement, fail to exhibit other relevant properties of transitive verbs. A question that arises is whether these verbs may be combined with the malefactive suffix. One exemplar of this category of non-protoypical transitives is *wina-* 'row.' As mentioned in footnote 7, the subject of *wina-* is necessarily coded in the ergative case and this root is associated with A-agreement. Furthermore, at least in elicitation, *wina-* even allows for an object argument such as a canoe or a person (i.e., row the canoe or take somebody somewhere by rowing). However, so far I have not been able to find text occurrences of *wina-* that include an overt object. Interestingly, *wina-* resembles intransitives in that it cannot be combined with the malefactive (**wina-naan-*),

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but resembles transitives in that *wina-xon-* is given a benefactive reading exclusively. Consider the following examples:

(115) Neeri e-a wina-xon-we, baba-shoko!
over.here 1-ABS row-*xon*-IMP grand.child-DIM
'Row for me over here, grandchild.'

(116) E-a jain ka-ti-n raket-ain-bi Koriman e-a wina-xon-ke.
1-ABS there go-INF-OBL fear-SDS-EM Korin:ERG 1-ABS row-*xon*-CMPL
*'Even though I was afraid of getting there, Korin rowed (me) to my detriment.'

The verb *join-* 'breathe' is somewhat similar to *wina-* in that it requires its subject to be marked ergative and is associated to A-agreement. Again, it is possible to obtain a restricted set of absolutive-marked objects in elicitation situations:

(117) Ainbo-nin-ra (niwe / jakonma koin) join-ai.
woman-ERG-EV wind:ABS good-NEG smoke:ABS breathe-INC
'The woman breathes (air / the harming smoke).'

Even though breathing for someone's benefit or to someone's detriment may be seen as a pragmatically unfeasible situation, the examples that follow suggest that it is somewhat preferred (or rather less dispreferred) to combine *join-* with *-xon* than with the malefactive:

(118) a. Jene-n rete-kean-a-bi-ra ainbo-nin join-ai.
flowing.water-ERG kill-almost-PO>S/A-EM-EV woman-ERG breathe-INC
'After almost drowning, the woman is (now) breathing.'

b. ?Jene-n rete-kean-a-bi-ra ainbo-nin e-a
flowing.water-ERG kill-almost-PO>S/A-EM-EV woman-ERG 1-ABS

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join-xon-ai.
breathe-*xon*-INC
'After almost drowning, the woman is (now) breathing to my benefit.'

c. *Jene-n rete-kean-a-bi-ra nokon rawikan e-a
flowing.water-ERG kill-almost-PO>S/A-EM-EV POS1 enemy:ERG 1-ABS

join-naan-ai.
breathe-MAL-INC
'After almost drowning, my enemy is (now) breathing to my detriment.'

The verb *kinan-* 'vomit' also behaves like a transitive verb in terms of case-marking and transitivity / participant agreement. Nevertheless, it does not allow for the occurrence of certain objects unless they are somewhat modified, e.g. by *-bires* 'purely, just (see also 15.2):'

(119) a. E-n-ra *aros / *piti / *yapa kinan-ke.
1-ERG-EV rice:ABS food:ABS fish:ABS vomit-CMPL
'I threw up the rice / the food / the fish.'

b. E-n-ra aros-bires / piti-bires / yapa-bires kinan-ke.
1-ERG-EV rice-purely food-purely fish-purely vomit-CMPL
'I threw up just the rice, just the food, just the fish.'

In 17.2.1 it was shown that the sequence *kinan-xon-* (vomit-*xon*-) could be assigned a benefactive or a malefactive reading depending on the situational / cultural context. This was illustrated in example (31) which is repeated below for convenience:

(120) Nokon bake-n-ra e-a kinan-*xon*-ke.
POS1 child-ERG-EV 1-ABS vomit-*xon*-CMPL
'My child vomited (to my benefit / detriment).'

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However, unlike the verbs previously discussed in this section, *kinan-* may also occur in combination with the malefactive:

(121) Rao e-n xea-ma-a-ra, bake-n e-a
medicine:ABS 1-ERG drink-CAUS-PO>S/A-EV child-ERG 1-ABS

kinan-*naan*-ke.
vomit-MAL-CMPL
'My son threw up the medicine I gave him to my detriment.'

The verbs *keen-* 'want, love, like, need' and *shinanbenot-* 'slip the mind, forget' have the special characteristic of allowing two alternative case-frames: <ABS ABS> or <ABS complement of interest> (8.2.2.5). Interestingly, *keen-* can only be combined with *-xon* in order to achieve a benefactive or malefactive effect:

(122) Roniman-ra wetsa ainbo e-a keen-xon-ke. / *keen-naan-ke
Ronin:ERG-EV other woman:ABS 1-ABS want-*xon*-CMPL
'Ronin wants / likes another woman (to my benefit / detriment).'

Thus *keen-* differs from the semantically close but syntactically distinct verb *noi-* 'love.' Being a prototypical transitive, *noi-* takes both applicatives *-xon* and *-naan* to achieve a benefactive or a malefactive meaning, respectively:

(123) a. Roniman-ra e-a wetsa ainbo noi-xon-ke.
Ronin:ERG-EV 1-ABS other woman:ABS love-*xon*-CMPL
'Ronin loves another woman to my benefit / *to my detriment.'

b. Roniman-ra e-a wetsa ainbo noi-naan-ke.
Ronin:ERG-EV 1-ABS other woman:ABS love-MAL-CMPL
'Ronin loves another woman to my detriment / *to my benefit.'

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Unlike *keen-*, *shinanbenot-* 'slip the mind, forget' does combine with the two applicative suffixes in question:

(124) Roniman-ra e-a nokon bake xontako moa
Ronin:ERG-EV 1-ABS POS1 child unmarried.girl:ABS already

shinan-beno-xon-ke / shinan-beno-naan-ke.
mind-slip-*xon*-CMPL mind-slip-MAL-CMPL
'Ronin already forgot my unmarried daughter to my benefit / to my detriment.'

Finally, let us examine a few members of the set of extended intransitive verbs of emotion. These verbs behave like prototypical intransitives in terms of case-marking on the subject and participant agreement. However, unlike other intransitives, verbs of emotion take a second argument (the stimulus or participant towards whom the sensation is directed) which is generally marked by the dative *-ki*. Out of seven verbs of emotion that were examined, only one of them *raket- ~ raké-* 'fear, be afraid of' may combine with the malefactive:

(125) a. Ronin-ra ino-ki raké-ke.
Ronin:ABS-EV jaguar-DAT be.afraid.of-CMPL
'Ronin was afraid of the jaguar.'

b. Roniman-ra e-a ino-ki raké-xon-ai /
Ronin:ERG-EV 1-ABS jaguar-DAT be.afraid.of-*xon*-INC

raké-enaan-ke[14].
be.afraid.of-MAL-CMPL
'Ronin was afraid of the jaguar to my benefit / to my detriment.'

[14] In a different elicitation session, the same speaker, Mr. Yoi Sani, rejected the form **rakéenaanke*, but confirmed that *rakéxonke* cannot be interpreted as a malefactive.

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Two other extended intransitive verbs of emotion, *rabin-* 'feel embarrassed' and *sinat-* ~ *siná-* 'be angry,' allowed only for the suffixation of *-xon*, and their combination with the malefactive was judged ungrammatical:

(126) Roniman-ra e-a rabin-xon-ai. / *rabin-(a)naan-ai
Ronin:ERG-EV 1-ABS feel.embarrassed-*xon*-INC
'Ronin feels embarrassed (towards others) in relation to me.'

(127) Roniman-ra e-a siná-xon-ke. / *siná-(a)naan-ke
Ronin:ERG-EV 1-ABS be.angry-*xon*-CMPL
'Ronin got angry (at others) in relation to me / in my benefit.'

The remaining extended intransitive verbs of emotion that were examined are listed below. Again, their combination with the malefactive yields ungrammatical utterances. In contrast, all the *-xon*-marked counterparts are grammatical:

(128)

'be confused about'	*benó-(o)naan-	/ *benó-(o)n-
'be happy about'	*bene-(e)naan-	/ *bene-(e)n-
'speak negatively of'	*jakon-ma-kin yoyo i-(i)naan-	/ *i-(i)n-
'joke about'	*shiro-(o)naan-	/ *shiro-(o)n-

As expected, *rabin-* and *sina(t)-* may take the dedicated malefactive when transitivized by the addition of *a(k)-* 'do (tr.), make;' i.e., 'make someone feel embarrassed' and 'make someone angry,' respectively.

The table below summarizes the possible combinations of verbs of intermediate transitivity status with the two applicatives examined so far.

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Table 17.5. Combination of Verbs of Intermediate Transitivity with the Applicatives *-Xon* and *-(V)na(a)n ~ -(V)n*

	-Xon	*-(V)na(a)n ~ -(V)n*
bewa- 'sing'	benefactive	malefactive
wina- 'row'	benefactive	N.A.
join- 'breathe'	?benefactive	N.A.
kinan- 'vomit'	benef. / malef.	malefactive
keen- 'want'	benef. / malef.	N.A.
shinanbenot- 'slip the mind'	benefactive	malefactive
raket- 'be afraid of'	benefactive	?malefactive
Other emotion verbs	benefactive	N.A.

In sum, the different degrees of transitivity these verbs exhibit is reflected in their ability to combine with the applicatives *-xon* and *-(V)na(a)n ~ -(V)n* and in the meaning(s) achieved when a combination is possible. Furthermore, non-prototypical (in)transitive verbs may differ in this respect even from other members of their own subcategory (e.g. *raket-* 'be afraid of' versus other verbs of emotion, or *keen-* 'want' from *shinanbenot-* 'slip the mind.' Differences in judgment among speakers and even different judgements by the same speaker at different opportunities are expected.

17.3.3. Malefactive Applicative Constructions and Semantic Restrictions

Certain malefactive applicative constructions allow for non-human subjects. Interestingly, the benefactive counterparts in the (b) sentences were judged unacceptable.[15]

[15] The (b) instances are not acceptable, given that *jene*, *kinan* and *akonten* would be interpreted as having human features (Yoi Sani p.c. 2000, and Ranin Nita p.c. 2001).

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(129) a. Jene-n-ra e-a bake rete-naan-ke.
flowing.water-ERG-EV 1-ABS child:ABS kill-MAL-CMPL
'My child drowned to my detriment (lit. the flowing water killed my child).'

b. *Jene-n-ra e-a nokon rawí rete-xon-ke.
flowing.water-ERG-EV 1-ABS POS1 enemy:ABS kill-BEN-CMPL
'My enemy drowned to my benefit.'

(130) a. Kinaman-ra e-a bake rete-naan-ke.
vomit:ERG-EV 1-ABS child:ABS kill-MAL-CMPL
'My child died from vomit to my detriment (lit. vomit killed my child).'

b. *Kinaman-ra nokon rawí e-a rete-xon-ke.
vomit:ERG-EV POS1 enemy:ABS 1-ABS kill-BEN-CMPL
'My enemy died from vomit to my benefit.'

(131) a. Akonteman-ra e-a bake kopi-naan-ke.
akonten:ERG-EV 1-ABS child:ABS affect.negatively-MAL-CMPL
'The *akonten* tree affected my child negatively to my detriment.'

b. *Akonteman-ra e-a nokon rawí kopi-xon-ke.
akonten:ERG-EV 1-ABS POS1 enemy:ABS affect.negatively-BEN-CMPL
'The *akonten* tree affected my enemy negatively to my benefit.'

(132) a. Nokon jawéki bana-a-ra e-a niwe-n poxa-naan-ke.
POS1 thing sow-PP2-EV 1-ABS wind-ERG fell-MAL-CMPL
'My planted trees were overcome by the wind (to my detriment).' (the SK sentence is active) (Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:211)

b. *Nokon rawikan jawéki bana-a-ra e-a niwe-n poxa-xon-ke.
POS1 enemy:GEN thing sow-PP2-EV 1-ABS wind-ERG fell-*xon*-CMPL
'My enemy's planted trees were overcome by the wind to my benefit.'

Sentences (133) and (134) illustrate that the unacceptability of the (b) sentences above is not due to the ungrammaticality of attaching *-xon* to the particular verbs involved. Instead, the following examples suggest that it is the nature of the subject referent that accounts for their unacceptability:

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(133) Epa-n-ra nokon rawí e-a rete-xon-ke.
paternal.uncle-ERG-EV POS1 enemy:ABS 1-ABS kill-*xon*-CMPL
'My paternal uncle killed my enemy to my benefit.'

(134) Ja-n-ra nokon rawí e-a kopi-xon-ke.
3-ERG-EV POS1 enemy:ABS 1-ABS return.something.to-*xon*-CMPL
'S/he returned it (a negative behavior) to my enemy to my benefit.'

Recall however that inanimate subjects were allowed in certain *-xon* applicative constructions with intransitive and transitive base verbs (exx. (39)-(40) and (50)-(52)). In these latter instances however, the events depicted by the predicate can be seen as beneficial in a more obvious, expected way. This suggests that certain verbs are more strongly associated to a given event schema, so that an unexpected benefactive / malefactive reading is not possible even when the appropriate applicative is added.

Like *-xon* applicative objects, malefactive objects may be non-human animates:

(135) Bake-n-ra paranta joshin pitso pi-anaan-ke.
child-ERG-EV banana red:ABS paroqueet:ABS eat-MAL-CMPL
'The child ate the ripe banana to the paroqueet's detriment.'

But differently from benefactive objects which are necessarily animate (exx. (53)-(55)), malefactive objects may be inanimate:

(136) Iskoira-n kirika-ra oi-n *biblioteca* mechá a-nan-ke.
school-GEN book:ABS-EV rain-ERG library:ABS wet do.T-MAL-CMPL
Lit. 'The rain made the school books wet to the library's detriment.'

(137) ?Iskoira-n kirika-ra profesor-nin *biblioteca* bi-xon-ke.
school-GEN book:ABS-EV teacher-ERG library:ABS get-*xon*-CMPL
'The teacher got the school books to the library's benefit.'

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Sentence (138) shows that the relatively low acceptability of (137) is most probably triggered by the semantic nature of the benefactive object:

(138) Iskoira-n kirika-ra profesor-nin *bake-bo* bi-xon-ke.
school-GEN book:ABS-EV teacher-ERG child-PL:ABS get-*xon*-CMPL
'The teacher got the school books to the children's benefit.'

The same basic situation is found in the following examples:

(139) Meskó keská yoina-ra joxo joni-baon nii
different SIML animal:ABS-EV white person-PL:ERG forest:ABS

keyo-naan-kean-ke.
finish-MAL-almost-CMPL
'The white people almost exterminated different kinds of animals to the forest's detriment.'

(140) ?Meskó keská yoina-ra joni-baon nii koiran-xon-ke.
different like animal:ABS-EV people-PL:ERG forest:ABS protect-*xon*-CMPL
'The people protected different kinds of animals to the forest's benefit.'

(141) Meskó keská yoina-ra joni-baon no-a koiran-xon-ke.
different like animal:ABS-EV person-PL:ERG 1p-ABS protect-*xon*-CMPL
'The people protected different kinds of animals to our benefit.'

Hence, examples (136)-(141) suggest that the malefactive applicative places weaker animacy restrictions on its object than the benefactive.

17.3.4. Object Properties in Malefactive Applicative Constructions

As in 17.2.3, I examine in this section the morpho-syntactic properties of base and malefactive applicative objects to see whether these two differ in any relevant respect.

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17.3.4.1. Coding Properties: Case-marking and Constituent Order

Like other ditransitive constructions in SK, malefactive and base objects are marked absolutive, and may also occur in either order preceding the verb:

(142) a. Mari-baon-ra no-a atsa pi-anaan-kan-ke.
agouti-PL:ERG-EV 1p-ABS yuca:ABS eat-MAL-PL-CMPL

b. Mari-baon-ra atsa no-a pi-anaan-kan-ke.
agouti-PL:ERG-EV yuca:ABS 1p-ABS eat-MAL-PL-CMPL
'The agoutis ate the yuca to our detriment.'

(143) a. Ino-n-ra tari kené-ya xae sawe-naan-ke.
jaguar-ERG-EV *tari* design-PROPR:ABS anteater:ABS put.on-MAL-CMPL

b. Ino-n-ra xae tari kené-ya sawe-naan-ke.
jaguar-ERG-EV anteater:ABS *tari* design-PROPR:ABS put.on-MAL-CMPL
'The Jaguar put on the designed *tari* to the Anteater's detriment.'[16]

Both objects of a malefactive construction can be preposed,

(144) a. *Tari kené-ya*-ra ino-n xae sawe-naan-ke.
tari design-PROPR:ABS-EV jaguar-ERG anteater:ABS put.on-MAL-CMPL

b. *Xae*-ra ino-n tari kené-ya sawe-naan-ke.
anteater:ABS-EV jaguar-ERG *tari* design-PROPR:ABS put.on-MAL-CMPL

or right dislocated:

c. Ino-n-ra xae sawe-naan-ke, *tari kené-ya.*
jaguar-ERG anteater:ABS put.on-MAL-CMPL *tari* design-PROPR:ABS

[16] The context of the ex. above is the story about how in remote times the Jaguar managed to steal the Anteater's beautifully designed fur.

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d. Xae-ra ino-n sawe-naan-ke, *tari kené-ya.*
anteater:ABS-EV jaguar-ERG put.on-MAL-CMPL *tari* design-PROPR:ABS

e. Ino-n-ra tari kené-ya sawe-naan-ke, *xae.*
jaguar-ERG-EV *tari* design-PROPR put.on-MAL-CMPL anteater:ABS

f. Tari kené-ya-ra ino-n sawe-naan-ke, *xae.*
tari design-PROPR:ABS-EV jaguar-ERG put.on-MAL-CMPL anteater:ABS
'The Jaguar put on the designed *tari* to the Anteater's detriment.'

17.3.4.2. Relativization

Instances of relativized objects in prenominal, postnominal and circumnominal relative constructions were examined, although again by a single native speaker who was asked to identify the element relativized in each of the sentences in (145) below. The sentences were given in different orders each time, and were intertwined with other sentences; each instance was tested at least in two different occasions. Three different answers were obtained: the dog (i.e. the base object), the man (i.e. the malefactive object), and the event as a whole (i.e. a complement clause interpretation). Only the objects given as possible answers are underlined:

(145) a. E-n-ra oin-ke [ja-n ochíti joni boonaan-a]
1-ERG-EV see-CMPL 3-ERG dog:ABS man:ABS take:MAL-PP2:ABS
'I saw the dog that he took to the man's detriment.' /
'I saw that he took the dog to the man's detriment.'
BASE OBJECT / COMPLEMENT CLAUSE

b. E-n-ra oin-ke [ja-n joni ochíti boonaan-a].
1-ERG-EV see-CMPL that-ERG man:ABS dog:ABS take:MAL-PP2:ABS
'I saw the dog that he took to the man's detriment.' /
'I saw that he took the dog to the man's detriment.'
BASE OBJECT / COMPLEMENT CLAUSE

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c. E-n-ra oin-ke ochíti [ja-n joni boonaan-a].
1-ERG-EV see-CMPL dog that-ERG man:ABS take:MAL-PP2:ABS
'I saw the dog that he took to the man's detriment.' BASE OBJECT

d. E-n-ra oin-ke [ja-n joni bonaan-a] ochíti.
1-ERG-EV see-CMPL that-ERG person:ABS take:MAL-PP2 dog:ABS
'I saw the dog that he took to the man's detriment.' BASE OBJECT

e. E-n-ra oin-ke joni [ja-n ochíti bonaan-a].
1-ERG-EV see-CMPL person that-ERG dog:ABS take:MAL-PP2:ABS
'I saw that he took the dog to the man's detriment.' COMPLEMENT CL.

f. E-n-ra oin-ke [ja-n ochíti boonaan-a] joni.
1-ERG-EV see-CMPL that-ERG dog:ABS carry:MAL-PP2 man:ABS
'I saw the man to whose detriment he took the dog.' APPLICATIVE OBJECT

As expected, the base object 'dog' is the only possible NP_{REL} when it precedes or follows the relative clause (examples (c) and (d), respectively). In internally-headed relatives, only the 'dog' and not the man can be read as NP_{REL}, in alternation with a complement clause interpretation in (a) and (b). In contrast, the malefactive object 'man' is only selected as NP_{REL} when following the relative clause (when preceding it, the deictic *ja* 'that / the' was considered necessary to interpret 'man' as the relativized element; i.e., *Enra oinke ja joni [jan ochíti boonaana]*). Therefore, in internally-headed relatives only the base object and not the malefactive one can be interpreted as NP_{REL}. This is consistent with the findings in 17.2.3.2 involving *-xon* constructions.

Nevertheless, a construction similar to (145) triggered somewhat different results from the same consultant:

(146) a. E-n-ra onan-ke xontako [bakeranoman joni
1-ERG-EV know-CMPL unmarried.girl young.man:ERG man:ABS

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bo-onaan-a].
take-MAL-PP2:ABS
'I know the girl that the young man took to the man's detriment.'
'I know that the young man took the unmarried girl to the man's detriment.'/
BASE OBJECT / COMPLEMENT CLAUSE

b. Enra onanke [bakeranoman joni boonaana] xontako.
1-ERG-EV know-CMPL y.man:ERG man:ABS take:MAL-PP2 u.girl:ABS
'I know the girl that the young man took to the man's detriment.' BASE OBJ

c. E-n-ra onan-ke joni [bakeranoman xontako boonaan-a].
1-ERG-EV know-CMPL person y.man:ERG u.girl:ABS take:MAL-PP2:ABS
'I know the man to whose detriment the young man took the girl.' APPL. OBJ

d. E-n-ra onan-ke [bakeranoman xontako boonaan-a] joni.
1-ERG-EV know-CMPL y.man:ERG u.girl:ABS take:MAL-PP2 man:ABS
'I know the man to whose detriment the young man took the girl.' APPL. OBJ

e. E-n-ra onan-ke [bakeranoman xontako joni boonaan-a].
1-ERG-EV know-CMPL y.man:ERG girl:ABS man:ABS take:MAL-PP2:ABS
'I know that the young man took the unmarried girl to the man's detriment.'
COMPLEMENT CLAUSE

f. E-n-ra onan-ke [bakeranoman joni xontako boonaan-a].
1-ERG-EV know-CMPL y.man:ERG man:ABS girl:ABS take:MAL:PP2:ABS
'I know that the young man took the unmarried girl to the man's detriment.'
COMPLEMENT CLAUSE

As seen above, when both objects are internal to the subordinate clause as in (e) and (f), the speaker interpreted the sentences as instances of complement clause constructions only.

From the examination of the data above it can be concluded that in internally-headed relative constructions it is only the patient object that may interpreted as NP_{REL}, although in some instances a complement clause interpretation is the preferred one.

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17.3.4.3. Reciprocalization

The addition of the malefactive suffix to a reciprocalized stem yields an ungrammatical sentence; utterances exhibiting the reverse order (i.e., V-MAL-REC) have not been attested either. Therefore, it was not possible to test whether the subject in this construction type would be interpreted as reciprocal with the base and / or the malefactive object. For mere illustrative purposes I include the following examples:

(147) a. Ja-bo-ra pota-anan-ke.
3-PL:ABS-EV leave-REC-CMPL
'They separated (lit. left each other).'

b. *Ja-baon-ra bake-bo pota-anan-naan-ke.
3-PL:ERG-EV child-PL:ABS leave-REC-MAL-CMPL

/ *pota-(a)naan-anan-ke.
/ leave-MAL-REC-CMPL
'They abandoned each other to the detriment of the children.' /
'They abandoned the children to each other's detriment.'

(148) a. Ja-bo-ra rishki-anan-ke.
3-PL:ABS-EV hit.w.pole-REC-CMPL
'They hit each other (with a pole).'

b. *Ja-baon-ra e-a rishki-anan-naan-ke. / *rishki-(a)naan-anan-ke.
3-PL:ERG-EV 1-ABS hit.w.pole-REC-MAL-CMPL hit-MAL-REC-CMPL
'They hit each other to my detriment. / They hit me to each other's detriment.'

The ungrammaticality of adding the malefactive to a reciprocalized stem is consistent with the fact that reciprocalization has a detransitivizing effect in SK, and the malefactive imposes a minimal transitivity requirement on the stem to which it attaches.

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17.3.4.4. Interclausal Referentiality Control

Examples (c) and (d) below illustrate that either object may be selected for object-to-subject coreferentiality in *-a*-marked clause combinations:

(149) a. Sankeman-ra ainbo rao-n-ke.
Sanken:ERG-EV woman:ABS medicine-TRNZ-CMPL
'Sanken$_i$ treated the woman with medicine (to have her fall in love with him$_i$).'

b. Sankeman-ra joni jawen awin rao-n-naan-ke.
Sanken:ERG-EV man:ABS POS3 wife:ABS medicine-TRNZ-MAL-CMPL
'Sanken, to the man's detriment, treated his wife with medicine.'

c. Sankeman rao-n-naan-a-ra joni jawen awinin
Sanken:ERG medicine-TRNZ-MAL-PP2-EV man:ABS POS3 wife:ERG

pota-ke.
leave-CMPL
'After Sanken treated (her) with medicine (to her husband's detriment), the woman left her husband (lit. his wife left the man).'

d. Sankeman rao-n-naan-a-ra joni-n Sanken
Sanken:ERG medicine-TRNZ-MAL-PP2-EV man-ERG Sanken:ABS

wexa-ke.
cut.w/*wexati*.knife-CMPL
'After Sanken$_i$ treated (her) with medicine (to his$_j$ detriment), the man$_j$ cut Sanken$_i$ with a *wexati* knife (on the back of the head).'

The context for the sentences in (150) is that of a traditional story narrating how a man, feeling embarrassed after his sister in law painted part of his face black with genipa, went up to the sky and became the moon. Thus during the nights the moon cannot be seen completely, the Shipibo say the man is showing the painted portion of his face:

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(150) a. Wesna-n-ra joni (nane-n) be-ski-ke.
Wesna-ERG-EV man:ABS genipa-INST FACE-paint-CMPL
'Wesna painted her brother in law on the face (with genipa).'

b. Wesna-n-ra ainbo jawen bene be-ski-naan-ke.
Wesna-ERG-EV woman:ABS POS3 husband:ABS FACE-paint-MAL-CMPL
'Wesna$_i$, to the woman$_j$'s detriment, painted her$_j$ husband on the face.'

c. Wesna-n be-ski-naan-a-ra ainbo siná-ke.
Wesna-ERG FACE-paint-MAL-PP2-EV woman:ABS get.angry-CMPL
'After Wesna$_i$ painted (her$_j$ husband) on the face (to her$_j$ detriment), the woman$_j$ got angry.'

d. Wesna-n be-ski-naan-a-ra bene rabin-ax
Wesna-ERG FACE-paint-MAL-PP2-EV husband:ABS feel.embarrassed-PSSS

naikan ka-ke.
sky-ALL go-CMPL
'After Wesna painted (him) on the face (to his wife's detriment), the man felt embarrassed and went up to the sky.'

Table 17.6 summarizes the morpho-syntactic properties of base and applicative objects in malefactive constructions.

Table 17.6. Morpho-Syntactic Properties of Base and Malefactive Objects

	Base Object	Applicative Object
Case	ABS	ABS
Pre-verbal orders	+	+
Preposing	+	+
Right-Dislocation	+	+
Prenominal Rel.	+	+
Postnominal Rel.	+	+ (more acceptable with *ja*)
Internally-headed Rel.	+/-	-
Reciprocality control	N.A.	N.A.
Cross-clausal control	+	+

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In conclusion, object properties in malefactive applicative constructions are very similar to what was shown for *-xon* constructions; i.e., the main difference between base and applicative object is that only the former may be interpreted as NP_{REL} in internally-headed relatives.

17.3.5. The Malefactive Applicative and Other Valency-Changing Devices

In the data the malefactive suffix follows other valency-increasing morphology, namely the general causativizer *-ma*, as well as *-n* and *a(k)*:[17]

(151) Ja-n-ra e-a nawa jiki-*ma-naan*-ke. / *jiki-naan-ma-ke
3-ERG-EV 1-ABS outsider:ABS enter-CAUS-CMPL
'He let the outsider enter to my detriment.'

(152) Ja-n-ra no-a bachi mape-*n-naan*-ke. / *mape-naan-nVn-ke
3-ERG-EV 1p-ABS mosquito.net:ABS go.up-TRNZ-MAL-CMPL
'S/he lifted the mosquito net to our detriment.'

(153) Ja-n-ra e-a kochi ani *a-naan*-ke. / *ani-naan a-ke
3-ERG-EV 1-ABS pig:ABS big do.T-MAL-CMPL
'S/he (taking it from me) raised the pig to my detriment.'

As mentioned in 17.3.4.3, the malefactive cannot follow the reciprocal given that the latter has a detransitivizing effect and the malefactive does not generally attach to

[17] Note however that the roots in (151)-(153) are not transitive which precludes them from taking the malefactive directly. It is possible that combinations of V(tr.)-MAL-CAUS are possible given the right context.

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intransitives. Similarly, adding the malefactive to a middle-marked stem was judged ungrammatical. Consider the following examples:[18]

(154) a. Bake-n-ra meno-ke.
child-ERG-EV burn-CMPL
'The child burned (it).'

b. Bake-ra menó-ke.
child:ABS-EV burn:MID-CMPL
'The child burned himself.'

c. Bake-n-ra e-a meno-naan-ke.
child-ERG-EV 1-ABS burn-MAL-CMPL
'The child burned (it) to my detriment.'

d. *Bake-n-ra e-a menó-(o)naan-ke. / *meno-naamee-ke.
child-ERG-EV 1-ABS burn:MID-MAL-CMPL burn-MAL:MID-CMPL
'The child burned himself to my detriment.'

(155) a. Bake-n-ra sika-ke.
child-ERG-EV paint-CMPL
'The child painted it.'

b. Bake-ra sikí-ke.
child:ABS-EV paint:MID-CMPL
'The child painted himself.'

c. Bake-n-ra e-a sika-naan-ke.
child-ERG-EV 1-ABS paint-MAL-CMPL
'The child painted (it) to my detriment.'

d. *Bake-n-ra sikí-(i)naan-ke. / *sika-naamee-ke.
child-ERG-EV paint:MID-MAL-CMPL paint-MAL:MID-CMPL
'The child painted himself to my detriment.'

[18] The middle suffix has various allomorphs; in the second alternative of the (d) sentences below, I am including the allomorph which corresponds to stems ending in a nasal.

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Ex. (155d) above includes the two possible relative orders of middle and malefactive applicative; the same was done in (147) and (148) with regard to the reciprocal. Probably, the ungramm-aticality of adding the malefactive to detransitivized stems is due to the minimal transitivity requirement imposed by the malefactive on the base verb (see also ex. (170) involving a reciprocalized stem and the associative applicative). This restriction would account for the impossibility of expressing through a malefactive applicative construction situations that seem pragmatically feasible corresponding to the English 'They left each other to the children's detriment' or 'The child burned her / himself to my detriment.'

17.3.6. Obligatoriness of the Malefactive Applicative Construction

As was the case with *-xon*, there is no straightforward non-applicative expression that could be considered as a semantically close paraphrase of the malefactive applicative construction. A possible candidate for marking an NP with a malefactive meaning is the dative *-ki*, which translates into English as 'at, to, against.' Consider the exx. below:'

(156) Ja-n-ra mesa-ki kenchá toe-ke.
3-ERG-EV table-DAT dish:ABS break-CMPL
'S/he broke the dish against the table.'

(157) Nokon bake-ra mai-ki paké-ke.
POS1 child:ABS ground-DAT drop:MID-CMPL
'My child fell to the ground.'

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(158) E-a-ra Yabi-ki sinat-ai.
1-ABS-EV Yabi-DAT be.angry.at-INC
'I hate Yabi. / I am angry at Yabi.'

(159) E-a-ra ino-ki raket-ai.
1-ABS-EV jaguar-DAT be.afraid.of-INC
'I am afraid of the jaguar.'

Thus *-ki*-marked NPs correspond to the third argument of a basically transitive verb or to the second argument of a basically intransitive verb (see 17.2.2.2). Although in certain cases *-ki* may be translated into English by means of the preposition 'against' (thus in apparent semantic compatibility with a detrimental meaning), all attempts to obtain non-applicative malefactive constructions with an NP-*ki* sequence turned out unsuccessful. There is no other potential close paraphrase for the malefactive applicative construction.

17.4. The Associative *-Kin ~ -Kiin*

A third applicative is the associative *-kin ~ -kiin*, whose distribution is shown below:

Table 17.7. Verb Stems Occurring with the Associative Applicative

Intransitive Stems: 21 instances

nokó-	'arrive' (1)
bewa-	'sing' (1)
tee-	'work' (2)
raro-	'be(come) happy' (e.g. to see someone) (1)
bene-	'be(come) happy' (e.g. to receive something) (1)
ja-	'exist, live' (2)
ik-	'be, do (intr.)' (12)
kopi-anan-	(return.sth.to sb.-REC) 'compete with / respond to one another' (1)

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Intermediate Transitivity Stems: 1 instance

chiton-[19]	'put on, wear a / the *chitonti*' (1)

Transitive Stems: 23 instances

ak-	'make, do (tr.)' (11)
xepo-	'lock somebody / something' (1)
pi-	'eat' (1)
shinan-	'think, plan' (2)
xea-	'drink' (1)
bo-	'carry, take' (1)
yatan-	'hold, grab' (1)
bana-	'sow' (1)
rene-	'grind' (1)
xeati ak-	'prepare drink' (1)
iráke ak-	'thank' (1)
kampo ak-	'build a soccer field' (1)

The first important observation is that, unlike the affective and specific malefactive, the associative applicative distributes equally with intransitive and transitive stems.

17.4.1. The Associative Applicative Construction

As in the previously examined applicative constructions, the addition of the associative *-ki(i)n* to a base verb has a valency-increasing effect. Hence, when attached to an intransitive stem, this suffix adds a second argument to the clause, generally interpreted

[19] This verb requires an ergative marked subject but is very restricted in terms of the objects it can take. Generally, an overt object is lacking.

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as an "accompanied" or "helped" participant;[20] when added to a transitive base, this one becomes ditransitive. In the examples below it can be seen that the verb *yakat- ~ yaká-* takes a single absolutive marked argument; but when the applicative *-kin* is added, the result is a transitive clause:

(160) a. Jawen baba-ra yaká-ke. / *jawen baba-n-ra
POS3 granddaughter:ABS-EV sit-CMPL POS3 granddaughter-ERG-EV
'Her granddaughter is sitting.'

b. Jawen baba-n-ra [jawen yoxan pashkin-ke-tian]
POS3 granddaughter-ERG-EV POS3 old.woman:ABS be.tired-P-DS

yaká-*kin*-ke.
sit-ASSOC-CMPL
'Since her grandmother was tired, the granddaughter sits with her (Valenzuela 1997:121).'

Text examples with other inactive intransitives follow. Sentences (161) and (162) involve the existential *ja-*, while (163) and (164) include the intransitive (pro-)verb *ik-*. Observe that in some instances as in (161) and (164), subjects and associated objects are interpreted as playing asymmetrical roles (i.e., the subject helps or accompanies the associated object); while in others, such as (162) and (163), at least judging from the translations given by native speakers both participants may be viewed as sharing the same degree of involvement in the event depicted by the base verb:

(161) Baké, nato joni-ra mi-a no-n bi-ma-[a]i;
child:VOC this person:ABS-EV 2-ABS 1p-ERG receive-CAUS-INC

nato joni-ra mecha iki, mi-a ja-n-bi-ribi
this person:ABS-EV good.fisher/hunter COP 2-ABS 3-ERG-EM-REP

[20] Note that the associative applicative might have some benefactive flavor.

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jawéki a-xon *ja-kin*-ti jisá oin-xon.
thing:ABS do.T-PSSA live/exist-ASSOC-INF like see-PSSA
'Daughter, we will make you receive this man (in matrimony); this man is a good fisher / hunter hence we believe that he, performing the activities (proper of men), might be able to support you (lit. might help you live / exist).'

(162) ...jakiribi xobo-a-xon *ja-kin*-a-bi-ronki i-káti-ai
...again house-do.T-PSSA live/exist-ASSOC-PP2-EM-HSY be-PST4-INC

kikin jakon-ma.
very good-NEG
'Building a house again it is said that they lived together very badly.'

(163) ...ja bo-xon-ronki westíora shanka kini meran i-*kin*-ai
3:ABS carry-PSSA-HSY one rock hole inside do.I-ASSOC-INC
'(The *Yonkexta* woman) took him and they stayed together in the rock cave.'

(164) Ja-bo-ra jo-ai mato i-*kin*-i.
3-PL:ABS-EV come-INC 2p:ABS do.I-ASSOC-SSSS
'They will come to stay with you.'

The next sentences illustrate associative applicative constructions with intransitive verbs of emotion:

(165) Rama-ra e-n raro-*kin*-kas-ai mato Piró-ma
now-EV 1-ERG be.happy.about-ASSOC-DES-INC 2p:ABS Peru-NEG

ik-á-bo.
be-PP2-PL:ABS
'In this moment I want to greet you, (indigenous peoples) who are not from Peru.'

(166) Axeamis-bo jakon-shaman, non koshi-bo jakoin-ra,
teacher-PL:ABS good-INTENS 1p-GEN chief-PL:ABS good:SSSS-EV

noa bene-bene-*kin*-shaman-ai.
1p-ABS be.happy.about-be.happy.about-ASSOC-INTENS-INC
'The teachers are very good, our authorities are very good too, and therefore we are totally satisfied with them.'

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The following sentences involve active intransitives. The asymmetrical relationship between the subject and applicative object participants can be observed. In (167) a recently married man goes back to his village taking his new wife with him; in (168) it is the shaman woman who is responsible for the relationship with the ayahuasca spirits while her two husbands help her in different ways:

(167) Jawen jema-n nokó-*kin*-ke-tian jawen reken merati-baon
POS3 village-ALL meet:MID-ASSOC-P-DS POS3 first lover-PL:ERG

ja ainbo bachin-i bo-kan-ai.
that woman:ABS pull.by.the.hair-SSSS go.n.SG-PL-INC
'And when (the newly married woman) arrives to his (i.e. the husband's) village with him, his former lovers will pull that woman by the hair.'

(168) Ja-tian nishi xea-nko, wetsa-n bewa-*kin*-ai,
that-TEMP rope drink-LOC other-ERG sing-ASSOC-INC

wetsa-n shini tapon keté a-xon-ai.
other-ERG shini tapon light-*xon*-INC
'During the ayahuasca drinking sessions, one (husband) helped her sing while the other one lighted up the pipe for her.'

With the active inherently-directed movement verbs 'go' and 'come,' *-kin* requires the non-singular / transitive suppletive forms *bo-* and *be-*, rather than the singular and intransitive counterparts *ka-* and *jo-* (see 4.5):

(169) a. Rama-n-ra Yabi *ka-kin-ai / bo-kin-ai.
Rama-ERG-EV Yabi:ABS go.SG-ASSOC-INC go.n.SG-ASSOC-INC
'Rama goes with Yabi.'

b. Rama-n-ra Yabi *jo-kin-ai / be-kin-ai.
Rama-ERG-EV Yabi:ABS come.SG-ASSOC-INC come.n.SG-ASSOC-INC
'Rama came with Yabi.'

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The selection of the suppletive forms *bo-* and *be-* is compatible with the transitivization of the clause triggered by *-kin* and the fact that the subject participant does not act alone.

It is with the associative that the only applicative construction involving a reciprocalized stem is found in the text data:

(170) Ja iki koshi shinan-ya-bo ja ainbo-bo
that COP strong think-PROPR-PL:ABS that woman-PL:AB

kopi-*anan*-*kin*-ai-bo.
compete-REC-ASSOC-PP1-PL:ABS
'Those were brave the women that competed against each other.'

Finally, the next text examples illustrate associative applicative constructions involving transitive base verbs. Sentence (171) is part of the talks held between two sets of parents who are arranging a marriage between their respective daughter and son. As culturally expected, at some point the prospective groom's father portrays his son as lacking the relevant abilities and knowledge men should have:

(171) Bo-tan-we! Jawe a-ti onan-tani-ma i-ken-bi
carry-go.and.return-IMP what do.T-INF know-ATT-NEG be-PDS-EM

mato-n atapa xepo-*kin*-ti-bires.
2p-GEN chicken:ABS lock-ASSOC-INF-purely
'Take him with you! Although he hardly knows how to do anything, at least he can help you lock up your chickens.'

(172) Ja-ská-a-xon jawen poi-n yatan-a iki,
that-SIML-do.T-PSSA POS3 other.sex.sibling-ERG hold-PP2 AUX

xea-*kin*-kin nete-a iki.
drink-ASSOC-SSSA (become)day-PP2 AUX
'And so her brother kept him there, drinking together until it dawned.'

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(173) Bi-xon-ronki, kena-ti iki westíora joni, ja-n ochíti
get-PSSA-HSY call-INF AUX one person:ABS 3-ERG dog:ABS

yatan-*kin*-ti.
hold-ASSOC-INF
'After getting (the medicine), one has to call another person so that s/he helps hold the dog (in order to cure it).'

(174) ...bake-baon-ki ishton rene-*kin*-a iki
child-PLERG-HSY quickly grind-ASSOC-PP2 AUX
'...the children helped her grind (the corn) quickly.'

As mentioned above, (most) associative applicative constructions seem to imply an inherent dependency relationship where, generally, the participant coded as the associative object can be seen as more involved in the execution of the event expressed by the base predicate, while that coded as transitive subject acts as a helper or accompanier. For example, (173) is taken from a description of how to "cure" one's dog to make it a good hunter; the associative is used to express at some point one should get help to hold the dog. In (174) the Canary Woman presents herself to a group of Shipibo children and prepares corn beer for their parents. So that she can finish on time, the children help her grind the corn.

Nevertheless, with the verb *tee-* 'work' the expected interpretation 'Subject helps Associative Object to work' is rejected; instead, subjects are viewed as having the main responsibility for the work and the associative objects as helpers under pressure:

(175) E-n-ra mi-a tee-kin-ai.
1-ERG-EV 2-ABS work-ASSOC-INC
*'I help / accompany you to work.'
'I make you work with me.'

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(176) E-a-ra Rawa-n tee-kin-ai jawen wai-n.
1-ABS-EV Rawa-ERG work-ASSOC-INC POS3 chacra-LOC
*'Rawa helps me work...'
'I help Rawa work in his chacra.' (Rawa indirectly obliges me to do it)

(177) Juan Melendres-nin-ra e-a tee-kin-ai.
Juan Melendres-ERG-EV 1-ABS work-ASSOC-INC
*'Juan Melendres helps me work.'
'I work for / with Juan Melendres.'

A plausible interpretation is that, at least with the verb *tee-*, *-kin* functions primarily as a sociative causativizer, so that the ergatively marked argument functions as causer and the applicative object as causee, both participants taking part in the base event (i.e., it is assumed that the transitive subject works too). In fact, this hypothesis is supported by the information within parenthesis in (176) which was offered by a native speaker. This particular meaning of the sequence *tee-kin-* was also noted in Valenzuela (1997) whose examples come from a different collaborator. Although the English translations in (178)-(180) are somewhat misleading, the information within parenthesis makes the sociative causation meaning clear:

(178) Sani-n-ra Wexá tee-*kin*-ai
Sani-ERG-EV Wexá:ABS work-ASSOC-INC
'Sani works with Wexá (but for Sani's benefit, probably in Sani's chacra).'
(Valenzuela 1997:123)

In the sentence below, the switch-reference marker indicates that the subject of *jawe ayamai it-* 'have nothing to do,' the son, is different from the main verb subject, the father. Given that the son had nothing to do, his father made him work with him; that is, the father acted as causer but worked too:

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(179) Papa-n-ra jawen bake jawe a-yam-ai it-*ai-tian*
father-ERG-EV POS3 son:ABS what do.T-NEG-INC be-S-DS

tee-*kin*-ai.
work-ASSOC-INC
'Because his son has nothing to do, the father is working with him (probably the father asked the son for help).' (Valenzuela 1997:123)

In contrast, the same-reference marker in the example below indicates that the subject of 'wants to leave soon' is coreferential with the main verb subject:

(180) Wesna-n-ra ishton ka-kas-*kin* Rama tee-*kin*-ai.
Wesna-ERG-EV soon go-DES-SSSA Rama work-ASSOC-INC
'Wesna$_i$ is working with Rama$_j$ (probably asked Rama for help) because she$_i$ wants to leave soon.' (Valenzuela 1997:123)

More research is needed to see whether other verbs behave in a similar fashion; that is, whether the sociative causation interpretation is required when *-kin* attaches to other verbs other than *tee-* 'work' (see also ex. (196)).

It must be pointed out that according to the available literature causative morphemes in Panoan languages are all cognate, similar in form to *-mV*, *-n*, and *ak-* or *wa-*. These morphemes lack any resemblance with the applicative *-kin* and therefore provide no comparative diachronic evidence to claim that the associative applicative actually derived from a former causative (cf. Shibatani and Pardeshi 2002, Payne 2002).

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17.4.2. Object Properties in Associative Applicative Constructions

17.4.2.1. Coding Properties: Case-Marking and Constituent Order

When overtly expressed, patient and associative objects are generally both encoded as direct objects with no oblique adpositions. Again, these objects may exchange positions, and ambiguity is possible:

(181) Wesna-ra e-n Tsoma rao-n-kin-ke.
Wesna:ABS-EV 1-ERG Tsoma:ABS medicine-TRNZ-ASSOC-CMPL
'I helped Wesna to cure Tsoma. / I helped Tsoma to cure Wesna.'

However, the general situation found in text is that one or more participants of a multi-valence clause are omitted since they are recoverable from the context. Text data where all three participants are overtly mentioned are extremely rare. The following example illustrates one of these exceptional cases:

	PATIENT		ASSOCIATIVE		SUBJECT
(182) …yoman maban-xon	mi-n	chopa	mi-n	bake-bo	mi-n
thread spin-PSSA	2-GEN	cloth:ABS	2-GEN	child-PL:ABS	2-ERG

chiton-*kin*-ti…
wear.*chitonti*-ASSOC-INF
'…spinning the thread (and manufacturing cloth) you can dress with your daughters your own (resulting) *chitonti*s…'

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Alternatively, the patient of the basic clause may be encoded as an oblique. The examples below suggest that oblique marking may be preferred when the patient object is pragmatically more salient (from Valenzuela 1997:124-125):

(183) a. E-n-ra jatíbi jawéki ak-ai.
1-ERG-EV all thing:ABS do.T-INC
'I make everything / all kinds of things.'

b. E-n mi-a jatíbi jawéki-*nin* a-*kin*-ti iki.
1-ERG 2-ABS all thing-OBL do.T-ASSOC-INF AUX
'I will help you with everything.'

(184) a. E-n-ra pei bi-ai xobo a-ti.
1-ERG-EV leaf:ABS get-INC house do.T-INF
'I am bringing leaves in order to build a house.'

b. Maistoro-ra e-n pei bi-*kin*-ai xobo a-ti.
teacher:ABS-EV 1-ERG leaf:ABS get-ASSOC-INC house do.T-INF
'I am helping the teacher to bring leaves in order to build a house.'

A coding alternative to absolutive marking may also be available to the applicative object. The added associated participant may be simultaneously marked by the comitative postposition *betan* in a multliple applicative construction, plausibly to avoid ambiguity. This is illustrated in ex. (206a) in 17.5 (see also footnote 10 in Ch. 16).

17.4.2.2. Extraction and Relativization

As with the previously examined applicatives, both objects can be extracted (or relativized on) in associative applicative constructions:

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(185) a. Nato r-iki ochíti [e-n joni rao-n-kin-a].
this EV-COP dog 1-ERG man:ABS cure-ASSOC-PP2:ABS
'This is the dog that I helped the man cure.'

b. Nato r-iki joni [e-n ochíti raon-kin-a].
this EV-COP man 1-ERG dog:ABS cure-ASSOC-PP2:ABS
'This is the man whom I helped cure the dog.'

(186) a. Joni [e-n (meráya) raon-kin-a]-ra moa jakon-tani iki.
man 1-ERG g.sh.:ABS cure-ASSOC-PP2:ABS-EV already good-ATT COP
'The man that I helped (the great shaman) to cure is a bit better already.'

b. Joni [e-n raon-kin-a]-ra moa jawen awin jakon iki.
man 1-ERG cure-ASSOC-PP2:ABS-EV already POS3 wife:ABS good COP
'The man whom I helped to cure (his wife), his wife is well already.'

Additionally, both objects can be relativized on in prenominal and postnominal relatives:

(187) a. E-n-ra bena-ke ochíti [Wesna-n joni raon-kin-a].
1-ERG-EV look.for-CMPL dog W.-ERG man:ABS cure-ASSOC-PP2:ABS

b. E-n-ra bena-ke [Wesna-n joni raon-kin-a] ochíti.
1-ERG look.for-CMPL W.-ERG man:ABS cure-ASSOC-PP2 dog:ABS
'I looked for the dog that Wesna helped the man to cure.'

(188) a. E-n-ra bena-ke joni [Wesna-n ochíti raon-kin-a].
1-ERG-EV look.for-CMPL man W.-ERG dog:ABS cure-ASSOC-PP2:ABS

b. E-n-ra bena-ke [Wesna-n ochíti raon-kin-a] joni.
1-ERG-EV look.for-CMPL W.-ERG dog:ABS cure-ASSOC-PP2 man:ABS
'I looked for the man whom Wesna helped to cure the dog.'

However, differently from the results obtained for the two applicative constructions previously examined (especially from the one involving the affective *-xon*), there is some

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evidence that the applicative object is preferably interpreted as NP_{REL} in internally-headed relatives:[21]

(189) E-n-ra bena-ke [Wesna-n ochíti joni raon-kin-a].
1-ERG-EV look.for-CMPL W.-ERG dog:ABS man:ABS cure-ASSOC-PP2:ABS
'I looked for the man whom Wesna helped to cure the dog.' /
'I looked for the dog that Wesna helped the man to cure.'

(190) E-n-ra bena-ke [Wesna-n joni ochíti raon-kin-a].
1-ERG-EV look.for-CMPL W.-ERG man:ABS dog:ABS cure-ASSOC-PP2:ABS
'I looked for the man whom Wesna helped to cure the dog.' /
* I looked for the dog that Wesna helped the man to cure.'

17.4.2.3. Interclausal Referentiality Control

In associative applicative constructions it is possible to interpret either the base or the associative object as the pivot for object-to-subject coreferentiality:

(191) E-n onáya joni rao-n-kin-*a*-ra
1-ERG shaman:ABS man:ABS medicine-TRNZ-ASSOC-PO>S/A-EV

xobo-nko ka-ke.
House-ALL go-CMPL
'After I helped the $shaman_i$ treat the man_j with plant medicine, $he_{i/j}$ went home.'

The morpho-syntactic properties of associative and base objects are summarized in the table below.

[21] Nevertheless, I must repeat the grammaticality judgements regarding relative constructions in this Ch. come from a single native speaker. Besides, the same nature of the task makes this kind of test admittedly controversial.

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Table 17.8. Morpho-Syntactic Properties of Base and Associative Objects

	Base Object	Applicative Object
Case	ABS / OBL	ABS(/*betan* in multiple appl. constr.)
Pre-verbal orders	+	+
Preposing	+	+
Right-Dislocation	+	+
Prenominal Rel Cl	+	+
Postnominal Rel Cl	+	+
Internally-headed Rel Cl	+/-	+
Reciprocalization control	?	+[22]
Cross-clausal control	+	+

It can be concluded that in associative applicative constructions both objects exhibit roughly the same morpho-syntactic behavior, although in internally-headed relatives the applicative object may be preferably interpreted as NP_{REL}.

17.4.3. The Associative Applicative and Other Valency-Changing Devices

The causativizer *-ma* may either precede of follow the associative to signal scope distinctions; in contrast, the causativizers *a(k)* and *-n* necessarily precede the associative applicative. The reverse order yields ungrammatical utterances:

(192) Rona-n-ra Wesna bake rao
Rona-ERG-EV Wesna:ABS child:ABS medicine:ABS

xea-*ma*-*kin*-ke.
drink-CAUS-ASSOC-CMPL
'Rona helped Wesna give medicine to the child.'

[22] Although I have no systematic data on reciprocalization control in associative applicative constructions, the fact that the applicative object can be the reciprocal of the subject can be seen in ex. (198).

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(193) E-n-ra nokon bene xea-*kin*-*ma*-ke.
1-ERG-EV POS1 husband:ABS drink-ASSOC-CAUS-CMPL
'I made (him) drink with my husband.'

(194) Rona-n-ra jato mechá *a*-*kin*-ke.
Rona-ERG-EV 3p:ABS wet do.T-ASSOC-CMPL
'Rona helped them to make (it) wet.'

(195) Rona-n-ra e-a chopa pani-*n*-*kin*-ke.
Rona-ERG-EV 1-ABS clothes:ABS hang-TRNZ-ASSOC-CMPL
'Rona helped me to hang the clothes.'

Unlike malefactive applicative constructions which disallow reciprocalized and middle-marked stems, and *-xon* applicative constructions where detransitivized stems are uncommon, the associative easily combines with reciprocalized and middle stems. In the following examples the middle or the reciprocal precede the associative:

(196) Ja pae-n-a-nin-ra e-a paké-kin-ke.
that sour-VBLZ-PP2-ERG-EV 1-ABS drop:MID-ASSOC-CMPL
'That drunk (person) made me fall (falling with me).'

(197) Rona-n-ra nokon bake boexee-kin-ke.
Rona-ERG-EV POS1 child:ABS comb:MID-ASSOC-CMPL
'Rona helped / told my child to comb (combing herself too).'

(198) Joni-n-ra jawen rawí i-*ananan*-*kin*-ke
man-ERG-EV POS3 enemy:ABS do.I-REC-ASSOC-CMPL

kopi-*anan*-*kin*-ke.
return-REC-ASSOC-CMPL
'The man confronted his enemy as an equal.'

In the following text example the associative *-kin* precedes the reciprocal:

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(199) ...tee-ain-bo a-*kin-anan*-i no-n bake-bo
work-LOC-PL do.T-ASSOC-REC-SSSS 1p-GEN child-PL:ABS

ja-ská-a-xon ani a-ti kopí.
that-SIMLdo.T-PSSA big do.T-INF reason
'...we (my husband and I) help each other in our work in order to be able to raise our children.'

17.4.4. Non-Applicative Associative Constructions

The associative is the only applicative construction that has a close non-applicative paraphrase, which involves an NP marked by a postposition. Consider the following examples:

(200) a. Tita-n-ra papa wai oro-kiin-ai.
mother-ERG-EV father:ABS chacra:ABS clear-ASSOC-INC
'Mother helps father clear the chacra.' /
'Mother clears the chacra with father.'

b. Tita-n-ra wai oro-ai papa *betan*.
mother-ERG chacra:ABS clear-INC father COM
'Mother clears the chacra with father.'

The comitative *betan* links entities with a similar animacy status. The examples below involve a human subject and, therefore, the participant marked by *betan* must also be human; otherwise, *-ya* is used instead for the meaning 'along with' (none of the morphemes treated here can have an instrumental meaning):

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(201) E-a-ra kachio ka-i
1-ABS-EV to.the.forest go-INC

tita betan 'with mother'
nokon bake betan 'with my child'
?ochíti betan / ochíti-ya 'with the dog'
*shino betan / shino-ya 'with the monkey'
*pitso betan / pitso-ya 'with the paroqueet'
*to'ati betan / to'ati-a 'with the shotgun'
*rario betan / rario-ya 'with the radio'

'I go to the forest....'

The next sentence (given earlier as (177) contains an associative applicative construction and is followed by its non-applicative paraphrase (Juan Melendres is the name of a local *patron*):

(202) Juan Melendres-nin-ra e-a tee-*kin*-ai.
Juan Melendres-ERG-EV 1-ABS work-ASSOC-INC
'I work for / with Juan Melendres (we both work).'

(203) Juan Melendres *betan*-ra e-a teet-ai.
Juan Melendres COM-EV 1-ABS work-INC
'I work for / with Juan Melendres (we both work).'

As in the applicative construction, the non-applicative counterpart implies that both participants, the subject and the *betan*-marked NP, carry out the action or take part in the event depicted by the verb.

The next text example is particularly revealing. Here, the speaker utters an expression containing an associative applicative construction, and further elaborates on the same idea, this time offering a non-applicative paraphrase involving *betan*.

(204) Ja-tian Ne-ino-nin shinan-a iki, *ja* *i-kin-ti*, *no*?;
that-TEMP flow.water-jaguar-ERG think-PP2 AUX 3:ABS be-ASSOC-INF right

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o sea, *ja-bé i-ti.*
that.is 3-COM be-INF
'Then, the Nutria$_i$ thought that (the woman) was going to be with him$_i$ (join him$_i$), right?; that is, that she was going to be with him$_i$.'

Sentence (204) strongly supports the claim that the *betan* non-applicative construction is viewed by native speakers as a semantically close paraphrase to the associative applicative one. Further research is needed to account for the distribution of these alternate constructions.

17.5. Multiple Applicative Constructions

At least in elicitation situations, it is possible to attach more than one applicative suffix to the same verb root. In the example below, the object *Rono* plays the associative role, while the benefactive argument *mia* 'you' underwent equi-deletion:

(205) E-n-ra Rono shinan-*kin-xon*-ke
1-ERG-EV Rono:ABS think-ASSOC-BEN-CMPL

[mi-a ja-ská-kin a-xon-ti].
2-ABS that-SIML-SSSA do.T-BEN-INF
'I gave Rono the idea so that he made it that way for you (lit. I thought with Rono on (your) behalf...).' (Valenzuela 1997:127-128)

Examples (206a-b) show two possible ways of coding the associated participant; marking *Wexá* with the associative postposition as in (206a) eliminates the ambiguity found in (206b):

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(206) a. E-n-ra Tsoma nonti rabi-kin-xon-ai *Wexá betan.*
1-ERG-EV Tsoma:ABS canoe:ABS praise-ASSOC-BEN-INC Wexá COM
'I praise the canoe for Tsoma with Wexá.'

b. E-n-ra *Wexá* Tsoma nonti rabi-kin-xon-ai.
1-ERG-EV Wexá:ABS Tsoma:ABS canoe:ABS praise-ASSOC-BEN-INC
'I praised the canoe for Tsoma with Wexá.' /
'I praised the canoe with Tsoma for Wexá.'

In the example below involving the combination of the associative and the malefactive, the associative refers to the son and the malefactive to the owners of the canoe. Again, the associative suffix precedes the affective one:

(207) Kesten Beso-n jawen bake jato-n nonti yoká-ti raan-a-ra
Kesten Beso-ERG POS3 child:ABS 3p-GEN canoe ask.for-PURP send-PP2-EV

e-n yoká-*kin-naan*-tan-ke.
1-ERG ask.for-ASSOC-MAL-go.do.and.return-CMPL
'Kesten Beso sent his son to ask for their canoe, and I accompanied him to ask for it to their detriment (probably they did not want to lend their canoe).'
(Valenzuela 1997:128)

The following verb stem involving the same combination of applicative suffixes but with the reverse order was obtained from another speaker (who in turn rejected (207)):

(208) pi-*anaan-kin*-ke / *pi-*kin-naan*-kan-ke
eat-MAL-ASSOC-CMPL
'eat with somebody to somebody else's detriment.

The data given above suggest that scope of meaning is probably important in these ordering issues. This point requires further research.

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17.6. Summary

SK has three applicative suffixes: the affective *-xon*, the dedicated malefactive *-(V)naan ~ -(V)n*, and the associative *-kin ~ -kiin*. The allomorphic distribution of the malefactive and associative can be partially accounted for in terms of the moraic structure of the base stem. The constructions in which these suffixes take part can be considered as prototypical applicative constructions: specific morphology is suffixed to the verb root or stem, a new core argument with a semantically specified function is introduced, this new argument is marked absolutive (except for the possibility of associated objects to be marked by *betan* in constructions with a transitive base verb and three overt NPs) and thus coded as direct object, there is an increase in the transitivity of the clause by one, and the subject is necessarily in the ergative case. Two out of the three applicative construction types, the affective and the specific malefactive, lack an alternate non-applicative paraphrase; only the associative has a semantically close alternate expression involving a non-applicative verb and an NP marked by the postposition *betan*. The obligatoriness of the affective and malefactive applicative constructions precludes us from assigning them the pragmatically-marked function of expressing an alternative conceptualization of a given event (cf. Croft 1994). As for the associative, the factors that motivate the choice between the applicative and the non-applicative constructions await to be unveiled. So far, applicativization has not received a detailed treatment in any other Panoan language; nevertheless, it seems that the fact that applicatives lack cognate NP markers is a general Panoan characteristic.

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Analysis of the corpus reveals that SK applicatives differ a great deal in terms of text frequency, and combine differently with the basic transitivity types of verbs. For example, even though *-xon* easily combines with different types of intransitive and transitive verbs, in text it is overwhelmingly attested with transitives. In these latter cases, the affective *-xon* mostly has a benefactive meaning. These data are compatible with Shibatani's (1996) hypothesis that benefactives are based on the 'give' schema. When added to an intransitive stem, the choice between a benefactive and a malefactive reading is often determined by context; also the semantics of the verb involved plays an important role in making one of the interpretations most plausible (e.g. 'work to someone's benefit' but 'get sick to someone's detriment'). The depreciatory marker *-isi* may be used to force a malefactive interpretation. In other instances, the malefactive sense is achieved by the sequence *V-xon-yama* (i.e., VERB-BEN-NEG).

The malefactive *-(V)naan ~ -(V)n* exhibits a relatively low text frequency. As indicated by its gloss, it brings a negatively affected participant into the core. In terms of semantic requirements, there is some evidence suggesting that the malefactive applicative may place weaker restrictions on its subjects and especially on its objects than the general affective *-xon*. That is, inanimate subjects / objects may occur in certain malefactive applicative constructions but not in the *-xon* equivalents. This hypothesis requires further research. Furthermore, certain verbs appear to be more strongly associated with a given event schema that includes a benefactive or malefactive participant, so that a different reading is not acceptable even when the appropriate applicative is added.

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One noteworthy property of the malefactive suffix is that it occurs with transitive stems only; its combination with intransitives yields ungrammatical utterances (recall that when attached to intransitives *-xon* adds either a benefactive or a malefactive meaning). I have shown that the distribution between the general affective and the malefactive is in fact based on transitivity and not on an active versus inactive distinction.

Overgeneralizing somewhat, the distribution and properties of the general affective and the specific malefactive can be summarized as follows:

Table 17.9. Overall Distribution and Properties of *-Xon* and *-(V)naan ~ -(V)n*

	-Xon	*-(V)naan ~ -(V)n*
Intransitives	BEN / MAL	N.A.
Transitives	BEN	MAL
Subject	animate / inanimate?	animate / inanimate
Applied Object	animate	animate / inanimate

Verbs of intermediate transitivity status exhibit a mixed and unpredictable behavior in terms of their ability to combine with the applicatives *-xon* and *-(V)na(a)n ~ -(V)n* as well as the meaning(s) achieved when a given combination is possible. Furthermore, members of the same semantic / morpho-syntactic subclass do not behave uniformly in this respect and may differ from one another significantly. For example, the verbs *keen-* 'want, love, like, need' and *shinanbenot-* 'slip the mind, forget' have the special characteristic of allowing two alternate case-frames; either <ABS ABS> or <ABS INTRSS>. *Keen-* behaves like an intransitive verb in that it can only combine with *-xon* in order to achieve a benefactive or malefactive effect (the sequence **keen*-MAL- is

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ungrammatical). In this way, *keen-* differs from the semantically close but syntactically distinct verb *noi-* 'love' which, being a prototypical transitive, may combine with both *-xon* and *-(V)na(a)n* to achieve a benefactive or a malefactive meaning, respectively. But unlike *keen-*, the second member of this verb pair, *shinanbenot-*, does combine with the two applicatives in question.

Despite being a prototypical transitive, the verb *be-* 'bring' cannot combine with the malefactive but requires the applicative *-xon* in order to obtain a benefactive or a malefactive reading. It may be posited that the inherent meaning of 'bring' invokes an event schema that includes a recipient / goal and hence a benefactive sense; it is its constant use with a benefactive sense that might have led to the fixation of the sequence *be-xon-* and the unacceptability of *be-enaan-* (unlike *be-*, *bo-* 'carry, take' may receive both the affective and malefactive suffixes). Conversely, *kene-* 'miss, fail' is part of an event schema in which the subject participant is most often negatively affected; *kene-* can only take the malefactive, regardless of a detrimental or a benefactive reading. If this analysis is correct, these examples represent instances where preferred event conceptualization and language use affect the shape of grammar overriding morpho-syntactic principles.

Finally, the associative is equally attested with both intransitive and transitive bases. *-Kin ~ -kiin* adds, generally, an accompanied or helped participant to the clause. Unlike *-xon* and the specific malefactive which indicate that only the subject participates in the execution of the event depicted by the base predicate, the associative necessarily implies the involvement of both subject and applicative object. This joint participation

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may be reflected in the fact that with verbs having suppletive singular-intransitive and non-singular / transitive stems, the latter rather than the former are required in *-kin-* marked constructions even when the subject is singular and the intended base predicate involves a single core argument. It is also possible that the obligatory selection of the non-singular / transitive form in associative constructions be related to the valency increase caused by the addition of *-kin*.

Applicative suffixes dominantly follow other valency-changing elements such as causatives, reciprocal, and middle suffix, and precede modifying and inflectional morphology; however, certain alternate morpheme order involving applicatives and the causative *-ma* is possible to signal scope distinctions. Different relative orders of *-xon* and the reciprocal have also been attested. Given the order of applicatives in the verb, and the minimal transitivity requirement imposed by the dedicated malefactive, the latter cannot occur in combination with middle-marked and reciprocalized stems (which are necessarily detransitivized). Therefore, it could be said that a morpho-syntactic restriction would account for the impossibility of expressing through a malefactive applicative construction situations which, in principle, are pragmatically feasible such as 'They left each other to the children's detriment' or 'The child burned her / himself to my detriment.'

It was also noted that *-xon* rarely follows middle-marked stems despite the ease with which it combines with different transitivity types of verbs. The reason for this may be the fact that middle marking already signals the presence of an affected participant; i.e. the subject.

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The relatively very high text frequency of *-xon* in comparison to the malefactive might be partially due to the minimal transitivity requirement of the latter and the double function played by *-xon*.

In this chapter I have also examined the morpho-syntactic behavior of base and applicative objects. Both objects are marked absolutive and may occur in any position between the subject and the verb; therefore, neither constituent order nor case-marking may distinguish between them and ambiguity as to which NP is the base object and which is the applied object is possible. Furthermore, both objects can be preposed or right-dislocated, are accessible to prenominal and postnominal relativization, and can be reciprocal with the subject (when data are available). Additionally, both objects may be interpreted as coreferential with the matrix clause subject in *-a*-marked complex sentences. Nevertheless, provisional evidence from access to internally-headed relativization suggests that native speakers establish subtle distinctions between patient and applicative objects. More specifically, patient base objects seem to exhibit preferred direct object status than their applicative counterparts since they are preferably interpreted as NP_{REL} in internally-headed relatives involving malefactive and especially *-xon* affective constructions; in internally-headed relatives involving associative constructions, however, applicative objects appear to be preferably interpreted as NP_{REL}.

Generally, SK employs different constructions for applicativization and causativization. Nevertheless, the associative applicative is used for the coding of sociative causation and, therefore, it can be said that the associative somehow enters into the causation field. This is especially so when the associative attaches to the verb *tee-*

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'work' (and maybe also *paké-* 'fall'); in this case, a sociative causation interpretation is required. Hence, the ergatively marked argument functions as causer and the applicative object as causee, both participants taking part in the base event. While applicatives other than the associative indicate exclusive participation of the subject in the event depicted by the base predicate, and causatives encode exclusive participation of the causee, the associative indicates active involvement of both subject and non-base object. However, there is no evidence in support of a genetic relationship between applicatives and causativizers.

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CHAPTER 18

DETRANSITIVIZATION

This chapter deals with reflexive and reciprocal constructions in SK; whereas the former typically but not necessarily involve the presence of the middle morpheme *-t*, the latter requires suffixation of the dedicated reciprocal to the verb. The addition of either the middle or the reciprocal suffixes to a transitive stem results in decreased transitivity of the clause.

18.1. Reflexive and Other Constructions Signaling Subject-Affectedness

18.1.1. The Middle Marker *-T*

Middle-marking is a morpho-syntactic strategy whereby the subject is construed as the "principal locus of the effects" of the action, event, or state denoted by the clause (Klaiman 1988:36). Cross-linguistically, the verbs associated with middle morphology can be grouped into different semantic classes, such as: grooming or body care, non-translational motion, change in body posture, indirect middle (self-benefactive middle),

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natural reciprocals, translational motion, emotion middle, cognition middle, spontaneous event, and logophoric middle (Kemmer 1993:16-19).

SK has a large proportion of inherently transitive verbs which can become intransitive by taking the middle suffix *-t*. The term "middle" is applied here given that the addition of *-t* signals functions that are very similar to those played by middle voice constructions in certain Indo-European languages such as Classical Greek and Classical Sanskrit (Klaiman 1988 and references therein, Kemmer 1993); an important characteristic of SK however is that reciprocal function in this language is encoded through a separate suffix. The addition of *-t* in SK may indicate a reflexive action directed towards oneself or one's body-part such as acts of grooming, a spontaneous change of state undergone by a subject participant with no implication of an external agent, a change of state undergone by a subject participant with implication of an external but unexpressed agent, physical actions, emotional states or changes of states, and self-benefactive actions. Subsuming all these functions, it can be said the middle suffix *-t* "indicates broadly that the action is performed with 'special reference' to the subject" (Smyth 1974, in Klaiman 1993:33).

The morpheme *-t* has different allomorphs and their distribution has a historical motivation.[1] Generally, bisyllabic roots ending in an open syllable take the allomorph *-t*. With some of these roots, *-t* triggers a change in quality and / or length in the last vowel of the root. When a verb stem formed by root-*t*- precedes a suffix starting with a

[1] For a discussion on the "reflexive" marker in Panoan languages, see Loos (1985).

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consonant, the /t/ is deleted and the last vowel of the root gets compensatory stress (e.g., 'burn,' 'hide,' among others). Other allomorphs of *-t* are *-meet*, when the stem ends in /n/ (e.g., 'open,' 'hang'), *-(k)oot*, *-(k)eet* ('turn over'), *-(k)iit* and *-(k)aat*.

Table 18.1. Middle-Marked Verb Forms[2]

Transitive	Middle-Marked INC	Middle-Marked CMPL
meno- burn 'burn'	meno-t-ai burn-MID-INC 'burn (self)'	menó-ke burn:MID-CMPL 'burned (self)'
piko- take.out 'take out'	piko-t-ai take.out-MID-INC 'go out'	pikó-ke take.out:MID-CMPL 'went out'
noko- meet 'meet, find'	noko-t-ai meet-MID-INC 'arrive'	nokó-ke meet:MID-CMPL 'arrived'
pake- drop 'drop, bring down'	pake-t-ai drop-MID-INC 'fall, come down'	paké-ke drop:MID-CMPL 'fell (intr.), came down'
jone- hide 'hide'	jone-t-ai hide-MID-INC 'hide (self)'	joné-ke hide:MID-CMPL 'hid (self)'
toe- break 'break'	toe-t-ai break-MID-INC 'break (intr.)	toe-ke break:MID-CMPL 'broke (intr.)'
ponte- straigthen 'straighten'	ponte-t-ai straighten-MID-INC 'straighten (self)'	ponté-ke straighten:MID-CMPL 'straightened (self)'

[2] For reasons of convenience, I am translating the SK incompletive and completive verb forms into their English present and past equivalents.

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chope-	chope-t-ai	chopé-ke
open	open-MID-INC	open:MID-CMPL
'open, break'	'open (intr.), break (intr.)'	'opened (intr.), broke (intr.)'
choka-	chokiit-ai	chokí-ke
wash	wash:MID-INC	wash:MID-CMPL
'wash'	'wash (self)'	'washed (self)'
xoka-	xokoot-ai	xokó-ke
peel	peel:MID-INC	peel:MID-CMPL
'peel'	'peel (self)'	'peeled (self)'
naranbe-	naranbe-keet-ai/naranbe-t-ai	naranbee-ke
turn over	turn over-MID-INC	turn over:MID-CMPL
'turn over'	'turn over (intr.)'	'turned over (intr.)'
boex-	boex-eet-ai	boex-ee-ke.
comb	comb-MID-INC	comb-MID-CMPL
'comb'	'comb (self)'	'combed (self)'
kepen-	kepemeet-ai	kepemee-ke
open	open:MID-INC	open:MID-CMPL
'open'	'open (intr.)	'opened (intr.)'
rontan-	rontameet-ai	rontamee-ke
hang	hang:MID-INC	hang:MID-CMPL
'hang'	'hang (intr.)'	'hanged (intr.)'

As mentioned above, in addition to the reflexive meaning indicated by the translations in Table 18.1, the middle suffix may signal other functions. In the next example, the middle seems to encode self-benefit (but cf. 18.1.6):

(1) Jawe onan-ma ik-*ax* no-a jain kaman
what knowledgeable-NEG do.I-PSSS 1p-ABS there LIM

nokó-yamai.
meet:MID-NEG:INC
'If we are not knowledgeable we will not meet our goals.'

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In the following sentences, the middle suffix combines with verbs of motion, position, and emotion.

(2) [Jato a-taanan]-ki ik-á iki moa Chichíporo motion
3p:ABS do.T-PSS-HSY2 do.I-PP2 AUX already Canary

Ainbo-ki manot-a iki.
Woman:ABS-HSY2 disappear:MID-PP2 AUX
'After telling them that, the Canary Woman disappeared.'

(3) [Pikó-ke-tian]-bi no-a ani a-kan-ai... motion
take.out:MID-P-DS-EM 1p-ABS big do.T-PL-INC
'From the moment we are born, they (our parents) take care of us....'

(4) Jawe-tian-ki no-n Inka jo-ai, ja-tian-ra position
what-TEMP-HSY2 1p-GEN Inka:ABS come-INC that-TEMP-EV

no-a i-nox iki weni-t-i.
1p-ABS do.I-FUT standing.position-MID-SSSS
'The day our Inka comes back, we will stand up (from among the dead).'

(5) Ja-tian jawen bene-n raté-xon emotion
that-TEMP POS3 husband-ERG scare:MID-PSSA

ino to'-a-ke
jaguar:ABS ONOM:shooting-do.T-CMPL
'Then her husband got scared and shot the jaguar.'

Further functions played by middle voice constructions such as anticausative (i.e., a spontaneous change-of-state undergone by a patient-subject with no implication of an external agent) and agentless passive (i.e., a change-of-state undergone by a patient-subject with implication of an external but unexpressed agent) will be treated later in section 18.1.9.

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18.1.2. Reflexive and Emphatic Subject Senses

Reflexive constructions are two-argument (or more) predicates in which the agent and the patient participants are the same entity; that is, the agent acts upon itself. Cross-linguistically, there are two major ways to express the reflexive: placing a reflexive pronoun in the O slot of a transitive clause, or adding a specific affix to a transitive verb in order to derive an intransitive with a reflexive meaning (Dixon and Aikhenvald 2000:11). As shown already SK follows the second strategy through the addition of the suffix *-t* to an inherently transitive verb which then often becomes a reflexive intransitive; consequent-ly, the case-marking on the subject changes from ergative to absolutive. In addition, SK has a set of emphatic pronouns which have been previously called "reflexive pronouns" (Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:67). However, these pronouns are not generally required in reflexive constructions. Moreover, there are different types of non-reflexive clauses where these pronouns may occur. Consider the next transitive sentence:

(6) a. Tsoma-n-ra ja chachi-ke.
Tsoma-ERG-EV 3:ABS poke-CMPL
'Tsoma poked him (with an arrow, knife, something pointed).'

In the sentence above, the absolutive pronoun *ja* cannot refer to Tsoma; i.e., this sentence cannot mean 'Tsoma poked himself.' Now observe the reflexive counterpart of (6a):

b. Tsoma-ra chachí-ke.
Tsoma:ABS-EV poke:MID-CMPL
'Tsoma poked himself.'

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A similar pair of sentences involving a transitive root and its middle-marked counterpart follows:

(7) a. Mi-n-ra shino chekeren-ke.
2-ERG-EV capuchin.monkey:ABS tickle-CMPL
'You tickled the capuchin monkey.'

b. Mi-a-ra chekeremee-ke.
2-ABS-EV tickle:MID-CMPL
'You tickled yourself.'

As stated above, emphatic pronouns are optional in most reflexive constructions. In the free English translations of (8) and (9), the parenthesized expressions convey the sense of the optional emphatic pronouns:

(8) Tsoma-ra (*ja-n-bi-x*) chachí-ke.
Tsoma:ABS-EV 3-NOM-EM-S pinch:MID-CMPL
'Tsoma pinched himself (by his own action).'

(9) Mi-a-ra (*mi-n-bi-x*) chekeremee-ke.
2-ABS-EV 2-NOM-EM-S tickle:MID-CMPL
'You tickled yourself (by your own action).'

Emphatic pronouns, which diachronically contain the emphatic *-bi*, may themselves receive emphatic marking, as shown below:

(10) Wesna-ra *ja-n-bi-x-bi* topomee-yama-ke.
Wesna:ABS-EV 3-NOM-EM-S-EM count:MID-NEG-CMPL
'Wesna didn't count herself (e.g. when counting the people present in the meeting).'

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Unexpectedly, the prototypical transitive verb *rete-* 'kill' cannot take the middle suffix in order to yield a reflexive sense:

(11) Tsoma-n-ra Mane rete-ke.
Tsoma-ERG-EV Mane:ABS kill-CMPL
'Tsoma killed Mane.'

(12) Mane-ra reté-ke.
Mane:ABS-EV kill:MID-CMPL
*'Mane killed himself.'

It is possible though to convey the meaning 'kill oneself' by using the intransitive *mawat-* 'die' accompanied by the appropriate emphatic pronoun:

(13) Mane-ra ja-n-bi-x mawá[3]-ke.
Mane:ABS-EV 3-NOM-EM-S die-CMPL
'Mane himself died / died by his own action.'

Reté-, i.e. the middle form of *rete-* 'kill,' is attested though with a different meaning:

(14) Tsoma-ra *reté*-kain-ke.
Tsoma:ABS-EV kill:MID-AND1-CMPL
'Tsoma fainted falling to the ground.'

Another way to express the meaning 'kill oneself' involves specification of the means employed in the action as in (15b); the emphatic pronoun is optional:

(15) a. Joni-baon-ra to' a-kan-ke.
man-PL:ERG-EV ONOM:shoot do.T-PL-CMPL
'The men shot at him / her / it.'

[3] It is not possible to unequivocally determine whether *mawat* ~ *mawá* 'die' itself bears middle-marking. There is a transitive root *mawa-* 'imitate' in SK, but it might not be derivationally related to 'die.'

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b. Ja-bo-ra (jato-n-bi-ni-x) to' i-kan-ke.
3-PL:ABS-EV 3p-NOM-EM-LIG-S ONOM:shoot do.I-PL-CMPL
'They shot themselves (by their own action).'

Further examples involving onomatopoeic verbs like *to' a(k)-* and *to' i(k)-* are given in section 18.1.3 below.

Extended intransitive and intransitive verbs in general cannot take the middle suffix to yield a reflexive meaning.[4] Typically, SK extended intransitives acquire a reflexive sense simply by omitting the second argument, which when present is marked by the dative *-ki* or the oblique *-n*:

Extended intransitive

(16) Wesna-ra Tsoma-*ki* siná-ke.
Wesna:ABS-EV Tsoma-DAT get.angry.at-CMPL
'Wesna got angry at Tsoma.'

(17) Wesna-ra Tsoma-*n* rabin-ai.
Wesna:ABS-EV Tsoma-OBL be.embarrassed.about-INC
'Wesna is embarrassed about Tsoma.'

Reflexive sense

(18) Wesna-ra siná-ke.
Wesna:ABS-EV get.angry.at-CMPL
'Wesna got angry at herself.' Also 'Wesna got angry.'

(19) Wesna rabin-ai.
Wesna:ABS be.embarrassed.about-INC
'Wesna is embarrassed about herself.' Also 'Wesna is embarrassed.'

[4] In different languages some intransitive verbs that take a second argument may have a reflexive form; consider, for example, the English sentences I talked to myself and I laughed at myself.

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Shiro- 'laugh at, make fun of' is an extended intransitive verb imposing the <ABS *-ki*> case-frame; i.e., the most agent-like participant is marked absolutive, while the most patient-like one is marked by *-ki*:

(20) Wesna-ra Tsoma-ki shiro-ke.
Wesna:ABS-EV Tsoma-DAT make.fun.of-CMPL
'Wesna made fun of Tsoma.'

A peculiarity of *shiro-* is that, according to one language consultant, an emphatic pronoun must be added to the clause in order to obtain a reflexive meaning:

(21) Wesna-ra ja-n-bi-x shiro-ke.
Wesna:ABS-EV 3-NOM-EM-S make.fun.of-CMPL
'Wesna made fun of herself.'

An emphatic subject meaning like 'I did it myself' (equivalent to the sense of emphatic pronouns in previous examples) can be added to a *shiro-* extended intransitive clause by appending the emphatic *-bi* to the subject NP:

(22) Wesna-*bi*-ra Tsoma-ki shiro-ke.
Wesna:ABS-EM-EV Tsoma-DAT make.fun.of-CMPL
'Wesna herself made fun of Tsoma.'

Another verb that would require an emphatic pronoun rather than the middle *-t* in order to yield a reflexive meaning is *keen-* 'want / love.' *Keen-* is a verb of intermediate transitivity status requiring an <ABS ABS / INTRSS> case-frame. Note however that example (24) has an alternate non-reflexive reading:

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(23) Wesna-ra Tsoma(-n) keen-ai.
Wesna:ABS-EV Tsoma(-INTRSS) want-CMPL
'Wesna loves / wants Tsoma.'

(24) Wesna-ra ja-n-bi-x keen-ai.
Wesna:ABS-EV 3-NOM-EM-S want-INC
'Wesna loves / wants herself. / Wesna herself loves / wants (him / her / it).'

A reflexive interpretation of (24) was dispreferred by native speakers. By contrast, *noi-kaat-*, the middle-marked form of the transitive *noi-* 'love,' was readily accepted. This suggests that the low degree of acceptability of a middle-marked form involving *keen-* is related to the transitivity status of the base rather than to semantico-pragmatic reasons (these two verbs also differ in the way they encode malefactive meaning; see 17.3.2, especially exx. (122)-(123)).

Generally, the middle suffix does not combine with causativized stems, *bo-ma-* 'send' being an exception probably due to its high degree of lexicalization:

(25) Wesna-ra kirika bo-ma-kaa-ke.
Wesna:ABS-EV letter:ABS carry-CAUS-MID-CMPL
'Wesna sent a letter to herself.'

Examples of causativization of middle-marked stems are offered later in this chapter.

18.1.3. Reflexive Onomatopoeic Verbs

SK has a class of verbs composed of an onomatopoeic root plus the transitive semantically generic verb *ak-* or its intransitive counterpart *ik-*. Interestingly,

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onomatopoeic verbs may exhibit a special unanalyzable middle form (glossed as REFL here) in order to yield a reflexive meaning:

(26) Ochíti-nin-ra joni jojó a-ke.
dog-ERG-EV man:ABS ONOM:bark do.T-CMPL
'The dog barked at the man.'

(27) Ochíti-ra jojó i-ke.
dog:ABS-EV ONOM:bark do.I-CMPL
'The dog barked.'

(28) Ochíti-ra jojó *iaká*-ke.
dog:ABS-EV ONOM:bark do:REFL-CMPL
'The dog barked at itself (e.g. at its own shadow).'

The verb 'kiss (on) the hand' contains a body-part prefix before the onomatopoeic root:

(29) Tsoma-n-ra Wesna me-tsó a-ke.
Tsoma-ERG-EV Wesna:ABS HAND-ONOM:kiss do.T-CMPL
'Tsoma kissed Wesna's hand / kissed Wesna on the hand'

(30) Wesna-ra me-tsó iaká-ke.
Wesna:ABS-EV HAND-ONOM do.REFL-CMPL
'Wesna kissed her own hand / kissed herself on the hand.'

Similar reflexive forms have not been attested with any other verb type.

18.1.4. Locative Reflexives

In SK there is no way to distinguish a non-reflexive from a reflexive third person pronoun in locative phrases like the one in the example below:

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(31) Wesna-n-ra chomo ja pekáo a-ke.
Wesna-ERG-EV jar:ABS 3 behind do.T-CMPL
'Wesna put the jar behind her(self).'

18.1.5. Possessive Reflexives

The emphatic *-bi* is commonly used to distinguish third person reflexive from non-reflexive pronouns in possessive constructions. The element *kikin* 'own, legitimate, elegant' (also an intensifier) may precede the possessum:

(32) Ja-n-ra jawen poi rete-ke.
3-ERG-EV POS3 opposite.sex.sibling:ABS kill-CMPL
'She$_i$ killed her$_i$ brother. / She$_i$ killed her$_j$ brother.'

(33) Ja-n-ra jawen (*kikin*) poi(-*bi*) rete-ke.
3-ERG-EV POS3 own opposite.sex.sibling:ABS-EM kill-CMPL
'She killed her own brother.'

However, these strategies (i.e., addition of *-bi* and *kikin*) are not fully grammaticalized and do not always result in a reflexive possessive meaning. *-Bi* and particularly *kikin* may be left out of the sentence; but even when these two elements are present, 'her own' in (33) may be interpreted as coreferential with a participant other than the subject. Examples (34)-(41) further illustrate possessive reflexives:

(34) Jawen (*kikin*) xobomea-x(-*bi*)-ra jo-ke.
POS3 own house:LOC:ABL-S-EM-EV come-CMPL
'(She) came from her own house.'

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(35) Jawen (*kikin*) ochíti(-*bi*)-ra yoina a-ma-i ka-ke.
POS3 own dog:ABS-EM-EV game:ABS do.T-CAUS-SSSS go-CMPL
'(He) went to hunt with his own dog.' Lit. 'He went (to the forest) making his own dog obtain game.'

Examples (36)-(39) involving body-part prefixes may correspond to English possessive reflexive constructions:

(36) a. Wesna-n-ra Tsoma me-méno-ke.
Wesna-ERG-EV Tsoma:ABS HAND-burn-CMPL
'Wesna burned Tsoma on the hand / burned Tsoma's hand.'

b. Tsoma-ra me-ménoo-ke.
Tsoma:ABS-EV HAND-burn:MID-CMPL
'Tsoma burned himself on the hand / burned his own hand.'

(37) a. Wesna-n-ra Tsoma ki-xonin-ke.
Wesna-ERG-EV Tsoma:ABS LEG-rub-CMPL
'Wesna rubbed Tsoma on the leg /rubbed Tsoma's leg.'

b. Tsoma-ra ki-xonimee-ke.
Tsoma:ABS-EV LEG-rub:MID-CMPL
'Tsoma rubbed himself on the leg / rubbed his own leg.'

(38) a. Wesna-n-ra Tsoma ja-no-ke.
Wesna-ERG-EV Tsoma:ABS TONGUE-introduce-CMPL
'Wesna introduced her finger in Tsoma's mouth.'

b. Tsoma-ra ja-nokoo-ke.
Tsoma:ABS-EV TONGUE-introduce:MID-CMPL
'Tsoma introduced his finger in his own mouth.'

(39) a. Wesna-n-ra Tsoma bo-chó-ke.
Wesna-ERG-EV Tsoma:ABS HAIR-wash-CMPL
'Wesna washed Tsoma's hair.'

b. Tsoma-ra bo-chokí-ke.
Tsoma:ABS-EV HAIR-wash:MID-CMPL
'Tsoma washed his own hair.'

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Some prefixed verbs however cannot take the middle suffix:

(40) a. jina-ki natex-ke ~ ji-natex-ke
tail-DAT bite-CMPL TAIL-bite-CMPL
'bit X on the tail, bit X's tail'

b. jina-nko natex-ee-ke but *ji-natex-ee-ke
tail-LOC bite-MID-CMPL TAIL-bite-MID-CMPL
'bit oneself on the tail, bit self's tail.'

(41) a. mapo-nko rishki-ke ~ ma-rishki-ke
head-LOC hit-CMPL HEAD-hit-CMPL
'hit X on the head, hit X's head'

b. mapo-nko rishki-kaa-ke but *ma-rishki-kaa-ke
head-LOC hit-MID-CMPL HEAD-hit-MID-CMPL
'hit oneself on the head, hit one's own head.'

Further research is required to determine the distribution of the middle marker and prefixed verbs.

18.1.6. Benefactive Reflexives

As shown in the previous chapter, beneficiary-object arguments can be added to a clause by suffixing the applicative *-xon* to the verb. Since the verb increases its transitivity by one, the subject of the derived structure is always marked ergative, while the beneficiary object and the base object (if there is one) occur in the absolutive case. Consider the following examples with the intransitive verb *tee-* 'work' and the transitive verb *xoi-* 'roast:'

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(42) Wesna-n-ra Tsoma tee-xon-ke.
Wesna-ERG-EV Tsoma:ABS work-BEN-CMPL
'Wesna worked for / instead of Tsoma.'

(43) Wesna-n-ra Tsoma atsa xoi-xon-ke.
Wesna-ERG-EV Tsoma:ABS yuca:ABS roast-BEN-CMPL
Wesna roasted yuca for Tsoma.'

In order to convey a self-benefactive meaning, a possessive pronoun with the meaning 'for herself, what is of herself' followed by the emphatic *-bi* can be added to the clause. The base verb carries no applicative and hence no transitivity increase takes place:

(44) Wesna-ra jawen-a-bi tee-ke.
Wesna:ABS-EV POS3-NMLZ-EM work-CMPL
'Wesna worked for herself / what is of herself.'

(45) Wesna-n-ra jawen-a-bi atsa xoi-ke.
Wesna-ERG-EV POS3-NMLZ-EM yuca:ABS roast-CMPL
'Wesna roasted manioc for herself / roasted her own yuca.'

As noted from the free translations in (44) and (45), a possessive reflexive reading is possible in these constructions. In sum, the SK middle does not systematically code 'self benefactive' meaning (cf. ex. (1)).

18.1.7. Reflexives without an Antecedent

Reflexive structures lacking an antecedent can be attested in SK:

(46) Neno-ra yama-ke to' iaká-kas-ai.
here-EV exist.not-CMPL ONOM:shoot do:REFL-DES-INC
'Here there has been no suicide attempt.'

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(47) Jakon-ma r-iki no-n-bi-x-bi namakaat-a.
good-NEG EV-COP 1p-NOM-EM-S-EM dream:MID-PP2
'It is bad to dream about oneself.'

18.1.8. Reflexives and Complex Sentences

In the following complex sentence a reflexive in the dependent purposive clause is controlled by the subject of the main clause:

(48) E-a-ra nokon xobo-nko kai [ispíko-nin oinmee-ti].
1-ABS-EV POS1 house-ALL go:INC mirror-MNS see:MID-INF
'I am going to my house to look at myself in the mirror.'

Unlike (48), (49) has a transitive main clause. Note that the reflexive in the dependent relative clause may be controlled by either NP in the main clause:

(49) Wesna-n-ra Kate yoká-ke [ja-n(-bi) chomo ak-á].
Wesna-ERG-EV Kate:ABS ask.for-CMPL 3-NOM-EM jar do.T-PP2:ABS
'Wesna$_i$ asked Kate$_j$ for the jar she$_i$ had made herself$_i$ / the jar she$_j$ had made herself$_j$.'

The next example exhibits a reflexive construction contained in a complement clause:

(50) E-n-ra shinan-ai [Tsoma ja-n-bi-x menot-a].
1-ERG-EV think-INC Tsoma:ABS 3-NOM-EM-S burn:MID-PP2
'I think that Tsoma burnt himself.'

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18.1.9. Reflexive, Anticausative and Agentless Passive Senses

The addition of *-t* to a transitive verb may result in a range of meanings including reflexive, anticausative and / or agentless passive. Reflexive is a possible interpretation of clauses involving *-t*-derivation and animate subjects (but recall *reté-* in (12) above).

18.1.9.1. Anticausative Sense

The term "anticausative" refers to a spontaneous patient-oriented event or process, with little or no implication of an agent participant. A stem resulting from the addition of *-t* may have both a reflexive and / or an anticausative sense; this is shown in the exx. below:

Transitive

(51) Joni-n-ra koríki *miin*-ke.
man-ERG-EV money:ABS bury-CMPL
'The man buried the money.'

(52) Wesna-n-ra Tsoma *xe-tse*-ke.
Wesna-ERG-EV Tsoma:ABS TOOTH-take.out-CMPL
'Wesna took something out from (between) Tsoma's teeth.'
* 'Wesna took out Tsoma's teeth / tooth.'

Detransitivized reflexive sense

(53) E-a-ra mashi-n *miimee*-ke.
1-ABS-EV sand-LOC bury:MID-CMPL
'I buried myself in the sand.'

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(54) Wesna-ra (xeta) *xe-tsekee*-ke.
Wesna:ABS-EV tooth TOOTH-take.out:MID-CMPL
'Wesna took out her denture.'

Detransitivized anticausative sense

(55) Mashi-n meosoti pake-kan-a-ra *miimee*-ke.
sand-LOC ring drop-PL-PP2:ABS-EV bury:MID-CMPL
'The ring that they dropped in the sand got buried.'

(56) Wesna-ra (xeta) *xe-tsekee*-ke.
Wesna:ABS-EV tooth TOOTH-take.out:MID-CMPL
'Wesna's denture fell.'

Some middle-marked clauses may have an exclusive or preferred anticausative reading, especially when the affected participant is inanimate:

Transitive

(57) Wesna-n-ra chopa *kato*-ke.
Wesna-ERG-EV clothes:ABS fold-CMPL
'Wesna folded the clothes.'

Detransitivized anticausative sense

(58) Nokon papa-n tari-ra niwe-n ak-á *kato-kaa*-ke.
POS1 father-GEN *tari*:ABS-EV wind-ERG do.T-PO>S/A fold-MID-CMPL
'My father's *tari* folded due to the wind.' (Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:142)

Loriot, Lauriault, and Day (1993:270) list the stem *mishki-* as the only derived middle form of *mishki-* 'fish with hook.' The authors indicate that *mishki-* has two different

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meanings, 'hook oneself' and 'choke.' The speakers with whom I consulted know two alternate middle forms for *mishki-*: *mishkí- ~ mishki-t-* and *mishki-kaa-*:

Transitive

(59) Nima-n-ra sipan mishki-ai.
Nima-ERG-EV sardine:ABS fish.w/hook-INC
'Nima is fishing sardines.'

Detransitivized reflexive sense

(60) Yomera-i ka-i-ra e-a e-n-bi-x-bi
fish-SSSS go-SSSS-EV 1-ABS 1-NOM-EM-S-EM

mishki-kaa-ke / mishkí-ke.
fish.w/hook-MID-CMPL
'While going fishing I hooked myself (I had the hook hanged on the shoulder).'

Detransitivized anticausative sense

(61) E-a-ra boe-n xao-n mishki-kaa-ke / mishkí-ke.
1-ABS-EV *boquichico*-GEN bone-INST fish.w/hook-:MID-CMPL
'I choked with the *boquichico*'s (kind of fish) bone.'

While most consultants considered the alternate middle-marked forms *mishkí-* and *mishki-kaa-* to be semantically interchangeable, for one collaborator the form *mishkí-* imposes an anticausative reading while *mishki-kaa-* requires a reflexive interpretation (Yoi Sani, p.c. 2000).

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18.1.9.2. Agentless Passive Sense

Passive voice is a fundamentally pragmatic notion indicating that the non-agent is the most topical participant, and thus overrides the agent in this respect. The three components of the canonical promotional passive are: a) agent demotion, b) non-agent promotion, and c) verb stativization. All three components can have a detransitivizing effect (Givón 1990:chapter 14). Some languages have a less prototypical passive construction in which the underlying agent must be omitted. That is, it is understood that there was an agent who caused the action, but this agent is considered irrelevant. This construction is called "agentless passive."

In addition to reflexive and anticausative, middle verbs in SK may also code an agentless passive sense. The middle forms of *bachin-* 'pull by the hair' and *osan-* 'laugh at' allow both a reflexive and an agentless passive interpretation:

Transitive

(62) Nato ainbaon-ra jawen bene-n merati *bachin*-ke.
this woman:ERG-EV POS3 husband-GEN lover:ABS pull.by.the.hair-CMPL
'This woman pulled her husband's lover by the hair.'[5] (Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:99)

(63) Bake-n-ra oa pae-n-a-bo *osan*-ai.
child-ERG-EV DIST sour-VBLZ-PP2-PL:ABS laugh.at-INC
'The child is laughing at those drunk ones over there.'

[5] If a woman finds out / thinks her husband is cheating on her, it is very common for the wife to pull her husband's lover by the hair. This is a culturally expected behavior, since a woman must be *siná* 'brave.'

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Detransitivized reflexive sense

(64) Nokon mapo-nko ia chaba chaba ik-ai-tian, bi-ti shinan-i-ra
POS1 head-LOC lice:ABS itch itch do.I-S-DS get-INF think-SSSS-EV

e-a *bachimee*-res-ke.
1-ABS pull.by.the.hair:MID-just-CMPL
'Since the lice were making my head itch and itch, trying to catch it I pulled myself by the hair.'

(65) Ispijo-nin *oimeet*-ax-ra e-a *osamee*-ke.
mirror-LOC see:MID-PSSS-EV 1-ABS laugh.at:MID-CMPL
'Looking (at myself) in the mirror, I laughed at myself.'

Detransitivized agentless passive sense

(66) Yanka-bi-res-a e-a *bachimee*-ke ikon-tani
in.vain-EM-just-EV 1-ABS pull.by.the.hair:MID-CMPL true-ATT

i-ken-ma-bi.
be-PDS-NEG-EM
'I was pulled by the hair unfairly, without it being true.' (i.e., a woman thought I was having an affair with her husband and pulled me by the hair.)

(67) Nokon kené jakon-ma-shoko icha napon piko-ax-a, e-a
POS1 design good-NEG-DIM:ABS many middle take.out-PSSS-EV 1-ABS

osamee-ke.
laugh.at:MID-CMPL
'Because I ended up with a little ugly pottery design in front of many people, I was laughed at.'

In (67) the first person singular is the subject of the two clauses, as indicated by the same-reference marker *-ax*; this suffix also correlates with the intransitivity value of the main verb *osameeke*. Therefore, in the second, main clause we have a patient-subject of an intransitive middle clause and an unexpressed agent. Compare the sentence above with

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(68) in which the plural marker on the verb signals the main clause has a third person plural or impersonal subject. Additionally, the switch-reference marker *-ketian* indicates the subjects of the two clauses are non-coreferential:

(68) Nokon kené jakon-ma-shoko icha napon piko-*ke-tian*-ra, e-a
POS1 design good-NEG-DIM:ABS many middle take.out-P-DS-EV 1-ABS

osan-*kan*-ke.
laugh.at-PL-CMPL
'Because I ended up with a little ugly pottery design in front of many people, they laughed at me.'

Two other derived intransitive verbs that allow for reflexive and agentless passive interpretations are: *yoi-* 'tell' > *yoi-kaa-* 'tell oneself / be talked about' and *ninká-* 'hear' > *ninka-kaa-* 'hear oneself / be heard about (i.e., others hear something about the subject).'

While native speakers agree on the reflexive interpretation of middle verbs, they may disagree on whether a specific form also allows an agentless passive reading. This piece of evidence suggests that the passive meaning is non-basic. For example, the transitive *potsi-* 'squeeze, milk (a cow)' derives into *potsi-t-*:

(69) Yamékiri-tibi-ra waka xoma potsi-*t*-ai.
dawn-DISTR-EV cow udder:ABS squeeze-MID-INC
'Every day at dawn the cow is milked.' (Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:334)

The sentence above was confirmed by one language consultant but rejected by two others for whom *potsi-t-ai* can only have a reflexive meaning.

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Like *mishki-* 'fish with hook,' the verb *noko-* 'find, meet somebody' exhibits two alternate middle forms. But in this case there is general agreement in that each alternate form has a distinct meaning: *noko-t-* 'arrive' and *noko-kaa-* 'be found.'

Transitive

(70) Kachio ka-xon-ra kamox no-n noko-a iki.
forest go-PSSA-EV *shushupe*:ABS 1p-ERG find-PP2 AUX
'Going to the forest, we found a *shushupe* snake.'

Detransitivized, motion

(71) E-a-ra yamé nokó-wan-ke.
1-ABS-EV at.dark find:MID-PST1-CMPL
'I arrived at night.'

Detransitivized agentless passive sense

(72) Kachio jabat-i ka-[a]x-bi-ra e-a noko-kaa-ke.
forest hide-SSSS go-PSSS-EM-EV 1-ABS find-MID-CMPL
'I hid in the forest but was found (by others).'

Klaiman (1988:36-38) considers what is called here the "anticausative sense" as an extension of the basic function of middle voice in Indo-European languages, so that the subject is affected by the consequence of the action denoted by the clause without playing any role in effecting it. The derived passive, according to Klaiman, was a fairly late development in the history of Indo-European (attested only in two stocks: Greek and Indo-Iranian), which in turn might have arisen from the extension of the anticausative

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function; i.e., the subject is affected by an action carried out by a different participant.

Consider the following Sanskrit sentences (from Klaiman 1988:36-37):

Sanskrit

(73) a. devadatto namati daṇḍam
Devadatta-NOM bends-ACT stick-ACC
'Devadatta bends the stick.'

b. namate daṇḍaḥ
bends-MIDDLE stick-NOM
'The stick bends.'

c. namyate devadattena daṇḍaḥ
bends-PASS by-Devadatta stick-NOM
'The stick is bent by Devadatta.'

The verbs in the (b) and the (c) sentences above carry middle voice inflection (the verb in (a) is in the active voice). The development of the functions played by the middle voice in Indo-European can be represented as follows:

1: Basic Function		2: Extended Function		3: Very Extended Function
The subject effects the action and is the party most affected by it.	->	The subject is affected by the action, but did not necessarily carry it out.	->	The subject is affected by the action, but the effector was a different participant.

Klaiman (1988:37) concludes that the middle voice in Indo-European indicates subjects "have affected entity conceptual status, irrespective of their possible concomitant status as actors, sources, controllers, or catalysts of action."

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The data discussed in this section suggest that the middle voice in SK is extending its functions from stages (2) to (3). In both instances the subject participant is affected, predicates are more stative than those in the corresponding transitive clause, and no other (implied) participant overrides the non-agent subject in topicality.

18.1.10. Middle Stems and Causative Constructions

Middle-marked verbs are attested in causative constructions. The free English translations of the sentences below represent the preferred interpretation given by native speakers:

(74) Wasaman-ra miimee-ma-yama-ke.
Wasan:ERG-EV bury:MID-CAUS-NEG-CMPL
'Wasan didn't let someone bury himself.'

(75) Wasaman-ra Rono noko-kaa-ma-ke.
Wasan:ERG-EV Rono:ABS find.somebody-MID-CAUS-CMPL
'Wasan allowed / contributed (so) that Rono be found.'

(76) Wasaman-ra Rono katokoo-ma-ke.
Wasan:ERG-EV Rono:ABS choose:MID-CAUS-CMPL
'Wasan allowed / contributed (so) that Rono be chosen.'

The following sentence may be given a causative interpretation in spite of lacking an overt causativizer; the subject is simply a catalyzer of the action:

(77) Bake-bo-ra jato-n-bi-ni-x kikin-i rishki-kaa-kan-ke.
child-PL:ABS-EV 3p-NOM-EM-LIG-S extremely-S hit-MID-PL-CMPL
'The children themselves caused that they be hit (e.g. by their parents) with a pole (as punishment). / The children hit themselves with a pole.'

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Combination of middle stems and the causative *-ma* have also been treated in 16.3.2.

Additional functions of the middle *-t* described in the present dissertation are: to feed a constraint according to which phasal verbs must match the transitivity value of their accompanying verb (15.3.1) and weaken the force-dynamics of an inherently transitive verb in order to code indirect causation through *-ma* (16.3.2).

18.2. Reciprocalization

The verb suffix *-(ana)nan ~ -anan* typically indicates that two like events are taking place, with the agent of the first event being the patient of the second one, and vice versa. In other words, the two participants act on each other reciprocally. The reciprocal has a detransitivizing effect, since (generally) the clause becomes objectless and the subject of the resulting stem is always marked absolutive. According to Faust (1973:73), the allomorph *-anan* is added to verb stems with even-numbered syllables, while *-ananan* follows stems with odd-numbered syllables. This generalization is to be understood as a strong tendency, since speakers may employ both reciprocal forms with the same root; e.g., *rete-ananan-kan-ai ~ rete-anan-kan-ai* 'they kill each other;' see also examples with *noko-* 'meet' in (78) and (79) below.

Reciprocal constructions in SK may be grouped according to the type of subject they exhibit: coordinated NP, plural subject, unexpressed subject with plural-marked

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verb form, singular subject with comitative complement, and singular subject without any complement. These different types of reciprocal constructions are illustrated below:

Coordinated NP subject

(78) [Yawish betan mari]-ra atsa wai-nko noko-*ananan*-ke.
armadillo and agutí:ABS-EV yuca chacra-LOC meet-REC-CMPL
'The Armadillo and the Agouti met (each other) in the yuca chacra.'

The following example shows that reciprocalized verb forms may carry the suffix *-bekon* expressing action carried out by two participants (7.7.5). Notice also that the form of the reciprocal differs from the one in (78), although it attaches to the same root:

(79) [Kate betan Rono]-ra noko-*anan-bekon*-ai.
Kate and Rono:ABS-EV meet-REC-DUAL-INC
'Kate and Rono met (each other).'

Plural subject

Most plural subjects in the data contain the numeral *rabé* 'two.' The plural *-kan* is optional in the next example, given that the numeral provides plural information already:

(80) [Ainbo rabé]-ronki bachin-anan(-kan)-ai.
woman two:ABS-HSY pull.by.the.hair-REC(-PL)-INC
'(I heard that) two women are pulling each other by the hair.'

(81) [Bake-bo]-ra chiban-anan-kan-ai.
child-PL:ABS chase-REC-PL-INC
'The children are chasing each other. / The children are competing against each other in a race (e.g., between two schools).'

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The next example, extracted from a text about a shaman woman who had two husbands, is interesting since it involves three participants:

(82) Ja-bo-kaya kimisha noi-anan-kan-a.
3-PL:ABS-CONTRST three love-REC-PL-PP2
'But the three of them loved each other.'

In the sentence below, the plural *-kan* unexpectedly precedes the reciprocal:

(83) No-a ninká-*kanan*-ti ja-ke; ainbaon ninkat-ai
1p-ABS listen.to-PL:REC-INF exist-CMPL woman:ERG listen.to-INC

benbo-n-ribi ninkat-ai iki.
man-ERG-also listen.to-PP1 AUX
'We have to understand each other; women have to understand (men) and men have to understand (women) too.'

Unexpressed subject with plural-marked verb

In the sentences below the subject remains unexpressed; the presence of the plural *-kan* on the verb adds an impersonal meaning to the sentences:

(84) Rinko-baon jema-n-ronki rete-anan-*kan*-ai.
gringo-PL:GEN village-LOC-HSY kill-REC-PL-INC
'(I heard that) there is a war in foreign countries.'

(85) Ono-ra rami-anan-i tsamá-*kan*-ke.
over.there-EV insult-REC-SSSS gather:MID-PL-CMPL
'A group of people are insulting each other over there.'

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Singular subject and comitative complement

(86) [Kesten Beso]-ra Wano betan pota-ananan-ke.
Kesten Beso:ABS-EV Wano COM leave-REC-CMPL
'Kesten Beso and Wano separated.'

The evidential *-ra* marks the end of the first major sentence constituent; hence, in (86) *Wano betan* is not part of the subject NP. Ex. (87) is taken from a narrative text where the shaman Ashi is the main discourse participant:

(87) ...bechi-ax-ki [Bari betan] Ashi rete-ana[n]-ni-ke...
find.somebody-PSSI-HSY2 Sun COM Ashi:ABS kill-REC-REM-CMPL
.'..after finding (him) Ashi and the Sun fought against each other...'

The first clause in ex. (87) is marked by the same-subject morpheme *-ax*. Recall from Table 9.2 on overlapping reference in chained clauses that clause combinations where the marked clause subject is singular whereas the matrix clause subject is the same person but plural would require different-subject marking.

Singular subject

The examples here are basically the same as reciprocal constructions with singular subjects and comitative complement, with the difference that the comitative complement is missing. This indicates that expression of a second participant is not necessary for the sentence to be grammatical. Therefore, a more precise meaning of these SK reciprocal

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constructions might be 'to do an action in a reciprocal way (with X).' Consider the following examples:

(88) E-a-ra keen-anan-ai.
1-ABS-EV want/love-REC-INC
'I love someone (who also loves me).'

(89) E-a-ronki tima-nan-wan-ke.
1-ABS-HSY hit.w/fist-REC-PST1-CMPL
'(I was told) I had a fight.' (I don't remember it, I was drunk). Lit. '(I was told) I hit (with somebody) in a reciprocal way.'

(90) E-a-ra wisha-anan-ai.
1-ABS-EV write-REC-INC
'I write to someone (who will also write to me afterwards).'

The possibility of having singular subjects and no complements in reciprocal constructions has been reported for the genetically-related language Kashinawa (Camargo, ms.); this construction was referred to as "response reciprocal." In all instances the singular subject participant knows her action is reciprocated or will be reciprocated in the future. Other attested examples analogous to (88)-(90) involve the first person singular absolutive pronoun *ea* followed by the reciprocal forms of the following verbs: *bena-* 'look for,' *noko-* 'meet,' *tima-* 'hit w/fist,' *nini-* 'pull,' *tsaka-* 'hit with arrow,' *ikoko-* 'embrace,' *pota-* 'abandon,' *osan-* 'laugh at,' *sika-* 'paint,' *natex-* 'bite,' *roto-* 'miss,' *shinan-* 'remember,' *bane-* 'make stay,' *a-kin-* 'help,' *axe-a-* 'teach,' *keen-* 'want / love,' *shinanbenot-* 'forget / slip the mind,' *shiro-* 'make fun of,' *joe ik-* 'greet,' *yoyo ik-* 'talk to,' etc.

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As a consequence of the potential "response reciprocal" meaning of the constructions under examination, a sentence like (91) has two possible interpretations:

(91) Nato joni-bo-ra a-kin-anan-ai.
this man-PL:ABS-EV do.T-ASSOC-REC-INC
'This men are helping each other.' /
'This men are helping someone / others who will later help them too.'

The example above shows that the response reciprocal interpretation is not restricted to singular subjects; however, it is with singular subjects that the response reciprocal is the only reading.

The two (or more) actions described by a reciprocal construction may take place simultaneously or not. Additionally, the actions may be somewhat different; e.g., a situation whereby one participant gives a second participant clothes and gets a chicken in return could be expressed as:

(92) No-a-ra meni-anan-ai
1p-ABS-EV give-REC-INC
'We give each other (something).'

Furthermore, an action may be reciprocated by the patient-object of the first action or by a different participant. For example, the sentence below may be used in a situation where Wexá takes Beso to the opposite bank of the river in a canoe, and afterwards Wexá is taken back to the opposite side of the river by a third participant, and so on:

(93) Bake-bo-ra shita-ananan-kan-ai.
child-PL:ABS-EV cross-REC-PL-INC
'The boys crossed each other (to the opposite bank of the river).'

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It is also possible to have reciprocal constructions without any overt antecedent. This is illustrated in sentences (94)-(95):

(94) Neno-ra tima-anan-a yama-ke.
here-EV hit.w/fist-REC-PP2 exist.not-CMPL
'Here there hasn't been any fight.'

(95) (No-a) a-kin-anan-a-ra jakon iki.
1p-ABS do.T-ASSOC-REC-PP2-EV good COP
'It is good to help each other.'

The next sentence involves an indefinite pronoun antecedent:

(96) Neno-ra tso-a-bi tima-anan-a-ma iki.
here-EV who-ABS-EM hit.w/fist-REC-PP2-NEG AUX
'Here nobody has hit each other.'

The example below shows that it is possible to add an oblique complement to a reciprocal clause:

(97) Ainbo betan joni-ra *bake-n* nini-anan-kan-ai.
woman and man:ABS-EV child-MNS pull-REC-PL-INC
'The woman and the man are pulling each other (by means of) the child.'
(i.e., two separated parents fight against each other for their child and each parent is pulling the child by the arm.)

Emphatic pronouns may be present in reciprocal constructions to express the meaning 'do something oneself in a reciprocal way:'

(98) No-n-bi-x-ra no-a rao-n-anan-kan-ai.
1p-NOM-EM-S-EV 1p-ABS medicine-TRNZ-REC-PL-INC
'We ourselves cure each other with plant medicine.'

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(99) No-n-bi-x-ra no-a a-kin-anan-ai.
1p-NOM-EM-S-EV 1p-ABS do.T-ASSOC-REC-INC
'We ourselves help each other.'

In SK the reciprocal verb form *bi-ananan-* [get / receive-REC] has become lexicalized as the verb 'get married.' According to Camargo (op. cit.), in Kashinawa this verb form has become lexicalized as 'exchange.'

18.2.1. Reciprocalization and Transitivity Classes of Verbs

The examples given so far involve prototypical transitive verbs and a couple of less transitive two-argument verbs; namely, *keen-* 'want / love' and *shinanbenot-* 'forget / slip the mind' (these verbs mark their subjects absolutive and have alternate ways of marking their second argument, either absolutive or by *-n*). Now I turn to the combination of the reciprocal with other extended intransitive and plain intransitive verbs.

18.2.1.1. Extended Intransitive Verbs

As noted in Valenzuela (1997), the reciprocal applies to some two-argument or extended intransitive verbs. As illustration, consider the unaccusative verb *raket- ~ rake-* 'be scared, be afraid of.' Although the root *raket-* takes two arguments as transitive verbs do, it has an <ABS OBL> rather than <ERG ABS> case-frame, it cannot take either the middle or the malefactive suffixes (which impose a minimal transitivity requirement on

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their hosts), it correlates with interclausal and intraclausal S agreement, and it takes the intransitive pro-verb forms *iki / ikama* in short answers to polar questions. The following example is taken from Valenzuela (1997):

(100) Joni rabé-ra tima-nan-kas-i-bi raké-*anan*-ke.
man two:ABS-EV hit-REC-DES-SSSS-EM be.afraid.of-REC-CMPL
'The two men, wanting to fight, became afraid of each other.'

Other extended intransitive verbs that can take the reciprocal suffix are *rabin-ananan-* 'feel embarrassed about each other,' *yoashi-anan-* 'be stingy towards each other,' *wini-ananan-* 'cry for each other,' *raro-anan-* 'be happy about each other,' *bene-anan-* 'be happy about each other,' *keras-anan-* 'feel disgusted about each other.' However, native speakers may disagree with regard to the acceptability of most of the verb forms above.

18.2.1.2. Intransitive Verbs

Generally, one-argument intransitive verbs cannot take the reciprocal suffix. Hence, combinations of the reciprocal with verbs such as *ja-* 'exist / live,' *jo-* 'come,' *ka-* 'go,' *nokó-* 'arrive,' *mapé-* 'go up,' *nee-t-* 'climb up,' *ni-* 'walk,' *weni-t-* 'stand,' *raka-t-* 'lie,' *oxa-* 'sleep,' etc. yield ungrammatical utterances. But there are at least two intransitive verbs that may combine with the reciprocal to yield a more specific meaning: *jiki-* 'enter' and *ishto-* 'run:'

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(101) Ino betan Xae-ra jiki-anan-a iki.
jaguar and anteater:ABS-EV enter-REC-PP2 AUX
'The Jaguar and the Anteater competed against each other as to who could remain longer inside the water.'

(102) Mananxawe betan Chaxo-ronki ishto-anan-a iki.
tortoise and deer:ABS-HSY run-REC-PP2 AUX
'The Tortoise and the Deer ran against each other in a competition.'

The contexts of the two examples above correspond to two well-known folk stories. However, these sentences have a preferred alternate expression in which intransitives do not bear the reciprocal. The verb *tana-* 'try' is transitive:

(103) Ino betan Xae-ra jiki-i tana-nan-a iki
jaguar and anteater:ABS-EV enter-SSSS try-REC-PP2 AUX
'The Jaguar and the Anteater competed against each other as to who could resist longer inside the water.'

(104) Mananxawe betan Chaxo-ronki ishto tana-nan-a iki.
tortoise and deer:ABS-HSY run try-REC-PP2 AUX
'The Tortoise and the Deer ran against each other in a competition.'

18.2.2. Benefactive Reciprocal

In general, verb stems containing the benefactive applicative *-xon* do not combine with the reciprocal. This is true for inherently intransitive and transitive verbs; recall that the benefactive applicative has a transitivizing effect: *tee-* 'work' > *tee-xon-* 'work for someone' but **tee-xon-anan-* 'work for each other,' *bewa-* 'sing' > *bewa-xon-* 'sing for someone' but **bewa-xon-anan-* 'sing for each other,' *ninká-* 'listen to' > *ninká-xon-*

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'follow someone's advice' but *ninká-xon-anan-* 'follow each other's advice,' *karo ak-* 'cut firewood' > *karo a-xon-* 'cut firewood for someone' but **karo a-xon-anan-* 'cut firewood for each other,' *piti bena-* 'look for food' > *piti bena-xon-* 'look for food for someone' but **piti bena-xon-anan-* 'look for food for each other,' etc.

Nevertheless, combining benefactive-marked verbs with the reciprocal is acceptable with a couple of verbs (the exx. below were given as (72)-(74) in Ch. 17):

(105) Ja-bo-ra kokoti-bo *be-xon-anan*-ai.
3-PL:ABS-EV fruit-PL:ABS bring-BEN-REC-INC
'They bring fruit for each other.'

(106) Ja-bo-ra *bi-xon-anan*-ai.
3-PL:ABS-EV get-BEN-REC-INC
'They buy from each other / for each other.'

(107) Oa rabé-ra ia *bi-xon-anan*-i iki.
DIST two:ABS-EV lice:ABS get-BEN-REC-SSSS COP
'Those two are searching each other for lice.'

Be-xon- and *bi-xon-* are very high frequency verb forms; this might be contributing to their reinterpretation as simple underived units, which in turn would be compatible with their ability to take the reciprocal suffix.

Addition of the benefactive *-xon* to a reciprocalized stem is also possible. This is illustrated below (see also 17.2.3.3):

(108) Ja-baon-ra e-a pota-*anan-xon*-ke.
3-PL:ERG-EV 1-ABS leave-REC-*xon*-CMPL
'They separated (lit. left each other) for me.'

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18.2.3. Dative Reciprocal

When the reciprocal attaches to ditransitive stems, the derived subject plays also the semantic role of recipient or dative. Consider the following examples where the reciprocal attaches to inherently ditransitive verbs; the incompletive-marked predicates may have a progressive or habitual reading:

(109) Ja-bo-ra piti meni-anan-ai.
3-PL:ABS fish:ABS give-REC-INC
'They give fish to each other.'

(110) Ja-bo-ra winti bichin-anan-ai.
3-PL:ABS-EV paddle:ABS take.away.from-REC-INC
'They take away the paddle from each other.'

(111) Ja-bo-ra (jawéki-bo) inan-anan-ai.
3-PL:ABS-EV thing-PL:ABS make.become.owner-REC-INC
'They give presents to each other.'

(112) Ja-bo-ra kirika wisha-anan-ai.
3-PL:ABS-EV letter:ABS write-REC-INC
'They write letters to each other.'

(113) Ja-bo-ra joi yoi-anan-ai.
3-PL:ABS-EV word:ABS tell-REC-INC
'They tell stories to each other.'

(114) Ja-bo-ra nonti yoká-kanan-kan-ai. / yoká-kan-an-ai.
3-PL:ABS-EV canoe:ABS ask.for-PL:REC-PL-INC ask.for-PL-REC-INC
'They ask for the canoe to each other.'

The example above is interesting in that the plural *-kan* may occur twice, once preceding the reciprocal suffix and a second time following it. Below, the reciprocal combines with derived ditransitive stems containing the causative *-ma*:

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(115) Ja-bo-ra nami bo-ma-anan-ai.
3-PL:ABS-EV meat:ABS carry-CAUS-REC-INC
'They send meat to each other.'

(116) Ja-bo-ra xea-ma-anan-ai.
3-PL:ABS-EV drink-CAUS-REC-INC
'They invite yuca beer to each other.'

(117) Ja-bo-ra foto-bo oin-ma-anan-ai.
3-PL:ABS-EV picture-PL:ABS see-CAUS-REC-INC
'They show pictures to each other.'

18.2.4. Possessive Reciprocal

There are reciprocal sentences exhibiting a second absolutive-marked NP which may contain a possessive modifier. This is equivalent to English possessive reciprocal sentences like 'Those two know each other's secrets.' However, as suggested by the literal translations, this SK construction can be seen as a kind of external possession or possessor raising phenomenon (i.e., a construction where the possessor is the direct object):

(118) Oa rabé-ra jato-n joné jawéki-bo onan-anan-kan-a iki.
DIST two:ABS-EV 3p-GEN hidden thing-PL:ABS know-REC-PL-PP2 AUX
'Those two know each other's secrets.' Lit. 'They know each other their secrets.'

(119) Oa rabe-ra jato-n santíra kaxke-ananan-ke.
DIST two:ABS-EV 3p-GEN watermelon:ABS cut.along.in.halves-REC-CMPL
'Those two cut each other's watermelons in halves / cut their watermelons in halves for each other.' Lit. 'They cut along each other their watermelons.'

(120) Ja-bo-ra jato-n foto-bo oinyanan-ai.
3-PL:ABS-EV 3p-GEN picture-PL:ABS see:REC-INC
'They saw each other's pictures.' Lit. 'They saw each other their pictures.'

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(121) Oa rabé-ra jato-n merati-bo onan-anan-kan-a iki.
DIST two:ABS-EV 3p-GEN lover-PL:ABS know-REC-PL-PP2 AUX
'Those two know each other's lovers.' Lit. 'Those two know each other their lovers.'

(122) Ja-bo-ra jato-n ochíti meni-anan-ai.
3-PL:ABS-EV 3p-GEN dog:ABS give-REC-INC
'They lend their dogs to each other (when hunting).' Lit. 'They give each other their dogs.'

Alternatively, the additional NP element may be marked as oblique:

(123) Kate betan Pena-ra bake / bake-*n* koiran-anan-ai.
Kate and Pena:ABS-EV child:ABS child-MNS take.care.of-REC-INC
'Kate and Pena take care of each other's child.'
Lit. 'Kate and Pena take care of each other the child / by means of the child.'

(124) Kate betan Pena-ra bene / bene-*n* bichi-nanan-ai.
Kate and Pena:ABS-EV husband:ABS husband-MNS take.away.from-REC-INC
'Kate and Pena steal each other's husband.' Lit. 'Kate and Pena take away from each other the husband / by means of the husband.'

(125) Oa rabé-ra mapo-*nko* xo-ananan-ai.
DIST two:ABS-EV head-LOC scratch-REC-INC
'Those two scratched each other's head.' Lit. 'Those two scratched each other on the head.'

Possessive reciprocal meanings can be expressed using body-part prefixes:

(126) Nato rabé-ra *be*-choki-ananan-kan-ke.
this two:ABS-EV FACE-wash-REC-PL-CMPL
'These two washed each other's face.'

(127) Nato rabé-ra *ta*-nexa-nan-ai. / tae nexa-nan-ai.
this two:ABS-EV FOOT-tie-REC-INC foot:ABS tie-REC-INC
'These two tie each other's feet.'

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(128) Nato rabé-ra *ke*-pé-anan-ai.
this two:ABS-EV LIP-perforate-REC-INC
'These two perforate each other's lips.'

(129) Nato rabé-ra *pe*-ní-anan-ai.
this two:ABS-EV BACK-stand-REC-INC
'These two stand on each other's back/surface (taking turns).'

18.3. Summary

In many languages of the world a single marker codes both reflexive and reciprocal meanings. The SK middle marker *-t* codes a wide range of meanings including reflexive, anticausative, and agentless passive, but not reciprocal. In addition to this, a derived intransitive verb may take a simple S_a argument (e.g., *noko-t-* 'arrive' and *piko-t-* 'come out'). There is also a set of pronouns that have been previously called "reflexive" (Loriot, Lauriault, and Day 1993:67); however, these are not generally required to code reflexive meaning and are even attested in different types of non-reflexive clauses, including reciprocals. I refer to these pronouns as "emphatic pronouns" since in many cases these emphasize the subject carried out an action by herself; in addition, these pronouns contain the emphatic morpheme *-bi*. It can be said that *-bi* already has become grammaticalized in this context since additional emphatic marking may occur following the whole pronoun.

When the middle marker *-t* combines with a transitive root, the resulting stem often has a reflexive meaning. In some instances, however, *-t*-derivation yields unpredictable meanings; e.g., *rete-* 'kill' > *rete-t-* 'faint / *kill oneself,' *noko-* 'meet

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somebody' > *noko-t-* 'arrive.' The suffix *-t* does not generally attach to intransitives. Typically, extended intransitives acquire a reflexive sense simply by omitting their second argument. An emphatic pronoun may contribute to convey reflexive meaning; with some verbs, emphatic pronouns may even be considered obligatory (cf. *shiro-* 'make fun of'). In addition, the emphatic *-bi* may be added to the subject NP to code the meaning 'do something oneself.' Some onomatopoeic verbs exhibit a dedicated reflexive form.

Generally, the middle suffix does not combine with causativized stems. An exception to this generalization is the verb *bo-ma-* [carry-CAUS-] 'send,' probably due to its high degree of lexicalization. On the other hand, causativizing a detransitivized stem is relatively common.

It is not possible to morpho-syntactically distinguish third person reflexive and non-reflexive in locative phrases such as 'He put it next to him(self).' Possessive reflexive constructions may carry the emphatic *-bi* after the possessum and / or the element *kikin* 'own' before the possessum. Although common, these strategies are not fully grammaticalized. Equivalents of English possessive reflexives involving body-parts can be coded via prefixed derived intransitive stems. However, a few combinations of body-part prefixes and detransitivized verbs were dispreferred or rejected by language consultants.

Self-benefactive expressions include a possessive pronoun marked by the emphatic *-bi* to render the meaning 'for herself, what is of herself.' In this case, the base verb carries no applicative and no transitivity increase takes place. Together with self-

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benefactive, a possessive reflexive reading is possible in these instances. Reflexive structures without an antecedent have been attested too.

I have also included complex sentences where a reflexive in the dependent clause is controlled by an argument in the matrix clause; when the matrix clause is transitive, either argument may control the reflexive. Reflexive constructions are found in main and dependent nominalized clauses.

Besides reflexive, a *-t*-derived intransitive stem may yield anticausative and / or agentless passive sense(s). In some instances, reflexive or anticausative are the only or preferred interpretation. In many cases though, more than one reading is possible; i.e., reflexive and anticausative, or reflexive and agentless passive. Consider for example the inherently transitive verb *bachin-* 'pull someone by the hair.' Its middle-marked form *bachimeet-* may be interpreted as 'she pulled herself by the hair' or 'she was pulled by the hair.' A few detransitivized verbs exhibit two alternate forms, and speakers may assign a specialized meaning to each of the forms (e.g., *mishki-* 'fish with hook' > *mishki-t-* 'choke' / *mishki-kaa-* 'hook oneself,' according to one consultant). In some cases there is general agreement with respect to the specific meanings assigned to alternate middle-marked forms (e.g., *noko-* 'meet someone' > *noko-t-* 'arrive' and *noko-kaa-* 'be found'). Plausibly, the passive meaning in SK is being developed through the extension of the anticausative function. In both instances the subject is affected but does not participate in effecting the action; these two differ however in whether an agent is implied or not. While speakers agree on the reflexive and anticausative interpretations of middle-marked verbs, they may disagree on whether a specific form allows an additional

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agentless passive reading. This piece of evidence suggests that the latter meaning is non-basic (e.g., *potsi-t-ai*). A similar development of the middle voice into a passive has been proposed for certain Indo-European languages.

Two other functions of the middle suffix *-t* are treated in separate chapters. These are: making a phasal verb intransitive so that it matches the transitivity value of its accompanyng verb (15.3.1), and diminishing the force-dynamics of an inherently transitive verb in order to code indirect causation through the additon of *-ma* (16.3.2).

In the *t*-derived clauses conveying reflexive, anticausative, and passive functions the subject participants are affected, the predicates are less transitive than those expressed by the unmarked verb, and no other participant overrides the subject in topicality.

SK has a dedicated reciprocal, the suffix *-(ana)nan ~ -anan*. Generally, the allomorph *-anan* is added to stems with even-numbered syllables and *-ananan* to stems with odd-numbered syllables. Like *-t*, the reciprocal suffix has a detransitivizing effect: a reciprocal-marked clause tends to become objectless and the subject of the derived stem is always marked absolutive.

Reciprocal constructions in SK can be classified according to the type of subject they exhibit: coordinated NPs, plural subjects with a numeral modifier or the plural *-bo*, omitted subjects combined with verbs containing the plural *-kan* (which adds an impersonal subject meaning), singular subjects with comitative complements, and plain singular subjects. The latter subject type is possible given that the SK reciprocal allows a "response reciprocal" reading; the "response reciprocal" indicates that the subject participant knows her action is / has been / will be reciprocated, but the agent of the

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second action remains unexpressed. Response reciprocals in Panoan were first described by Camargo (ms.) with respect to the Purus language Kashinawa.

The two actions described by a reciprocal construction may take place simultaneously or not. Additionally, the actions may be somewhat different or an action may be reciprocated by a participant who is not the patient of the first action. A reciprocal clause may carry a second absolutive-marked NP or an oblique complement. This is equivalent to the English sentence 'They pull each other (by means of) something / someone.' There are also reciprocal constructions lacking an overt antecedent. In SK the reciprocal stem *bi-ananan-* [get / receive-REC] has lexicalized as the verb 'get married.'

Typically, the reciprocal combines with transitive verbs. But unlike the middle marker *-t*, the reciprocal applies to most extended intransitives too. One-argument intransitive verbs do not normally combine with the reciprocal. However, there are at least two intransitive verbs to which the reciprocal may be suffixed to yield specialized meanings (exx. (101)-(102)). Verb stems containing the benefactive applicative *-xon* do not generally take the reciprocal. There are also instances of recipient reciprocals, with the reciprocal suffix attached to ditransitive verbs.

The plural *-kan* normally follows the reciprocal; however, there are instances exhibiting the reverse order and even cases where *-kan* occurs twice in the same verb, before and after the reciprocal. When the subject involves two participants, the reciprocal verb can take the suffix *-bekon* indicating dual action.

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There are reciprocal sentences exhibiting a second absolutive-marked NP which may contain a possessive modifier. This construction is equivalent to English possessive reciprocal constructions such as 'They saw each other's pictures.' Alternatively the second element may be marked as oblique; this could literally be translated as 'They saw each other (by means of) their pictures.' Possessive reciprocal meanings may also be expressed using body-part prefixes.

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CHAPTER 19

PARTICIPANT AGREEMENT

19.1 The Notion of Participant Agreement

In SK, participant-oriented adjuncts receive distinct inflectional morphology in correlation with the syntactic function of the participant they are predicated of. This feature is referred to here as "participant agreement" (also abbreviated as PA). The agreement markers involved can be attested on certain word-level and phrasal adjuncts providing optional adverb-like information about a core argument of the clause; namely, on locative, manner, quantity, life-stage, affective, and proprietive / privative complements. In addition, PA is attested on emphatic pronouns as well as on locative-marked demonstratives functioning as conjunctions at different syntagmatic levels within and beyond the clause. Finally, PA is attested on dependent same-subject marked clauses in accordance with the S versus A function of the matrix clause subject.

As introduced in 15.3, agreement refers to a "systematic covariance between a semantic or formal property of one element and a formal property of another" (Steele 1978:610). In his preliminary typology of agreement, Corbett (2001, 2002) proposes the

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following components: the controller or element which determines the agreement, the target or element whose form is determined by agreement, and the domain or syntactic environment in which agreement occurs. In addition, when indicating in what respect there is agreement, we are referring to agreement features; and if agreement is determined by factors which do not themselves mark agreement, then these are agreement conditions.

With regard to SK participant agreement, the controller is a core argument (S / A / O) of a simple sentence, or the matrix clause subject (S / A) of a complex sentence involving one or more chained dependent clauses. The target is a time-place-manner word, phrase or clause; an emphatic pronoun; or a conjunction. The domain is participant-adjunct agreement, and the agreement feature is the semantic orientation of an optional, peripheral complement towards an S, A, or O participant. There are no agreement conditions. It must be pointed out that PA is not an instance of canonical agreement comparable to, for example, gender in the Spanish noun phrase (see Corbett 2001). Nevertheless, it might be useful to characterize PA in terms of Corbett's framework in order to better understand this phenomenon. I will return to this point in 19.4, towards the end of the present chapter.

19.2. Interclausal and Intraclausal Participant Agreement

This section examines PA at the interclausal and intraclausal levels, where "clausal" expressions are those containing either a verbal predicate or a copula verb.

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Table 19.1 introduces the PA morphology attested in SK, as well as the non-clausal and clausal contexts in which each specific marker is attested.

Table 19.1. Overt Participant Agreement Markers in SK

Morpheme	Non-Clausal Adjuncts		Same-Subject Clauses	
	S agreement	A agreement	S agreement	A agreement
-(a)x	ablative comp. of interest life-stage (proprietive) emph. pronoun conjunction manner quantity		previous	
-xon		locative/allative comp. of interest life-stage proprietive privative emph. pronoun conjunction manner quantity		previous
-i	manner conjunction		simultaneous	
-kin		manner conjunction		simultaneous
-nox			following	
-no(n)xon				following

As shown in Table 19.1, the morphemes *-ax*, *-i* and *-nox* code S agreement; whereas *-xon*, *-kin*, and *-noxon* code A agreement. Given that O agreement is always zero, the overall distribution of the PA morphology can be said to be tripartite. In addition, it must be

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pointed out that the markers involved in the overt coding of PA are not further analyzable in SK (although *-no(n)xon* can be segmented into *-no* + *-xon*, the meanings of these two elements are not transparent). An additional piece of information, though not directly relevant to the present discussion, is the fact that while most of the agreement markers play no other function in the language, *-xon* and *-kin* are identical in form and compatible in meaning with the benefactive and associative applicatives, respectively (Valenzuela 1999:368-369; see also 7.4.2, 17.2 and 17.4, as well as ex. (72) in Ch. 17).

19.2.1. Interclausal Participant Agreement

SK has non-finite, same- or switch-reference marked clauses that generally ground the situation described by the clause on which they are dependent; however, the exact relationship between the events in the two clauses is not specified but left to be inferred from the context. Alternatively, a reference-marked clause can encode an event that advances the main storyline. Hence, SK reference-marked clauses may correspond to English temporal, purposive, conditional, reason, concessive, and even coordinate clauses (see Chapter 9 and Valenzuela 1999).

In SK interclausal PA is manifested through most same-subject markers. These are portmanteau morphemes coding, together with subject coreferentiality, the relative temporal / logical order of the events in the dependent and matrix clauses, and the syntactic function of the coreferential argument in the matrix clause or controller. At the interclausal level, A- and S-orientation coincide with the transitivity value of the matrix

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verb; i.e., A-orientation coincides with inherently or derived transitive and ditransitive matrix verbs and clauses, while S-orientation coincides with their intransitive and detransitivized counterparts. As will be shown later, the same-subject markers in question are essentially the same as the agreement morphemes found on non-clausal adjuncts. Crucially, different-subject markers do not exhibit PA in SK.

Let us illustrate how PA operates at the interclausal level. In (1a) and (1b) the events depicted by the marked clauses are presented as previous with respect to the events in the matrix clauses and subjects share the same reference; but in (1a) the matrix verb is intransitive, while in (1b) it is transitive. Since the agreement is controlled by the matrix clause subject, the same-subject marker *-ax* is selected in (1a) to code S-agreement, while *-xon* is selected in (1b) to code A-agreement. That is, the gloss PSSS stands for "previous event, same-subject, S-controlled" and PSSA for "previous event, same-subject, A-controlled." Alternatively, it could simply be stated that *-ax* is required when the matrix verb is intransitive whereas *-xon* is used when the matrix verb is transitive (reference-marked clauses are given within square brackets):

(1) a. Nokon papa-ra [wai meno-*ax*] kachio ka-ke. *-*xon*
POS1 father:ABS-EV chacra:ABS burn-PSSS to.forest go-CMPL
'After burning the chacra my father went to the forest.'

b. Nokon papa-n-ra [wai meno-*xon*] atsa bana-ke. *-*ax*
POS1 father-ERG-EV chacra:ABS burn-PSSA yuca:ABS sow-CMPL
'After burning the chacra my father sowed the yuca.'

Note that in (1a-b) marked clauses occur embedded in the matrix clause; i.e., 'my father' bears case-marking *vis-à-vis* the matrix verb, and the second position evidential clitic *-ra*

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indicates that these subjects are a major constituent of the complex sentence. If 'my father' belonged to the dependent clause, it would carry ergative case in both instances and the evidential *-ra* would occur after the whole dependent clause (see 4.2.2 and 13.1).

Ex. (2) (given as (1) in Ch. 9 and repeated below for convenience) contains two dependent clauses marked by *-ax* having the same finite clause as matrix. Note that marked clauses may also precede or follow their matrix clause:

(2) [...bachi meran jiki-*ax*] Ashi manó-res-a iki
mosquito.net inside enter-PSSS Ashi disappear-just-PP2 AUX

[moa ka-*ax*].
already go-PSSS
'... Ashi entered into the mosquito net and disappeared, leaving (for the upper world).' (Soi Rawa 1995:27, analyzed in Valenzuela 2002a:427)

Ex. (3) consists of two finite clauses, each one of them modified by a simultaneous same-subject marked clause; *-kin* is used when the matrix clause subject plays the A function, while *-i* is required when this controller works as S. Again, it could be said that *-kin* and *-i* occur with transitive and intransitive matrix clauses or verbs, respectively:

(3) a. E-a-ra nokon tita-n [ese-*kin*] ani-a iki.
1-ABS-EV POS1 mother-ERG advise-SSSA big-do.T:PP2 AUX
'My mother raised me giving me advice.

b. E-a-ra esé-ya iki
1-ABS-EV advice-PROP AUX
I am wise

[nokon tita-n yoiy-ai ninká-xon-katit-*i*].
POS1 mother-ERG tell-PP1:ABS hear-BEN-PST4-SSSS
because I listened to what my mother used to tell me.' (Valenzuela 1999:365)

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Finally, examples (4)-(5) illustrate the use of the same-subject markers corresponding to subsequent or following events showing S- and A-orientation or control; again, these markers coincide with intransitive and transitive matrix verbs or clauses, respectively:

(4) ....no-a i-ti ja-ke [westíora metsá ainbo i-*nox*] raotia.
1p-ABS do.I-INF exist-CMPL one beautiful woman do.I-FSSS adorned
'...we must be adorned in order to be a beautiful woman.'

(5) Westíora nete winó-ma-xon, kachio bo-ti iki
one day:ABS pass:MID-CAUS-PSSA to.the.forest take-INF AUX

[xete-ma-*noxon*].
smell-CAUS-FSSA
'After one day, one takes (the dog being treated with a special plant preparation in order to make it a good hunter) to the forest and has it smell (at animals).'

As stated when introducing each of the three pairs of examples above, the terms "S-orientation" and "A-orientation" used to account for the distribution of same-subject markers directly translate into agreement with intransitive and transitive matrix verbs, respectively. This is the main reason why PA has been previously accounted for in terms of "transitivity agreement" (Valenzuela 1999) or "transitivity concord" (Loos 1999), given that linguists devoted to the study of Panoan languages have concentrated almost exclusively on the switch-reference system (but cf. Valenzuela 1999). However, when examining this feature at the intraclausal level, especially in the instances where alternate inflections are possible, it becomes evident that transitivity is not the determining factor.

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19.2.2. Intraclausal Participant Agreement

While three different sets of PA markers are attested on same-subject clauses, only two of these sets are found on non-clausal adjuncts: *-ax* versus *-xon* and *-i* versus *-kin*.

19.2.2.1. Locative / Allative *-xon* (A-orientation) vs. *-0* (S- / O-orientation)

Locative / allative adjuncts receive the marker *-xon* when semantically oriented towards an A participant, but remain unmarked when predicating of S / O participants; therefore, in terms of overt marking, PA on locative-allatives is organized in the ergative-absolutive fashion. Consider the following examples where locatives are S_a- and S_o-oriented:

S-orientation

(6) *Jawerano*-ki Inka-bo ja-a?
where:S-INT Inka-PL:ABS exist-PP2
'Where do the Inkas live?

(7) *Bochiki*-ra e-a oxa-[a]i / tsini-ai / bewa-[a]i.
up:S-EV 1-ABS sleep-INC play-INC sing-INC
'I sleep / play / sing high up (e.g., in a higher area inside the house).

(8) Nashi-ra e-a *jene-nko* paké-ke.
bathe:SSSS-EV 1-ABS flowing.water-LOC:S drop:MID-CMPL
'While I was bathing, I fell in the water.' (I was in the water already)

Whereas examples (6)-(8) involve different types of intransitive verbs, examples (9)-(19) involve transitive ones. The absence of *-xon* in (9)-(11) indicates that the locatives are

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oriented towards the O participant and that the A participant is not at the same location (this zero marking is given a gloss here for clarity):

O-orientation (exclusive)

(9) E-n-ra yami kentí *bochiki* a-ke.
1-ERG-EV metal pot:ABS up:O do.T-CMPL
'I placed the metal pot high up.' (only the pot is high up)

(10) Ja-tian *ani nonti-n* westíora atsa xeati chomo
that-TEMP big canoe-LOC:O one yuca drink-INF jar:ABS

na-yásan-kan-ai.
INTERIOR-sitting.position:T-TRNZ-PL-INC
'Then, they put a jar of yuca beer inside the big canoe.' (the agents are not in the canoe; Valenzuela 2002a:469)

(11) Jain-xon Ashi-n jato yoiy-a iki,
there-PDCA Ashi-ERG 3p:ABS tell-PP2 AUX

[bake-bo *bochiki*, *tapo-n* nee-n-ti]
child-PL:ABS up:O palm-bark.floor-LOC:O climb-TRNZ-INF:ABS

yawa be-ax onsat-ai-tian.
white-lipped.peccary:ABS come.n.SG-PSSS (become)dangerous-S-DS
'Then Ashi told them to place the children up, on the palm-bark floor, since the white-lipped peccaries would come and they could be dangerous.' (Soi Rawa 1995:28, Valenzuela 2002a:469-470)

Examples (12)-(15) also involve transitive verbs or clauses; however, the presence of *-xon* indicates semantic orientation of the locative adjunct towards the A participant; the O participant is at the same location:

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A-orientation (non-exclusive)

(12) E-n-ra yami kentí *bochiki-xon* tan tan a-ke.
1-ERG-EV metal pot:ABS up-A ONOM ONOM do.T-CMPL
'I hit the metal pot (being) high up.' (I am high up with the pot)

(13) *Jawerano-xon*-ki epa-n pi-ai?
where-A-INT paternal.uncle-ERG eat-PP1
'Where does paternal uncle eat?'

(14) *...ani nonti-n-xon* westíora atsa xeati chomo keyo-kan-ke.
big canoe-LOC-A one yuca drink-INF jar:ABS finish-PL-CMPL
'...they finished a jar of yuca beer in the big canoe.' (Valenzuela 2002a:469)

(15) Westíora a-kin e-n oin-a iki *ani tsinki-ti-ain-xon*
one do.T-SSSA 1-ERG see-PP2 AUX big gather-INF-LOC-A
Kashinawa, Wanbisa, Aguaruna; ja-bo-res e-n oin-a iki.
K.:ABS W.:ABS A.:ABS 3/that-PL:ABS-just 1-ERG see-PP2 AUX
'Once I saw in a big meeting Kashinawas, Wanbisas, Aguarunas; only them / these I saw.'

Unlike the exx. above where both A and O participants are found at the specified location, the locatives in (16)-(19) refer to the location of the transitive subjects only:

A-orientation (exclusive)

(16) E-n-ra yami kentí *bochiki-xon* tsaka-ke, kochára-nin.
1-ERG-EV metal pot:ABS up-A hit-CMPL spoon-INST
'I hit the metal pot from high up with the spoon.' (I was high up and the pot was down, and I threw the spoon against the pot.)

(17) Bake-n-ra e-a bimi-n tsaka-ke jiwi bochiki-*xon*
child-ERG-EV 1-ABS fruit-INST hit-CMPL tree up-A

wino-t-ai-tian.
pass-MID-S-DS
'The boy up in the tree hit me with a fruit while I was passing by.'

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(18) E-n-ra oin-ke [joni wino-t-ai] *jene-nko-xon.*
1-ERG-EV see-CMPL person:ABS pass-MID-PP1:ABS flowing.water-LOC-A
'I_i saw someone$_j$ passing (in a canoe) in the water$_i$.' (I was bathing in the water, and I saw someone passing in a canoe).

In example (18), the locative is oriented towards the A argument of the main clause, while in the next example it is oriented towards the A argument of the subordinate clause:

(19) Ja-tian nokon tita-n e-a yoiy-a iki
that-TEMP POS1 mother-ERG 1-ABS tell-PP2 AUX

[ja *tenaman-xon* mana-i ka-ti].
3:ABS on.the.shore-A wait-SSSS go-INF:ABS
'Then my mother told me to go wait for him on the shore.'

As shown in exx. (9)-(19), among others, the presence of *-xon* does not depend on the transitivity of the verb or clause (since these are all transitive), but on the syntactic function of the participant towards which the locative is semantically oriented. In sum, overt A-agreement through *-xon* is used to indicate the A participant is found at the location where the event takes place; the O participant may or may not be at that location too. Zero agreement indicates either S- or O-orientation.

19.2.2.2. Ablatives *-x* (S-orientation) vs. *-0* (O-orientation)

Differently from locative / allative adjuncts, ablatives exhibit the additional marker *-x* to signal S-orientation, but receive no overt morphology when the ablative is semantically

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oriented towards the O participant. A-orientation can only be coded through a locative construction. Consider the following examples:

S-orientation

(20) *Jawerano-a-x*-ki mi-a jo-a?
where-ABL-S-INT 2-ABS come-PP2
'Where do you come from?'

(21) E-a-ra *bochiki-a-x / nontime-a-x* paké-ke.
1-ABS-EV up:ABL-S canoe:LOC-ABL-S cause.to.fall:MID-CMPL
'I fell from high up / from the canoe.'

(22) E-a-ra *jene* *merano-a-x* mapé-ke
1-ABS-EV flowing.water inside:LOC-ABL-S go.up-CMPL
'I went up from the water.'

O-orientation

(23) E-n-ra yami kentí *bochiki-a* be-ke.
1-ERG-EV metal pot:ABS up-ABL:O bring-CMPL
'I brought the metal pot from high up.'

As mentioned above, it is not possible for an ablative structure to receive A-orientation agreement morphology; however, a *-xon*-marked locative structure may be used instead for this purpose. Therefore, although the English translations in (24a-b) and (25a-b) involve the ablative preposition 'from,' the SK constructions in the (b) examples involve locative structures:

(24) a. E-n -ra *kachio-kea* ninká-ke.
1-ERG-EV in.the.forest-ABL:O hear-CMPL
'I heard it from the forest.' (the noise came from the forest)

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b. E-n-ra *kachio-xon* ninká-ke. **-kachiokea-xon*
1-ERG-EV in.the.forest-A hear-CMPL
'I heard it from the forest.' (I was in the forest; the noise may have come from the forest or not; lit. 'I heard it in the forest.')

(25) a. E-n-ra bake pake-ke *weyóti-aino-a.*
1-ERG-EV child:ABS cause.to.fall-CMPL hammock-LOC:LOC-ABL:O
'I (accidentally or purposefully) caused the child to fall from the hammock.' (only the child was in the hammock)

b. E-n-ra bake pake-ke *weyóti-ain-xon* **weyótiainoa-xon*
1-ERG-EV child:ABS throw-CMPL hammock-LOC-A
'I caused the child to fall from the hammock (I was in the hammock too; lit. 'I caused the child to fall in the hammock.')

Alternations involving locative vs. ablative adjuncts like the ones illustrated above are not possible with the transitive movement verb *be-* 'bring' which only allows for an unmarked and hence O-oriented ablative adjunct:

(26) a. E-n-ra ian *napo-ri-kea* onpax be -ke.
1-ERG-EV lake interior-about-ABL:O contained.water:ABS bring-CMPL
'I brought water from approximately the middle of the lake.'

b. *E-n-ra ian *napo-ri-xon* onpax be-ke. **naporikeaxon*
1-ERG-EV lake interior-about-A contained.water:ABS bring-CMPL
'I brought water from approximately the middle of the lake.'

One may speculate that in order to bring something from one place to another both agent and patient participants must share the source and destiny locations. In this case, it is the adjunct form showing semantic orientation towards the patient-object that has become grammaticalized.[1]

[1] In contrast, the agent-oriented alternative is possible in the sister languages Matses (as shown in ex. (60) of Ch. 20) and Sharanawa (Tournon and Valenzuela, fieldnotes).

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Conversely to the instances where a locative structure is employed to overtly mark A-orientation, an ablative structure may be used instead of a locative one to encode overt S-agreement. In fact, there are instances of alternate locative and ablative S-oriented adjuncts that, unlike (24) and (25), do not trigger an obvious shift in meaning. In the next examples the location of the S argument is coded through a locative adjunct in the (a) sentences but through an ablative one in the (b) counterparts (exx. (27a) and (28b) were spontaneously offered by native speakers when discussing a different topic, while (27b) and (28a) were elicited for comparison):

(27) a. *E-manaon*-ra popo keo keo-wan-ke nete xabat-ai-tian.
1-on.top.of-EV owl:ABS cry cry-PST1-CMPL day:ABS clear-S-DS
'The owls cried above me (i.e. on top of my house) very early in the morning.'

b. *E-manaonkea-x*-ra popo keo keo-wan-ke
1-on.top.of:LOC:ABL-S-EV owl:ABS cry cry-PST1-CMPL

nete xabat-ai-tian.
day:ABS clear-S-DS
'The owls cried above me (i.e. on top of my house) very early in the morning.'

(28) a. *E-naman*-ra ashá keo keo-wan-ke yamé.
1-under-EV ashá:ABS cry cry-PST1-CMPL at.night
'The *ashá* toads sang and sang under my house (lit. under me) last night.'

b. *E-namamea-x*-ra ashá keo keo-wan-ke yamé.
1-under:LOC:ABL-S-EV *ashá*:ABS cry cry-PST1-CMPL at.night
'The *ashá* toads sang and sang under my house (lit. under me) last night.'

Let us now examine how PA on locatives operates in causative and applicative constructions, continuing the discussion in 16.4. First, consider the following non-causative and causative expressions involving an intransitive base verb. Exx. (29a-b) and

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(30a-b) differ only in the agreement the locative adjunct takes, i.e. *-0* vs. *-xon*; the change in meaning is clear. Sentence (29a) indicates the speaker stays out of the forest but sends his dog to the forest to bark (at animals); by contrast, in (29b) both the speaker and the dog are in the forest and the speaker makes the dog bark (at animals):

(29) a. E-n-ra nokon ochíti jojo i-ma-[a]i *nii meran.*
1-ERG-EV POS1 dog:ABS ONOM:bark do.I-CAUS-INC forest inside:O
'I make my dog bark in the forest.' (specifies location of causee)

b. E-n-ra nokon ochíti jojo i-ma-[a]i *nii meran-xon.*
1-ERG-EV POS1 dog:ABS ONOM:bark do.I-CAUS-INC forest inside-A
'I make my dog bark in the forest.' (specifies location of causer)

Exx. (30a-b) also differ in meaning; the former indicates that only the dog is on the palm-bark floor, while the latter indicates that the speaker is (also) up there (Shipibo houses generally stand on poles, so that the floor and the ground are at different levels):

(30) a. E-n-ra nokon ochíti ransa-ma-[a]i *tapo-n.*
1-ERG-EV POS1 dog:ABS dance-CAUS-INC palm.bark.floor-LOC:O
'I make my dog dance on the palm-bark floor.' (specifies location of causee)

b. E-n-ra nokon ochíti ransa-ma-[a]i *tapo-n-xon.*
1-ERG-EV POS1 dog:ABS dance-CAUS-INC palm.bark.floor-LOC-A
'I make my dog dance on the palm-bark floor.' (specifies location of causer).

The exx. in (29) and (30) are compatible with the analysis provided so far. That is, the locative bears the marker *-xon* when predicating of the A-causer but zero when predicating of the O-causee (for the syntactic function of causees, see Ch. 16; cf. also exx. (33a-b) below). However, consider the next examples where the ablative 'from

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Kako' bears S-orientation agreement even though Wesna is either the causee-object (31) or the applicative-object (32) of the clause (recall that O-orientation is coded by *-0*):

(31) E-n-ra Wesna jo-ma-ke *Kako-nko-ni-a-x.*
1-ERG-EV Wesna:ABS come-CAUS-CMPL Kako-LOC-LIG-ABL-S
'I made Wesna come from Kako.'

(32) E-n-ra Wesna nokó-kin-ke
1-ERG-EV Wesna:ABS meet:MID-ASSOC-CMPL

Kako-nko-ni-a-x.
Kako-LOC-LIG-ABL-S
'I came with Wesna from Kako.'

The examples above were provided by different Shipibo collaborators and later corroborated by Mr. Sanken Bari. Interestingly, when asked whether (31) and (32) could take the zero-marked ablative form *Kakonkonia*, Mr. Sanken Bari after thinking about it for a short while explained that *Kakonkonia* is actually the "correct" form, although speakers normally produce *Kakonkoniax* in these contexts. This observation (provided by a very insightful speaker) suggests that Wesna triggers semantic agreement on the ablative, since it is in fact the S argument of the base predicate.

An alternative way to account for the presence of overt agreement in (31) and (32) would be to claim that in these types of complex predicates the adjunct may show agreement with a base verb argument. I will return to this point shortly.

I just showed that in causative or applicative constructions involving an intransitive base verb it is possible to obtain overt S-orientation agreement through *-x* on

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an ablative structure, to indicate the adjunct predicates of the base subject. However, an analogous situation does not hold when the base verb is transitive; for example, it is not possible to employ the A-orientation agreement marker *-xon* on a locative expression to signal orientation towards the causee:

(33) a. E-n-ra nokon ochíti pi-ma-[a]i *tapo-n.*
1-ERG-EV POS1 dog:ABS eat-CAUS-INC palm.bark.floor-LOC:O
'I make my dog eat on the palm-bark floor.' (specifies location of causee)

b. E-n-ra nokon ochíti pi-ma-[a]i *tapo-n-xon.*
1-ERG-EV POS1 dog:ABS eat-CAUS-INC palm.bark.floor-LOC-A
'I make my dog eat on the palm-bark floor.' (specifies location of causer).

In the sentence immediately above, the marker *-xon* necessarily signals that the locative adjunct is oriented towards the causer. One possible conclusion is that in causative and probably also applicative constructions an adjunct cannot be oriented towards a base verb argument, semantic agreement controlled by an intransitive base verb subject being the exception, as in (31) and (32). An alternative analysis is to posit that it is possible for a base verb argument to control PA; however, when the base verb is transitive, both subjects compete for A status and A-agreement on adjuncts is necessarily linked to the highest ranked A participant. Although I have not been able to come up with specific tests that would help me decide between these two alternatives, I feel inclined towards the semantic agreement interpretation due to Mr. Sanken Bari's judgements cited above.

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19.2.2.3. Complement of Interest -*ax* (S orientation) vs. -*xon* (A- / O-orientation)

A complement of interest encodes the participant in whose interest one undergoes a change of internal state or carries out an action. Interest-marked NPs are generally the second argument of extended intransitive verbs (see section 8.2.2.2). For example:

(34) E-a-ra *ja-on* keen-ai.
1-ABS-EV 3-INTRSS want-INC
'I love him.'

(35) Ja-tian joni *mi-on* shinan-benot-i ka-[a]i
that-TEMP man:ABS 2-INTRSS mind-fail-SSSS go-INC
'Then the man is going to forget you.'

(36) *E-on*-ra joni yoben-wan-ke.
1-INTRSS-EV man:ABS ask.in.matrimony-PST1-CMPL
'The / a man asked me in matrimony (to my parents).'

Complements of interest may carry overt PA morphology, but in these instances they generally have an affective meaning, either benefactive or malefactive. It must be pointed out that exx. (37), (39)-(41) were obtained through elicitation. While (38) belongs to a spontaneous text, the meaning of this interessive-marked complement seems to be ablative rather than affective.

S-orientation

The overt S-orientation morpheme -*x* has been attested on interessive-marked pronouns; however, these pronouns need to take the ablative case (which in turn is built upon the

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locative) before addition of *-x*. That is, the interessive pronouns in (37a) and (38)-(40) are composed of the following morphemes: pronominal root + interessive *-on* + locative *-me* + ablative *-a* + participant agreement. *-Me* is a locative allomorph that precedes the ablative on elements ending in a nasal. The locative + ablative sequence *-mea* was first introduced in 3.2.3.2, which deals with the distribution of the ablative.

Alternatively, it could be said that the interessive-marked pronouns in (37a), (39) and (40) take the S-orientation agreement morpheme *-ax*, so that *-a* is analyzed as part of the agreement morphology rather than as the ablative case-marker; under this second analysis, however, it is not possible to account for the sequence *-me*:

(37) a. E-a-ra *mi-onmea-x* axe-ai.
1-ABS-EV 2-INTRSS:LOC:ABL-S get.used.to/learn-INC
'I learn for you / I learn from you.'[2]

Exx. (37a) and (37b) are almost formally identical, but the interessive pronoun in the latter example is not in the ablative case and cannot take PA; consequently, (37b) does not allow for a benefactive reading:

b. E-a-ra *mi-on* axe-ai.
1-ABS-EV 2-INTRSS get.used.to/learn-INC
'I am going to get used to you.'[3]

---

[2] Speakers differ as to the preferred interpretation of this utterance. For example, while for Mr. Yoi Sani the benefactive reading was the preferred one, Mr. Sanken Bari allowed for the second reading only.

[3] One speaker offered the alternative form:
i. E-a-ra mi-ki axe-ai.
1-ABS-EV 2-DAT learn / get.used.to-INC
'I am going to get used to you.'

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Compare also (37a) with the example below, where *e-onmea* is in the ablative but lacks overt agreement morphology. In (38), the spirit of the Sun Medicine plant talks, in her dreams, to a woman who has drank a preparation made from that plant:

(38) Jawe kopí-ki mi-n e-a xea-a,
what reason-INT 2-ERG 1-ABS drink-PP2

e-onmea onan-kas-kin...?
1-INTRSS:LOC:ABL know-DES-SSSS
'Why did you drink me, wanting to learn from me....?

In the next examples the interessive-marked pronouns are in the ablative, and when in combination with intransitive verbs exhibit overt S-agreement morphology. The addition of the emphatic *-bi* contributes to the malefactive rather than benefactive reading:

(39) Ja-ra *e-onmea-x*-bi wano-ke. *eonbi
3:ABS-EV 1-INTRSS:LOC:ABL-S-EM marry.a.woman-CMPL
'He got married in spite of being with me.'

(40) *Mi-onmea-x*-bi bake mawat-a. *mion
2-INTRSS:LOC:ABL-S-EM child:ABS die-PP2
'The child died being under your care.' (It is an accusation; maybe you didn't take good care of the child, or you didn't take it to the *onanya* in order to be treated).

The analysis of the examples provided here suggests that the ablative marking in (37a) and especially in (39) and (40) is gramatically motivated; i.e., ablative case-marking is simply used to allow the complement take overt S-agreement morphology, rather than to code ablative function.

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A-orientation

The next example exhibits overt A-agreement, given that the verb *kinan-* is transitive and requires an ergative-marked subject:

(41) *Mi-on-xon* bake-n kinan-a. *mion
2-INTRSS-A child-ERG vomit-PP2
'The child vomited being under your care.'

19.2.2.4. Life Stage *-x* (S-orientation) vs. *-xon* (A-orientation)

Life-stage complements may also mark S- or A-agreement overtly; these agreement-marked forms are followed by the emphatic *-bi.*

(42) Ja-ríba-ke bake chea-a-ti, bake-*x*-bi
exist-REP-CMPL child:ABS very.very.skinny-do.T-INF child-S-EM

too-ke-tian poko-mea-bi bake maxko a-ti.
become.pregnant-P-DS womb-LOC:ABL-EM child:ABS small do.T-INF
'There is also (a plant with special powers) to make the fetus very very skinny, to make the fetus small when a girl becomes pregnant at / from a very early age.'

Participant agreement involving the expression of a specific age is provided in (53) when dealing with proprietives. The following example is an instance of a transitive clause; hence overt S-agreement is not possible and the temporal *-tian* is used instead:

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(43) Ja-n-ra mapó ak-ai bake-tian-bi. *bake-*x*-bi
3-ERG-EV clay do.T-INC child-TEMP-EM child-S-EM
'She makes pottery since (being a) little girl.'

However, overt S-agreement can be attested with an intransitive version of (43):

(44) Bake-*x*-bi mapó a-ti onan r-iki ja.
child-S-EM clay do.T-INF knowledgeable EV-COP 3:ABS
'She knows how to make pottery since (being a) little girl.'

As for the temporal *-tian*, this may be used on life-stage expressions referring to the A or O argument of a transitive clause; i.e., these expressions are not participant-oriented. Consider the next sentence involving two human core participants:

(45) E-n-ra onan-ke Sanken Bari bake-*tian*-bi.
1-ERG-EV know-CMPL Sanken Bari:ABS child-TEMP-EM
'I know Sanken Bari since I was a child / since he was a child.'

In the example below, *bake-shoko* receives the marker *-xon*:

(46) Mapó a-kin peo-ti r-iki bake-shoko-*xon*-bi.
clay do.T-SSSA begin-INF EV-COP child-DIM-A-EM
'To make pottery one has to begin at a very young age.'

As shown in (44), agreement-marked life-stage expressions may code the equivalent of English 'since;' i.e., a temporal-ablative sense despite the absence of ablative marking. Compare the following pairs of sentences involving intransitive verbs:

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'Since'

(47) a. E-a-ra teet-i peo-koot-a iki bake-*tian*-bi.
1-ABS-EV work-SSSS begin-MID-PP2 AUX child-TEMP-EM
'I began to work when (being a) child.'

b. E-a-ra teet-i peo-koot-a iki bake-*x*-bi.
1-ABS-EV work-SSSS begin-MID-PP2 AUX child-S-EM
'I began to work since (being a) child.'

(48) a. Biri-ra Rima-n ka-a iki bake-shoko-*tian*-bi.
Biri:ABS-EV Lima-ALL go-PP2 AUX child-DIM-TEMP-EM
'Biri went to Lima when (being a) little girl.'

b. Biri-ra Rima-n ka-a iki bake-shoko-*x*-bi.
Biri:ABS-EV Lima-ALL go-PP2 AUX child-DIM-S-EM
'Biri went to Lima since (being a) little girl.'

Some speakers consider that (47a) and (48a) are preferred when the situations expressed do not hold anymore at the moment of utterance; their (b) counterparts, on the other hand, probably entail the speaker is still working and Biri is still in Lima. What is of relevance here is that it seems justified to establish a distinction between true temporal non-participant-oriented expressions marked by *-tian*, as opposed to participant-oriented life-stage expressions marked by *-x* and *-xon*.

'Although, in spite of'

An S-marked life-stage complement may also allow for a concessive interpretation. This is probably so, given that the emphatic *-bi* is often used with this function. The expressions below were given a concessive reading:

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(49) E-a-ra teet-ai bake-*x*-*bi*.
1-ABS-EV work-INC child-S-EM
'I work in spite of (being a) child.'

(50) Ja-ra teet-ai estudiante-ni-*x*-*bi* *estudiante-x-bi
3:ABS-EV work-INC student-LIG-S-EM
'S/he works although (s/he is a) student.'

(51) Nato-ra mapet-ai maxko-shoko-*x*-bi.
this:ABS-EV go.up-INC small-DIM-S-EM
'This one goes up in spite of (being) very small.'

(52) Ja-ra ransa-[a]i ochíti-ni-*x*-bi.
3:ABS-EV dance-INC dog-LIG-S-EM
'It dances in spite of (being a) dog.'

An important question arising from the examination of life-stage complements and suggesting its privileged participant-oriented status concerns the fact that the S-agreement morpheme -*x* occurs without ablative marking. As will be shown in 19.2.2.6, this is also the case with regard to emphatic pronouns.

19.2.2.5. Proprietive and Privative -*xon* (A-orientation) vs. -*0* / -*x* (S-orientation)

Participant agreement also occurs on proprietive and privative modifying expressions; however, overt S-orientation has only been attested with age expressions like the one in ex. (53),

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S-orientation

(53) Pichika *baritia-ya-ni-x* moa shinan-ai mishki-ti,
five year-PROP-LIG-S already think-INC fish.w/hook-INF:ABS

pia a-ti, kanóti a-ti.
arrow do.T-INF:ABS bow do.T-INF:ABS
'At five years of age, (the boy) already thinks of fishing with hook, making arrows, making bows.'

but not with other types of intransitive clauses:

(54) Tita-ra ka-[a]i *rario-ya.* **rario-ya(-ni)-x*
mother:ABS-EV go-INC radio-PROP:S
'Mother is going taking the radio with her (lit. is going with (a) radio).'

It may be argued that while age is an inherent property of the S participant, a radio is not.

However, consider exx. (56) and (57), both involving A-agreement:

A-orientation

(55) Nato joni-n-ra e-a oin-ke *siná-ya-xon.*
this man-ERG-EV 1-ABS see-CMPL anger-PROP-A
'This man looked at me (and he was) angry (lit. 'looked at me with anger').'

(56) Mi-n-ra *machíto-ya-xon* pi-ai-pan.
2-ERG-EV machete-PROP-A eat-INC-?
'You are eating holding the machete (you forgot to put in on the floor).

(57) Xawe Ainbaon-ronki *machítoma-xon*-bi wai a-káti-ai.
Turtle Woman:ERG-HSY machete:PRIV-A-EM chacra:ABS do.T-PST4-INC
'It is said that the Turtle Woman worked in the chacra without a machete.'

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O-orientation

The next two examples illustrate instances of O-oriented proprietives:

(58) Ja iná piko-xon koros *kené-ya* nichin-kan-ai.
that domestic.animal:ABS take.out-PSSA cross design-PROP:O sink-PL-INC
'After presenting the domesticated animal (to the guests), a designed cross was inserted in the soil.'

(59) Jain-xon ja *moxó-ya*-bi bo-kan-ai
there-PDCA that *topa*.wood-PROP:O-EM carry-PL-INC

xebinanti a-xon-xon.
xebinanti:ABS do.T-BEN-PSSA
'Then, they took (the circumcized girls) with the piece of *topa* wood (serving as stretcher), after having placed the *xebinanti*[4] (in their wounds) to their benefit.'

19.2.2.6. Empathic Pronouns *-x* (S-orientation) versus *-0* (A- / O-orientation)

Emphatic pronouns are used to highlight that the subject participant carried out the action her / himself, or to produce a contrastive effect with regard to the patient-object. The fact that some emphatic pronouns carry participant-orientation morphology suggests that they play an adjunct function in SK. Emphatic pronouns are formed by a nominative (*-n* form) or accusative (zero) marked pronoun, followed by the emphatic clitic *-bi*, and either the morpheme *-x* to signal S-orientation or simply zero when the emphatic pronoun is A- or O-oriented (see also 6.1.2, 12.2.2, and 12.5):

[4] *Xebinanti* is a piece of special mud to be placed in the wound caused by clitoridectomy to help cicatrization (Valera and Valenzuela, ms.).

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S-orientation

(60) Wesna-ra *ja-n-bi-x* pikó-ke.
Wesna:ABS-EV 3-NOM-EM-S take.out:MID-CMPL
'Wesna freed herself / came out herself.'

(61) *Mato-n-bi-ni-x* mato rami-t-ai.
2p-NOM-EM-LIG-S 2p:ABS harm-MID-INC
'You yourselves get harmed / You harm yourselves.'[5]

(62) E-a-ra *e-n-bi-x*-bi-shaman beno-[y]ama-a iki.
1-ABS-EV 1-NOM-EM-S-EM-INTENS marry.a.man-NEG-PP2 AUX
'I didn't get married according to my own will.'

Compare (62) with the next text excerpt, where a female speaker talks about how in the past their mothers used to arrange a matrimony for them:

A-orientation

(63) Jawen keen joni i-ke-tian, moa *ja-n-bi*
POS3 want:ADJZ man:ABS be-P-DS already 3-NOM-EM:A

bo-xon-bo no-a meni-i.
carry-PSSA-PL:ABS 1-ABS give-SSSS
'Once they found a man they liked, they themselves would take us and give us in matrimony.'

(64) No-n-bi tari a-xon-yama-kin no-n benbo-baon
1p-ERG-EM *tari* do.T-BEN-NEG-SSSA 1p-GEN husband-PL:GEN

[5] A fluent bilingual offered the following Spanish translation (emphasis added): '*Entre ustedes mismos se hacen daño.*' The use of the preposition *entre* in this context signals a kind of manner adjunct function. A similar interpretation can be attested when translating the quantity adjunct forms *jatikax* [all-S] ~ *jatixon* [all-A] as '*entre todos*;' i.e., 'acting altogether' rather than simply '*todos*' 'all.'

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axé no-n keyo-ai.
custom:ABS 1-ERG finish-INC
'Because we ourselves do not manufacture *taris* (i.e., traditional men's clothes) for (them), we are finishing with our husbands' traditional customs.'

O-orientation

(65) Nato r-iki e-n piti be-á,
this EV-COP 1-ERG fish:ABS bring-PP2:ABS

ja-bi moa bo-tan-we.
3:ACC-EM:O already carry-go.and.do-IMP
'This is the fish I have caught, you better take THIS home already (rather than continue waiting for your father who also went fishing).'

19.2.2.7. Manner *-ax / -i* (S-orientation) vs. *(-a)-xon / (-a)-kin* (A-orientation)

Manner adjuncts are relatively more complex in that they may exhibit up to two sets of agreement markers: *-xon* and *-kin* for A, as opposed to *-ax* and *-i* for S. The following examples involve the interrogative *jawe keská ~ jawe keskat* 'how, why:'

S-orientation

(66) *Jawe keskat-ax*-ki mi-a jo-a / piko-t-a?
what SIML-S-INT 2-ABS come-PP2 take.out-MID-PP2
'How did you come / escape?'

(67) E-a-ra moa *jawe keskat-ax*-bi ka-yama-[a]i!
1-ABS-EV already what SIML-S-EM go-NEG-INC
'There is no way I will go back!'

(68) Ja-ska-ra i-ke-tian-ki be-kati-kan-ai Ashi-iba,
that-SIML-*ra* be-P-DS-HSY2 come.n.SG-PST4-PL-INC *Ashi*-CHEZ

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jato-n papa, jato-n tita, jato-n bake mawá-ke-tian
3p-GEN father:ABS 3p-GEN mother:ABS 3p-GEN child:ABS die-P-DS

jawe keskat-ax-ki mawat-a i-xon onan-kas-i.
what SIML-PSSS-HSY2 die-PP2 do.I-PSSA know-DES-SSSS
'Because of this, (many people) came to his place to know how their father, their mother, their child had died.' (Soi Rawa 1995:25)

However, the manner interrogative does not carry S-agreement when the verb encodes a state of being, rather than an event happening or other type of intransitive event:

(69) *Jawe keská*-ki mato i-t-ai?
what SIML-INT 2p:ABS be-PROGR-INC
'How are you (pl)?'

Exx. (70) and (71) illustrate the second S-agreement marker, *-i* (which is identical to the S-oriented simultaneous same-subject marker illustrated in (3b)). In (71), S-agreement occurs on a comparative construction:

(70) *Jawe keskát-i* mato i-t-ai?
what SIML-S 2p:ABS do.I-INC
'What is going on with you (pl.)?'

(71) E-a-ra icha ni-ke benoma *keskat-i*,
1-ABS-EV much walk-CMPL unmarried SIML-S

ik-ax-bi e-a beno-yama iki.
do.I-PSSS-EM 1-ABS marry.a.man-NEG AUX
'I have walked a lot like single women (do); however, I never had a lover.'

The next ex. contains the expression *neté-shaman-ax* 'quietly:'

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(72) Ja oin-taanan, *neté-shaman-ax* ka-xon, joni-n jawen nonti,
that:ABS see-PSS quiet-INTENS-S go-PSSA man-ERG POS3 canoe:ABS

napon xoton-bain-a iki....
to.the.middle push-AND2-PP2 AUX
'Seeing that, getting closer (acting) very quietly, the man pushed his canoe to the middle (of the river) (Ministerio de Educación and ILV 1982:3)

But given the fact that time-place-manner words may function as predicates taking verb inflection directly, under an alternative analysis one could interpret this element as 'behaving very quietly' and the suffix *-ax* as the S-oriented same-subject marker for previous events:

A-orientation

The first two examples below illustrate the A-agreement marker *-xon*. (73) belongs to a text where the Shipibo learn from the white monkey how to have sexual intercourse:

(73) Chaikoní, *jawe keská-xon*-ki a-ti iki no-n awin
brother.in.law:VOC what SIML-A-INT do.T-INF AUX 1p:GEN wife:ABS

chota-kin?
have.sexual.intercourse.w/-SSSA
'Brother in law, how do we have to do to have sexual intercourse with our wives?'

(74) Ikaxbi rama-tian xontako-baon onan-yama-ke mapó a-ti,
but now-TEMP unmarried.girl-PL:ERG know-NEG-CMPL clay do.T-INF:ABS

ja-ská-shaman-xon meskó moa-tian kené-bo a-ti.
that-SIML-INTENS-A different already-TEMP design-PL:ABS do.T-INF:ABS
'But nowadays young girls do not know how to make pottery; similarly, (they do not know how) to make traditional designs.'

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Somewhat similarly to *netéshamanax* in (72), *ja-ská-shaman-xon* may be a shortened form of *ja-ská-a-shaman-xon* [that-SIML-do.T-INTENS-PSSA]), and hence it may be clausal too. Exx. (75)-(77) illustrate the A-agreement marker *-kin*:

(75) *Jawe keská-kin*-ki mi-n pi-káshamai?
what SIML-A-INT 2-ERG eat-DES:NEG:PP1
'Why don't you want to eat?'

(76) ....*jawe keská-kin* shee ak-á-ki jakon-shaman
what SIML-A ONOM do.T-PO>S/A-HSY2 good-nicely

piko-t-ai.
take.out-MID-INC
'...how to varnish the hot pottery so that it turns out pretty.'

Analogously to sentence (71), the next example involves a comparative construction. This utterance is a message from Mrs. Ranin Ama to indigenous peoples outside Peru:

(77) Icha-bi-res e-n mato yoiy-ai, keyó-ma-yama-kan-we
much-EM-purely 1-ERG 2p:ABS tell-INC finish:MID-CAUS-NEG-PL-IMP

mato-n axé, mato-n joi; no-n ak-ai *keská-kin*-ribi
2p-GEN custom:ABS 2p-GEN language:ABS 1p-ERG do.T-PP1 SIML-A-also

a-kan-we!
do.T-PL-IMP
'I beg you not to let your customs and your languages disappear; keep them just like we keep ours!

Again, it is plausible that some instances of *jawe keská* (pronounced with a long /a/) are actually followed by the semantically generic transitive verb *ak-* 'do (tr.),' and so these similative-marked expressions would turn out to be clausal. This cannot be conclusively

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determined however, given that the longer duration of the vowel might (also) be due to the stress.

Manner adjuncts may be derived from adjectival roots by addition of the morpheme *-n*; these words do not exhibit PA:

(78) Ishto-n jo-wé!
quick-ADVZ come-IMP
'Come quickly!'

(79) Ishto-n be-wé!
quick-ADVZ bring-IMP
'Bring (it) quickly!'

However, as mentioned earlier, in SK adjunct elements may take verb morphology directly to function as intransitive predicates; hence *ishto-n* can also be used as the intransitive verb 'to hurry.' In this case, *ishton-* takes PA through the same-subject markers described earlier, as any other verb:

(80) Ishto-n-*i*-ra e-a paké-ke.
fast-ADVZ-SSSS-EV 1-ABS cause.to.fall:MID-CMPL
'Being in a hurry, I fell.

(81) Ishto-n-*ax*-ra e-a shinan-beno-ke.
fast-ADVZ-PSSS-EV 1-ABS mind-fail-CMPL
'Being in a hurry, I forgot (it).'

(82) Ishto-n-*kin*-ra e-n be-yama-ke.
fast-ADVZ-SSSA-EV 1-ERG bring-NEG-CMPL
'Being in a hurry, I didn't bring (it).'

Like non-clausal adjuncts in causative clauses involving a transitive base verb (see ex. (33)), *ishto-n-xon* in the example below agrees with the causer:

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(83) Ishto-n-*xon*-ra e-a be-ma-yama-ke.
fast-ADVZ-PSSA-EV 1-ABS bring-CAUS-NEG-CMPL
'Being in a hurry, he didn't let me bring (it).'

Now let's consider the behavior of the element *kikin*. *Kikin* can function as an intensifier modifying an adjective, in which case it occurs unmarked (adjectives may precede or follow their head in SK, but *kikin* must precede the whole [noun adjective] complex):

(84) kikin siná [extremely brave] 'extremely brave'
(85) kikin ainbo metsá [extremely woman beautiful] 'extremely beautiful woman'

Another instance in which *kikin* occurs unmarked is when functioning as an adjectival modifier meaning 'true, legitimate, elegant, luxurious:'

(86) kikin xobo [elegant house] 'good, luxurious house'

However, *kikin* may also function as an adjunct external to the noun phrase and hence show the agreement morphology under discussion; *kikin* is glossed here as 'extremely:'

S-orientation

(87) Kikin-*i* pake-t-a.
extremely-S cause.to.fall-MID-PP2
'He fell hurting himself hard.'

(88) Kikin-*i* keyo-t-a.
extremely-S finish-MID-PP2
'It finished (disappeared) completely.'

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(89) Kikin-*ax* chankat-a.
extremely-S stand-PP2
'He is standing very elegantly dressed and / or posing.'

(90) Kikin-*ax* yaka-t-a.
extremely-S sitting.position.I-MID-PP2
'He is sitting like posing (e.g., crossing his legs).'

A functional distinction becomes obvious in the examples above: whereas *kikini* can be said to modify the event, *kikinax* rather predicates about the S participant. Therefore it might be useful to distinghish between event-oriented versus participant-oriented functions. Let us now turn to transitive clauses.

A-orientation

(91) Kikin-a-*kin* keyo-a.
truly-do.T-A finish-PP2
'He finished (it) completely.'

(92) Kikin-a-*kin* rete-a.
truly-do.T-A kill-PP2
'He really killed (him).'[6]

(93) Kikin-*xon* pi-ke.
truly-A eat-CMPL
'He ate elegantly (like the *mestizos*, with tablecloth, silverware, taking out the bones from the fish....), or 'He was dressed elegantly and ate.'

Again, there seems to be a semantic distinction between the more event-oriented *kikin-a-kin* and the rather participant-oriented *kikin-xon*. Note also in the above examples that *kikin* requires addition of the semantically generic transitive verb *a(k)-* before taking *-kin* but not before taking *-xon*. This difference suggests two things; first that similative-

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marked expressions taking *-kin* might in fact be clausal too (see discussion above), and second that at least some constructions taking *-kin* and *-i* are functionally and syntactically distinct from those taking *-xon* and *-ax* (*-i* is formally identical to the semantically generic intransitive verb *ik- ~ i-*).

Now let's examine the SK equivalent of 'well,' which is based on the adjectival root *jakon* 'good.' When functioning as adjunct, *jakon* also takes agreement marking. The following examples illustrate S agreement; I have not been able to find any semantic distinction between (94a) and (94b).

(94) a. Jakon-*ax* ja-kan-we!
good-S exist-PL-IMP
'Live well!'

b. Jakon-*i* ja-kan-we!
good-S exist-PL-IMP
'Live well!'

When turning to transitive clauses, it can be seen that the presence of the transitive *a(k)-* is required before any A-agreement inflection is added; thus, the utterances below are to be considered clausal:

(95) a. Jakon-a-*xon* yoá a-wé
good-do.T-PSSA cook-IMP
'Cook well!'

b. Jakon-a-*kin* yoá a-wé!
good-do.T-SSSA cook-IMP
'Cook well!'

For one speaker, the sentences above have slightly different meanings. While the (a) version is interpreted as 'cook carefully,' the second expression is read as referring to the quality of the food (Mr. Sanken Bari, p.c. 2002). Under the same analysis applied to constructions based on *kikin*, it could be said that *jakon-a-xon* is oriented towards the A

[6] A Spanish version offered by a fluent bilingual collaborator is: *Lo mató bien matado.*

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participant who is going to cook well or carefully, while *jakon-a-kin* modifies the event which results in good food. But constructions based on *kikin* and *jakon* still differ in that only *-kin*-marked forms require the transitive verb *ak-* with the former, while both *-kin-* and *-xon*-marked forms require *ak-* with the latter. The text example below carries two instances of S-agreement in the same clause: *-i* on the manner / degree modifier *kikin* and *-x* on the life-stage complement:

(96) Ja-tian kikin-*i* bake-*x*-bi no-a xeta keyo-t-ai.
that-TEMP extremely-S child-S-EM 1p-ABS tooth:ABS finish-MID-INC
'Then, in spite of being very very young we lose our teeth.'

19.2.2.8. Quantity

At least two different subpatterns are found with quantifiers. One is illustrated by the quantifier proper *jatik ~ jatí* 'all' and the second by the numeral *kimisha* 'three.'

Jatik ~ jatí 'altogether' *-ax* (S-orientation) vs. *-xon* (A-orientation)

(97) Ja-ská-ke-tian, jatik-*ax*-bi bo-kan-a iki, nee-t-i.
that-SIML-P-TEMP altogether-S-EM go.n.SG-PL-PP2 AUX go.up-MID-SSSS
'Then, everybody started to go up.'

(98) Ja-skáa-xon-ki, jatí-*xon*-bi jato-n bake-bo-ki
that-SIML-PDCA-HSY2 altogether-A-EM 3p-GEN child-PL:ABS-HSY2

notsi-n-kan-a iki.
get.upset-TRNZ-PL-PP2 AUX
'Then, they scolded their children altogether.' (Soi Rawa 1995:16)

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Numeral *-0 / -i* (S-orientation) vs. *-xon / -a-kin* (A-orientation)

Like manner adjuncts, numerals may also take two different S-orientation and two different A-orientation agreement markers. There is a slight difference with respect to manner adjuncts though, since the S-agreement markers on numerals are *-0* and *-i* (rather than *-ax* and *-i*); the A-agreement markers are the same (i.e., *-xon* and *-kin*). As proposed for *kikin*, alternate S- and A-agreement markers encode an obvious semantic distinction. Consider exx. (99)-(102) involving the numeral *kimisha* 'three:'

(99) Ja-bo-ra *kimisha-bo* jiki-ke.
3-PL:ABS-EV three:S-PL enter-CMPL
'They entered in groups of three.'

(100) Ja-baon-ra *kimisha-xon-bo* naransha bi-ke.
3-PL:ERG-EV three-A-PL orange:ABS get-CMPL
'They got oranges acting in groups of three.'

(101) Ja-ra *kimisha-i* pake-t-a iki.
3:ABS-EV three-S cause.to.fall-MID-PP2 AUX
'He fell three times.'

(102) Ja-n-ra *kimisha-a-kin* pi-a iki.
3-ERG-EV three-do.T-SSSA eat-PP2 AUX
'He ate three times.'

While *kimisha-bo* and *kimisha-xon-bo* are participant-oriented complements, *kimisha-i* and *kimisha-a-kin* are best analyzed as event-related. Note also that only *kimisha-a-kin* is clausal.

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19.2.2.9. Comitatives

Comitative complements marked by the postposition *betan* do not show participant agreement inflection in SK. Consider the following intransitive and transitive clauses as illustration:

(103) E-a-ra wai-nko kai *papa betan.*
1-ABS-EV chacra-ALL go:INC father COM
'I go to the chacra with father.'

(104) E-n-ra wai sepai *papa betan.* ??*betan-xon*
1-ERG-EV chacra:ABS slash:INC father COM
'I slash the chacra with father.'

Nevertheless, as will be shown in 20.3.6, comitatives do carry PA in some genetically-related languages. Therefore, it may be the case that lack of agreement in this context is a SK innovation.

19.2.2.10. Temporals

Like comitatives, temporal complements carry no participant agreement morphology whatsoever. The lack of PA on time modifying expressions is probably due to the fact that these modify the event as a whole rather than one or other event participant (but see temporal adjuncts in Matses, exx. (86) and (87) of Ch. 20). The fact that temporals do not take part in PA is compatible with the observation that time adverbials in the

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Australian language Warlpiri optionally agree in case with the clausal subject, while locative or manner expressions receive case agreement necessarily (Simpson 1991:208). The next examples involve the time expressions *rama* 'now' and *bakish* 'one day from today:'

(105) *Rama*-ra oxa-[a]i / ka-[a]i / pi-ai. **rama-xon *ramax *ramai *ramakin*
now-EV sleep-INC go-INC eat-INC
'Now I am going to sleep / to go / to eat.'

(106) *Bakish*a e-a yamékiri-bi weni-t-ai.
one.day.away:EV 1-ABS early.in.the.morning-EM standing.position-MID-INC
'Tomorrow I am going to wake up early in the morning.'

(107) *Bakish*a e-n xenan wai-nko-ni-a
one.day.away:EV 1-ERG *guaba*:ABS chacra-LOC-LIG-ABL:O

bi-i ka-[a]i.
get-SSSS go-INC
'Tomorrow I am going to bring *guabas* from the chacra.'

19.2.2.11. Conjunctions

Conjunctions in SK may be formed by the medial demonstrative *ja* which receives locative or similative case-marking. Being originally locative / manner expressions, these conjunctions may carry the range of agreement markers discussed above. In the following text excerpt, the conjunction *jainoax* connects subsequent sentences. The context is that of the *Yoina Reteti* or Animal Sacrifice Ceremony, which is part of the girls' puberty rites or *Ani Xeati*:

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(108) a. Ja tsaka-[a]i ibo iki kanóti kené-ya, pia
that shoot.w/arrow-PP1 owner:ABS COP bow design-PROP arrow

chi-kené-ya jonxe kené-ya, wexati
BUTTOCKS-design-PROP bracelet design-PROP wexati.knife

ba-pani-a.
ARMPIT-hang-PP2
'The man in charge of directing the shooting had a designed bow, arrows with designs on the non-pointed end, designed bracelets, and a *wexati* knife hanging on the shoulder.

b. *Jaino-a-x* ja tsaka-[a]i betan ik-á joni-bo
there:LOC-ABL-S that shoot.w/arrow-PP1 COM be-PP2 man-PL:ABS

iki wiso tari-ya, joshin tari-ya, joxo tari-ya-bo.
COP black *tari*-PROP red *tari*-PROP white *tari*-PROP-PL
Then, the men accompanying him were dressed in black, red, and white *taris* (men's traditional clothes).

c. *Jaino-a-x* bewa-kan-ai ja iná
there:LOC-ABL-S sing-PL-INC that animal:ABS

tsak[a]-ainko-ni-a-x…
shoot.w/arrow-LOC:LOC-LIG-ABL-S
Then, they sang from (the place) where they shot at the animal (w/arrow)…'

In the next excerpt, *jainxon* also works as a sentence connector:

(109) a. Ja moa nokon papa rabé baritia teet-a ik-á iki.
that already POS1 father:ABS two year work-PP2 be-PP2 AUX
'My father had already worked for two years (organizing my sisters' *Ani Xeati* ceremony).

b. *Jain-xon* moa nokon papa-n yoá-bo tsinki-a ik-á iki
there-PDCA already POS1 father-ERG crop-PL:ABS gather-PP2 be-PP2 AUX

wai-nko-ni-a.
chacra-LOC-LIG-ABL:O
By then, my father had already gathered the crops from the chacra.

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c. *Jain-xon*-ribi jatíbi jawen iná bi-ní-bo
there-PDCA-also all POS3 domesticated.animal get-REM:NMLZ-PL:ABS

yatan-a iki....
catch-PP2 AUX
Also he had gathered the animals he had raised (for the occasion)....'

As seen in 19.2.2.3 with regard to complements of interest, the selection between ablative (i.e. *jainoa*) or locative (i.e. *jain*) marking in conjunctions appears to be grammatically motivated so that overt S- or A-agreement can take place. That is, overt S agreement only occurs on ablative-marked conjunctions (recall that the ablative must be preceded by a locative), while overt A agreement only occurs on locative-marked ones. *Jainoax* and *jainxon* also serve as intrasentential and even intraclausal conjunctions; the former function is illustrated below:

(110) No-a jimi-i jene-t-ai, *jaino-a-x* jo-ai bake
1p-ABS bleed-SSSS stop-MID-INC there:LOC-ABL-S come-INC child

joni a-ti.
person do.T-INF:ABS
'Once we stop menstruating, comes the pregnancy.'

(111) Ja-tian rao-n-noxon waste xaki-ai ja joni
that-TEMP plant.medicine-TRNZ-FSSA *piripiri*:ABS grind-INC that man:ABS

shinan shinan-anan-bi, *jain-xon* samat-i kai.
think think-PSS-EM there-A abstain-SSSS go-INC
'In order to treat (a man to make him love you), you grind the *piripiri* (i.e., plant with special powers) concentrating on that man, and you abstain from eating (certain foods) and from having sex.'

The next two examples illustrate similative-marked conjunctions:

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(112) *Ja-ská-kin* ja joni-n jato yoiy-a iki.
that-SIML-A that man-ERG 3p:ABS tell-PP2 AUX
'Then / so the man communicated them (that).'

(113) *Ja-skat-i*-kaya-bira mi-a pikó-yora-[a]i
that-SIML-S-CONTRST-INFR 2-ABS take.out:MID-INTENS-INC

xobome-a-x.
house:LOC-ABL-S
'This is probably why you go out from home so much.'

19.2.3. Participant Agreement: Further Examples

A few more text examples are given in this section to illustrate how the different types of PA described above interact in discourse. In (114) overt S-agreement marking on non-clausal adjuncts occurs on the ablative 'from Pucallpa' and the intensifier 'extremely;' the dependent clause 'When he returned from Pucallpa' exhibits the same-subject marker *-ax* (PSSS) indicating also that its controller plays the S function (i.e., the subject of the matrix intransitive verb 'be thirsty'); the dependent clause 'feeling extremely thirsty' is marked for switch-reference and hence no agreement is required or possible:

(114) [[Maioshiainoa-*x* jo-*ax*] kikin-*i* nomi-ai-tian]]
Pucallpa:LOC:LOC:ABL-S come-PSSS extremely-S be.thirsty-S-DS
'When (he) returned from Pucallpa feeling extremely thirsty,

e-n xea-ma-a iki ja e-n rao kobin ak-á.
1-ERG drink-CAUS-PP2 AUX that 1-ERG plant.medicine:ABS boil-PP2:ABS
I had him drink the plant medicine I had previously boiled.'

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The S-oriented same-subject marker *-ax* is also attested in (115a), in combination with the intransitive verb 'sleep.' The A counterpart of *-ax* is *-xon* which occurs on three clausal adjuncts. Note that *oxa-xon* and *onan i-xon* in (115b) have the same A controller, the subject of the transitive 'dig.' In (115c) *napokoo-xon* is also A-controlled by the subject of 'see.' Zero or lack of agreement can be seen on the non-clausal locatives *mashi-n* 'on the sand / beach' and *jain* 'there,' which predicate of the S arguments of 'slept' and the derived intransitive 'enter,' respectively. On the other hand, *jain-xon* 'there' and *choska chonka-xon* 'forty' receive A-agreement marking.

(115) a. [Ka-*ax*] mashi-n oxa-kan-a iki.
go-PSSS sand-LOC:S sleep-PL-PP2 AUX
'Once they arrived they slept on the beach.

b. [Mashi-n oxa-*xon*], [yosi-bo moa onan i-*xon*],
sand-LOC:S sleep-PSSA old-PL:ABS already knowledgeable be-PSSA
After sleeping on the beach, since the elders were experienced (in warfare),

mashi chini-kan-a iki.
sand:ABS dig-PL-PP2 AUX
they dug the sand.

c. [Jain napokoo-*xon*] oin-kan-a-ronki ik-á iki
there place.inside:MID-PSSA see-PL-PP2-HSY be-PP2 AUX
There, entering (into the holes), they saw

Kashibo-bo be-i...
Kashibo-PL:ABS come-COMP
the Kashibos approaching

d. Jain-*xon*-ki yatan-kan-a iki jato-n tokoriko,
there-PDCA-HSY2 catch-PL-PP2 AUX 3p-GEN chief:ABS

ja chosko chonka-*xon*.
that four ten-A
There they captured their chief, those forty men (lit. 'in a group of forty').'

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The chains in ex. (115) are relatively short; they consist of a finite clause which combines with a maximum of two reference-marked clauses. However, longer sequences of chained clauses may be found in discourse as illustrated in (116) (previously given in Ch. 14 as ex. (7)). The single finite verb is underlined, reference-marked clauses are given in square brackets, and larger discourse units delimited through the shorter reportative *-ki* (roughly equivalent to a scene) are in simple brackets:

(116) a. [Ja-ska-ra i-*xon*-ronki] <u>a-káti-kan-ai</u>
that-SIML-*ra* do.I-PSSA-HSY do.T-PST4-PL-INC

b. {[yapa axa-n-*xon*]
fish:ABS fish.poison-TRNZ-PSSA

c. [bi-*xon*-ki]}
get-PSSA-HSY2

d. {[makaman benes a-*kin*]
stone:INST thin do.T-SSSA

e. [chaka-*xon*-ki]}
crush-PSSA-HSY2

f. {[bari-n raka-n-*xon*-ki]}
sun-LOC lying.position-TRNZ-PSSA-HSY2

g. {[moshi-ke-tian bi-*xon*-ki]}
dry-P-DS get-PSSA-HSY2

h. [pi-*kin*] no-n moa-baon,
eat-SSSA 1p-GEN ancestor-PL:ERG

i. [chii-oma i-*xon*].
fire-PRIV do.I-SSSA

'Living in such conditions, our ancestors poisoned the fish and collected them, crushed them with a stone making them thinner, and lay them in the sun so that they dried; getting them they ate them, because they had no fire.' (Soi Rawa 1995:9).'

The first clause functions as a sentential topic, providing background information. The second clause consists of the finite semantically generic verb *akátikanai*, which is separated from its A argument by several reference-marked clauses that advance the

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description of the process. The last clause codes the reason why the Shipibo prepared the fish in the way described; this reason had been given in a previous chain.

19.3. Agreement Patterns and Adjunct Types

The description of SK participant agreement provided above can be reorganized in the following way. First, there are three basic agreement patterns that occur on adjuncts:

Pattern 1:	*-(a)x* S	*-xon* A	*-0* O
Pattern 2:	*-i* S	*-kin* A	unattested
Pattern 3:	*-nox* S	*-noxon* A	N.A. (only as SS markers)

Pattern 3 is obviously a combination of the sequence *-no* + the markers in Pattern 1.

Second, adjuncts may be subdivided into four groups depending on the agreement markers they receive (see sections 19.3.1-19.3.4); a fifth group is characterized by the absence of PA marking (19.3.5). Third, a hierarchical organization is attested so that adjuncts taking the agreement markers of Pattern 2 also take those of Pattern 1, and adjuncts taking the agreement markers of Pattern 3 also take those of Pattern 2: Pattern 1 > Pattern 2 > Pattern 3.

Fourth, it is possible to tentatively correlate the various adjunct types with certain semantic criteria (19.3.6).

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19.3.1. Adjunct Type 1

Emphatic pronouns and life-stage adjuncts (including proprietive constructions expressing a specific age) exhibit the peculiarity of being able to take the S-agreement marker *-x* without requiring that it be preceded by the ablative *-a* (which itself is built upon the locative necessarily). However, these targets differ in terms of the A-agreement markers they take; i.e., *-0* for emphatic pronouns but *-xon* for life-stage (and proprietive) complements.

ja-n-bi-*x*	[3-NOM-EM-S]	'she herself (S-oriented)'
ja-n-bi-*0*	[3-NOM-EM:A/O]	'she herself (A-oriented)'
bake-*x*-bi	[child-S-EM]	'as a child (S-oriented)'
bake-shoko-*xon*	[child-DIM-A]	'as a little child (A-oriented)'

19.3.2. Adjunct Type 2

The relevant feature of adjuncts of Type 2 is that these take *-ax* for S-agreement (i.e., ablative marking or *-a* must precede the addition of *-x*) and *-xon* for A-agreement. Here are found locatives (i.e., locative-allative and ablative combined), affectives, and *jatí ~ jatik* 'altogether.'

xobo-nko-ni-*a*-*x*	[house-LOC-LIG-ABL-S]	'from the house (S-oriented)
xobo-n-*xon*	[house-LOC-A]	'in the house (A-oriented)
e-on-me*a*-*x*	[1-INTRSS-LOC:ABL-S]	'on me (S-oriented)
e-on-*xon*	[1-INTRSS-A]	'on me (A-oriented)
jatik-*ax*	[all-S]	'altogether (S-oriented)'
jatí-*xon*	[all-A]	'altogether (A-oriented)'

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19.3.3. Adjunct Type 3

Manner / reason and numeral adjuncts are grouped together here, since these take agreement markers from both Pattern 1 and Pattern 2; while addition of *-kin* seems to require the semantically generic transitive verb *ak-*, this is not always the case with *-xon*:

kimisha 'three'

Pattern 1:	kimisha-*0* vs. kimisha-*xon*
Pattern 2:	kimisha-*i* vs. kimisha-*a-kin*

jawe keská ~ jawe keskat 'how / why'

Pattern 1:	jawe keskat-*ax* vs. jawe keská-*xon*
Pattern 2:	jawe keskat-*i* vs. jawe keská*(-a)-kin*

kikin 'extremely'

Pattern 1:	kikin-*ax* vs. kikin-*xon*
Pattern 2:	kikin-*i* vs. kikin-*a-kin*

jakon 'good, well'

Pattern 1:	jakon-*ax* vs. jakon-*a-xon*
Pattern 2:	jakon-*i* vs. jakon-*a-kin*

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19.3.4. Adjunct Type 4

Under Adjunct Type 4 are grouped same-subject marked clauses depicting events that are previous, simultaneous or subsequent with respect to the events in their matrix clause. All three agreement patterns are involved.

19.3.5. Adjunct Type 5

Comitative and temporal adjuncts do not receive any participant agreement morphology and hence are grouped together under Adjunct Type 5.

19.3.6. Adjunct Types and Semantic Criteria

As mentioned above, it is possible to tentatively correlate the adjunct types established above with functional criteria such as degrees of participant-orientedness versus event-orientedness; this proposal is based on the semantic distinction made for certain adjuncts that take agreement patterns 1 and 2 (i.e., those in Adjunct Type 3). Emphatic pronoun and life-stage expressions (i.e., those in Adjunct Type 1) can be said to be the most participant-oriented adjuncts; these can receive the marker *-x* directly.[7] Locative and affective expressions, as well as 'altogether' (i.e., Adjunct Type 2 members) are also to

[7] The relevance of this feature will become evident in 20.4 and 20.5, when arguing that *-x* is a former S case-marker. This means that Adjunct Type 1 members received the case-marking of their S controller directly.

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be interpreted as participant-oriented; these cannot take the marker *-x* directly. Manner / reason and quantity adjuncts (except for 'altogether') can be said to be either participant-oriented (when taking *-ax* and *-xon*) or event-oriented (when taking *-i* and *-kin*); the same may be the case for dependent same-subject marked clauses. Finally, comitative and temporal adjuncts (as well as life-stage expressions marked by *-tian*) do not take any participant agreement morphology which may signal their inability to be participant-oriented. This proposal can be summarized through the following continuum (PO stands for Participant-Orientedness, EO for event-orientedness, and AT for Adjunct Type):

Figure 19.1. Participant-Orientedness Continuum

PO <----------> EO

AT 1	AT2	AT 3	AT 4	AT 5
-x vs. *-xon*	*-ax* vs. *-xon*	(*-ax*) vs. (-a)-*xon* *-i* vs. -a-*kin*	*-ax* vs. *-xon* *-i* vs. *-kin* *-nox* vs.*-noxon*	no PA
emphatic pronouns life-stage	locative affectives 'altogether'	manner reason quantity	SS clauses	comitatives temporal

There is however an alternative analysis to account for the seeming privileged status of life-stage adjuncts, which do not require the presence of the ablative *-a* before taking the S agreement marker *-x*. Recall that in SK a noun may function as an inchoative predicate by taking verbal morphology directly. Hence, a sequence such as *bake-ax* [child-*ax*] is interpreted as 'after becoming / behaving as a child.' What I would like to suggest here is

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the possibility of assigning life-stage adjuncts the S-agreement marking *-x* rather than *-ax* in order to avoid conflation and ambiguity between the inchoative and the life-stage readings.

19.4. Participant Agreement as a Non-Canonical Type of Agreement

At the beginning of the present chapter, the different components of SK participant agreement (i.e.; controller, target, domain and agreement feature) were identified, following the framework proposed by Corbett (2001, 2002). The goal of this section is to use this framework in order to characterize PA so that it can be placed within a general typology of agreement, and to more precisely identify the features that make it a non-canonical type of agreement.

After introducing the criteria for canonical agreement put forward by Corbett (2001), SK PA is characterized with regard to each criterion, and the ways in which the phenomenon at hand deviates from canonical agreement are highlighted.

19.4.1. Defining Canonical Agreement

Corbett (2001) proposes several criteria for defining canonical agreement. These criteria are listed or briefly introduced below. Some may become clearer when characterizing SK participant agreement in 19.4.2 (see Corbett op.cit. for (more elaborate) definitions and (further) illustration). The symbol '>' stands for 'more canonical than.'

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19.4.1.1. Criteria that Relate to the Controller

Criterion-1: controller present > controller absent

Agreement is more canonical when the controller must be present. For example, subject-verb agreement in a language in which the subject NP must be expressed is more canonical than subject-verb agreement in a "pro-drop" language.

Criterion-2: controller has overt features > controller has covert features

Agreement is more canonical when the controller has overt features. For example, in French, gender agreement on adjectives with a third person singular subject in (117) is more canonical than with a first person singular subject (118), given that third person singular pronouns but not the first person singular pronoun bear a gender value:

(117)	Elle est content-e. she be.3.SG happy-SG.FEM 'She is happy.'	/	Il est content. he be.3.SG happy:SG.MASC 'He is happy.'
(118)	Je suis content-e. I be.1.SG happy-SG.FEM 'I am happy (of a woman).'	/	Je suis content. I be.1.SG happy:SG.MASC 'I am happy (of a man).'

Criterion-3: consistent controller > hybrid controller

A consistent controller controls a consistent agreement pattern, while a hybrid controller controls different feature values on different targets. To illustrate a hybrid controller, Corbett (op. cit.:5) resorts to the Talitsk dialect of Russian, in which a plural verb can be used with a singular NP to refer to a person or persons besides the one indicated directly.

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Criterion-4: controller's part of speech irrelevant > relevant (given the domain)

Given a domain no further information on the part of speech is required in canonical instances. Take for example subject-verb agreement in Russian, where whether the subject NP is headed by a noun or a pronoun is irrelevant. By contrast, pronouns and nouns do require different rules in Bayso.

19.4.1.2. Criteria that Relate to the Target

Criterion-5: expression of agreement on the target is bound > free (affix > clitic > free word)

Criterion-6: obligatory > optional

Obligatory marking is more canonical than optional marking.

Criterion-7: regular > suppletive

The canonical marking of agreement is signalled by regular inflectional morphology or affixation. Corbett (op. cit.) provides examples from Norwegian, where agreement can be expressed by suppletion:

(119)	en	liten	øl	/	to	små	øl
	one/a	small.MASC.SG	beer.SG/PL		two	small.PL	beer.SG/PL
	'one small beer'				'two small beers'		

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Criterion-8: alliterative > opaque

In the canonical instance, the agreement marker on the target is phonologically identical to a formant in the controller, and the same agreement marker is used for different targets.

Criterion-9: productive > sporadic

In the canonical situation, agreement is attested on each potential target of a given type. For example, in Russian every verb shows agreement in number, while in Chechen and Ingush (Nakh-Daghestanian) only some 30% of verbs show agreement.

Criterion-10: doubling > independent

The agreement occurs independently of the presence or absence of the controller. This criterion relates to Criterion 1 but here it refers to the target.

Criterion-11: target agrees with a single controller > agrees with more than one controller

Canonically, the target has a single controller even if agreement is marked more than once. What is less canonical is for a target to agree with more than one controller.

Criterion-12: target's part of speech irrelevant > relevant (given the domain)

In canonical instances of agreement it is possible to specify targets at a high level, as a general part of a domain, and no additional stipulations for sub-types are required.

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19.4.1.3. Criteria that Relate to the Domain

Criterion-13: asymmetric > symmetric

Canonically, agreement is an asymmetric relation. Corbett points out that case agreement within the NP may be problematic for linguists adopting a view of syntax based on constituency, since case matching of features within the NP results from government by the same element. This is not a problem though for those adopting a dependency view of syntax, since the head of the NP is a noun and modifiers are dependent on it.

Criterion-14: local > non-local

Local agreement (within the clause) is more canonical than non-local agreement (beyond the clause).

Criterion-15: domain is one of set > single domain

A language where a given agreement domain is one of a set of agreement domains (e.g. subject-verb agreement, attributive modifier-head noun, relative-antecendent, etc.) is a more canonical instance than a language with only one agreement domain.

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19.4.1.4. Criteria that Relate to Features

Criterion-16: feature is lexical > non-lexical

Canonical agreement is lexical (e.g., gender). The target could not be marked for the feature independently, and this links to the directionality of agreement.

Criterion-17: features have matching values > non-matching values

Instances of agreement where the feature values match are more canonical than those where the feature values do not match (e.g., semantic agreement).

Criterion-18: no choice of feature value > choice of value

Under certain conditions, the equivalent of 'five girls' may combine either with a singular or a plural form of the verb in Russian. This situation is less canonical than those where only one value is possible; for example, plural verb form and singular verb form in a similar context in English and Hungarian, respectively (Corbett op.cit.:18-19).

19.4.1.5. Conditions

Criterion-19: no conditions > conditions

In Hungarian whether conjoined singular nominals combine with a singular or a plural form of the verb depends on a condition, namely on whether these nominals are animate or inanimate. Agreement conditions are prevalent when agreement is non-canonical.

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Corbett also outlines three general principles of canonical agreement, which summarize the above criteria:

1- *Canonical agreement is redundant rather than informative.* This may be the reason why canonical agreement is relatively rare among the world's languages (criteria 1, 2, 16, 17, 18 and secondarily 15).
2- *Canonical agreement is syntactically simple.* This principle generalizes several of the criteria above (3, 4, 10, 11, 12, 13, 14, 15, 17, 18, 19, and partially 6).
3- *The closer the expression of agreement is to canonical (i.e. affixal) inflectional morphology, the more canonical it is as agreement.* Several criteria converge on this principle (namely; 5, 6, 7, 8 and 9).

A first characterization of PA in terms of the agreement criteria given above is offered in the next section.

19.4.2. Characterization of Shipibo-Konibo Participant Agreement

19.4.2.1. Controller

In SK participant agreement, the controller is a core argument (S, A, O) of the clause, or the matrix clause subject (S, A); it may be present or omitted; it may have overt features

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(i.e., case-marking, see discussion in 20.4 and 20.5) or not (if it is absent); it is consistent in the agreement patterns it controls, although there are different patterns and subpatterns (ablative, locative, manner, emphatic pronoun, etc.); and the controller's part of speech is irrelevant, since this noun phrase may be headed either by a noun or a pronoun.

19.4.2.2. Target

The target is a word, phrase, or clause in an adjunct relationship to the verb; it has a bound expression of agreement in the form of phrasal suffixes; marking is obligatory and independent of the co-occurrence of the controller, thus it may double the marking of controller; the marking is regular but opaque, since it is not phonologically identical to the marking on the controller; the marking may be considered as relatively productive, given that it does not affect all adjuncts (this will depend on the definition of adjunct, particularly on the distinction between participant-orientedness vs. event-orientedness); additional specifications for different subtypes of targets are required; the target agrees with a single controller; the target's part of speech is irrelevant.

19.4.2.3. Domain

The domain is participant-adjunct agreement; it is asymmetrical, since the marking on the adjunct depends on the syntactic function of the controller; it is not necessarily local (i.e.,

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it is not necessarily restricted within the clause); participant-adjunct agreement is the only agreement domain in the language.

19.4.2.4. Agreement Features

The agreement features are not lexical but syntactic (S, A, O); they have matching values (except for possible instances of semantic agreement on ablatives in causative / applicative clauses with intransitive base verbs), offering no choice in values.

19.4.2.5. Conditions

No conditions are attested.

In sum, SK participant agreement differs from canonical agreement in the following respects (C = criterion): C-8 it is opaque, since the agreement markers found on adjuncts differ from the markers on the controlling nominals; C-12 additional specifications for different subtypes of targets are required; C-14 agreement may be non-local given that same-subject markers on chained clauses are selected in accordance with the syntactic function of the matrix clause subject; C-15 the phenomenon at hand is the only domain of agreement in the language (transitivity agreement aside); and C-16 the feature is syntactic rather than lexical, i.e. the target is not marked in accordance with an inherent property of the controller but with respect to the specific grammatical relation it

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holds with other elements in a particular sentence. In addition, instances of what seems to be semantic agreement have been attested, C-17.

Although SK PA differs from canonical agreement in several respects, it may be said that what is probably its most salient feature has not been captured through the examination of these set of criteria; namely, the fact that we are dealing with instances of agreement on the "wrong place" or target (i.e. adjuncts), with no agreement whatsoever on the "right place" (i.e. NP constituents). Consequently, PA cannot be accounted for as an extension from the latter to the former.

19.5. Summary

In this chapter I have shown that in SK certain adjuncts receive a specific inflectional marking in correlation with the syntactic function of the participant they are predicated of. This controller may be a core argument of a simple sentence or the matrix clause subject of a complex sentence involving one or more chained clauses. Three basic agreement patterns have been identified, all three can be said to exhibit an overall tripartite distribution with overt markers for S- and A-agreement, and zero marking for O-agreement (when applicable). Also four basic adjunct types have been proposed based on the agreement patterns their members take; a fifth adjunct type is composed of those elements which cannot take PA morphology. Furthermore, a tentative correlation between these five adjunct types and varying degrees of participant-orientedness vs. event-orientedness has been offered.

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Finally, it has been shown that SK participant agreement differs in several respects from more canonical instances of agreement. But essentially PA represents an instance where a nominal controller determines the shape of adjunct elements without affecting the shape of its modifiers inside the noun phrase; i.e., a fairly unusual situation given that it constitutes the only domain of agreement in the language.

It has also been noted that SK participant agreement is opaque, although there is some evidence to claim that the agreement morphemes in question are to some extent related to case-markers. In fact, the markers *-xon* and *-kin* used for A-orientation exhibit the ending /n/ which is the basic form of the ergative case-marker. Furthermore, zero agreement on adjuncts codes O- and sometimes also S-agreement, and this coincides with absolutive case-marking being zero. However, the sequence *-xo* and the marker *-x* cannot be accounted for synchronically. Particularly problematic is the use of *-(a)x* for S-orientation, since S arguments in SK are zero-marked (except for the 1, 2, and 1p pronouns which take *-a*).

Relevant questions arising from the examination of the phenomenon at hand are: Why do adjuncts exhibit agreement when this feature is not found across the elements within the NP? Where do these agreement markers come from? How might this cross-linguistically uncommon feature have developed? Is PA shared by other Panoan languages? These questions will be addressed in the next chapter, where PA is examined from a comparative-historical perspective.

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CHAPTER 20

PARTICIPANT AGREEMENT IN PANOAN

Participant agreement might be the typologically most salient feature of Panoan grammar. In the present chapter I examine PA from a comparative and historical perspective in an attempt to unveil the nature of the markers involved, and propose a possible diachronic path along which this unusual feature might have developed. I will show that PA is present in the different branches of the Panoan Family and that the agreement markers are to be interpreted, diachronically, as sequences of peripheral cases plus core cases. The present analysis has very important consequences for the reconstruction of Proto-Pano: it demonstrates that PA was most probably a feature of the Proto-language, and posits the existence of a tripartite case-marking system in some areas of its grammar. In so doing, a handful of new grammatical proto-morphemes are reconstructed, thus adding to the pioneering work by Olive Shell (1965 / 1975).

Given the comparative nature of the present chapter, I resort to data from a number of selected Panoan languages whose phonological inventories may differ from that of SK in significant ways. Therefore, a unified transcription closely resembling IPA is employed in the following sections.

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20.1. Panoan Languages

The Panoan family comprises some 28 languages (that used to be) spoken in the neighboring Amazonian regions of Peru, Brazil, and Bolivia. The list below includes some essential positive and negative features of Panoan grammar; features (d)-(i) will prove particularly relevant to the present discussion:

(a) AOV / SV basic constituent order.

(b) Dominantly agglutinative morphology with some polysynthetic tendency in the verb.

(c) Exclusive use of suffixes (but body-part "prefixes") and postpositions.

(d) Absence of cognate, well developed cross-referential pronominal marking on the verb or auxiliary.

(e) Absence of adnominal agreement of any sort.

(f) Ergative alignments with different kinds of splits.

(g) Syncretism / polyfunctionality involving the ergative, instrumental, genitive, and other oblique cases.

(h) Tendency of case-markers to occur only once, on the last NP element.

(i) Use of clause-chaining and a fairly complex switch-reference system.

The present study relies primarily on data from Chakobo, Yaminawa, Amawaka, Shipibo-Konibo, Kashibo-Kakataibo, and Matses. These languages are representative of the different branches of the Panoan Family (see section 1.5). Table 20.1 summarizes

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information regarding the location and approximate number of speakers of the languages selected (demographic information is not always updated).

Table 20.1. Languages Included in the Study

Branches	Languages	Abbrev.	Population / Location (Erikson et alia 1994, Grimes 1996, others)
Southern	Chakobo	CH	ca. 850; Dpto. Beni (Bolivia).
	Pakawara	PW	1 family? Living among the Chakobo.
Purus	Yaminawa	YN	1,200-1,600 Dptos. Ucayali, Madre de Dios (Peru), Estado Acre (Brazil), Dpto. Pando (Bolivia).
	Amawaka	AM	ca. 500? Dpto. Ucayali (Peru), 220 (Brazil).
Ucayali	Shipibo-Konibo	SK	ca. 30,000; Dptos.Ucayali, Loreto, Huánuco (Peru).
Western	Kashibo-Kakataibo	KK	ca. 1,200; Dptos. Ucayali, Huánuco (Peru).
Northern	Matses	MTS	ca. 1,000 Dpto. Loreto (Peru), ca. 600 Estado Amazonas Brazil.

A couple of clarifications regarding the selection of languages are in order. First, I have not included any language from the South Western branch of Panoan, since no relevant data from any of them are available. Secondly, I have opted for representing Yaminawa

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and Amawaka separately. Although both languages may be classified under the same "Purus" branch, they exhibit crucial differences with respect to case-marking alignment. Data from additional languages are also included especially in the reconstruction of proto-morphemes and discussion on case-marking. The sources from which the data have been taken are indicated in each case. With the exception of Sparing-Chávez's (1998) article on Amawaka, the original sources do not provide glossed examples; therefore, the glosses offered here are based on my own interpretation of the grammatical information available in the same or other sources and are to some extent provisional; this, however, does not affect the points under discussion.

20.2. Interclausal Participant Agreement and the Panoan Switch-Reference System

The discussion in the present section is restricted to those constructions containing reference-marked clauses that exhibit PA. This requirement is met by most same-subject marked clauses. The corresponding morphemes are shown in Table 20.2 below.

20.2.1. Panoan Same-Subject Markers

All Panoan languages under discussion exhibit obvious similarities in terms of same-subject markers and the participant agreement system in general. Furthermore, the inflectional markers in question are cognate across the different sister languages.

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All the morphemes in Table 20.2 encode subject coreferentiality. In addition, the markers under columns 1 and 2 are used when the event in the dependent clause is viewed as prior to that in the matrix clause; *-aʂ* indicates the adjunct clause has an S controller (and thus coincides with a matrix intransitive verb), whereas *-ʂon* marks the adjunct clause as A-controlled (and thus co-occurs with a transitive matrix verb). Columns 3 and 4 contain the markers corresponding to simultaneous events; again, the distribution of these markers depends on the syntactic function of the controller in the matrix clause, and this in turn correlates with the transitivity status of the matrix verb. Finally, under columns 5 and 6 are grouped the markers corresponding to subsequent or following events, S- and A-controlled.

Table 20.2. Panoan Same-Subject Markers Exhibiting Participant Agreement

	1	2	3	4	5	6
Language	Previous Events		Simultaneous Events		Following Events	
	S	A	S	A	S	A
Chakobo	*-aʂ / -aʂ na*	*-ʂo / -ʂo na*	*-i ~ -ʔi*	*-ki / ki na*		
Yaminawa	*-aʂ*	*-ʂõ*	*-i*	*-kĩ*		
Amawaka	*-ʔax*	*-xon*	*-ʔi*	*-kin*	*-katzi -xanʔni*	*-xanʔkin*
SK	*-aʂ*	*-ʂon*	*-i*	*-kin*	*-noʂ*	*-noʂon*
Kashibo-Kakataibo	*-ʂ*	*-ʂun*	*-i/-i*	*-kin*		
Matses	*-aʃ*	*-ʃun ~ -ʃon*	*-eʔ*	*-kin*	*-noeʔ/ -nuʃ*	*-nuen / -nun*

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The following are some phonological correspondences between Proto-Panoan and the daughter languages (see also Shell 1975): *ʂ has the reflexes /ʂ/ in Chakobo, Yaminawa, SK, and Kashibo-Kakataibo; /x/ in Amawaka;[1] and /ʃ/ in Matses. A characteristic of Chakobo is the probable loss of /n/ or nasalization on the markers indicating A-orientation or control (i.e., those under columns 2 and 4). As for vowels, *i exhibits the reflexes /i/ and /e/ in Matses, and *o has the reflexes /o/ and /u/ in Matses and Kashibo-Kakataibo.

From Table 20.2 one can generalize that the markers coding A-orientation (columns 2, 4, and 6) end in nasalization or /n/; Chakobo (and Pakawara, a second Southern language) constitutes the exception to this generalization, in accordance with the phonological innovation proposed above. In contrast, the markers coding S-orientation end in /ʂ/ or /i/ (or their reflexes). Note also that the Kashibo-Kakataibo PSSA marker in column 1 is simply -*ʂ* instead of -*aʂ*.

In the following sections I show how participant agreement operates in same-subject marked clauses drawing on examples from the different languages. The languages selected are typical for the illustrated behavior, unless otherwise specified. Although the SK participant agreement system has been dealt with in the previous chapter, examples from this language have been included to facilitate comparison.

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[1] Sparing-Chávez (1998:477) indicates that in her transcription <x> is used for [x] and [ç] while <tz> stands for [ts] and [tθ]. However, I do not know whether both possibilities occur in the morphemes in question, and therefore I have opted for keeping the symbols provided in the source.

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20.2.1.1. Marked Clause Codes Previous Event

The examples in this section illustrate the use of previous same-subject marking with S and A controllers, in the languages selected.

Southern Pano: Chakobo (Zingg 1998)

Chakobo is peculiar in that same-subject markers exhibit shorter and longer alternate forms, depending on whether the marked clause precedes or follows its matrix clause. The shorter version is used when the marked clause is prior to its matrix as in the (a) examples, whereas the longer version occurs when the marked clause follows its matrix as in the (b) examples. (Note in (1a-b) that the locative 'in the hammock' also exhibits longer and shorter forms, depending on its relative position with respect to the verb.)

(1) a. [kaʔɨʔ-*aʂ*] tsi ha oʂa-kɨ niʃí no.
arrive-PSSS PRTCL 3 sleep-CMPL hammock:LOC.long

b. niʃí tsi ha oʂa-kɨ [kaʔɨʔ-*aʂ* na.]
hammock:LOC PRTCL 3 sleep-CMPL arrive-PSSS.long
'He slept in the hammock [after having arrived].' (p. 31)

(2) a. [pi-*ʂo*] tsi hawɨ poroma ha kɨno-kɨ.
eat-PSSA PRTCL POS3 ax 3 sharpen-CMPL

b. poroma ha kɨno-kɨ [pi-*ʂo* na].
ax 3 sharpen-CMPL eat-PSSA.long
'[After having eaten] he sharpened his ax.' (p. 31)

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Purus Pano1: Yaminawa (Eakin 1991)

(3) [mã pi-*aʂ*] nõ ka-i.
already eat-PSSS 1:NOM go-INC
'After having eaten, we'll go.' (p. 124)

(4) [ʂoo mɨ̃ra tsao-*ʂõ*] ɨ̃ koma oĩta.
bench in sit-PSSA 1:NOM perdiz:ABS saw
'After sitting on the bench, I saw a partridge yesterday.' (p. 124)

Purus Pano 2: Amawaka (Sparing-Chávez 1998)

(5) [jantan ʔoro-*ʔax*]-mɨn hatzanamɨ-ɨ-jama-ʃin-kɨ-ʔnɨ.
late cultivate-PSSS-TH get.tired-REFL-NEG-1-3days.ago-1PST-DECL
'Cultivating till late yesterday, I didn't get tired. / Although I cultivated till late yesterday, I didn't get tired.' (p. 457)

(6) [niʔii ka-*xon*]-mɨn ʔɨn ʔaa rɨtɨ-kɨ-ʔnɨ.
woods go-PSSA-TH I tapir kill-1PST-DECL
'Having gone hunting, I killed a tapir./ I went hunting and killed a tapir.' (p. 458)

Ucayali Pano: Shipibo-Konibo (Valenzuela 1997)

The following examples have been given in Chapter 9 as (1a)-(1b).

(7) nokon papa-ra [wai mɨno-*aʂ*] katʃio ka-kɨ.
POS1 father:ABS-EV garden burn-PSSS to.the.forest go-CMPL
'My father, after burning the garden, went to the forest.'

(8) nokon papa-n-ra [wai mɨno-*ʂon*] atsa ʃana-kɨ.
POS1 father-ERG-EV garden burn-PSSA yuca:ABS sow-CMPL
'My father, after burning the garden, sowed the yuca.'

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Western Pano: Kashibo-Kakataibo (Wistrand 1969)

(9) [aa-ʂ kwan-*ʂ*]-βi ka-ísa nɨtɨ-akɨʂin.
3-S go-PSSS-EM PRTCL:3-HSY disappear-REM.PST:3:dialogue
'He went away but disappeared.' (p. 166)

(10) [βi-*ʂun*] kaa piti ʔikɨn.
get-PSSA PRTCL:3 food eat?
'He takes it and (then) will eat it!' (p. 166)

Northern Pano: Matses (Kneeland 1979)

(11) [pi-*aʃ*] uʃ-eβi.
eat-PSSS sleep-1:S
'After having eaten, I will sleep.' (p. 105)

(12) [ɨnapen nid-*ʃun*] anseme-p-omβi.
far go-PSSA fish.w/hook-EM-REC.PST:1:A
'After having gone far, I fished a lot (with hook).' (p. 106)

20.2.1.2. Marked Clause Codes Simultaneous Event

The following complex sentences involve dependent clauses whose events are presented as simultaneous or overlapping with respect to the events depicted by the matrix clause.

Southern Pano: Chakobo (Zingg 1998)

(13) [tʃama-jama-*ʔi*] tsi ha mɨmɨ-mɨmɨ-kɨ.
strength.having-NEG-SSSS PRTCL 3 tremble-tremble-CMPL
'Not having the strength, he trembled.' (p. 31)

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(14) [tʃama-jama-*kĩ*] tsi ha tɨro-jama-kɨ.
having.strength-NEG-SSSA PRTCL 3 lift-NEG-CMPL
'Not having the strength, he did not lift it.' (p. 30)

Purus Pano 1: Yaminawa (Eakin 1991)

(15) [mɨ̃ o-*i*] pakɨ-a.
already:1:NOM come-SSSS fall-CMPL
'When I was coming, I fell.' (p. 124)

(16) [ka-*kĩ*] nõ ʂafɨ fich-ita.
go-SSSA 1p:NOM tortoise:ABS find-yesterday.PST:CMPL
'While we were going, we found a tortoise.' (p. 124)

Purus Pano 2: Amawaka (Sparing-Chávez 1998)

(17) [hii rɨra-rɨra-*ʔi*]-mɨn han pakɨɨ-xo-ʔnɨ
tree fell-fell-SSSS-TH he fall-3PAST-DECL
'[While cutting down trees], he fell.' (p. 460)

(18) [hiri-*kin*]-mɨn non hato ninkaa-kɨ-ʔnɨ.
eat-SSSA-TH we them hear-1PAST-DECL
'[While eating], we heard them.' (p. 460)

Ucayali Pano: Shipibo-Konibo (Valenzuela 1997)

(19) [karo βɨna-*i*]-ra pakɨ̂-kɨ.
firewood search-SSSS-EV drop:DTRNZ-CMPL
'While s/he was looking for firewood, s/he fell.'

(20) [karo βɨna-*kin*]-ra rono mɨra-kɨ.
firewood search-SSSA-EV snake:ABS meet-CMPL
'While s/he was looking for firewood, s/he found a snake.'

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Western Pano: Kashibo-Kakataibo (Wistrand 1969)

When followed by a verb of motion, the marker *-i* indicates purpose or future action in Kashibo-Kakataibo and other Panoan languages:

(21) [ka-na kwan-*i*] kwan-in.
PRTCL-1 go-SSSS go-PRES
'I am going (to one place) to go (from there to another place).' Lit.: 'going I go' (p.166)

(22) [kwan-*kin*] kaa isa-kɨɨʂin.
go-SSSA PRTCL:3 see-REM:PST:3:dialogue
'While he was going, he saw.' (p.166)

Northern Pano: Matses (Kneeland 1979)

The Matses sentence below contains three overlapping events. The verb form 'eating' depends on another same-reference marked but intransitive verb, i.e. 'sit;' in turn, 'sitting' is dependent on the transitive clause 'I saw it:'

(23) [[p-*eʔ*] tsad-*kin*] is-omβi.
eat-SSSS sit-SSSA see-REC.PST:1:A
'While I was eating sitting, I saw (it).' (p. 87)

20.2.1.3. Marked Clause Codes Subsequent Events

Finally, the examples below illustrate instances where the event in the marked-clause is viewed as following the event depicted by its matrix. Not all languages exhibit this set of "following same-subject markers;" in some instances this absence may be due to lack of

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adequate description (e.g., although not listed in Table 20.2, Prost (1965:95) registers the morpheme *-noʂ* in Chakobo and translates it as 'before').

Ucayali Pano: Shipibo-Konibo

(24) [[mi-a ʃi-i] ho-*noʂ*]-ʃi-ra papa ʂatɨ̂-iʃa-kɨ.
2-ABS get-SSSS come-FSSS-EM-EV father:ABS cut:MID-PST2-CMPL
'Right before coming to get you, father cut himself.'

(25) [[mi-a ʃi-i] ho-*no(n)ʂon*]-pari-ra papa-n hiwi rɨra-kɨ.
2-ABS get-SSSS come-FSSA-first-EV father-ERG tree:ABS fell-CMPL
'Before coming to get you, father cut down a / the tree.'

Northern Pano: Matses (Kneeland 1979)

Matses has two sets of "following same-subject" markers: *-nuʃ* versus *-nun* and *nueʔ* versus *-nuen*:

(26) [nid-*nuʃ*] uʃ-eʃi.
go-FSSS sleep-1:S
'I will sleep, [before leaving].' (p. 128)

Note that differently from SK (ex. 25) the FSSA marker in the example below lacks the sequence *-ʂon*:

(27) [ʃuʃu ua-*nun*] aiaʃ tɨs-eʔ nid-o-ʃ.
house make-FSSA vine:ABS pull.away-SSSS go-REC.PST-3
'[Before building the house], he went to pull the vines away.' (p. 128)

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The FSSS marker below is a combination of *-nu* + *-eʔ*, the latter being formally identical to the SSSS morpheme illustrated in ex. (23):

(28) tʃɨʃɨid se-*nueʔ* nid-o-ʃ.
spidermonkey:ABS pinch-FSSS go-REC.PST-3
'He went to shoot a spidermonkey (with arrow).' (p. 129)

(29) tʃɨʃɨid se-*nuen* pia ua-o-ʃ.
spidermonkey:ABS pinch-FSSA arrow:ABS make-REC.PST-3
'Before shooting the spidermonkey, he[2] made arrows.' (p. 129)

Purus Pano 2: Amawaka (Sparing-Chávez 1998)

Also Amawaka has two FSSS markers, *-katzi* and *-xanʔni*; most probably, both end in the SSSS marker *-i* illustrated in ex. (17). In turn, *-xanʔni* contrasts with the A-oriented *-xanʔkin* in ex. (32) which carries the SSSA marker *-kin*, previously illustrated in (18):

(30) [hiri-*katzi*]-mɨn naʃi-ʔi ka-ʔi ʔɨn-ʔka-nɨ
eat-FSSS-TH bathe-PRES go-PRES 1-1ACT-DECL
'I am going to bathe, and then I will eat.' (p. 462)

(31) [[mapoki ka-ʂon] miʃki-*xanʔni*]-mɨn ka-ʔi ʔɨn-ʔkai.
downriver go-PSSA fish-FSSS-TH go-PRES 1-1ACT.DECL
'I am going fishing downriver.' (Lit.: 'Having gone downriver in order to fish I am going.') (p. 462)

(32) [tʃiʔi pima-*xanʔkin*]-ko-mɨn karo xatɨ-xan.
fire light-FSSA-SUG-TH wood chop-IMMFUT
'Chop wood to make a fire.' / 'Chop wood and make a fire.' (p. 462)

---

[2] Given that the verb ending *-ʃ* is a third person marker, I have slightly modified Kneeland's translation which reads "*Antes de flechar al maquisapa, hice flechas*". 'Before shooting the spidermonkey (with arrow), I made arrows.'

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In sum, Amawaka following same-subject markers exhibit the endings /i/ and /kin/, which coincide with the same-subject markers for simultaneous events. Hence, it can be said this language did not develop dedicated participant agreement morphology for following events.

20.2.2. Different-Subject Markers

While participant agreement is a characteristic of same-subject marked clauses in all the languages surveyed, only Kashibo-Kakataibo exhibits this feature on the different-subject counterparts. The corresponding markers are shown on Table 20.3. Note that only the morphemes in the first two columns carry the inflections *-ʂ* and *-ʂun*, also present in same-subject markers. On the other hand, the sequences /ʃɨ/ and /ʃɨtan/ are identical to the alternate comitative forms found in the different languages (see exx. (75)-(85)).

Table 20.3. Different-Subject Markers in Kashibo-Kakataibo (Wistrand 1969)

Previous Event Different-Subject S-orientation	Previous event Different-Subject A-orientation	Simultaneous Event Different-Subject S-orientation	Simultaneous Event Different-Subject A-orientation
-kɨʂ	*-kɨʂun*	*-kɨʃɨ*	*-kɨʃɨtan*

The following examples (taken from Wistrand 1969) illustrate Kashibo-Kakataibo different-subject markers:

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(33) [ʔa-kɨʂ]-βi ka-ísa ina-ñu ʔi-akɨʂa.
do.T-PDSS-EM PRTCL-HSY tail-PROP be-REM.PST:3:monologue
'He made them, but they had tails.' (p. 167)

(34) [ka-kɨʂun] ka-ísa ka-akɨʂa...
tell-PDSA PRTCL-HSY tell-REM.PST:3:monologue
'He$_i$ said, (then) he$_j$ said... (p. 167)

(35) [kwain-kɨβɨ] ka-ísa aa-bɨ-iʃi tiiki-akɨʂa.
circle-SDSS PRTCL:3-HSY 3-COM-? stay?-REM.PST:3:monologue
'As he$_i$ circled around, he$_j$ just stayed with him$_i$.' (p. 167)

(36) [pɨkara-kɨβɨtan] kaa is-akɨʂin.
become.light?-SDSA PRTCL:3 see-REM.PST:3:dialogue
'When it was light, he saw.' (p. 167)

20.2.3. Interclausal Participant Agreement in Panoan: Conclusion

I have shown that all the languages selected exhibit PA on same-subject marked clauses encoding an event which is viewed as prior or simultaneous with respect to the event in the matrix clause (the simultaneous events set is missing in the Ucayali Pano language Kapanawa, according to Loos 1999). SK, Matses, and Amawaka have developed specific same-subject markers for subsequent events; however, structurally, Amawaka and partially Matses employ morphology which includes the same agreement markers attested in simultaneous events. The SK FSSA morpheme and one of the corresponding markers in Matses differ in that the former takes the additional sequence /ʂon/; i.e., Matses *-nun* as opposed to SK *-no(n)ʂon*.

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Kashibo-Kakataibo is the only language exhibiting agreement on different-subject markers; most likely this characteristic represents an independent innovation in KK, rather than a feature that became lost in the sister languages. Only the different-subject markers for previous events exhibit the relevant inflection in KK, while simultaneous different-subject markers receive comitative case to be examined below.

20.3. Intraclausal Participant Agreement

In monoclausal constructions PA can be found on locative-allative, ablative, reason, affective, manner, and comitative adjuncts. Possibly PA is systematically found on other adjunct types too (e.g., life-stage); however, at present these data are not available. As for time adjuncts, these are not generally sensitive to the feature described here (but cf. exx. (86) and (87)). Unfortunately, previous studies focusing on PA in monoclausal constructions in Panoan languages are non-existent; hence, it is not possible to illustrate every particular type of intraclausal PA through an example from each language.

20.3.1. Locative-Allative

As was shown for SK, locative-allative expressions are unmarked when S- or O-oriented but take the additional marker *-ʂon* or a cognate form when A-oriented. Examples illustrating alternate agreements such as those provided for SK in sentences (29), (30), and (33) of the preceding chapter are not available for other languages.

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Southern Pano: Pakawara (East and East, ms.)

Being closely related to Chakobo, Pakawara also lacks /n/ or nasalization on the A-agreement markers. The next examples illustrate the interrogative pronoun 'where' exhibiting S- vs. A-orientation in intransitive vs. transitive clauses, respectively:

(37) *hawɨra* oʂa ʔaiʔ?
where:S sleep-INC:INT
'Where do you sleep?'

(38) *hawɨra* kaʔai?
where:S go-INC:INT
'Where are you going?'

(39) *hawɨra ʂo* piʔaiʔ?
where A eat-INC:INT
'Where do you eat?'

Purus Pano 1: Yaminawa (Eakin 1991)

(40) *ono* ɨfɨ kanõa.
there (distal):S POS1 canoe:ABS
'My canoe is there.' (p. 87)

(41) na paʂta na pɨʂɨ *namã-ʂõ* pi-i.
this dog:ABS this house under-A eat-INC
'The dog being under the house eats.' (p. 89)

The Spanish translation provided by Eakin for the locative expression in (41) contains the verb form 'being' and is thus clausal. Eakin's choice might be based on the fact that

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Yaminawa copular constructions lack an overt copula element, as can be seen in ex. (40) (but cf. the SK and KK examples (42) and (44)).

Ucayali Pano: Shipibo-Konibo

(42) winti-ra *ßiʃßon* iki.
paddle:ABS-EV in.the.front:S COP
'The paddle is in the front.'

(43) Sankɨman-ra *ßiʃßon-ʂon* atsa ʂɨati ʂɨa-i.
Sanken:ERG-EV in.the.front-A yuca drink:ABS drink-INC
'Sanken is drinking yuca beer in the front (row).'

Western Pano: Kashibo-Kakataibo (Wistrand 1969)

(44) motora kaa *ßaka-nu* ʔi-aʂin
motorboat PRTCL:3 river-LOC:S be-REC.PST:3
'There was a motorboat at the river.' (p. 153)

(45) papa-n kaa *aa-nu-ʂun* piɨʂanʂin.
father-A PRTCL:3 that-LOC-A ate
'Father ate there.' (p. 153)

Northern Pano: Matses (Kneeland 1979)

(46) *umanuʔ* matses taßad-p-o-ʃ.
outside:S people:ABS sit/live/be(many)-EM-REC.PST-3
'The people were outside.' (p. 74)

(47) *umanuʔ-ʃun* p-enda.
outside-A eat-PROH
'Don't eat it outside.' (p. 74)

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20.3.2. Ablative

As shown for SK in sections 19.2.2.1 and 19.2.2.2 (see also exx. (52) and (53) below), ablatives in the sister languages overtly mark S-orientation; O-orientation is zero marked, while overt A-orientation can only be coded through a locative construction. However, there are peculiarities in Chakobo and Matses that will be pointed out when discussing the relevant examples.

Purus Pano 1: Yaminawa (Eakin 1991)

(48) *fanĩ-a-ʂ* mĩ o-i-mɨ̃?
where-ABL-S 2:NOM come-INC-INT
'Where do you come from? (p. 73)

(49) *manãkiri-no-a-ʂ* ɨ̃ o-a.
up.the.river-LOC-ABL-S 1:NOM come-CMPL
'I came from up the river.' (p. 73)

Diachronically, *manãkiri-no-a-ʂ* consists of a nominal root *manã* 'hill' to which five different case-markers have been added: *-ki* locative + *-ri* 'towards / about' + *-no* locative + *-a* ablative and, as will be shown later, *-ʂ* intransitive subject marker.

(50) *fanĩ-a* mĩ fɨ-a-mɨ̃?
where-ABL:O 2:NOM bring-CMPL-INT
'From where did you bring it?' p. (74)

(51) *manãkiri-no-a* ɨ̃ fɨ-a.
up.the.river-LOC-ABL:O 1:NOM bring-CMPL
'I brought it from up the river.' (p. 74)

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Ucayali Pano: Shipibo-Konibo

(52) ha-ra *ßißomɨa-ʂ* ho-kɨ.
3:ABS-EV in.the.front:ABL-S come-CMPL
'He came from the front (row).'

(53) mɨrája-nin-ronki *naikamɨa* jawa ßɨ-ʂon-kɨ.
great.shaman-ERG-HSY sky:LOC:ABL:O w.l.peccary:ABS bring-BEN-CMPL
'The great shaman brought the white-lipped peccaries from the sky (for us).'

Western Pano: Kashibo-Kakataibo (Wistrand 1969)

(54) *ɨɨ-nu-a-ʂ* kwan-in
PROX-LOC-ABL-S go-PRES
'goes from here' (p. 152)

(55) *ʂußu-nu-a-ʂ* aßat-in
house-LOC-ABL-S run-PRES
'runs from the house' (p. 152)

There are instances like (56) where an ablative structure is used to code S-orientation, even though no locational movement seems to be involved; in these instances, the function of the ablative structure may simply be to allow for overt S-agreement to take place (also recall the SK exx. (27)-(28) given in the previous chapter):

(56) ka-nanuna *ßaka-nu-a-ʂ* kwa-in.
PRTCL-1p river-LOC-ABL-S play-PRES
'We play at the river.' Lit. 'We play from at the river.' (p. 160)

Unfortunately, I have not been able to come upon a Kashibo-Kakataibo example containing an ablative adjunct as part of a simple transitive clause.

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Southern Pano: Chakobo

Chakobo differs from the languages treated above in that in transitive clauses the expression corresponding to the ablative in the English translation carries the marker *ʂo* (see also the Matses examples involving transitive clauses below). One possibility is to interpret this marker as playing an ablative function; in this case, the adjunct would exhibit no overt agreement. A second posibility is to interpret *ʂo* as the A-orientation marker (as is the case in other Chakobo constructions and in Panoan in general); however, under this second analysis the ablative or locative meaning would remain unmarked (observe in the Chakobo example (1b) that the locative case in 'hammock' is indicated through stress / tone only; i.e., *niʃi* 'hammock' vs. *niʃí* 'in the hammock.' However, no stress / tone specification is given for garden in ex. (58)):

(57) a. nɨ-a *aʂ*
PROX-ABL S

b. nɨ-a-na *aʂ* na
PROX-ABL-long S.long
'from here' (most probably in combination with an intransitive verb)
(Zingg 1998:344)

(58) a. wai *ʂo* tsi karo ʃi-kia.
garden ? PRTCL firewood take.out-INC:1

b. karo ʃi-kia wai *ʂo* na.
firewood take.out-INC:1 garden ?.long
'I obtain firewood from my garden.' (Zingg 1998:26)

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Northern Pano: Matses (Kneeland 1979)

A peculiarity of Matses transitive clauses is that the adjunct corresponding to the ablative in the English translation is structurally a locative carrying the corresponding morpheme *-no*. As expected from locatives, *tied-no* bears the A-orientation marker *-ʃon* in this context. At least from a comparative viewpoint the ablative function in Matses combines the S-marked ablative and the A-marked locative forms:

(59) aton tied-no-ɨ-ʃ tʃo-eʔ.
POS3 chacra-LOC-ABL-S come-N.PST:3
'He comes from his chacra.' (p.1)

(60) tied-no-ʃon patʃid βɨ-oʃ.
chacra-LOC-A yuca:ABS bring-REC.PST:3
'S/he brought yuca from the chacra.' (p.35)

Also the morpheme *-mi*, indicating general or approximate location / direction, takes overt S- or A-agreement, combining structurally ablative and locative forms:

(61) taɨ-mioɨʃ tʃo-ʃ.
foot-LOC:ABL:S come-REC.PST:3
'He came from downriver.' (Kneeland 1979:110)

(62) taɨ-mi-ʃun ʃɨkten βɨ-oʃ.
foot-LOC-A peccary bring-REC.PST:3
'He brought peccary from downriver.' (Kneeland 1979:110)

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Therefore, the structurally ablative and locative Matses constructions in (59)-(62) overtly signal both S- and A-orientation overtly.

20.3.3. Reason

Reason adjuncts may exhibit both S- and A-orientation agreement. Consider the following Chakobo examples where the interrogative *hɨni* occurs with *-ʔaʂ* and *-ʂo* (see also the sentences illustrating SK *hawɨ keskat* 'how, why' in examples (66)-(71) in Chapter 19, as well as examples (69)-(70) below):

Southern Pano: Chakobo (Zingg 1998:42)

(63) hɨni-*ʔaʂ* tsi mi ho-ʔa?
why-S PRTCL 2 come-CMPL
'Why did you come?'

(64) hɨni-*ʂo* ʂoβo a-jama-ʔai?
why-A house do.T-NEG-INC:INT
'Why don't you build a house?'

20.3.4. Affective

Participant agreement morphology may occur on complements of interest which in these instances play a benefactive or malefactive function. This type of PA has been attested

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so far in Yaminawa and SK only. Actually, these constructions were first identified in Yaminawa (Valenzuela 2000c) and later obtained for SK through elicitation only.

Purus Pano 1: Yaminawa (Eakin 1991)

(65) ɨfã ɨ-õ-no-a-ʂ ratɨ-a....
mother:ERG 1-INTRSS-LOC-ABL:S fear-CMPL
'Mother feared for me...' (p. 111)

(66) ɨ~ a-õ-ʂõ tãp-i.
1:NOM 3-INTRSS-A learn-INC
'I am learning for him.' ('learn' is transitive in Yaminawa) (p. 111)

Ucayali Pano: Shipibo-Konibo (given in Ch. 19 as examples (39) and (41)):

(67) ha-ra ɨ-on-mɨa-*ʂ*-ʃi wano-kɨ. *ɨonʃi
3:ABS-EV 1-INTRSS-LOC:ABL-S-EM marry-CMPL
'He got married in spite of being with me.' (woman speaking)

(68) mi-on-*ʂon* ʃakɨ-n kinan-kɨ. *mion
2-INTRSS-A niño:ERG vomit-CMPL
'The boy threw up despite being under your care.'

20.3.5. Manner and Quantitiy

Manner and quantity adjuncts also show overt S- and A-orientation agreement.

Southern Pano: Chakobo (Zingg 1998)

(69) hɨnawa-*ʔaʂ* ʃakɨ pistia koʔa?
how-S child small be.born-CMPL
'How was the baby born?' (p. 43)

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(70) hɨnawa-*ʂo* marakati mi ak-á?
how-A roof 2 make-CMPL
'How did you make the roof?' (p. 43)

Northern Pano: Matses (Kneeland 1979)

(71) daɨd-daɨd-*eʔ* tʃo-ʃ.
two-two-S come-REC.PST:3
'They came in groups of two.' (p. 110)

(72) daɨd-daɨd-*en* tʃɨ!
two-two-A eat:IMP
'Eat them in groups of two.' (p. 110)

The numerals above exhibit SSS endings (see also the SK sentences (99)-(102) in Chapter 19, which involve the numeral *kimisha* 'three').

Ucayali Pano: Shipibo-Konibo

(73) ha-ská-kɨ-tian, hatik-*aʂ*-βi βo-kan-a iki, nɨɨt-i.
that-SIML-P-DS altogether-S-EM go.n.SG-PL-PP2 AUX go.up-SSSS
'Then, they started to go up altogether.' (Valenzuela 1999:362)

(74) hain-ʂon-ronki nami joá a-káti-kan-ai hatí-*ʂon*-βi pi-ti.
there-PDCA-HSY meat:ABS cook-PST4-PL-INC altogether-A-EM eat-INF
'Then they cooked the meat in order to eat altogether.' (Valenzuela 1999:362)

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20.3.6. Comitative

All languages except for SK exhibit distinct S- vs. A-orientation comitative forms. By contrast, SK comitatives have a syntactic distinction between pronouns and nouns. Chakobo combines both parameters; i.e., participant agreement and the pronoun versus noun distinction. Note that only the Chakobo A-oriented forms carry an ending that is cognate with the agreement markers found on other adjuncts; i.e., *ʂo*.

Table 20.4. Distribution of Comitatives in Chakobo, Yaminawa, Kashibo-Kakataibo and Shipibo-Konibo

	Pronoun S-Orientation	Noun S-Orientation	Pronoun A-Orientation	Noun A-Orientation
CH	*ɸɨta*	*ja*	*ɸɨtaʂo / ɸɨtaʂo na*	*jaʂo /jaʂo na*
YN	*fɨ*	*fɨ*	*fɨta*	*fɨta*
KK	*-ɸɨ*	*-ɸɨ*	*-ɸɨtan*	*-ɸɨtan*
SK	*-ɸɨ*	*-ɸɨtan*	*-ɸɨ*	*-ɸɨtan*

Only the comitative forms exhibiting participant agreement are illustrated below.

Southern Pano: Chakobo

Pronouns with S-orientation vs. Pronouns with A-orientation (Zingg 1998:27)

(75) ka-kia ha *ɸɨta.*
go-INC:1 3 COM:S
'I go with him.'

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(76) a. no *βɨta-ʂo* ʂɨki tima-ki.
1p COM-A maize grind-INC
'He grinds maize with us.'

b. ʂɨki tima-ki no *βɨta-ʂo* na.
maize grind-INC 1p COM-A.long
'He grinds maize with us.'

Nouns with S-orientation vs. Nouns with A-orientation (Zingg 1998:27-28)

(77) papa *ja* ha ka-kɨ.
father COM:S 3 go-CMPL
'He left with his father.'

(78) a. Kako *ja-ʂo* tsi wai patsa-ki.
Caco COM-A PRTCL garden slash-INC
'He slashes the garden with Caco.'

b. wai patsa-ki Kako *ja-ʂo* na.
garden slash-INC Caco COM-A.long
'He slashes the garden with Caco.'

Purus Pano 1: Yaminawa (Eakin 1991)

(79) afɨ paʂta-fi otʃi *fi* katanañi.
POS3 dog:ABS-EM older.brother COM:S went
'His dog also went with the older brother.' (p. 68)

(80) ɲ̃ɨ ania *fɨta* pi-i.
1:NOM same.sex.sibling.in.law COM:A eat-INC
'I am eating with my brother in law.' (man speaking) (p. 68)

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Western Pano: Kashibo-Kakataibo (Wistrand 1969)

(81) aa-*ʃɨtan* ka-na ʔa-in.
3-COM:A DECL-1 do.T-PRES
'I am doing it with him.' (p. 154)

(82) mii-*ʃɨ* kaa kwan-kas-in.
2-COM:S DECL:3 go:DES-PRES
'He wants to go with you.' (p. 154)

Finally, Matses is the only documented instance of a Panoan language in which comitatives operate on a tripartite basis (according to the data in Kneeland 1979):

Table 20.5. Comitatives in Matses

	A	S	O
Matses	-ʃɨdtan	-ʃɨd	-ʃɨdta

Northern Pano: Matses

(83) kon tʃu-*ʃɨdtan* pachid ʃe-omʃi. A
POS1 sister-COM:A yuca bring-PST:1
'I brought yuca with my sister.' (p. 33)

(84) kon tʃu-*ʃɨd* nes-oʃi. S
POS1 sister-COM:S bathe-PST:1
'I bathed with my sister.' (p. 33)

(85) kon ku-*ʃɨdta* kon tʃu is-omʃi. O
POS1 uncle-COM:O POS1 sister see:PST:1
'I saw my uncle and my sister.' (p. 33)

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In sum, although comitatives exhibit agreement in most of the languages, only Chakobo possesses agreement markers that are cognate with those found on other adjunct types. Also, recall that Kashibo-Kakataibo simultaneous different-subject markers are based on comitative forms (20.2.2). SK exhibits no participant agreement on comitatives.

20.3.7. Temporal

The only attested instance of participant agreement on temporal expressions involves the Matses elements *aβadiadaʃ ~ aβadiadʃun* translated by Keeland (1979) as 'the day after tomorrow.' Note that both forms carry overt agreement markers:

(86) *aβadiad-aʃ* tʃo-eβi.
day.after.tomorrow-S come-1:S
'I will come the day after tomorrow.' (p. 205)

(87) *aβadiad-ʃun* βɨ.
day.after.tomorrow-A bring:IMP
'Bring it the day after tomorrow.' (p.205)

Possibly the diachronic source for this expression is not temporal.

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20.3.8. Participant Agreement in Panoan: Conclusions

Two important conclusions can be drawn from the comparative survey provided above. First, PA at the intraclausal and interclausal levels is present in languages pertaining to the different branches of the Panoan Family. Therefore, it seems secure to posit this feature as part of the grammar of the Proto-language.

Secondly, the agreement markers have the same or a very similar form in all sister languages; generally, the markers found on non-clausal adjuncts are the same as the same-subject morphemes. Furthermore, the overall distribution exhibits a tripartite pattern: markers coding A-orientation end in nasalization or /n/ (except in the Southern languages); the markers coding S-orientation end in /ʂ/ or /i/, or their cognates; and O-orientation, when applicable, is zero-marked.

The following peculiarities have also been observed: same-subject markers on chained clauses depicting following events exhibit more variation across the sister languages that have developed them; PA on different-subject morphemes might be an independent development of KK; while the markers for previous events bear the same endings found on the same-subject morphemes, the simultaneous events morphemes receive comitative case-marking instead; with the exception of Chakobo, PA on comitatives involves inflectional markers that differ from those found on other types of adjuncts, and hence have different sources; the lack of PA on comitatives is a peculiarity of SK; and PA marking on temporal adjuncts has only been attested so far in Matses.

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20.4. Reconstruction of Agreement Markers

In the present section I propose reconstructed protoforms for the agreement markers shared across the Panoan languages; namely, *-aʂ-*, *-ʂon, -kin*, *-noʂ* and *no(n)-ʂon*, or their cognates (see Table 20.2). These morphemes are not analyzable, or not fully analyzable, in the current languages. Departing from SK is especially challenging since the sequences *-ʂo*, *-ʂ*, and *-no* represent no independent morphemes in the system (the latter is attested in fixed morpheme combinations only). This is not the case however in all sister languages, as will be discussed below.

Comparative analysis reveals that the agreement markers at hand resulted from the combination of peripheral cases plus core-cases. The forms proposed here for the ancestor language take into account the phonological correspondences and morpheme reconstructions provided by Shell (1975).

20.4.1. Peripheral Cases: First Layer

Following the generally accepted principle that diachronic change tends to go from more concrete to more abstract meanings (and here also from nominal to verbal contexts), the following peripheral cases can be posited for Proto-Pano:

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*-ʂo (ablative? >) sequential > past, completive

In all the languages examined, the sequence /ʂo/ or its cognate is part of a same-subject marker which includes a sequential meaning; additionally, the marker *-ʂon* and its variants are necessarily A-controlled, while the reflexes of *-ʂo* proper may be O-controlled.

In languages of the Purus branch, the forms *-ʂo ~ -xo ~ -ʂu* are found as tense-aspect morphemes: *-ʂu* has been analyzed as the completive past in Kashinawa (Montag 1981:563), and *-xo* as a third person narrative past perfective in Amawaka (Sparing-Chávez 1998:447; see also ex. (17)).

In the Southern language Chakobo, *ʂo* is an "equational" particle (Prost 1965) that takes part in copular constructions. In two other genetically-unrelated South American languages, Canela Krahô (Jê) and Paumarí (Arawak), functionally similar equational particles can be traced back to an ablative marker (Stassen 1997:90). In the Australian language Yankunytjatjara, a sequential suffix is added to nominalized verb forms and nouns; in the latter case, the sequential suffix has a meaning which is compatible with the ablative (Goddard 1985:134). Also, recall a possible analysis of sentence (58) according to which *-ʂo* would play an ablative function. Nevertheless,

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there is no conclusive evidence to posit **ʂo-* as an ablative morpheme in Proto-Pano, and hence I will simply call it a sequential marker. It is plausible that **ʂo* changed from a sequential into a past tense or completive aspect marker in the Purus languages. **ʂo* by itself had not been previously reconstructed for the Proto-language. As for the A-orientation marker *-ʂon*, I propose that it is diachronically analyzable into the sequence **ʂo* + **-n*.

**-ʔa* ablative 'from' > sequential > perfect of result, past

-ʔa (or its cognate) is the ablative in all the languages surveyed; in Matses, this morpheme has the form /ɨ/. An interesting shared feature is that the ablative case is necessarily built upon the locative; i.e., this is an instance of "case stacking." In addition to its ablative meaning, *-ʔa* has been described as a completive aspect marker in Yaminawa (Eakin 1991), a perfect stative in Kashinawa (Montag 1981), a perfect of result and an immediate past first person actuality aspect marker in Amawaka (Sparing-Chávez 1998:447), a completive participle in SK (Valenzuela, this work), and a negative suffix for previous events in Matses (when the finite verb is an auxiliary, Kneeland 1979).

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Therefore, I propose the existence in the ancestor language of an ablative morpheme of the form *-*ʔa*; this ablative might have developed into compatible past, completive, and resultative markers. Thus the S-orientation marker -*(ʔ)aʂ* is diachronically analyzable into -*(ʔ)a* + -*ʂ*. Like *-*ʂo* above, -*ʔa* by itself had not been previously reconstructed for the Proto-language. Furthermore, also the case-stacking feature can be posited for Proto-Pano (see the examples in (90)).

*-*ki* Non-specific locative 'at, towards, to, on' > simultaneous, incompletive

This case-marker has been reconstructed for the Proto-language by Shell (1975:143) who provides the following information: SK -*ki* non-specific locative suffix, Kapanawa -*ki* 'towards,' Kashinawa -*ki* 'at, on,' Amawaka -*ki* (no meaning is given), Chakobo -*ki* 'in the direction of, towards.' Although Kashibo-Kakataibo is systematically included in Shell's work, this language has been left out in the reconstruction of *-*ki* given that it lacks any locative marker of this shape. Nevertheless, there is a locative of the form -*mi* not only in Kashibo-Kakataibo but also in Matses that seem to play the same function. It may be the case that these forms are cognate with the -*ki* morpheme found in the other sister languages, but at present I cannot provide an explanation to account for the difference in consonant.

In addition to the locative functions noted by Shell, -*ki* marks indirect objects in Chakobo and Kashinawa, and the stimulus argument of an emotion predicate in SK,

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Chakobo, and Kashinawa. The morpheme *-ki* is also found on verbs marking incompletive aspect in Chakobo, actuality aspect in Amawaka, and immediate past with second and third persons in Amawaka (for Amawaka, see Sparing-Chávez 1998:447).

**-no* locative / allative > subsequent > purposive, prospective

The form *-no* (*-nu* in Matses *-anu* in Kashinawa) has the meanings 'in, at, to' in all the languages surveyed (in Chakobo this marker is found in locative long forms and also functions as temporal). Except for fixed combinations such as its participation in ablative marking and the locative interrogative or demonstrative, *-no* is reduced to *-n* in SK. Additionally, *-no* or *-nu* play purposive or prospective functions in the different languages. This morpheme had not been previously posited for the Proto-language.

The phrases below briefly illustrate the reflexes of **-ki*, **-no*, and **-ʔa* on nominals, in various Panoan languages:

The Non-specific Locative **-ki* (including *-mi* from Kashibo-Kakataibo and Matses)

(88) YN: *ifi-ki* 'against the tree,' Kashinawa: *mi-ki* '(be afraid) of you,' CH: *ʔani ki* 'to the river,' CH: *ʔɨ ki* '(angry) at me,' PW: *ɨ-ki* '(give) to me,' SK: *jaβi-ki* '(be angry) at Yabi,' MTS: *ʃuβu-mi* 'towards the house,' KK: *βaka-mi* 'toward the river.'

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Locative / allative *-no*

(89) KK: *ßaka-nu* 'at the river,' MTS: *tied-no* 'in the chacra,' YN: *o-no* 'over there,' Kashinawa: *ßai-anu* 'to the chacra,' SK: *nɨ-no* 'here.'

Ablative *-a*: Note that all languages presented below form their ablative upon the locative *-no*; i.e., they all exhibit "case-stacking."

(90) Kashinawa: *ßai-anu-a* 'from the chacra,' SK: *nɨ-no-a* 'from here,' KK: *ßaka-nu-a* 'from the river,' YN: *Paititi ano-a-ʂ* 'from Paititi (S agreement),' MTS: *ʃußu-no-ɨ-ʃ* 'from the house (S agreem.),' CH: *nɨ-a aʂ* 'from here (S-agreem.).'

Indisputable Chakobo examples involving *-no* and *-no-a* in locative and ablative functions respectively are not available. As mentioned above, *-no* is commonly found coding temporal meaning (a probable semantic extension of the locative), while the locative *-ki* seems to be more commonly used in Chakobo than in the sister languages. It is also possible that in Chakobo the locative *-no* became reduced to *-n* as in SK, and later on this nasalization was lost (recall the loss of nasalization or /n/ in the A-oriented agreement forms of the Southern languages). In addition, the markers *no* and *xo na* are found in the long forms of locatives and ablatives. These points require further research; however, this exception only involves Chakobo and hence is restricted to the Southern languages.

It is plausible that inflectional peripheral cases such as *-ki, -no, -ʔa,* and also *-ʂo* (although there is no definite proof that the latter was also a case-marker) were added on

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non-finite verb forms to signal temporal or logical relationships between two clauses sharing an argument. There is a clear semantic compatibility in that the ablative *-*ʔa* and the sequential *-*ʂo* came to mark completed and thus prior events, the non-specific locative and dative-like *-ki* incompletive aspect and simultaneity of events, and the locative-allative *-no* subsequent events.

20.4.2. Core Cases: Second Layer

Comparative analysis also shows that an additional layer of inflectional case was added to the already case-marked verb forms. This second layer involves the proto-morphemes *-*n,* *-*ʂ* and *-*0*, which I reconstruct below.

*-*n* A marker > ergative (all languages), nominative (Purus languages and Wariapano)

The morpheme *-n* or nasalization marks A arguments in all the languages surveyed. *-N* is the ergative marker in most if not all Panoan languages, and the S marker in the tripartite systems of KK, Amawaka, and possibly Iskonawa (20.4.3). Additionally, *-n* marks nominative case in constructions following a nominative-accusative pattern in Kashinawa, Yaminawa and other Purus languages, and is part of certain nominative pronominal forms in the Ucayali language Wariapano (Valenzuela 2000a, 2000b). This

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proposal does not coincide with that of Shell (1975:103), who posits the proto-morpheme *-*mã* as signalling "transitive reference."

*-*ø* O marker

In all the languages surveyed most patient-objects are marked by zero; the only exceptions being certain pronouns that take -*a* in SK (under an alternative analysis, this -*a* may be considered as part of the root).

*-*ʂ* S marker

Although as a core case-marker -*ʂ* is absent in most languages, it is attested as the intransitive subject marker in the tripartite systems of KK, Amawaka, and possibly Iskonawa. Shell (1975:115) did not posit this case-marker as a proto-morpheme by itself but only as part of the agreement marker *-*ʔaʂi*. As anticipated above, I propose that the S-agreement marker resulted from the combination of two morphemes: the ablative *-*ʔa* and the S marker *-*ʂ*. Shell reconstructs this combination as **ʔaʂi* given that the S agreement form -*aʂi* rather than -*aʂ* is attested in Marinawa, a language of the Purus branch. To my knowledge, only Marinawa and the very closely related Sharanawa (very

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likely dialects of the same language) show this additional final vowel (Tournon and Valenzuela, fieldnotes) and, at least provisionally, I am more inclined to propose the proto-form *-ʂ rather than *-ʂɨ as the intransitive subject marker. For the sake of completion, I include the following exx. illustrating -ʂɨ in Sharanawa:

(91) βaʃaro hihiki fasi-koin dii-bera-do-a-ʂɨ.
jaguar:ABS roars loudly-INTENS forest-inside-LOC-ABL-S
'The jaguar roars very loudly in the forest.' (Tournon and Valenzuela, fieldnotes)

(92) ɨ-wɨn ɨpa dii-bɨra ka-ʂɨ fɨdo-a.
1-POS father forest-inside go-PSSS get.lost-CMPL
'My father went to the forest and got lost.' (Tournon and Valenzuela, fieldnotes)

20.4.3. Tripartite Core Case-Marking Systems in Panoan

A tripartite case-marking system involving the core case-markers posited above can be attested in a couple of Panoan languages for at least some domains of the grammar. Note that this pattern exhibits overt marking for the S argument, a feature probably uncommon in tripartite systems.

Purus Pano 2: Amawaka

According to Sparing-Chávez (1998:446), Amawaka exhibits a tripartite distribution with pragmatically-marked subjects and marked aspects (i.e., "aspects encoding events that

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someone is actually engaged in or will be engaged in");[3] otherwise, ergative-absolutive or neutral case-marking systems are attested. Consider the following examples:

(93) Xano-*n*-mɨn manin?a-0 bi-?aʂ-ki-?nɨ.
woman-A-TH bananas-ABS get-PAST.PF-3ACT-DECL
'It is the woman who has gotten / brought bananas.' (Sparing-Chávez 1998: 446)

(94) Honi-*x*-mɨn ka-?aʂ-ki-?nɨ.
man-NOM-TH go-PAST.PF-3ACT-DECL
'It is the man who has gone.' (Sparing-Chávez 1998:446)

(95) Wakɨwaɨ-*x* mɨn nonti-n nanɨɨhi kanki?nɨ.
children-S TH canoe-LOC/ALL board
'The children board the canoe.' (Loos 1978:159)

Although not explicitly mentioned in the sources from which the examples above have been taken, it seems to be the case that the tripartite distribution of Amawaka only applies to nouns.

But tripartite distributions are not restricted to the Purus branch. In fact, the Western language KK exhibits an even more extended use of this feature, given that tripartite case-marking is also found with pronouns. Furthermore, KK might be the only language where the phonological content of **ʂ* has been preserved:

Western Pano: Kashibo-Kakataibo

(96) Papa-*n* kaa aa-nu-ʂun piɨʂanʂin.
father-A PRTCL:3/3p MED-LOC-A ate
'Father ate there.' (Wistrand 1969:153)

[3] In pragmatically neutral independent clauses, an ergative-absolutive system is employed with unmarked aspect, but a neutral unmarked system with marked aspect (Sparing-Chávez 1998:445-446).

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(97) Pinu-ʂ kaa ʃaka-nu-a-ʂ a-in.
Hummingbird-S PRTCL:3/3p river-LOC-ABL-S comes
'Humingbird (name) is coming from the river.' (Wistrand 1969:153)

(98) ʔɨɨ-n ka-na piti ʔaru-an
1-A PRTCL-1:NOM food:ABS cook-REC.PST:1/2
'I cooked food (earlier today).' (Wistrand 1969:160)

The next examples illustrate that pronouns also operate on a tripartite case-marking system in Kashibo-Kakataibo. Exx. (99)-(101), (104) and (105) show the first person singular in S, A, and O functions:

(99) ʔɨɨ-ʂ ka-na kwan-ɨʂan, ʔɨɨ-n nɨtɨ-nu.
1-S PRTCL-1 go-near.PST:1/2 1-GEN land-LOC/ALL
'I went (in the near past) to my land.' (Wistrand 1969:161)

(100) ʔɨ-*n* ka-na Jorge ɲuká...
1-A PRTCL-1 Jorge:O ask
'I asked George...' (Shell 1978)

(101) Jorge-nen ka ʔɨ kaʂa...
Jorge-A PRTCL:3 1:O said
'George told me...' (Shell 1978)

Exx. (102)-(104) show the second person singular pronoun in A, S, and O functions:

(102) Mi-*n* ka-is-mina ʔɨ-n lápiz tsasia.
2-A PRTCL-HSY-2 1-GEN pencil broke
'I heard that you broke my pencil.' (Shell 1978)

(103) Mi-*x* ka-ra-mina kuan?
2-S PRTCL-INT-2 go
'Are you going?' (Shell 1978)

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(104) ʔɨ-*n* ka-na mi koon ʔɨ-n lápiz is-na tsasia kiʂun.
1-A PRTCL-1 2:O say 1-GEN pencil HSY-1 break saying
'I told you yesterday that I broke my pencil.' (Shell 1978)

Exx. (105)-(108) illustrate the third person singular pronoun in A, S, and O functions. In addition, (109) shows the interrogative pronoun *ui* 'who' in S function:

(105) A-*n* ka ʔɨ ɲukáʂa uinu ka-ra-is-na kuani kiʂun.
3-A PRTCL:3 1:O asked where PRTCL-INT-HSY-1 go:1 saying
'He asked me where I was going.' (Shell 1978)

(106) A-ʂ-βi ka taramɨtia.
3-S-EM PRTCL:3 roll.over.and.over
'He rolled over and over.' (Loos 1978:159)

(107) A-ʂ ka lápiz ʔisɨn.
3-S PRTCL:3 pencil is
'It is a pencil.' (Shell 1978)

(108) *aa* pain ka-na piisa tanin
3:O first DECL-1:NOM want.to.eat
'I want to eat that first.' (Wistrand 1969:234)

(109) Ui-ʂ ka-ra mi-bɨ kuan?
who-S PRTCL-INT:3/3p 2-COM go
'Who is coming with you?' (Shell 1978)

The exact distribution of the tripartite alignment in Kashibo-Kakataibo is an important point in need of further research. Wistrand (1969) records instances of nouns in S function that do not carry the marker -ʂ. I included sentence (107) as evidence against the hypotheses of an alignment split based on animacy, or on an active versus stative distinction.

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A couple of nouns operating on an ergative-absolutive basis in KK, and hence receiving absolutive or zero case-marking when in S function are *motora* 'motorboat' (see ex. (44)), *otʃiti* 'dog,' and *kanino* 'jaguar.' The first two nouns are clearly borrowed items of Spanish and Arawak origins respectively, and all three are trisyllabic and trimoraic. The fact that these nouns do not exhibit the tripartite case-marking system illustrated in (96)-(109) may be related to these features (see discussion of trisyllabic nouns and loanwords in 3.1.6.4).

Finally, a tripartite case-marking system may be present in Iskonawa, as suggested by the presence of the element *-h* on the first person singular pronoun in S function, in the example below (recall from footnote 1 that the S case-marker in Amawaka is a non-sibilant fricative). Unfortunately, data on Iskonawa are very scarce and the place of this language within the Panoan Family has not yet been determined.

Iskonawa

(110) ʔɨa-*h* ka kai.
1-S PRTCL go
'I am going.' (Loos 1978:159)

20.5. Possible Historical Scenario

This section offers a tentative account of the development of participant agreement in the Panoan switch-reference systems and in some non-clausal adjuncts.

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Stage 1: Case-Markers in the Ancestor Language

The ancestor language exhibited a tripartite system of the Kashibo-Kakataibo type in some part(s) of its grammar with the following core case-markers:

*-*n* for A, *-*ʂ* for S, and *-*0* for O.

In addition, the following peripheral cases or markers were present in the ancestor language:

*-*ʂo* SEQ (ABL), *-*ʔa* ABL, *-*ki* DAT / LOC, and *-*no* LOC / ALL

(and possibly the predecessor of -*tian* TEMP).

Stage 2: Addition of Peripheral Cases to Non-finite Clauses

Peripheral cases are recruited to serve as non-finite clause markers coding temporal / logical relationships between two states of affairs that probably shared a topical participant. In this context, "equi-subject" deletion may have taken place. The semantics of the peripheral case-markers is highly compatible with the temporal / logical relations between events they came to encode:

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Original Markers and Functions			New functions
*-ʂo	SEQ (ABL)	'after'	previous event, 'after,' 'and,' 'because'
*-ʔa	ABL	'from'	previous event, 'after,' 'and,' 'because'
*-ki	DAT / LOC	'at'	simultaneous event, 'while,' 'during'
*-no	LOC / ALL	'at / to'	following event, 'before,' 'in order to'
(-tian	TEMP	'when'	previous or simultaneous event (depending on aspect marking in SK))

The peripheral markers in question have generally retained their original function in the present-day languages.

Stage 3: Reinterpretation of Peripheral Cases

The peripheral cases added to non-finite clauses are reinterpreted as a signal of subject coreferentiality. The development of switch-reference markers from peripheral cases has been previously documented for Aboriginal Australian languages, where the locative developed into a same- or different-subject marker, whereas the allative came to mark different-subject (Austin 1981). Possibly, Panoan peripheral cases such as *-ʂo*, *-ʔa*, and *-ki* were in some kind of complementary distribution, so that they ended up coding location of nominals in certain grammatical functions only. For example, *-ʂo* may have been a locative marker in complementary distribution with *-ʔa*; note that no Panoan language combines the marker *-ʂo* with *-ʂ* or the marker *-ʔa* with *-n*; similarly, no language exhibits the sequence *-ki-ʂ*. Furthermore, there is some evidence that these

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markers may play a "relative locational function;" e.g., an ablative structure may encode location at a place in an intransitive clause as shown in ex. (56) of this chapter and examples (27)-(28) of Chapter 19.[4]

This complementary distribution then might be associated to the fact that, in addition to coding temporal / logical relations and same-subject, the markers in question tend to restrict the syntactic function of the coreferential argument in the matrix clause or controller. Since we are dealing with a tripartite alignment, the "same-subject" category in Panoan is really split into S vs. A controller restriction (but see *-no*).

Same-Subject Marker		Coreferentiality Restriction	
-ʂo	SEQ (ABL)	A	(but cf. *xo / -ʃo* in AM / MTS > O)
-ʔa	ABL	S	(but cf. *-a / -ak* in SK / MTS > S / A)
-ki	DAT / LOC	A	(absent in Kapanawa)
-no	LOC / ALL	S / A	(cf. *-no-ʂon* in SK)

It can be generalized that when participating in same-subject marking, *-ʂo* and *-ki* require their controllers to play the A function, while *-ʔa* requires an S controller. Among the peculiarities found in the individual languages are the following: the reflexes of *-ʂo* in Amawaka and Matses may signal coreferentiality between an argument in the marked clause and the matrix clause object (Sparing-Chávez 1998:458, Kneeland 1979:129). This could be interpreted as a restriction of *-ʂo* to occur with a transitive matrix clause.

[4] In the Australian languages Wagaya and Warlpiri, allative-marked NPs may be used in transitive non-motion clauses to refer to the location of the object only; Austin 1981:331-332.

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The reflexes of *-ʔa* in SK and Matses may signal coreferentiality between an object in the marked clause and the S / A argument of the matrix clause. On the other hand, the locative-allative combines with either an S or A controller in SK and Matses. Moreover, in SK *-no* may be followed by *-ʂon*.

(In SK, the temporal *-tian* becomes specialized as switch-reference marker; in other languages, the locative *-no* or *-nu* may be found in this function.)

Stage 4: Addition of Core Cases

The core cases **-n*, **-ʂ*, and **-0* are added to the already case-marked dependent clauses in agreement with the function of the coreferential argument in the matrix clause. A question arising at this point has to do with the motivation for this second layer of case-marking. One possibility is that their presence is simply redundant as is often the case with agreement (Corbett 2001). A second possibility is that these core cases contributed to the encoding of switch-reference; contrast, e.g., *-xo* vs. *-xo-n* in Amawaka, *-a* vs. *-aʂ* in SK, and *-nuʃ* vs. *-nun* in Matses. In fact, the development of core cases into switch-reference markers has been documented in some Native North American languages (specifically, the use of subjective cases for same-subject and of non-subjective cases for different-subject in Muskogean and Yuman; Jacobsen 1983). The two hypotheses regarding the function of the core cases are not mutually exclusive in the overall system;

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i.e., these markers may have contributed to the encoding of switch-reference in some instances but may have turned out to be redundant in others.

-ʂo + -n	(also with zero in AM S / A > O and MTS S / A / O > O)
-a + -ʂ -ki + -n	(also *-aʔ* in MTS and *-a* SK for S / A > O marking)
-no + -ʂ / -n(ʂon)	(also *-nuʔ* in Matses SDS (Kneeland 1979:155) or S > O (Fleck 2002))

Stage 5: Fusion and Spread of Same-Subject Markers

The sequences of peripheral plus core cases become fused, rendering portmanteau morphemes that code subject coreferentiality, relative order of events, and the syntactic function of the controller in the matrix clause.

Next, some clausal adjuncts, maybe with zero copula or semantically generic verbs, are reinterpreted as non-clausal; consequently the biclausal constructions in which they occurred are reanalyzed as monoclausal. This is particularly evident when examining manner, reason, and quantity adjuncts. Then, same-subject markers spread to certain non-clausal adjuncts (see e.g. affectives in SK and Yaminawa).

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Stage 6: Loss of Intransitive Subject Marking

The case-marker for S function is lost in most languages, either in some constructions or completely: *-ʂ > -0*. Consequently S is marked in the same way as O and differently from A, yielding an ergative-absolutive alignment. Nevertheless, the form *-ʂ* and the tripartite distribution are retained in the agreement markers on adjuncts, thus yielding an unusual kind of split-ergativity.

Some languages lose the sequential marker *-ʂo*. In SK, *-no > -n*; the form *-no* is only retained in fixed contexts such as case-stacking in ablative marking.

20.5.1. Possible Alternative Development

Certain targets such as emphatic pronouns and life-stage adjuncts take the marker *-ʂ* directly, without requiring previous ablative marking. This suggests the possibility of a different intraclausal development for certain adjuncts simply based on case agreement. Interestingly, these may be the adjunct types with the highest degree of participant-orientedness (life-stage expressions are considered as prototypical secondary depictive predicates by Schultze-Berndt and Himmelmann, to appear). Nevertheless, when A-oriented, life-stage adjuncts take the agreement marker *-ʂon* rather than just *-n*. Probably, this development took place when the marker *-ʂon* was no longer analyzable; this

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observation coincides with the fact that the SK FSSA marker is *-noʂon* rather than *-non*, the latter form would be the equivalent of Matses *-nun* .

20.6. Cross-Linguistic Comparison

As discussed in Valenzuela (1999), Panoan participant agreement has a seeming parallel in some aboriginal Australian languages, among them those belonging to the Mantharta and Kanyara groups from northwestern Northern Australia (Austin 1988, Austin 1995, Austin and Bresnan 1996). Valenzuela cites the following examples of "double case" in Jiwarli (Mantharta) (from Austin, 1988; emphasis added):

(111) Thuthu-ngku juma-rti-nha yanga-rninyja warlpari-lu.
dog-ERG child-PL-ACC chase-PST south:ALL-ERG
'The dog chased the children south.' [N13p18s1]

(112) Juma-ngku ngatha-nha nhanya-nyja maya-ngka-nguru-lu.
child-ERG 1-ACC see-PST house-LOC-ABL1-ERG
'The child watched me from the house.' [N10p10s3]

The allative and ablative in the sentences above are ergative-marked, since they provide information about the directional orientation of a transitive subject (Austin 1988). Like in Panoan, manner adjuncts also carry case agreement:

(113) Wurnta-nma nhapa pirru tharti-ngku.
cut-IMP this meat quickly-ERG
'Cut this meat quickly.' [N5p71s1]

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Since the absolutive case is zero-marked, no additional morphology is required with intransitive clauses.

In addition, Jiwarli has a type of adjunct non-finite clause which provides background information about the event described in the matrix clause on which they are dependent, and translate into English adverbial and relative clauses. The verb in these dependent clauses is marked for switch-reference and bears a case inflection in accordance to the grammatical function of the coreferential nominal in the matrix clause. When the subjects in the two linked clauses are coreferential, the adjunct clause will carry either absolutive (i.e., zero) or ergative case depending on the transitivity status of the matrix clause (Austin 1988, Austin and Bresnan 1996:254-5). The following Jiwarli examples illustrate this claim:

Matrix clause is transitive (from Austin 1988, emphasis added)

(114) Warlka-rninyjalu-ru ngatha-nha wantha-nma-rni.
open-PERF:SS-ERG 1-ACC give-IMPER-hence
'After you have opened it give it to me!' [T10s2]

(115) Mantharta-lu kurrpirli-nha pinya-nyja yanga-rnu-ru.
man-ERG kangaroo-ACC spear-PAST chase-IMPERF:SS-ERG
'The man speared a kangaroo as he was chasing it.' [N11p31s2]

In (114) the matrix clause is intransitive and hence no overt case agreement occurs (from Austin and Bresnan 1996:255, emphasis changed):

(116) Walangu ngunha kumpa-ira ngunhi-rru-pa
bird.ABS that:ABS sit-FUT there:LOC-NOW-SPEC

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papa-wu paja-rnu.
water-DAT drink-IMPERF:SS
'The birds will sit there drinking the water.' (JIT57s14)

Crucial features shared by Panoan and the Australian languages at hand are the absence of subject / object coreferential marking on the verb or auxiliary and the use of non-nominative case-marking systems (otherwise we might be faced with zero marked subjects and case agreement would be practically irrelevant).

Nevertheless some important differences between the grammars of SK and Jiwarli must be pointed out. First, Jiwarli is a language of the so-called "non-configurational" type, and it is common for the elements of the semantic NP to carry case-markers in agreement with their notional head; i.e., Jiwarli exhibits "word-level case-marking" (Austin 1988, Austin 1995, Austin and Bresnan 1996). In addition, case is added to both non-clausal adjuncts and switch-reference morphology, including different-subject, in agreement with the nominal they are predicated of (Austin 1988, Austin and Bresnan 1996:252). Therefore, case agreement on dependent clauses in Jiwarli might be analyzed as an extension of case agreement of modifiers in general with their semantic head nominal (Givón 1990:886). In contrast, SK NPs do form good hierarchical constituents, case is expressed only once at the end of the corresponding NP, and there is no agreement across the different elements within an NP.[5] Additionally, clauses bearing case agreement may also have a relative clause interpretation in Australian languages but

[5] As pointed out to me by Bernard Comrie (p.c., 2003), in some Australian languages such as Warlpiri and probably Pitjantjatjara, nominal modifiers usually do not show agreement if they remain inside the noun phrase, but only if they are moved outside the noun phrase. Although this feature still differs from the one I describe for SK, it certainly starts looking somewhat more similar.

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apparently not in Panoan (see 10.2 and Valenzuela 2002b for SK; comparative research is needed with respect to this point). This last observation may be of relevance since relative clauses are nominal modifiers (cf. Hale 1976); however, unlike the situation in Australian languages, these do not exhibit any type of agreement with their modified head in Panoan (or at least in SK).

Secondly, Jiwarli ergative and absolutive case on non-subjects are the same as the regular case-markers, whereas participant agreement morphology in Panoan does not correspond to regular case-markers. The formal differences between core cases and agreement markers in the two groups of languages under consideration cannot be fully accounted for by the diachronic change in the case-marking system of Panoan. In these languages agreement markers on non-clausal adjuncts tend to be the same as same-subject markers and exhibit a layer of peripheral case generally absent in Australian languages. While in Panoan there is high semantic compatibility between peripheral cases and the temporal / logical relationships between the events depicted in dependent and matrix clauses, it is difficult to account for the presence of this peripheral case layer on non-clausal adjuncts. Compare the following examples of adjuncts in Jiwarli and Panoan:

Locative / allative adjuncts

(117)	Jiwarli:	warlpari-lu south=ALL-ERG '(to the) south' (ex. (122))	location + ERG

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(118) SK: ʂoβo-n-ʂo-n — location + SEQ + A
house-LOC-SEQ-A
'at home'

Manner adjuncts

(119) a. Jiwarli: tharti-ngku — manner + ERG
quickly-ERG

b. Thalanyji: yaparru-lu
quick-ERG
'quickly' (Austin 1994:375)

(120) a. SK: kikin-ʂo-n — manner + SEQ + A
extremely-SEQ-A
'extremely'

b. SK: nɨtɨ-ʃaman-a-ʂ — manner + ABL + S
quietly-INTENS-ABL-S
'very quietly'

c. SK: hawɨ kɨskat-a-ʂ — manner + ABL + S
what SIML-ABL-S
'how'

Affective adjuncts:

Yaminawa: takara-õ-no-a-ʂ — interest + LOC + ABL + S
chicken-INTRSS-LOC-ABL-S
'(be scared) for the chickens'

See also the Chakobo example (57b), where an already ablative expression takes the S-agreement marker *-aʂ* (i.e. ablative + S-marking) rather than simply *-ʂ*. Another point that requires attention is the necessary addition of the LOC-ABL sequence to already

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locative-marked elements in Sharanawa S-oriented adjuncts; e.g., *iwi-wɨ-do-a-ʂɨ* [tree-LOC-LOC-ABL-S] 'in / from the tree' (Tournon and Valenzuela, fieldnotes).

There is however a construction in Warlpiri where what appears to be a non-clausal adjunct (analyzed as secondary depictive predicate in Schultze-Berndt and Himmelmann, to appear) takes the allative case obligatorily before being marked for case agreement. The allative restricts the syntactic function of the controller to that of an "object" which in Warlpiri may be in the absolutive or dative case, and core case is then added in agreement with the case of the controller:

Warlpiri (Pama-Nyungan, Australia)

(121) Ngula=rla nyiya wanti-ja langa-kurra karnta-ku-ju jarda-kurra[6]-ku
after.that=3.IO DEM fall-PST ear-ALL woman-DAT-EU[7] asleep-ALL-DAT
'Then something fell into the woman's ear (while she was) asleep' (lit: 'something fell (to) the woman into the ear (while she was) asleep') (Schultze-Berndt and Himmelmann op. cit.:38, from Warlpiri dictionary)

Nevertheless, constructions where non-clausal secondary depictive predicates (or "depictives") take a peripheral case and a core case seem to be rather the exception in Australian languages.

Thirdly, as mentioned above, case agreement in Australian languages are also found on different-subject markers; this is not generally the case in Panoan.

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[6] *-Kurra* attaches to non-finite verbs to indicate coreferentiality between the subject of a subordinate clause with the object of its main clause, thus restricting the syntactic function of its controller to an object or grammatical dative; the allative is optionally followed by case-agreement (Hale 1976, Austin 1981:325, Schultze-Berndt and Himmelmann to appear:38).

[7] "Euphoric" element.

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Finally, at least in SK there is a second type of adjunct clause which takes participial inflection and is often followed by peripheral cases or postpositions. In fact, there are often alternate ways to code similar optional modifying expressions either through a same-subject marked or a participial clause (10.4). Case-marked adjuncts in Australian languages have been analyzed as depictives by Schultze-Berndt and Himmelmann (to appear). Following this approach, same-subject marked clauses could be seen as participant-oriented depictive constructions proper and the participial clause type as event-oriented constructions. Recall, however, that manner and quantity adjuncts marked by *-i* and *-kin* also lead to an event-oriented interpretation, particularly when compared with alternate expressions taking *-aʂ* and *-ʂon* (see exx. (87)-(102) in Ch. 19). In addition, Schultze-Bernd and Himmelmann (op. cit.) point out that it is somehow problematic to analyze same-subject marked clauses as depictives. In fact, in SK these clauses form a major constituent in themselves, show prosodic independence, may be separated from their matrix clause by other clauses, and although uncommon may carry their own subject (i.e., may not be controlled).

Based on the findings from their cross-linguistic study on depictive constructions, Schultze-Berndt and Himmelmann (op. cit.) also conclude that "In all languages that allow agreement of depictive constituents, modifiers in a noun phrase also obligatorily agree with their head noun..." (op. cit.:35). Since Schultze-Berndt and Himmelmann consider case agreement on complements outside the NP as an unequivocal signal of depictive status, Panoan clearly represents a counterexample to their proposed implicational universal. To my knowledge, Panoan is the only documented instance where

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less typical nominal modifiers developed case agreement while prototypical ones taking part in the NP did not. This unexpected feature may be accounted for by a constraint on case-markers to occur at the phrasal level in Panoan; as mentioned at the beginning of this chapter, case-markers in these languages are phrasal suffixes occurring only once on the last NP element. Interestingly, while Panoan NPs do form good adjacent constituents, reference-marked clauses may precede, be embedded or follow their matrix clause; moreover, reference-marked clauses do not need to be adjacent to their matrix clauses, and more than one clause may depend on the same matrix clause. In this situation, it seems of more functional relevance to develop an agreement system at the interclausal level.

Although synchronically Panoan and Australian languages such as Jiwarli look fairly similar in terms of participant agreement or "referential double case" (Austin 1995), the diachronic paths through which these features developed may in fact have been different. It is plausible though that the general motivations were roughly the same (e.g., reference-tracking / adjunct scope, in a language lacking cross-referential pronominal marking on the verb or auxiliary and where the link between certain modifiers and their semantic head is not obvious from other formal means such as constituent order). If the historical scenario suggested here turns out to be essentially correct, Panoan languages might be unique in terms of their historical development of this unusual feature.

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CHAPTER 21

CONCLUSIONS

In this final chapter I highlight some of the major findings of the present study and raise issues that call for further research.

A contribution that has very important consequences for Panoan linguistics is the establishment of a distinction between "transitivity agreement" and "participant agreement" phenomena. The former refers to alternations and restrictions that depend partially or completely on the transitivity status of the verb, whereas the latter is associated to transitivity to the extent that it is determined by the syntactic role of the core argument serving as controller; the former targets the verb phrase, whereas the latter targets adjuncts; the former may be sensitive to the varying degrees of transitivity verbs exhibit and hence must be tested verb by verb, whereas the latter can be directly read from the case-marking assigned to the controller (although their relationship is not transparent; i.e., the form of case-markers and participant agreement morphemes differ); the functions of the former can be broadly described as different kinds of modifications of the predicate or the event as a whole, whereas the latter signals the semantic orientation of adjuncts towards one core participant.

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Table 21.1. Properties of Transitivity Agreement and Participant Agreement

Transitivity Agreement	Participant Agreement
a. Is determined partially or solely by verb transitivity.	a. Depends on syntactic function of core argument serving as controller.
b. Targets the verb phrase.	b. Targets adjuncts.
c. May be sensitive to the varying degrees of transitivity verbs exhibit and must be examined verb by verb.	c. Can be directly read from the case grammatical role and case-marking assigned to the controller.
d. Modifies the predicate or the event.	d. Signals the semantic orientation of an adjunct towards one participant.

As mentioned in 15.3 and 19.2.1, these two essentially distinct types of agreement had been previously treated as a single phenomenon referred to as "transitivity agreement" (Valenzuela 1999) or "transitivity concord" (Loos 1999). This misanalysis was favored by the fact that participant agreement at the interclausal level necessarily correlates with the transitivity of the matrix verb, as well as by the almost exclusive focus by linguists studying Panoan languages on the rich switch-reference systems, to the detriment of intraclausal PA. In Ch. 19 I have indisputably shown PA cannot be accounted for by verb transitivity, since two almost identical clauses may only differ in the inflections the adjunct receives while sharing the same verb form and case frame, etc. It is worth pointing out that SK and Panoan languages in general exhibit the aforementioned types of atypical agreements, while lacking more canonical instances of agreement.

I have claimed that in SK most verb roots can be classified as inherently intransitive or inherently transitive according to a number of morpho-syntactic criteria:

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number of core participants; case-marking frame; participant agreement; selection of pro-verb; form of andative / venitive pairs; form of phasal verbs; ability to take the malefactive, reciprocal, middle (with reflexive meaning), and distributive / 'going down' suffixes; and with some verbs selection of complementizers. Whereas certain features are fairly common cross-linguistically (e.g. number of core arguments and case-marking frame) other features are less common or even specific to SK (e.g. form of phasal verbs and ability to take the distributive / 'going down' suffixes). As expected, this morpho-syntactic characterization of SK verbs tends to correlate with semantic transitivity although it is not possible to completely predict what kinds of semantico-pragmatic changes actually trigger a formal change. For example, perception and emotion events are treated very differently although in both instances an experiencer subject and a stimulus second-argument are involved. In addition, it has been shown in different chapters that even verb roots pertaining to a fairly homogeneous and closed class may behave differently in terms of the parameters mentioned above.

In contrast, participant agreement is a secondary consequence of the grammatical role and case-marking assigned to the controller and can be predicted from it; i.e., there are no instances where the subject of a non-prototypical transitive verb is marked as absolutive but the adjunct it controls takes A-agreement, or vice versa. This rigidity with which the participant agreement morphology reflects grammatical role and case-marking could not be explained by the "transitivity agreement" account which would probably allow for the varying degrees of transitivity exhibited by verbs to be somehow reflected in the inflectional morphology on adjuncts.

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The language-specific properties associated with transitivity in SK, such as the use of different semantically generic verbs, the minimal transitivity requirement for taking the malefactive applicative, the fact that phasal verbs and certain verbal morphemes must share the transitivity value of a controlling verb, and especially the phenomenon of participant agreement, constitute features of significant typological interest, contributing to our understanding of transitivity and the different ways it is encoded in language.

Together with inherent transitivity, a broader notion of transitivity partially accounts for a relatively small number of constructions in which agent control (in relation to cultural practices), pragmatic status of the patient, and the history of the particular verb appear to be relevant. For example, alternate case-marking on the subject in desiderative or progressive-marked clauses may be used to signal a highly individuated or contrastive object. This strategy however is not fully syntacticized and may be available only for certain verbs in a given constructional frame.

These findings have consequences for grammatical theory. An adequate account of the SK patterns requires a framework that combines both clause-level and verb inherent transitivity, and that can represent the varying degrees of transitivity found not only among different verb classes but also among verbs seen as pertaining to the same class. Moreover, transitivity-associated features are to be examined verb by verb in every constructional framework; these distributions and restrictions allow us to understand the event schema they are based on. Verb transitivity alone cannot explain why a verb such as *be-* 'bring' cannot combine with the dedicated malefactive suffix but takes the

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applicative *-xon* to code either benefactive or malefactive meaning. Conversely, *kene-* 'miss, fail' combines only with the malefactive and not with *-xon*. I have suggested that these restrictions are related to the inherent meaning of the verbs and the event schemas they invoke which typically include a benefactive or a malefactive component. Furthermore, the constant use of verbs in the prototypical frame might have led to the fixation of certain verb-applicative sequences and the unacceptability of others. In this way, preferred event conceptualization and language use would affect the shape of grammar overriding purely morpho-syntactic principles.

Combinations of phasal + lexical verbs, as well as verb forms where the root *pake-* 'cause to fall' is attached to another verb root, have been analyzed here as instances of non-core and nuclear verb serialization, respectively. Verb serialization in SK has the peculiarity of requiring that the serialized constituents agree in transitivity, thus suggesting they share a common argument structure. This feature is reminiscent of what has been described for languages such as Ngan'gityemerri and Amharic, where the finite verbs and the coverbs of a complex predicate must agree in transitivity (Kittilä 2002:71). Hence transitivity concord can be associated more broadly with the combination of two verbs which together encode a single event.

The selection of the semantically generic verbs *ik-* and *ak-* depends on the transitivity status of the lexical verb they replace, accompany, or contribute to create. The functions played by these verbs have been subsumed into the following four: pro-verb, quotative, complex predicate constituent when in combination with another verb, and predicativization when in combination with non-verbs. Except for pro-verb, these

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functions are roughly the same as those described for similar verbs in Northeast African languages. Interestingly, in some of these languages the selection between two alternate semantically generic verbs also correlates with transitivity (Güldemann, to appear). It has been proposed in Ch. 15 that the quotative function in SK might have developed from the reduction or specialization of the more general pro-verb function. Therefore, utterance verbs are not viewed as the ultimate source for semantically generic verbs in any function (cf. Güldemann forthcoming and references therein about the proposed grammaticalization of 'say' into a predicative element). This hypothesis is compatible with Güldemann's (2001) conclusion in the sense that the verb 'say' might not have been the origin of the predicative element in Northeast African languages. The path proposed by Güldemann however is somewhat different, given that as mentioned earlier semantically generic verbs do not seem to play a pro-verb function in these languages. Turning back to SK, further research on the discourse-pragmatic functions and diachronic development of constructions involving semantically generic verbs is in order. In footnote 3 of Ch. 15 I have referred to the striking similarity in form and function of semantically generic verbs in Panoan and Tukanoan languages; hence it might be worth exploring whether this feature has an areal distribution.

Another important topic discussed through different chapters in this dissertation concerns the morpho-syntactic properties displayed by objects. In SK there is no distinction between direct and indirect object, or primary versus secondary object. Therefore the question arises as to whether two (or more) objects in a clause exhibit the same morpho-syntactic status or not. This issue has been examined, although with

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different emphases, for recipient and patient objects in non-derived ditransitive clauses, causees and affectees, and especially base and applicative objects. The coding and behavior-and-control properties examined in addressing this question are: case-marking, relative order of objects occurring between subject and verb, object preposing, right-dislocation, relativization, reciprocality control, and cross-clausal object-to-subject coreferentiality. It can be concluded that SK is a very good candidate to be considered a language which allows for "symmetrical" objects. Neither constituent order nor case-marking distinguish different kinds of objects and, all other things being equal, ambiguity is possible. Furthermore, all objects are accessible to prenominal and postnominal relativization and, at least in applicative constructions, may be read as reciprocal with the subject. Additionally, any object may control object-to-subject coreferentiality. Nevertheless, provisional evidence from access to internally-headed relativization suggests base / patient objects may exhibit preferred object status in comparison with applicative / recipient objects. Further research preferably resorting to other methodologies other than elicitation is necessary to test this hypothesis; also, future research should take into account the function played by the demonstrative *ja* before certain object NPs. In addition, the availability of different strategies to question the object of a subordinate clause must be further tested (8.4.2.3).

The term "symmetrical objects" is used in two different ways by linguists. First, it may refer to a situation in which two objects exhibit object properties simultaneously; it may be nevertheless possible to distinguish different kinds of objects through certain morpho-syntactic processes. Secondly, this term may refer to the absence of a systematic

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grammatical distinction between different types of objects. It is in this second sense that SK objects can be said to be symmetrical (unless future research conclusively proves otherwise). A further hypothesis suggested in this work concerns the implication that if a language allows for symmetrical objects in the second sense of the term, then it allows for symmetrical objects in the first sense of the term too; i.e., if there is no way of grammatically distinguishing different kinds of objects, then objects should be able to share object properties simultaneously.

SK is quite permissive in that it allows for up to three absolutive marked arguments to be expressed in the same clause. A way to resolve potential ambiguity in causative and associative constructions is to mark the causee or associative object through the comitative postposition *betan*. It must be taken into account however that arguments might be left unexpressed when recoverable from the context without triggering any change in valency.

A major portion of this dissertation has been devoted to the examination of valence-changing processes in SK and the pervasiveness with which transitivity alternations are morpho-syntactically expressed in the language. Chapter 16 investigated core morphological, syntactic, and semantic characteristics of causative constructions. Some salient features are the association between non-singular number and transitivity-causation represented by the suppletive pairs *jo-* 'come (sing.)' / *be-* 'come (non-sing.), bring' and *ka-* 'go (sing.)' / *bo-* 'go (non-sing.), carry, take;' and the intermediate syntactic status between synthetic and analytic causativization exhibited by the causativizer */ak/*, thus supporting the proposal of a causative continuum not only in the

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functional but also in the formal domain (Shibatani and Pardeshi 2002). It was also shown how causativizers easily combine with non-verbs; among these, the "instrumental causativizer" *-n* is suffixed to noun roots in order to encode a causative action carried out using the entity referred to by the root.

Analysis of SK causative constructions nicely supports the cognitivist view that alternate causative constructions correspond to different ways of conceptualizing what can be seen as roughly the same objective event. The selection of different causativizing mechanisms correlates with semantic parameters, especially whether the change of state requires an obvious external causer in order to take place, or whether the causee can be seen as somehow initiating the event by its own internal force (Shibatani and Pardeshi 2002). An association between the distribution and meaning of onomatopoeic predicates and degree of animacy of the participants involved was also proposed.

Alternate causative constructions in SK may differ only in terms of the causativizer selected; this shows that like case-markers and lexical items, causative morphemes are symbolic units having an inherent semantics and force-dynamics. An elaborate means to signal the distinction between direct and indirect causation is the decausativization plus causativization through *-ma* strategy. In these cases, the inherent force-dynamics of a transitive root (which would otherwise indicate direct causation) can be said to be neutralized by the addition of the middle suffix. This derivation gives rise to a decausative construction indicating the base subject undergoes the change of state referred to by the root without the involvement of an external causer. At the same time, suffixation of *-ma* introduces a non-prototypical agent who allows for or contributes to

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the process in question, in a situation involving a rather agentive causee. To my knowledge this strategy has not been described for other languages. Moreover, it might be the case that this indirect causativization strategy is exclusive to SK and not shared by other Panoan languages.

The SK data also corroborates previous linguistic findings such as the distinction between participants that can be seen as ultimate cause versus true instruments; only the former can be encoded as transitive subjects (DeLancey 1984). Most interestingly, events that specifically describe how a participant dies (e.g., by drowning, by suffocation, from vomiting, etc.) must be expressed coding the force or illness as transitive subject and the patient as object. What is noteworthy in SK is that the <ERG ABS> frame is the only possible way to encode such a meaning (exx. (8)-(9) and footnote 7 in Ch. 16).

Chapter 17 investigated applicative constructions in SK, which follow the prototypical pattern in most respects. Two out of the three applicative construction types, the affective and the specific malefactive, lack an alternate non-applicative paraphrase; therefore these applicative constructions are obligatory and cannot be seen as a pragmatically-marked means to express an alternative conceptualization of a given event (cf. Croft 1994). In this way, one of the major functions associated to applicatives does not generally apply to SK. As for the associative, the factors that motivate the choice between the applicative and the non-applicative expressions await to be unveiled. Ch. 17 is the first detailed treatment of applicativization in any Panoan language. From the literature review it seems the lack of cognate applicatives and NP markers is a general Panoan feature. Most interestingly, Panoan languages differ significantly in terms of the

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applicative constructions they have available; this parameter might prove useful in the subclassification of the family.

Although of no statistical significance, providing the base verbs and text frequencies for each applicative construction relative to the corpus turned out to be very fruitful. First, it provided a picture of what verbs applicatives do occur with and an overall impression of how frequently applicative constructions occur. Quantitative analysis of the corpus revealed that *-xon*-marked applicatives are the most frequent in text representing more than fifty percent of the instances; associative applicatives are less common but still represent about thirty percent of the instances; dedicated malefactive applicatives are relatively uncommon and represent less than twelve percent of the instances. Besides differing a great deal in terms of text frequency, the three applicatives combine differently with the basic transitivity types of verbs. Moreover, even though *-xon* easily combines with different types of intransitive and transitive verbs in elicitation, in text it is overwhelmingly attested with transitives (ninety-three percent of all occurrences). The dedicated malefactive is attested with transitive base verbs only, whereas the associative is equally attested with both intransitive and transitive bases. Therefore, if taking into account potential combinations only, it could be said that SK contradicts Shibatani's (1998) claim that benefactives tend to be restricted to transitive bases since they are based on the 'give' schema. However, examination of the actual text occurrences of benefactive constructions is compatible with this hypothesis.

In terms of semantic requirements, there is some evidence suggesting that the malefactive applicative may place weaker animacy restrictions on its subjects and

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especially on its objects than the general affective *-xon*. That is, inanimate subjects / objects may occur in certain malefactive applicative constructions but not in their *-xon* equivalents. This hypothesis requires further research. Furthermore, certain verbs appear to be more strongly associated with a given event schema that includes a benefactive or malefactive participant, so that a different reading is not acceptable even when the morpho-syntactically appropriate applicative is added.

When in combination with transitive bases, the affective *-xon* mostly has a benefactive meaning. When added to an intransitive stem, the choice between a benefactive and a malefactive reading is often determined by verb semantics and / or context.

Maybe the most salient feature of SK applicatives is the minimal transitivity requirement imposed by the malefactive suffix. Crucially, it has been shown in Ch. 17 that its distribution is in fact based on transitivity and not on an active versus inactive distinction. An important contribution of this work is the examination of how verbs of intermediate transitivity status behave in terms of their ability to combine with affective applicatives. It has been shown these verbs exhibit a mixed and unpredictable behavior thus reflecting their different degrees of transitivity.

Another important issue concerns the semantic contribution of the associative applicative, which generally adds an accompanied or helped participant to the clause. This is the only applicative indicating the active involvement of both subject and applicative object in the event; however, their involvement is not equal. In most instances examined here the applicative object can be seen as more responsible or more

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directly involved in the event than the subject. But when added to the verb *tee-* 'work' (and probably some other verbs) a sociative causation interpretation is required; i.e. the ergative-marked participant has the applicative participant work while working himself too. Therefore, it can be said that the associative somehow enters into the causation field. In Panoan languages however there is no comparative evidence to claim that applicatives and causativizers are genetically related. Valenzuela (1999) called attention to the form and function similarity between applicatives and same-subject markers (or A agreement morphemes to be more precise). This important issue requires comparative research.

Combinations of different valency-changing elements are possible in SK; certain alternate morpheme order involving applicatives and the causative *-ma* has been attested in order to signal scope distinctions. But given the minimal transitivity requirement imposed by the malefactive, this cannot attach to middle-marked and reciprocalized stems (which trigger detransitivization); in this way a morpho-syntactic restriction is responsible for the impossibility of expressing through a malefactive applicative construction pragmatically feasible situations such as 'They left each other to the children's detriment' or 'The child burned her / himself to my detriment.'

In addition, the applicative *-xon* rarely co-occurs with middle-marked stems, despite the ease with which it combines with different transitivity types of verbs. It has been suggested that the introduction of an applicative affected participant might be incompatible in this situation since the presence of the middle already signals subject affectedness.

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Among the wide range of meanings encoded by the middle marker *-t* are reflexive, anticausative, and agentless passive, but not reciprocal. In addition to this, the middle may be added to position, motion, and emotion verbs to form derived intransitives; in some instances, the middle suffix seems to code self-benefit. Further research devoted to the middle voice in SK is in order.

When the middle marker is added to a transitive root, the resulting stem often has a reflexive meaning. With several verbs, though, more than one reading is possible: reflexive and anticausative, or reflexive and agentless passive. Plausibly, the passive meaning in SK is being developed as an extension of the anticausative function. In both instances the subject is affected but does not participate in effecting the action; these two differ however in whether an external agent is implied or not (cf. Klaiman 1988). While speakers agree on the reflexive and anticausative interpretations of middle-marked verbs, they may disagree on whether a specific form allows an additional agentless passive reading or not. This piece of evidence suggests that the latter meaning is non-basic, and that the functional extension of the middle marker to the passive domain is currently under development.

I have also examined the interaction between emphatic pronouns and reflexive function. However, I have argued this set of pronouns should not be considered as "reflexive" since their presence is not generally required to code reflexive meaning; furthermore, these pronouns are attested in different types of non-reflexive clauses, including reciprocals. SK emphatic pronouns are particularly interesting and they have been treated in different sections throughout this dissertation.

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Other points addressed in dealing with reflexives are the ways this function is encoded with extended intransitive and onomatopoeic verbs (the latter exhibit an exclusive reflexive form), the lack of distinction between third person reflexive and non-reflexive in locative phrases, the coding of possessive reflexive and self-benefactive functions, and the possibility of reflexive constructions which lack an antecedent. I have also shown that a reflexive in the dependent clause may be controlled by either the subject or the object of the matrix clause.

As with other nominal and verbal morphemes, the distribution of the reciprocal allomorphs can be largely accounted for in terms of alternate mora timing. Generally, the allomorph *-anan* is added to stems with even-numbered syllables and *-ananan* to stems with odd-numbered syllables. Like the middle, the reciprocal has a detransitivizing effect. Reciprocal constructions in SK has been classified according to the type of subject they exhibit: coordinated NPs, plural subjects, omitted subjects whose verbs are marked by the plural *-kan* adding an impersonal subject meaning, singular subjects with comitative complements, and plain singular subjects. The latter subject type is especially interesting given that it only allows a "response reciprocal" interpretation, whereby the subject participant knows her action is / has been / will be reciprocated, even though the agent of the second action is omitted. This response reciprocal construction was previously described by Camargo (to appear) for the sister language Kashinawa, which belongs to the Purus branch; therefore, response reciprocals have already been reported for two different branches of Panoan.

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Possessive reciprocal meaning is encoded through addition of a body-part prefix to the verb or through a second absolutive-marked NP preceded by a possessive modifier. Alternatively the additional NP may be marked as oblique; this would literally translate into English as 'They saw each other (by means of) their pictures.'

Chapter 19 is a detailed treatment of participant agreement in SK; i.e., the use of distinct inflectional morphology on certain adjuncts in correlation with the syntactic function of the participant they are predicated of. This controller may be a core argument of a simple sentence or the matrix clause subject of a complex sentence involving one or more chained clauses. As mentioned at the beginning of this chapter, the distinction between transitivity agreement and participant agreement is one of the major contributions of the present dissertation. Moreover, it seems justified to establish a further distinction between non-participant oriented optional complements which may be called "adverbs" and participant-oriented ones; only the latter exhibit participant agreement inflection. This distinction is clear when comparing the alternate life-stage expressions involving the temporal *-tian* versus those including PA morphology, and also in alternate expressions involving reference-marked clauses versus those with "adverbial" nominalized clauses sometimes followed by peripheral case markers.

Three basic participant agreement patterns have been identified in SK; all three exhibit an overall tripartite distribution with overt markers for S- and A-agreement, and zero marking for O-agreement (when applicable). Also four basic adjunct types have been proposed based on the agreement patterns their members take; a fifth "adjunct" type is composed of those elements which cannot take PA morphology. Furthermore, a

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tentative correlation between these five adjunct types and functional criteria, namely varying degrees of participant-orientedness vs. event-orientedness, has been offered: emphatic pronouns and life-stage adjuncts have surfaced as the most participant-oriented elements, followed by locatives, affectives, and 'altogether.' Manner, reason, and quantity adjuncts may be either participant- or event-oriented. Comitatives and temporal expressions cannot be semantically oriented towards a participant in SK.

A particularly interesting point concerns the use of alternate adjunct forms especially in causative and applicative constructions. I have shown that when the base verb is intransitive O- versus A-agreement on locatives may be used to specify the location of causee and causer, respectively. Most unexpectedly however is the use of overt S-agreement in causative and applicative constructions involving an intransitive base verb to encode the location of the causee or applicative object. In trying to answer the question of why S-agreement is used to signal the location of an object, two possible hypotheses have been offered: either the base verb subject triggers semantic agreement or it is possible for a base verb argument to syntactically control participant agreement. Further testing is needed to decide between these two hypotheses. Through the discussion of alternate participant agreement markings I have shown how SK employs this interesting feature in order to express scope distinctions that are not typically grammaticalized in languages.

I have also attempted to place PA within a general typology of agreement by specifically examining in which respects it deviates from more canonical instances (Corbett 2001, 2002): SK PA morphology can be said to be opaque; additional

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specifications for different subtypes of targets are required; agreement may be non-local (i.e., interclausal PA), PA is the only domain of agreement in the language (leaving transitivity agreement phenomena aside); and the feature is syntactic rather than lexical; in addition, instances of what seems to be semantic agreement have been attested. However, PA essentially represents an instance where a nominal controller determines the shape of adjuncts without affecting the shape of its modifiers inside the noun phrase. This is why PA is so unusual; it is an instance of agreement "in the wrong place" without agreement "in the right place." This point is pursued below.

Finally, Ch. 20 provides a comparative study of PA in order to better understand this cross-linguistically unusual phenomenon which is so central to Panoan grammar. Through the comparative survey provided in this chapter it is demonstrated that PA at the intraclausal and interclausal levels is present in languages belonging to the different branches of the Panoan Family, and that the agreement morphemes are cognate across the sister languages; therefore, this feature is posited as part of the grammar of the Proto-language. In addition, the agreement markers on non-clausal adjuncts are the same as the same-subject morphemes. The overall distribution of PA is tripartite.

Comparative analysis also reveals the Panoan agreement markers resulted from the combination of peripheral cases plus core-cases. A handful of peripheral case-markers are posited for the ancestor language (taking into account the phonological correspondences and morpheme reconstructions provided by Shell (1965 / 1975)).

Moreover, it is demonstrated that the morpho-syntax of Proto-Pano included a tripartite case-marking system, possibly with certain splits. It must be highlighted that

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the Proto-Panoan case-marking system is very unusual; i.e., it is a tripartite case-marking system where both A and S arguments receive overt marking. In this way, the Panoan system can be said to be truly tripartite in that it cannot be seen as the result of the combination of nominative-accusative and ergative-absolutive systems; if this were the case the S argument would be zero-marked (as is the case in some Aboriginal Australian languages; Austin 1981) (Valenzuela 2002c).

In most Panoan languages the overt intransitive subject marker became zero, and consequently the case-marking for the S and O functions conflated yielding an ergative-absolutive alignment. Nevertheless, overt S marking and the tripartite distribution were retained in the PA morphology, thus giving birth to an unusual kind of split-ergativity which had not been previously reported in the literature (Valenzuela 2002c).

Ch. 20 also offers a tentative account of how participant agreement may have developed in Panoan. It is proposed that peripheral cases were recruited to serve as non-finite clause markers coding temporal / logical relationships between two states of affairs that probably shared a topical participant. This claim is supported by the form identity or similarity between the peripheral case-markers and the initial sequence of switch-reference markers, and by the fact that the semantics of the case-markers is highly compatible with the temporal / logical relations between events switch-reference markers encode. Next, these peripheral cases were reinterpreted as coreferentiality markers. Possibly, some peripheral cases were in some kind of syntactically-associated complementary distribution between each other; this would account for the fact that same-subject markers tend to restrict the syntactic function of their controllers.

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Subsequently, the core case-markers were added to the already case-marked dependent clauses in agreement with the syntactic function of the coreferential argument in the matrix clause. These core case-markers may have been functionally redundant in certain instances but may have contributed to the encoding of switch-reference in others. Then, the sequences of peripheral plus core cases became fused, rendering portmanteau morphemes that code switch-reference, relative order of events, and the syntactic function of the controller in the matrix clause. Some clausal adjuncts (maybe with zero copula or semantically generic verbs) may have been reinterpreted as non-clausal, and hence these biclausal constructions were reanalyzed as monoclausal (this is particularly evident when examining manner, reason, and quantity adjuncts); subsequently, PA may have spread to other non-clausal adjuncts. Finally, the intransitive subject case-marker was lost in most languages.

As stated above, diachronically Panoan PA involves case agreement on adjuncts. In a cross-linguistic study on secondary depictive predicates (or "depictives" for short), Schultze-Berndt and Himmelmann (to appear) consider case agreement on complements outside the NP as unequivocal signal of depictive status. Following this approach, Panoan PA-marked adjuncts would be considered as depictives. Schultze-Berndt and Himmelmann (op. cit.) also propose the following implicational universal: "In all languages that allow agreement of depictive constituents, modifiers in a noun phrase also obligatorily agree with their head noun..." The present work possibly provides the only known counter-example to this proposed universal.

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A possible hypothesis as to why Panoan languages developed case agreement on adjuncts but not on elements inside the NP may be the fact that case-markers in these languages operate at the phrasal level marking the whole NP. Interestingly, while the elements of a SK NP do form good adjacent constituents, reference-marked clauses may precede, be embedded or follow their matrix clause, and are not necessarily adjacent to their matrix clause. In addition to this, more than one clause may share the same matrix clause. Therefore, functionally it seems more relevant to develop an agreement system at the interclausal level rather than inside the NP.

I have also established a comparison between Panoan and certain Aboriginal Australian languages, especially Jiwarli. Although synchronically Panoan PA and Jiwarli "referential double case" (Austin 1995) look very similar, I think the diachronic paths through which these features developed may in fact have been different. It is plausible though that the general motivations were roughly the same: reference-tracking / adjunct scope, in languages lacking cross-referential pronominal marking on the verb or auxiliary and where the link between certain modifiers and their semantic head cannot be unequivocally inferred from other formal means such as constituent order.

Finally, I would like to point out that SK is quite rich in the formal manifestations of agreement (see for example (170) and (171) in Ch. 7). Transitivity / participant agreement may take place across contiguous or non-contiguous elements, progressively or regressively, word internally or word externally, intraclausally or extraclausally. Furthermore, there may be different layers of agreement and even instances of what could be called "back-feeding" agreement; i.e., an instance where a target element in turn

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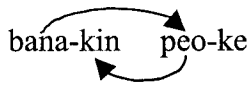
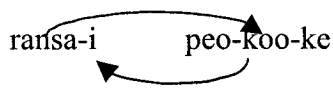
triggers agreement on its former controller. In (1) below, the transitive lexical verb *bana-* 'sow' selects for the also inherently transitive phasal verb *peo-*; in turn, the transitive *peo-* determines the selection of the simultaneous same-subject A-controlled marker *-kin* on the lexical verb:

(1) 

sow-SSSA begin-CMPL
'began to sow'

In contrast, the intransitive lexical verb *ransa-* in (2) requires the addition of the detransitivizing middle suffix to the phasal verb *peo-*, so that the phasal verb matches the intransitivity of the lexical verb. In turn, the now intransitive *peo-koot-* determines the selection of the simultaneous same-subject S-controlled marker *-i* on *ransa-*:

(2) 

dance-SSSS begin-MID-CMPL
'began to dance'

This complexity of SK morpho-syntax is yet another topic that deserves detailed treatment and that can contribute to a comprehensive typology of agreement, as well as to our understanding of the intricate and various ways in which transitivity and associated phenomena are encoded in language.

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APPENDIX A

LIST OF ABBREVIATIONS AND CONVENTIONS

1	first person singular
2	second person singular
3	third person singular
1p	first person plural
2p	second person plural
3p	third person plural
A	transitive subject function, A-orientation
ABL	ablative
ABS	absolutive
ADJZ	adjectivizer
ADV	adverbial-like
ADVZ	adverbializer
AGTZ	agentivizer
ALL	allative
AND1	andative singular intransitive
AND2	andative nonsingular, singular transitive
ASSOC	associative
ATT	attenuative
AUG	augmentative
AUX	auxiliary
BEN	benefactive
CAUS	causative
CHEZ	chezative

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Cl_{REL}	relative clause
CMPL	completive aspect
COM	comitative
CONJ	conjunction
CONTRST	contrast
COP	copula
DAT	dative
DD	discourse discontinuity
DEPREC	deprecatory
DES	desiderative
DIM	diminutive
DIST	distal
DISTR	distributive
DS	different subject
DUB	dubitative
EM	emphatic
EP	epenthesis
ERG	ergative
EV	direct evidential
FDS	following event, different subject
FEM	feminine
FRUSTR	frustrative
FSSS	following event, same-subject, S-orientation
FSSA	following event, same-subject, A-orientation
FUT	future
GEN	genitive
HAB	habitual
HAB.AGTZ	habitual agentivizer
HSY	hearsay

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HSY2	shorter hearsay
I	intransitive (subject orientation)
IMP	imperative
INC	incompletive aspect
INF	infinitive
INFR	inferential
INST	instrumental
INT	interrogative
INTENS	intensifier
INTERJ	interjection
INTRSS	interessive, complement of interest
LEAD	leading interrogative
LIG	ligature
LIM	limitative
LOC	locative
MAL	malefactive
MASC	masculine
MID	middle
MNS	means
NEG	negative
NMLZ	nominalizer
NOM	nominative
n.SG	nonsingular
O	object function
OBL	oblique
ONOM	onomatopoeia
P	previous event
PDCA	previous event, discourse continuity, A orientation
PDCS	previous event, discourse continuity, S orientation

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PDSA	previous event, different subjects, A orientation
PDSS	previous event, different subjects, S orientation
P/J	prospective/jussive
PL	plural
PO>S/A	previous event, dependent object is coreferential with matrix subject
POS1	possessive first person singular
POS3	possessive third person singular
PP1	incompletive participle
PP2	completive participle
PREF	prefix
PREV	preventive
PRIV	privative
PROG	progressive
PROP	proprietive
PSSS	previous event, same-subject, S-orientation
PSSA	previous event, same-subject, A-orientation
PST1	earlier today past
PST2	yesterday past
PST3	several months/a few years ago past
PST4	several years ago past
REC	reciprocal
REM	remote past
S	intransitive subject function, S orientation
S	simultaneous event (when preceding DS)
SDSA	simultaneous event, different subjects, A orientation
SDSS	simultaneous event, different subjects, S orientation
SIML	similitive
SPECL	speculative
SSSS	simultaneous event, same-subject, S-orientation

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SSSA	simultaneous event, same-subject, A-orientation
TEMP	temporal
TRNZ	transitivizer
V_{NMLZ}	nominalizad verb
VAL	valence-changing
VBLZ	verbalizer
VEN1	venitive, singular intransitive
VEN2	venitive nonsingular, singular transitive
VOC	vocative

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APPENDIX B

SHIPIBO-KONIBO TEXTS

The four texts in this appendix illustrate what can be classified as five different genres: (a) procedural speech and (b) special discourse to make a dog become a good hunter (Text 1), (c) description of a traditional custom (Text 2), (d) narrative of a personal experience (Text 3), and (e) informal conversation (Text 4).

The first two lines provide a transcription of the text with morpheme-by-morpheme glosses, whereas the third and fourth lines provide English and Spanish free translations, respectively. The Spanish versions are included here given that all texts were first translated from Shipibo-Konibo into this language, and only afterwards into English. The Spanish translation includes features of Peruvian Amazonian Spanish and, in Text 4, some instances of bilingual Spanish. The Spanish loans in the Shipibo-Konibo text are given in italics.

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Text 1

Speaker: Ranin Meni, from Vencedor village, Piski River. Male, ca. 50 years old.
Compiler: Ranin Rono, from Rooboya village. Male, ca. 30 years old.
Recorded in: Vencedor Village.
Date: 1994?
Text types: (a) procedural speech and (b) special discourse to make a dog become a good hunter.

Ochíti mecha a-nóxon-ronki bi-ti iki sokota pani bero,
dog:ABS good.hunter do.T-FSSA-HSY get-INF AUX six *yahuarango* seed:ABS

chosko jono joboxko, chonka nia boan'is pei, kachio-kea.
four peccary testicle:ABS ten *sacha sanango* leaf:ABS in.the.forest-LOC:ABL:O
'In order to make a dog become a good hunter one needs to (cure it) bringing from the forest six *yahuarango* seeds, four "peccary testicle" fruits and ten *sacha sanango* leaves.'
"Para hacer a un perro buen cazador hay que curarlo trayendo del monte seis semillas de yahuarango, cuatro frutos de "testículo de sajino" y diez hojas de tronco de sacha sanango".

Bi-xon-ronki, a-ti iki jatíbi chaka-kin; chaka-kin senen a-xon-ronki
get-PSSA-HSY do.T-INF AUX all:ABS grind-SSSA grind-SSSA edge do.T-PSSA-HSY

bi-ti iki westíora maseman.
get-INF AUX one plant.bowl:LOC
'Having gotten all these ingredients, one has to grind them all and put them in a bowl.
"Luego de obtener los ingredientes, se machaca todo y se pone la mezcla en un pate".

Bi-xon-ronki, icha-ma onpax na-chí-xon-ki
get-PSSA-HSY much-NEG contained.water:ABS INTERIOR-put.inside-PSSA-HSY2

motsa-ti iki.
mix.w/hands-INF AUX
'Then, one pours a little bit of water and mixes everything with the hands.'
"Luego se agrega un poco de agua y se mezcla chapeando."

Ja pekáo-ronki, chosko tepi yochi bi-xon ne-tosh-ti iki.
that after-HSY four *pucuna chili*:ABS get-PSSA WATER-pop-INF AUX
'After that, one gets four *pucuna* chilies and popping them open adds them to the preparation.'
"Seguidamente, se revientan cuatro pucuna ajíes y se los agrega a la preparación."

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Nato-ronki no-n a-ti iki yamékiri-res,
this:ABS-HSY 1p-ERG do.T-INF AUX early.in.the.morning-just

ochíti mecha a-ti kopí.
dog:ABS good.hunter do.T-INF PURPOSE
'This has to be done very early in the morning, in order to make a dog become a good hunter.'
"Esto se tiene que hacer por la mañanita, para que el perro sea buen cazador."

Ja pekáo-ronki, ja ochíti no-n mecha a-kas-ai-bo-ki
that after-HSY that dog 1p-ERG good.hunter do.T-DES-PP1-PL:ABS-HSY2

yatan-ti iki nishi-n, ta-nex-nonxon.
hold-INF AUX rope-INST FOOT-tie-FSSA
'Afterwards, one has to hold the dog one wants to make good hunter and tie up its feet with a rope.'
"Después, agarramos al perro que queremos curar y le amarramos las patas con una soga".

Ja pekáo, waxmen pakex bi-ti iki.
that after cotton piece:ABS get-INF AUX
'Then, one has to get a piece of cotton.'
"También es necesario tener a la mano un poco de algodón".

Bi-xon-ronki, kena-ti iki westíora joni,
get-PSSA-HSY call-INF AUX one man:ABS

ja-n ochíti yatan-kin-ti.
that-ERG dog:ABS hold-ASSOC-INF
'Next, one has to call someone, so that this person helps to hold the dog.'
"A continuación, se pide ayuda a otra persona para que sostenga al perro".

Jo-ke-tian, bitaxma-ti iki kishi-nko.
come-P-DS hold.tight-INF AUX leg-LOC
'This person has to hold the dog tight between his/her legs.'
"Esta persona aprieta al animal entre sus piernas".

Ja-ská-ribi-xon-ra, no-n jawen kishi-bo tashka-n-xon
that-SIML-also-PSSA-EV 1p-ERG POS3 leg-PL:ABS up.side.down-TRNZ-PSSA

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nexa-ti atipan-ke jiwi-ki.
tie-INF can-CMPL tree-DAT
'Alternatively, one can put the dog upside down and tie (its legs) to a tree.'
"De igual manera podemos poner al perro patas arriba y amarrarle las patas a un palo".

Ja-tian, ja repo-ai-tonin benkex poyaman
that-TEMP that cure.in.the.nose-PP1-ERG one.side hand:INST

mapo-nko yatan-taana,
head-LOC hold-go.do.return-PSS

wetsa mekeman waxmen bi-xon rao-nko poko-taan-a
other hand:INST cotton:ABS get-PSSA medicine-LOC wet-PSS-PO>S/A

ochíti repo-ti iki, rabé rekin kini-nko-bi.
dog:ABS cure.in.the.nose-INF AUX two nose hole-LOC-EM
'While the person in charge of curing the dog (in the nose) holds its head with one hand, with the other hand (s)he wets the cotton in the preparation and inserts it in the dogs nostrils.'
"Mientras, la persona encargada de curar al perro (en la nariz) le sujeta la cabeza con una mano, con la otra mano remoja el algodón en el remedio previamente preparado y lo echa en las fosas nasales del perro".

A-xon yatan-taana, bo-xon jene-ki pota-ti iki, nashi-non i-xon.
do.PSSA hold-PSS carry-PSSA river-DAT throw-INF AUX bathe-FSS do.I-PSSA
'Next, the dog is taken to the river and thrown into the water, so that it bathes.'
"Después se lleva al perro a la orilla del río y se le bota al agua para que se bañe".

Westíora nete winó-ma-xon, kachio bo-ti iki
one day pass:MID-CAUS-PSSA to.the.forest carry-INF AUX

xete-ma-nonxon.
smell.at-CAUS-FSSA
'On the next day, one takes the dog to the forest and has it smell (at animals).'
"Al día siguiente, se lleva al perro al monte para hacerlo olfatear".

Bo-xon oin-a xete-ai-tian, rabé nete winó-ma-xon,
carry-PSSA see-PO>S/A smell-S-DS two day pass:MID-CAUS-PSSA

jakiribi repo-ti iki, no-n reken ak-á keská a-kin-ribi
again cure.in.the.nose-INF AUX 1p-ERG first do.T-PP2 SIML do.T-SSSA-also

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ikaxbi kachio bo-kin.
but to.the.forest carry-SSSS
'If after two days the dog does not smell (at animals), one has to cure it again following the same procedure but taking it to the forest.'
"Si pasado los dos días el perro no olfatea hay que curarlo de nuevo siguiendo el mismo procedimiento, pero llevándolo al monte".

No-n bo-ti atipan-ke ja-bicho,
1p-ERG carry-INF can-CMPL 3:ABS-only

iamax wetsa ochíti mecha-bo betan.
or same dog good.hunter-PL:ABS COM
'We can take (the cured dog, to the forest) alone, or with other dogs which are good hunters (so that they show it).'
"Podemos llevar (al perro curado al monte) ya sea solo o con otros perros cazadores (para que le enseñen)".

Jato-mea-x kikin-i axe-non yoi-ti iki:
3p-LOC:ABL-S extremely-S get.used.to-FDS say-INF AUX
'So that it learns well from them, one has to tell the cured dog:
"Al perro curado para que aprenda bien de los otros se le dice lo siguiente:

> ¡Taka pi-non jo, jo a-nonx a-wé!
> liver:ABS eat P/J ONOM:bark ONOM:bark do.T-FUT do.T-IMP
> In order to eat the liver, bark, bark (at animals)!
> ¡Para que comas el hígado ladra, ladra!
>
> A-kin, a-kin, jo, jo a-kin:
> do.T-SSSA do.T-SSSA ONOM:bark ONOM:bark do.T-SSSA
> You have to, you have to, you have to bark, bark (at animals):
> Tienes que, tienes que, tienes que ladrar, ladrar:
>
> mari a-kin, ano a-kin, yawish a-kin,
> agouti:ABS do.T-SSSA paca:ABS do.T-SSSA armadillo:ABS do.T-SSSA
>
> tsanas a-kin, mananxawe a-kin.
> *punchana*:ABS do.T-SSSA tortoise:ABS do.T-SSSA
> bark at the agouti, bark at the paca, bark at the armadillo, bark at the *punchana*, bark at the tortoise.
> ladrar al añuje, ladrar al majás, ladrar a la carachupa, ladrar a la punchana, ladrar al motelo.

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A-kin, a-kin, jo, jo a-kin;
do.T-SSSA do.T-SSSA ONOM:bark ONOM:bark do.T-SSSA
You have to, you have to, you have to bark, bark (at animals);
Tienes que, tienes que, tienes que ladrar, ladrar;

taka pi-non jo, jo a-kin.
liver:ABS eat-P/J ONOM:bark ONOM:bark do.T-SSSA
to eat the liver, you have to bark, bark (at animals).
para que comas el hígado, tienes que ladrar, ladrar.

Ja-ra ak-ai mi-n jo, jo a-yama-riba-kin,
that:ABS-EV do.T-INC 2-ERG ONOM:bark ONOM:bark do.T-NEG-REP-SSSA

raan-ribi-kin.
miss-REP-SSSA
You must do that, bark, bark (at animals); don't let (them) escape.
Vas a hacer eso, ladra, ladra; no dejes escaper (a los animals).

A-kin, a-kin; mi-n jo, jo a-yamai-tian-ra
do.T-SSSA do.T-SSSA 2-ERG ONOM:bark ONOM:bark do.T-NEG:S-DS-EV

e-n mi-a rao-n-ribi-ai,
1-ERG 2-ABS medicine-VBLZ.TRNZ-REP-INC

mecha ochíti ik-ai kaman!"
good.hunter dog:ABS be-INC LIM
You have to, you have to bark; if you do not bark (at any animal) I will cure you again, until you become a good hunter dog.'
Tienes que, tienes que ladrar; si no ladras a ningún animal yo te voy a curar otra vez, hasta que seas un perro cazador".

Ja-tian, ja ochíti-nin taka pi-kas-kin
that-TEMP that dog-ERG liver:ABS eat-DES-SSSA

yoina bi-ti ja-ke.
edible.animal:ABS get-INF exist-CMPL
'Then, the cured dog, wanting to eat liver, has to bark (at animals) and capture edible animals.'
"Entonces el perro curado, como/si quiere comer hígado, tiene que ladrar y capturar animales".

Ikaxbi ja yoina-nin nami no-n shee a-xon,
but that edible.animal-GEN meat:ABS 1p-ERG ONOM:fry do.T-PSSA

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noe a-xon pi-ti-ma iki;
tasty do.T-PSSA eat-INF-NEG AUX

jainoax xao-ribi mosha-ti-ma iki.
then bone:ABS-also break-INF-NEG AUX
'But the edible animal's meat must not be fried or fixed with condiments; likewise we must not break its bones (when chewing them while eating).'
"Pero la carne del animal cazado por el perro curado no la debemos freir ni condimentar; tampoco debemos romper los huesos al momento de comer".

Ja-tian, nato ochíti-nin bi-ti atipan-ke icha yoina.
that-TEMP this dog-ERG get-INF can-CMPL much edible.animal:ABS
'Then, this dog will be able to catch many edible animals.'
"Así, este perro podrá cazar muchos animales".

No-n nato jawéki-bo senen a-yamai-tian, moa nato ochíti-nin
1p-ERG this thing-PL:ABS edge do.T-NEG:S-DS already this dog-ERG

yoina-bo biamai, moa xeni-n rami-a.
edible.animal-PL:ABS get:NEG:INC already fat-ERG/OBL spoil-PO>S/A
'If we do not keep the prescriptions, this dog will not catch edible animals, having been spoilt by the fat (from frying).'
"Si no respetamos esta conducta, el perro curado ya no podrá cazar animales, porque la manteca le hace perder el efecto de la curación".

Nato rao-baon ochíti rao-n-a-ronki bi-ai:
this medicine-PL:INST dog medicine-VBLZ.TRNZ-PP2-HSY get-INC

mari, ano, yawish, tsanas, mananxawe.
agouti:ABS paca:ABS armadillo:ABS *punchana*:ABS tortoise:ABS
'The dog that has been cured with this medicine catches the following edible animals: agouti, paca, armadillo, *punchana*, tortoise.'
"El perro curado con este tipo de remedio captura los siguientes animales: añuje, majás, carachupa, punchana y motelo".

Jatí-res iki, iráke. Ja-ská-rai mato-n kai-bo.
All-just COP thanks that-SIML-*ra*:INC 2p-GEN co-member.of.ethnic.group-PL
'This is all, thanks. So says our tradition.'
"Esto es todo, gracias. Así dice nuestra tradición".

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Text 2

Speaker: Ranin Ama. Female, ca. 40 years old.
Village: San Francisco de Yarinacocha
Text type: Description of the traditional avoidance relationship of *rayos*.
Date: July 1998

Jawe-tian-bi-ra no-n rayos yoyo a-yosma iki.
what-TEMP-EM-EV 1p-ERG *rayos*:ABS ONOM:talk do.T-NEG.HAB.AGTZ COP
'We never speak directly to our son-in-law.'
"Nunca conversamos directamente con nuestro yerno".

No-n bene-itsa jis-á-ma iki.
1p-GEN husband-other see-PP2-NEG COP
'It is not as with our brother-in-law.'
"No es como con nuestro cuñado".

Jawe-tian-bi no-n "jo-wé ranon!" a-yosma iki,
what-TEMP-EM 1p-ERG come-IMP young.man:ABS do.T-NEG.HAB.AGTZ COP
'We never tell them "come here young man!"
"Nunca le decimos "¡Ven joven!",

"Xontá, jo-non mi-n bene!", a-kin ak-ai.
girl:VOC come-P/J 2-GEN husband:ABS do.T-SSSA do.T-INC
(instead) we tell (our daughter) "Girl, may your husband come!"'
sino que le decimos a nuestra hija "¡Chica, que venga tu esposo!"".

Ja-tian jawen rayos "jee, jee" ik-ai.
that-TEMP POS3 *rayos*:ABS ONOM:yes:MASC ONOM:yes:MASC do.I-INC
'Then the son-in-law answers "yes, yes" (respectfully).'
"Entonces el yerno contesta "sí, sí" (con tono respetuoso)".

Ja-tian bake-ranoman-bi-ribi "tita jo-non, Birí",
that-TEMP child-young.man:ERG-EM-also mother:ABS come-P/J Biri:VOC

a-kin ak-ai.
do.T-SSSA do.T-INC
'In turn the young man tells (his wife) "may (your) mother come, Biri!"'
"Por su parte el joven dice: "Biri, que venga (tu) mamá!""

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Ja-tian "joo" ik-ai.
that-TEMP ONOM:yes:FEM do.I-INC
'And (the mother-in-law) says "yes."'
"Y (la suegra) contesta "sí"".

Rama-kaman-bi no-a no-n rayos betan yoyo i-ama-[a]i,
now-LIM-EM 1p-ABS 1p-GEN *rayos* COM ONOM:speak do.I-NEG-INC
'Until now we don't talk to our son-in-laws (directly),
"Hasta ahora nosotros no hablamos con nuestros yernos (directamente),

no-a ja-ska-ra iki.
1p-ABS that-SIML-*ra* COP
so are we.'
así somos".

Wetsa-nko-bo ka-[a]i-bi no-n oin oin-res-ai no-n rayos.
other-ALL-PL go-SDS-EM 1p-ERG see see-just-INC 1p-GEN *rayos*:ABS
'Even if he goes somewhere else we just look at our son-in-law.'
"Aunque se vaya a otro lugar, le miramos nomás a nuestro yerno".

No-n jawe i-ke-mein, no-n bene i-ke-mein rayos
1p-GEN what:ABS be-PDS-SPECL 1p-GEN husband:ABS be-PDS-SPECL *rayos*:ABS

no-n yoká-ti iki;
1p-ERG ask-INF AUX
'Is he perhaps our something, or is he perhaps our husband to ask him questions?
"Ni que fuera nuestro algo, ni que fuera nuestro esposo para hacerle preguntas;

jakon-shoko a-kin-res no-n rayos a-ti ja-ke.
good-DIM do.T-SSSA-just 1p-GEN *rayos*:ABS do.T-INF exist-CMPL
we must treat our son-in-law with respect.'
tenemos que tratar con mucho respeto a nuestro yerno".

Rama-tian, ochó ka-tan-ke-tian:
now-TEMP far go-go.do.return-P-DS
'Nowadays when (our son-in-law) comes from far away we tell him:
"Actualmente cuando llega desde lejos le decimos:

"Mi-a jo-á, chakí? Mi-a jo-á, baké?",
2-ABS come-PP2 boy:VOC 2-ABS come-PP2 child:VOC
"Have you come, little man? Have you come, child?"
"¿Has venido, varoncito? ¿Has venido, hijo?"

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no-n jawéki-a-ma-[a]i no-n bake-bi keská-a-kin.
1p-ERG thing-do.T-NEG-INC 1p-GEN child-EM SIML-do.T-SSSA
and we serve him the food as if he were our own son.'
y le servimos de comer como si fuera nuestro propio hijo".

Moa-tian a-káti-kan-ai, yoyo a-yama-bires-kin,
already-TEMP do.T-PST4-PL-INC ONOM:speak do.T-NEG-purely-SSSA
'In the past we did not talk to our son-in-law at all,
"Antes no le hablábamos en absoluto a nuestro yerno,

patax-bo-bi wino-yama-kati-kan-ai no-n rayos.
next.to-PL:ABS-EM pass-NEG-PST4-PL-INC 1p-GEN *rayos*:ABS
we didn't even pass by his side.'
ni siquiera pasábamos por su lado".

Rama ja-ska-ra-ma iki, rama no-n wino-tani-ai,
now that-SIML-*ra*-NEG COP now 1p-ERG pass-ATT-INC
'Now it is different, now we pass by him,
"Ahora ya no es así, ahora nos le acercamos,

patax-tani-bo no-a ni-ai.
nex.to-ATT-PL:ABS 1p-ABS walk-INC
we walk just next to him.'
caminamos al ladito".

Moa-tian ja-ska-ra-ma i-káti-ai;
already-TEMP that-SIML-*ra*-NEG do.I-PST4-INC
'It didn't use to be like that.'
"Antes no era así".

moa jawen rayos ochó jo-ai oin-ax beo-kati-kan-ai,
already POS3 *rayos*:ABS far come-PP1:ABS see-PSSS lower.head-PST4-PL-INC
'When the mother-in-law saw the son-in-law from far away, she lowered her head,
"Cuando la suegra divisaba desde lejos que se acercaba su yerno, se agachaba,

jawen rayos be-is-na-ke-tian.
POS3 *rayos*:ABS FACE-see-PREV-P-DS
to prevent that her son-in-law saw her face.'
no vaya a ser que su yerno le vea la cara".

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Ja-ska-ra-bo i-káti-kan-ai.
that-SIML-*ra*-PL:ABS do.I-PST4-PL-INC
'So it was.'
"Así eran las cosas".

Jawe-tian-ki jawen bake-ya iki,
that-TEMP-HSY2 POS3 child-PROP COP
'Only when her daughter was present,
"Cuando estaba su hija presente,

ja-tian-pari yoyo a-káti-kan-ai.
that-TEMP-first ONOM:speak do.T-PST4-PL-INC
then she could talk to him.'
recién le hablaba".

Jain jawen bake i-ke-tian-pari:
there POS3 child:ABS do.I-P-DS-first
'Only when her daughter was present the mother-in-law said:
"Recién cuando estaba su hija presente la suegra decía:

"Mi-n bene-n bakish-pari ja-ska-ra a-tánon!"
2-GEN husband-ERG one.day.away-first that-SIML-*ra* do.T-go.do.return:P/J
"May your husband do this or that tomorrow!"'
"Que tu esposo haga tal cosa mañana!""

Ja-tian rayos ka-[a]i yomera-[a]i-bo,
that-TEMP *rayos*:ABS go-INC fish/hunt-PP1-PL:ABS
'Then the son-in-law went fishing or hunting,
"Entonces el yerno salía a pescar o cazar,

nonti ak-í-bo, winti ak-í-bo.
canoe:ABS do.T-SSSS-PL:ABS paddle:ABS do.T-SSSS-PL:ABS
then he built a canoe, made a paddle.'
construía canoa, hacía remo".

Rama kaman-bi ja axé-bo no-a keyo-t-a-ma iki.
now LIM-EM that custom-PL:ABS 1p-ABS finish-MID-PP2-NEG COP
'Until today we have not stopped practicing these customs.'
"Actualmente esas costumbres no las hemos perdido por completo".

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Nokon rayos ochokea-x jo-ai-tian e-n yoyo a-yama-[a]i,
POS1 *rayos*:ABS far:LOC:ABL-S come-S-DS 1-ERG ONOM:speak do.T-NEG-INC
'When my son-in-law comes from far away I don't make conversation with him,
"Cuando viene mi yerno desde lejos no le converso,

ponté e-n "jo-wé" a-res-ai.
straight 1-ERG come-IMP do.T-just-INC
I only greet him sort of impersonally.'
solamente lo saludo impersonalmente".

Nokon jawe i-ke-mein "mi-a jo-a?" i-xon
POS1 what:ABS do.I-PDS-SPECL 2-ABS come-PP2 do.I-PSSA
'He is not my something to ask him "Have you come?"
"Ni que fuera mi algo para preguntarle "¿has venido?"

me-tson-bo-ti iki.
HAND-catch-going-INF COP
and take him by the hand.'
y llevármelo de la mano".

Ja-tian jawen awin jo-ai "mi-a jo-a?", a-kin ak-ai;
that-TEMP POS3 wife:ABS come-SDS 2-ABS come-PP2 do.T-SSSA do.T-INC
'When his wife comes, she asks him "Have you come?"
"Cuando viene su esposa, ella sí le pregunta "¿has venido?"

"mi-a jo-a ?" a-xon ja-n bi-bain-ai.
2-ABS come-PP2 do.T-PSSA 3-ERG get-AND2-INC
and saying this she takes him by the hand.'
y diciéndole eso se lo lleva".

No-n ja-ská-a-ti atipan-yama-ke, shiro-ma iki.
1p-ERG that-SIML-do.T-INF can-NEG-CMPL joke-NEG COP
'We (mothers-in-law) cannot treat our sons-in-law in that way, this is not a joke.'
"Nosotras las suegras no podemos tratar así a nuestros yernos, esto no es broma".

Ja-tian yoyo a-kin-ma-bi ja-n jawéki-bo be-a
that-TEMP ONOM:speak do.T-SSSA-NEG-EM 3-ERG thing-PL:ABS bring-PP2:ABS

moa no-n ak-ai.
already 1p-ERG do.T-INC
'Even though we do not talk to our son-in-law we cook the food he has brought.'
"Pero aunque no le hablemos al yerno cocinamos los alimentos que él ha traído".

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Ja-tian ja joni-n onan-ke:
that-TEMP that man-ERG know-CMPL
'Then the man realizes
"Entonces el hombre se da cuenta

"nokon rayos-en-ra e-a noi-ke" i-xon.
POS1 *rayos*-ERG-EV 1-ABS love-CMPL do.I-PSSA
and says: "My mother-in-law appreciates me.'"
y dice: "Mi suegra me quiere"".

Jo-ke-tian no-n xea-ma-yama-kin oin-res-a
come-P-DS 1p-ERG drink-CAUS-NEG-SSSA see-just-PO>S/A
'If when he comes back we do not offer him anything to drink and just look at him,
"Si cuando llega no le damos de beber y nos lo quedamos mirando simplemente,

bake-ranoman shinan-ai:
child-young.man:ERG think-INC
then the young man is going to think:
el joven va a pensar:

"Nokon rayos-en-ra e-a noi-yama-ke", ik-ai.
POS1 *rayos*-ERG-EV 1-ABS love-NEG-CMPL do.I-INC
"My mother-in-law doesn't appreciate me.'"
"Mi suegra no me quiere"".

Ja-ska-ra i-ti-ma iki, jatí-xon-bi noi-ti ja-ke.
that-SIML-*ra* do.I-INF-NEG COP all-A-EM love-INF exist-CMPL
'But things should not be like that, we all should love our sons-in-law.'
"Así no debe ser, todos debemos de querer a nuestro yerno".

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Text 3

Speaker: Inkan Soi. Male, ca. 28 years old.
Recorded in: Lima.
Date: 1998
Text type: narrative, personal experience.

Nokon jane r-iki Inkan Soi.
POS1 name EV-COP Inkan Soi.
'My name is Inkan Soi.'
"Me llamo Inkan Soi".

E-a r-iki Bawanixo-nko-ni-a.
1-ABS EV-COP Bawanixo-LOC-LIG-ABL
'I am from Bawanisho.'
"Soy de Bawanisho".

E-n-ra mato yoi-ai westíora nokon yosi-shoko-betan e-a
1-ERG-EV 2p:ABS say-INC one POS1 elder-DIM-COM 1-ABS

winó-ni jawéki, yomera-i ka-[a]x.
pass:MID-REM:NMLZ thing:ABS get.prey-SSSS go-PSSS
'I will tell you something that happened to me and my grandfather once we went fishing'.
"Les voy a contar lo que me pasó una vez cuando fui a pescar con mi abuelo".

Westíora nete-n-ra ka-a iki nokon yosi betan e-a, piti
one day-TEMP-EV go-PP2 AUX POS1 elder and 1-ABS fish:ABS

bena-i; piti bena-i ka-a iki no-a ian-man.
search-SSSS fish:ABS search-SSSS go-PP2 AUX 1p:ABS lake-ALL
'One day, my grandfather and I went to look for fish; we went fishing to the lake.'
"Un día, mi abuelo y yo fuimos salimos a pescar; en busca de pescado fuimos a la cocha".

Jene-tian i-ke-tian no-a Paro-n piko-t-a iki.
flowing.water-TEMP be-P-DS 1p:ABS Ucayali.River-ALL take.out-MID-PP2 AUX
'Since it was the rainy season, we went out into the Ucayali River.'
"Como era la estación de lluvias, salimos a pescar al Ucayali".

Paro-n piko-t-ax no-a ka-a iki
Ucayali.River-ALL take.out-MID-PSSS 1p-ABS go-PP2 AUX

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iná inat-i.
go.up.the.river go.up.the.river-SSSS
'Once we flew into the Ucayali River, we went rowing up and up the river.'
"Una vez que salimos al Ucayali fuimos surcando y surcando".

Ka-kin no-n na-tsá na-tasá-bain-a iki,
go-SSSA 1p-ERG INTERIOR-drive INTERIOR-drive-AND2-PP2 AUX

na-tsá na-tsá-bain-a iki.
INTERIOR-drive INTERIOR-drive-AND2-PP2 AUX
'While going (up the river) we kept on driving (arrows) into the water.'
"Mientras surcábamos íbamos picando y picando dentro del agua".

Ka-kin *casi* kimisha mayá pekáo,
go-SSSA almost three turn after

moa no-n jawe-bi a-yama pekáo,
already 1p-ERG what:ABS-EM do.T-NEG:PP2 after,

moa no-a jatsan-a ik-á iki, yantan-paket-ai-n-ribi,
already 1p-ABS get.tired/bored-PP2 be-PP2 AUX grow.dark-go.down-S-DS-REP

nokon yosi-shoko e-n yoi-a iki: "Rama-bi no-n jawe ak-ai"
POS1 elder-DIM:ABS 1-ERG say-PP2 AUX now-EM 1p-ERG what:ABS do.T-PP1

a-kin yokat-a ik-á iki.
do.T-SSSA ask-PP2 be-PP2 AUX
'After we had passed almost three meanders (of the river) without having gotten any (fish), we were already tired/bored; also it started to grow dark. So I asked my grandfather: "And now what are we going to do?"'
"Luego de pasar tres vueltas y no haber pescado nada, ya estábamos aburridos y cansados y también empezó a oscurecer; entonces, le pregunté a mi abuelo: "¿Y ahora qué vamos a hacer?"

"Ja-ska-ra-bi no-a ka-ti ja-[a]i, babá"
that-SIML-*ra*-EM 1p:ABS go-INF exist-INC grandchild:VOC

a-kin ak-á iki.
do.T-SSSA do.T-PP2 AUX
'"Just like that (empty-handed) we'll have to go back, grandson" he said.
"Tenemos que irnos así nomás, nieto," me contestó.

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Ja no-a jo-a iki, jakiribi moa toxbá-paket-i.
that 1p-ABS come-PP2 AUX again already float-go.down-SSSS
'So we started to come back floating (i.e. without rowing) down the river'.
"Y así regresamos bajando al garete".

Jo-kin no-n oin-a taxa tsama-t-a ik-á iki,
come-SSSA 1p-ERG see-PP2 dry.branch gather-MID-PP2 be-PP2 AUX

nato joxo manxan tsama-t-a.
this white heron gather-MID-PP2
'While we were coming (back), we saw a group of white herons (on) a dry pole (on the beach).'
"De regreso vimos un grupo de garzas blancas".

Ja-tian joxo manxan tsama-t-a i-ke-tian,
that-TEMP white heron gather-MID-PP2 be-P-DS

e-n oin-a-ma i-ke-tian,
1-ERG see-PP2-NEG be-P-DS

ja nokon papa-shoko-n e-a yoi-a iki:
that POS1 father-DIM-ERG 1-ABS say-PP2 AUX
'Since there was a group of herons but I had not seen them, my grandfather told me:
"Como las garzas estaban en grupo y yo no las había visto, mi abuelo me dijo:

"Babá, oa-ra joxo manxan tsamá-ke.
grandchild:VOC DIST-EV white heron:ABS gather:MID-CMPL

Ne-ke a-wé, no-n ja-shoko-tani-bires be-non e-n
PROX-over.there do.T-IMP 1p-ERG 3-DIM:ABS-hardly-purely bring-FDS 1-ERG

to' a-ba-non".... ik-á iki.
ONOM:shoot do.T-P/J-P/J do.I-PP2 AUX
'"Grandson, there is a group of white herons over there. Get closer in that direction; I'm gonna shoot them, so that we take (home) at least that"'.
"Nieto, allá están las garzas amontonadas. Rema hacia allá, aunque sea eso vamos a cazar para llevar a casa".

Ja-tian e-n oin-a ik-á iki ochó-cha mayá pekáo, mayá pekáo-ira-ma...
3-TEMP 1-ERG see-PP2 be-PP2 AUX far-a.bit turn after turn after-INTENS-NEG

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paboro-nin, joxo manxan, kimisha joxo manxan.
cove-LOC white heron three white heron
'A little bit further away, just passed the meander... in the cove, I saw the white herons, three white herons.'
"Entonces yo vi un poco más allá, no tan lejos de la vuelta...en la ensenada, garzas blancas, tres garzas blancas".

Neté-shaman no-a toxbá-paket-a iki.
silent-nicely 1p-ABS float-go.down-PP2 AUX
'We approached them floating down the river silently'.
"Vinimos bajando al garete sin hacer ruido".

Jain nokon papa-shoko moa to'a-ti-ya ik-á iki,
there POS1 father-DIM:ABS already ONOM:shoot do.T-INF-PROPR be-PP2 AUX

nokon papa-shoko-n to'a-ti *listo* ak-á iki.
POS1 father-DIM-ERG ONOM:shoot do.T-INF:ABS ready do.T-PP2 AUX
'My grandfather had his shotgun in the hands already, my grandfather got the shotgun ready.'
"Para esto mi abuelo ya estaba agarrando su escopeta, ya tenía la escopeta lista".

Jain-xon "e-a ne-ri e-a wina-xon-we, baba-shoko"
there-PDCA 1-ABS PROX-about 1-ABS row-BEN-IMP grandchild-DIM

a-kin ak-á iki.
do.T-SSSA do.T-PP2 AUX
'Then, he told me: "Row for me over here, grandson!"
"Entonces me dijo: "Llévame (a remo) por aquí, nieto".

"Ja to'a-ti-n-ra mi-n joxo manxan mi-n keyo
that ONOM:shoot do.T-INF-INST-EV 2-ERG white heron:ABS 2-ERG finish

jawetsiki...nami-oma i-ke-n-bi kikin a-kin jaras ak-ai"
jawetsiki...meat-PRIV be-P-DS-EM extremely do.T-SSSA ONOM do.T-INC

a-kin e-n ak-á iki.
do.T-SSSA 1-ERG do.T-PP2 AUX
'"With that shotgun you're gonna finish the...because it has little meat, you're gonna destroy the white heron completely," I said.'
Entonces yo le dije: "Con esa escopeta vas a terminar con....este...como no tiene mucha carne vas a destrozar a la garza".

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"Ja-ská-yama-we! Ja-bi e-a ne-ri a-xon-we.
that-SIML-NEG-IMP 3:ABS-EM 1-ABS PROX-about do.T-BEN-IMP
'"Don't say that! Instead, bring me that a little bit closer.
"¡No digas eso! Mas bien tráemela más cerca.

E-n texo-nko-shaman to'a-ba-non" ik-á iki".
1-ERG neck-LOC-nicely ONOM:shoot do.T-P/J-P/J do.I-PP2 AUX
I'm gonna shoot it in the neck with precision," he said'.
Le voy a disparar en el pescuezo bonito", me contestó".

Ja-tian ne-ri e-n wina-xon-a, yoi-a-keská-bi,
3-TEMP PROX-about 1-ERG row-BEN-P>S/A say-PP2-SIML-EM

yosi kikin mecha ik-á iki.
elder:ABS extremely good.hunter be-PP2 AUX
'Then I took him rowing over here; as he had said, the elder had very good aim'.
"Luego, lo llevé remando hasta allí; tal como había dicho, el viejo tenía muy buena puntería".

Tex-kain-a-kain-ke-tian ak-á iki kikin texo-nko-shoko
neck-AND1-do.T-AND1-P-DS do.T-PP2 AUX extremely neck-LOC-DIM

to'ak-á iki
ONOM:shoot do.T-PP2 AUX

mapo keyo-kain-ti a-kin, yora-ki *ni* jawe *bala*-n-bi
head:ABS finish-AND1-INF do.T-SSSA body-DAT neither what bullet-ERG-EM

yatan-yam[a]-a iki.
catch-NEG-PP2 AUX
'When a heron stretched its neck, he shot it in the very neck, destroying its head; as for the body, not a single bullet had reached it.'
"Cuando una de las garzas estiró su pescuezo, él le disparó en el mismo pescuezo destrozándole la cabeza; su cuerpo, sin embargo, no tenía ni una sola bala".

Ja-yá-shoko ja a-beiran-i no-a jo-a iki.
3-PROPR-DIM that:ABS do.T-VEN2-SSSS 1p-ABS come-PP2 AUX
'Only with that, bringing just that, we came (back home).'
"Con eso nomás, trayendo eso, regresamos".

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Jo-ax nokon yosi-shoko yoyo ik-á iki:
come-PSSS POS1 elder-DIM:ABS ONOM:speak do.I-PP2 AUX
'After we came back, my grandfather said:
"Ya de regreso, mi abuelo dijo:

"Ja-skat-i no-a-ra kíkin-i yopa-ke.
that-SIML-SSSS 1p-ABS-EV extremely-S become.afasi-CMPL
"So we have become really *afasi* (i.e., bad hunters, people with bad aim).
"Así que nos hemos vuelto completamente afasis.

Ikaxbi bakish-ra e-n manxaman kawáti ao-bo icha
but one.day.away-EV 1-ERG manxaman kawáti k.tree-PL much:ABS

oin-iba-ke.
see-PST2-CMPL
But yesterday I saw a lot of *manxaman kawáti* (lit. "bridge of the heron") trees.
Pero ayer vi un montón de árboles de *manxaman kawáti.*

Ja-ra bakish no-n xea-ti ja-ke, babá"
3:ABS-EV one.day.away 1p-ERG drink-INF exist-CMPL grandchild:VOC

a-kin e-a ak-á iki.
do.T-SSSA 1-ABS do.T-PP2 AUX
This is what we have to drink tomorrow, grandson," he told me'.
Esto es lo que tenemos que tomar mañana, nieto", me dijo".

Ja ka-xon, nete xabá-ke-tian, no-n ak-á iki ja rao
that go-PSSA world clear.up-P-DS 1p-ERG do.T-PP2 AUX that medicine

xea-kin.
drink-SSSA
'Then after going (to get the *manxaman kawáti*), when the day cleared, we drank the medicine.'
"Luego, yendo (a conseguir el *manxaman kawáti*), al amanecer, tomamos el remedio".

No-n ja rao xe-a ik-á iki ja-skat-i
1p-ERG that medicine drink-PP2:ABS be-PP2 AUX that-SIML-SSSS

kikin moka kinan-ti.
extremely bitter vomit-PURP
'The medicine we drank was very bitter, so that we would throw (it) up.'
"El remedio que tomamos era extremadamente amargo, de manera que nos provocara vómito".

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"Ja-ska- ra r-iki. Ja r-iki moa no-a
that-SIML-*ra* EV-COP 3:ABS EV-COP already 1p-ABS

yopa-ibat-a kopí;
become.*afasi*-PST2-PP2 reason
"This is why. This is why we had become *afasi*;
"Esta es la razón. Este es el motivo por el cual nos habíamos vuelto afasis;

jawen moka r-iki nato. Ja-ra no-n keyo-ti ja-ke"
POS3 bitterness EV-COP this 3:AB-EV 1p-ERG finish-INF exist-CMPL
this is its bitterness. This we have to drink up,"
este es su amargor. Esto tenemos que tomarlo de una sola vez",

a-kin e-a ak-á iki nokon yosi-n.
do.T-PSST 1-ABS do.T-PP2 AUX POS1 elder-ERG
my grandfather told me.'
me dijo mi abuelo".

Ja-pekáo ja-skat-i no-n kikiankin kinan-a iki.
that-after that-SIML-SSSS 1-ERG extremely:do.T:SSSA vomit-PP2 AUX
'After drinking up the medicine, we threw it all up.'
"Después de tomar el remedio, lo vomitamos todo".

Kinan-a pekáo moa, jakiribi moa *semana* pia me-yama pekáo,
vomit-PP2 after already again already week arrow:ABS HAND-NEG:PP2 after

no-a ka-ríba[-a] iki.
1p-ABS go-REP[-PP2] AUX
'After having throwing it up, and after not having touched an arrow for a week, we went (to fish again).'
"Y luego de vomitar el remedio y de no haber tocado una flecha por una semana, fuimos a pescar nuevamente".

Y jashsh ka-xon no-n ak-á iki kikin piro icha
and ONOM go-PSSA 1p-ERG do.T-PP2 AUX extremely cahuara much:ABS

be-kin.
bring-SSSA
'And, *jashsh*, we went (out to fish) and we got an awful lot of *cahuara* fish.'
"Y, *jashsh*, salimos a pescar y agarramos un montón de cahuara".

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Text 4

Speakers: Sanken Bari (R) and one of his relatives (S); both are males, ca. 40 years old.
Recorded in: Palestina village.
Date: June 2002
Text type: informal conversation

R: Ja-tian jawe tee-shoko ak-í iki rama jain chai?
that-DD what:ABS work-DIM:ABS do.T-SSSS AUX now there b.in.law:ABS
'And what kind of little work does brother in law do there now?
"¿Y qué trabajito hace el cuñado ahora allá?"

S: Meskó-shoko-bo papa *ayuda*-n-i.
all.types.of-DIM-PL:ABS father:ABS help-LOAN.VBLZ-SSSS
'All types of work, he is helping father.'
"De todo, está ayudando a papá:".

R: Yapa-ki ja-ríba-a jain?
fish:ABS-INT exist-REP-PP2 there
'Is there also fish there?' [They had been talking about crops before]
"¿También hay peje allá?"

S: Yapa-kan? Ja-ai.
fish-CONVERSATION.REORIENTATIVE exist-INC
'Fish? Yes, there is fish (too).'
"¿Peje? Sí hay".

R: Jawe-no-ri ja yomera-kan-ai?
what-LOC-INT2 that fish-PL-PP1
'Where is it that one fishes?
"¿Dónde es lo que pescan?"

S: Jain ja *tipishka*-ain-bi *y* pekáo iaman.
there that *tipishka*-LOC-EM and behind lake:LOC
'There, in the *tipishca* (previous main course of the river) itself, and also behind (the village) in the lake.'
"Allí nomás en la misma tipishca y atrás en la cocha".

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R: Jawe jane-ri ja ian?
what name-INT2 that lake:ABS
'What is the name of that lake?'
"¿Cómo se llama la cocha?"

S: Panakacha ak-kan-ai ian.
Panakacha do.T-PL-INC lake:ABS
'The lake is called Panakacha.'
"Panakacha le dicen a la cocha".

R: Oa ja-o-biran ka-ti-ma-a-ri ja Janeya-nin?
DIST that-.APPROX.LOC-INFR go-INF-NEG-PP2-INT2 that Janeya-OBL
'And don't they take that way, the Janeya (river)?'
"Y no se van por esa, por el Janeya?"

S: Janeya? Ik-áma, Janeya chichó pekáo.
Janeya do.I-NEG Janeya inside back
'Janeya? No, inside and behind the Janeya.'
"¿El Janeya? No, adentro y atrás del Janeya.

R: Tae-oma iki ja?
small.waterway-PRIV COP 3:ABS
'Doesn't it have a small waterway (that links it with a river or lake)?'
"¿No tiene caño?"

S: Tae ja-ke, Janeya-o-ri-kan.
small.waterway:ABS exist-CMPL Janeya-APPROX.LOC-about-and
'There is a small waterway, off the Janeya.'
"Hay caño, por el janeya".

R: Maya-t-a.
go.around-MID-PP2
'It is a meander of the river.'
"Es vuelta".

S: Jen jen.
'Yes.'
"Sí."

R: Jaa-tian...
that-DD
'And....'
"Y..."

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S: Jain r-iki ne-ino icha.
there EV-COP FLOWING.WATER-jaguar:ABS many
'There are a lot of nutrias there.'
"Ahí hay bastante nutria".

R: Ne-ino icha-ri jain?
FLOWING.WATER-jaguar:ABS many-INT2 there
'There are a lot of nutrias there?
"¿Bastante nutria hay ahí?"

S: Jen jen.
'Yes.'
"Sí".

R: Jaweno-ri ja jiwi ja-a?
where-INT2 that wood:ABS exist-PP2
'And where is it that there is wood?'
"¿Dónde es lo que hay madera?"

S: Ja-o-kaya, Janeya-nin.
that-APPROX.LOC-CONTRST Janeya-OBL
'That is somewhere else, taking the Janeya.'
"Por ahí es, por el Janeya".

R: Jiwi; ja jawe jiwi-bo-mein iki?
wood that what wood-PL:ABS-SPECUL COP
'Wood; and what kinds of wood may there be?'
"Madera; ¿y qué maderas serán?"

S: Konxan, xono, kawapori, aná; ja-bo-ronki iki icha.
cedar *lupuna*[1] *kawapori catahua*[2] that-PL:ABS-HSY COP much
'Cedar, *lupuna*, *cahuapuri*, *catahua*; those are the ones that abound.'
"Cedro, lupuna, cahuapuri, catahua, esos son los que abundan".

R: Jaa-ki ibo-oma iki *o del Estado*?
that:ABS-INT owner-PRIV COP or of.the State
'And, it has no owner or does it belong to the government?'
"¿No tiene dueño o del Estado es?"

---

[1] *Bombacaceae, Chorisia sp., Ceiba pentandra.* Tournon, Appendix 1.

[2] *Euphorbiaceae, Hura crepitans.* Tournon 1995, Appendix 1.

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S: *Del Estado*-kaya.
of.the State-CONTRST
'It belongs to the government.'
"Sí, del Estado es".

R: Ja-tian, jaweno-kaya-ri ja binon a-kan-ai?
that-DD where-CONTRST-INT2 that *aguaje*:[3]ABS do.T-PL-PP1
'And where is it that one extracts *aguaje* (fruit) from?'
"¿Y dónde es lo que sacan el aguaje?"

S: Ja Palestinain, jain-kaya, moa nato *setiembre*-nin
that Palestina:LOC there-CONTRST already this september-TEMP

joni-baon peo-ai binon; *treinta cuarenta soles*-bo-ronki iki
person-PL:ERG begin-INC *aguaje*:ABS thirty forty soles-PL-HSY COP

rama-shoko-bi *saca*.
now-DIM-EM sack:ABS
'In Palestina, there it is, already in September people start extracting *aguaje*; a sack costs thirty to forty soles.'
"En Palestina, ahí es, en este setiembre la gente ya comienza a sacar aguaje; a treinta, cuarenta soles está ahorita la saca".

R: Icha bimi-ki mato jain noko-t-a-ma iki?
much fruit-DAT 2p:ABS there meet-MID-PP2-NEG AUX
'You didn't reach the place where the fruit abounds?'
"¿Ustedes no han llegado donde hay bastante?"

S: Moa Kostó ka-tainba-ke, ikaxbi-kan moa
already Kostó go-go.do.and.return:PST2-CMPL but-and already

oi niweabat-ai-tian bane-iba-ke. Jain-ronki iba-ke
rain occur.w/strong.wind-S-DS stay-PST2-CMPL there-HSY do.I:PST2-CMPL

moa maan-ai-bo.
already come.down-PP1-PL:ABS
'Kostó went there already, but because of the rain with strong wind he had to come back. He says that (the *aguaje* fruits) were already falling down.'
"Kostó ya se ha ido, pero no llegó, regresó porque le agarró lluvia con viento. Dice que ya estaba cayendo algunas frutas del aguaje".

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[3] *Mauritia flexuosa, Palmae.* Tournon 1995, Appendix 1.

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R: Moa joshin-ai-bo.
already red-PP1-PL:ABS
'They were already becoming ripe.'
"Ya estaba madurando".

S: Moa joshin-ai-bo. *Setiembre*-n r-iki joni-baon peo-ai;
already red-PP1-PL:ABS September-OBL EV-COP person-PL:ERG begin-INC

jain-bi-ronki *comprador* jo-ai, *veinte cinco soles saca.*
there-EM-HSY buyer:ABS come-INC twenty five soles sack
'They were already becoming ripe. In September they begin (to yield fruit) already, and the buyers come (paying) twenty-five soles per sack.'
"Ya estaba madurando. En setiembre comienzan ya a dar, y los compradores se van hasta allá (pagando) veinticinco soles la saca".

R: Callería-n keská-ribi.
Callería-LOC SIML-also
'Just like in Callería.'
"Igual que en Callería".

S: Ja-ska-ribi-kaya.
that-SIML-also-CONTRST
'Just like that.'
"Igualito".

R: Jainoa-baon-bicho ak-ai, Palestina-baon-ki a-ríba-[a]?
there:LOC:ABL-PL:ERG-only do.T-PP1 Palestina-PL:ERG-INT do.T-REP-PP2
'Do only the people from that place extract *aguaje*, or also those from Palestina do it?'
"¿Sólo sacan los de allí, o también sacan los de Palestina?"

S: Ja jainoa-baon-bicho.
that there:LOC:ABL-PL:ERG-only

Ja-tian jainoa-x-[r]onki joni benó-ni-ke;
that-DD there-LOC:ABL-S-HSY person:ABS get.lost-REM-CMPL

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joni-ronki benot-a iki kimisha nete, jainoa joni.
person:ABS-HSY get.lost-PP2 AUX three day there:LOC:ABL person:ABS
'Only those from there.
It is said that a man from there got lost; a man got lost for three days, a man from there.'
"Sólo los de ahí.
Dicen que se había errado una persona de ahí; esa persona se había errado durante tres días, uno de ahí".

R: Palestinainoa joni.
Palestina:LOC:LOC:ABL man
'A man from Palestina.'
"Un hombre de Palestina".

S: Palestinainoa joni. Ja benó-xon-ronki oin-a iki
Palestina:LOC:LOC:ABL person that:ABS get.lost-PSSA-HSY see-PP2 AUX

kikin *caoba* icha; *tres dia* benot-a iki joni.
extremely mahogany much three day get.lost-PP2 AUX man:ABS
'Yes, a man from Palestina. While he was lost he saw a lot of mahogany trees;[4] he was lost for three days, the man.'
"Sí, un hombre de Palestina. Durante su errada había visto bastante caoba; tres días se había errado esa persona".

R: Ya.
'Yeah.'
"Ya".

S: Ja benó-xon, ja onitsa-kin-ronki oin-a iki, ja
that:ABS get.lost-PSSA that:ABS get.desperate-SSSA-HSY see-PP2 AUX that

Masarai manaman, kikin *caoba* icha, *bajial*-ain.
Masarai mountain:LOC extremely mahogany much flooding.plain-LOC
'While he was lost and feeling desperate, he saw on the Masarai mountain, a lot of mahogany, in the flooding plain.'
"Y en su errada, en su desesperación ha visto en ese cerro de Masarai bastante caobal en el bajial".

[4] *Swietenia macrophylla, Meliaceae.* The SK term is *wishtininti*; the speakers in the text are using the Spanish loanword *caoba*.

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R: *Bajial*-ain.
flooding.plain-LOC
'In the flooding plain.'
"En el bajial".

S: Jain-ronki iki *shungo*-bo, moa *shungo*-a *caoba*.
there-HSY COP heart-PL already heart-PP2 mahogany:ABS
'He said that over there the mahogany trees already have a heart.[5]'
"Dice que ahí las caobas ya son shungos".

R: Ya.
'Yeah.'
"Ya".

S: Ja-tian-ka joni ka-ríba-yantan-ke,
that-TEMP-and person:ABS go-REP-PST3-CMPL
'I heard that the man (who got lost), has returned (to that place) again.'
"Dice que la persona (errada) se ha ido otra vez".

R: Ja moa piko-t-a pekáo.
that:ABS already take.out-MID-PP2 after
'After having come out (from that place).'
"Después que había salido".

S: Piko-t-a pekáo baasi ii-ti.
take.out-MID-PP2 after long.time do.I-INF
'Long after he came out.'
"De tiempo después de su salida".

R: Ya.
'Yeah.'
"Ya".

S: Ka-xon-ronki *la misma cosa* oin-a iki.
go-PSSA-HSY the same thing see-PP2 AUX
'And when he returned to that place, he saw the same thing.'
"Y cuando se ha ido ha visto la misma cosa".

---

[5] That is, the mahogany trees are large enough to have a "heart" or hard internal part that can be used as wood (Jacques Tournon, p.c. 2003). The term *shungo* employed in Peruvian Amazonian Spanish is a loanword from quechua *shunku* 'hear.'

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R: Ja-tian jaweno iki ja joni?
that-TEMP where COP that person:ABS
'And where is that man?'
"¿Y dónde está ese hombre?"

S: Jain r-iki.
there EV-COP
'He is there.'
"Ahí está".

R: Palestinain.
Palestina:LOC
'In Palestina.'
"En Palestina".

S: Jaa-kaya r-iki *"bala y motosierra* bi-kan-we, no-a ka-non"
3:ABS-CONTRST EV-do.I bullet and electric.saw get-PL-IMP 1-ABS go-P/J

ak-ai-betin no-a *pues*. Jain-ronki westíora wean shita-a iki
do.T-INC-in.fact 1-ABS *pues* there-HSY one stream:ABS cross-PP2 AUX

ja-n, westíora wean *por lo menos veinte cinco metro* naxbá.
3-ERG one stream at least twenty five meter wide
'He tells us "get bullets and an electric saw to go (extract wood)." He says that he crossed a twenty-five meter wide stream.'
"El nos dice "compren o consiguan cartucho y motosierra para irnos". Dice que él cruzó una quebrada de por lo menos veinticinco metros de ancho".

R: Ya.
'Yeah.'
"Ya".

S: Jain-ronki ik-á iki, *como* ipo keská, wame amakiri-a.
there-HSY do.I-PP2 AUX like *carachama*[6] SIML *paiche*[7] *gamitana*[8]-PROP
'There he saw, as if they were *carachamas* (i.e., in abundance), *paiche* and *gamitana* fish.'
"Ahí él ha visto, como si fueran carachama, al paiche con la gamitana".

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[6] *Pterygoplichtys multiradius, P. spp., Loricariidae, Siluriforme.* Tournon 1995, Appendix 1.

[7] *Arapaima gigas, Arapaimidae, Osteoglossomorpha.* Tournon 1995, Appendix 1.

[8] *Colossoma macropomum, Colossoma oculus, Characidae, Characiforme.* Tournon 1995, Appendix 1.

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R: Weaman.
stream:LOC
'In the stream.'
"En la quebrada".

S: Wean.
'Stream.'
"Quebrada".

R: Ian-ma.
lake-NEG
'It is not a lake.'
"No es cocha".

S: Ian wean-tani-shaman-kan.
lake stream-ATT-nicely-and
'A lake a little bit like a stream.'
"Como quebrada cocha".

R: Ian wean.
lake stream.
'A lake like a stream.'
"Quebrada cocha".

S: Jen jen, benó-xon-ronki joni-n mera-a iki,
yes yes get.lost-PSSA-HSY person-ERG find-PP2 AUX

ii-kin kanwan-tan-kin-ronki
do.I-SSSA go:PST1-go.do.and.return-SSSA-HSY

chaish ik-á iki mera-a iki westíora joni;
ONOM:step.on.leaves do.I-PP2 AUX find-PP2 AUX one person:ABS

jaweno-bira jawe-tio ochó-bira, westíora joni, kikin boo soi-shoko
where-INFR what-size far-INFR one person:ABS extremely hair nice-DIM

nato-n senen boo-ya, bakeranon joni, bakeranon, ani-osi,
this-OBL edge hair-PROP young.man person young.man big-DEPREC

chichika-ya, *puñal*-ya neon.
knife-PORP knife-PROP ?

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Ja joni-kan to'a-ti-ya,
that person:ABS-and ONOM:shoot do.T-INF-PROP

jawen to' a-ti pota-a-ma, ja-yá-bi.
POS3 ONOM:shoot do.T-INF:ABS throw-PP2-NEG 3-PROP-EM
'Yes, and when the man got lost, he saw (something); as he heard the noise of the dry leaves, he turned and saw a man. Who knows where that man had come from, who knows how far away, a man with fine, long hair, a very tall man with a knife on his waist. And the man who had gotten lost was still holding his shotgun; he had not dropped his shotgun.'
"Si, y cuando se erró ha visto el hombre, cuando escuchó una bulla de la hojarasca se volteó y encontró una persona, un hombre; en el lejano no se sabe dónde, tenía los pelos finos y largos, era un joven de gran estatura y con un puñal en la cintura. Y el hombre errado todavía estaba con su escopeta, no la había soltado".

R: To' a-ti-a-bi.
ONOM:shoot do.T-INF-PROP-EM
'Still holding his shotgun.'
"Todavía con su escopeta".

S: To' a-ti-a-bi.
ONOM:shoot do.T-INF-PROP-EM
'Still holding his shotgun,'
"Todavía con su escopeta".

R: Jawen shinan koshi-pari-bira.
POS3 mind:ABS strong-first-INFR
'He still kept his courage.'
"Todavía tenía su coraje".

S: Shinan koshi-pari; chaish ik-ai oin-a-ki
mind:ABS strong-first ONOM:step.on.leaves do.I-PP1:ABS see-PO>S/A-HSY2

"Jawe ak-í-ri mi-a" a-ronki-ai.
what:ABS do.T-SSSS-INT2 2-ABS do.T-HSY-INC
'He still kept his courage; and when the man stepping on the dry leaves was seen, he asked the lost man "What are you doing here?'
"Tenía coraje todavía; cuando lo ha visto al que pisó la hojarasca, éste le dijo ¿qué haces aquí?

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R: Ja joni-n.
that person-ERG
'The man.'
"El hombre".

S: Ja joni-n. "Neno benot-a r-iki mi-a, e-n-ra mi-a
that person-ERG here get.lost-PP2 EV-AUX 2-ABS 1-ERG-EV 2-ABS

oin oin-ai neno ka-wan ka-wan-ai" a-ronki-ai
see see-INC here go-PST1 go-PST1-INC do.T-HSY-INC

ja joni-n-ki yoi-kin.
that person-ERG-HSY2 say-SSSA
'The man. "You are lost here, I have been watching you walking and walking around", he said.'
'El hombre. "Aquí estás errado, yo te estoy viendo lo que andas aquí", le dijo el hombre.

R: Chuu!
'*Chuu*!'
"¡Chuu!"

S: "Raké-yama-we, e-n-ra mi-a jawe a-yama-[a]i,"
be.scared-NEG-IMP 1-ERG 2-ABS what:ABS do.T-NEG-INC

a-ronki-a iki ja-n.
do.T-HSY-PP2 AUX 3-ERG
'"Don't be scared, I won't harm you," he told him.'
"No tengas miedo, yo no te voy a hacer nada", le dijo

R: Jen.
'Yes.'
"Sí".

S: Ja-tian, "mi-n-ki Palestina onan-yama-a jaweraori?"
that-TEM 2-ERG-INT Palestina:ABS know-NEG-PP2 where:about

a-ronki-a iki ja joni-n ja benot-a-ton yoká-kin.
do.T-HSY-PP2 AUX that person-ERG that get.lost-PP2-ERG ask-SSSA
"Do you happen to know the way to Palestina?," the man asked, the lost man.'
"Tú no conoces por dónde es Palestina?", le preguntó el hombre, el que se había errado".

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R: Ya.
'Yeah.'
"Ya".

S: "E-n-ra onan-yama-ke, e-n-ra Palestina onan-yama-ke,"
1-ERG-EV know-NEG-CMPL 1-ERG-EV Palestina:ABS know-NEG-CMPL

a-ronki-a iki. Ja-ská a-ke-ki ja-tian "e-n-ra
do.T-HSY-PP2 AUX that-SIML do.T-PDS-HSY2 that-TEMP 1-ERG-EV

onan-yama-ke. Nokon papa kena-ba-tan-non,
know-NEG-CMPL POS1 father:ABS call-P/J-go.do.and.return-P/J

mi-a ja-n bo-non, neno-xon-bi e-a mana-we, taxke-yama-we;
2-ABS 3-ERG carry-FDS here-A-EM 1-ABS wait.for-IMP move-NEG-IMP

mi-a ja-n bo-non, ja-n-ra onan-ke," a-ronki-a iki.
2-ABS 3-ERG carry-FDS 3-ERG-EV know-CMPL do.T-HSY-PP2 AUX
'"I don't know Palestina, I don't know," he said. Then he said "I don't know (where it is). I am going to call my father, he will take you there, wait for me here, don't go away; he will take you there, he knows (Palestina)."
'"Yo no conozco Palestina, no conozco," le respondió el hombre. Luego dijo "yo no conozco. Voy a llamar a mi papá, para que él te lleve, espérame aquí nomás, no te muevas de aquí; él te va a llevar, él conoce"".

R: Ya.
'Yeah.'
"Ya".

S: Manan, ani manan bochiki.
mountain big mountain on.top.of
'On top of a big mountain.'
"En la cima de un gran cerro".

R: Ya.
'Yeah.'
"Ya".

S: Ja-ska a-ke-bi-ronki ja joni jo-yantan-ke
that-SIML do.T-DD-EM-HSY that person:ABS come-PST3-CMPL

ja ka-a pekáo; "e-a-ra rete-kana-ke, jawe *pishtako*-ra
3:ABS go-PP2 after 1-ABS-EV kill-PL:PREV-CMPL what *pishtako*:ABS-EV

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i-bira-i" ik-ax, meskó-bo shinan-ax.
be-INFR-SSSS do.I-PSSS all.kinds.of-PL:ABS think-PSSS
'But the man escaped as soon as he left; "Maybe they kill me, maybe he is a *pishtako* (fat extractor)," he thought all kinds of things.'
"Sin embargo el hombre no esperó, se escapó de ahí apenas el otro hombre se fue, pensando muchas cosas, "de repente me pueden matar o puede ser un pishtaco".

R: Rama-tani-bi-kaya.
now-ATT-EM-CONTRST
'Not so much time has passed since then.'
"No es mucho tiempo (de eso)".

S: Rama-tani-bi, nato jenetiá winó-ibat-a-ton.
now-ATT-EM this rainy.season:ABS pass:MID-PST2-PP2-OBL
'Not so much time has passed, it happened just the last rainy season.'
"No es mucho tiempo pues, el invierno pasado".

R: Choon, rama-bi-kaya.
INTERJ now-EM-CONTRST
'*Choon*, not so much time has passed.'
"Ah, no es mucho tiempo".

S: Jen jen, ja joni-n-ronki onan-ke ja *zona de caobal*,
yes yes that man-ERG-HSY know-CMPL that zone of mahogany.area

jen jen kikin-bires, jain nokó-kas-i r-iki no-a.
yes yes extremely-purely there meet:MID-DES-SSSS EV-COP 1p-ABS
'Yes, that man says he knows where the mahogany trees are, yes extemely well, we want to reach that place.'
"Sí, ese señor dice que conoce esa zona de caobal, sí bastante, ahí queremos llegar".

R: Rama-shoko kaman-bi-ki jaa-ka jain iki ja joni.
now-DIM LIM-EM-HSY2 3-and there COP that person:ABS
'Until right now that man is there.'
"Hasta ahorita está ahí el hombre".

S: Jain r-iki; ja-n-pacho-kaya chai yoi-ai-betin
there EV-COP 3-ERG-always-CONTRST brother.in.law:ABS tell-INC-in.fact

"*cartucho* bi-we, *cartucho* bi-we, nato jene be-ai
bullet get-IMP bullet get-IMP this flowing.water:ABS come.n.SG-INC

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jiki-kas-i r-iki no-a".
enter-DES-SSSS EV-COP 1p-ABS
'There he is; he always tells brother-in-law "get bullets, get bullets, we are planning to enter (the jungle) during this rainy season.'
"Ahí está; él siempre le dice al cuñado "consiga cartucho, consiga cartucho, en este invierno pensamos entrar (al monte)".

R: Jen, ja-tian jawenoa no-n *cartucho* bi-ti iki, oi?
yes that-DD where:ABL:O 1p-ERG bullet:ABS get-INF AUX see

Si rama wetsa jenetian ibat-a ik-ax
if now other rainy.season be:PST2-PP2 be-PSSS

kikin *fresco fresco* iki ja.
extremely fresh fresh COP 3:ABS
'Hmm, and where can we get the bullets from? If this has happened last year, then it is very very fresh.'
Ah, ¿y de dónde conseguimos cartucho? Si esto ha sido el año pasado, entonces es fresco fresco esto.

S: *Fresco* i-ke; ja-ská-ronki-ai ja,
fresh be-CMPL that-SIML-HSY-INC 3:ABS

"ja joni-n-ra onan-ke",
that person-ERG-EV know-CMPL

de veinte cinco a treinta-ronki iba-ke
from twenty five to thirty-HSY be:PST2-CMPL

por.lo.menos cuarenta arbol caoba.
at.least forty tree mahogany
'It is fresh; he says so "the man knows," there were some fifty mahogany trees from twenty-five to thirty (inches).'
"Fresco es, él dice así "el señor conoce", de veintecinco a treinta (pulgadas) había como cincuenta árboles de caoba".

R: Ja-n oin-a.
3-ERG see-PP2
'He has seen (it)'.
"El ha visto".

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S: Ja-n oin-a, jaa-ronki tso-n ikon a-yama-[a]i joni,
3-ERG see-PP2 3:ABS-HSY who-ERG true do.T-NEG-INC man:ABS

ja joni mera ik-ai-tian.
that man:ABS find? do.I-S-DS
'He has seen (it), but nobody believes him when he talks about it.'
"El ha visto, pero no le creen dice al hombre cuando cuenta".

R: Ya.
'Yeah.'
"Ya".

S: Ja-skat-axonki joni benot-ax pikó-yantan-ke.
that-SIML-PSSS:HSY person:ABS get.lost-PSSS take.out:MID-PST3-CMPL
'So it is said that the man got lost and then came out (from the jungle).'
"Así dice que el hombre se había errado y después salió (del monte)".

R: *Tres día*-ya-ni-x.
three day-PROP-LIG-S
'After three days.'
"A los tres días".

S: *Tres día*-ya-ni-x.
three day-PROP-LIG-S
'After three days.'
"A los tres días".

R: Onan-bira-ke ja joni-n ikon?
know-INFR-CMPL that person-ERG true
'And do you think that man would know (how to find the place again)?'
¿Y conocerá ese hombre (el camino para llegar a ese lugar)?

S: Joni-n-ronki onan-ke, jaa-ki ka-ríba-yantan-ke oin-i;
person-ERG-HSY know-CMPL 3:ABS-HSY2 go-REP-PST3-CMPL see-SSSS

ka-xon oin-a-ki jatíbi-ki oin-ribi-yantan-ke.
go-PSSA see-PP2-HSY2 all-HSY2 see-REP-PST3-CMPL

Jain-ronki iki ja *bajial*-kon manan konxan-kaya,
there-HSY COP that flooding.plain-true mountain cedar-CONTRST

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manan konxan.
mountain cedar
'It is said that the man knows, because he returned to that place to check again and he found everything. He says it is a flooding plain, where the mountain cedar abounds.'
"El hombre dice que conoce, porque se ha ido otra vez para reconocer; cuando regresó lo ha visto todo conforme. Dice que está en un bajial donde abunda el cedro de altura".

R: Jawe jane joni-ri?
what name man:ABS-INT2
'What is the man's name?'
"¿Cómo se llama el hombre?"

S: Jawe jane-ra i-bira-[a]i, chai-ra yoi-iba-ke;
what name:ABS-EV be-INFR-INC brother.in.law:ABS-EV tell-PST2-CMPL

rama-ra onan-noxon ja yoka-isi-nox iki, oin.
now-EV know-FSSA 3:ABS ask-DEPREC-FUT see
'What might his name be! he has told brother-in-law; now I will ask him in order to know, you see.'
"¡Cómo se llamará! Al cuñado le ha dicho; ahora voy a preguntarle a él para saber, fíjate".

R: *Pero* jainoa iki ja joni.
but there:LOC-ABL COP that person:ABS
'But the man is from there.'
"Pero el señor es de ahí".

S: Jainoa r-iki.
there:LOC-ABL EV-COP
'He is from there.'
"De ahí es".

R: Ja joni yoyo a-ti jakon r-iki-pan.
that man:ABS ONOM:speak do.T-INF:ABS good EV-COP-permission?
'It would be good to talk to that man.'
"Sería bueno conversar con el señor".

S: Jen jen.
'Yes
"Sí.

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R: Oin-i ka-noxon-pari.
See-SSSS go-FSSA-first
'To go see first.'
"Para ir a ver primero".

S: *Y* ikon r-iki ik-ai-betin papa, jass
and true EV-COP do.I-INC-in.fact father:ABS INTERJ

westíora ja-o-birain-ronki iki xono, oin-ta,
one that-LOC-INFR:LOC-HSY COP *lupuna*:ABS see-go.do.and.return

cuatrocientos trozo yoyó-kan-a-ronki iki jain,
four.hundred piece waste-PL-PP2-HSY COP there

más icha-ronki i-rabe-ke xono.
more much-HSY do.I-PST3.IMPERFECTIVE-CMPL *lupuna*:ABS
'Father says it is true, *jass* he says there is abundance of *lupuna* trees in one place, imagine, he says there there are some four hundred pieces of wood that have been wasted, there used to be more *lupuna* before, he says.'
"Papá dice que es verdad, *jass* en un lugar dice que hay bastante lupuna, imagínate, ahí dice que hay cuatrocientos trozos que han desperdiciado, antes había más lupuna dice".

R: Ya.
'Yeah.'
"Ya".

S: *Y* ja-ronki iki westíora, westíora mató pekáo;
and that:ABS-HSY COP one one hill behind

ja o-ke piko-kas-kin piko-yama-a,
that:ABS DIST-LOC take.out-DES-SSSA NEG-PP2

ne-ke piko-ti jakon i-ke-bi
PROX-LOC take.out-INF:ABS good be-PDS-EM

ja tae chini-ti tee i-ke-tian.
that small.waterway dig-INF:ABS work be-P-DS

Ja-tian no-n chini-kas-ai moa.
that-DD 1p-ERG dig-DES-INC already
'And that, it is said, is behind a hill; wanting to take out (the wood) using that way, they did not do it, even though it was good to take (it) across this way (they

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did not do it), because digging the small waterway was too much work. But we intend to dig it.'
"Y eso dice que está atrás de una loma; queriendo sacar por ahí (la madera) no la sacó, pudiendo sacar por aquí (no lo hicieron), porque no querían cavar el caño. Pero nosotros queremos cavar".

R: Ja tae.
that small.waterway
'That small waterway.'
"Ese caño".

S: Ja tae; *o sea basta* ma jaweti jiwi jo-á ma.
that small.waterway that.is suffices already a.few tree go-PP2 already
'That stream; that is, it suffices when a few trees come out (floating), that's it.'
"Ese caño, o sea basta cuando pasa unos cuantos trozos, ya".

R: Entonces, jain joni jiki-ama-[a]i,
then there person:ABS enter-NEG-INC

jaa a-ti-koma i-ke-tian.
that:ABS do.T-INF-true:NEG be-P-DS
'Then people do not enter there because it is difficult (to take out the wood).'
"Entonces ahí no entra la gente, porque es difícil (sacar la madera)".

S: Jaa-kopi-kaya-ronki iki ja jiwi jain.
that-reason-CONTRST-HSY COP that wood:ABS there
'That is why the wood is still there.'
"Es por eso que todavía está ahí la madera".

R: Ikax ma mato-n ak-á pekáo wei-kan-a,
but already 2p-ERG do.T-PP2 after enter-PL-PP2

jawe-ma-bi iki moa.
what:ABS-NEG-EM COP already
'But if (others) enter the area after you have done it, it doesn't matter.'
"Pero si (otros) entran después que ustedes sacan no pasa nada".

S: Wei-kan-a ma jawe-ma-bi iki;
enter-PL-PP2 already what:ABS-NEG-EM COP

kawapori nato-tio nemin-ma-shoko-bi, wetsa-n tiin ak-á
kawapori this-size deep-NEG-DIM-EM other-ERG ONOM:hit.wood do.T-PP2

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jo-ai *basta* jaweti jiwi jiki-ke-tian jaas,
come-INC suffices how.much wood enter-P-DS INTERJ

por mas ja raston-shaman-bo jo-ai, jeen.
no.matter.how.much that thick-INTENS-PL come-INC INTERJ
'It doesn't matter if they enter (the area afterwards); the *cahuapori* trees pass floating on the surface, it only suffices that they get hit by another tree from behind and it is already coming out, no matter how thick they are.'
"No importa que entren (después); el cahuapuri pasa encima nomás, basta que golpee otro trozo atrás ya está yendo, por más que sea grueso".

R: Chon, ja-ska-ra-ri, ikon?
INTERJ that-SIML-*ra*-INT2 right
'*Chon*, this is how it is, right?'
"Oi, ¿así es no? ".

S: Tashi a-ti-ronki iki, ja-ska-xon a-kan-a-ronki iki
salt do.T-INF-HSY AUX that-SIML-A do.T-PL-PP2-HSY AUX

nato Tachexetia.
this Tashitea
'(I heard) one has to put salt in the river; this is what people have done in Tashitea.'
"Dice que hay que echar sal en la quebrada, así lo han hecho en Taeshitea".

R: Nemin-ma-kin.
deep-CAUS-SSSA
'To make it deep.'
"Para que sea profundo".

S: Nemin-ma-kin.
deep-CAUS-SSSA
'To make it deep.'
"Para que sea profundo".

R: Nemin-ma-kin tashi ne-pó-ti iki,
deep-CAUS-SSSA salt:ABS FLOWING.WATER-put.inside-INF AUX

Pananya ja-ská a-kan-a, oin.
Panaillo:ABS that-SIML do.T-PL-PP2 see
'To make it deep one has to put salt in the water, like the people in Panaillo have done, you see.'
"Para que sea profundo hay que echar sal, los de Panaillo lo han hecho así, fíjate".

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S: *Aistá*, kikin-i-ronki nemin-ai tashi.
there.it.is extremely-S-HSY deepen-INC salt:ABS
'There it is, it is said that the salt works deeping it very well.'
"Ahí está, dice que la sal lo profundiza bien".

R: Pananya iki tashi ne-pó-kan-a, oin.
Panaillo COP salt:ABS FLOWING.WATER-put.inside-PL-PP2 see
'In Panaillo they have put salt in the stream, you see.'
"En Panaillo han echado sal, fíjate".

S: Tashi ne-pó-kin *kanjon*-i jaas,
salt:ABS FLOWING.WATER-put.inside-SSSA box-SSSS INTERJ

kikin-i *kanjon*-i ma nemin.
extremely-S box-SSSS already deep
'When one puts salt in the water, the stream becomes like a box and deepens.'
"Cuando echan sal se pone en forma de cajón la quebrada y se profundiza bien".

R: Oin rama Pananya tsosin-yama-[a]i, ja-ska a-kan-a.
see now Panaillo:ABS lower.the.water-NEG-INC that-SIML do.T-PL-PP2
'Look, now the water does not lower completely in Panaillo, because the people from there have done this.'
"Mira ahora Panaillo ya no se seca porque han hecho así".

S: Tashi-ronki iki kikin chini-ronki-ai ja-n.
salt:ABS-HSY COP extremely dig-HSY-PP1 3-ERG
'It is said that the salt digs the soil very well.'
"Dice que la sal cava el suelo muy bien".

R: *Entonce* rama a-ti iki *pues*.
then now do.T-INF AUX *pues*
'Then we have to apply salt now.'
"Entonces hay que echar ahora".

S: Rama a-ti iki ja a-kas-i r-iki no-a.
now do.T-INF AUX that:ABS do.T-DES-SSSS EV-COP 1p-ABS
'We have to do it, now we want to apply (the salt).'
"Hay que hacer, ahora queremos echar (la sal)".

R: *Después*-kaya moa ii-kain-ai.
afterwards-CONTRST already do.I-AND1-INC
'So that it begins to deepen.'
"Para que vaya profundizando".

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S: Moa ii-kain-ai.
already do.I-AND1-INC
'So that it begins to deepen.'
"Para que se vaya profundizando".

R: *Un año* moa jass nemin-i ka-[a]i.
one year already INTERJ become.deep-SSSS go-INC
'In one year, *jass*, it will be very deep.'
"En un año, *jass*, ya está bien profundo.

S: *Pucha*, jaa r-iki, jaa-kopi-ra ja joni ja-skát-ai
INTERJ that:ABS EV-COP that-reason-EV that person:ABS that-SIML-INC

neno jiwi, neno-a joni-baon binon-shoko-res a-kan-ai,
here wood here:ABL person-PL:ERG *aguaje*:ABS-DIM-just do.T-PL-INC

ja-n-shoko-res koríki bi-kan-ai.
that-MNS-DIM-just money:ABS get-PL-INC
'*Pucha*, so it is, this is why that man always says that having wood the people from here only extract *aguaje*, just from that they live.'
"Pucha, así es, por eso ese amigo siempre dice habiendo madera la gente de aquí no lo trabaja, sólo sacan aguaje y con aguaje nomás reciben su plata".

R: Wetsa *secreto*-ribi Robikan yoi-yantan-a.
other secret:ABS-also Roberto:ERG tell-PST3-PP2
'Another secret that Roberto told (me).'
"Otro secreto que me contó Roberto".

S: Jen jen.
'Yes.'
"Sí".

R: Jawetsi iantan-a Elva, nexnex, nexnex rete-anan miin-ti,
what do.I:PST3-PP2 Elva:ABS shansho:ABS shansho:ABS kill-PSS bury-INF

no sé jawe-keska-ra i-bira-[a]i.
not know.1 what-SIML-EV be-INFR-INC
'And how is it (i.e., that other secret) what Elva has said, about the shansho (bird), that one has to kill the shansho and bury it? I don't know well how it is.'
"¿Cómo era eso que dijo Elva, del shansho, que matando shansho hay que enterrarlo? No sé muy bien".

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S: Jen jen.
'Yes.'
"Sí".

R: Nexnex rete-anan-ronki miin-ti iki.
shansho:ABS kill-PSS-HSY bury-INF AUX
'That one has to kill a shansho and bury it.'
"Matando al shansho dice que hay que enterrar".

S: Ya.
'Yeah.'
"Ya".

R: Ja a-kas-i iantan-kan-ke-betin Pananyain.
that:ABS do.T-DES-SSSS do.I:PST3-PL-CMPL-in.fact Panaillo:LOC
'In fact, that is what they were planning to do in Panaillo.'
"Sí eso es lo que estaban queriendo hacer en Panaillo".

S: *Yy*.
'And.'
"Y".

R: Ja nexnex rete-anan, mi-n miin-ai.
that shansho kill-PSS 2-ERG bury-INC
'You kill the shansho and bury it.'
"Matas el shansho y lo entierras".

S: Jen jen.
'Yes.'
"Sí".

R: Jain-ronki jattibi ja jain ja-pao-ni joni-bo
there-HSY all that there exist-HAB-REM:NMLZ person-PL:ABS

jakiribi tsinki-t-ai.
again get-together-MID-INC
'Then, all those who used to live there long time ago (and had left the village) come back to settle again.'
"Entonces cuando hacen esto, toda la gente que salieron de ahí vuelven a vivir otra vez".

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S: Jeem.
'Oh.'
"Ah".

R: Jatíbi jawenoa-x-ki be-kan-ai, tsinki-kan-ai,
all where:ABL-S-HSY2 go.n.SG-PL-INC get.together-PL-INC

y ani jema pikó-ribi-i ka-[a]i;
and big village:ABS take.out:MID-REP-SSSS go-INC

ja-ska a-kas-i i-kan-ai Pananyain rama.
that-SIML do.T-DES-SSSS do.I-PL-INC Panaillo:LOC now
'They come from all over, they get together and a big village is formed again; this is what they want to do in Panaillo now.'
"Vienen de todas partes donde están, se juntan todos y se hace una comunidad grande otra vez. Así quieren hacer ahora en Panaillo".

S: *Chuu*, no-a-ra nini-ribi-kana-ke.
INTERJ 1p-ABS-EV pull-REP-PL:PREV-CMPL
'*Chuu*, be careful they could attract us back too.'
"*Chuucha*, de repente nos van a jalar ah".

R: No-a-ra nini-kan-ti jisá iki cho nexnex a-xon.
1p-ABS-EV pull-PL-INF like COP INTERJ shansho:ABS do.T-PSSA
'I think they could attract us back *cho*, killing the shansho (bird).'
"Creo que nos pueden jalar *cho*, haciendo el shansho".

S: Jajaja, Elva-kaya *diacuerdo*-ma-bires.
(laughing) Elva-CONTRST in.agreement.LOAN-NEG-purely
'Hahaha, Elva is opposed to it.'
"Jajaja, Elva no está de acuerdo".

R: Nexnex rete-xon miin-kin.
shansho:ABS kill-PSSA bury-SSSA
'Killing a shansho (bird) and burying it.'
"Enterrar al shansho matando".

S: Chon ja-ska a-ti-mein iki.
INTERJ that-SIML do.T-INF-SPECL COP
'Oh, so this is how one does it?
"¿Oi, así se hace no?"

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R: Ja-tian, jatíbi jain ja-pao-ni ma taxke-t-a
that-TEMP all there exist-HAB-REM.NMLZ:ABS already leave-MID-PP2

taxké-ni-bo, moa-tian
leave:MID-REM.NMLZ:PL:ABS already-TEMP

i-ni-bo-bi be-ai, ja-i.
do.I-REM.NMLZ-PL:ABS-EM come.n.sg-INC exist-SSSS
'Then, all those who used to live here before or those who had already left the village, come back to stay.'
"Entonces los antiguos vivientes o los que ya habían salido anteriormente vienen a vivir".

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